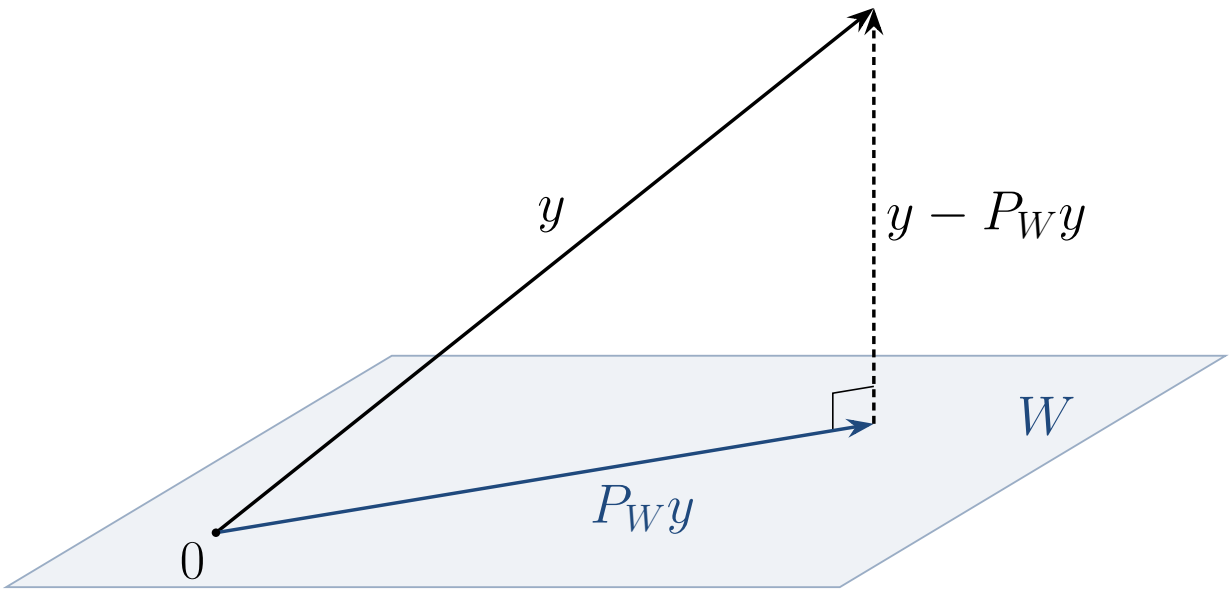
Linear Algebra

And Its Statistical Applications



Chapter 1. Matrices

Matrices and products

Definition 1.1. Let m, n be positive integers. An $m \times n$ **matrix** $A = (a_{ij})$ is a rectangular array of real numbers, its **entries**; a_{ij} stands in row i and column j ($1 \leqslant i \leqslant m$, $1 \leqslant j \leqslant n$). The set of all $m \times n$ matrices is $\mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

- $A = B$ means that A and B have the same size and $a_{ij} = b_{ij}$ for all i, j.
- $\mathbb{R}^n = \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$ is the set of **column vectors** $x = (x_i)$, and $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ the set of **row vectors**. A 1×1 matrix is identified with its entry.
- $\mathrm{col}_j(A) \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is the jth column and $\mathrm{row}_i(A) = (a_{i1}, \ldots, a_{in}) \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ the ith row of A. We write $a_j = \mathrm{col}_j(A)$, so $A = [a_1 \ \cdots \ a_n]$.
- Sums and scalar multiples are taken entrywise: $(A + B)_{ij} = a_{ij} + b_{ij}$, $(cA)_{ij} = ca_{ij}$ ($c \in \mathbb{R}$); $-A = (-1)A$ and $A - B = A + (-B)$. They obey the laws of numbers, such as $A + B = B + A$ and $c(A + B) = cA + cB$, because these hold entry by entry.
- The **zero matrix** 0 has all entries 0. The **identity matrix** is $I_n = (\delta_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, where $\delta_{ij} = 1$ if $i = j$ and $\delta_{ij} = 0$ if $i \neq j$; its columns $e_1, \ldots, e_n$ are the **unit vectors** of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

In statistics, measurements of k variables on n units are stored in an $n \times k$ **data matrix** (x_{ij}): row i holds the measurements on unit i, column j holds the n values of variable j, and x_{ij} is the value of variable j on unit i.

Definition 1.2. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$. The **product** $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$ is defined by

$$(AB)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = a_{i1}b_{1j} + a_{i2}b_{2j} + \cdots + a_{in}b_{nj} \qquad (1 \leqslant i \leqslant m,\ 1 \leqslant j \leqslant p)$$

It is defined only when A has as many columns as B has rows.

Theorem 1.3. Whenever the sizes allow the operations,

$$A(BC) = (AB)C, \quad A(B + C) = AB + AC, \quad (A + B)C = AC + BC, \quad A(cB) = c(AB) = (cA)B$$

$$I_mA = A = AI_n, \qquad 0A = 0, \qquad A0 = 0 \qquad (A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n})$$

Proof. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. In each rule both sides have the same size, so by Definition 1.1 it suffices to show that they have the same (i, j) entry. Every entry below is computed from Definition 1.2 and from the entrywise definition of sums and scalar multiples.

- $A(BC) = (AB)C$ for $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$. Since $(BC)_{rj} = \sum_{s=1}^{p} b_{rs}c_{sj}$,

$$[A(BC)]_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}(BC)_{rj} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}\Big(\sum_{s=1}^{p} b_{rs}c_{sj}\Big) = \sum_{r=1}^{n}\sum_{s=1}^{p} a_{ir}b_{rs}c_{sj}$$

  Since $(AB)_{is} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rs}$,

$$[(AB)C]_{ij} = \sum_{s=1}^{p}(AB)_{is}c_{sj} = \sum_{s=1}^{p}\Big(\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rs}\Big)c_{sj} = \sum_{s=1}^{p}\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rs}c_{sj}$$

  Both double sums add the same np numbers $a_{ir}b_{rs}c_{sj}$ ($1 \leqslant r \leqslant n$, $1 \leqslant s \leqslant p$), only in a different order, so they are equal.

- $A(B+C) = AB + AC$ for $B, C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$:

$$[A(B+C)]_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}(b_{rj} + c_{rj}) = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} + \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}c_{rj} = (AB)_{ij} + (AC)_{ij} = (AB + AC)_{ij}$$

- $(A+B)C = AC + BC$ for $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$:

$$[(A+B)C]_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} (a_{ir} + b_{ir})c_{rj} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}c_{rj} + \sum_{r=1}^{n} b_{ir}c_{rj} = (AC + BC)_{ij}$$

- $A(cB) = c(AB) = (cA)B$ for $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $c \in \mathbb{R}$:

$$[A(cB)]_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}(cb_{rj}) = c\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = [c(AB)]_{ij}$$
$$[(cA)B]_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} (ca_{ir})b_{rj} = c\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = [c(AB)]_{ij}$$

- $I_m A = A = AI_n$. In $(I_m A)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{m} \delta_{ir}a_{rj}$ every term with $r \neq i$ is 0, because $\delta_{ir} = 0$, and the term with $r = i$ is $1 \cdot a_{ij}$; so $(I_m A)_{ij} = a_{ij}$. In the same way $(AI_n)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}\delta_{rj} = a_{ij}$.
- $0A = 0$ and $A0 = 0$: every term of $(0A)_{ij} = \sum_r 0 \cdot a_{rj}$ and of $(A0)_{ij} = \sum_r a_{ir} \cdot 0$ is 0. □

By the first rule, a product of several matrices needs no parentheses. A 1×1 factor in a product acts as a number: for $M \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times 1}$, $N \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times p}$ and a 1×1 matrix c, identified with its entry (Definition 1.1), Definition 1.2 gives $(Mc)_{i1} = m_{i1}c$ and $(cN)_{1j} = cn_{1j}$, so the products Mc and cN are the scalar multiples cM and cN, and hence $McN = M(cN) = c(MN)$ by the rules above. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ we put $A^0 = I_n$ and $A^{k+1} = A^k A$ $(k \geqslant 0)$.

Theorem 1.4. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ have columns $a_1, \ldots, a_n$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ columns $b_1, \ldots, b_p$.

(a) $AB = [Ab_1 \ \cdots \ Ab_p]$, that is, $\operatorname{col}_j(AB) = Ab_j$.

(b) For $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $Ax = x_1a_1 + x_2a_2 + \cdots + x_na_n$. In particular $Ae_j = a_j$.

(c) $\operatorname{row}_i(AB) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)B = a_{i1}\operatorname{row}_1(B) + \cdots + a_{in}\operatorname{row}_n(B)$.

(d) $(AB)_{ij} = \operatorname{row}_i(A)\, b_j$, and $AB = a_1\operatorname{row}_1(B) + \cdots + a_n\operatorname{row}_n(B)$, a sum of n products of a column and a row (the **outer product expansion**).

Proof. Write $B = (b_{rj})$. The column a_r of A has entries $a_{1r}, \ldots, a_{mr}$, the column b_j of B has entries $b_{1j}, \ldots, b_{nj}$, and $\operatorname{row}_r(B) = (b_{r1}, \ldots, b_{rp})$. By Definition 1.2,

$$(AB)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = a_{i1}b_{1j} + a_{i2}b_{2j} + \cdots + a_{in}b_{nj}$$

Each part compares entries with this sum (Definition 1.1).

- (a) Fix j. The product Ab_j of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $b_j \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$ lies in $\mathbb{R}^m$, and by Definition 1.2 its ith entry is

$$(Ab_j)_i = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}(b_j)_r = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = (AB)_{ij} \qquad (1 \leqslant i \leqslant m)$$

  So the vector Ab_j and $\operatorname{col}_j(AB)$, whose entries are $(AB)_{1j}, \ldots, (AB)_{mj}$, have the same entries:

$$\operatorname{col}_j(AB) = \begin{pmatrix} a_{11}b_{1j} + \cdots + a_{1n}b_{nj} \\ \vdots \\ a_{m1}b_{1j} + \cdots + a_{mn}b_{nj} \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} a_{11} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\ \vdots & & \vdots \\ a_{m1} & \cdots & a_{mn} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} b_{1j} \\ \vdots \\ b_{nj} \end{pmatrix} = Ab_j$$

- (b) By Definition 1.2 (with $p = 1$), the ith entry of Ax is $a_{i1}x_1 + \cdots + a_{in}x_n$. By the entrywise definition of scalar multiples and sums (Definition 1.1), the ith entry of $x_1a_1 + \cdots + x_na_n$ is $x_1a_{i1} + \cdots + x_na_{in}$, the same number. Hence

$$Ax = \begin{pmatrix} a_{11}x_1 + \cdots + a_{1n}x_n \\ \vdots \\ a_{m1}x_1 + \cdots + a_{mn}x_n \end{pmatrix} = x_1 \begin{pmatrix} a_{11} \\ \vdots \\ a_{m1} \end{pmatrix} + \cdots + x_n \begin{pmatrix} a_{1n} \\ \vdots \\ a_{mn} \end{pmatrix} = x_1a_1 + \cdots + x_na_n$$

  For $x = e_j$ we have $x_j = 1$ and $x_r = 0$ for $r \neq j$, so $Ae_j = 1 \cdot a_j = a_j$.

- (c) Fix i. The product of $\operatorname{row}_i(A) = (a_{i1}, \ldots, a_{in}) \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ lies in $\mathbb{R}^{1\times p}$, and by Definition 1.2 its jth entry is $\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = (AB)_{ij}$, the jth entry of $\operatorname{row}_i(AB)$. So $\operatorname{row}_i(AB) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)B$. The jth entry of the row vector $a_{i1}\operatorname{row}_1(B) + \cdots + a_{in}\operatorname{row}_n(B)$ is $a_{i1}b_{1j} + \cdots + a_{in}b_{nj}$, the same sum. Hence

$$\operatorname{row}_i(AB) = \Big(\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{r1},\ \ldots,\ \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rp} \Big) = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}\,(b_{r1}, \ldots, b_{rp}) = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}\operatorname{row}_r(B)$$

- (d) The product of $\operatorname{row}_i(A) \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ and $b_j \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$ is the 1×1 matrix with entry $\sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}b_{rj} = (AB)_{ij}$. Next fix r. The product of $a_r \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times 1}$ and $\operatorname{row}_r(B) \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times p}$ is the $m \times p$ matrix whose (i, j) entry is the one-term sum $a_{ir}b_{rj}$ (Definition 1.2 with inner size 1):

$$a_r \operatorname{row}_r(B) = \begin{pmatrix} a_{1r} \\ \vdots \\ a_{mr} \end{pmatrix} (b_{r1},\ \ldots,\ b_{rp}) = \begin{pmatrix} a_{1r}b_{r1} & \cdots & a_{1r}b_{rp} \\ \vdots & & \vdots \\ a_{mr}b_{r1} & \cdots & a_{mr}b_{rp} \end{pmatrix}$$

  Adding these n matrices entry by entry, the (i, j) entry of $a_1\operatorname{row}_1(B) + \cdots + a_n\operatorname{row}_n(B)$ is $a_{i1}b_{1j} + \cdots + a_{in}b_{nj} = (AB)_{ij}$. □

Example 1.5. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 4}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 2}$$

By Definition 1.2, each entry of $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$ is a sum of four products:

$$\begin{aligned} (AB)_{11} &= 1\cdot 1 + 2\cdot 0 + 0\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 2 = 3, & (AB)_{12} &= 1\cdot 0 + 2\cdot 1 + 0\cdot 1 + 1\cdot(-1) = 1 \\ (AB)_{21} &= 0\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 0 + 3\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 2 = 5, & (AB)_{22} &= 0\cdot 0 + 1\cdot 1 + 3\cdot 1 + 1\cdot(-1) = 3 \\ (AB)_{31} &= 2\cdot 1 + 0\cdot 0 + 1\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 2 = 5, & (AB)_{32} &= 2\cdot 0 + 0\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 1 + 1\cdot(-1) = 0 \end{aligned}$$

so

$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 5 & 3 \\ 5 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The three views of Theorem 1.4 produce the same matrix.

- Columns, by (a) and (b): column j of AB is the combination of the four columns of A with coefficients from column j of B,

$$Ab_1 = 1\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + 0\begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + 1\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} + 2\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 5 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$Ab_2 = 0\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + 1\begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + 1\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} - 1\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Rows, by (c): row i of AB is the combination of the four rows of B with coefficients from row i of A,

$$\begin{aligned}\text{row}_1(AB) &= 1\,(1,0) + 2\,(0,1) + 0\,(1,1) + 1\,(2,-1) = (3,\ 1)\\ \text{row}_2(AB) &= 0\,(1,0) + 1\,(0,1) + 3\,(1,1) + 1\,(2,-1) = (5,\ 3)\\ \text{row}_3(AB) &= 2\,(1,0) + 0\,(0,1) + 1\,(1,1) + 1\,(2,-1) = (5,\ 0)\end{aligned}$$

- Outer products, by (d): AB is the sum of four 3×2 matrices $a_r\,\text{row}_r(B)$,

$$\begin{aligned}AB &= \begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\2\end{pmatrix}(1,\ 0) + \begin{pmatrix}2\\1\\0\end{pmatrix}(0,\ 1) + \begin{pmatrix}0\\3\\1\end{pmatrix}(1,\ 1) + \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}(2,\ -1)\\ &= \begin{pmatrix}1&0\\0&0\\2&0\end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix}0&2\\0&1\\0&0\end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix}0&0\\3&3\\1&1\end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix}2&-1\\2&-1\\2&-1\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}3&1\\5&3\\5&0\end{pmatrix}\end{aligned}$$

Example 1.6. (a) By Definition 1.2,

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\-3&1&0&0\\2&0&1&0\\-1&0&0&1\end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&1\\3&4&8&5\\-2&3&-1&0\\1&1&3&3\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&1\\0&7&2&2\\0&1&3&2\\0&2&1&2\end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 1.4(c), its second row is $-3\,(1,-1,2,1) + 1\,(3,4,8,5) = (0,7,2,2)$, its third row is $2\,(1,-1,2,1) + 1\,(-2,3,-1,0) = (0,1,3,2)$, and its fourth row is $-1\,(1,-1,2,1) + 1\,(1,1,3,3) = (0,2,1,2)$.

(b) By Theorem 1.4(b),

$$\begin{pmatrix}2&1&0\\5&4&1\\1&3&2\\0&1&3\end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}2\\-1\\1\end{pmatrix} = 2\begin{pmatrix}2\\5\\1\\0\end{pmatrix} - 1\begin{pmatrix}1\\4\\3\\1\end{pmatrix} + 1\begin{pmatrix}0\\1\\2\\3\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}3\\7\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}$$

(c) For $N = \begin{pmatrix}0&1&0\\0&0&0\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$ and $M = \begin{pmatrix}1&-5&2\\2&3&4\\9&-1&3\end{pmatrix}$,

$$NM = \begin{pmatrix}2&3&4\\0&0&0\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix}, \qquad MN = \begin{pmatrix}0&1&0\\0&2&0\\0&9&0\end{pmatrix}$$

Row 1 of NM is row 2 of M, and column 2 of MN is column 1 of M. So $NM \neq MN$, although both are 3×3.

Remark 1.7. Matrix products differ from products of numbers. In general $AB \neq BA$ (Example 1.6(c)); square matrices with $AB = BA$ are said to **commute**. A product can be 0 although no factor is 0: for

$$X = \begin{pmatrix}1&1&3\\2&2&6\\-1&-1&-3\end{pmatrix}, \qquad X^2 = 0$$

To see this, let $u = \text{col}_1(X)$, the column with entries $u_1 = 1$, $u_2 = 2$, $u_3 = -1$, and let $w_1 = 1$, $w_2 = 1$, $w_3 = 3$ be the entries of $\text{row}_1(X) = (1,1,3)$. Rows $1, 2, 3$ of X are $1, 2, -1$ times $\text{row}_1(X)$,

that is, $\mathrm{row}_i(X) = u_i\,\mathrm{row}_1(X)$; columns $1,2,3$ of X are $1,1,3$ times u, that is, $\mathrm{col}_j(X) = w_j u$. By Theorem 1.4(d) and the rule $A(cB) = c(AB) = (cA)B$ of Theorem 1.3,

$$(X^2)_{ij} = \mathrm{row}_i(X)\,\mathrm{col}_j(X) = \Big(u_i\,\mathrm{row}_1(X)\Big)(w_j u) = u_i w_j\,\Big(\mathrm{row}_1(X)\,u\Big)$$
$$\mathrm{row}_1(X)\,u = 1\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 2 + 3\cdot(-1) = 0$$

so every entry of X^2 is 0. Hence $AB = 0$ does not force $A = 0$ or $B = 0$ (take $A = B = X$), and $AB = AC$ does not force $B = C$ (take $A = B = X$ and $C = 0$).

Transpose and trace

Definition 1.8. The **transpose** of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ is $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ with $(A')_{ij} = a_{ji}$: the rows of A' are the transposed columns of A. We write column vectors as $x = (x_1,\dots,x_n)'$. A square A is **symmetric** if $A' = A$.

Theorem 1.9. For matrices of sizes for which the operations are defined and $c \in \mathbb{R}$,

$$(A')' = A, \quad (A+B)' = A' + B', \quad (cA)' = cA', \quad (AB)' = B'A', \quad (ABC)' = C'B'A'$$

For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $x'y = y'x = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i y_i$; in particular $x'x = \sum_i x_i^2$. The identity matrix is symmetric, $I_n' = I_n$, and for every $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $B'B$ and BB' are symmetric.

Proof. In each identity both sides have the same size; we compare their entries, using $(A')_{ij} = a_{ji}$ (Definition 1.8).

- For $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$, Definitions 1.8 and 1.1 give

$$((A')')_{ij} = (A')_{ji} = a_{ij}, \qquad ((cA)')_{ij} = (cA)_{ji} = ca_{ji} = (cA')_{ij}$$
$$((A+B)')_{ij} = (A+B)_{ji} = a_{ji} + b_{ji} = (A' + B')_{ij}$$

- Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$. Then $(AB)'$ and $B'A'$ are both $p \times m$. For $1 \leqslant k \leqslant p$ and $1 \leqslant i \leqslant m$, Definition 1.2 gives

$$(B'A')_{ki} = \sum_{j=1}^n (B')_{kj}(A')_{ji} = \sum_{j=1}^n b_{jk}a_{ij} = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}b_{jk} = (AB)_{ik} = ((AB)')_{ki}$$

- For a third matrix C with ABC defined, the previous bullet applied first to the pair AB, C and then to the pair A, B gives

$$(ABC)' = ((AB)C)' = C'(AB)' = C'B'A'$$

- For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n = \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$, $x' \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ has entries $(x')_{1i} = x_i$, so $x'y$ is 1×1 with entry $\sum_{i=1}^n x_i y_i$. In the same way $y'x = \sum_{i=1}^n y_i x_i$, the same number since $y_i x_i = x_i y_i$. With $y = x$, $x'x = \sum_i x_i^2$.
- $(I_n')_{ij} = \delta_{ji} = \delta_{ij}$ for all i, j (Definition 1.1), so $I_n' = I_n$.
- For $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, the product rule and $(B')' = B$ give $(B'B)' = B'(B')' = B'B$ and $(BB')' = (B')'B' = BB'$. □

Definition 1.10. The **trace** of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is $\mathrm{tr}(A) = a_{11} + a_{22} + \cdots + a_{nn}$.

Theorem 1.11. (a) $\mathrm{tr}(A+B) = \mathrm{tr}(A) + \mathrm{tr}(B)$, $\mathrm{tr}(cA) = c\,\mathrm{tr}(A)$ and $\mathrm{tr}(A') = \mathrm{tr}(A)$ for $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(b) $\mathrm{tr}(AB) = \mathrm{tr}(BA)$ for $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$.

(c) $\mathrm{tr}(ABC) = \mathrm{tr}(CAB) = \mathrm{tr}(BCA)$ for $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times m}$.

(d) $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = \sum_{i=1}^{m}\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}^2$ for $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$; hence $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = 0$ only if $A = 0$.

Proof. • (a) The ith diagonal entries of $A + B$, cA and A' are $a_{ii} + b_{ii}$, ca_{ii} and $(A')_{ii} = a_{ii}$ (Definitions 1.1 and 1.8). Hence, by Definition 1.10,

$$\operatorname{tr}(A+B) = \sum_{i=1}^{n}(a_{ii}+b_{ii}) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} a_{ii} + \sum_{i=1}^{n} b_{ii}, \qquad \operatorname{tr}(cA) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} ca_{ii} = c\sum_{i=1}^{n} a_{ii}, \qquad \operatorname{tr}(A') = \sum_{i=1}^{n} a_{ii}$$

- (b) Both $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ and $BA \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ are square. By Definitions 1.10 and 1.2,

$$\operatorname{tr}(AB) = \sum_{i=1}^{m}(AB)_{ii} = \sum_{i=1}^{m}\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}b_{ji}, \qquad \operatorname{tr}(BA) = \sum_{j=1}^{n}(BA)_{jj} = \sum_{j=1}^{n}\sum_{i=1}^{m} b_{ji}a_{ij}$$

  Both double sums add the same mn numbers $a_{ij}b_{ji}$ ($1 \leqslant i \leqslant m$, $1 \leqslant j \leqslant n$), so they are equal.

- (c) Since $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times m}$, (b) applied to the pair AB, C gives $\operatorname{tr}((AB)C) = \operatorname{tr}(C(AB))$, that is, $\operatorname{tr}(ABC) = \operatorname{tr}(CAB)$. Since $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $BC \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$, (b) applied to the pair A, BC gives $\operatorname{tr}(A(BC)) = \operatorname{tr}((BC)A)$, that is, $\operatorname{tr}(ABC) = \operatorname{tr}(BCA)$. Parentheses are dropped by Theorem 1.3.

- (d) The matrix $A'A$ is $n \times n$, and its jth diagonal entry is $(A'A)_{jj} = \sum_{i=1}^{m}(A')_{ji}a_{ij} = \sum_{i=1}^{m} a_{ij}^2$. Summing over $j = 1, \ldots, n$ gives $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = \sum_{i=1}^{m}\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}^2$. Every term a_{ij}^2 is $\geqslant 0$. If some $a_{kl} \neq 0$, then $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) \geqslant a_{kl}^2 > 0$. So $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = 0$ forces every $a_{ij} = 0$, that is, $A = 0$. □

Special matrices; means and sums of squares

Definition 1.12. For $d_1, \ldots, d_n \in \mathbb{R}$, $\operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ is the $n \times n$ matrix with diagonal entries $d_1, \ldots, d_n$ and all other entries 0; a matrix of this form is **diagonal**. A square matrix A is **upper triangular** if $a_{ij} = 0$ for $i > j$, and **lower triangular** if $a_{ij} = 0$ for $i < j$.

Proposition 1.13. Let $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ and $F = \operatorname{diag}(f_1, \ldots, f_n)$.

(a) Left multiplication by a diagonal matrix scales the rows, right multiplication scales the columns: for a matrix A with n rows, $(DA)_{ij} = d_i a_{ij}$ and $\operatorname{row}_i(DA) = d_i \operatorname{row}_i(A)$; for a matrix A with n columns, $(AD)_{ij} = a_{ij}d_j$ and $\operatorname{col}_j(AD) = d_j \operatorname{col}_j(A)$.

(b) $\operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)\operatorname{diag}(f_1, \ldots, f_n) = \operatorname{diag}(d_1f_1, \ldots, d_nf_n)$.

(c) If $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ are upper (lower) triangular, then AB is upper (lower) triangular, with diagonal entries $a_{11}b_{11}, \ldots, a_{nn}b_{nn}$.

Proof. (a) The (i, r) entry of D is d_i if $r = i$ and 0 if $r \neq i$, so in each sum of Definition 1.2 only one term survives:

$$(DA)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} D_{ir}a_{rj} = d_i a_{ij}, \qquad (AD)_{ij} = \sum_{r=1}^{n} a_{ir}D_{rj} = a_{ij}d_j$$

So row i of DA is d_i times row i of A, and column j of AD is d_j times column j of A.

(b) By (a), $(DF)_{ij} = d_iF_{ij}$ is d_if_i for $i = j$ and 0 for $i \neq j$, that is, $DF = \operatorname{diag}(d_1f_1, \ldots, d_nf_n)$.

(c) For upper triangular $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, the term $a_{ik}b_{kj}$ is 0 if $k < i$ (then $a_{ik} = 0$) and if $k > j$ (then $b_{kj} = 0$); so only the terms with $i \leqslant k \leqslant j$ remain:

$$(AB)_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik}b_{kj} = \sum_{k=i}^{j} a_{ik}b_{kj}$$

For $i > j$ no k satisfies $i \leqslant k \leqslant j$, so $(AB)_{ij} = 0$; for $i = j$ only $k = i$ remains, so $(AB)_{ii} = a_{ii}b_{ii}$. For lower triangular A, B the term $a_{ik}b_{kj}$ is 0 if $k > i$ or $k < j$, so only the terms with $j \leqslant k \leqslant i$ remain, and $(AB)_{ij} = 0$ for $i < j$, $(AB)_{ii} = a_{ii}b_{ii}$. □

Definition 1.14. The **summing vector** $\mathbf{1}_n \in \mathbb{R}^n$ has all entries 1. Put

$$J_n = \mathbf{1}_n \mathbf{1}_n' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}, \qquad \bar{J}_n = \tfrac{1}{n} J_n, \qquad C_n = I_n - \bar{J}_n$$

Every entry of J_n is 1, and C_n is the **centering matrix**. Subscripts are dropped when the size is clear. A square matrix A with $A^2 = A$ is **idempotent**.

Proposition 1.15. $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = n$, $J_n^2 = nJ_n$, and $\bar{J}_n$ and $C = C_n$ are symmetric and idempotent:

$$\bar{J}_n' = \bar{J}_n = \bar{J}_n^2, \qquad C = C' = C^2, \qquad C\mathbf{1} = 0$$

Proof. Write $\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}_n$, $J = J_n$, $\bar{J} = \bar{J}_n$, $I = I_n$.

- By Theorem 1.9, $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = \sum_{i=1}^n 1 \cdot 1 = n$.
- By Theorem 1.3 (associativity) and the paragraph after Theorem 1.3 (the 1×1 factor $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = n$ acts as a number),

$$J^2 = (\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')(\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}') = \mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1})\mathbf{1}' = \mathbf{1}\, n\, \mathbf{1}' = n\, \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = nJ, \qquad \bar{J}^2 = \tfrac{1}{n^2} J^2 = \tfrac{1}{n^2}\, nJ = \tfrac{1}{n} J = \bar{J}$$

- By Theorem 1.9, $J' = (\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')' = (\mathbf{1}')'\mathbf{1}' = \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = J$, so $\bar{J}' = \frac{1}{n} J' = \bar{J}$; and $I' = I$, by the same theorem. Hence $C' = I' - \bar{J}' = I - \bar{J} = C$.
- By Theorem 1.3 and $\bar{J}^2 = \bar{J}$,

$$C^2 = (I - \bar{J})(I - \bar{J}) = I \cdot I - I\bar{J} - \bar{J}I + \bar{J}^2 = I - 2\bar{J} + \bar{J} = I - \bar{J} = C$$

- By Theorem 1.3, the paragraph after it and $\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = n$, $C\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1} - \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1}) = \mathbf{1} - \frac{1}{n}\, n\, \mathbf{1} = 0$. □

Example 1.16. For data $x = (x_1, \ldots, x_n)'$, $\mathbf{1}'x = x_1 + \cdots + x_n$ (Theorem 1.9), so the mean is $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}'x$, and $\mathbf{1}'x = n\bar{x}$. By Theorem 1.3,

$$Cx = (I - \tfrac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')x = x - \tfrac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'x) = x - \bar{x}\mathbf{1} = (x_1 - \bar{x},\ \ldots,\ x_n - \bar{x})'$$

the vector of **deviations** from the mean. Moreover $x'\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}'x = n\bar{x}$ (Theorem 1.9), so

$$x'Cx = x'x - \tfrac{1}{n}(x'\mathbf{1})(\mathbf{1}'x) = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2 - \tfrac{1}{n}(n\bar{x})(n\bar{x}) = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2 - n\bar{x}^2$$

Expanding each square and using $\sum_i x_i = n\bar{x}$,

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \bar{x})^2 = \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i^2 - 2\bar{x}x_i + \bar{x}^2) = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2 - 2\bar{x}\sum_{i=1}^n x_i + n\bar{x}^2 = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2 - 2n\bar{x}^2 + n\bar{x}^2 = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i^2 - n\bar{x}^2$$

Hence the sum of squares about the mean is

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \bar{x})^2 = x'x - n\bar{x}^2 = x'Cx$$

Example 1.17. Four units ($n = 4$) are measured on two variables ($k = 2$); x_{ij} is the value of variable j on unit i:

$$X_0 = (x_{ij}) = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 2}, \qquad \mathbf{1}'X_0 = (4,\ 8), \qquad \bar{x} = \tfrac{1}{4} X_0'\mathbf{1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

The vector $\bar{x} = (\bar{x}_1, \bar{x}_2)'$ of column means $\bar{x}_j = \frac{1}{n}\sum_i x_{ij}$ is the **mean vector**. By Theorem 1.4(a), $\operatorname{col}_j(CX_0) = C\operatorname{col}_j(X_0)$, which by Example 1.16 is the vector of deviations of variable j from its mean $\bar{x}_j$. In matrix form, by Theorem 1.3 and $\mathbf{1}'X_0 = (X_0'\mathbf{1})' = n\bar{x}'$ (Theorem 1.9),

$$CX_0 = X_0 - \tfrac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'X_0) = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$$

By Proposition 1.15, $C = C^2 = C'C$, so $X_0'CX_0 = X_0'C'CX_0 = (CX_0)'(CX_0)$ (Theorem 1.9). The centered data matrix and the matrix of **corrected sums of squares and products** are therefore

$$CX_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2-1 & 3-2 \\ 0-1 & 3-2 \\ 2-1 & 1-2 \\ 0-1 & 1-2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad X_0'CX_0 = (CX_0)'(CX_0) = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Here the (j,l) entry of $(CX_0)'(CX_0)$ is $\operatorname{col}_j(CX_0)'\operatorname{col}_l(CX_0)$ (Theorem 1.4(d)): $1+1+1+1 = 4$ for $(1,1)$ and $(2,2)$, and $1-1-1+1 = 0$ for $(1,2)$ and $(2,1)$. The same matrix comes from the uncorrected sums: in general, by Theorem 1.3 and $X_0'\mathbf{1} = n\bar{x}$,

$$X_0'CX_0 = X_0'(I - \tfrac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}')X_0 = X_0'X_0 - \tfrac{1}{n}(X_0'\mathbf{1})(\mathbf{1}'X_0) = X_0'X_0 - \tfrac{1}{n}(n\bar{x})(n\bar{x}') = X_0'X_0 - n\bar{x}\bar{x}'$$

and here

$$X_0'X_0 - 4\bar{x}\bar{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} 8 & 8 \\ 8 & 20 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 8 \\ 8 & 16 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Unit vectors and the matrices E_{ij}

Proposition 1.18. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. Write e_i for the unit vectors of $\mathbb{R}^m$ or of $\mathbb{R}^n$, whichever the product requires, and put $E_{ij} = e_ie_j' \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant m,\ 1 \leqslant j \leqslant n)$.

(a) $e_i'e_k = \delta_{ik}$, $Ae_j = \operatorname{col}_j(A)$, $e_i'A = \operatorname{row}_i(A)$ and $e_i'Ae_j = a_{ij}$.

(b) E_{ij} has (i,j) entry 1 and all other entries 0, and

$$A = \sum_{i=1}^{m} e_i \operatorname{row}_i(A) = \sum_{j=1}^{n} \operatorname{col}_j(A)\, e_j' = \sum_{i=1}^{m}\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}E_{ij}$$

In particular $I_m = e_1e_1' + \cdots + e_me_m'$.

(c) $E_{ij}E_{kl} = \delta_{jk}E_{il}$, where $E_{kl} = e_ke_l' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $E_{il} = e_ie_l' \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$.

(d) For $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $A = B$ if and only if $Ax = Bx$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof. (a)

- $e_i'e_k = \sum_r (e_i)_r(e_k)_r$ (Theorem 1.9), and the term $(e_i)_r(e_k)_r$ is 1 if $r = i = k$ and 0 otherwise. So $e_i'e_k = \delta_{ik}$.
- $Ae_j = \operatorname{col}_j(A)$ is Theorem 1.4(b). By Theorem 1.4(c), $e_i'A = (e_i)_1\operatorname{row}_1(A) + \cdots + (e_i)_m\operatorname{row}_m(A) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)$.
- Applied to the $m \times 1$ matrix $\operatorname{col}_j(A)$, the last statement gives $e_i'Ae_j = e_i'\operatorname{col}_j(A) = a_{ij}$.

(b)

- The (k,l) entry of e_ie_j' is $(e_i)_k(e_j)_l$ (Definition 1.2 with one term), which is 1 for $k = i$, $l = j$ and 0 otherwise.
- The outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) of $A = I_mA$, whose first factor has the columns $e_1, \ldots, e_m$, gives $A = \sum_i e_i \operatorname{row}_i(A)$. As $I_n' = I_n$ (Theorem 1.9), the rows of I_n are $e_1', \ldots, e_n'$, and the expansion of $A = AI_n$ gives $A = \sum_j \operatorname{col}_j(A)e_j'$.

- By Theorem 1.4(b), $\mathrm{col}_j(A) = I_m \mathrm{col}_j(A) = \sum_i a_{ij} e_i$. Substituting and using Theorem 1.3, $A = \sum_j \sum_i a_{ij} e_i e_j'$. For $A = I_m$, $\mathrm{row}_i(I_m) = e_i'$, and the first expansion reads $I_m = \sum_i e_i e_i'$.

(c) $E_{ij}E_{kl} = e_i(e_j'e_k)e_l' = \delta_{jk} e_i e_l'$ by Theorem 1.3 and (a), the 1×1 factor $e_j'e_k$ being a number.

(d) If $A = B$, then $Ax = Bx$ for every x. Conversely, $x = e_j$ gives $\mathrm{col}_j(A) = Ae_j = Be_j = \mathrm{col}_j(B)$ for every j, by (a); so $A = B$. □

For a data matrix $X_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times k}$, $e_i'X_0$ is the row of measurements on unit i, $X_0 e_j$ the column of values of variable j, and $x_{ij} = e_i'X_0e_j$. Several unit vectors select several variables or units: for instance, if $k \geqslant 3$ and $n \geqslant 4$, then by Theorem 1.4(a), $X_0[e_3\ e_1] = [\mathrm{col}_3(X_0)\ \ \mathrm{col}_1(X_0)]$ keeps variables 3 and 1, in this order; by Theorem 1.4(c), the rows of $[e_2\ e_4]'X_0$ are $\mathrm{row}_2(X_0)$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(X_0)$.

Powers and polynomials of a square matrix

Proposition 1.19. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, and let $r, s \geqslant 0$ be integers.

(a) $A^r A^s = A^{r+s} = A^s A^r$.

(b) $(A^r)^s = A^{rs}$.

(c) $(A')^r = (A^r)'$. In particular, every power of a symmetric matrix is symmetric.

(d) $\mathrm{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)^r = \mathrm{diag}(d_1^r, \ldots, d_n^r)$ for all $d_1, \ldots, d_n \in \mathbb{R}$; here $t^0 = 1$ for every $t \in \mathbb{R}$, also for $t = 0$.

(e) If A is upper (lower) triangular, then A^r is upper (lower) triangular, with diagonal entries $a_{11}^r, \ldots, a_{nn}^r$ (with $t^0 = 1$ for every $t \in \mathbb{R}$, as in (d)).

Proof. (a) Induction on s, with r fixed.

- $s = 0$: $A^r A^0 = A^r I_n = A^r$ (Theorem 1.3).
- If $A^r A^s = A^{r+s}$, then $A^{r+s+1} = A^{r+s}A = (A^r A^s)A = A^r(A^s A) = A^r A^{s+1}$ (Theorem 1.3).
- Exchanging the roles of r and s, $A^s A^r = A^{s+r} = A^{r+s}$.

(b) Induction on s: $(A^r)^0 = I_n = A^0$, and if $(A^r)^s = A^{rs}$, then $(A^r)^{s+1} = (A^r)^s A^r = A^{rs}A^r = A^{rs+r}$ by (a).

(c)

- Induction on r: $(A')^0 = I_n = I_n' = (A^0)'$ (Theorem 1.9). If $(A')^r = (A^r)'$, then by Theorem 1.9 and (a), $(A^{r+1})' = (A^r A)' = A'(A^r)' = A'(A')^r = (A')^{r+1}$.
- If $A' = A$, this reads $(A^r)' = A^r$.

(d) Induction on r: $\mathrm{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)^0 = I_n = \mathrm{diag}(1, \ldots, 1) = \mathrm{diag}(d_1^0, \ldots, d_n^0)$, and if the formula holds for r, then $\mathrm{diag}(d_i)^{r+1} = \mathrm{diag}(d_i^r)\,\mathrm{diag}(d_i) = \mathrm{diag}(d_i^{r+1})$ by Proposition 1.13(b).

(e) Induction on r: $A^0 = I_n$ is upper triangular with diagonal entries $1 = a_{ii}^0$. If A^r is upper triangular with diagonal entries a_{ii}^r, then $A^{r+1} = A^r A$ is a product of two upper triangular matrices, so it is upper triangular with diagonal entries $a_{ii}^r a_{ii} = a_{ii}^{r+1}$ (Proposition 1.13(c)). The lower triangular case is the same. □

Definition 1.20. A matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is **nilpotent** if $A^k = 0$ for some integer $k \geqslant 1$, and **involutory** if $A^2 = I_n$.

For instance, the matrix X of Remark 1.7 is nilpotent ($X^2 = 0$), and I_n, $-I_n$ and $\mathrm{diag}(1, -1, 1, -1)$ are involutory.

Proposition 1.21. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be **strictly upper triangular**, that is, $a_{ij} = 0$ for $i \geqslant j$, and let $p \geqslant 1$ be an integer.

(a) The (i, j) entry of A^p is 0 for $1 \leqslant i \leqslant n$ and $1 \leqslant j \leqslant \min(n, i + p - 1)$.

(b) For $i \geqslant n - p + 1$, the ith row of A^p is zero.

(c) $A^p = 0$ for $p \geqslant n$; so A is nilpotent.

The same holds for a **strictly lower triangular** A ($a_{ij} = 0$ for $i \leqslant j$), with the (j, i) entry in (a) and the ith column in (b).

Proof. Write b_{ik} for the (i, k) entry of A^p.

(a) Induction on p.

- $p = 1$: the range is $j \leqslant \min(n, i) = i$, and $a_{ij} = 0$ for $j \leqslant i$.
- Suppose (a) holds for p, and let $j \leqslant \min(n, i + p)$. Since $A^{p+1} = A^p A$,

$$(A^{p+1})_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} b_{ik}a_{kj} = \sum_{k=1}^{\min(n,i+p-1)} 0 \cdot a_{kj} + \sum_{k=i+p}^{n} b_{ik}a_{kj} = 0$$

  The first sum vanishes by the hypothesis on A^p. The second is empty if $i+p > n$; in it $k \geqslant i+p \geqslant j$, so $a_{kj} = 0$. This is (a) for $p + 1$.

(b) For $i \geqslant n - p + 1$, $i + p - 1 \geqslant n$, so $\min(n, i + p - 1) = n$, and by (a) all n entries of row i of A^p are 0.

(c) For $p \geqslant n$, $n - p + 1 \leqslant 1$, so by (b) all rows of A^p are zero.

If A is strictly lower triangular, then A' is strictly upper triangular and $A^p = \left((A')^p\right)'$ (Proposition 1.19(c)); transposing (a)–(c) for A' gives the statements for A. □

Example 1.22. (a) $N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$ is strictly upper triangular. By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_1(N^2) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_2(N) + 6\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) = (0, 0, 4)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(N^2) = 4\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) = 0$ and $\operatorname{row}_3(N^2) = 0$; then $\operatorname{row}_1(N^3) = 4\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) = 0$. So

$$N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = N^2N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

as Proposition 1.21 says for $n = 3$. Here $N^2 \neq 0$, so the exponent n in Proposition 1.21(c) cannot be lowered in general.

(b) For the upper triangular

$$U = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 4 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U^3 = U^2U = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 7 & 2 & 8 \\ 0 & 8 & 3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 8 \end{pmatrix}$$

for instance $\operatorname{row}_1(U^2) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_1(U) + 1\ \operatorname{row}_2(U) + 1\ \operatorname{row}_4(U) = (1, 3, 1, 3)$ and $\operatorname{row}_1(U^3) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_1(U) + 3\ \operatorname{row}_2(U) + 1\ \operatorname{row}_3(U) + 3\ \operatorname{row}_4(U) = (1, 7, 2, 8)$. Both powers are upper triangular, with the diagonal entries $1^2, 2^2, (-1)^2, 2^2$ and $1^3, 2^3, (-1)^3, 2^3$ (Proposition 1.19(e)); and $(U')^3 = (U^3)'$ is lower triangular (Proposition 1.19(c)).

Definition 1.23. A (real) **polynomial** $f(t) = c_0 + c_1 t + \cdots + c_m t^m$ is given by its coefficients $c_0, \ldots, c_m \in \mathbb{R}$. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$,

$$f(A) = c_0 I_n + c_1 A + \cdots + c_m A^m$$

Polynomials are added and multiplied as usual: for $g(t) = d_0 + d_1 t + \cdots + d_l t^l$, the product $(fg)(t) = \sum_{i=0}^{m}\sum_{j=0}^{l} c_i d_j t^{i+j}$ has the coefficient $\sum_{i+j=k} c_i d_j$ at t^k; in particular $fg = gf$.

Proposition 1.24. Let f and g be polynomials, $c \in \mathbb{R}$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) $(cf + g)(A) = cf(A) + g(A)$.

(b) $(fg)(A) = f(A)g(A)$. Hence $f(A)g(A) = g(A)f(A)$: polynomials in the same matrix commute.

(c) $f(A)' = f(A')$; in particular $f(A)$ is symmetric if A is.

Proof. Write $f(t) = \sum_i c_i t^i$ and $g(t) = \sum_j d_j t^j$, with coefficients 0 beyond the degrees.
(a) $cf + g$ has the coefficients $cc_i + d_i$, so $(cf + g)(A) = \sum_i (cc_i + d_i)A^i = c\sum_i c_i A^i + \sum_i d_i A^i$ by the laws of Definition 1.1.
(b)

- By Definition 1.23 and (a), $(fg)(A) = \sum_i \sum_j c_i d_j A^{i+j}$.
- $c_i d_j A^{i+j} = (c_i A^i)(d_j A^j)$ by Proposition 1.19(a) and Theorem 1.3.
- By the distributive laws (Theorem 1.3), $\sum_i \sum_j (c_i A^i)(d_j A^j) = \left(\sum_i c_i A^i\right)\left(\sum_j d_j A^j\right) = f(A)g(A)$.
- As $fg = gf$, $f(A)g(A) = (fg)(A) = (gf)(A) = g(A)f(A)$.

(c) By Theorem 1.9 and Proposition 1.19(c), $f(A)' = \sum_i c_i (A^i)' = \sum_i c_i (A')^i = f(A')$. □

Example 1.25. Matrices $aI_n + bJ_n$, with all diagonal entries $a+b$ and all other entries b, are frequent in statistics; $\bar{J}_n$ and $C_n = I_n - \bar{J}_n$ are of this form. They are polynomials of degree at most 1 in J_n, so any two of them commute (Proposition 1.24(b)). Since $J_n^2 = nJ_n$ (Proposition 1.15),

$$(aI_n + bJ_n)(cI_n + dJ_n) = acI_n + (ad + bc)J_n + bdJ_n^2 = acI_n + (ad + bc + nbd)J_n$$

is again of this form. For instance, $C_n = I_n - \frac{1}{n}J_n$ and J_n ($a = 1$, $b = -\frac{1}{n}$, $c = 0$, $d = 1$) give $C_n J_n = \left(1 + 0 - n \cdot \frac{1}{n}\right)J_n = 0$, and $J_n C_n = C_n J_n = 0$. For $n = 4$ and $a = b = c = d = 1$,

$$A = I_4 + J_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^2 = I_4 + 6J_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 7 & 6 & 6 & 6 \\ 6 & 7 & 6 & 6 \\ 6 & 6 & 7 & 6 \\ 6 & 6 & 6 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

For $f(t) = t^2 - 6t + 5 = (t-1)(t-5)$, Proposition 1.24(b) gives

$$f(A) = (A - I_4)(A - 5I_4) = J_4(J_4 - 4I_4) = J_4^2 - 4J_4 = 0$$

So $A^2 = 6A - 5I_4$, and every power of A reduces to a combination of I_4 and A, by induction on k: $A^1 = A$, and if $A^k = \alpha A + \beta I_4$, then $A^{k+1} = A^k A = \alpha A^2 + \beta A = (6\alpha + \beta)A - 5\alpha I_4$ (Theorem 1.3). For instance $A^3 = AA^2 = 6A^2 - 5A = 6(6A - 5I_4) - 5A = 31A - 30I_4$ (Proposition 1.19(a)), that is,

$$A^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 32 & 31 & 31 & 31 \\ 31 & 32 & 31 & 31 \\ 31 & 31 & 32 & 31 \\ 31 & 31 & 31 & 32 \end{pmatrix}$$

Symmetric, skew-symmetric and idempotent matrices

Definition 1.26. A matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is **skew-symmetric** if $A' = -A$, that is, $a_{ji} = -a_{ij}$ for all i, j.

Proposition 1.27. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) $A + A'$ is symmetric and $A - A'$ is skew-symmetric.

(b) $A = \frac{1}{2}(A + A') + \frac{1}{2}(A - A')$, the sum of a symmetric and a skew-symmetric matrix.

(c) If A is skew-symmetric, then $a_{ii} = 0$ for every i.

(d) If $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ is symmetric and $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, then $P'BP \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is symmetric.

Proof. (a) By Theorem 1.9, $(A + A')' = A' + (A')' = A' + A$ and $(A - A')' = A' - A = -(A - A')$.
(b) By (a) and $(cM)' = cM'$ (Theorem 1.9), $\frac{1}{2}(A + A')$ is symmetric and $\frac{1}{2}(A - A')$ skew-symmetric; their sum is A, since the terms $\pm\frac{1}{2}A'$ cancel.
(c) A' has the same diagonal entries as A, so $A' = -A$ gives $a_{ii} = -a_{ii}$, that is, $a_{ii} = 0$.
(d) $(P'BP)' = P'B'(P')' = P'BP$ (Theorem 1.9). □

For instance, the matrix $X_0'C_nX_0$ of corrected sums of squares and products (Example 1.17) is symmetric by (d), since C_n is symmetric (Proposition 1.15).

Example 1.28. For

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 4 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 3 & -1 & 5 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ 4 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 3 & 5 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 3 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Proposition 1.27(b) gives $A = S + K$ with

$$S = \tfrac{1}{2}(A + A') = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad K = \tfrac{1}{2}(A - A') = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & -2 & 1 \\ -2 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

S is symmetric, K is skew-symmetric with zero diagonal, and $S + K = A$ entry by entry.

Proposition 1.29. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) A is idempotent if and only if A' is idempotent.

(b) A is idempotent if and only if $I_n - A$ is idempotent; and then $A(I_n - A) = (I_n - A)A = 0$.

(c) If A is idempotent, then $A^k = A$ for every integer $k \geqslant 1$.

(d) If A and B are idempotent and $AB = BA$, then AB is idempotent.

Proof. (a)

- If $A^2 = A$, then $(A')^2 = (AA)' = A'$ (Theorem 1.9).
- Conversely, if A' is idempotent, so is $(A')' = A$, by the first step.

(b)

- If $A^2 = A$, then $(I - A)^2 = I - 2A + A^2 = I - A$ (Theorem 1.3).
- Conversely, if $I - A$ is idempotent, so is $I - (I - A) = A$, by the first step.
- Then $A(I - A) = A - A^2 = 0$ and $(I - A)A = A - A^2 = 0$.

(c) Induction on k: $A^1 = A$, and if $A^k = A$, then $A^{k+1} = A^kA = A^2 = A$.
(d) $(AB)(AB) = A(BA)B = A(AB)B = A^2B^2 = AB$ (Theorem 1.3). □

Traces of products; a cancellation rule

Proposition 1.30. (a) $\operatorname{tr}(I_n) = n$, $\operatorname{tr}(J_n) = n$, $\operatorname{tr}(\bar{J}_n) = 1$ and $\operatorname{tr}(C_n) = n - 1$.

(b) For $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ with columns $a_1, \dots, a_n$ and $b_1, \dots, b_n$,

$$\operatorname{tr}(A'B) = \operatorname{tr}(AB') = \sum_{j=1}^{n} a_j' b_j = \sum_{i=1}^{m}\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij} b_{ij}$$

In particular $\operatorname{tr}(ab') = a'b$ for $a, b \in \mathbb{R}^m$.

(c) $x'Ax = \operatorname{tr}(Axx')$ for $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof. (a) The diagonal entries of I_n and of J_n are all 1. By Theorem 1.11(a), $\operatorname{tr}(\bar{J}_n) = \frac{1}{n}\operatorname{tr}(J_n) = 1$ and $\operatorname{tr}(C_n) = \operatorname{tr}(I_n) - \operatorname{tr}(\bar{J}_n) = n - 1$.

(b)

- The jth diagonal entry of $A'B$ is $\operatorname{row}_j(A')\, b_j = a_j' b_j = \sum_i a_{ij} b_{ij}$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9); summing over j gives the two sums.
- $\operatorname{tr}(AB') = \operatorname{tr}(B'A)$ (Theorem 1.11(b)), and the diagonal entries of $B'A$ are $b_j' a_j = a_j' b_j$, so $\operatorname{tr}(AB')$ is the same sum.
- For $n = 1$, $A = a$ and $B = b$, this reads $a'b = \operatorname{tr}(ab')$.

(c) By Theorem 1.11(b), applied to the $1 \times n$ matrix x' and the $n \times 1$ matrix Ax, $\operatorname{tr}\big(x'(Ax)\big) = \operatorname{tr}\big((Ax)x'\big)$; the trace of the 1×1 matrix $x'Ax$ is this number. □

Corollary 1.31. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) $A'A = 0$ if and only if $A = 0$.

(b) For $B_1, B_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $A'AB_1 = A'AB_2$ if and only if $AB_1 = AB_2$.

(c) For $B_1, B_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times n}$, $B_1A'A = B_2A'A$ if and only if $B_1A' = B_2A'$.

Proof. (a) If $A = 0$, then $A'A = 0$. If $A'A = 0$, then $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = 0$, so $A = 0$ by Theorem 1.11(d).

(b)

- If $AB_1 = AB_2$, multiplying by A' on the left gives $A'AB_1 = A'AB_2$.
- Conversely, let $A'AB_1 = A'AB_2$. By Theorems 1.3 and 1.9, $(AB_1 - AB_2)' = (B_1' - B_2')A'$, so

$$(AB_1 - AB_2)'(AB_1 - AB_2) = (B_1' - B_2')(A'AB_1 - A'AB_2) = 0$$

- By (a), applied to the matrix $AB_1 - AB_2$, $AB_1 - AB_2 = 0$.

(c) By Theorem 1.9, $B_1A'A = B_2A'A$ is equivalent to $A'AB_1' = A'AB_2'$, and $B_1A' = B_2A'$ to $AB_1' = AB_2'$; these two are equivalent by (b). □

Example 1.32. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 3 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A'A = \begin{pmatrix} 10 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

(the (j, l) entry of $A'A$ is $\operatorname{col}_j(A)'\operatorname{col}_l(A)$, Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9; for instance the $(1, 1)$ entry $1 \cdot 1 + 3 \cdot 3 = 10$ and the $(2, 3)$ entry $2 \cdot (-1) + 0 \cdot 1 = -2$), and let $b_1 = (1, 0, 0)'$ and $b_2 = (0, 2, 3)'$. By Theorem 1.4(b),

$$A'Ab_1 = \operatorname{col}_1(A'A) = \begin{pmatrix} 10 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A'Ab_2 = 2\operatorname{col}_2(A'A) + 3\operatorname{col}_3(A'A) = \begin{pmatrix} 4 + 6 \\ 8 - 6 \\ -4 + 6 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 10 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $A'Ab_1 = A'Ab_2$, although $b_1 \neq b_2$: the factor $A'A$ cannot be cancelled. The factor A' can: by Corollary 1.31(b), with $B_1 = b_1$ and $B_2 = b_2$ ($p = 1$), $Ab_1 = Ab_2$. Indeed, by Theorem 1.4(b),

$$Ab_1 = \mathrm{col}_1(A) = \begin{pmatrix}1\\3\end{pmatrix}, \qquad Ab_2 = 2\,\mathrm{col}_2(A) + 3\,\mathrm{col}_3(A) = \begin{pmatrix}4-3\\0+3\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}1\\3\end{pmatrix}$$

Sums of squares and products; linear combinations of variables

Proposition 1.33. Let $X_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ be a data matrix with the rows $x_1', \ldots, x_n'$ ($x_i \in \mathbb{R}^k$ holds the measurements on unit i), let $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}_n$, $C = C_n$, and let $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{n}X_0'\mathbf{1}$ be the mean vector of X_0 (Example 1.17).

(a) $X_0'X_0 = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i x_i'$ and $X_0'y = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i y_i$; the (j,l) entry of $X_0'X_0$ is $\sum_i x_{ij}x_{il}$.

(b) $CX_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$ has the rows $(x_1 - \bar{x})', \ldots, (x_n - \bar{x})'$, and

$$X_0'CX_0 = (CX_0)'(CX_0) = \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \bar{x})(x_i - \bar{x})' = X_0'X_0 - n\bar{x}\bar{x}'$$

Its (j,l) entry is $\sum_i (x_{ij} - \bar{x}_j)(x_{il} - \bar{x}_l)$.

Proof. (a)

- The columns of X_0' are $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ and the rows of X_0 are $x_1', \ldots, x_n'$, so the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) gives $X_0'X_0 = \sum_i x_i x_i'$.
- By Theorem 1.4(b), $X_0'y = y_1x_1 + \cdots + y_nx_n$.
- The (j,l) entry of $X_0'X_0$ is $\mathrm{col}_j(X_0)'\,\mathrm{col}_l(X_0) = \sum_i x_{ij}x_{il}$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9).

(b)

- $\mathbf{1}'X_0 = n\bar{x}'$, so $CX_0 = X_0 - \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'X_0) = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$. The ith row of $\mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$ is $\bar{x}'$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), so the ith row of CX_0 is $(x_i - \bar{x})'$.
- $C' = C = C^2$ (Proposition 1.15), so $X_0'CX_0 = X_0'C'CX_0 = (CX_0)'(CX_0)$.
- (a), applied to the centered data matrix CX_0, gives the sum of outer products and the entries.
- As $X_0'\mathbf{1} = n\bar{x}$, $X_0'CX_0 = X_0'X_0 - \frac{1}{n}(X_0'\mathbf{1})(\mathbf{1}'X_0) = X_0'X_0 - n\bar{x}\bar{x}'$.

□

Proposition 1.34. Let $X_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ be a data matrix with mean vector $\bar{x}$, let $C = C_n$, and let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{k\times q}$. The jth column of $Z = X_0A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$ is $X_0\,\mathrm{col}_j(A) = a_{1j}\,\mathrm{col}_1(X_0) + \cdots + a_{kj}\,\mathrm{col}_k(X_0)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)): it holds the values, on the n units, of the linear combination of the k variables with the coefficients $a_{1j}, \ldots, a_{kj}$.

(a) The mean vector of Z is $A'\bar{x}$, and $CZ = (CX_0)A$.

(b) The matrix of corrected sums of squares and products of Z is $Z'CZ = A'(X_0'CX_0)A$.

(c) For $a, b \in \mathbb{R}^k$, the combinations $z = X_0a$ and $w = X_0b$ have the means $\bar{z} = a'\bar{x}$ and $\bar{w} = b'\bar{x}$, and

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (z_i - \bar{z})(w_i - \bar{w}) = a'(X_0'CX_0)b, \qquad \sum_{i=1}^n (z_i - \bar{z})^2 = a'(X_0'CX_0)a$$

Proof. (a) $\frac{1}{n}Z'\mathbf{1} = \frac{1}{n}A'X_0'\mathbf{1} = A'\bar{x}$ (Theorem 1.9), and $CZ = C(X_0A) = (CX_0)A$ (Theorem 1.3).
(b) $Z'CZ = (X_0A)'C(X_0A) = A'(X_0'CX_0)A$ (Theorems 1.9 and 1.3); by Proposition 1.33(b), applied to Z, it is the matrix of corrected sums of squares and products of the columns of Z.
(c)

- Take $A = [a\ b] \in \mathbb{R}^{k\times 2}$, so that $Z = [z\ w]$. By (a), the means are $a'\bar{x}$ and $b'\bar{x}$.
- By (b) and Proposition 1.33(b), the $(1,2)$ and $(1,1)$ entries of $A'(X_0'CX_0)A$ are the two sums; by Theorem 1.4(d) they are $a'(X_0'CX_0)b$ and $a'(X_0'CX_0)a$.

□

Example 1.35. Four students take three tests; x_{ij} is the score of student i on test j:

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 4 & 6 \\ 3 & 4 & 2 \\ 5 & 3 & 6 \\ 3 & 1 & 6 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \bar{x} = \tfrac{1}{4}X_0'\mathbf{1}_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 3 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C_4X_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}_4\bar{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -3 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Proposition 1.33(b), $M = X_0'C_4X_0$ is the sum of the outer products of the rows of C_4X_0:

$$M = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 3 \\ -1 & 1 & -3 \\ 3 & -3 & 9 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & 4 & -2 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 4 \\ 2 & 6 & -4 \\ 4 & -4 & 12 \end{pmatrix}$$

Its trace, $\operatorname{tr}(M) = 4 + 6 + 12 = 22$, is the sum of the squares of all entries of C_4X_0, since $M = (C_4X_0)'(C_4X_0)$ (Theorem 1.11(d)); row by row, $3 + 11 + 2 + 6 = 22$.

The total score $z = X_0\mathbf{1}_3 = (15, 9, 14, 10)'$ and the difference of the first two tests $w = X_0b = (1, -1, 2, 2)'$, $b = (1, -1, 0)'$, are linear combinations of the tests. By Proposition 1.34(c), $\bar{z} = \mathbf{1}_3'\bar{x} = 12$, $\bar{w} = b'\bar{x} = 1$, and

$$\sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})^2 = \mathbf{1}_3'M\mathbf{1}_3 = 26, \qquad \sum_i (w_i - \bar{w})^2 = b'Mb = 6, \qquad \sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})(w_i - \bar{w}) = \mathbf{1}_3'Mb = 6$$

($\mathbf{1}_3'M = (10, 4, 12)$, the column sums of M, and $Mb = (2, -4, 8)'$). Directly, $z - \bar{z}\mathbf{1}_4 = (3, -3, 2, -2)'$ and $w - \bar{w}\mathbf{1}_4 = (0, -2, 1, 1)'$ give $9 + 9 + 4 + 4 = 26$, $0 + 4 + 1 + 1 = 6$ and $0 + 6 + 2 - 2 = 6$. The coefficients of w add up to 0 ($\mathbf{1}_3'b = 0$): w is a **contrast** of the tests, and it does not change if the same number t_i is added to the three scores of each student i, since $(X_0 + t\mathbf{1}_3')b = X_0b + t(\mathbf{1}_3'b) = X_0b$ for every $t \in \mathbb{R}^4$.

Exercises

Exercise 1.1. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the $(2,3)$ entry of AB from $\operatorname{row}_2(A)$ and $\operatorname{col}_3(B)$.

(b) Find $\operatorname{col}_2(AB)$ as a combination of the columns of A.

(c) Find $\operatorname{row}_3(AB)$ as a combination of the rows of B.

(d) Compute AB and BA.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 1.4(d), $(AB)_{23} = \operatorname{row}_2(A)\operatorname{col}_3(B) = 0\cdot 2 + 1\cdot 0 + (-1)\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 0 = -1$.
(b) By Theorem 1.4(a),(b), $\operatorname{col}_2(AB) = A\operatorname{col}_2(B) = 0\,a_1 + 1\,a_2 + 3\,a_3 + 0\,a_4$, with $a_j = \operatorname{col}_j(A)$:

$$\operatorname{col}_2(AB) = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} + 3\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -2 \\ 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(c) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\mathrm{row}_3(AB) = 2\,\mathrm{row}_1(B) + 0\,\mathrm{row}_2(B) + 1\,\mathrm{row}_3(B) + 0\,\mathrm{row}_4(B) = (2,0,4,0) + (0,3,1,0) = (2,3,5,0)$.

(d) Row by row, $\mathrm{row}_1(AB) = 1\,(1,0,2,0) + 2\,(-1,1,0,1) = (-1,2,2,2)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(AB) = 1\,(-1,1,0,1) - 1\,(0,3,1,0) + 1\,(1,0,0,2) = (0,-2,-1,3)$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(AB) = 1\,(-1,1,0,1) + 1\,(1,0,0,2) = (0,1,0,3)$; with (c),

$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -1 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 5 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

in agreement with (a) and (b). In the same way $\mathrm{row}_1(BA) = 1\,(1,2,0,0) + 2\,(2,0,1,0) = (5,2,2,0)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(BA) = -1\,(1,2,0,0) + 1\,(0,1,-1,1) + 1\,(0,1,0,1) = (-1,0,-1,2)$, $\mathrm{row}_3(BA) = 3\,(0,1,-1,1) + 1\,(2,0,1,0) = (2,3,-2,3)$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(BA) = 1\,(1,2,0,0) + 2\,(0,1,0,1) = (1,4,0,2)$, so

$$BA = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & -2 & 3 \\ 1 & 4 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \neq AB$$

Exercise 1.2. Let

$$N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute N^2, N^3 and N^4.

(b) Show that the matrices $B \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ with $NB = BN$ are exactly

$$B = \alpha I_4 + \beta N + \gamma N^2 + \delta N^3 = \begin{pmatrix} \alpha & \beta & \gamma & \delta \\ 0 & \alpha & \beta & \gamma \\ 0 & 0 & \alpha & \beta \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \alpha \end{pmatrix} \qquad (\alpha, \beta, \gamma, \delta \in \mathbb{R})$$

Solution. (a) By Theorem 1.4(a),(b), $Ne_1 = 0$ and $Ne_j = e_{j-1}$ for $j = 2,3,4$. Hence $N^2 e_j = e_{j-2}$ for $j = 3,4$ and $N^2 e_j = 0$ for $j = 1,2$; $N^3 e_4 = e_1$ and $N^3 e_j = 0$ for $j \leqslant 3$; and $N^4 e_j = 0$ for all j. Since $\mathrm{col}_j(N^k) = N^k e_j$,

$$N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^4 = 0$$

This gives the matrix form of $\alpha I_4 + \beta N + \gamma N^2 + \delta N^3$ in (b).

(b) Let $B = (b_{ij})$. Since $\mathrm{row}_i(N) = e'_{i+1}$ for $i \leqslant 3$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(N) = 0$, Theorem 1.4(c) gives $\mathrm{row}_i(NB) = \mathrm{row}_{i+1}(B)$ for $i \leqslant 3$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(NB) = 0$. By (a), $\mathrm{col}_j(BN) = BNe_j = Be_{j-1} = \mathrm{col}_{j-1}(B)$ for $j \geqslant 2$ and $\mathrm{col}_1(BN) = 0$. So

$$(NB)_{ij} = \begin{cases} b_{i+1,j} & i \leqslant 3 \\ 0 & i = 4 \end{cases}, \qquad (BN)_{ij} = \begin{cases} b_{i,j-1} & j \geqslant 2 \\ 0 & j = 1 \end{cases}$$

Suppose $NB = BN$. Comparing the entries:

- row 4, $j \geqslant 2$: $b_{4,j-1} = 0$, so $b_{41} = b_{42} = b_{43} = 0$;

- column 1, $i \leqslant 3$: $b_{i+1,1} = 0$, so $b_{21} = b_{31} = b_{41} = 0$;
- $i \leqslant 3$, $j \geqslant 2$: $b_{i+1,j} = b_{i,j-1}$, so every entry equals the entry diagonally above and to its left.

The last condition gives $b_{32} = b_{21} = 0$; so all entries below the diagonal vanish. It also gives $b_{11} = b_{22} = b_{33} = b_{44}$, $b_{12} = b_{23} = b_{34}$ and $b_{13} = b_{24}$. With $\alpha = b_{11}$, $\beta = b_{12}$, $\gamma = b_{13}$, $\delta = b_{14}$, B has the stated form. Conversely, by Theorem 1.3 and $NN^k = N^{k+1} = N^kN$ (Proposition 1.19(a)),

$$N(\alpha I + \beta N + \gamma N^2 + \delta N^3) = \alpha N + \beta N^2 + \gamma N^3 + \delta N^4 = (\alpha I + \beta N + \gamma N^2 + \delta N^3)N$$

for all $\alpha, \beta, \gamma, \delta$.

Exercise 1.3. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute AB and BA.

(b) Write AB as the sum of the four products $\operatorname{col}_j(A)\operatorname{row}_j(B)$ of Theorem 1.4(d).

(c) Compute $B'A'$, $\operatorname{tr}(AB)$, $\operatorname{tr}(BA)$ and $\operatorname{tr}(A'A)$, and show that $(BA)^2 = BA$.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_i(AB) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)B$ is a combination of the rows $(1,-1,1)$, $(0,1,-1)$, $(0,0,1)$, $(0,0,0)$ of B:

$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{row}_1(AB) &= (1,-1,1) + (0,1,-1) = (1,\ 0,\ 0) \\ \operatorname{row}_2(AB) &= (0,1,-1) + (0,0,1) = (0,\ 1,\ 0) \\ \operatorname{row}_3(AB) &= (0,0,1) + (0,0,0) = (0,\ 0,\ 1) \end{aligned}$$

Likewise each row of $BA \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ is a combination of the rows of A:

$$\begin{aligned} \operatorname{row}_1(BA) &= (1,1,0,0) - (0,1,1,0) + (0,0,1,1) = (1,\ 0,\ 0,\ 1) \\ \operatorname{row}_2(BA) &= (0,1,1,0) - (0,0,1,1) = (0,\ 1,\ 0,\ -1) \\ \operatorname{row}_3(BA) &= (0,0,1,1), \qquad \operatorname{row}_4(BA) = (0,0,0,0) \end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$AB = I_3, \qquad BA = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \neq I_4$$

(b) $\operatorname{col}_4(A)\operatorname{row}_4(B) = 0$, and

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}(1,\ -1,\ 1) + \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}(0,\ 1,\ -1) + \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}(0,\ 0,\ 1) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = I_3$$

(c) $B'A' = (AB)' = I_3' = I_3$, by the rules $(AB)' = B'A'$ and $I_3' = I_3$ of Theorem 1.9. Next $\operatorname{tr}(AB) = 3$ and $\operatorname{tr}(BA) = 1+1+1+0 = 3$, equal by Theorem 1.11(b); and by Theorem 1.11(d), $\operatorname{tr}(A'A)$ is the sum of the squares of the entries of A, which is 6. Finally, by Theorem 1.3, $(BA)^2 = B(AB)A = BI_3A = BA$.

Exercise 1.4. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$, and let B be the matrix obtained from A by interchanging its first two rows. Compute AB', BA', $A'B$ and $B'A$, and compare their traces.

Solution. Write $r_1' = (1,2,1,0)$, $r_2' = (0,1,2,1)$, $r_3' = (2,1,0,1)$ for the rows of A ($r_1, r_2, r_3 \in \mathbb{R}^4$). The rows of B are r_2', r_1', r_3', so $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Since $\mathrm{col}_j(B') = \mathrm{row}_j(B)'$, the (i,j) entry of AB' is $\mathrm{row}_i(A)\,\mathrm{row}_j(B)'$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). The six numbers $r_i' r_k$ needed are

$$r_1'r_1 = 1+4+1+0 = 6, \quad r_2'r_2 = 0+1+4+1 = 6, \quad r_3'r_3 = 4+1+0+1 = 6$$
$$r_1'r_2 = 0+2+2+0 = 4, \quad r_1'r_3 = 2+2+0+0 = 4, \quad r_2'r_3 = 0+1+0+1 = 2$$

and $r_k' r_i = r_i' r_k$ (Theorem 1.9). Hence

$$AB' = \begin{pmatrix} r_1'r_2 & r_1'r_1 & r_1'r_3 \\ r_2'r_2 & r_2'r_1 & r_2'r_3 \\ r_3'r_2 & r_3'r_1 & r_3'r_3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 6 & 4 \\ 6 & 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 & 6 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BA' = (AB')' = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 6 & 2 \\ 6 & 4 & 4 \\ 4 & 2 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

by Theorem 1.9. Since $\mathrm{col}_k(A') = \mathrm{row}_k(A)' = r_k$, the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) gives

$$A'B = \mathrm{col}_1(A')\,\mathrm{row}_1(B) + \mathrm{col}_2(A')\,\mathrm{row}_2(B) + \mathrm{col}_3(A')\,\mathrm{row}_3(B) = r_1 r_2' + r_2 r_1' + r_3 r_3'$$

This sum is symmetric, since $(r_1 r_2')' = r_2 r_1'$ and $(r_3 r_3')' = r_3 r_3'$ (Theorem 1.9). Its (i,j) entry is $\mathrm{col}_i(A')\,\mathrm{col}_j(B)$; for instance $(A'B)_{23} = 2\cdot 2 + 1\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 0 = 5$. Computing all sixteen entries in this way,

$$A'B = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 5 & 5 & 3 \\ 2 & 5 & 4 & 1 \\ 3 & 3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (A'B)' = B'A$$

So $A'B$ is symmetric while AB' is not. The reason: $B = SA$ with the symmetric matrix $S = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, since $\mathrm{row}_1(SA) = \mathrm{row}_2(A)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(SA) = \mathrm{row}_1(A)$ and $\mathrm{row}_3(SA) = \mathrm{row}_3(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)). Then $A'B = A'SA$ and $(A'SA)' = A'S'A = A'SA$, whereas $AB' = AA'S$ need not be symmetric.

The four products have the same trace 14 ($4+4+6$ and $4+5+4+1$); this is no coincidence: $\mathrm{tr}(AB') = \mathrm{tr}(B'A)$ and $\mathrm{tr}(BA') = \mathrm{tr}(A'B)$ by Theorem 1.11(b), and $\mathrm{tr}(BA') = \mathrm{tr}\big((AB')'\big) = \mathrm{tr}(AB')$ by Theorems 1.9 and 1.11(a).

Exercise 1.5. Let $u = (1,2,3,4)'$, $v = (1,1,1,-1)'$, $w = (1,1,-1,0)'$, and put $A = uv'$ and $B = uw'$.

(a) Write out A and B, and compute $v'u$ and $w'u$.

(b) Show that $A^2 = 2A$, $A^3 = 4A$, $B^2 = 0$, $AB = 2B$ and $BA = 0$.

(c) Compute $\mathrm{tr}(A)$ and $\mathrm{tr}(B)$.

Solution. (a) Row i of uv' is $u_i v'$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), so

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -2 \\ 3 & 3 & 3 & -3 \\ 4 & 4 & 4 & -4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 3 & 3 & -3 & 0 \\ 4 & 4 & -4 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $v'u = 1+2+3-4 = 2$, $w'u = 1+2-3+0 = 0$.

(b) By Theorem 1.3, a product of two such matrices collapses to a number times a column times a row: for instance $A^2 = (uv')(uv') = u(v'u)v' = (v'u)\,uv'$, because $v'u$ is a number. In this way

$$A^2 = u(v'u)v' = 2A, \qquad A^3 = A^2 A = 2A^2 = 4A, \qquad B^2 = u(w'u)w' = 0$$
$$AB = u(v'u)w' = 2B, \qquad BA = u(w'u)v' = 0$$

So A and B do not commute, and $B \neq 0$ has $B^2 = 0$.

(c) $\operatorname{tr}(A) = 1 + 2 + 3 - 4 = 2$ and $\operatorname{tr}(B) = 1 + 2 - 3 + 0 = 0$. In general $\operatorname{tr}(uv') = \operatorname{tr}(v'u) = v'u$ by Theorem 1.11(b).

Exercise 1.6. Let $L \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ be the lower triangular matrix with all entries on and below the diagonal equal to 1, and $B = I_4 - Z$, where Z has entries $z_{21} = z_{32} = z_{43} = 1$ and all others 0:

$$L = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) For $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$, compute Lx and Bx. Deduce that $BL = I_4 = LB$.

(b) Show that $LL' = (\min(i, j))$ and $L'L = (5 - \max(i, j))$, and write out both.

(c) Compute $B'B$ and show that $(LL')(B'B) = I_4$.

Solution. (a) $\operatorname{row}_i(L)x = x_1 + \cdots + x_i$, so $Lx = (x_1,\ x_1 + x_2,\ x_1 + x_2 + x_3,\ x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4)'$ is the vector of partial sums, and $Bx = x - Zx = (x_1,\ x_2 - x_1,\ x_3 - x_2,\ x_4 - x_3)'$ is the vector of differences. The differences of the partial sums of x are the entries of x, and the partial sums of the differences of x are again the entries of x: $B(Lx) = x = L(Bx)$ for every x. With $x = e_j$, $\operatorname{col}_j(BL) = BLe_j = e_j$ and $\operatorname{col}_j(LB) = e_j$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); so $BL = I_4 = LB$.

(b) $(LL')_{ij} = \operatorname{row}_i(L)\operatorname{row}_j(L)'$ counts the indices k with $k \leqslant i$ and $k \leqslant j$, which is $\min(i, j)$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9). $(L'L)_{ij} = \operatorname{col}_i(L)'\operatorname{col}_j(L)$ counts the indices $k \leqslant 4$ with $k \geqslant i$ and $k \geqslant j$, which is $5 - \max(i, j)$. So

$$LL' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad L'L = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 3 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

both with trace 10.

(c) The columns of B are $b_1 = e_1 - e_2$, $b_2 = e_2 - e_3$, $b_3 = e_3 - e_4$, $b_4 = e_4$, and $(B'B)_{ij} = b_i'b_j$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9). Here $b_1'b_1 = b_2'b_2 = b_3'b_3 = 1 + 1 = 2$, $b_4'b_4 = 1$, $b_1'b_2 = b_2'b_3 = b_3'b_4 = -1$, and $b_i'b_j = 0$ for $|i - j| \geqslant 2$, since b_i and b_j then have no nonzero entry in the same position:

$$B'B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorems 1.3 and 1.9 and (a), $(LL')(B'B) = L(L'B')B = L(BL)'B = LI_4B = LB = I_4$.

Exercise 1.7. Four units are measured on two variables ($n = 4$, $k = 2$), with data matrix

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 2}$$

Find

(a) the mean vector $\bar{x}$ and the centered data matrix C_4X_0;

(b) the matrix $X_0'C_4X_0$ of corrected sums of squares and products, both as $(C_4X_0)'(C_4X_0)$ and as $X_0'X_0 - 4\bar{x}\bar{x}'$.

Solution. (a) $\mathbf{1}'X_0 = (1+3+2+2,\ 0+2+0+2) = (8,\ 4)$, so $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{4}X_0'\mathbf{1} = (2,\ 1)'$. As in Example 1.17, $C_4X_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$:

$$C_4X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 1-2 & 0-1 \\ 3-2 & 2-1 \\ 2-2 & 0-1 \\ 2-2 & 2-1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) The (j,l) entry of $(C_4X_0)'(C_4X_0)$ is $\mathrm{col}_j(C_4X_0)'\,\mathrm{col}_l(C_4X_0)$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9): $1+1+0+0 = 2$ for $(1,1)$, $1+1+0+0 = 2$ for $(1,2)$ and $(2,1)$, and $1+1+1+1 = 4$ for $(2,2)$. On the other hand

$$X_0'X_0 - 4\bar{x}\bar{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} 18 & 10 \\ 10 & 8 \end{pmatrix} - 4\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 18 & 10 \\ 10 & 8 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 16 & 8 \\ 8 & 4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

(for instance $18 = 1+9+4+4$ and $10 = 0+6+0+4$). So $X_0'C_4X_0 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$: the sums of squares about the means are $\sum_i (x_{i1}-\bar{x}_1)^2 = 2$ and $\sum_i (x_{i2}-\bar{x}_2)^2 = 4$, and the corrected sum of products is $\sum_i (x_{i1}-\bar{x}_1)(x_{i2}-\bar{x}_2) = 2$.

Exercise 1.8. Five units are measured on three variables ($n = 5$, $k = 3$), with data matrix

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 5 \\ 3 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 4 & 2 \\ 3 & 6 & 8 \\ 1 & 6 & 8 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 3}$$

(a) Find the mean vector $\bar{x}$ and the centered data matrix C_5X_0.

(b) Find $S = X_0'C_5X_0$, both as $(C_5X_0)'(C_5X_0)$ and as $X_0'X_0 - 5\bar{x}\bar{x}'$.

(c) Let $D = \mathrm{diag}(\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{6})$. Compute DSD, and explain why its diagonal entries equal 1.

Solution. (a) $\mathbf{1}'X_0 = (10,\ 20,\ 25)$, so $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{5}X_0'\mathbf{1} = (2,\ 4,\ 5)'$. As in Example 1.17, $C_5X_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$:

$$C_5X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & -2 & -3 \\ -1 & 0 & -3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \\ -1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) Write c_1, c_2, c_3 for the columns of C_5X_0. The (j,l) entry of $(C_5X_0)'(C_5X_0)$ is $c_j'c_l$ (Theorems 1.4(d) and 1.9):

$$c_1'c_1 = 0+1+1+1+1 = 4, \quad c_2'c_2 = 4+4+0+4+4 = 16, \quad c_3'c_3 = 0+9+9+9+9 = 36$$
$$c_1'c_2 = 0-2+0+2-2 = -2, \quad c_1'c_3 = 0-3+3+3-3 = 0, \quad c_2'c_3 = 0+6+0+6+6 = 18$$

On the other hand

$$X_0'X_0 - 5\bar{x}\bar{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} 24 & 38 & 50 \\ 38 & 96 & 118 \\ 50 & 118 & 161 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 20 & 40 & 50 \\ 40 & 80 & 100 \\ 50 & 100 & 125 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -2 & 0 \\ -2 & 16 & 18 \\ 0 & 18 & 36 \end{pmatrix} = S$$

(for instance $38 = 4+6+4+18+6$ and $161 = 25+4+4+64+64$).

(c) By Proposition 1.13(a), left multiplication by D scales the rows and right multiplication scales the columns, so $(DSD)_{ij} = d_i s_{ij} d_j$:

$$DSD = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -\frac{1}{4} & 0 \\ -\frac{1}{4} & 1 & \frac{3}{4} \\ 0 & \frac{3}{4} & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

for instance $(DSD)_{23} = \frac{1}{4}\cdot 18 \cdot \frac{1}{6} = \frac{3}{4}$. The diagonal entries are $d_i^2 s_{ii} = \frac{4}{4}, \frac{16}{16}, \frac{36}{36}$, all equal to 1, because $d_i = 1/\sqrt{s_{ii}}$ for $i = 1, 2, 3$.

Exercise 1.9. Four units are measured on three variables, with the data matrix $X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 5 & 1 \\ 4 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 3 & 1 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$.

(a) Compute $e_3' X_0$, $X_0 e_2$ and $e_3' X_0 e_2$.

(b) Compute $X_0[e_3\ e_1]$, $[e_2\ e_4]' X_0$ and $[e_2\ e_4]' X_0 [e_3\ e_1]$.

(c) For the matrices $E_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$, compute $E_{12}E_{23}$ and $E_{23}E_{12}$.

Solution. (a) By Proposition 1.18(a), $e_3' X_0 = \mathrm{row}_3(X_0) = (1, 2, 2)$, $X_0 e_2 = \mathrm{col}_2(X_0) = (5, 0, 2, 1)'$ and $e_3' X_0 e_2 = x_{32} = 2$.

(b) By Theorem 1.4(a) and (c), the first product has the columns 3 and 1 of X_0, the second the rows 2 and 4, and the third the entries of rows $2, 4$ in columns $3, 1$:

$$X_0[e_3\ e_1] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \\ 2 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad [e_2\ e_4]' X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad [e_2\ e_4]' X_0 [e_3\ e_1] = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 4 \\ 4 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(c) With

$$E_{12} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_{23} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Theorem 1.4(c) gives $\mathrm{row}_1(E_{12}E_{23}) = 1\ \mathrm{row}_2(E_{23}) = (0, 0, 1, 0)$, the other rows being zero, and $\mathrm{row}_2(E_{23}E_{12}) = 1\ \mathrm{row}_3(E_{12}) = 0$, the other rows being zero as well. So

$$E_{12}E_{23} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = E_{13}, \qquad E_{23}E_{12} = 0$$

as Proposition 1.18(c) says ($\delta_{22} = 1$, $\delta_{31} = 0$).

Exercise 1.10. For $i, j \in \{1, 2, 3\}$ let $E_{ij} = e_i e_j' \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$, as in Proposition 1.18. Compute $\mathrm{tr}(E_{12}E_{23}E_{31})$ and $\mathrm{tr}(E_{12}E_{31}E_{23})$.

Solution. By Proposition 1.18(c), $E_{12}E_{23}E_{31} = E_{13}E_{31} = E_{11}$, with trace 1, whereas $E_{12}E_{31} = \delta_{23}E_{11} = 0$, so $E_{12}E_{31}E_{23} = 0$, with trace 0. Thus the trace of a product of three matrices is unchanged when the factors are moved cyclically (Theorem 1.11(c)), but it can change when two factors are interchanged: $\mathrm{tr}(E_{12}E_{23}E_{31}) = 1 \neq 0 = \mathrm{tr}(E_{12}E_{31}E_{23})$.

Exercise 1.11. Let

$$U = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute U^2 and U^3, and compare their diagonal entries with those of U.

(b) Compute N^2, N^3 and N^4.

(c) Write down $(U')^2$ without multiplying.

Solution. (a) By rows (Theorem 1.4(c)): $\operatorname{row}_1(U^2) = 1\,(1,2,-1,0) + 2\,(0,-1,3,1) - 1\,(0,0,2,1) = (1,0,3,1)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(U^2) = -1\,(0,-1,3,1) + 3\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,1,3,1)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(U^2) = 2\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,0,4,1)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(U^2) = -1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,0,0,1)$. Then, for $U^3 = U^2U$, $\operatorname{row}_1(U^3) = 1\,(1,2,-1,0) + 3\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (1,2,5,2)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(U^3) = 1\,(0,-1,3,1) + 3\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,-1,9,3)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(U^3) = 4\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,0,8,3)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(U^3) = 1\,(0,0,0,-1) = (0,0,0,-1)$:

$$U^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 9 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 8 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Both are upper triangular; their diagonal entries $1, 1, 4, 1$ and $1, -1, 8, -1$ are the squares and the cubes of the diagonal entries $1, -1, 2, -1$ of U (Proposition 1.19(e)).

(b) $\operatorname{row}_1(N^2) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_2(N) + 2\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) = (0,0,1,5)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(N^2) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) + 3\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = (0,0,0,1)$, and rows 3, 4 of N^2 are zero. Then $\operatorname{row}_1(N^3) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_3(N) + 5\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = (0,0,0,1)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(N^3) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = 0$, and $\operatorname{row}_1(N^4) = 1\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = 0$:

$$N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^4 = 0$$

With each power one more diagonal becomes zero, as in Proposition 1.21(a), and $N^4 = 0$ (Proposition 1.21(c), $n = 4$).

(c) By Proposition 1.19(c),

$$(U')^2 = (U^2)' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 3 & 4 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Exercise 1.12. Let

$$N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute N^2, N^3 and N^4.

(b) Let $G = I_4 - N + N^2 - N^3$. Show that $(I_4 + N)G = I_4 = G(I_4 + N)$, and write out G.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_i(N^{k+1}) = \operatorname{row}_i(N^k)N$ is the combination of the rows of N with coefficients $\operatorname{row}_i(N^k)$. The rows of N are $(0,1,1,1)$, $(0,0,2,1)$, $(0,0,0,3)$, 0. So

$$\operatorname{row}_1(N^2) = 1\,(0,0,2,1) + 1\,(0,0,0,3) = (0,0,2,4), \qquad \operatorname{row}_2(N^2) = 2\,(0,0,0,3) = (0,0,0,6)$$
$$\operatorname{row}_1(N^3) = 2\,(0,0,0,3) = (0,0,0,6), \qquad \operatorname{row}_2(N^3) = 6\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = 0$$

while $\operatorname{row}_3(N^2) = 3\ \operatorname{row}_4(N) = 0$, $\operatorname{row}_4(N^2) = \operatorname{row}_4(N)N = 0$, and rows $3, 4$ of N^3 are $\operatorname{row}_3(N^2)N = 0$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(N^2)N = 0$. Hence

$$N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = 6\,e_1e_4', \qquad N^4 = 6\,e_1e_4'N = 6\,e_1\operatorname{row}_4(N) = 0$$

(b) By Theorem 1.3 and $NN^k = N^{k+1} = N^kN$ (Proposition 1.19(a)), the terms cancel in pairs:

$$(I+N)(I-N+N^2-N^3) = I-N+N^2-N^3+N-N^2+N^3-N^4 = I-N^4 = I$$

and the product in the other order expands to the same sum. Adding the entries,

$$G = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 5 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

For instance $g_{14} = -1+4-6 = -3$ and $g_{24} = -1+6 = 5$. As a check, $\mathrm{row}_1(I+N)\,\mathrm{col}_4(G) = 1\cdot(-3)+1\cdot 5+1\cdot(-3)+1\cdot 1 = 0$.

Exercise 1.13. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $f(t) = t^2 - 3t + 2 = (t-1)(t-2)$.

(a) Compute A^2 and $f(A)$.

(b) Compute $(A-I_4)(A-2I_4)$ and $(A-2I_4)(A-I_4)$.

(c) Use (a) to write A^3 as $\alpha A + \beta I_4$, and check the result by computing AA^2.

Solution. (a) By rows (Theorem 1.4(c)), $\mathrm{row}_1(A^2) = 2\,(2,-1,0,-1) - (-1,2,0,1) - (1,-1,0,0) = (4,-3,0,-3)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(A^2) = -(2,-1,0,-1) + 2\,(-1,2,0,1) + (1,-1,0,0) = (-3,4,0,3)$, $\mathrm{row}_3(A^2) = (2,-1,0,-1) + (-1,2,0,1) + 2\,(1,1,2,0) = (3,3,4,0)$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(A^2) = (2,-1,0,-1) - (-1,2,0,1) = (3,-3,0,-2)$. So

$$A^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -3 & 0 & -3 \\ -3 & 4 & 0 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 4 & 0 \\ 3 & -3 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = 3A - 2I_4$$

since $3A - 2I_4$ has the same entries; that is, $f(A) = A^2 - 3A + 2I_4 = 0$.

(b) Here

$$A - I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A - 2I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Write $r_1', \dots, r_4'$ for the rows of $A-2I_4$ and $s_1', \dots, s_4'$ for those of $A-I_4$ ($r_i, s_i \in \mathbb{R}^4$). By Theorem 1.4(c), the rows of $(A-I_4)(A-2I_4)$ are $r_1'-r_2'-r_4' = 0$, $-r_1'+r_2'+r_4' = 0$, $r_1'+r_2'+r_3' = 0$ and $r_1'-r_2'-r_4' = 0$; the rows of $(A-2I_4)(A-I_4)$ are $-s_2'-s_4' = (0,0,0,0)$, $-s_1'+s_4' = (0,0,0,0)$, $s_1'+s_2' = (0,0,0,0)$ and $s_1'-s_2'-2s_4' = (0,0,0,0)$. Both products are 0, as Proposition 1.24(b) says: each equals $f(A)$.

(c) By (a), $A^2 = 3A-2I_4$, so $A^3 = AA^2 = 3A^2-2A = 3(3A-2I_4)-2A = 7A-6I_4$ (Proposition 1.19(a), Theorem 1.3):

$$A^3 = 7A - 6I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 8 & -7 & 0 & -7 \\ -7 & 8 & 0 & 7 \\ 7 & 7 & 8 & 0 \\ 7 & -7 & 0 & -6 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\mathrm{row}_1(AA^2) = 2\,(4,-3,0,-3) - (-3,4,0,3) - (3,-3,0,-2) = (8,-7,0,-7)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(AA^2) = -(4,-3,0,-3) + 2\,(-3,4,0,3) + (3,-3,0,-2) = (-7,8,0,7)$, $\mathrm{row}_3(AA^2) = (4,-3,0,-3) + (-3,4,0,3) + 2\,(3,3,4,0) = (7,7,8,0)$ and $\mathrm{row}_4(AA^2) = (4,-3,0,-3) - (-3,4,0,3) = (7,-7,0,-6)$.

Exercise 1.14. Let

$$S = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so that $Se_1 = e_2$, $Se_2 = e_3$, $Se_3 = e_4$, $Se_4 = e_1$.

(a) Compute S^2, S^3 and S^4, and show that $S' = S^3$ and $S'S = I_4$.

(b) Let $T = I_4 + 2S + 3S^2 + 4S^3$. Write out T and T', show that $TT' = T'T$, and compute TT'.

Solution. (a) Applying S repeatedly moves each unit vector one step along the cycle $e_1 \to e_2 \to e_3 \to e_4 \to e_1$. So $S^2 e_j = e_{j+2}$ and $S^3 e_j = e_{j+3}$, indices taken cyclically ($e_5 = e_1$, $e_6 = e_2$, …), and $S^4 e_j = e_j$. With $\mathrm{col}_j(S^k) = S^k e_j$ (Theorem 1.4(b)),

$$S^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad S^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad S^4 = I_4$$

The entries 1 of S stand in positions $(2,1)$, $(3,2)$, $(4,3)$, $(1,4)$, so by $(S')_{ij} = s_{ji}$ the entries 1 of S' stand in positions $(1,2)$, $(2,3)$, $(3,4)$, $(4,1)$, all other entries being 0. These are exactly the positions of the entries 1 of S^3, so $S' = S^3$, and then $S'S = S^3 S = S^4 = I_4$.

(b) Adding the entries of I, $2S$, $3S^2$, $4S^3$,

$$T = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 4 & 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 4 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 & 4 \\ 4 & 3 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad T' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \\ 4 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & 4 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 1.9, Proposition 1.19(a)–(c) and part (a), $(S^2)' = (SS)' = S'S' = (S^3)^2 = S^6 = S^4 S^2 = S^2$ and $(S^3)' = (S')^3 = S^9 = (S^4)^2 S = S$, so $T' = I + 4S + 3S^2 + 2S^3$. Both T and T' are polynomials in S (Definition 1.23), so $TT' = T'T$ by Proposition 1.24(b). Expanding by Theorem 1.3, and using $S^a S^b = S^{a+b}$ (Proposition 1.19(a)) and $S^4 = I$, the coefficient of S^k in $TT' = (I + 2S + 3S^2 + 4S^3)(I + 4S + 3S^2 + 2S^3)$ collects the pairs of exponents with sum k or $k + 4$:

$$\begin{aligned} I &: \ 1\cdot 1 + 2\cdot 2 + 3\cdot 3 + 4\cdot 4 = 30, & S &: \ 1\cdot 4 + 2\cdot 1 + 3\cdot 2 + 4\cdot 3 = 24 \\ S^2 &: \ 1\cdot 3 + 2\cdot 4 + 3\cdot 1 + 4\cdot 2 = 22, & S^3 &: \ 1\cdot 2 + 2\cdot 3 + 3\cdot 4 + 4\cdot 1 = 24 \end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$TT' = 30I + 24S + 22S^2 + 24S^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 30 & 24 & 22 & 24 \\ 24 & 30 & 24 & 22 \\ 22 & 24 & 30 & 24 \\ 24 & 22 & 24 & 30 \end{pmatrix}$$

Its $(1,1)$ entry is $\mathrm{row}_1(T)\,\mathrm{row}_1(T)' = 1 + 16 + 9 + 4 = 30$.

Exercise 1.15. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 3 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 4 & 0 \\ 5 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $S = \frac{1}{2}(A + A')$ and $K = \frac{1}{2}(A - A')$, and check that $S' = S$, $K' = -K$ and $S + K = A$.

(b) Compute $P'SP$ and check that it is symmetric.

Solution. (a)

$$A' = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 5 & 3 \\ 3 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ -1 & 4 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad S = \tfrac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 4 & 4 & 4 \\ 4 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 4 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 4 & 2 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$K = \tfrac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & -6 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & 6 & -2 \\ 6 & -6 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -3 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 3 & -3 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

S equals its transpose, $K' = -K$ with zero diagonal (Proposition 1.27(c)), and $S + K = A$ entry by entry.

(b) By columns (Theorem 1.4(a)), $SP = [S(1,-1,0,1)' \;\; S(0,1,2,0)']$, and then $P'(SP)$ by rows:

$$SP = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 6 \\ 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P'SP = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 6 \\ 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 5 \\ 5 & 8 \end{pmatrix}$$

which is symmetric, as Proposition 1.27(d) says.

Exercise 1.16. Let

$$M_1 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad M_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad M_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute M_1^2, M_2^2, M_2^3 and M_3^2, and decide which of the three matrices is idempotent, which nilpotent and which involutory.

(b) For the idempotent one, compute $I_4 - M_1$, $(I_4 - M_1)^2$ and $M_1(I_4 - M_1)$.

Solution. (a) By rows (Theorem 1.4(c)):

- Let $B = 2M_1$. Then $\operatorname{row}_1(B^2) = 1\,(1,0,1,0) + 1\,(1,0,1,0) = (2,0,2,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(B^2) = 1\,(0,1,0,-1) - 1\,(0,-1,0,1) = (0,2,0,-2)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(B^2) = 1\,(1,0,1,0) + 1\,(1,0,1,0) = (2,0,2,0)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(B^2) = -1\,(0,1,0,-1) + 1\,(0,-1,0,1) = (0,-2,0,2)$; so $B^2 = 2B$, and $M_1^2 = \frac{1}{4}B^2 = \frac{1}{2}B = M_1$ (Theorem 1.3).
- $\operatorname{row}_1(M_2^2) = \operatorname{row}_2(M_2) + \operatorname{row}_4(M_2) = (-2,-2,2,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(M_2^2) = -\operatorname{row}_1(M_2) - \operatorname{row}_2(M_2) + \operatorname{row}_3(M_2) = (0,0,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(M_2^2) = -\operatorname{row}_1(M_2) + \operatorname{row}_3(M_2) + \operatorname{row}_4(M_2) = (-2,-2,2,0)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(M_2^2) = -\operatorname{row}_1(M_2) - \operatorname{row}_2(M_2) + \operatorname{row}_3(M_2) = (0,0,0,0)$. Then rows 1 and 3 of $M_2^3 = M_2^2 M_2$ are $-2\operatorname{row}_1(M_2) - 2\operatorname{row}_2(M_2) + 2\operatorname{row}_3(M_2) = (0,0,0,0)$, and rows 2 and 4 are 0.
- $\operatorname{row}_1(M_3^2) = 2\,(2,0,-1,0) - (3,0,-2,0) = (1,0,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(M_3^2) = (0,1,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(M_3^2) = 3\,(2,0,-1,0) - 2\,(3,0,-2,0) = (0,0,1,0)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(M_3^2) = (0,1,0,0) - (0,1,0,-1) = (0,0,0,1)$.

$$M_1^2 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad M_2^2 = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad M_2^3 = 0$$

$$M_3^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

So M_1 is idempotent (and symmetric), M_2 is nilpotent ($M_2^3 = 0$, $M_2^2 \neq 0$; it is not triangular), and M_3 is involutory. Each lacks the other two properties: $M_1^2 = M_1 \neq I_4$, and $M_1^k = M_1 \neq 0$ for every $k \geqslant 1$ (Proposition 1.29(c)); M_2^2 differs from M_2 and from I_4 (its second row is 0, theirs are not); and $M_3^2 = I_4 \neq M_3$, while M_3^k is I_4 for even k and M_3 for odd k (Proposition 1.19(a),(b)), never 0.

(b)

$$I_4 - M_1 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad (I_4 - M_1)^2 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$M_1(I_4 - M_1) = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

By rows, with $F = 2(I_4 - M_1)$: $\operatorname{row}_1(F^2) = 1\,(1,0,-1,0) - 1\,(-1,0,1,0) = (2,0,-2,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(F^2) = 1\,(0,1,0,1) + 1\,(0,1,0,1) = (0,2,0,2)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(F^2) = -\operatorname{row}_1(F^2)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(F^2) = \operatorname{row}_2(F^2)$ ($\operatorname{row}_3(F) = -\operatorname{row}_1(F)$, $\operatorname{row}_4(F) = \operatorname{row}_2(F)$; Theorem 1.4(c)), so $F^2 = 2F$ and $(I_4 - M_1)^2 = \frac{1}{4}F^2 = \frac{1}{2}F = I_4 - M_1$; and $\operatorname{row}_1(BF) = 1\,(1,0,-1,0) + 1\,(-1,0,1,0) = 0$, $\operatorname{row}_2(BF) = 1\,(0,1,0,1) - 1\,(0,1,0,1) = 0$, $\operatorname{row}_3(BF) = \operatorname{row}_1(BF)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(BF) = -\operatorname{row}_2(BF)$ ($\operatorname{row}_3(B) = \operatorname{row}_1(B)$, $\operatorname{row}_4(B) = -\operatorname{row}_2(B)$), so $M_1(I_4 - M_1) = \frac{1}{4}BF = 0$. So $I_4 - M_1$ is idempotent and $M_1(I_4 - M_1) = 0$, as Proposition 1.29(b) says.

Exercise 1.17. Let

$$H = [h_1\ h_2\ h_3\ h_4] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that $H' = H$ and $H^2 = 4I_4$.

(b) Let $E = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,0,0)$. Compute HE, and use the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) to write HEH and H^2 as sums of the matrices $h_j h_j'$.

(c) Let $P = \frac{1}{4}HEH$, with E as in (b). Write out P, and show that $P^2 = P$, $\operatorname{tr}(P) = 2$ and $\frac{1}{4}H(I_4 - E)H = I_4 - P$.

Solution. (a) Row i of H equals h_i' for each i, so $H' = H$. Then $(H^2)_{ij} = \operatorname{row}_i(H)\operatorname{col}_j(H) = h_i' h_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). Each $h_i' h_i = 1 + 1 + 1 + 1 = 4$, and the six products with $i < j$ vanish:

$$h_1' h_2 = 1 - 1 + 1 - 1 = 0, \quad h_1' h_3 = 1 + 1 - 1 - 1 = 0, \quad h_1' h_4 = 1 - 1 - 1 + 1 = 0$$
$$h_2' h_3 = 1 - 1 - 1 + 1 = 0, \quad h_2' h_4 = 1 + 1 - 1 - 1 = 0, \quad h_3' h_4 = 1 - 1 + 1 - 1 = 0$$

So $H^2 = 4I_4$.

(b) By Proposition 1.13(a), right multiplication by E multiplies the columns of H by $1, 1, 0, 0$:

$$HE = [h_1\ h_2\ 0\ 0] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

By (a), $\operatorname{row}_j(H) = h_j'$. So the outer product expansions (Theorem 1.4(d)) of $(HE)H$ and of HH are

$$HEH = \sum_{j=1}^{4} \operatorname{col}_j(HE)\operatorname{row}_j(H) = h_1h_1' + h_2h_2'$$

$$H^2 = \sum_{j=1}^{4} \operatorname{col}_j(H)\operatorname{row}_j(H) = h_1h_1' + h_2h_2' + h_3h_3' + h_4h_4'$$

(c) By (b), $P = \frac{1}{4}HEH = \frac{1}{4}(h_1h_1' + h_2h_2')$. Here $h_1h_1' = J_4$. The ith entry of h_2 is $(-1)^{i+1}$, so the (i,j) entry of h_2h_2' is $(-1)^{i+1}(-1)^{j+1} = (-1)^{i+j}$: 1 where $i+j$ is even and -1 where $i+j$ is odd. Adding, $h_1h_1' + h_2h_2'$ has entry 2 where $i+j$ is even and 0 where $i+j$ is odd; so

$$P = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 1.3, $H^2 = 4I$ from (a), and $E^2 = E$,

$$P^2 = \tfrac{1}{16}(HEH)(HEH) = \tfrac{1}{16}HE(H^2)EH = \tfrac{1}{16}HE(4I)EH = \tfrac{1}{4}HE^2H = \tfrac{1}{4}HEH = P$$

Next $\operatorname{tr}(P) = \frac{1}{2}(1+1+1+1) = 2$. Finally, by Theorem 1.3 and (a), $\frac{1}{4}H(I-E)H = \frac{1}{4}H^2 - \frac{1}{4}HEH = \frac{1}{4}\,4I - P = I - P$.

Exercise 1.18. With $h_1, \ldots, h_4$ as in Exercise 1.17, let

$$A = [h_2\ h_3\ h_4] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$$

(a) Compute $A'A$ and AA'.

(b) Show that $AA' = 4C_4$, $\mathbf{1}_4'A = 0$ and $C_4A = A$.

(c) Compute $\operatorname{tr}(A'A)$ and $\operatorname{tr}(AA')$.

Solution. (a) $(A'A)_{jl} = h_{j+1}'h_{l+1}$, so $A'A = 4I_3$ by the products listed in Exercise 1.17(a). By Theorem 1.4(d), $AA' = h_2h_2' + h_3h_3' + h_4h_4'$, and by Exercise 1.17(a),(b), $h_1h_1' + h_2h_2' + h_3h_3' + h_4h_4' = H^2 = 4I_4$. Since $h_1h_1' = J_4$,

$$AA' = 4I_4 - J_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 3 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 3 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) $4I_4 - J_4 = 4(I_4 - \frac{1}{4}J_4) = 4C_4$ (Definition 1.14). Next $\mathbf{1}_4'A = (h_1'h_2,\ h_1'h_3,\ h_1'h_4) = 0$, so $C_4A = A - \frac{1}{4}\mathbf{1}_4(\mathbf{1}_4'A) = A$: each column of A already has mean 0.

(c) $\operatorname{tr}(A'A) = 12$ and $\operatorname{tr}(AA') = 4 \cdot 3 = 12$, equal by Theorem 1.11(b); both are the sum of the squares of the twelve entries ± 1 of A (Theorem 1.11(d)).

Exercise 1.19. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$, $B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$,

$$M = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $x = (1, -1, 2, 1)'$.

(a) Compute $\sum_i \sum_j a_{ij} b_{ij}$, $A'B$ and AB', and compare $\operatorname{tr}(A'B)$ and $\operatorname{tr}(AB')$ with the sum.

(b) Compute $x'Mx$, xx' and Mxx', and compare $\operatorname{tr}(Mxx')$ with $x'Mx$.

Solution. (a) $\sum_i \sum_j a_{ij} b_{ij} = 1 \cdot 2 + (-2) \cdot 1 + 0 \cdot 1 + 3 \cdot 0 + 2 \cdot (-1) + 1 \cdot 4 = 2$, and

$$A'B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ -2 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 9 \\ -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AB' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -9 \\ 3 & 0 & 12 \\ 5 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{tr}(A'B) = 0 + 2 = 2$ and $\operatorname{tr}(AB') = 0 + 0 + 2 = 2$, the same sum (Proposition 1.30(b)).

(b) $Mx = (1 - 2 + 0 + 1,\ -1 - 3 + 2 + 0,\ 2 + 0 - 4 + 1,\ 0 - 1 - 2 + 2)' = (0, -2, -1, -1)'$, so $x'Mx = 0 + 2 - 2 - 1 = -1$. Further

$$xx' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 4 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Mxx' = (Mx)x' = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & -4 & -2 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $\operatorname{tr}(Mxx') = 0 + 2 - 2 - 1 = -1 = x'Mx$ (Proposition 1.30(c)).

Exercise 1.20. Five units are measured on three variables, with the data matrix

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 2 \\ 3 & 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{5 \times 3}$$

(a) Find the mean vector $\bar{x}$ and the centered data matrix $C_5 X_0$.

(b) Find $M = X_0' C_5 X_0$, both as $(C_5 X_0)'(C_5 X_0)$ and as $X_0' X_0 - 5\bar{x}\bar{x}'$.

(c) For $a = (1, 1, 1)'$ and $b = (1, 0, -1)'$, let $z = X_0 a$ and $w = X_0 b$. Find $\bar{z}$, $\bar{w}$, $\sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})^2$, $\sum_i (w_i - \bar{w})^2$ and $\sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})(w_i - \bar{w})$, first by Proposition 1.34(c) and then directly.

Solution. (a) $\mathbf{1}_5' X_0 = (10, 10, 5)$, so $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{5} X_0' \mathbf{1}_5 = (2, 2, 1)'$, and $C_5 X_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}_5 \bar{x}'$ (Proposition 1.33(b)):

$$C_5 X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 0-2 & 1-2 & 1-1 \\ 3-2 & 1-2 & 0-1 \\ 2-2 & 4-2 & 2-1 \\ 3-2 & 3-2 & 1-1 \\ 2-2 & 1-2 & 1-1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) The (j,l) entry of $(C_5X_0)'(C_5X_0)$ is the product of columns j and l of C_5X_0 (Proposition 1.33(a)): $4+1+1=6$, $1+1+4+1+1=8$ and $1+1=2$ on the diagonal, and $2-1+1=2$, -1, $1+2=3$ off it. On the other hand, $X_0'X_0$ has the entries $\sum_i x_{ij}x_{il}$ (for instance $0+9+4+9+4=26$), and

$$X_0'X_0 - 5\bar{x}\bar{x}' = \begin{pmatrix} 26 & 22 & 9 \\ 22 & 28 & 13 \\ 9 & 13 & 7 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 20 & 20 & 10 \\ 20 & 20 & 10 \\ 10 & 10 & 5 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 6 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & 8 & 3 \\ -1 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = M$$

(c) By Proposition 1.34(c), $\bar{z} = a'\bar{x} = 5$ and $\bar{w} = b'\bar{x} = 1$. With $Mb = \mathrm{col}_1(M) - \mathrm{col}_3(M) = (7,-1,-3)'$,

$$a'Ma = 24, \qquad b'Mb = 7+3 = 10, \qquad a'Mb = 7-1-3 = 3$$

($a'Ma$ is the sum of all entries of M). Directly, $z = (2,4,8,7,4)'$ and $w = (-1,3,0,2,1)'$ have the means $\frac{25}{5} = 5$ and $\frac{5}{5} = 1$, the deviations are $z - 5\,\mathbf{1}_5 = (-3,-1,3,2,-1)'$ and $w - \mathbf{1}_5 = (-2,2,-1,1,0)'$, and

$$\sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})^2 = 9+1+9+4+1 = 24, \qquad \sum_i (w_i - \bar{w})^2 = 4+4+1+1+0 = 10$$

and $\sum_i (z_i - \bar{z})(w_i - \bar{w}) = 6-2-3+2+0 = 3$.

Problems

Problem 1.1. Give examples of real 2×2 matrices such that: (a) $A^2 = -I$; (b) $CD = -DC$ ($CD \neq 0$); (c) $EF = 0$ (no entries of E or F are zero).

Solution. (a) No real number a has $a^2 = -1$, but $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ gives $A^2 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0\cdot0+1\cdot(-1) & 0\cdot1+1\cdot0 \\ (-1)\cdot0+0\cdot(-1) & (-1)\cdot1+0\cdot0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -I$.

(b) For $C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $D = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$,

$$CD = \begin{pmatrix} 1-1 & -1-1 \\ 1+1 & -1+1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad DC = \begin{pmatrix} 1-1 & 1+1 \\ -1-1 & -1+1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = -CD \neq 0$$

(c) For $E = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $F = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, every entry of EF is $1\cdot1 + 1\cdot(-1) = 0$, so $EF = 0$.

Problem 1.2. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Show that $(A+B)(A-B) = A^2 - B^2$ if and only if A and B commute.

Solution. By Theorem 1.3, $(A+B)(A-B) = A(A-B) + B(A-B) = A^2 - AB + BA - B^2$. Thus $(A+B)(A-B) = A^2 - B^2$ if and only if $-AB + BA = 0$, that is, if and only if $AB = BA$.

Problem 1.3. (a) Show that the product AB of two symmetric matrices $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is symmetric if and only if A and B commute.

(b) Give an example of two symmetric matrices of the same size whose product is not symmetric.

Solution. (a) Since A and B are symmetric, $(AB)' = B'A' = BA$ (Theorem 1.9). So $AB = (AB)'$ holds if and only if $AB = BA$.

(b) Take $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Then $AB = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) \neq \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = BA$, so by (a) AB is not symmetric.

Problem 1.4. Show that for any $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times m}$, $\mathrm{tr}(ABC) = \mathrm{tr}(B'A'C') = \mathrm{tr}(A'C'B')$.

Solution. By Theorem 1.11(c), then (a), then Theorem 1.9, and finally (c) again,

$$\mathrm{tr}(ABC) = \mathrm{tr}(CAB) = \mathrm{tr}\big((CAB)'\big) = \mathrm{tr}(B'A'C') = \mathrm{tr}(A'C'B')$$

In the last step the factors $B' \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times n}$, $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$, $C' \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$ are moved cyclically.

Problem 1.5. Prove that there are no matrices $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ such that $AB - BA = I_n$.

Solution. Suppose that $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $AB - BA = I_n$. Then $\operatorname{tr}(AB - BA) = \operatorname{tr}(I_n) = n$, since the n diagonal entries of I_n are 1 (Proposition 1.30(a)). On the other hand, by Theorem 1.11(a),(b),

$$\operatorname{tr}(AB - BA) = \operatorname{tr}(AB) - \operatorname{tr}(BA) = 0$$

So $0 = n \geqslant 1$ ✘ Hence no such A and B exist.

Problem 1.6. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and let $D = \operatorname{diag}(a_{11}, \ldots, a_{nn})$. Show that the sum of all entries of A is

$$\mathbf{1}_n' A \mathbf{1}_n = \mathbf{1}_n' D \mathbf{1}_n + \operatorname{tr}\Big((\mathbf{1}_n \mathbf{1}_n' - I_n)A\Big)$$

Solution. By Theorem 1.11(a),(b),

$$\operatorname{tr}\Big((\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' - I_n)A\Big) = \operatorname{tr}(\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'A) - \operatorname{tr}(A) = \operatorname{tr}(\mathbf{1}'A\mathbf{1}) - \operatorname{tr}(A) = \mathbf{1}'A\mathbf{1} - \mathbf{1}'D\mathbf{1}$$

Here $\operatorname{tr}(\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'A) = \operatorname{tr}(\mathbf{1}'A\mathbf{1})$ moves the $n \times 1$ factor $\mathbf{1}$ past the $1 \times n$ factor $\mathbf{1}'A$; the trace of the 1×1 matrix $\mathbf{1}'A\mathbf{1}$ is that number; and $\mathbf{1}'D\mathbf{1} = \sum_i a_{ii} = \operatorname{tr}(A)$, because $D\mathbf{1} = (a_{11}, \ldots, a_{nn})'$. Rearranging gives the identity. Also $\mathbf{1}'A\mathbf{1} = \sum_i \sum_j a_{ij}$: by Theorem 1.4(b), $A\mathbf{1} = a_1 + \cdots + a_n$ has ith entry $\sum_j a_{ij}$, and by Theorem 1.9, $\mathbf{1}'(A\mathbf{1})$ is the sum of these n entries.

Problem 1.7. (a) Show that the only symmetric idempotent 2×2 matrices are I_2, 0, and uu' with $u \in \mathbb{R}^2$, $u'u = 1$.

(b) Give an example of an $n \times n$ idempotent matrix ($n \geqslant 2$) that is not symmetric.

Solution. (a) The symmetric matrix $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} a & b \\ b & d \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is idempotent if and only if $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a^2+b^2 & b(a+d) \\ b(a+d) & b^2+d^2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} a & b \\ b & d \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, that is, $a^2 + b^2 = a$, $b(a + d) = b$, $d^2 + b^2 = d$.

- If $a+d \neq 1$, the second equation gives $b = 0$; then $a^2 = a$ and $d^2 = d$, so $a, d \in \{0, 1\}$, and $a+d \neq 1$ leaves $a = d = 0$ or $a = d = 1$: $A = 0$ or $A = I_2$.
- If $a + d = 1$, then $d = 1 - a$ and the first equation gives $b^2 = a(1 - a)$, so $0 \leqslant a \leqslant 1$ and $b = \pm\sqrt{a(1-a)}$; the third equation then holds, since $(1 - a)^2 + a(1 - a) = 1 - a$. Hence

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} a & \pm\sqrt{a(1-a)} \\ \pm\sqrt{a(1-a)} & 1-a \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \sqrt{a} \\ \pm\sqrt{1-a} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \sqrt{a} & \pm\sqrt{1-a} \end{pmatrix} = uu'$$

  with the same sign throughout, and $u'u = a + (1 - a) = 1$.

Conversely, I_2 and 0 are symmetric idempotent, and if $u'u = 1$, then uu' is symmetric and $(uu')(uu') = u(u'u)u' = uu'$.

(b) Let $a, b \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $b'a = 1$, and $A = ab'$. Then $A^2 = a(b'a)b' = ab' = A$. This A is symmetric only when b is a multiple of a: if $ab' = ba'$, multiplying on the right by a gives $a(b'a) = b(a'a)$, that is, $a = (a'a)b$; here $a \neq 0$ because $b'a = 1$, so $a'a > 0$ and $b = a/(a'a)$. Conversely, if $b = ca$, then $ab' = c\,aa'$ is symmetric. For a concrete example take $a = e_1$ and $b = e_1 + e_2$: $b'a = 1$, and $A = e_1e_1' + e_1e_2'$ has $(1, 1)$ and $(1, 2)$ entries 1 and all other entries 0; for $n = 2$, $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, with $A^2 = A \neq A'$.

Problem 1.8. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $A^2 = A$ and $B^2 = B$. Show that if $(A-B)^2 = A-B$, then $AB = BA = B$.

Solution. Expanding by Theorem 1.3, $(A-B)^2 = A-B$ reads $A^2 - AB - BA + B^2 = A - B$; with $A^2 = A$ and $B^2 = B$ this is $A - AB - BA + B = A - B$, that is,

$$2B = AB + BA$$

- Multiplying on the left by A: $2AB = A^2B + ABA = AB + ABA$, hence $AB = ABA$.
- Multiplying on the right by A: $2BA = ABA + BA^2 = ABA + BA$, hence $ABA = BA$.
- Therefore $AB = BA$, and $2B = AB + BA$ gives $2B = 2AB = 2BA$, that is, $AB = BA = B$.

Problem 1.9. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Show that $\frac{1}{2}(I_n + A)$ is idempotent if and only if A is involutory.

Solution. By Theorem 1.3,

$$\left[\tfrac{1}{2}(I+A)\right]^2 = \tfrac{1}{4}I + \tfrac{1}{2}A + \tfrac{1}{4}A^2$$

So $\frac{1}{2}(I+A)$ is idempotent if and only if $\frac{1}{4}I + \frac{1}{2}A + \frac{1}{4}A^2 = \frac{1}{2}I + \frac{1}{2}A$, that is, if and only if $\frac{1}{4}A^2 = \frac{1}{4}I$, that is, if and only if $A^2 = I$: A is involutory.

Problem 1.10. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $A'A = A^2$.

(a) Show that $\operatorname{tr}\big[(A-A')'(A-A')\big] = 0$.

(b) Show that A is symmetric.

Solution. (a) Since $(A-A')' = A' - A$ and $A'A' = (AA)'$ (Theorem 1.9),

$$\begin{aligned}
\operatorname{tr}\big[(A-A')'(A-A')\big] &= \operatorname{tr}\big[A'A - A'A' - AA + AA'\big] \\
&= \operatorname{tr}(A'A) - \operatorname{tr}\big[(AA)'\big] - \operatorname{tr}(A^2) + \operatorname{tr}(AA') \\
&= \operatorname{tr}(AA') - \operatorname{tr}\big[(AA)'\big] \\
&= \operatorname{tr}(A'A) - \operatorname{tr}\big[(AA)'\big] \\
&= \operatorname{tr}(A'A) - \operatorname{tr}(AA) = 0
\end{aligned}$$

The second line uses Theorem 1.11(a) (linearity); the third, $A'A = A^2$; the fourth, $\operatorname{tr}(AA') = \operatorname{tr}(A'A)$ (Theorem 1.11(b)); the last, $\operatorname{tr}(M') = \operatorname{tr}(M)$ (Theorem 1.11(a)) and $A'A = A^2$ again.

(b) By (a) and Theorem 1.11(d), $A - A' = 0$, that is, $A' = A$.

Problem 1.11. Let $X = [x_1\ x_2\ \cdots\ x_c] \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times c}$ and let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times r}$ be symmetric. Prove that

$$\operatorname{tr}\big[(AXX')^2\big] = \sum_{j=1}^{c}\sum_{k=1}^{c}(x_j'Ax_k)^2$$

Solution. Moving factors cyclically (Theorem 1.11(c), applied twice),

$$\operatorname{tr}\big[AXX'AXX'\big] = \operatorname{tr}\big[XX'AXX'A\big] = \operatorname{tr}\big(X'AXX'AX\big)$$

Let $Y = X'AX \in \mathbb{R}^{c\times c}$; its kth column is $y_k = X'Ax_k$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).

- $Y' = X'A'X = Y$, because $A' = A$. So $\operatorname{row}_k(Y) = y_k'$, and $\operatorname{tr}(YY) = \sum_k \operatorname{row}_k(Y)\, y_k = \sum_k y_k'y_k$ (Theorem 1.4(d)).

- $y_k' = x_k'A'X = x_k'AX$, again because $A' = A$. By the outer product expansion $XX' = \sum_j x_j x_j'$ (Theorem 1.4(d)),
$$y_k'y_k = x_k'AXX'Ax_k = \sum_{j=1}^{c}(x_k'Ax_j)(x_j'Ax_k)$$
- The number $x_j'Ax_k$ equals its transpose $x_k'A'x_j = x_k'Ax_j$, so each term is $(x_k'Ax_j)^2$.

Hence $\operatorname{tr}\big[(AXX')^2\big] = \operatorname{tr}(YY) = \sum_k \sum_j (x_k'Ax_j)^2$, which is the stated double sum (the summand is symmetric in j and k).

Problem 1.12. Let $d_1, \dots, d_n$ be distinct real numbers and $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \dots, d_n)$.

(a) Show that every $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $DX = XD$ is diagonal.

(b) Suppose, moreover, that $d_1, \dots, d_n$ are nonzero, and let $N \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the $(i, i+1)$ entries 1 $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant n-1)$ and all other entries 0. Show that every $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ that commutes with D and with ND is $X = cI_n$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

(c) Show that every $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ that commutes with all matrices in $\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is $X = cI_n$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

Solution. Write $X = (x_{ij})$. By Proposition 1.13(a), left multiplication by a diagonal matrix scales the rows, and right multiplication scales the columns:

$$(DX)_{ij} = d_i x_{ij}, \qquad (XD)_{ij} = x_{ij} d_j \qquad (1 \leqslant i, j \leqslant n)$$

(a) If $DX = XD$, then $d_i x_{ij} = x_{ij} d_j$, that is, $(d_i - d_j)x_{ij} = 0$, for all i, j. For $i \neq j$, $d_i - d_j \neq 0$, so $x_{ij} = 0$: X is diagonal.

(b)

- By (a), $X = \operatorname{diag}(x_1, \dots, x_n)$, with $x_i = x_{ii}$.
- Let $M = ND = (m_{ij})$. By the same rule, column j of M is $d_j \operatorname{col}_j(N)$, so M has the $(i, i+1)$ entries $m_{i,i+1} = d_{i+1}$ $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant n-1)$ and all other entries 0.
- By the same rule for the diagonal matrix X, $(MX)_{i,i+1} = m_{i,i+1}x_{i+1} = d_{i+1}x_{i+1}$ and $(XM)_{i,i+1} = x_i m_{i,i+1} = x_i d_{i+1}$.
- As $MX = XM$, $d_{i+1}(x_{i+1} - x_i) = 0$, and $d_{i+1} \neq 0$; so $x_{i+1} = x_i$ for $i = 1, \dots, n-1$. Hence $x_1 = \cdots = x_n = c$, and $X = cI_n$.

(c) Let X commute with every matrix in $\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and take $D = \operatorname{diag}(1, 2, \dots, n)$, whose diagonal entries are distinct and nonzero. Then X commutes with D and with ND, and by (b), $X = cI_n$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

Problem 1.13. Find all matrices $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ that commute with $J_n = \mathbf{1}_n\mathbf{1}_n'$, the $n \times n$ matrix with all entries 1.

Solution. Let $\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}_n$ and $J = J_n$, and put $p = X\mathbf{1} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $q' = \mathbf{1}'X \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$. By Theorem 1.4(b),(c), the entries $p_i = \sum_j x_{ij}$ of p are the row sums of X, and the entries $q_j = \sum_i x_{ij}$ of q' are its column sums. By Theorem 1.3,

$$JX = \mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'X) = \mathbf{1}q', \qquad XJ = (X\mathbf{1})\mathbf{1}' = p\mathbf{1}'$$

so $(JX)_{ij} = q_j$ and $(XJ)_{ij} = p_i$ (Definition 1.2, with one term): every row of JX is $(q_1, \dots, q_n)$, and every column of XJ is p.

- If $JX = XJ$, then $q_j = p_i$ for all i, j. Taking $j = 1$, every p_i equals q_1; taking $i = 1$, every q_j equals $p_1 = q_1$. So all row sums and all column sums of X equal the same number $c = q_1$.

- Conversely, if every row sum and every column sum of X equals c, then all entries of JX and of XJ are c, so $JX = XJ$.

Hence X commutes with J_n if and only if $X\mathbf{1}_n = c\mathbf{1}_n$ and $\mathbf{1}_n'X = c\mathbf{1}_n'$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$, that is, all row sums and all column sums of X are equal. For instance, $aI_n + bJ_n$ has all row and column sums $a + nb$, in accordance with Example 1.25.

Problem 1.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) Suppose that $\operatorname{tr}(AX) = 0$ for every $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $\operatorname{tr}(X) = 0$. Show that $A = cI_n$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

(b) Suppose that $\operatorname{tr}(AXY) = \operatorname{tr}(AYX)$ for all $X, Y \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Show that $A = cI_n$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

Solution. Let $E_{ij} = e_ie_j' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be the matrices of Proposition 1.18. For all i, j, by Theorem 1.3, Theorem 1.11(b), applied to the $n \times 1$ matrix Ae_i and the $1 \times n$ matrix e_j', and Proposition 1.18(a),

$$\operatorname{tr}(AE_{ij}) = \operatorname{tr}\Big((Ae_i)e_j'\Big) = \operatorname{tr}\Big(e_j'Ae_i\Big) = e_j'Ae_i = a_{ji}$$

(a)

- Let $i \neq j$. The only nonzero entry of E_{ij} is its (i, j) entry (Proposition 1.18(b)), which lies off the diagonal; so $\operatorname{tr}(E_{ij}) = 0$, and by hypothesis $a_{ji} = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{ij}) = 0$. Thus A is diagonal.
- Let $i \neq j$. Then $\operatorname{tr}(E_{ii} - E_{jj}) = 1 - 1 = 0$ (Theorem 1.11(a)), and by hypothesis, with Theorems 1.3 and 1.11(a), $0 = \operatorname{tr}\Big(A(E_{ii} - E_{jj})\Big) = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{ii}) - \operatorname{tr}(AE_{jj}) = a_{ii} - a_{jj}$.
- So A is diagonal with all diagonal entries equal to a_{11}, that is, $A = a_{11}I_n$.

(b) By Theorems 1.3 and 1.11(a), the hypothesis says that $\operatorname{tr}\Big(A(XY - YX)\Big) = \operatorname{tr}(AXY) - \operatorname{tr}(AYX) = 0$ for all $X, Y \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Let $i \neq j$.

- By Proposition 1.18(c), $E_{ij}E_{jj} = E_{ij}$ and $E_{jj}E_{ij} = 0$, as $j \neq i$. With $X = E_{ij}$ and $Y = E_{jj}$, $a_{ji} = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{ij}) = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{ij}E_{jj}) = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{jj}E_{ij}) = \operatorname{tr}(A0) = 0$.
- Likewise $E_{ij}E_{ji} = E_{ii}$ and $E_{ji}E_{ij} = E_{jj}$. With $X = E_{ij}$ and $Y = E_{ji}$, $a_{ii} = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{ii}) = \operatorname{tr}(AE_{jj}) = a_{jj}$.
- As in (a), $A = a_{11}I_n$. (So the traceless matrices $E_{ij} = E_{ij}E_{jj} - E_{jj}E_{ij}$ and $E_{ii} - E_{jj} = E_{ij}E_{ji} - E_{ji}E_{ij}$ used in (a) are of the form $XY - YX$.)

Problem 1.15. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be nilpotent, with $AB = BA$. Show that $A + B$ is nilpotent.

Solution.

- $A^jB^l = B^lA^j$ for all integers $j, l \geqslant 0$. First, $AB^l = B^lA$, by induction on l: $AB^0 = A = B^0A$, and if $AB^l = B^lA$, then $AB^{l+1} = (AB^l)B = B^lAB = B^lBA = B^{l+1}A$ (Theorem 1.3). Then, by induction on j: $A^0B^l = B^l = B^lA^0$, and if $A^jB^l = B^lA^j$, then $A^{j+1}B^l = A^j(AB^l) = A^j(B^lA) = (A^jB^l)A = B^lA^jA = B^lA^{j+1}$.
- The binomial formula: for every integer $k \geqslant 0$,

$$(A + B)^k = \sum_{j=0}^{k} \binom{k}{j} A^jB^{k-j}$$

by induction on k. For $k = 0$ both sides are I_n. If the formula holds for k, then, by Theorem 1.3 and $A^jB^{k-j}A = A^jAB^{k-j} = A^{j+1}B^{k-j}$ (first item),

$$(A + B)^{k+1} = (A + B)^k(A + B) = \sum_{j=0}^{k} \binom{k}{j} A^{j+1}B^{k-j} + \sum_{j=0}^{k} \binom{k}{j} A^jB^{k+1-j} = \sum_{j=0}^{k+1} \binom{k+1}{j} A^jB^{k+1-j}$$

In the last step, the coefficient of $A^j B^{k+1-j}$ is 1 for $j = 0$ and for $j = k+1$, and for $1 \leqslant j \leqslant k$ it is, by Pascal's rule,

$$\binom{k}{j-1} + \binom{k}{j} = \frac{k!\,j + k!\,(k+1-j)}{j!\,(k+1-j)!} = \frac{(k+1)!}{j!\,(k+1-j)!} = \binom{k+1}{j}$$

- Let $A^p = 0$ and $B^q = 0$ with $p, q \geqslant 1$ (Definition 1.20), and let $m = \max\{p, q\}$. For $j \geqslant m$, $A^j = A^p A^{j-p} = 0$ (Proposition 1.19(a), Theorem 1.3); likewise $B^l = 0$ for $l \geqslant m$.
- In $(A+B)^{2m-1} = \sum_{j=0}^{2m-1} \binom{2m-1}{j} A^j B^{2m-1-j}$, either $j \geqslant m$, or $j \leqslant m-1$ and then $2m-1-j \geqslant m$. So every term has a zero factor and is 0 (Theorem 1.3). Hence $(A+B)^{2m-1} = 0$, with $2m-1 \geqslant 1$: $A+B$ is nilpotent.

Problem 1.16. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric. Show that $\operatorname{tr}\Big((AB)^2\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{tr}(A^2B^2)$.

Solution. Let $K = AB - BA$.

- K is skew-symmetric: as $A' = A$ and $B' = B$, $K' = B'A' - A'B' = BA - AB = -K$ (Theorem 1.9).
- Hence $K'K = -K^2$, and by Theorem 1.11(a),(d), $\operatorname{tr}(K^2) = -\operatorname{tr}(K'K) = -\sum_{i,j} k_{ij}^2 \leqslant 0$.
- By Theorem 1.3, $K^2 = ABAB - ABBA - BAAB + BABA$. By Theorem 1.11(b), applied to the factors B and ABA, to A and B^2A, to B^2 and A^2, and to B and A^2B,

$$\operatorname{tr}(BABA) = \operatorname{tr}(ABAB), \qquad \operatorname{tr}(ABBA) = \operatorname{tr}(B^2A^2) = \operatorname{tr}(A^2B^2), \qquad \operatorname{tr}(BAAB) = \operatorname{tr}(A^2B^2)$$

- So, by Theorem 1.11(a),

$$0 \geqslant \operatorname{tr}(K^2) = 2\operatorname{tr}\Big((AB)^2\Big) - 2\operatorname{tr}(A^2B^2)$$

that is, $\operatorname{tr}\Big((AB)^2\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{tr}(A^2B^2)$.

Problem 1.17. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric and nilpotent: $A^k = 0$ for some integer $k \geqslant 1$ (Definition 1.20). Show that $A = 0$. (Compare the matrix X of Remark 1.7: $X \neq 0$ and $X^2 = 0$, but X is not symmetric, since $x_{12} = 1 \neq 2 = x_{21}$.)

Solution. Since $A^1 = A^0 A = I_n A = A$ (Theorem 1.3), the case $k = 1$ is $A = A^1 = 0$. Let $k \geqslant 2$. It suffices to show that, for every integer j with $2 \leqslant j \leqslant k$, $A^j = 0$ implies $A^{j-1} = 0$: then $A^k = 0$ gives, in turn, $A^{k-1} = 0, \ldots, A^1 = 0$, that is, $A = 0$.

So let $2 \leqslant j \leqslant k$ and $A^j = 0$. Since $A' = A$, Proposition 1.19(a) and Theorem 1.3 give

$$A'A\,A^{j-2} = A^2A^{j-2} = A^j = 0 = A'A\,0$$

where $A^{j-2} = A^0 = I_n$ if $j = 2$, and 0 is the $n \times n$ zero matrix. By Corollary 1.31(b), with $B_1 = A^{j-2}$ and $B_2 = 0$ ($m = p = n$), $A\,A^{j-2} = A\,0$, that is,

$$A^{j-1} = A\,A^{j-2} = A\,0 = 0$$

again by Proposition 1.19(a) and Theorem 1.3.

Chapter 2. Gauss elimination, RREF, and inverses

Linear systems and augmented matrices

Definition 2.1. Let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $b \in \mathbb{R}^m$. The system of m linear equations in n unknowns

$$\begin{aligned} a_{11}x_1 + a_{12}x_2 + \cdots + a_{1n}x_n &= b_1 \\ &\vdots \\ a_{m1}x_1 + a_{m2}x_2 + \cdots + a_{mn}x_n &= b_m \end{aligned}$$

is the matrix equation $Ax = b$, since $(Ax)_i = \sum_j a_{ij}x_j$. A is the **coefficient matrix** and $[A \mid b] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times(n+1)}$, the matrix A with the column b appended, is the **augmented matrix**. A **solution** is an $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $Ax = b$. The system is **consistent** if it has a solution and **inconsistent** otherwise. It is **homogeneous** if $b = 0$; then $x = 0$ is a solution, the **trivial solution**.

Elementary row operations

Definition 2.2. The **elementary row operations** on a matrix with m rows are, for row indices $r \neq s$:

(1) multiply row r by a number $c \neq 0$, written $R_r \leftarrow cR_r$;

(2) add c times row s to row r ($c \in \mathbb{R}$), written $R_r \leftarrow R_r + cR_s$;

(3) interchange rows r and s, written $R_r \leftrightarrow R_s$.

When several operations label one arrow, they are performed one after another, in the order written (upper label first). B is **row-equivalent** to A if B is obtained from A by finitely many elementary row operations.

Theorem 2.3. (a) Each elementary row operation is undone by an operation of the same type: $R_r \leftarrow cR_r$ by $R_r \leftarrow c^{-1}R_r$, $R_r \leftarrow R_r + cR_s$ by $R_r \leftarrow R_r - cR_s$, and $R_r \leftrightarrow R_s$ by itself.

(b) If row operations take $[A \mid b]$ to $[B \mid z]$, then the systems $Ax = b$ and $Bx = z$ have exactly the same solutions.

Proof. (a) is checked row by row. (b) It suffices to consider one operation. Each equation of the new system is a multiple of an equation of the old one, or a sum of an old equation and a multiple of another, so every solution of $Ax = b$ solves $Bx = z$. By (a), the old system is obtained back from the new one by a row operation, so every solution of $Bx = z$ solves $Ax = b$. □

So we solve a system by simplifying its augmented matrix with row operations; the next definition says how far to simplify.

Echelon form and RREF

Definition 2.4. A matrix R is in **reduced row echelon form** (**RREF**) if

(a) the first nonzero entry of each nonzero row is 1, its **pivot**;

(b) each column that contains a pivot has all its other entries 0;

(c) every zero row lies below every nonzero row;

(d) if rows $1, \ldots, r$ are the nonzero rows and the pivot of row i lies in column k_i, then $k_1 < k_2 < \cdots < k_r$.

The columns $k_1, \dots, k_r$ are the **pivot columns**; column k_i of R is the unit vector e_i. A matrix that satisfies (a), (c), (d), but not necessarily (b), is in **echelon form**; then every entry below a pivot is 0.

For example, I_n and 0 are in RREF, and so is

$$R = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -3 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (r = 2,\ k_1 = 2,\ k_2 = 4)$$

The matrix $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is in echelon form but not in RREF (column 3 violates (b)), and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ violates (a) and (d).

Definition 2.5 (Gauss–Jordan elimination)**.** Let M be any matrix (for instance an augmented matrix). Start with $i = 1$.

Step 1. Find the first column that has a nonzero entry in rows $i, i+1, \dots$; if there is none, go to Step 5. This is the next pivot column.

Step 2. If the entry of row i in this column is 0, interchange row i with a lower row that has a nonzero entry there.

Step 3. Multiply row i by the reciprocal of this entry, so that the pivot is 1.

Step 4. Add suitable multiples of row i to the rows below it, so that every entry below the pivot is 0. Increase i by 1 and return to Step 1.

Step 5. (*Backward elimination.*) For each pivot, from the last one to the first, add suitable multiples of its row to the rows above it, so that every entry above the pivot is 0.

Steps 1–4 (**forward elimination**) produce an echelon form; Step 5 produces a matrix in RREF. Indeed, when Step 1 finds the pivot column of row i, rows $i, i+1, \dots$ are 0 in every column before it, and Step 4 makes rows $i+1, i+2, \dots$ 0 in this column too; so each nonzero row begins with its pivot 1, the pivot columns are taken from left to right, and the rows left when Step 1 finds no column are zero. Thus forward elimination ends in an echelon form, with pivots in columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$, say. In Step 5, when the pivot of row i is processed, row i is 0 before column k_i and, the pivots of rows $i+1, \dots, r$ being done, 0 in columns $k_{i+1}, \dots, k_r$; so the multiples of row i that are added change no entry before column k_i and no other pivot column, and in the end every column k_i is e_i. The scaling in Step 3 may also be postponed, to the end of forward elimination or even to the very end (the leading entries become 1 only then); this often avoids fractions. So for every matrix M, some matrix in RREF is row-equivalent to M.

Example 2.6. Solve the homogeneous system

$$x_1 + x_2 + x_3 - 2x_4 = 0, \qquad x_1 + x_2 + 2x_3 - 3x_4 = 0, \qquad 2x_1 + x_2 + 5x_3 - 4x_4 = 0$$

Solution. Row-reduce the coefficient matrix A (the column $b = 0$ never changes, so it is not written).

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -3 \\ 2 & 1 & 5 & -4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 3R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

After the first arrow the entry of row 2 in column 2 is 0, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3, and Step 3 multiplies the new row 2 by -1. The first matrix of the second line is an echelon form (end of forward elimination); the last matrix, R, is in RREF, with pivot columns $1, 2, 3$. The system $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 2x_4 = 0$, $x_2 - 3x_4 = 0$, $x_3 - x_4 = 0$, so $x_4 = t$ is free and all solutions are

$$x = t\,(-2,\ 3,\ 1,\ 1)' \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $-2 + 3 + 1 - 2 = 0$, $-2 + 3 + 2 - 3 = 0$, $-4 + 3 + 5 - 4 = 0$.

Reading off the solutions

Proposition 2.7. Let row operations take $[A \mid b]$ ($A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$) to $[R \mid z]$ with R in RREF, nonzero rows $1,\dots,r$ and pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$. Call $x_{k_1},\dots,x_{k_r}$ the **pivot unknowns** and the other $n-r$ unknowns the **free unknowns**.

(a) $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $z_i = 0$ for every $i > r$, that is, no row of $[R \mid z]$ reads $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid z_i)$ with $z_i \neq 0$.

(b) If it is consistent, all solutions are obtained by choosing arbitrary values for the free unknowns and computing each pivot unknown from its row: $x_{k_i} = z_i - \sum_{j \text{ free}} R_{ij}x_j$ $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant r)$.

Proof. By Theorem 2.3, $Ax = b$ and $Rx = z$ have the same solutions. (a) Row $i > r$ of $Rx = z$ reads $0 = z_i$. So there is no solution if one of these z_i is not 0; if all of them are 0, these rows hold for every x, and the argument for (b) gives a solution. (b) For $i \leqslant r$, column k_l of R is e_l, so the pivot unknown x_{k_i} occurs only in equation i, with coefficient 1; each choice of the free unknowns therefore gives exactly one solution. □

Theorem 2.8. For every matrix A, exactly one matrix in RREF is row-equivalent to A; it is called **the RREF of** A.

Proof. By Definition 2.5, for every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ some matrix in RREF is row-equivalent to A. Let R and S be matrices in RREF that are row-equivalent to A; we show $R = S$ by induction on n, for fixed m.

- $n = 1$: an $m \times 1$ matrix in RREF is 0 or e_1. Row operations take 0 to 0, and a nonzero matrix to a nonzero one, since they can be undone (Theorem 2.3(a)). So $R = S = 0$ if $A = 0$, and $R = S = e_1$ otherwise.
- Let $n > 1$, and let $\hat{A}, \hat{R}, \hat{S}$ consist of the first $n-1$ columns of A, R, S. Row operations act on each column separately: by Definition 2.2, each of them computes the new entries of a column from the entries of that column only. So the operations that take A to R take $\hat{A}$ to $\hat{R}$. Moreover $\hat{R}$ is in RREF: a row of R whose pivot lies in column n is the last nonzero row, and it becomes a zero row of $\hat{R}$. Likewise for $\hat{S}$; so $\hat{R} = \hat{S}$ by the induction hypothesis.
- Suppose $R \neq S$; then they differ in column n, say in row i. The systems $Ax = 0$, $Rx = 0$ and $Sx = 0$ have the same solutions (Theorem 2.3(b)). Subtracting equation i of $Sx = 0$ from equation i of $Rx = 0$ leaves $(r_{in} - s_{in})x_n = 0$, so $x_n = 0$ for every solution.
- Hence x_n is not a free unknown of $Rx = 0$, since a free unknown can take the value 1 (Proposition 2.7(b)): column n of R is a pivot column, and so is column n of S.
- Let r be the number of nonzero rows of $\hat{R} = \hat{S}$. In R, rows $1,\dots,r$ have their pivots before column n, and rows $r+1,\dots,m$ are zero before column n; as zero rows come last, the pivot of column n lies in row $r+1$, and column n of R is e_{r+1} (Definition 2.4). The same holds for S. So $R = S$ ✘ □

In particular, the pivot columns, and hence the free unknowns of $Ax = b$, do not depend on the row operations used to reach the RREF.

Example 2.9. For the RREF R displayed after Definition 2.4, the system $Rx = 0$ is $x_2 - 3x_3 + 2x_5 = 0$, $x_4 + 2x_5 = 0$; the pivot unknowns are x_2, x_4 and the free unknowns x_1, x_3, x_5. With $x_1 = a$, $x_3 = b$, $x_5 = c$, all solutions are

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} a \\ 3b - 2c \\ b \\ -2c \\ c \end{pmatrix} = a\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + b\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + c\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ -2 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (a, b, c \in \mathbb{R})$$

Example 2.10. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

For which $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3, y_4)'$ is $Ax = y$ consistent? Solve it for $y = (4, 7, 4, 7)'$.

Solution. Row-reduce the augmented matrix, keeping $y_1, \dots, y_4$ as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 & y_2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & y_3 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 1 & y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 & y_2 - 2y_1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & y_3 - y_1 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -1 & y_4 - 2y_1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2y_1 - y_2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & y_3 - y_1 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -1 & y_4 - 2y_1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2y_1 - y_2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2y_1 - 2y_2 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2y_1 - y_2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & y_2 - y_3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & y_1 - y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & -2y_1 + y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & y_1 - y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is the RREF of A, with $r = 3$ and pivot columns $1, 2, 4$, and $z_4 = y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4$. By Proposition 2.7, the system is consistent if and only if $y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$; then $x_3 = c$ is free and

$$x_1 = -2y_1 + y_2 + y_3 - 2c, \qquad x_2 = y_1 - y_3 + c, \qquad x_3 = c, \qquad x_4 = y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \qquad (c \in \mathbb{R})$$

For $y = (4, 7, 4, 7)'$, $4 - 7 - 4 + 7 = 0$, and the solutions are $x = (3, 0, 0, 1)' + c\,(-2, 1, 1, 0)'$: the solution $(3, 0, 0, 1)'$ plus the multiples of $(-2, 1, 1, 0)'$, which solve $Ax = 0$. Check: $A(3, 0, 0, 1)' = (4, 7, 4, 7)'$, and $A(-2, 1, 1, 0)' = 0$ says $\mathrm{col}_3(A) = 2\,\mathrm{col}_1(A) - \mathrm{col}_2(A)$. For $y = (1, 0, 0, 0)'$, $y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 = 1 \neq 0$, so $Ax = y$ has no solution.

Homogeneous systems

Theorem 2.11. (a) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$ with $m < n$ (fewer equations than unknowns), then $Ax = 0$ has a nontrivial solution.

(b) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, $Ax = 0$ has only the trivial solution if and only if the RREF of A is I_n.

Proof. Let R be the RREF of A, with r nonzero rows. (a) $r \leqslant m < n$, so there is a free unknown; giving it the value 1 and the other free unknowns the value 0 gives a solution $x \neq 0$ (Proposition 2.7(b)). (b) If $R = I$, then $Rx = x$, so $x = 0$ is the only solution (Theorem 2.3(b)). If $Ax = 0$ has only the trivial solution, there is no free unknown, so $r = n$; then $1 \leqslant k_1 < \cdots < k_n \leqslant n$ forces $k_i = i$, so column i of R is e_i and $R = I$. □

Inverses

Definition 2.12. $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is **invertible** if $AB = BA = I_n$ for some $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$. Such a B is unique: if $BA = I$ and $AB_1 = I$, then $B = B(AB_1) = (BA)B_1 = B_1$. It is called the **inverse** of A,

written A^{-1}. For example, $\operatorname{diag}(d_1,\dots,d_n)$ with all $d_i \neq 0$ has inverse $\operatorname{diag}(d_1^{-1},\dots,d_n^{-1})$, since by Proposition 1.13(b) the products in both orders are $\operatorname{diag}(1,\dots,1) = I$.

Theorem 2.13. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible.

(a) A^{-1} is invertible and $(A^{-1})^{-1} = A$.

(b) AB is invertible and $(AB)^{-1} = B^{-1}A^{-1}$; more generally $(A_1\cdots A_k)^{-1} = A_k^{-1}\cdots A_1^{-1}$ for invertible $A_1,\dots,A_k$.

(c) A' is invertible and $(A')^{-1} = (A^{-1})'$.

Proof. (a) $AA^{-1} = A^{-1}A = I$ says that A is the inverse of A^{-1}. (b) $(AB)(B^{-1}A^{-1}) = A(BB^{-1})A^{-1} = AA^{-1} = I$, and similarly $(B^{-1}A^{-1})(AB) = I$; for k factors repeat this. (c) $A'(A^{-1})' = (A^{-1}A)' = I$ and $(A^{-1})'A' = (AA^{-1})' = I$ by Theorem 1.9. □

Elementary matrices

Definition 2.14. An **elementary matrix** is a matrix $E = \omega(I_m)$ obtained from I_m by one elementary row operation ω. For $r \neq s$ we write:

- $D_r(c)$ ($c \neq 0$): I_m with its (r,r) entry replaced by c (from $R_r \leftarrow cR_r$);
- $T_{rs}(c)$: I_m with its (r,s) entry replaced by c (from $R_r \leftarrow R_r + cR_s$);
- P_{rs}: I_m with rows r and s interchanged (from $R_r \leftrightarrow R_s$).

For example, for $m = 4$:

$$P_{23} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad T_{31}(c) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ c & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad D_3(c) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & c & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Theorem 2.15. Let ω be an elementary row operation on matrices with m rows and $E = \omega(I_m)$.

(a) $\omega(A) = EA$ for every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$: a row operation is a left multiplication.

(b) E is invertible, and E^{-1} is the elementary matrix of the inverse operation: $D_r(c)^{-1} = D_r(c^{-1})$, $T_{rs}(c)^{-1} = T_{rs}(-c)$, $P_{rs}^{-1} = P_{rs}$.

(c) If row operations $\omega_1,\dots,\omega_k$ (in this order) take A to B, then $B = PA$ with $P = E_k\cdots E_2E_1$, $E_j = \omega_j(I_m)$; and P is invertible.

Proof. (a) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_i(EA) = \operatorname{row}_i(E)A$. An unchanged row of E is e_i', and $e_i'A = \operatorname{row}_i(A)$ (Proposition 1.18(a)). For type (2), $\operatorname{row}_r(E) = e_r' + ce_s'$, so $\operatorname{row}_r(EA) = \operatorname{row}_r(A) + c\operatorname{row}_s(A)$; types (1) and (3) are the same computation. (b) Let $\tilde\omega$ be the inverse operation (Theorem 2.3(a)) and $\tilde E = \tilde\omega(I)$. By (a), $E\tilde E = \omega(\tilde\omega(I)) = I$ and $\tilde E E = \tilde\omega(\omega(I)) = I$. (c) By (a), $B = E_k(\cdots(E_1A)) = (E_k\cdots E_1)A$, and a product of invertible matrices is invertible (Theorem 2.13(b)). □

Deciding invertibility and computing inverses

Theorem 2.16. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ the following are equivalent:

(i) A is invertible;

(ii) the RREF of A is I_n;

(iii) $Ax = 0$ has only the trivial solution;

(iv) $Ax = b$ has a solution for every $b \in \mathbb{R}^n$;

(v) A is a product of elementary matrices.

Moreover, if $BA = I$ or $AB = I$ for some $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, then A is invertible and $B = A^{-1}$.

Proof. Let $R = PA$ be the RREF of A, with $P = E_k \cdots E_1$ (Theorem 2.15(c)).

- If $R = I$, then $A = P^{-1} = E_1^{-1} \cdots E_k^{-1}$ is a product of elementary matrices, hence invertible (Theorem 2.13(b)); $Ax = 0$ has only the trivial solution (Theorem 2.11(b)); and $x = A^{-1}b$ solves $Ax = b$.
- If $R \neq I$, then R has a zero row, hence a zero last row (by (c) of Definition 2.4); otherwise $r = n$, so $1 \leqslant k_1 < \cdots < k_n \leqslant n$ forces $k_i = i$, column i of R is e_i for every i, and $R = I$. Then $Ax = 0$ has a solution $x \neq 0$ (Theorem 2.11(b)), so A has no inverse (else $x = A^{-1}Ax = 0$ ✘), and A is not a product of elementary matrices (such a product is invertible, Theorems 2.15(b) and 2.13(b)). For $b = P^{-1}e_n$, $Ax = b$ holds if and only if $Rx = PAx = Pb = e_n$ does, as P is invertible (Theorem 2.15(c)); the last equation of $Rx = e_n$ reads $0 = 1$, so (iv) fails.

Thus each of (i)–(v) holds exactly when $R = I$. If $BA = I$, then $Ax = 0$ gives $x = BAx = 0$, so A is invertible by (iii), and $B = BAA^{-1} = A^{-1}$. If $AB = I$, then B is invertible with $B^{-1} = A$ by the case just shown, so $A = B^{-1}$ is invertible with $A^{-1} = B$. □

Corollary 2.17 (Computing A^{-1})**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and row-reduce the $n \times 2n$ matrix $[A \mid I_n]$ by Gauss–Jordan elimination.

(a) If the left half becomes I_n, the right half is A^{-1}.

(b) If a zero row appears in the left half, A is not invertible.

Proof. (a) $[A \mid I] \to [I \mid B]$ means $E[A \mid I] = [EA \mid E] = [I \mid B]$ for the product E of the elementary matrices used (Theorem 2.15(c); E multiplies each column separately, Theorem 1.4(a)), so $EA = I$ and $B = E = A^{-1}$ by the last sentence of Theorem 2.16.

(b) The left half is then EA, with E the (invertible) product of the elementary matrices used so far (Theorem 2.15(c)). For every $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, EAX has the same zero row (Theorem 1.4(c)), so $EAX \neq I_n$ and EA is not invertible; if A were invertible, so would be EA (Theorem 2.13(b)). □

Proposition 2.18. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$. Then A is invertible if and only if $ad - bc \neq 0$, and in that case

$$A^{-1} = \frac{1}{ad - bc} \begin{pmatrix} d & -b \\ -c & a \end{pmatrix}$$

Proof. We row-reduce $[A \mid I_2]$ and read the result by Corollary 2.17. Put $\Delta = ad - bc$.

- Let $a \neq 0$. Then
$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} a & b & 1 & 0 \\ c & d & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - \frac{c}{a}R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} a & b & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{\Delta}{a} & -\frac{c}{a} & 1 \end{array}\right)$$
since $d - \frac{cb}{a} = \frac{\Delta}{a}$. If $\Delta = 0$, the left half has a zero row, so A is not invertible (Corollary 2.17(b)).
- Let $a \neq 0$ and $\Delta \neq 0$. Then
$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{a}{\Delta}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{a}R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & \frac{b}{a} & \frac{1}{a} & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{c}{\Delta} & \frac{a}{\Delta} \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - \frac{b}{a}R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & 0 & \frac{d}{\Delta} & -\frac{b}{\Delta} \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{c}{\Delta} & \frac{a}{\Delta} \end{array}\right)$$
using $\frac{1}{a} + \frac{bc}{a\Delta} = \frac{\Delta + bc}{a\Delta} = \frac{d}{\Delta}$. The left half is I_2, so A is invertible and the right half is the stated A^{-1} (Corollary 2.17(a)).

- Let $a = 0$, so that $\Delta = -bc$. If $c = 0$, the first column of A is zero, so $Ae_1 = 0$ and A is not invertible (Theorem 2.16, (i) $\Leftrightarrow$ (iii)). Let $c \neq 0$. Then

$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 0 & b & 1 & 0 \\ c & d & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} c & d & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & b & 1 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

  If $b = 0$, the left half has a zero row, and A is not invertible (Corollary 2.17(b)). So for $a = 0$, A is invertible only if $b \neq 0$ and $c \neq 0$, that is, only if $\Delta = -bc \neq 0$.

- Let $a = 0$ and $b, c \neq 0$. Then

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{b} R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{c} R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & \frac{d}{c} & 0 & \frac{1}{c} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{b} & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - \frac{d}{c} R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & 0 & -\frac{d}{bc} & \frac{1}{c} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{b} & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

  and with $\Delta = -bc$ the right half is $\frac{1}{\Delta}\begin{pmatrix} d & -b \\ -c & 0 \end{pmatrix}$, the stated A^{-1} for $a = 0$ (Corollary 2.17(a)).

In both cases A is invertible exactly when $\Delta \neq 0$, with the stated inverse. □

The formula is easy to check by multiplication: $\begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} d & -b \\ -c & a \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} ad-bc & 0 \\ 0 & ad-bc \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} d & -b \\ -c & a \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{pmatrix}$.

Example 2.19. For $A = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 5 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$, $ad - bc = 6 - 5 = 1$, so Proposition 2.18 gives $A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -5 \\ -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$. For $B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 6 \\ 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$, $ad - bc = 6 - 6 = 0$, so B is not invertible; indeed $x = (3, -1)' \neq 0$ satisfies $Bx = (6 - 6,\ 3 - 3)' = 0$ (Theorem 2.16, (i) $\Leftrightarrow$ (iii)).

Example 2.20. Find the inverse of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and write A and A^{-1} as products of elementary matrices.

Solution. Forward elimination of $[A \mid I_4]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

After the first arrow the entry of row 2 in column 2 is 0, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3, and Step 3 multiplies the new row 3 by -1. Backward elimination, clearing columns 4, 3, 2 in turn:

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left half has become I_4, so by Corollary 2.17(a)

$$A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_3(A)A^{-1} = (2,-1,2,-1)A^{-1} = (0+1-2+1,\ 2+0-2+0,\ 2-1+0+0,\ 0+1+0-1) = (0,0,1,0)$, and similarly for the other rows. The nine operations have the elementary matrices

$$E_1 = T_{21}(1),\ E_2 = T_{31}(-2),\ E_3 = T_{41}(-1),\ E_4 = P_{23},\ E_5 = D_3(-1)$$
$$E_6 = T_{14}(1),\ E_7 = T_{24}(-1),\ E_8 = T_{13}(-1),\ E_9 = T_{12}(1)$$

By Theorem 2.15(c), $E_9E_8\cdots E_1A = I_4$, so $A^{-1} = E_9E_8\cdots E_1$ by the last sentence of Theorem 2.16. By Theorem 2.13(a), $A = (A^{-1})^{-1}$; so, by Theorems 2.13(b) and 2.15(b),

$$A = E_1^{-1}E_2^{-1}\cdots E_9^{-1} = T_{21}(-1)\,T_{31}(2)\,T_{41}(1)\,P_{23}\,D_3(-1)\,T_{14}(-1)\,T_{24}(1)\,T_{13}(1)\,T_{12}(-1)$$

Example 2.21. Find the inverse of

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \\ 1 & 3 & 6 & 10 \\ 1 & 4 & 10 & 20 \end{pmatrix}$$

(each entry outside row 1 and column 1 is the sum of the entry above it and the entry to its left; P is the 4×4 **Pascal matrix**).

Solution. Every pivot is 1, so no scaling is needed. Forward elimination:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 3 & 6 & 10 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 4 & 10 & 20 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 5 & 9 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 9 & 19 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-3R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 10 & 2 & -3 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-3R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

Backward elimination, clearing columns 4, 3, 2 in turn:

$$\xrightarrow[R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_4]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-3R_4,\ R_2\leftarrow R_2-3R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -3 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 & -8 & 9 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 4 & -11 & 10 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 8 & -7 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -6 & 14 & -11 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 4 & -11 & 10 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 & -6 & 4 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -6 & 14 & -11 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 4 & -11 & 10 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left half has become I_4, so by Corollary 2.17(a)

$$P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -6 & 4 & -1 \\ -6 & 14 & -11 & 3 \\ 4 & -11 & 10 & -3 \\ -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_2(P)P^{-1} = (4-12+12-4,\ -6+28-33+12,\ 4-22+30-12,\ -1+6-9+4) = (0,1,0,0)$, and similarly for the other rows. Every operation added an integer multiple of one row to another, so the right half stayed an integer matrix throughout; this is why P^{-1} has integer entries.

Example 2.22. The matrix A of Example 2.10 is not invertible: as the left part of the last matrix there shows, its RREF is

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \neq I_4$$

Accordingly $Ax = 0$ has the nontrivial solution $x = (-2, 1, 1, 0)'$, and $Ax = y$ has no solution for $y = (1, 0, 0, 0)'$ (Theorem 2.16, (iii) and (iv)).

Corollary 2.23. (a) Let $A_1, \dots, A_k \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. The product $A_1 A_2 \cdots A_k$ is invertible if and only if every A_j is invertible.

(b) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is symmetric and invertible, then A^{-1} is symmetric.

Proof. (a) • If every A_j is invertible, so is the product (Theorem 2.13(b)).

- Let $M = A_1 \cdots A_k$ be invertible. If $A_k x = 0$, then $Mx = (A_1 \cdots A_{k-1})A_k x = 0$, so $x = M^{-1}Mx = 0$. Hence A_k is invertible (Theorem 2.16, (iii) $\Rightarrow$ (i)).
- Then $A_1 \cdots A_{k-1} = MA_k^{-1}$ is invertible (Theorem 2.13(b)), and the same argument, applied to these $k-1$ factors, shows that A_{k-1} is invertible. Continuing in this way, every A_j is invertible.

(b) As $A' = A$, Theorem 2.13(c) gives $(A^{-1})' = (A')^{-1} = A^{-1}$. □

For instance, the Pascal matrix P of Example 2.21 is symmetric, and so is its inverse

$$P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -6 & 4 & -1 \\ -6 & 14 & -11 & 3 \\ 4 & -11 & 10 & -3 \\ -1 & 3 & -3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By (a), a product of square matrices with a factor that is not invertible is not invertible.

Row equivalence

Corollary 2.24. Let $A, B, G \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) B is row-equivalent to A if and only if $B = PA$ for some invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$. Moreover, if row operations take the $m \times (n+m)$ matrix $[A \mid I_m]$ to $[B \mid P]$, then P is invertible and $B = PA$.

(b) If B is row-equivalent to A, then A is row-equivalent to B. If, in addition, G is row-equivalent to B, then G is row-equivalent to A.

(c) B is row-equivalent to A if and only if A and B have the same RREF.

Proof. (a) • If B is row-equivalent to A, then $B = PA$ with $P = E_k \cdots E_1$ invertible (Theorem 2.15(c)).

- Conversely, let $B = PA$ with P invertible. By Theorem 2.16 ((i) $\Rightarrow$ (v)), $P = F_1 F_2 \cdots F_l$ with elementary matrices F_j. Then $B = F_1(F_2(\cdots(F_l A)))$ is obtained from A by the row operations of $F_l, F_{l-1}, \dots, F_1$, in this order (Theorem 2.15(a)).
- Let row operations take $[A \mid I_m]$ to $[B \mid P]$, and let E be the product of their elementary matrices (Theorem 2.15(c)). Since E multiplies each column separately (Theorem 1.4(a)), $[B \mid P] = E[A \mid I_m] = [EA \mid E]$. So $P = E$ is invertible and $B = EA = PA$.

(b) • Let row operations $\omega_1, \dots, \omega_k$ take A to B, and let $\tilde{\omega}_j$ be the operation that undoes ω_j (Theorem 2.3(a)). Applying $\tilde{\omega}_k, \dots, \tilde{\omega}_1$, in this order, to B undoes $\omega_k, \dots, \omega_1$ in turn and gives A.

- If row operations $\omega_1', \dots, \omega_l'$ take B to G, then $\omega_1, \dots, \omega_k, \omega_1', \dots, \omega_l'$ take A to G.

(c)
- Let B be row-equivalent to A, and let S be the RREF of B. Operations taking A to B, followed by operations taking B to S, take A to S; so S is the RREF of A (Theorem 2.8).
- Let A and B have the same RREF R. Then R is row-equivalent to A, and B is row-equivalent to R (by (b)); so B is row-equivalent to A (by (b)). □

Example 2.25. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

be the matrix of Example 2.10, and R its RREF. Find an invertible P with $PA = R$.

Solution. Row-reduce $[A \mid I_4]$ with the operations of Example 2.10:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -1 & -2 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -1 & -2 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left half is R. By Corollary 2.24(a),

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \quad \text{is invertible, and} \quad PA = R = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Check: $\mathrm{row}_4(P)A = (1,2,0,1) - (2,3,1,1) - (1,1,1,1) + (2,2,2,1) = (0,0,0,0)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), and likewise $\mathrm{row}_1(P)A = (1,0,2,0)$, $\mathrm{row}_2(P)A = (0,1,-1,0)$, $\mathrm{row}_3(P)A = (0,0,0,1)$.
- For $y \in \mathbb{R}^4$, $Py = (-2y_1 + y_2 + y_3,\ y_1 - y_3,\ y_1 - y_2 + y_3,\ y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4)'$ is the last column of the last matrix in Example 2.10: the same operations take $[A \mid y]$ to $[PA \mid Py] = [R \mid Py]$.
- As P is invertible, $Ax = y$ holds if and only if $Rx = PAx = Py$ does. Row 4 of R is zero, so by Proposition 2.7(a), $Ax = y$ is consistent exactly when $\mathrm{row}_4(P)\, y = y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$, the condition found in Example 2.10.

Solving $Ax = b$

In practice $Ax = b$ is solved by forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$ alone: an echelon form already shows whether there is a solution, and how many.

Theorem 2.26. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $b \in \mathbb{R}^m$, and let row operations take $[A \mid b]$ to a matrix $[H \mid d]$ in echelon form ($H \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $d \in \mathbb{R}^m$). Then $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $[H \mid d]$ has no row $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid c)$ with $c \neq 0$, that is, if and only if the last column of $[H \mid d]$ is not a pivot column. Moreover, if row operations take $[A \mid b]$ to any matrix, in echelon form or not, with a row $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid c)$, $c \neq 0$, then $Ax = b$ has no solution. If $[H \mid d]$ has no such row, call x_j a pivot unknown when column j of H is a pivot column and a free unknown otherwise, as in Proposition 2.7; then each choice of values of the free unknowns gives, by **back substitution** (solving the equations of the nonzero rows of H, from the last one up, for their pivot unknowns), exactly one solution, and every solution arises in this way.

Proof. • By Theorem 2.3, $Ax = b$ and $Hx = d$ have the same solutions. In an echelon form, a row $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid c)$ with $c \neq 0$ is exactly a row whose pivot lies in the last column.

- Let row operations take $[A \mid b]$ to a matrix $[B \mid z]$ with a row $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid c)$, $c \neq 0$. The corresponding equation of $Bx = z$ reads $0 = c$, and no x satisfies it; as $Bx = z$ and $Ax = b$ have the same solutions (Theorem 2.3(b)), $Ax = b$ has no solution. This applies to $[H \mid d]$, and to the matrix reached at any stage of the elimination, so one may stop there.
- Suppose $[H \mid d]$ has no such row. Then every zero row of H is a zero row of $[H \mid d]$, and its equation reads $0 = 0$. Let rows $1, \dots, r$ be the nonzero rows of H, with pivots in columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$; so $x_{k_1}, \dots, x_{k_r}$ are the pivot unknowns, and the others are free.
- Give the free unknowns any values. Row i of $H = (h_{ij})$ is 0 before column k_i and 1 there, so for $i = r, r-1, \dots, 1$ equation i reads $x_{k_i} + \sum_{j>k_i} h_{ij}x_j = d_i$. Each x_j with $j > k_i$ is free or the pivot unknown of a lower row, already found; so the equation determines x_{k_i} (back substitution). The resulting x solves $Hx = d$, hence $Ax = b$.
- Every solution arises in this way from the values of its free unknowns, since the equations force the pivot unknowns; so each choice of values of the free unknowns gives exactly one solution. □

Theorem 2.27. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $b \in \mathbb{R}^m$.

(a) If x_p is one solution of $Ax = b$ (a **particular solution**), then the solutions of $Ax = b$ are exactly the vectors $x_p + z$ with $Az = 0$.

(b) $Ax = b$ has no solution, exactly one solution, or infinitely many solutions. If it is consistent, it has exactly one solution if and only if there are no free unknowns, that is, every column of H in Theorem 2.26 is a pivot column.

(c) If A is square, $Ax = b$ has exactly one solution if and only if A is invertible; this solution is $x = A^{-1}b$.

Proof. (a) If $Az = 0$, then $A(x_p + z) = Ax_p + Az = b$. Conversely, if $Ax = b$, then $z = x - x_p$ satisfies $Az = b - b = 0$, and $x = x_p + z$.

(b) Suppose $Ax = b$ is consistent, and take $[H \mid d]$ as in Theorem 2.26.

- By that theorem, each choice of values of the free unknowns gives exactly one solution, and every solution arises in this way; different choices give different solutions (they differ in a free unknown, an entry of x).
- Without free unknowns there is therefore exactly one solution; with a free unknown, each of its values gives a different solution, so there are infinitely many.

(c)
- If A is invertible, $x = A^{-1}b$ is a solution, since $A(A^{-1}b) = b$; and every solution satisfies $x = A^{-1}(Ax) = A^{-1}b$.
- If $Ax = b$ has exactly one solution x_p, then $Az = 0$ only for $z = 0$, since otherwise $x_p + z$ would be a second solution by (a). So A is invertible by Theorem 2.16 ((iii) ⇒ (i)). □

So, to solve $Ax = b$: reduce $[A \mid b]$ by forward elimination to an echelon form; if a row $(0 \ \cdots \ 0 \mid c)$ with $c \neq 0$ appears, there is no solution; otherwise choose the free unknowns arbitrarily and find the pivot unknowns by back substitution (or continue to the RREF and use Proposition 2.7).

Example 2.28. Solve the system $x_1 - x_2 + x_3 - x_4 = 1$, $-x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3 + x_4 = 0$, $2x_1 - x_2 + 2x_3 - x_4 = 3$, $x_1 - x_2 + x_3 = 3$.

Solution. The coefficient matrix is the matrix A of Example 2.20, and $b = (1, 0, 3, 3)'$. Forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$ uses the operations of the forward elimination there:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 3 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

- The last matrix is an echelon form with no row $(0\ 0\ 0\ 0 \mid c)$, $c \neq 0$, so the system is consistent (Theorem 2.26).
- Every column of the left part is a pivot column, so there are no free unknowns and the solution is unique (Theorem 2.27(b)).
- Back substitution: $x_4 = 2$; $x_3 = -1$; $x_2 = 1 - x_4 = -1$; $x_1 = 1 + x_2 - x_3 + x_4 = 1 - 1 + 1 + 2 = 3$. So $x = (3, -1, -1, 2)'$.
- Check, with A^{-1} from Example 2.20 (Theorem 2.27(c)): $A^{-1}b = (0 + 0 + 3 + 0,\ -1 + 0 + 3 - 3,\ -1 + 0 + 0 + 0,\ -1 + 0 + 0 + 3)' = (3, -1, -1, 2)'$.

Example 2.29. Solve the system $x_1 + x_2 + x_3 - 2x_4 = 2$, $x_1 + x_2 + 2x_3 - 3x_4 = 3$, $2x_1 + x_2 + 5x_3 - 4x_4 = 7$.

Solution. The coefficient matrix is the matrix A of Example 2.6, and $b = (2, 3, 7)'$. Forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$ uses the same operations as there:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -3 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & 5 & -4 & 7 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 3 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

- The last matrix is an echelon form with no row $(0\ 0\ 0\ 0 \mid c)$, $c \neq 0$: the system is consistent (Theorem 2.26).
- The pivot columns are $1, 2, 3$, so x_4 is free and there are infinitely many solutions (Theorem 2.27(b)).
- Back substitution with $x_4 = t$: $x_3 = 1 + t$; $x_2 = -3 + 3x_3 = 3t$; $x_1 = 2 - x_2 - x_3 + 2x_4 = 2 - 3t - (1 + t) + 2t = 1 - 2t$. So

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 1 - 2t \\ 3t \\ 1 + t \\ t \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 3 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

- This is the particular solution $x_p = (1, 0, 1, 0)'$ plus the solutions $t(-2, 3, 1, 1)'$ of $Ax = 0$ found in Example 2.6, as Theorem 2.27(a) says.

Example 2.30. Show that the system $x_1-2x_2+x_3+2x_4=1$, $x_1-x_2-x_3+x_4=2$, $x_1+x_2-5x_3-x_4=3$ has no solution.

Solution. Forward elimination of the augmented matrix $[A \mid b]$, $b=(1,2,3)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & -5 & -1 & 3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & -6 & -3 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-3R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The last matrix is an echelon form whose last column is a pivot column: row 3 reads $0=1$. So the system has no solution (Theorem 2.26). Indeed, the coefficient matrix A has $\operatorname{row}_3(A) = 3\operatorname{row}_2(A) - 2\operatorname{row}_1(A)$, while $3b_2 - 2b_1 = 4 \neq 3 = b_3$: the third equation contradicts the first two.

Triangular matrices

Theorem 2.31. Let $A=(a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be upper triangular or lower triangular.

(a) A is invertible if and only if $a_{ii} \neq 0$ for $i=1,\dots,n$.

(b) If A is invertible, then A^{-1} is triangular of the same kind as A, with diagonal entries $1/a_{11},\dots,1/a_{nn}$.

In particular, $\operatorname{diag}(d_1,\dots,d_n)$ is invertible if and only if every $d_i \neq 0$, and the inverse of a **unit triangular** matrix (a triangular matrix with all diagonal entries 1) is unit triangular of the same kind.

Proof. (a) By Theorem 2.16 ((i) $\Leftrightarrow$ (iii)), A is invertible if and only if $Ax=0$ has only the trivial solution.

- Let A be lower triangular, so that equation i of $Ax=0$ reads $a_{i1}x_1+\cdots+a_{ii}x_i=0$. If every $a_{ii}\neq 0$ and $Ax=0$, then equation 1 gives $x_1=0$, equation 2 then gives $a_{22}x_2=0$, so $x_2=0$, and so on: $x=0$.
- Let A be lower triangular with some $a_{kk}=0$, and let k be the smallest such index. Put $x_1=\cdots=x_{k-1}=0$. Then equations $1,\dots,k-1$ hold, and so does equation k, which reads $a_{kk}x_k=0$.
- Equations $k+1,\dots,n$ are $n-k$ equations in the $n-k+1$ unknowns $x_k,\dots,x_n$. If $k<n$, they have a nontrivial solution (Theorem 2.11(a)); if $k=n$, there are none, and we take $x_n=1$. Either way $x\neq 0$ and $Ax=0$, so A is not invertible.
- If A is upper triangular, then A' is lower triangular with the same diagonal entries, and A is invertible if and only if A' is (Theorem 2.13(c), with $(A')'=A$). So the lower triangular case gives the upper one.

(b)
- Let A be upper triangular and invertible, so that every $a_{ii}\neq 0$ by (a). For an upper triangular $B\in\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, AB is upper triangular with diagonal entries $a_{ii}b_{ii}$ (Proposition 1.13(c)), and $(AB)_{ij}=\sum_{k=i}^{j} a_{ik}b_{kj}$ for $i<j$, since $a_{ik}=0$ for $k<i$ and $b_{kj}=0$ for $k>j$.
- Hence an upper triangular B satisfies $AB=I_n$ if and only if

$$b_{jj}=\frac{1}{a_{jj}}, \qquad b_{ij}=-\frac{1}{a_{ii}}\sum_{k=i+1}^{j} a_{ik}b_{kj} \qquad (1\leqslant i<j\leqslant n)$$

- For each column j, these formulas give b_{jj} and then $b_{j-1,j},\dots,b_{1j}$ in turn, since b_{ij} uses only the b_{kj} with $k>i$. So such a B exists, and $B=A^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.16): A^{-1} is upper triangular with diagonal entries $1/a_{ii}$.

- If A is lower triangular and invertible, then A' is upper triangular and invertible, with the same diagonal; so $(A')^{-1}$ is upper triangular with diagonal entries $1/a_{ii}$, and $A^{-1} = ((A')^{-1})'$ (Theorem 2.13(c)) is lower triangular with the same diagonal.

A diagonal matrix is both upper and lower triangular, and a unit triangular matrix has $1/a_{ii} = 1$; this gives the last sentence. □

Example 2.32. Find the inverse of

$$U = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. U is upper triangular with diagonal entries $1, -1, 1, 1$, all nonzero, so it is invertible, and $B = U^{-1} = (b_{ij})$ is upper triangular with $b_{11} = 1$, $b_{22} = -1$, $b_{33} = b_{44} = 1$ (Theorem 2.31). The other entries come from $b_{ij} = -\frac{1}{u_{ii}} \sum_{k=i+1}^{j} u_{ik} b_{kj}$, column by column, from the bottom up:

- column 2: $b_{12} = -u_{12} b_{22} = -(-2)(-1) = -2$;
- column 3: $b_{23} = u_{23} b_{33} = (-1)(1) = -1$ (here $-1/u_{22} = 1$), and $b_{13} = -(u_{12} b_{23} + u_{13} b_{33}) = -\Big((-2)(-1) + (-2)(1)\Big) = 0$;
- column 4: $b_{34} = -u_{34} b_{44} = -1$, $b_{24} = u_{23} b_{34} + u_{24} b_{44} = (-1)(-1) + (1)(1) = 2$ (again $-1/u_{22} = 1$), and $b_{14} = -(u_{12} b_{24} + u_{13} b_{34} + u_{14} b_{44}) = -\Big((-2)(2) + (-2)(-1) + (3)(1)\Big) = -1$.

So

$$U^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\mathrm{row}_1(U)\, U^{-1} = (1,\ -2+2,\ 2-2,\ -1-4+2+3) = (1, 0, 0, 0)$, and similarly for the other rows.

Theorem 2.33. Let $L = (l_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ be unit lower triangular, and let $N = I_n - L$; so N is strictly lower triangular, with entries $-l_{ij}$ for $i > j$. Let $M = L^{-1} = (m_{ij})$.

(a) M is unit lower triangular, and for $i > j$

$$m_{ij} = -\sum_{k=j}^{i-1} l_{ik} m_{kj}$$

so column j of M is found from the top down: $m_{jj} = 1$, then $m_{j+1,j}, \ldots, m_{nj}$ in turn.

(b) $M = I_n + NM$, and repeating this recursion gives

$$L^{-1} = I_n + N + N^2 + \cdots + N^{n-1}$$

Proof. (a)

- L is invertible, and M is unit lower triangular (Theorem 2.31(a),(b)).
- Let $i > j$. The (i, j) entry of $LM = I_n$ is $\sum_k l_{ik} m_{kj} = 0$. Here $l_{ik} = 0$ for $k > i$, $l_{ii} = 1$, and $m_{kj} = 0$ for $k < j$, so the sum runs over $j \leqslant k \leqslant i$: $m_{ij} + \sum_{k=j}^{i-1} l_{ik} m_{kj} = 0$.
- The right side of the formula uses only $m_{jj}, \ldots, m_{i-1,j}$, entries of column j above row i.

(b)

- $LM = I_n$ reads $(I_n - N)M = I_n$, that is, $M = I_n + NM$ (Theorem 1.3). (Entry (i, j) of this equation, $i > j$, is the formula of (a).)

- Substituting $I_n + NM$ for M on the right gives $M = I_n + N + N^2M$, and after p substitutions

$$M = I_n + N + \cdots + N^{p-1} + N^pM$$

by induction on p (Theorem 1.3).

- N is strictly lower triangular, so $N^n = 0$ (Proposition 1.21(c)). With $p = n$, $M = I_n + N + \cdots + N^{n-1}$. □

Example 2.34. (a) Find the inverse of

$$L = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) Let $S \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ have the entries 1 in the positions $(2,1), (3,2), (4,3)$ and 0 elsewhere. The first-difference matrix $I_4 - S$ turns $x = (x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4)'$ into $(x_1, x_2 - x_1, x_3 - x_2, x_4 - x_3)'$. Find its inverse.

Solution. (a) L is unit lower triangular. By Theorem 2.33(a), column by column from the top down, with $m_{jj} = 1$:

- column 1: $m_{21} = -l_{21}m_{11} = -1$, $m_{31} = -(l_{31}m_{11} + l_{32}m_{21}) = -(1 - 2) = 1$, $m_{41} = -(l_{41}m_{11} + l_{42}m_{21} + l_{43}m_{31}) = -(2 + 0 - 1) = -1$;
- column 2: $m_{32} = -l_{32}m_{22} = -2$, $m_{42} = -(l_{42}m_{22} + l_{43}m_{32}) = -(0 + 2) = -2$;
- column 3: $m_{43} = -l_{43}m_{33} = 1$.

So

$$L^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The formula of Theorem 2.33(b) gives the same: with

$$N = I_4 - L = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

the sum $I_4 + N + N^2 + N^3$ has the entries -1, $-1 + 2 = 1$, $-2 - 1 + 2 = -1$ in column 1 below the diagonal, -2 and $0 - 2 = -2$ in column 2, and 1 in column 3: it is L^{-1}.

(b) $I_4 - S$ is unit lower triangular with $N = S$. By Theorem 2.33(b), $(I_4 - S)^{-1} = I_4 + S + S^2 + S^3$, where

$$S = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad S^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad S^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So

$$(I_4 - S)^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

the matrix that turns y into its partial sums $(y_1, y_1 + y_2, y_1 + y_2 + y_3, y_1 + y_2 + y_3 + y_4)'$: summing undoes differencing.

Column operations

Theorem 2.35. The **elementary column operations** on matrices with n columns are, for column indices $r \neq s$: multiply column s by $c \neq 0$, written $\mathrm{col}_s \leftarrow c\,\mathrm{col}_s$; add c times column r to column s ($c \in \mathbb{R}$), written $\mathrm{col}_s \leftarrow \mathrm{col}_s + c\,\mathrm{col}_r$; and interchange columns r and s, written $\mathrm{col}_r \leftrightarrow \mathrm{col}_s$. Let γ be one of them and $F = \gamma(I_n)$.

(a) F is $D_s(c)$, $T_{rs}(c)$ or P_{rs}, respectively. Moreover $D_s(c)' = D_s(c)$, $T_{sr}(c)' = T_{rs}(c)$ and $P'_{rs} = P_{rs}$.

(b) $\gamma(A) = AF$ for every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$: a column operation is a right multiplication.

(c) If column operations $\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_l$ (in this order) take A to B, then $B = AQ$ with $Q = F_1F_2\cdots F_l$, $F_j = \gamma_j(I_n)$, and Q is invertible.

Proof. (a)
- Column s of I_n is e_s. The three operations replace it by ce_s, by $e_s + ce_r$, or exchange it with column r. The results are I_n with its (s,s) entry replaced by c, I_n with its (r,s) entry replaced by c, and I_n with rows r and s interchanged (exchanging columns r and s of I_n, or its rows r and s, gives in both cases the matrix whose (r,s) and (s,r) entries are 1, whose (r,r) and (s,s) entries are 0, and whose other entries are those of I_n); that is, $D_s(c)$, $T_{rs}(c)$ and P_{rs} (Definition 2.14).
- $D_s(c)$ and P_{rs} are symmetric, by inspection, and $T_{sr}(c)'$ is I_n with its (r,s) entry replaced by c, that is, $T_{rs}(c)$.

(b)
- The columns of $\gamma(A)$ are the transposed rows of $\gamma(A)'$ (Definition 1.8). So $\gamma(A)'$ is obtained from A' by the row operation ω with the same indices: $R_s \leftarrow cR_s$, $R_s \leftarrow R_s + cR_r$ or $R_r \leftrightarrow R_s$.
- By Theorem 2.15(a), $\gamma(A)' = EA'$ with $E = \omega(I_n)$, which is $D_s(c)$, $T_{sr}(c)$ or P_{rs}. Transposing (Theorem 1.9), $\gamma(A) = (EA')' = AE'$, and $E' = F$ by (a).

(c) By (b), $B = \gamma_l(\cdots\gamma_1(A)) = (\cdots(AF_1)\cdots)F_l = AF_1\cdots F_l$ (Theorem 1.3). Each F_j is invertible (Theorem 2.15(b)), and so is Q (Theorem 2.13(b)). □

Example 2.36. Let X_0 be the data matrix of Example 1.17, and $M = [\mathbf{1}_4\ X_0] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$. Write $[\mathbf{1}_4\ CX_0] = MQ$ with a product Q of elementary matrices, and find Q^{-1}.

Solution. Centering the columns of X_0 is a sequence of column operations on M.

- Since $\bar{x} = (1,2)'$, the columns of $CX_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$ are $\mathrm{col}_1(X_0) - \mathbf{1}$ and $\mathrm{col}_2(X_0) - 2\cdot\mathbf{1}$. So $[\mathbf{1}_4\ CX_0]$ arises from M by $\mathrm{col}_2 \leftarrow \mathrm{col}_2 - \mathrm{col}_1$ and then $\mathrm{col}_3 \leftarrow \mathrm{col}_3 - 2\,\mathrm{col}_1$, and Theorem 2.35 gives $[\mathbf{1}_4\ CX_0] = MQ$ with

$$Q = T_{12}(-1)\,T_{13}(-2) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Q is unit upper triangular, so it is invertible and Q^{-1} is unit upper triangular (Theorem 2.31); indeed $Q^{-1} = T_{13}(2)\,T_{12}(1)$ (Theorems 2.13(b) and 2.15(b)), that is,

$$Q^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- With CX_0 from Example 1.17,

$$M = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad MQ = [\mathbf{1}_4\ CX_0] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- So $M = [\mathbf{1}_4 \; CX_0]\,Q^{-1}$: by Theorem 2.35(c), the column operations of $Q^{-1} = T_{13}(2)\,T_{12}(1)$, $\mathrm{col}_3 \leftarrow \mathrm{col}_3 + 2\,\mathrm{col}_1$ and then $\mathrm{col}_2 \leftarrow \mathrm{col}_2 + \mathrm{col}_1$, undo the centering; they add $2 \cdot \mathbf{1}$ back to $\mathrm{col}_2(X_0) - 2 \cdot \mathbf{1}$ and $\mathbf{1}$ back to $\mathrm{col}_1(X_0) - \mathbf{1}$.

Exercises

Exercise 2.1. Find the RREF and the pivot columns of each matrix by Gauss–Jordan elimination (Definition 2.5).

(a) $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$

(b) $B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 & -3 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$

Solution. (a) After the first arrow, row 2 is 0 in column 2 and row 3 is not, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3; the matrix after the interchange is an echelon form (end of forward elimination).

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 5R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -4 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The RREF is the last matrix; its pivot columns are 1, 2 and 4.

(b) After the third arrow, column 3 has no pivot, and row 3 is zero while row 4 is not in column 4; so Step 2 interchanges rows 3 and 4.

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 & -3 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The RREF is the last matrix; its pivot columns are 1, 2 and 4.

Exercise 2.2. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & -3 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$.

(a) For which $b = (b_1, b_2, b_3, b_4)'$ is $Ax = b$ consistent?

(b) Find all solutions of $Ax = b$ for $b = (-2, -1, 3, 1)'$.

(c) Does $Ax = b$ have a solution for $b = (1, 0, 0, 0)'$?

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[A \mid b]$, keeping $b_1, \ldots, b_4$ as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -2 & -2 & b_1 \\ 2 & -3 & -2 & b_2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_3 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & b_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -2 & -2 & b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_4 - b_1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -2 & -2 & b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2b_1 - b_2 + b_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & b_1 - b_2 + b_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2b_2 - 3b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2b_1 - b_2 + b_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & b_1 - b_2 + b_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is the RREF of A, with $r = 2$. By Proposition 2.7(a), $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if

$$2b_1 - b_2 + b_3 = 0 \qquad \text{and} \qquad b_1 - b_2 + b_4 = 0$$

(b) Here $2(-2) - (-1) + 3 = 0$ and $-2 - (-1) + 1 = 0$, so the system is consistent, and the last matrix becomes

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

With $x_3 = t$ free, $x_1 = 4 - 2t$ and $x_2 = 3 - 2t$: $x = (4, 3, 0)' + t\,(-2, -2, 1)'$ $(t \in \mathbb{R})$. Check: $A(4, 3, 0)' = (4-6,\ 8-9,\ 3,\ 4-3)' = (-2, -1, 3, 1)'$ and $A(-2, -2, 1)' = (-2+4-2,\ -4+6-2,\ -2+2,\ -2+2)' = 0$.

(c) No: $2b_1 - b_2 + b_3 = 2 \neq 0$.

Exercise 2.3. Let A be the coefficient matrix of Example 2.30.

(a) For which $b = (b_1, b_2, b_3)'$ is $Ax = b$ consistent?

(b) Find all solutions of $Ax = b$ for $b = (1, 2, 4)'$.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[A \mid b]$, keeping b_1, b_2, b_3 as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & b_1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 & b_2 \\ 1 & 1 & -5 & -1 & b_3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & b_2 - b_1 \\ 0 & 3 & -6 & -3 & b_3 - b_1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -2 & 1 & 2 & b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & b_2 - b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & b_3 - 3b_2 + 2b_1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -3 & 0 & 2b_2 - b_1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & b_2 - b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & b_3 - 3b_2 + 2b_1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is the RREF of A, with $r = 2$. By Proposition 2.7(a), $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $2b_1 - 3b_2 + b_3 = 0$. (In Example 2.30, $2 - 6 + 3 = -1 \neq 0$.)

(b) For $b = (1, 2, 4)'$, $2 - 6 + 4 = 0$, so the system is consistent, and the last matrix becomes

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -3 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

The free unknowns are $x_3 = s$, $x_4 = t$, and by Proposition 2.7(b) $x_1 = 3 + 3s$, $x_2 = 1 + 2s + t$. So

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + s \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (s, t \in \mathbb{R})$$

infinitely many solutions (Theorem 2.27(b)): the particular solution $(3, 1, 0, 0)'$ plus the solutions of $Ax = 0$ (Theorem 2.27(a)). Check: $A(3, 1, 0, 0)' = (3 - 2,\ 3 - 1,\ 3 + 1)' = (1, 2, 4)'$.

Exercise 2.4. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & 5 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 3 & 3 & 1 \\ 3 & 6 & 4 & 7 & 3 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 6}$$

(a) Show that $Ax = b$, $b = (b_1, b_2, b_3, b_4)'$, is consistent if and only if $2b_2 = b_3 + b_4$.

(b) Find all solutions of $Ax = b$ for $b = (2, 4, 3, 5)'$.

Solution. (a) Forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$, keeping $b_1, \ldots, b_4$ as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & b_1 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & 5 & 3 & 3 & b_2 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 3 & 3 & 1 & b_3 \\ 3 & 6 & 4 & 7 & 3 & 5 & b_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 0 & b_3 - b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & b_4 - 3b_1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & b_1 - b_2 + b_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & b_4 - b_1 - b_2 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & b_2 - 2b_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & b_1 - b_2 + b_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -2b_2 + b_3 + b_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is in echelon form, with pivots in columns $1, 3, 5$ of A, and the last row reads $0 = -2b_2 + b_3 + b_4$. By Theorem 2.26, $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $-2b_2 + b_3 + b_4 = 0$, that is, $2b_2 = b_3 + b_4$.

(b) For $b = (2, 4, 3, 5)'$, $2 \cdot 4 = 3 + 5$, and the last matrix has rows $(1, 2, 1, 2, 1, 1 \mid 2)$, $(0, 0, 1, 1, 1, 1 \mid 0)$, $(0, 0, 0, 0, 1, -1 \mid 1)$ and a zero row. Backward elimination:

$$\xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccccc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

The free unknowns are $x_2 = \lambda$, $x_4 = \mu$, $x_6 = \nu$, and Proposition 2.7(b) gives $x_1 = 2 - 2\lambda - \mu$,

$x_3 = -1-\mu-2\nu$, $x_5 = 1+\nu$:

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \lambda \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \mu \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \nu \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (\lambda, \mu, \nu \in \mathbb{R})$$

the particular solution $(2,0,-1,0,1,0)'$ plus the solutions of $Ax = 0$ (Theorem 2.27(a)). Check: $A(2,0,-1,0,1,0)' = 2\,\mathrm{col}_1(A) - \mathrm{col}_3(A) + \mathrm{col}_5(A) = (2-1+1,\ 4-3+3,\ 2-2+3,\ 6-4+3)' = (2,4,3,5)'$.

Exercise 2.5. (a) Find all solutions of $Ax = 0$ for $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & -3 & 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & -3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$.

(b) Does $Bx = 0$ have a nontrivial solution, for $B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 3 & 3 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$? Find all solutions.

Solution. (a) There are fewer equations than unknowns, so nontrivial solutions exist (Theorem 2.11(a)). Row-reduce A:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & -3 & 0 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & -3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

The pivot columns are $1, 2, 4$; the free unknowns are $x_3 = s$, $x_5 = t$, and the rows give $x_1 = 2s - 3t$, $x_2 = -s + 3t$, $x_4 = 2t$:

$$x = s \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -3 \\ 3 \\ 0 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (s, t \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $A(2,-1,1,0,0)' = (2-1-1,\ 4-1-3,\ 4-1-3)' = 0$ and $A(-3,3,0,2,1)' = (-3+3,\ -6+3+3,\ -6+3+2+1)' = 0$.

(b) Row-reduce B; after the first arrow, column 3 has no pivot and row 3 is zero, so Step 2 interchanges

rows 3 and 4:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 3 & 3 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The RREF has pivot columns $1, 2, 4$, so $x_3 = t$ is free: yes, there are nontrivial solutions, and all solutions are

$$x = t\,(-3,\ -2,\ 1,\ 0)' \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $B(-3, -2, 1, 0)' = (-3 + 4 - 1,\ 3 - 6 + 3,\ 3 - 4 + 1,\ 3 - 4 + 1)' = 0$. In particular B is not invertible (Theorem 2.16).

Exercise 2.6. Find the solutions of the equations

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 + 2x_5 &= 0 \\ 2x_1 + 3x_2 + x_3 + 3x_4 + 5x_5 &= 0 \\ x_1 + 2x_3 + x_4 + 2x_5 &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

Solution. Row-reduce the coefficient matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 3 & 5 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The pivot columns are $1, 2, 4$, so x_3 and x_5 are free unknowns (Proposition 2.7). With $x_3 = \lambda$ and $x_5 = \mu$, the rows of the RREF give $x_1 = -2\lambda - \mu$, $x_2 = \lambda$, $x_4 = -\mu$. All solutions are

$$x = \lambda(-2, 1, 1, 0, 0)' + \mu(-1, 0, 0, -1, 1)' \qquad (\lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $(-2, 1, 1, 0, 0)'$ gives $-2 + 1 + 1 = 0$, $-4 + 3 + 1 = 0$, $-2 + 2 = 0$, and $(-1, 0, 0, -1, 1)'$ gives $-1 - 1 + 2 = 0$, $-2 - 3 + 5 = 0$, $-1 - 1 + 2 = 0$. Three equations in five unknowns always have nontrivial solutions (Theorem 2.11(a)); here there are two free unknowns.

Exercise 2.7. Solve the homogeneous system

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 - x_2 + 2x_3 + x_4 &= 0 \\ x_1 - x_3 + 3x_4 &= 0 \\ 3x_1 - 2x_2 + 3x_3 + 5x_4 &= 0 \\ x_1 + x_2 - 4x_3 + 5x_4 &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

Solution. Transform the coefficient matrix to echelon form:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ 3 & -2 & 3 & 5 \\ 1 & 1 & -4 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & -6 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 2.3, the system has the same solutions as the two equations $x_1 - x_2 + 2x_3 + x_4 = 0$ and $x_2 - 3x_3 + 2x_4 = 0$. For any values of x_3 and x_4, the second equation determines x_2 and then the first determines x_1; so x_3 and x_4 are free. Let $x_3 = \lambda$ and $x_4 = \mu$. Then $x_2 = 3x_3 - 2x_4 = 3\lambda - 2\mu$ and $x_1 = x_2 - 2x_3 - x_4 = \lambda - 3\mu$. Hence

$$x = \lambda(1, 3, 1, 0)' + \mu(-3, -2, 0, 1)' \qquad (\lambda, \mu \in \mathbb{R})$$

(One more arrow, $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2$, gives the RREF, with rows $(1, 0, -1, 3)$ and $(0, 1, -3, 2)$, from which the same solutions are read off.)

Exercise 2.8. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \\ 5 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$. Find an elementary matrix E with $B = EA$ when: (a) B is obtained from A by interchanging the first and third rows; (b) B is obtained from A by multiplying the second row by 7; (c) B is obtained from A by adding five times the second row to the third row.

Solution. Perform each operation on I_3 (Theorem 2.15(a)):

$$P_{13} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad D_2(7) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 7 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad T_{32}(5) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 5 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and

$$P_{13}A = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 6 \\ 3 & 4 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \quad D_2(7)A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 21 & 28 \\ 5 & 6 \end{pmatrix}, \quad T_{32}(5)A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \\ 20 & 26 \end{pmatrix}$$

Exercise 2.9. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$.

(a) Find the matrix E such that EA is obtained from A by first interchanging rows 1 and 2 and then multiplying row 2 by 2. Does the order of the two operations matter?

(b) Find the matrix E such that EA is obtained from A by first interchanging rows 1 and 2 and then adding 3 times row 1 to row 2. Does the order matter?

(c) Do elementary matrices commute?

Solution. By Theorem 2.15, the operation done first is the factor next to A.

(a) $E = D_2(2)P_{12} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0&1&0&0\\ 2&0&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, while $P_{12}D_2(2) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0&2&0&0\\ 1&0&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and

$$D_2(2)P_{12}A = \begin{pmatrix} 0&1&2&3\\ 2&4&6&8\\ 1&0&1&0\\ 2&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix} \neq \begin{pmatrix} 0&2&4&6\\ 1&2&3&4\\ 1&0&1&0\\ 2&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix} = P_{12}D_2(2)A$$

The order matters.

(b) $E = T_{21}(3)P_{12} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0&1&0&0\\ 1&3&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, while $P_{12}T_{21}(3) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3&1&0&0\\ 1&0&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and

$$T_{21}(3)P_{12}A = \begin{pmatrix} 0&1&2&3\\ 1&5&9&13\\ 1&0&1&0\\ 2&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix} \neq \begin{pmatrix} 3&7&11&15\\ 1&2&3&4\\ 1&0&1&0\\ 2&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix} = P_{12}T_{21}(3)A$$

The order matters.

(c) No: (a) and (b) give pairs of elementary matrices that do not commute.

Exercise 2.10. Reduce the matrix $A = \begin{pmatrix} 0&0&1&2&3\\ 2&4&-2&0&4\\ 2&4&-1&2&7 \end{pmatrix}$ to echelon form by elementary row operations, and record the elementary matrices used.

Solution. Follow Definition 2.5, postponing the scaling (Step 3) to the end. Column 1 is the first pivot column; since $a_{11} = 0$, interchange rows 1 and 2; then clear column 1 below the pivot, and then column 3, the next pivot column:

$$A \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2&4&-2&0&4\\ 0&0&1&2&3\\ 2&4&-1&2&7 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2&4&-2&0&4\\ 0&0&1&2&3\\ 0&0&1&2&3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2&4&-2&0&4\\ 0&0&1&2&3\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Finally divide row 1 by 2:

$$H = \begin{pmatrix} 1&2&-1&0&2\\ 0&0&1&2&3\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{pmatrix} = D_1(\tfrac{1}{2})\, T_{32}(-1)\, T_{31}(-1)\, P_{12}\, A$$

(Theorem 2.15(c)). H is in echelon form with pivot columns 1 and 3. One more operation, $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2$, clears the entry above the second pivot and gives the RREF $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1&2&0&2&5\\ 0&0&1&2&3\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

Exercise 2.11. Row-reduce $[M \mid I_4]$ to find M^{-1}, or show that M is not invertible, for

(a) $M = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&0&-1\\ 1&1&-1&0\\ -2&-1&3&0\\ -1&-1&2&0 \end{pmatrix}$

(b) $M = \begin{pmatrix} 1&-1&0&0\\ -3&2&2&-1\\ -2&2&1&-1\\ -1&1&1&0 \end{pmatrix}$

(c) $M = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$

Solution. (a) After the first arrow, row 2 is 0 in column 2, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_4,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 3R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(M)M^{-1} = (0+0+1,\ 1+1-2,\ -1+1,\ 2-1-1) = (1,0,0,0)$, and similarly for rows $2,3,4$.

(b)

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & 2 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 3R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 3 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 & -3 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 & -3 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_4]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & -2 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_2(M)M^{-1} = (-3+2+1,\ 3-2,\ -3+2+1,\ -3+2+2-1) = (0,1,0,0)$, and similarly for rows $1,3,4$.

(c)

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & -3 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & -3 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 3 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 3 & -3 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 3 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

A zero row has appeared in the left half (row 3), so M is not invertible (Corollary 2.17(b)). Indeed, $Mx = 0$ has the same solutions as the system of the left half (Theorem 2.3(b)): with $x_4 = t$, $x_3 - 2x_4 = 0$ gives $x_3 = 2t$, $x_2 - 3x_3 + 3x_4 = 0$ gives $x_2 = 3t$, and then $x_1 = -2x_2 + x_3 - x_4 = -5t$. So $Mx = 0$ has the nontrivial solution $x = (-5,3,2,1)'$: $M(-5,3,2,1)' = (-5+6-2+1,\ -10+9+2-1,\ -5+3+4-2,\ -5+6+0-1)' = 0$.

Exercise 2.12. Use row reduction of $[A \mid I_3]$ to find the inverse of $A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 3 & 4 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$.

Solution.

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 3 & 4 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 4 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 & -3 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 3 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 3 & -1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 3 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

Hence $A^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Check: $\text{row}_3(A)A^{-1} = (3,4,3)A^{-1} = (-3+3,\ 3-12+9,\ 4-3) = (0,0,1)$, and similarly for the other rows.

Exercise 2.13. Do $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 & 2 \\ 3 & 7 & 5 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$ and $B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$ have inverses? Find the inverse when it exists.

Solution. (A) Row-reduce A; after the first arrow the entry of row 2 in column 2 is 0, so rows 2 and 3 are interchanged:

$$A \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

A zero row appears, so A has no inverse (Corollary 2.17(b): the same operations give this left half in $[A \mid I_4]$). (Indeed row 4 of A is the sum of rows 2 and 3.)

(B) Row-reduce $[B \mid I_4]$. Every pivot is 1; forward elimination subtracts each row from the next one, and backward elimination each row from the one above it:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 & -3 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left block is I_4, so B is invertible and

$$B^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -3 & 2 & -1 \\ -3 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(Corollary 2.17(a)). Check: the second row of BB^{-1} is $(4-6+2,\ -3+6-2,\ 2-4+2,\ -1+2-1) = (0, 1, 0, 0)$, and similarly for the other rows.

Exercise 2.14. Use Proposition 2.18 to decide which of $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}5&3\\3&2\end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}4&6\\6&9\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}7&-3\\-5&2\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ are invertible, and find the inverses that exist. Then find the inverse of

$$\begin{pmatrix}0&1&1&1\\1&1&1&1\\0&1&1&2\\0&0&1&1\end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. (2×2) By Proposition 2.18:

- $5\cdot 2-3\cdot 3=1$, so $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}5&3\\3&2\end{smallmatrix}\right)^{-1}=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&-3\\-3&5\end{smallmatrix}\right)$.
- $4\cdot 9-6\cdot 6=0$, so $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}4&6\\6&9\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is not invertible.
- $7\cdot 2-(-3)(-5)=-1$, so $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}7&-3\\-5&2\end{smallmatrix}\right)^{-1}=-\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&3\\5&7\end{smallmatrix}\right)=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-2&-3\\-5&-7\end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

Check: $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}7&-3\\-5&2\end{smallmatrix}\right)\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-2&-3\\-5&-7\end{smallmatrix}\right)=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-14+15&-21+21\\10-10&15-14\end{smallmatrix}\right)=I_2$.

(4×4) Call the 4×4 matrix K and row-reduce $[K\mid I_4]$. The entry in position $(1,1)$ is 0, so Step 2 interchanges rows 1 and 2; after clearing column 2, the entry in position $(3,3)$ is 0, so rows 3 and 4 are interchanged:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}0&1&1&1&1&0&0&0\\1&1&1&1&0&1&0&0\\0&1&1&2&0&0&1&0\\0&0&1&1&0&0&0&1\end{array}\right)\xrightarrow{R_1\leftrightarrow R_2}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&1&1&1&0&1&0&0\\0&1&1&1&1&0&0&0\\0&1&1&2&0&0&1&0\\0&0&1&1&0&0&0&1\end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&1&1&1&0&1&0&0\\0&1&1&1&1&0&0&0\\0&0&0&1&-1&0&1&0\\0&0&1&1&0&0&0&1\end{array}\right)\xrightarrow{R_3\leftrightarrow R_4}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&1&1&1&0&1&0&0\\0&1&1&1&1&0&0&0\\0&0&1&1&0&0&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1&0&1&0\end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_4]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_4,\ R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_4}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&1&1&0&1&1&-1&0\\0&1&1&0&2&0&-1&0\\0&0&1&0&1&0&-1&1\\0&0&0&1&-1&0&1&0\end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_3}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&1&0&0&0&1&0&-1\\0&1&0&0&1&0&0&-1\\0&0&1&0&1&0&-1&1\\0&0&0&1&-1&0&1&0\end{array}\right)\xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2}\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc}1&0&0&0&-1&1&0&0\\0&1&0&0&1&0&0&-1\\0&0&1&0&1&0&-1&1\\0&0&0&1&-1&0&1&0\end{array}\right)$$

So

$$K^{-1}=\begin{pmatrix}-1&1&0&0\\1&0&0&-1\\1&0&-1&1\\-1&0&1&0\end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\mathrm{row}_3(K)K^{-1}=(0,1,1,2)K^{-1}=(1+1-2,\ 0,\ -1+2,\ -1+1)=(0,0,1,0)$, and similarly for the other rows.

Exercise 2.15. Find the inverse of $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$ by row reduction of $[A \mid I_4]$, and check $AA^{-1} = I_4$.

Solution. After the first arrow, rows 2 and 3 are 0 in column 2, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 4:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_4]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(A)A^{-1} = (1,\ -2+2,\ 0,\ 2-2) = (1,0,0,0)$, $\text{row}_2(A)A^{-1} = (1-1,\ -2+2+1,\ 0,\ 2-2) = (0,1,0,0)$, $\text{row}_3(A)A^{-1} = (1-1,\ -2+2-1+1,\ 1,\ 2-2) = (0,0,1,0)$ and $\text{row}_4(A)A^{-1} = (1-1,\ -2+1+1,\ 0,\ 2-1) = (0,0,0,1)$.

Exercise 2.16. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Row-reduce $[A \mid I_4]$ to $[I_4 \mid A^{-1}]$, one elementary operation per arrow.

(b) Write A^{-1} as a product of elementary matrices.

(c) Write A as a product of elementary matrices, and check the product.

Solution. (a) After the first arrow, row 2 is 0 in column 2, so Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 & -2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 & -2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & -2 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ -2 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) The seven operations have the elementary matrices $E_1 = T_{31}(2)$, $E_2 = P_{23}$, $E_3 = D_2(-1)$, $E_4 = T_{43}(1)$, $E_5 = T_{24}(-1)$, $E_6 = T_{23}(2)$, $E_7 = T_{12}(1)$, and $E_7E_6E_5E_4E_3E_2E_1A = I_4$ (Theorem 2.15(c)). Hence, by the last sentence of Theorem 2.16, $A^{-1} = E_7E_6E_5E_4E_3E_2E_1$, the product, in this order, of

$$E_7 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_6 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_5 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$E_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$E_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(c) By Theorem 2.13(a), $A = (A^{-1})^{-1}$; so, by Theorems 2.13(b) and 2.15(b),

$$\begin{aligned} A &= E_1^{-1}E_2^{-1}E_3^{-1}E_4^{-1}E_5^{-1}E_6^{-1}E_7^{-1} \\ &= T_{31}(-2)\,P_{23}\,D_2(-1)\,T_{43}(-1)\,T_{24}(1)\,T_{23}(-2)\,T_{12}(-1) \end{aligned}$$

Check: the product applied to I_4 performs, from the right, the operations of $T_{12}(-1)$, $T_{23}(-2)$, $T_{24}(1)$, $T_{43}(-1)$, $D_2(-1)$, P_{23}, $T_{31}(-2)$ (Theorem 2.15(a)):

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\0&1&0&0\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&1&0&0\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&1&-2&0\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow R_2+R_4} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&1&-2&1\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&1&-2&1\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&-1&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&-1&2&-1\\0&0&1&0\\0&0&-1&1\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2\leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&0&1&0\\0&-1&2&-1\\0&0&-1&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\0&0&1&0\\-2&1&2&-1\\0&0&-1&1\end{pmatrix}$$

which is A.

Exercise 2.17. Let $A = \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&0\\-1&1&-1&1\\-1&1&0&2\end{pmatrix}$.

(a) Row-reduce $[A \mid I_3]$ to $[R \mid P]$, where R is the RREF of A.

(b) Check that $PA = R$.

(c) For which $y \in \mathbb{R}^3$ is $Ax = y$ consistent?

Solution. (a)

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc}1&-1&2&0&1&0&0\\-1&1&-1&1&0&1&0\\-1&1&0&2&0&0&1\end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2+R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc}1&-1&2&0&1&0&0\\0&0&1&1&1&1&0\\0&0&2&2&1&0&1\end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc}1&-1&2&0&1&0&0\\0&0&1&1&1&1&0\\0&0&0&0&-1&-2&1\end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc}1&-1&0&-2&-1&-2&0\\0&0&1&1&1&1&0\\0&0&0&0&-1&-2&1\end{array}\right)$$

So $R = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}1&-1&0&-2\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&0\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $P = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}-1&-2&0\\1&1&0\\-1&-2&1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$, which is invertible (Corollary 2.24(a)).

(b) Row by row (Theorem 1.4(c)):

- $\text{row}_1(P)A = -(1,-1,2,0) - 2(-1,1,-1,1) = (1,-1,0,-2)$;
- $\text{row}_2(P)A = (1,-1,2,0) + (-1,1,-1,1) = (0,0,1,1)$;
- $\text{row}_3(P)A = -(1,-1,2,0) - 2(-1,1,-1,1) + (-1,1,0,2) = (0,0,0,0)$.

(c) As P is invertible, $Ax = y$ holds if and only if $Rx = Py$ does. Row 3 of R is zero, so $Ax = y$ is consistent if and only if $\text{row}_3(P)\,y = -y_1 - 2y_2 + y_3 = 0$ (Proposition 2.7(a)).

Exercise 2.18. (a) Solve $x_1-2x_3-x_4=2$, $2x_1-x_2-3x_3=3$, $-x_1+x_2+2x_3=-1$, $-x_1+x_2+x_3=0$ by forward elimination and back substitution.

(b) Find all solutions of $x_1+2x_2+x_3+x_4=-2$, $-2x_1-3x_2-3x_3-2x_4=3$, $-x_1-3x_2=1$, in vector form, by Gauss–Jordan elimination.

(c) Show that the system $x_1-x_3=-1$, $-x_1+x_2+x_3=1$, $x_1-x_2=-1$, $2x_1-x_2=-1$ has no solution.

Solution. (a) Forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 & 2 \\ 2 & -1 & -3 & 0 & 3 \\ -1 & 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4+R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

- The last matrix is an echelon form with pivots in columns $1,2,3,4$ and none in the last column: there is exactly one solution (Theorems 2.26 and 2.27(b)).
- Back substitution: $x_4=1$; $x_3=-x_4=-1$; $x_2=1+x_3+2x_4=2$; $x_1=2+2x_3+x_4=1$. So $x=(1,2,-1,1)'$.
- Check: $1+2-1=2$, $2-2+3=3$, $-1+2-2=-1$, $-1+2-1=0$.

(b) Gauss–Jordan elimination of $[A \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -2 & -3 & -3 & -2 & 3 \\ -1 & -3 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2+2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 3 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{array}\right)$$

- The left part of the last matrix is the RREF of A, with pivot columns $1,2,4$, and the last column has no pivot: the system is consistent, and $x_3=t$ is free (Proposition 2.7).
- The rows give $x_1=2-3t$, $x_2=-1+t$, $x_4=-2$, so

$$x=\begin{pmatrix}2\\-1\\0\\-2\end{pmatrix}+t\begin{pmatrix}-3\\1\\1\\0\end{pmatrix} \qquad (t\in\mathbb{R})$$

- Check: $A(2,-1,0,-2)'=(2-2-2,\ -4+3+4,\ -2+3)'=(-2,3,1)'=b$ and $A(-3,1,1,0)'=(-3+2+1,\ 6-3-3,\ 3-3)'=0$.

(c) Forward elimination of $[A \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The last matrix is an echelon form whose last column is a pivot column: row 4 reads $0 = 1$. So the system has no solution (Theorem 2.26). Indeed, rows 1–3 give $x_3 = 0$, $x_2 = 0$, $x_1 = -1 + x_3 = -1$: the first three equations have only the solution $(-1, 0, 0)'$, and it violates the fourth, $2(-1) - 0 = -2 \neq -1$.

Exercise 2.19. Solve the equations

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \\ x_4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ 6 \\ 3 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

by Gaussian elimination.

Solution. First system. Forward elimination:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

Backward elimination:

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & -2 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & -3 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 3R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

By Proposition 2.7, the unique solution is $(x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4) = (3, 1, -1, 1)$. Check: $3 - 3 + 2 - 1 = 1$, $-3 + 2 - 1 + 1 = -1$, $-3 + 2 - 2 + 1 = -2$, $1 - 1 + 1 = 1$.

Second system. Forward elimination; after the first arrow the entry of row 2 in column 2 is 0, so rows 2 and 3 are interchanged (Step 2):

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&2&1&4\\ 2&2&3&1&6\\ 1&2&2&2&3\\ 0&1&1&3&1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&2&1&4\\ 0&0&-1&-1&-2\\ 0&1&0&1&-1\\ 0&1&1&3&1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2\leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&2&1&4\\ 0&1&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&-1&-1&-2\\ 0&1&1&3&1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow -R_3]{R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&2&1&4\\ 0&1&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&1&1&2\\ 0&0&1&2&2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&2&1&4\\ 0&1&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&1&1&2\\ 0&0&0&1&0 \end{array}\right)$$

Every column of the left part is a pivot column and the last column is not, so there is exactly one solution (Theorems 2.26 and 2.27(b)). Back substitution: $x_4 = 0$; $x_3 = 2 - x_4 = 2$; $x_2 = -1 - x_4 = -1$; $x_1 = 4 - x_2 - 2x_3 - x_4 = 4 + 1 - 4 - 0 = 1$. The unique solution is $(x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4) = (1, -1, 2, 0)$. Check: $1 - 1 + 4 + 0 = 4$, $2 - 2 + 6 + 0 = 6$, $1 - 2 + 4 + 0 = 3$, $0 - 1 + 2 + 0 = 1$.

Exercise 2.20. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1&3&5&-1\\ 1&2&2&0\\ 0&1&3&-1\\ 0&0&1&-1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b = \begin{pmatrix} 6\\4\\2\\0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad c = \begin{pmatrix} 6\\4\\3\\0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find all solutions of $Ax = b$.

(b) Show that $Ax = c$ has no solution.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[A \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&5&-1&6\\ 1&2&2&0&4\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&5&-1&6\\ 0&-1&-3&1&-2\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&5&-1&6\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&5&-1&6\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&0&0&0&0\\ 0&0&1&-1&0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3\leftrightarrow R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&5&-1&6\\ 0&1&3&-1&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1\leftarrow R_1-5R_3]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-3R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&3&0&4&6\\ 0&1&0&2&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-3R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&0&0&-2&0\\ 0&1&0&2&2\\ 0&0&1&-1&0\\ 0&0&0&0&0 \end{array}\right)$$

After the third arrow the entry of row 3 in column 3 is 0, so Step 2 interchanges rows 3 and 4. The left part of the last matrix is the RREF R of A, with $r = 3$ and pivot columns $1, 2, 3$; the unknown x_4 is free. The last matrix is $[R \mid z]$ with $z = (0, 2, 0, 0)'$. As $z_4 = 0$, the system is consistent (Proposition 2.7(a)), and with $x_4 = t$, Proposition 2.7(b) gives $x_1 = 2t$, $x_2 = 2 - 2t$, $x_3 = t$:

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 0\\2\\0\\0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} 2\\-2\\1\\1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

infinitely many solutions (Theorem 2.27(a),(b)). Check: $A(0, 2, 0, 0)' = 2\,\mathrm{col}_2(A) = (6, 4, 2, 0)' = b$ and $A(2, -2, 1, 1)' = (2 - 6 + 5 - 1,\ 2 - 4 + 2,\ -2 + 3 - 1,\ 1 - 1)' = 0$.

(b) Row-reduce $[A \mid c]$ by the same first three operations:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 3 & 5 & -1 & 6 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 0 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 3 & 5 & -1 & 6 \\ 0 & -1 & -3 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 3 & 5 & -1 & 6 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 3 & 5 & -1 & 6 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

The third row of the last matrix reads $(0\ 0\ 0\ 0 \mid 1)$, that is, $0 = 1$; so $Ax = c$ has no solution (Theorem 2.26). Indeed $\mathrm{row}_3(A) = \mathrm{row}_1(A) - \mathrm{row}_2(A)$, while $c_3 = 3 \neq 2 = c_1 - c_2$.

Exercise 2.21. Consider the system

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 - 2x_3 + 3x_5 &= -1 \\ 2x_1 + x_2 - x_3 - x_4 + 3x_5 &= -4 \\ -2x_1 + 4x_3 + x_4 - 4x_5 &= 3 \\ x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + 2x_5 &= -2 \end{aligned}$$

(a) Reduce its augmented matrix $[A \mid b]$ to RREF.

(b) Write all solutions in the form $x = x_p + sv_1 + tv_2$ $(s, t \in \mathbb{R})$.

(c) Check that $Ax_p = b$ and $Av_1 = Av_2 = 0$.

Solution. (a)

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & 1 & -1 & -1 & 3 & -4 \\ -2 & 0 & 4 & 1 & -4 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 & -2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & -3 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & -3 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 & -3 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|c} 1 & 0 & -2 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

The last matrix is $[R \mid z]$, with R the RREF of A, pivot columns $1, 2, 4$ and $z = (-1, -1, 1, 0)'$.

(b) Since $z_4 = 0$, the system is consistent (Proposition 2.7(a)). The free unknowns are $x_3 = s$ and $x_5 = t$, and the rows give $x_1 = -1 + 2s - 3t$, $x_2 = -1 - 3s + t$, $x_4 = 1 - 2t$ (Proposition 2.7(b)):

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + s \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = x_p + sv_1 + tv_2$$

(c) Row by row:

- $Ax_p = (-1,\ -2 - 1 - 1,\ 2 + 1,\ -1 - 1)' = (-1, -4, 3, -2)' = b$;

- $Av_1 = (2-2,\ 4-3-1,\ -4+4,\ 2-3+1)' = 0$;
- $Av_2 = (-3+3,\ -6+1+2+3,\ 6-2-4,\ -3+1+2)' = 0$.

So x_p is a particular solution, and $sv_1 + tv_2$ runs through the solutions of $Ax = 0$ (Theorem 2.27(a)).

Exercise 2.22. For which values of k does the system

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 + 2x_2 - x_3 &= 1 \\ 2x_1 + 5x_2 + x_3 + x_4 &= 3 \\ x_1 + 3x_2 + 3x_3 + 2x_4 &= 2 \\ x_1 + 2x_2 + k^2 x_4 &= k+2 \end{aligned}$$

have

(a) no solution,

(b) exactly one solution,

(c) infinitely many solutions?

Give the solutions when they exist.

Solution. Forward elimination:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 3 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & k^2 & k+2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 4 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & k^2 & k+1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & k^2 & k+1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & k^2-1 & k+1 \end{array}\right)$$

Row 4 reads $(k^2-1)x_4 = k+1$, where $k^2 - 1 = (k-1)(k+1)$.

(a) $k = 1$: row 4 reads $(0\ 0\ 0\ 0 \mid 2)$, that is, $0 = 2$; so there is no solution (Theorem 2.26).

(b) $k \neq \pm 1$: dividing row 4 by k^2-1 gives an echelon form with pivots in columns $1, 2, 3, 4$ and none in the last column, so there is exactly one solution (Theorems 2.26 and 2.27(b)). Back substitution: $x_4 = \frac{k+1}{k^2-1} = \frac{1}{k-1}$; $x_3 = -x_4 = -\frac{1}{k-1}$; $x_2 = 1 - 3x_3 - x_4 = \frac{k+1}{k-1}$; $x_1 = 1 - 2x_2 + x_3 = -\frac{k+4}{k-1}$. So $x = \frac{1}{k-1}(-k-4,\ k+1,\ -1,\ 1)'$; for $k = 2$, $x = (-6, 3, -1, 1)'$, and indeed $-6+6+1 = 1$, $-12+15-1+1 = 3$, $-6+9-3+2 = 2$, $-6+6+4 = 4 = k+2$.

(c) $k = -1$: row 4 is zero, and $x_4 = t$ is free, so there are infinitely many solutions (Theorems 2.26 and 2.27(b)): $x_3 = -t$, $x_2 = 1 - 3x_3 - x_4 = 1 + 2t$, $x_1 = 1 - 2x_2 + x_3 = -1 - 5t$, that is, $x = (-1, 1, 0, 0)' + t\,(-5, 2, -1, 1)'$ $(t \in \mathbb{R})$.

Exercise 2.23. For which values of k and h does the system

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 &= 1 \\ x_1 + 2x_2 + 2x_3 + 2x_4 &= 2 \\ x_1 + 2x_2 + 3x_3 + 3x_4 &= 4 \\ x_1 + 2x_2 + 3x_3 + kx_4 &= h \end{aligned}$$

have no solution, exactly one solution, or infinitely many solutions? Give the solutions when they exist.

Solution. Forward elimination; each arrow subtracts a row from all rows below it:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&1&1&1\\ 1&2&2&2&2\\ 1&2&3&3&4\\ 1&2&3&k&h \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&1&1&1\\ 0&1&1&1&1\\ 0&1&2&2&3\\ 0&1&2&k-1&h-1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&1&1&1\\ 0&1&1&1&1\\ 0&0&1&1&2\\ 0&0&1&k-2&h-2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1&1&1&1&1\\ 0&1&1&1&1\\ 0&0&1&1&2\\ 0&0&0&k-3&h-4 \end{array}\right)$$

- $k \neq 3$: $R_4 \leftarrow \frac{1}{k-3}R_4$ gives an echelon form with pivots in columns $1,2,3,4$ and none in the last column. So there is exactly one solution (Theorems 2.26 and 2.27(b)). Back substitution with $s = \frac{h-4}{k-3}$: $x_4 = s$, $x_3 = 2 - s$, $x_2 = 1 - x_3 - x_4 = -1$, $x_1 = 1 - x_2 - x_3 - x_4 = 0$, that is, $x = (0,-1,2,0)' + s\,(0,0,-1,1)'$.
- $k = 3$, $h \neq 4$: row 4 reads $0 = h - 4 \neq 0$, so there is no solution.
- $k = 3$, $h = 4$: row 4 is 0, and the first three rows form an echelon form with pivots in columns $1,2,3$; $x_4 = t$ is free, so there are infinitely many solutions: $x = (0,-1,2,0)' + t\,(0,0,-1,1)'$ $(t \in \mathbb{R})$.

Check: $(0,-1,2,0)'$ satisfies the first three equations ($0-1+2+0=1$, $0-2+4+0=2$, $0-2+6+0=4$), and $(0,0,-1,1)'$ satisfies their homogeneous versions ($-1+1=0$, $-2+2=0$, $-3+3=0$). In the fourth equation, $(0,-1,2,0)'$ gives $0-2+6+k\cdot 0 = 4$ and $(0,0,-1,1)'$ gives $-3+k$; so for $k \neq 3$ its left side is $4 + s(k-3) = 4 + (h-4) = h$, and for $k=3$, $h=4$ it is $4 + t(3-3) = 4 = h$.

Exercise 2.24. (a) Find U^{-1} for $U = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&2&-1\\ 0&-1&-1&1\\ 0&0&-1&1\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{pmatrix}$ by the formulas of Theorem 2.31(b).

(b) Find L^{-1} for $L = \begin{pmatrix} 1&0&0&0\\ 2&1&0&0\\ -1&2&-1&0\\ 0&1&1&1 \end{pmatrix}$ by row reduction of $[L \mid I_4]$.

(c) Show that $G = \begin{pmatrix} 1&2&-1&1\\ 0&0&3&1\\ 0&0&-1&2\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{pmatrix}$ is not invertible by finding $x \neq 0$ with $Gx = 0$.

Solution. (a) The diagonal entries of $B = U^{-1}$ are $b_{11} = 1$, $b_{22} = -1$, $b_{33} = -1$, $b_{44} = 1$, and $b_{ij} = -\frac{1}{u_{ii}} \sum_{k=i+1}^{j} u_{ik} b_{kj}$ for $i < j$, where $-1/u_{11} = -1$, $-1/u_{22} = 1$ and $-1/u_{33} = 1$:

- column 2: $b_{12} = -u_{12}b_{22} = -(1)(-1) = 1$;
- column 3: $b_{23} = u_{23}b_{33} = (-1)(-1) = 1$, $b_{13} = -(u_{12}b_{23} + u_{13}b_{33}) = -(1-2) = 1$;
- column 4: $b_{34} = u_{34}b_{44} = 1$, $b_{24} = u_{23}b_{34} + u_{24}b_{44} = -1+1 = 0$, $b_{14} = -(u_{12}b_{24} + u_{13}b_{34} + u_{14}b_{44}) = -(0+2-1) = -1$.

So

$$U^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&1&-1\\ 0&-1&1&0\\ 0&0&-1&1\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\mathrm{row}_1(U)U^{-1} = (1,\ 1-1,\ 1+1-2,\ -1+0+2-1) = (1,0,0,0)$, and similarly for the other rows.

(b) L is lower triangular, so forward elimination and one scaling already turn the left half into I_4:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 5 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 5 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 7 & -3 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -5 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 7 & -3 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$L^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -5 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 7 & -3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

lower triangular with diagonal entries $1, 1, -1, 1$, the reciprocals of those of L (Theorem 2.31(b)). Check: $\text{row}_4(L)L^{-1} = (-2-5+7,\ 1+2-3,\ -1+1,\ 1) = (0,0,0,1)$.

(c) $Gx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 2x_2 - x_3 + x_4 = 0$, $3x_3 + x_4 = 0$, $-x_3 + 2x_4 = 0$, $x_4 = 0$. So $x_4 = 0$, $x_3 = 0$ and $x_1 = -2x_2$; with $x_2 = 1$, $x = (-2, 1, 0, 0)' \neq 0$ and $Gx = (-2+2,\ 0,\ 0,\ 0)' = 0$. Hence G is not invertible (Theorem 2.16), as Theorem 2.31(a) predicts: $g_{22} = 0$.

Exercise 2.25. Six units are measured on two variables: $X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}' \in \mathbb{R}^{6\times 2}$. Let $M = [\mathbf{1}_6\ X_0] \in \mathbb{R}^{6\times 3}$. Find the mean vector $\bar{x}$, the centered data CX_0, a product Q of elementary matrices with $[\mathbf{1}_6\ CX_0] = MQ$, and Q^{-1}.

Solution.

- $\mathbf{1}'X_0 = (6, 6)$, so $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{6}X_0'\mathbf{1} = (1, 1)'$, and $CX_0 = X_0 - \mathbf{1}\bar{x}'$ (Example 1.17) has the columns $(1, 1, -1, -1, 1, -1)'$ and $(1, -1, 1, -1, 0, 0)'$.
- $[\mathbf{1}_6\ CX_0]$ arises from M by $\text{col}_2 \leftarrow \text{col}_2 - \text{col}_1$ and $\text{col}_3 \leftarrow \text{col}_3 - \text{col}_1$, so (Theorem 2.35)

$$Q = T_{12}(-1)\,T_{13}(-1) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q^{-1} = T_{13}(1)\,T_{12}(1) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

by Theorems 2.13(b) and 2.15(b); Q^{-1} is unit upper triangular, as Theorem 2.31 says.

Problems

Problem 2.1. Show that the product of two elementary matrices is, in general, not elementary.

Solution. For example,

$$P_{13}D_2(7) = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 7 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 7 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

This is not elementary: a matrix $D_r(c)$ or $T_{rs}(c)$ differs from I_3 in one entry only, while this product differs from I_3 in five entries; and every P_{rs} has all entries 0 or 1, while this product has the entry 7.

Problem 2.2. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible. Show that:

(a) $(\lambda A)^{-1} = \frac{1}{\lambda}A^{-1}$ $(\lambda \neq 0)$;

(b) if A and B commute and B is invertible, then A and B^{-1} commute.

Solution. (a) We check both products (Definition 2.12): $(\lambda A)(\frac{1}{\lambda}A^{-1}) = AA^{-1} = I$ and $(\frac{1}{\lambda}A^{-1})(\lambda A) = A^{-1}A = I$. (b) Multiply $AB = BA$ on the left and on the right by B^{-1}: $B^{-1}ABB^{-1} = B^{-1}BAB^{-1}$, that is, $B^{-1}A = AB^{-1}$.

Problem 2.3. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) If $A^2 = 0$, show that $I - A$ is invertible.

(b) If $A^3 = 0$, show that $I - A$ is invertible.

(c) In general, if $A^k = 0$ for some positive integer k, show that $I - A$ is invertible.

(d) Suppose that $A^2 + 2A + I = 0$. Show that A is invertible.

(e) Suppose that $A^3 - A + I = 0$. Show that A is invertible.

Solution. (a)–(c) For every positive integer k, by Theorem 1.3,

$$(I - A)(I + A + A^2 + \cdots + A^{k-1}) = (I + A + \cdots + A^{k-1}) - (A + A^2 + \cdots + A^k) = I - A^k$$

and in the same way $(I + A + \cdots + A^{k-1})(I - A) = I - A^k$. If $A^k = 0$, both products equal I, so $I - A$ is invertible with inverse $I + A + \cdots + A^{k-1}$. Parts (a) and (b) are the cases $k = 2$ and $k = 3$: $(I - A)^{-1} = I + A$ and $I + A + A^2$, respectively.

(d) $A(-A - 2I) = (-A - 2I)A = -A^2 - 2A = I$, since $A^2 + 2A + I = 0$. So $A^{-1} = -A - 2I$.

(e) $A(-A^2 + I) = (-A^2 + I)A = -A^3 + A = I$, since $A^3 - A + I = 0$. So $A^{-1} = I - A^2$.

Problem 2.4. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$, with $n < m$. Show that AB is not invertible.

Solution. AB is an $m \times m$ matrix. By Theorem 2.16 ((i) $\Leftrightarrow$ (iii)), it suffices to find $x \neq 0$ with $(AB)x = 0$.

- The system $Bx = 0$ has n equations in the m unknowns $x_1, \ldots, x_m$, and $n < m$. So it has a nontrivial solution $x \in \mathbb{R}^m$ (Theorem 2.11(a)).
- Then $(AB)x = A(Bx) = A0 = 0$ (Theorem 1.3), with $x \neq 0$. Hence AB is not invertible.

Problem 2.5. Let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $|a_{ii}| > \sum_{k\neq i}|a_{ik}|$ for $i = 1, \dots, n$. Show that A is invertible.

Solution. By Theorem 2.16 ((iii) $\Rightarrow$ (i)), it suffices to show that $Ax = 0$ only for $x = 0$. Suppose that $Ax = 0$ with $x \neq 0$, and choose an index s with $|x_s| \geqslant |x_k|$ for $k = 1, \dots, n$; then $|x_s| > 0$.

- Equation s of $Ax = 0$ reads $\sum_k a_{sk}x_k = 0$, that is, $a_{ss}x_s = -\sum_{k\neq s} a_{sk}x_k$.
- By the triangle inequality, the choice of s, and the hypothesis for $i = s$ (with $|x_s| > 0$),

$$|a_{ss}|\,|x_s| = \left|\sum_{k\neq s} a_{sk}x_k\right| \leqslant \sum_{k\neq s}|a_{sk}|\,|x_k| \leqslant |x_s|\sum_{k\neq s}|a_{sk}| < |x_s|\,|a_{ss}| \text{ ✘}$$

Hence $Ax = 0$ only for $x = 0$, and A is invertible.

Problem 2.6. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be skew-symmetric (Definition 1.26).

(a) Show that $I_n + A$ is invertible.

(b) Show that if A is invertible, then A^{-1} is skew-symmetric.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 2.16 ((iii) $\Rightarrow$ (i)), it suffices to show that $(I_n + A)x = 0$ only for $x = 0$.

- For every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the 1×1 matrix $x'Ax$ equals its transpose, so by Theorem 1.9 and $A' = -A$, $x'Ax = (x'Ax)' = x'A'x = -x'Ax$. Hence $x'Ax = 0$.
- If $(I_n + A)x = 0$, then by Theorems 1.3 and 1.9, $0 = x'(I_n + A)x = x'x + x'Ax = x'x = \sum_i x_i^2$, so $x = 0$.

(b)

- $-A$ is invertible with $(-A)^{-1} = -A^{-1}$, since $(-A)(-A^{-1}) = AA^{-1} = I_n$ and $(-A^{-1})(-A) = A^{-1}A = I_n$ (Theorem 1.3, Definition 2.12).
- By Theorem 2.13(c) and $A' = -A$, $(A^{-1})' = (A')^{-1} = (-A)^{-1} = -A^{-1}$. So A^{-1} is skew-symmetric.

Problem 2.7. Find all invertible matrices $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ such that all entries of A and all entries of A^{-1} are nonnegative.

Solution. These are exactly the matrices $A = (a_{ij})$ with nonnegative entries that have exactly one nonzero entry in each row and in each column; the inverse of such an A is A' with every nonzero entry replaced by its reciprocal.

- Rows. Let A be invertible, with nonnegative entries, and let $B = A^{-1} = (b_{ij})$ have nonnegative entries. Suppose that row i of A has two positive entries, $a_{ir} > 0$ and $a_{is} > 0$ with $r \neq s$. For $j \neq i$, the (i, j) entry of $AB = I_n$ is $\sum_k a_{ik}b_{kj} = 0$; its terms are $\geqslant 0$, so all of them vanish, and $a_{ir}b_{rj} = 0$, $a_{is}b_{sj} = 0$ give $b_{rj} = b_{sj} = 0$. Thus $\mathrm{row}_r(B) = b_{ri}e_i'$ and $\mathrm{row}_s(B) = b_{si}e_i'$: rows r and s of B are multiples of e_i'.
- This is impossible. By Theorem 1.4(c), $\mathrm{row}_r(BA) = \mathrm{row}_r(B)A = b_{ri}\,\mathrm{row}_i(A)$ and $\mathrm{row}_s(BA) = b_{si}\,\mathrm{row}_i(A)$, and as $BA = I_n$, these rows are e_r' and e_s'. So $b_{ri} \neq 0$, and $e_s' = b_{si}\,\mathrm{row}_i(A) = (b_{si}/b_{ri})\,e_r'$; but the sth entry of e_s' is 1, while that of $(b_{si}/b_{ri})\,e_r'$ is 0, as $r \neq s$ ✘ Hence every row of A has at most one nonzero entry.
- No row of A is zero: if $\mathrm{row}_i(A) = 0$, then $\mathrm{row}_i(AB) = \mathrm{row}_i(A)B = 0$, while $\mathrm{row}_i(I_n) = e_i' \neq 0$ (Theorem 1.4(c)). So every row of A has exactly one nonzero entry.
- Columns. A' has nonnegative entries and is invertible, with $(A')^{-1} = (A^{-1})' = B'$, which has nonnegative entries (Theorem 2.13(c)). By the first three items, applied to A', every row of A', that is, every column of A, has exactly one nonzero entry.

- Converse. Let A have nonnegative entries, with exactly one nonzero entry in each row and in each column, and let $a_{i\sigma(i)}$ be the nonzero (hence positive) entry of row i. If $i \neq l$, then $\sigma(i) \neq \sigma(l)$, as column $\sigma(i)$ has only one nonzero entry. Let $B = (b_{kj}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the entries $b_{\sigma(i)i} = 1/a_{i\sigma(i)}$ $(i = 1, \ldots, n)$ and all other entries 0; it is A' with every nonzero entry replaced by its reciprocal, and its entries are nonnegative.
- In $(AB)_{ij} = \sum_k a_{ik}b_{kj}$ only the term $k = \sigma(i)$ can be nonzero, so $(AB)_{ij} = a_{i\sigma(i)}b_{\sigma(i)j}$. Here $b_{\sigma(i)j} \neq 0$ only if $\sigma(i) = \sigma(j)$, that is, $j = i$, and $a_{i\sigma(i)}b_{\sigma(i)i} = 1$. So $AB = I_n$, and by Theorem 2.16, A is invertible with $A^{-1} = B$, whose entries are nonnegative.

Chapter 3. Vector spaces, subspaces, span, and bases

Vector spaces

Definition 3.1. A (real) **vector space** is a set V, whose elements are called **vectors**, with an **addition** that gives $u+v \in V$ for $u, v \in V$ and a **scalar multiplication** that gives $cv \in V$ for $c \in \mathbb{R}$ and $v \in V$, such that for all $u, v, w \in V$ and $c, d \in \mathbb{R}$:

(V1) $u+v = v+u$ and (V2) $u+(v+w) = (u+v)+w$;

(V3) there is a **zero vector** $0 \in V$ with $v+0 = v$ for every $v \in V$;

(V4) for each $v \in V$ there is $-v \in V$ with $v+(-v) = 0$;

(V5) $1v = v$ and (V6) $(cd)v = c(dv)$;

(V7) $c(u+v) = cu+cv$ and (V8) $(c+d)v = cv+dv$.

A vector $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k$ ($c_i \in \mathbb{R}$) is a **linear combination** of $v_1, \ldots, v_k$.

From these rules, $0v = 0$ and $(-1)v = -v$: indeed $0v = (0+0)v = 0v+0v$, and adding $-(0v)$ to both sides gives $0 = 0v$; then $v+(-1)v = (1+(-1))v = 0v = 0$, and $-v$ is the only vector w with $v+w = 0$, since such a w equals $w+(v+(-v)) = (w+v)+(-v) = 0+(-v) = -v$. Likewise $c0 = 0$, and $cv = 0$ only if $c = 0$ or $v = 0$ (if $c \neq 0$, then $v = c^{-1}(cv) = c^{-1}0 = 0$).

Example 3.2. $\mathbb{R}^n$, $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ and $\mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, with the entrywise sum and scalar multiple of Definition 1.1, are vector spaces: (V1)–(V8) hold entry by entry, the zero vector is the zero matrix, and $-A = (-1)A$. In this course every vector space is one of these or a subspace of one of them.

Subspaces

Definition 3.3. A **subspace** of a vector space V is a subset $W \subseteq V$ that is itself a vector space with the addition and scalar multiplication of V.

Theorem 3.4. For a subset W of a vector space V the following are equivalent:

(a) W is a subspace of V;

(b) $0 \in W$, and $u+v \in W$ and $cu \in W$ for all $u, v \in W$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$ (W is **closed under addition and scalar multiplication**);

(c) $0 \in W$, and $cu+v \in W$ for all $u, v \in W$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

Proof. (a) $\Rightarrow$ (b): the operations of the vector space W are those of V and give vectors of W; W has a zero vector, so it contains some w, and then $0 = 0w \in W$. (b) $\Rightarrow$ (c): $cu \in W$, so $cu+v \in W$. (c) $\Rightarrow$ (a): taking $v = 0$ gives $cu \in W$, and $c = 1$ gives $u+v \in W$; so the operations of V give operations on W. The rules (V1), (V2), (V5)–(V8) hold in W because they hold in V; (V3) holds since $0 \in W$, and (V4) since $-w = (-1)w \in W$. □

So, to show that W is a subspace, check that it contains 0 and is closed under the two operations; to show that it is not, exhibit one failure.

Example 3.5. (a) $\{0\}$ and V itself are subspaces of V.

(b) In $\mathbb{R}^n$, $W = \{x : x_1 = 0\}$ is a subspace: $0 \in W$, and $(cx+y)_1 = cx_1+y_1 = 0$ for $x, y \in W$. For $n \geqslant 2$, $\{x : x_1 = 1+x_2\}$ is not, since it does not contain 0.

(c) In $\mathbb{R}^2$, $\{(x,y)' : 2x-5y = 0\}$ is a subspace: it contains 0, and $2(cx_1+x_2)-5(cy_1+y_2) = c(2x_1-5y_1)+(2x_2-5y_2)$ for $(x_1,y_1)'$ and $(x_2,y_2)'$ in it; but for $k \neq 0$ the set $\{(x,y)' : ax+by = k\}$ is not, since it does not contain 0.

(d) The symmetric $n \times n$ matrices form a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$: $0' = 0$, and $(cA+B)' = cA'+B' = cA+B$ for symmetric A, B. So do the skew-symmetric matrices (Definition 1.26), those with $A' = -A$: $0' = -0$, and $(cA + B)' = cA' + B' = -(cA + B)$ if $A' = -A$ and $B' = -B$.

(e) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, the solution set $\{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : Ax = 0\}$ of a homogeneous system is a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$: $A0 = 0$, and $A(cu + v) = cAu + Av = 0$ if $Au = Av = 0$. For $b \neq 0$, the solutions of $Ax = b$ do not form a subspace ($A0 = 0 \neq b$).

(f) In statistics, the **centered** vectors $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : \mathbf{1}'x = 0\}$, whose entries add up to 0, form a subspace: this is (e) with the $1 \times n$ matrix $A = \mathbf{1}'$. For every x, the deviation vector Cx of Example 1.16 lies in W_0, since $\mathbf{1}'Cx = \mathbf{1}'C'x = (C\mathbf{1})'x = 0$ (Proposition 1.15: $C' = C$, $C\mathbf{1} = 0$).

(g) The set $\{(x, y, z)' \in \mathbb{R}^3 : xy = 0\}$ is not a subspace: $(1, 0, 0)'$ and $(0, 1, 0)'$ lie in it, but their sum $(1, 1, 0)'$ does not. It is the union of the subspaces $\{x = 0\}$ and $\{y = 0\}$; a union of subspaces need not be a subspace.

Span

Definition 3.6. Let $v_1, \dots, v_k$ be vectors of a vector space V. Their **span** is the set of all their linear combinations,

$$\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\} = \{c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k : \ c_1, \dots, c_k \in \mathbb{R}\}$$

and $\operatorname{span} \varnothing = \{0\}$. If $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\} = W$, we say that $v_1, \dots, v_k$ **span** W.

Theorem 3.7. $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$ is a subspace of V that contains $v_1, \dots, v_k$, and it is contained in every subspace that contains $v_1, \dots, v_k$: it is the smallest subspace containing them.

Proof. $0 = 0v_1 + \cdots + 0v_k$ lies in the span, and $c\sum_i a_iv_i + \sum_i b_iv_i = \sum_i(ca_i + b_i)v_i$; so the span is a subspace (Theorem 3.4(c)). It contains $v_j = 1v_j + \sum_{i\neq j} 0v_i$. A subspace that contains $v_1, \dots, v_k$ contains every c_iv_i and every sum of these, by closure. □

For vectors $v_1, \dots, v_k \in \mathbb{R}^m$, put $V = [v_1 \ \cdots \ v_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times k}$. Since $Vc = c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k$ (Theorem 1.4(b)),

$$\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\} = \{Vc : \ c \in \mathbb{R}^k\}, \qquad b \in \operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\} \iff \text{the system } Vc = b \text{ is consistent}$$

So membership in a span is decided by row-reducing $[V \mid b]$ (Proposition 2.7, Theorem 2.26). For instance, by Example 2.10, a vector $y \in \mathbb{R}^4$ lies in the span of the columns of the matrix A there if and only if $y_1 - y_2 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$.

Example 3.8. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^5$, where $v_1 = (1, 2, 0, 3, 0)'$, $v_2 = (0, 0, 1, 4, 0)'$ and $v_3 = (0, 0, 0, 0, 1)'$. Which $y = (y_1, \dots, y_5)'$ lie in W?

Solution. Row-reduce $[v_1 \ v_2 \ v_3 \mid y]$, keeping the y_i as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1&0&0&y_1\\ 2&0&0&y_2\\ 0&1&0&y_3\\ 3&4&0&y_4\\ 0&0&1&y_5 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-3R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1&0&0&y_1\\ 0&0&0&y_2-2y_1\\ 0&1&0&y_3\\ 0&4&0&y_4-3y_1\\ 0&0&1&y_5 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-4R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1&0&0&y_1\\ 0&0&0&y_2-2y_1\\ 0&1&0&y_3\\ 0&0&0&y_4-3y_1-4y_3\\ 0&0&1&y_5 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2\leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1&0&0&y_1\\ 0&1&0&y_3\\ 0&0&0&y_2-2y_1\\ 0&0&0&y_4-3y_1-4y_3\\ 0&0&1&y_5 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3\leftrightarrow R_5} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1&0&0&y_1\\ 0&1&0&y_3\\ 0&0&1&y_5\\ 0&0&0&y_4-3y_1-4y_3\\ 0&0&0&y_2-2y_1 \end{array}\right)$$

By Proposition 2.7, $y \in W$ if and only if

$$y_2 = 2y_1, \qquad y_4 = 3y_1 + 4y_3$$

and then $y = y_1v_1 + y_3v_2 + y_5v_3$. For example, $(-3,-6,1,-5,2)' \in W$, since $-6 = 2(-3)$ and $-5 = 3(-3)+4\cdot 1$; indeed it equals $-3v_1 + v_2 + 2v_3$. But $(2,4,6,7,8)' \notin W$, since $3\cdot 2 + 4\cdot 6 = 30 \neq 7$.

Example 3.9. $\operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\} = \{c\mathbf{1}_n : c \in \mathbb{R}\}$ is the subspace of constant vectors. Every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is the sum of a constant vector and a centered vector:

$$x = \bar{x}\mathbf{1} + Cx, \qquad \bar{x}\mathbf{1} \in \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}, \quad Cx \in W_0$$

since $Cx = x - \bar{x}\mathbf{1}$ (Example 1.16) and $Cx \in W_0$ (Example 3.5(f)). For $x = (1,3,5,7,9)'$: $x = 5\mathbf{1} + (-4,-2,0,2,4)'$.

Theorem 3.10. Let $A = [a_1 \ \cdots \ a_n] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B = [b_1 \ \cdots \ b_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$.

(a) $\operatorname{span}\{b_1,\dots,b_p\} \subseteq \operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$ if and only if every b_j lies in $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$, and if and only if $B = AF$ for some $F \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$.

(b) $\operatorname{span}\{b_1,\dots,b_p\} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$ if and only if $B = AF$ and $A = BG$ for some $F \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $G \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times n}$.

(c) If every b_j lies in $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$, then $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n,b_1,\dots,b_p\} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$. In particular, deleting from a list of vectors a vector that is a linear combination of the others does not change their span.

Proof. (a)

- If $\operatorname{span}\{b_1,\dots,b_p\} \subseteq \operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$, then each b_j, which lies in $\operatorname{span}\{b_1,\dots,b_p\}$ (Theorem 3.7), lies in $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$.
- If every b_j lies in $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,\dots,a_n\}$, this subspace contains $b_1,\dots,b_p$, so it contains $\operatorname{span}\{b_1,\dots,b_p\}$ (Theorem 3.7).
- For $F = [f_1 \ \cdots \ f_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $\operatorname{col}_j(AF) = Af_j$ (Theorem 1.4(a)), and Af_j is the combination of $a_1,\dots,a_n$ with the coefficients f_j (Theorem 1.4(b)). So $B = AF$ for some F if and only if each b_j is a linear combination of $a_1,\dots,a_n$.

(b) The two spans are equal if and only if each is contained in the other; apply (a) to both inclusions.

(c)

- Let $b_j = k_{1j}a_1 + \cdots + k_{nj}a_n$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant p)$. For all scalars x_i and y_j,

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i a_i + \sum_{j=1}^{p} y_j b_j = \sum_{i=1}^{n}\Big(x_i + \sum_{j=1}^{p} k_{ij}y_j\Big)a_i$$

  so every linear combination of $a_1,\dots,a_n,b_1,\dots,b_p$ is one of $a_1,\dots,a_n$.
- Conversely, $\sum_i x_i a_i = \sum_i x_i a_i + \sum_j 0\, b_j$.
- For the last sentence, let the a_i be the remaining vectors and b_1 the deleted one ($p = 1$); the order of the vectors does not affect their span. □

Linear independence

Definition 3.11. Vectors $v_1,\dots,v_k$ of a vector space are **linearly dependent** if $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k = 0$ for some scalars $c_1,\dots,c_k$, not all 0 (a **linear relation**). Otherwise they are **linearly independent**: $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k = 0$ only for $c_1 = \cdots = c_k = 0$. The empty list is independent.

Proposition 3.12. Let $v_1, \dots, v_k \in \mathbb{R}^m$ and $V = [v_1 \ \cdots \ v_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times k}$. Then $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are linearly independent if and only if $Vc = 0$ has only the solution $c = 0$, that is, if and only if every column of the RREF of V is a pivot column (no free unknowns). In particular, more than m vectors of $\mathbb{R}^m$ are linearly dependent.

Proof. $Vc = c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k$, so the linear relations among the v_i are the solutions of $Vc = 0$. This system is consistent ($c = 0$), so by Theorem 2.27(b) $c = 0$ is its only solution exactly when there is no free unknown. If $k > m$, then $Vc = 0$ has a nontrivial solution (Theorem 2.11(a)). □

Proposition 3.13. Let $v_1, \dots, v_k$ be vectors of a vector space.

(a) If some $v_i = 0$, or $v_i = v_j$ for some $i \neq j$, then $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are dependent. A single vector v is independent if and only if $v \neq 0$.

(b) A sublist of an independent list is independent.

(c) For $k \geqslant 2$, $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are dependent if and only if some v_j is a linear combination of the others. In particular, two vectors are dependent if and only if one of them is a multiple of the other.

Proof. (a) $1 \cdot 0 = 0$ and $v_i - v_j = 0$ are linear relations with a coefficient 1; and if $v \neq 0$, then $cv = 0$ forces $c = 0$. (b) A relation among some of the vectors is a relation among all of them, with coefficient 0 for the others. (c) If $v_j = \sum_{i\neq j} x_iv_i$, then $v_j - \sum_{i\neq j} x_iv_i = 0$ is a relation with coefficient 1 on v_j. Conversely, if $\sum_i x_iv_i = 0$ with $x_j \neq 0$, then $v_j = \sum_{i\neq j}(-x_i/x_j)v_i$. □

Proposition 3.14. Let $v_1, \dots, v_k$ be vectors of a vector space V.

(a) If $k \geqslant 2$ and $v_1 \neq 0$, then $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are linearly dependent if and only if some v_j ($2 \leqslant j \leqslant k$) is a linear combination of the preceding vectors $v_1, \dots, v_{j-1}$.

(b) If $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are linearly independent and $v \in V$ does not lie in $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$, then $v_1, \dots, v_k, v$ are linearly independent.

Proof. (a)

- If $v_j = \sum_{i<j} x_iv_i$, then v_j is a combination of the other vectors (with coefficient 0 for $i > j$), so the list is dependent (Proposition 3.13(c)).
- Conversely, let the list be dependent, and let j be the least index such that $v_1, \dots, v_j$ are dependent. Since $v_1 \neq 0$ is independent (Proposition 3.13(a)), $j \geqslant 2$.
- There are $x_1, \dots, x_j$, not all 0, with $x_1v_1 + \cdots + x_jv_j = 0$. Here $x_j \neq 0$, since otherwise $v_1, \dots, v_{j-1}$ would be dependent, contrary to the choice of j.
- Hence $v_j = (-x_1/x_j)v_1 + \cdots + (-x_{j-1}/x_j)v_{j-1}$.

(b)

- Let $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k + bv = 0$. Then $b = 0$: otherwise $v = (-c_1/b)v_1 + \cdots + (-c_k/b)v_k$ would lie in $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$.
- So $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k = 0$, and every $c_i = 0$, as $v_1, \dots, v_k$ are independent. □

Example 3.15. Let a_1, a_2, a_3, a_4 be the columns of the matrix A of Example 2.6:

$$a_1 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}, \quad a_2 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad a_3 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\5\end{pmatrix}, \quad a_4 = \begin{pmatrix}-2\\-3\\-4\end{pmatrix}$$

Four vectors of $\mathbb{R}^3$ are dependent (Proposition 3.12). A relation comes from the solutions $x = t(-2, 3, 1, 1)'$ of $Ax = 0$ found there:

$$-2a_1 + 3a_2 + a_3 + a_4 = 0, \qquad \text{so} \qquad a_4 = 2a_1 - 3a_2 - a_3$$

On the other hand a_1, a_2, a_3 are independent: the same row operations take $[a_1\ a_2\ a_3]$ to the first three columns of the RREF found there (row operations act on each column separately: Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), which form I_3, so every column is a pivot column.

Example 3.16. (a) Let $u_1 = (1,1,2,4)'$, $u_2 = (2,-1,-5,2)'$, $u_3 = (1,-1,-4,0)'$ and $u_4 = (2,1,1,6)'$. Here $u_1 \neq 0$, and u_2 is not a linear combination of the preceding vector u_1, that is, not a multiple of u_1: the only multiple cu_1 with first entry 2 is $2u_1$, whose second entry is $2 \neq -1$. So u_1, u_2 are independent (Proposition 3.14(a) with $k = 2$). But u_3 is a linear combination of the preceding vectors:

$$-\tfrac{1}{3}u_1 + \tfrac{2}{3}u_2 = \tfrac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} -1+4 \\ -1-2 \\ -2-10 \\ -4+4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ -4 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} = u_3$$

By Proposition 3.14(a) ($j = 3$; with $k = 3$ and with $k = 4$), u_1, u_2, u_3 and $u_1, \dots, u_4$ are linearly dependent. Since the single vector $u_1 \neq 0$ is independent (Proposition 3.13(a)), and so are u_1, u_2, 3 is the least j for which $u_1, \dots, u_j$ are dependent.

(b) Let $v_1 = (1,0,-1)'$, $v_2 = (1,2,1)'$ and $v_3 = (0,-3,2)'$. The single vector $v_1 \neq 0$ is independent (Proposition 3.13(a)).

- $v_2 \notin \operatorname{span}\{v_1\}$: every multiple of v_1 has second entry 0, and v_2 has second entry 2. So v_1, v_2 are independent (Proposition 3.14(b)).
- $v_3 \notin \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2\}$: if $v_3 = xv_1 + yv_2$, the second entries give $2y = -3$, so $y = -\frac{3}{2}$; the first entries give $x + y = 0$, so $x = \frac{3}{2}$; but then the third entry of $xv_1 + yv_2$ is $-x + y = -3 \neq 2$. So v_1, v_2, v_3 are independent (Proposition 3.14(b) again).

Bases

Definition 3.17. Vectors $v_1, \dots, v_k$ of a vector space V form a **basis** of a subspace W if they lie in W, are linearly independent, and span W.

- The unit vectors $e_1, \dots, e_n$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$, the **standard basis**: $x = x_1e_1 + \cdots + x_ne_n$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, and this is 0 only for $x = 0$.
- Let $E_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ have (i,j) entry 1 and all other entries 0 (two indices; not the elementary matrices $E_1, E_2, \dots$ of Theorem 2.15(c)). The mn matrices E_{ij} form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$: $A = \sum_i \sum_j a_{ij}E_{ij}$, and $\sum_i \sum_j c_{ij}E_{ij} = (c_{ij})$ is 0 only if every $c_{ij} = 0$.
- The empty list is a basis of $\{0\}$.

Theorem 3.18. If $v_1, \dots, v_k$ form a basis of W, every $w \in W$ can be written as $w = c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k$ in exactly one way; the numbers $c_1, \dots, c_k$ are the **coordinates** of w in this basis.

Proof. Such an expression exists because the v_i span W. If $\sum_i x_iv_i = \sum_i y_iv_i$, then $\sum_i (x_i - y_i)v_i = 0$, and independence gives $x_i = y_i$ for every i. □

Example 3.19. If $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is invertible, its columns $p_1, \dots, p_n$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$, and the coordinates of $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ are $x = P^{-1}y$. Indeed $Px = \sum_j x_jp_j$; $Px = 0$ only for $x = 0$ (Theorem 2.16), so the columns are independent; and $y = P(P^{-1}y)$, so they span. For example, the matrix A of Example 2.20 is invertible, its inverse being computed there; so its columns $(1,-1,2,1)'$, $(-1,1,-1,-1)'$, $(1,-2,2,1)'$, $(-1,1,-1,0)'$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$. The coordinates of $y = (1,0,3,3)'$ are $A^{-1}y = (3,-1,-1,2)'$, the solution of $Ax = y$ found in Example 2.28: $y = 3(1,-1,2,1)' - (-1,1,-1,-1)' - (1,-2,2,1)' + 2(-1,1,-1,0)'$.

Example 3.20. Let $t = (1, 2, 3, 4)'$ and $W = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4, t\}$, a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^4$. Any two of the vectors $\mathbf{1}_4$, t, $\mathbf{1}_4 + t = (2, 3, 4, 5)'$ form a basis of W.

- Each pair is independent: none of the three vectors is 0 or a multiple of another, since their first two entries are $(1, 1)$, $(1, 2)$, $(2, 3)$, no two of them proportional (Proposition 3.13(c)).
- Each pair spans W: the pair $\mathbf{1}_4, t$ by definition, and for $w = a\mathbf{1}_4 + bt \in W$,

$$w = (a - b)\,\mathbf{1}_4 + b\,(\mathbf{1}_4 + t) = (b - a)\,t + a\,(\mathbf{1}_4 + t)$$

All three vectors together also span W, but they are dependent: $\mathbf{1}_4 + t - (\mathbf{1}_4 + t) = 0$ is a linear relation with coefficients $1, 1, -1$. So they do not form a basis. A subspace has many bases.

Example 3.21. The symmetric 2×2 matrices (for instance 2×2 covariance matrices) form a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$ (Example 3.5(d)). The matrices E_{11}, $E_{12} + E_{21}$, E_{22} form a basis of it: they are symmetric, every symmetric matrix is

$$\begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ b & d \end{pmatrix} = a \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + b \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + d \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and this combination is 0 only if $a = b = d = 0$.

Example 3.22. In $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^4 : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0\}$, the vectors $w_1 = (1, -1, 0, 0)'$, $w_2 = (0, 1, -1, 0)'$ and $w_3 = (0, 0, 1, -1)'$ form a basis. They lie in W_0. They span W_0: for $x \in W_0$, $x_4 = -x_1 - x_2 - x_3$, so

$$x_1 w_1 + (x_1 + x_2) w_2 + (x_1 + x_2 + x_3) w_3 = \big(x_1,\ x_2,\ x_3,\ -x_1 - x_2 - x_3\big)' = x$$

They are independent: $c_1 w_1 + c_2 w_2 + c_3 w_3 = (c_1,\ c_2 - c_1,\ c_3 - c_2,\ -c_3)' = 0$ forces $c_1 = 0$, then $c_2 = 0$, then $c_3 = 0$.

Coordinates and change of basis

Definition 3.23. Let W be a subspace of a vector space V. An **ordered basis** of W is a list $\mathcal{B} = (v_1, \ldots, v_k)$ of vectors that form a basis of W, taken in this order. Each $w \in W$ is $w = c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_k v_k$ for exactly one choice of $c_1, \ldots, c_k$ (Theorem 3.18), and

$$[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = (c_1, \ldots, c_k)' \in \mathbb{R}^k$$

is the **coordinate vector** of w relative to $\mathcal{B}$. For the **standard ordered basis** $\mathcal{E} = (e_1, \ldots, e_n)$ of $\mathbb{R}^n$, $[x]_{\mathcal{E}} = x$, since $x = x_1 e_1 + \cdots + x_n e_n$.

If $W \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\mathcal{B}$ consists of the columns of $X = [v_1\ \cdots\ v_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$, then $Xc = c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_k v_k$ (Theorem 1.4(b)); so $[w]_{\mathcal{B}}$ is the unique solution c of the system $Xc = w$, found by row-reducing $[X \mid w]$.

Proposition 3.24. Let $\mathcal{B} = (v_1, \ldots, v_k)$ be an ordered basis of a subspace W.

(a) $[u + w]_{\mathcal{B}} = [u]_{\mathcal{B}} + [w]_{\mathcal{B}}$ and $[cw]_{\mathcal{B}} = c[w]_{\mathcal{B}}$ for $u, w \in W$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

(b) Every $c \in \mathbb{R}^k$ is the coordinate vector of exactly one vector of W, namely $c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_k v_k$.

Proof. (a) If $u = \sum_i x_i v_i$ and $w = \sum_i y_i v_i$, then $u + w = \sum_i (x_i + y_i) v_i$ and $cw = \sum_i (c y_i) v_i$. By the uniqueness in Theorem 3.18, these are the expressions that give $[u + w]_{\mathcal{B}}$ and $[cw]_{\mathcal{B}}$.

(b) $w = \sum_i c_i v_i$ lies in W, and $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = c$ by definition. If also $[w_1]_{\mathcal{B}} = c$, then $w_1 = \sum_i c_i v_i = w$. □

Example 3.25. In Example 3.8, the row operations shown take $[v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$ to the first three columns of the last matrix (row operations act on each column separately, Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)). These columns are $e_1, e_2, e_3 \in \mathbb{R}^5$; they form the RREF of $[v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$, in which every column is a pivot column. So v_1, v_2, v_3 are independent (Proposition 3.12), and $\mathcal{B} = (v_1, v_2, v_3)$ is an ordered basis of W. Every $y \in W$ is $y = y_1v_1 + y_3v_2 + y_5v_3$, so

$$[y]_{\mathcal{B}} = (y_1, y_3, y_5)'$$

the first, third and fifth entries of y. For instance $[(-3, -6, 1, -5, 2)']_{\mathcal{B}} = (-3, 1, 2)'$, and by Proposition 3.24(b), $(1, 1, 1)'$ is the coordinate vector of $v_1 + v_2 + v_3 = (1, 2, 1, 7, 1)'$.

Example 3.26. For $1 \leqslant j \leqslant i \leqslant n$ let $U_{ii} = E_{ii}$ and $U_{ij} = E_{ij} + E_{ji}$ $(j < i)$, with the matrices $E_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ of Definition 3.17. Each U_{ij} is symmetric. For $k \geqslant l$, U_{kl} is the only one of these matrices with a nonzero (k, l) entry, and this entry is 1; for $k < l$, the only one is U_{lk}. Hence the (k, l) entry of $\sum_{j\leqslant i} c_{ij}U_{ij}$ is c_{kl} for $k \geqslant l$, and c_{lk} for $k < l$. So every symmetric $A = (a_{ij})$ is

$$A = \sum_{j=1}^{n}\sum_{i=j}^{n} a_{ij}U_{ij}$$

and $\sum_{j\leqslant i} c_{ij}U_{ij} = 0$ only if every $c_{ij} = 0$. Thus the matrices U_{ij} $(j \leqslant i)$ form a basis of the subspace of symmetric $n \times n$ matrices (Example 3.5(d)); for column j there are $n - j + 1$ of them, $n(n + 1)/2$ in all. In the ordered basis $\mathcal{B} = (U_{11}, U_{21}, \ldots, U_{n1}, U_{22}, \ldots, U_{n2}, \ldots, U_{nn})$, the coordinate vector of A lists the entries of A on and below the diagonal, column by column. For instance, a covariance matrix of four variables is determined by ten numbers, its variances and covariances:

$$\left[\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & -2 & 1 & 6 \end{pmatrix}\right]_{\mathcal{B}} = (4, 2, -1, 1, 5, 0, -2, 3, 1, 6)'$$

For $n = 2$ this is Example 3.21.

Theorem 3.27. Let $\mathcal{B} = (v_1, \ldots, v_k)$ and $\tilde{\mathcal{B}} = (\tilde{v}_1, \ldots, \tilde{v}_k)$ be ordered bases of a subspace W, each with k vectors, and let $P = (p_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{k\times k}$ have jth column $[\tilde{v}_j]_{\mathcal{B}}$, that is, $\tilde{v}_j = p_{1j}v_1 + \cdots + p_{kj}v_k$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant k)$.

(a) $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = P[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$ for every $w \in W$, and P is the only $k \times k$ matrix with this property.

(b) P is invertible, and $[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = P^{-1}[w]_{\mathcal{B}}$ for every $w \in W$.

P is the **change-of-basis matrix** from $\tilde{\mathcal{B}}$ to $\mathcal{B}$.

Proof. (a)

- Let $w \in W$ and $\tilde{x} = [w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$. Then

$$w = \sum_{j=1}^{k} \tilde{x}_j\tilde{v}_j = \sum_{j=1}^{k} \tilde{x}_j \sum_{i=1}^{k} p_{ij}v_i = \sum_{i=1}^{k}\Big(\sum_{j=1}^{k} p_{ij}\tilde{x}_j\Big)v_i$$

- By the uniqueness of coordinates (Theorem 3.18), the ith coordinate of w relative to $\mathcal{B}$ is $\sum_j p_{ij}\tilde{x}_j = (P\tilde{x})_i$. So $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = P\tilde{x}$.
- If also $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = Q[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$ for every w, take $w = \tilde{v}_j$, for which $[\tilde{v}_j]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = e_j$: then $\mathrm{col}_j(Q) = Qe_j = [\tilde{v}_j]_{\mathcal{B}} = \mathrm{col}_j(P)$ (Theorem 1.4(b)) for every j, so $Q = P$.

(b)

- Let $P\tilde{x} = 0$, and let $w \in W$ be the vector with $[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = \tilde{x}$ (Proposition 3.24(b)). By (a), $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = 0$, so $w = 0v_1 + \cdots + 0v_k = 0$, and $\tilde{x} = [0]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = 0$.

- So $P\tilde{x} = 0$ only for $\tilde{x} = 0$, and P is invertible (Theorem 2.16).
- Then $[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = P^{-1}P[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = P^{-1}[w]_{\mathcal{B}}$. □

If $W \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ and the two ordered bases are the columns of X and of $\tilde{X}$ in $\mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$, then $\operatorname{col}_j(\tilde{X}) = \tilde{v}_j = X\operatorname{col}_j(P)$, that is, $\tilde{X} = XP$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). Hence $\tilde{X}\tilde{c} = (XP)\tilde{c} = X(P\tilde{c})$ for every $\tilde{c} \in \mathbb{R}^k$ (Theorem 1.3): the coefficients $\tilde{c}$ on the columns of $\tilde{X}$ and the coefficients $c = P\tilde{c}$ on the columns of X give the same vector, which is (a) in matrix form.

Theorem 3.28. Let $\mathcal{B} = (v_1, \dots, v_k)$ be an ordered basis of a subspace W, and let $P = (p_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{k\times k}$ be invertible. Put $\tilde{v}_j = p_{1j}v_1 + \cdots + p_{kj}v_k$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant k)$. Then $\tilde{\mathcal{B}} = (\tilde{v}_1, \dots, \tilde{v}_k)$ is an ordered basis of W, and it is the only ordered basis of W with $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = P[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$ for every $w \in W$. In particular, if the columns of $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ form a basis of a subspace W of $\mathbb{R}^n$, so do the columns of XP.

Proof. • At most one: if $\mathcal{Y} = (y_1, \dots, y_k)$ is an ordered basis of W with $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = P[w]_{\mathcal{Y}}$ for every w, then $w = y_j$, with $[y_j]_{\mathcal{Y}} = e_j$, gives $[y_j]_{\mathcal{B}} = Pe_j = \operatorname{col}_j(P)$, that is, $y_j = \sum_i p_{ij}v_i = \tilde{v}_j$.

- Spanning: the $\tilde{v}_j$ lie in W. Let $Q = (q_{jl}) = P^{-1}$. For each l,

$$\sum_{j=1}^{k} q_{jl}\tilde{v}_j = \sum_{j=1}^{k} q_{jl}\sum_{i=1}^{k} p_{ij}v_i = \sum_{i=1}^{k}\Big(\sum_{j=1}^{k} p_{ij}q_{jl}\Big)v_i = \sum_{i=1}^{k}(PQ)_{il}v_i = v_l$$

  So $\operatorname{span}\{\tilde{v}_1, \dots, \tilde{v}_k\}$ contains $v_1, \dots, v_k$, hence contains $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$ (Theorem 3.7).

- Independent: if $\sum_j c_j\tilde{v}_j = 0$, the same computation gives $\sum_i (Pc)_i v_i = 0$; so $Pc = 0$, as the v_i are independent, and $c = P^{-1}Pc = 0$.
- So $\tilde{\mathcal{B}}$ is an ordered basis with $[\tilde{v}_j]_{\mathcal{B}} = \operatorname{col}_j(P)$, and Theorem 3.27(a) gives $[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = P[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$.
- For the last sentence take $v_j = \operatorname{col}_j(X)$; then $\tilde{v}_j = X\operatorname{col}_j(P) = \operatorname{col}_j(XP)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). □

Example 3.29. In $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^4 : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0\}$ take the ordered basis $\mathcal{B} = (w_1, w_2, w_3)$ of Example 3.22. There $x = x_1w_1 + (x_1 + x_2)w_2 + (x_1 + x_2 + x_3)w_3$ for $x \in W_0$, so $[x]_{\mathcal{B}} = (x_1,\ x_1+x_2,\ x_1+x_2+x_3)'$, the partial sums of the entries of x. Let $h_1 = (1, 0, 0, -1)'$, $h_2 = (1, 1, 0, -2)'$ and $h_3 = (1, 1, 1, -3)'$, three vectors of W_0 that compare the first entry, the first two entries and the first three entries with the last.

- $[h_1]_{\mathcal{B}} = (1, 1, 1)'$, $[h_2]_{\mathcal{B}} = (1, 2, 2)'$ and $[h_3]_{\mathcal{B}} = (1, 2, 3)'$, the partial sums; that is, $h_1 = w_1 + w_2 + w_3$, $h_2 = w_1 + 2w_2 + 2w_3$ and $h_3 = w_1 + 2w_2 + 3w_3$. With these columns,

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  since $PP^{-1} = I_3$ (Theorem 2.16).

- As P is invertible, $\tilde{\mathcal{B}} = (h_1, h_2, h_3)$ is an ordered basis of W_0 (Theorem 3.28), and P is the change-of-basis matrix from $\tilde{\mathcal{B}}$ to $\mathcal{B}$; in matrix form $[h_1\ h_2\ h_3] = [w_1\ w_2\ w_3]P$.
- By Theorem 3.27(b), for $x \in W_0$,

$$[x]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = P^{-1}[x]_{\mathcal{B}} = \begin{pmatrix} 2x_1 - (x_1 + x_2) \\ -x_1 + 2(x_1 + x_2) - (x_1 + x_2 + x_3) \\ -(x_1 + x_2) + (x_1 + x_2 + x_3) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} x_1 - x_2 \\ x_2 - x_3 \\ x_3 \end{pmatrix}$$

  For $x = (3, 1, 2, -6)'$: $[x]_{\mathcal{B}} = (3, 4, 6)'$ and $[x]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = (2, -1, 2)'$; indeed $3w_1 + 4w_2 + 6w_3 = 2h_1 - h_2 + 2h_3 = (3, 1, 2, -6)'$.

Sums and direct sums of subspaces

Definition 3.30. Let U and W be subspaces of a vector space V. Their **intersection** $U \cap W$ is the set of vectors that lie in both U and W, and their **sum** is

$$U + W = \{u + w : \ u \in U, \ w \in W\}$$

The sum is **direct**, written $U \oplus W$, if $U \cap W = \{0\}$, that is, if 0 is the only vector that U and W have in common. Thus $V = U \oplus W$ means that $V = U + W$ and $U \cap W = \{0\}$.

Theorem 3.31. Let U and W be subspaces of a vector space V.

(a) $U \cap W$ and $U + W$ are subspaces of V.

(b) $U + W$ contains U and W, and it is contained in every subspace of V that contains $U \cup W$: it is the smallest subspace of V containing $U \cup W$. Moreover $U + W$ is the set of all linear combinations $c_1x_1 + \cdots + c_kx_k$ of finitely many vectors $x_1, \ldots, x_k \in U \cup W$ (this set is written $\operatorname{span}(U \cup W)$).

(c) If $U = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, \ldots, u_p\}$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, \ldots, w_q\}$, then $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q\}$.

Proof. (a)

- Both sets contain 0: $0 \in U$, $0 \in W$, and $0 = 0 + 0$.
- Let $x, y \in U \cap W$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$. Then $cx + y \in U$ and $cx + y \in W$, since U and W are subspaces; so $cx + y \in U \cap W$.
- Let $x = u_1 + w_1$ and $y = u_2 + w_2$ with $u_1, u_2 \in U$, $w_1, w_2 \in W$, and let $c \in \mathbb{R}$. Then $cx + y = (cu_1 + u_2) + (cw_1 + w_2)$ with $cu_1 + u_2 \in U$ and $cw_1 + w_2 \in W$; so $cx + y \in U + W$.
- By Theorem 3.4(c), $U \cap W$ and $U + W$ are subspaces.

(b)

- Every $u \in U$ is $u = u + 0$, and every $w \in W$ is $w = 0 + w$; so U and W lie in $U + W$.
- If a subspace Z of V contains $U \cup W$, then it contains u and w for all $u \in U$, $w \in W$, hence also $u + w$; so $U + W \subseteq Z$.
- In a combination $c_1x_1 + \cdots + c_kx_k$ with all $x_i \in U \cup W$, the terms with $x_i \in U$ add up to a vector $u \in U$, and the other terms, whose x_i lie in W, add up to a vector $w \in W$ (an empty sum is 0). So the combination is $u + w \in U + W$. Conversely, $u + w = 1u + 1w$ is such a combination.

(c)

- If $u = \sum_i a_iu_i \in U$ and $w = \sum_j b_jw_j \in W$, then $u + w = \sum_i a_iu_i + \sum_j b_jw_j$ is a combination of $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$.
- Conversely, $\sum_i a_iu_i + \sum_j b_jw_j = u + w$ with $u = \sum_i a_iu_i \in U$ and $w = \sum_j b_jw_j \in W$. □

For matrices: let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$ have columns $a_1, \ldots, a_p$, let $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times q}$ have columns $b_1, \ldots, b_q$, and let $[A\ B] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times(p+q)}$ be the matrix with columns $a_1, \ldots, a_p, b_1, \ldots, b_q$. By (c), the columns of $[A\ B]$ span the sum of the subspaces spanned by the columns of A and by the columns of B,

$$\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \ldots, a_p, b_1, \ldots, b_q\} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \ldots, a_p\} + \operatorname{span}\{b_1, \ldots, b_q\}$$

and, by Theorem 1.4(b), the vectors of this subspace are the vectors $Ax + By$ ($x \in \mathbb{R}^p$, $y \in \mathbb{R}^q$).

Theorem 3.32. Let U and W be subspaces of a vector space V. Then $U \cap W = \{0\}$ if and only if every $x \in U + W$ can be written in exactly one way as $x = u + w$ with $u \in U$ and $w \in W$, that is: if $u + w = u_1 + w_1$ with $u, u_1 \in U$ and $w, w_1 \in W$, then $u = u_1$ and $w = w_1$.

Proof. • Let $U \cap W = \{0\}$, and let $u + w = u_1 + w_1$ as above. Then $u - u_1 = w_1 - w$. The left side lies in U and the right side in W, so this vector lies in $U \cap W = \{0\}$. Hence $u = u_1$ and $w = w_1$.

• Let $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$, and take $x \neq 0$ in $U \cap W$. Then $x = x + 0$ (with $x \in U$, $0 \in W$) and $x = 0 + x$ (with $0 \in U$, $x \in W$) are two different ways of writing $x \in U + W$. □

So, if $V = U \oplus W$, each $v \in V$ is $v = u + w$ for exactly one $u \in U$ and one $w \in W$ (the parts of v in U and in W).

Theorem 3.33. Let U and W be subspaces of a vector space V, let $u_1, \ldots, u_p$ form a basis of U, and let $w_1, \ldots, w_q$ form a basis of W. If $U \cap W = \{0\}$, then $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$ form a basis of $U \oplus W$. If $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$, then $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$ are linearly dependent. Hence the sum $U + W$ is direct if and only if $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$ are linearly independent.

Proof. • The vectors $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$ lie in $U + W$ and span it, by Theorem 3.31(b),(c).

• Let $U \cap W = \{0\}$ and $\sum_i a_i u_i + \sum_j b_j w_j = 0$. Then $x = \sum_i a_i u_i = \sum_j (-b_j) w_j$ lies in U and in W, so $x = 0$. Hence $\sum_i a_i u_i = 0$ and $\sum_j b_j w_j = 0$, and since each list is independent, every a_i and every b_j is 0. So the vectors form a basis of $U + W = U \oplus W$.

• Let $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$, take $x \neq 0$ in $U \cap W$, and write $x = \sum_i a_i u_i = \sum_j b_j w_j$. Then $\sum_i a_i u_i + \sum_j (-b_j) w_j = 0$, and not every a_i is 0, since $x \neq 0$: a linear relation among $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$. □

Example 3.34. In $\mathbb{R}^4$ let $U = \{x : x_4 = 0\} = \text{span}\{e_1, e_2, e_3\}$ and $W_0 = \{x : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0\} = \text{span}\{w_1, w_2, w_3\}$, with $w_1 = (1, -1, 0, 0)'$, $w_2 = (0, 1, -1, 0)'$ and $w_3 = (0, 0, 1, -1)'$ (Example 3.22).

(a) $U + W_0 = \mathbb{R}^4$, but the sum is not direct.

- Every $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$ is $x = (x_1,\ x_2,\ x_3 + x_4,\ 0)' + (0,\ 0,\ -x_4,\ x_4)'$, with the first vector in U and the second, $-x_4 w_3$, in W_0. So $U + W_0 = \mathbb{R}^4$.
- $x \in U \cap W_0$ means $x_4 = 0$ and $x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 0$, that is, $x = (a,\ b,\ -a - b,\ 0)' = a\, w_1 + (a + b)\, w_2$ for some $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$. So $U \cap W_0 = \text{span}\{w_1, w_2\} \neq \{0\}$, and the sum is not direct.
- Accordingly (Theorem 3.32) the parts are not unique: for example

$$(1, 2, 3, 6)' = (1, 2, 9, 0)' + (0, 0, -6, 6)' = (7, 2, 3, 0)' + (-6, 0, 0, 6)'$$

and the two parts in U differ by $(-6, 0, 6, 0)' = -6(w_1 + w_2) \in U \cap W_0$. Likewise $e_1, e_2, e_3, w_1, w_2, w_3$ are dependent, since $w_1 = e_1 - e_2$ (Theorem 3.33).

(b) $\mathbb{R}^4 = W_0 \oplus \text{span}\{e_4\}$.

- $ce_4 = (0, 0, 0, c)'$ lies in W_0 only for $c = 0$; so $W_0 \cap \text{span}\{e_4\} = \{0\}$.
- For $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $x - ce_4 = (x_1,\ x_2,\ x_3,\ x_4 - c)'$ lies in W_0 exactly when $c = x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4$. So every x is $x = (x_1,\ x_2,\ x_3,\ -x_1 - x_2 - x_3)' + (x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4)\, e_4$ with the first vector in W_0, and in no other way. For example, $(1, 2, 3, 6)' = (1, 2, 3, -6)' + 12e_4$.
- The nonzero vector e_4 is a basis of $\text{span}\{e_4\}$ (Proposition 3.13(a)); so, by Theorem 3.33, w_1, w_2, w_3, e_4 form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$.

Example 3.35. The constant vectors and the centered vectors $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : \mathbf{1}'x = 0\}$ (Example 3.5(f)) give a direct sum:

$$\mathbb{R}^n = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\} \oplus W_0, \qquad x = \bar{x}\mathbf{1} + Cx$$

- Sum: every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is $x = \bar{x}\mathbf{1} + Cx$ with $\bar{x}\mathbf{1} \in \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$ and $Cx \in W_0$ (Example 3.9).
- Intersection: if $c\mathbf{1} \in W_0$, then $0 = \mathbf{1}'(c\mathbf{1}) = cn$ (Proposition 1.15), so $c = 0$.

- Hence $\bar{x}\mathbf{1}$ is the only constant vector whose difference from x is centered (Theorem 3.32). In matrix form, $x = \bar{J}_n x + C_n x$ with $\bar{J}_n x = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'x) = \bar{x}\mathbf{1}$, and $\bar{J}_n + C_n = I_n$ (Definition 1.14). For $x = (1,3,5,7,9)'$ the two parts are $\bar{x}\mathbf{1} = 5\mathbf{1}$ and $Cx = (-4,-2,0,2,4)'$.
- For $n = 4$, the nonzero vector $\mathbf{1}_4$ is a basis of $\operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}$ (Proposition 3.13(a)); so $\mathbf{1}_4$ together with the basis w_1, w_2, w_3 of W_0 (Example 3.22) is a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$ (Theorem 3.33).
- The second subspace matters: also $\mathbb{R}^4 = W_0 \oplus \operatorname{span}\{e_4\}$ (Example 3.34(b)), and the parts of $x = (1,2,3,6)'$ in W_0 differ: here $\bar{x} = 3$ and $Cx = (-2,-1,0,3)'$, there $(1,2,3,-6)'$.

Example 3.36. In $\mathbb{R}^4$ let $U = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2\}$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, w_2\}$, where

$$u_1 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}, \quad u_2 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\0\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad w_1 = \begin{pmatrix}0\\1\\0\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad w_2 = \begin{pmatrix}2\\0\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}$$

Find bases of $U + W$ and of $U \cap W$. Is the sum direct?

Solution. By Theorem 3.31(c), $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, w_1, w_2\}$. Row-reduce $M = [u_1\ u_2\ w_1\ w_2]$:

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&2\\0&1&1&0\\1&0&0&1\\2&1&1&2\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&2\\0&1&1&0\\0&-1&0&-1\\0&-1&1&-2\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&2\\0&1&1&0\\0&0&1&-1\\0&0&2&-2\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&2\\0&1&1&0\\0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&2\\0&1&0&1\\0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&1\\0&1&0&1\\0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} = R$$

- Relations: $Mc = 0$ has the same solutions as $Rc = 0$ (Theorem 2.3(b)), that is, $c_1 + c_4 = 0$, $c_2 + c_4 = 0$, $c_3 - c_4 = 0$, with $c_4 = t$ free. So $c = t(-1,-1,1,1)'$ (Proposition 2.7(b)), and $t = 1$ gives $-u_1 - u_2 + w_1 + w_2 = 0$, that is, $w_2 = u_1 + u_2 - w_1$.
- $U + W$: by Theorem 3.10(c), $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, w_1\}$. The same row operations take $[u_1\ u_2\ w_1]$ to the first three columns of R (row operations act on each column separately, Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), which are $e_1, e_2, e_3 \in \mathbb{R}^4$; every column is a pivot column, so u_1, u_2, w_1 are independent (Proposition 3.12) and form a basis of $U + W$.
- $U \cap W$: $x \in U \cap W$ if and only if $x = a_1u_1 + a_2u_2 = b_1w_1 + b_2w_2$ for some scalars, that is, $M(a_1, a_2, -b_1, -b_2)' = 0$. By the first item, $(a_1, a_2, -b_1, -b_2)' = t(-1,-1,1,1)'$, so $x = -t(u_1 + u_2)$. Hence $U \cap W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1 + u_2\}$, and the nonzero vector $u_1 + u_2 = (2,1,1,3)' = w_1 + w_2$ is a basis of $U \cap W$ (Proposition 3.13(a)).
- The sum is not direct, since $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$ (Definition 3.30). Here u_1, u_2 form a basis of U (a sublist of the independent u_1, u_2, w_1, Proposition 3.13(b)), and w_1, w_2 a basis of W (neither is a multiple of the other, Proposition 3.13(c)); accordingly u_1, u_2, w_1, w_2 are dependent (Theorem 3.33).

Exercises

Exercise 3.1. Decide whether each set is a subspace; for each subspace, find vectors (or matrices) that span it.

(a) $W_1 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^4 : \ x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 0, \ x_2 - x_4 = 0, \ x_1 + 2x_2 + x_3 - x_4 = 0\}$.

(b) $W_2 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \ x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 1\}$.

(c) $W_3 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^3 : \ x_1 = x_2^2\}$.

(d) $W_4 = \{A \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3} : \ A\mathbf{1}_3 = 0\}$, the 2×3 matrices whose rows add up to 0.

Solution. (a) W_1 is the set of solutions of $Ax = 0$ for the coefficient matrix A below, so it is a subspace (Example 3.5(e)). Row-reduce A:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The RREF gives $x_1 + x_3 + x_4 = 0$ and $x_2 - x_4 = 0$, with $x_3 = s$ and $x_4 = t$ free (Proposition 2.7(b)):

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} -s - t \\ t \\ s \\ t \end{pmatrix} = s \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (s, t \in \mathbb{R})$$

So $W_1 = \operatorname{span}\{(-1, 0, 1, 0)', (-1, 1, 0, 1)'\}$. Check: $-1 + 0 + 1 = 0$, $0 - 0 = 0$, $-1 + 0 + 1 - 0 = 0$, and $-1 + 1 + 0 = 0$, $1 - 1 = 0$, $-1 + 2 + 0 - 1 = 0$.

(b) Not a subspace: $0 \notin W_2$, since $0 + 0 + 0 \neq 1$ (Theorem 3.4(b)).

(c) Not a subspace: $(1, 1, 0)' \in W_3$, since $1 = 1^2$, but $2(1, 1, 0)' = (2, 2, 0)' \notin W_3$, since $2 \neq 2^2$; so W_3 is not closed under scalar multiplication.

(d) A subspace: the zero matrix lies in W_4, and if $A\mathbf{1} = 0$ and $B\mathbf{1} = 0$, then $(cA+B)\mathbf{1} = cA\mathbf{1}+B\mathbf{1} = 0$ (Theorem 1.3); apply Theorem 3.4(c). A matrix lies in W_4 if and only if $a_{13} = -a_{11} - a_{12}$ and $a_{23} = -a_{21} - a_{22}$, that is,

$$\begin{pmatrix} a & b & -a-b \\ p & q & -p-q \end{pmatrix} = a \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + b \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + p \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} + q \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (a, b, p, q \in \mathbb{R})$$

So W_4 is spanned by the four matrices on the right, $E_{11} - E_{13}$, $E_{12} - E_{13}$, $E_{21} - E_{23}$ and $E_{22} - E_{23}$ (Definition 3.17).

Exercise 3.2. Which of the following subsets of $\mathbb{R}^4$ are subspaces? (a) $\{x : x_1 + x_2 = x_3 + x_4\}$; (b) $\{x : x_1x_4 = x_2x_3\}$; (c) $\{x : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 1\}$; (d) $\{x : x_1 \leqslant x_2\}$; (e) $\{x : x_1 = x_2 = x_3 = x_4\}$.

Solution. (a) Yes: it is the solution set of $Ax = 0$ for the 1×4 matrix $A = (1, 1, -1, -1)$, a subspace by Example 3.5(e).

(b) No: e_1 and e_4 lie in the set ($1 \cdot 0 = 0 \cdot 0$ and $0 \cdot 1 = 0 \cdot 0$), but $e_1 + e_4 = (1, 0, 0, 1)'$ does not, since $1 \cdot 1 \neq 0 \cdot 0$.

(c) No: 0 is not in the set, since $0 + 0 + 0 + 0 \neq 1$.

(d) No: $e_2 = (0, 1, 0, 0)'$ lies in the set, but $(-1)e_2 = (0, -1, 0, 0)'$ does not, since $0 > -1$.

(e) Yes: the set is $\{c\mathbf{1}_4 : c \in \mathbb{R}\} = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}$, a subspace by Theorem 3.7.

Exercise 3.3. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$, where $v_1 = (1,2,1,0)'$, $v_2 = (0,1,1,1)'$ and $v_3 = (1,3,3,2)'$.

(a) Which $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3, y_4)'$ lie in W?

(b) Show that $(3,6,4,1)' \in W$, and write it as a combination of v_1, v_2, v_3.

(c) Does $(1,1,1,1)'$ lie in W?

Solution. (a) With $V = [v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$, $y \in W$ if and only if $Vc = y$ is consistent (the paragraph after Theorem 3.7). Row-reduce $[V \mid y]$, keeping the y_i as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 & y_2 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & y_3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & y_2 - 2y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & y_3 - y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & y_2 - 2y_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2y_1 - y_2 + y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & y_2 - 2y_1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_3 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is in echelon form, and its last row is $(0\ 0\ 0 \mid y_1 - y_3 + y_4)$. If $y_1 - y_3 + y_4 \neq 0$, this row leaves no solution; if $y_1 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$, the last matrix is in echelon form without such a row. So, by Theorem 2.26, $Vc = y$ is consistent if and only if $y_1 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$:

$$y \in W \iff y_1 - y_3 + y_4 = 0$$

Then every column of the left part is a pivot column, so the coefficients are unique (Theorem 2.27(b)); back substitution gives $c_3 = y_1 - y_2 + y_3$, $c_2 = (y_2 - 2y_1) - c_3 = -3y_1 + 2y_2 - y_3$ and $c_1 = y_1 - c_3 = y_2 - y_3$.
(b) For $y = (3,6,4,1)'$, $3 - 4 + 1 = 0$, so $y \in W$, with $c_3 = 3 - 6 + 4 = 1$, $c_2 = -9 + 12 - 4 = -1$ and $c_1 = 6 - 4 = 2$: $y = 2v_1 - v_2 + v_3$. Check: $(2,4,2,0)' - (0,1,1,1)' + (1,3,3,2)' = (3,6,4,1)'$.
(c) No: $y_1 - y_3 + y_4 = 1 - 1 + 1 = 1 \neq 0$.

Exercise 3.4. Let $v_1 = (1,2,0,1)'$, $v_2 = (0,1,1,-1)'$, $v_3 = (1,4,2,-1)'$ and $b = (2,3,-1,3)'$.

(a) Show that $b \in \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\}$, and find all $c \in \mathbb{R}^3$ with $b = c_1v_1 + c_2v_2 + c_3v_3$.

(b) Give the representation with $c_3 = 0$ and the one with $c_1 = 0$.

(c) Are v_1, v_2, v_3 linearly independent? If not, give a linear relation among them.

Solution. With $V = [v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$, $b = c_1v_1 + c_2v_2 + c_3v_3$ means $Vc = b$ (Theorem 1.4(b)). Row-reduce $[V \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 4 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

(a) The last matrix is in RREF and has no row $(0\ 0\ 0 \mid d)$ with $d \neq 0$, so $Vc = b$ is consistent (Proposition 2.7(a)) and $b \in \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\}$. The pivot columns are $1, 2$, and $c_3 = t$ is free; then $c_1 = 2 - t$ and $c_2 = -1 - 2t$ (Proposition 2.7(b)):

$$c = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

(b) $t=0$: $b=2v_1-v_2$. $t=2$: $c=(0,-5,2)'$, so $b=-5v_2+2v_3$. Check: $(2,4,0,2)'-(0,1,1,-1)'=(2,3,-1,3)'$ and $-5(0,1,1,-1)'+2(1,4,2,-1)'=(2,3,-1,3)'$.

(c) No: the left part of the last matrix is the RREF of V, and its column 3 is not a pivot column (Proposition 3.12). The difference of the solutions for $t=1$ and $t=0$, $c=(-1,-2,1)'$, solves $Vc=0$ (Theorem 2.27(a)): $-v_1-2v_2+v_3=0$, that is, $v_3=v_1+2v_2$.

Exercise 3.5. Let $a_1=(1,0,1,1)'$, $a_2=(0,1,1,2)'$, $b_1=(1,1,2,3)'$ and $b_2=(1,2,3,5)'$.

(a) Row-reduce $[a_1\ a_2\ b_1\ b_2]$, write b_1 and b_2 as combinations of a_1,a_2, and find $F\in\mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$ with $[b_1\ b_2]=[a_1\ a_2]F$.

(b) Write a_1 and a_2 as combinations of b_1,b_2, and find $G\in\mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$ with $[a_1\ a_2]=[b_1\ b_2]G$.

(c) Conclude that $\operatorname{span}\{a_1,a_2\}=\operatorname{span}\{b_1,b_2\}$, and check that $FG=I_2$.

Solution. (a)

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&1\\0&1&1&2\\1&1&2&3\\1&2&3&5\end{pmatrix}\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1}\begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&1\\0&1&1&2\\0&1&1&2\\0&2&2&4\end{pmatrix}\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2}\begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&1\\0&1&1&2\\0&0&0&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

The last matrix is in RREF; the solutions of $c_1a_1+c_2a_2+c_3b_1+c_4b_2=0$ are $c_1=-s-t$, $c_2=-s-2t$, $c_3=s$, $c_4=t$ (Theorem 2.3(b), Proposition 2.7(b)). For $s=1$, $t=0$: $-a_1-a_2+b_1=0$; for $s=0$, $t=1$: $-a_1-2a_2+b_2=0$. So

$$b_1=a_1+a_2,\qquad b_2=a_1+2a_2,\qquad F=\begin{pmatrix}1&1\\1&2\end{pmatrix}$$

(Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). Check: $(1,0,1,1)'+(0,1,1,2)'=(1,1,2,3)'$ and $(1,0,1,1)'+2(0,1,1,2)'=(1,2,3,5)'$.

(b) Subtracting, $b_2-b_1=a_2$, and then $a_1=b_1-a_2=2b_1-b_2$. So $G=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&-1\\-1&1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

(c) By (a), (b) and Theorem 3.10(b), the two spans are equal. Finally $FG=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2-1&-1+1\\2-2&-1+2\end{smallmatrix}\right)=I_2$.

Exercise 3.6. Consider $e_1=(1,0,0)'$, $e_2=(0,1,0)'$ and $v=(0,-2,0)'$ in $\mathbb{R}^3$. Show that e_1,e_2,v span $W=\{(x,y,0)':x,y\in\mathbb{R}\}$, that e_1 and e_2 alone span the same subspace W, and that e_2 and v span only $\{(0,y,0)':y\in\mathbb{R}\}$.

Solution. For scalars a_1,a_2,a_3 put $\lambda=a_2-2a_3$. Since $v=-2e_2$,

$$a_1e_1+a_2e_2+a_3v=a_1e_1+\lambda e_2=(a_1,\lambda,0)',\qquad a_2e_2+a_3v=\lambda e_2=(0,\lambda,0)'$$

So $\operatorname{span}\{e_1,e_2,v\}$ consists of the vectors $(a_1,\lambda,0)'$. Each lies in W, and every $(x,y,0)'\in W$ is obtained with $a_1=x$, $a_2=y$, $a_3=0$; so $\operatorname{span}\{e_1,e_2,v\}=W$. The same computation with $a_3=0$ gives $\operatorname{span}\{e_1,e_2\}=W$, and $\operatorname{span}\{e_2,v\}=\{\lambda e_2:\lambda\in\mathbb{R}\}=\{(0,y,0)':y\in\mathbb{R}\}$.

Exercise 3.7. Let $u_1 = (1,2,3,1)'$, $u_2 = (0,1,1,1)'$, $u_3 = (1,2,3,0)'$ and $u_4 = (0,2,2,1)'$.

(a) Are u_1, u_2, u_3 linearly independent?

(b) Are u_1, u_2, u_3, u_4 linearly independent? If not, find a linear relation among them, and write u_4 as a combination of u_1, u_2, u_3.

Solution. Row-reduce $V = [u_1\ u_2\ u_3\ u_4]$:

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&0\\2&1&2&2\\3&1&3&2\\1&1&0&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3-3R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&0\\0&1&0&2\\0&1&0&2\\0&1&-1&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&0\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&0&0\\0&0&-1&-1\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&0\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&-1&-1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow -R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&1&0\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&-1\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

After the second arrow the entry of row 3 in column 3 is 0, so Step 2 interchanges rows 3 and 4. The last matrix is the RREF of V, with pivot columns $1, 2, 3$.

(a) Yes. Row operations act on each column separately (Theorem 2.15(c) and Theorem 1.4(a)), so the same operations take $[u_1\ u_2\ u_3]$ to the first three columns of the last matrix, whose columns are the unit vectors e_1, e_2, e_3 of $\mathbb{R}^4$. This is the RREF of $[u_1\ u_2\ u_3]$, and every column is a pivot column; so u_1, u_2, u_3 are independent (Proposition 3.12).

(b) No. Column 4 is not a pivot column, so $Vc = 0$ has a free unknown and a solution $c \neq 0$ (Proposition 3.12). The RREF gives $c_1 - c_4 = 0$, $c_2 + 2c_4 = 0$, $c_3 + c_4 = 0$; with $c_4 = t$, $c = t\,(1,-2,-1,1)'$. For $t = 1$,

$$u_1 - 2u_2 - u_3 + u_4 = 0, \qquad \text{so} \qquad u_4 = -u_1 + 2u_2 + u_3$$

Check: $-(1,2,3,1)' + 2(0,1,1,1)' + (1,2,3,0)' = (0,2,2,1)' = u_4$.

Exercise 3.8. Let $u_1 = (1,0,1,2)'$, $u_2 = (2,1,3,k)'$ and $u_3 = (0,1,1,1)'$, where k is a number.

(a) For which k are u_1, u_2, u_3 linearly dependent?

(b) For this k, find a linear relation, and write u_2 as a combination of u_1 and u_3.

Solution. Row-reduce $U = [u_1\ u_2\ u_3]$, keeping k as a letter:

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&2&0\\0&1&1\\1&3&1\\2&k&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_1]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0\\0&1&1\\0&1&1\\0&k-4&1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-(k-4)R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0\\0&1&1\\0&0&0\\0&0&5-k\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) The vectors are independent exactly when $Uc = 0$ has only the solution $c = 0$ (Proposition 3.12).

- If $k \neq 5$, interchange rows 3 and 4, and then scale row 3 by $1/(5-k)$:

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0\\0&1&1\\0&0&5-k\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow \frac{1}{5-k}R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0\\0&1&1\\0&0&1\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

  The last matrix is an echelon form in which every column is a pivot column; so $c = 0$ is the only solution (Theorem 2.27(b)), and u_1, u_2, u_3 are independent.

- If $k = 5$, the matrix after the second arrow has two zero rows; one more arrow gives the RREF:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Column 3 is not a pivot column, so c_3 is free and $Uc = 0$ has solutions $c \neq 0$: the vectors are dependent.

So u_1, u_2, u_3 are dependent only for $k = 5$.

(b) For $k = 5$, the RREF in (a) gives $c_1 - 2c_3 = 0$ and $c_2 + c_3 = 0$, with $c_3 = t$ free: $c = t(2, -1, 1)'$. For $t = 1$, $2u_1 - u_2 + u_3 = 0$, that is, $u_2 = 2u_1 + u_3$. Check: $2(1, 0, 1, 2)' + (0, 1, 1, 1)' = (2, 1, 3, 5)'$, which is u_2 for $k = 5$.

Exercise 3.9. Show that the following vectors are linearly independent. (a) $(1, 2)'$ and $(1, 3)'$. (b) $(1, 1, 0)'$, $(1, 1, 1)'$ and $(0, 1, -1)'$. (c) $(0, 1, 1)'$, $(0, 2, 1)'$ and $(1, 5, 3)'$.

Solution. (a) If $a(1, 2)' + b(1, 3)' = 0$, then $a + b = 0$ and $2a + 3b = 0$. The second equation minus twice the first gives $b = 0$, and then $a = 0$.

(b) If $a(1, 1, 0)' + b(1, 1, 1)' + c(0, 1, -1)' = 0$, then $a + b = 0$, $a + b + c = 0$, $b - c = 0$. The second equation minus the first gives $c = 0$; then the third gives $b = 0$, and the first $a = 0$.

(c) If $a(0, 1, 1)' + b(0, 2, 1)' + c(1, 5, 3)' = 0$, then $c = 0$, $a + 2b + 5c = 0$, $a + b + 3c = 0$. Subtracting the third equation from the second gives $b + 2c = 0$, so $b = 0$ (as $c = 0$), and then $a = 0$.

Exercise 3.10. Show that the columns of the matrix $A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & -5 & -3 & 1 \\ 5 & -1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$ are linearly dependent. How about the rows?

Solution. The columns satisfy, for example, $3\,\mathrm{col}_1(A) - \mathrm{col}_2(A) - 8\,\mathrm{col}_4(A) = 0$:

$$3\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ -5 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} - 8\begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 - 3 - 0 \\ 3 + 5 - 8 \\ 15 + 1 - 16 \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

The coefficients $3, -1, 0, -8$ are not all 0, so the columns are dependent; equivalently, $Ax = 0$ for $x = (3, -1, 0, -8)' \neq 0$ (Theorem 1.4(b)). The rows satisfy $3\,\mathrm{row}_1(A) + 2\,\mathrm{row}_2(A) - \mathrm{row}_3(A) = 0$: $(3, 9, 6, 0) + (2, -10, -6, 2) - (5, -1, 0, 2) = (0, 0, 0, 0)$, that is, $y'A = 0$ for $y = (3, 2, -1)'$ (Theorem 1.4(c)). So the rows are dependent too.

Exercise 3.11. For what values of the scalar k are the three row vectors $(k, 1, 0)$, $(1, k, 1)$ and $(0, 1, k)$ linearly dependent, and for what values are they linearly independent?

Solution. Let x_1, x_2, x_3 be scalars with $x_1(k, 1, 0) + x_2(1, k, 1) + x_3(0, 1, k) = 0$, that is,

$$kx_1 + x_2 = 0, \qquad x_1 + kx_2 + x_3 = 0, \qquad x_2 + kx_3 = 0$$

or equivalently (the first and third equations give (1), the second gives (2))

$$x_2 = -kx_3 = -kx_1 \quad (1), \qquad kx_2 = -x_1 - x_3 \quad (2)$$

- $k = 0$: (1) and (2) become $x_2 = 0$ and $x_3 = -x_1$; for instance $(x_1, x_2, x_3) = (1, 0, -1)$ is a solution other than 0.

- $k \neq 0$: (1) gives $kx_3 = kx_1$, so $x_3 = x_1$; then (1) and (2) give $-k^2x_1 = kx_2 = -2x_1$, so $(2-k^2)x_1 = 0$. Hence $k^2 = 2$, or else $x_1 = 0$ and then $x_3 = x_2 = 0$.
- If $k = \sqrt{2}$, conditions (1), (2) are equivalent to $x_3 = x_1$ and $x_2 = -\sqrt{2}\,x_1$; if $k = -\sqrt{2}$, to $x_3 = x_1$ and $x_2 = \sqrt{2}\,x_1$. In both cases $x_1 = 1$ gives a solution other than 0.

Thus there are solutions other than $x_1 = x_2 = x_3 = 0$ if and only if $k = 0$ or $k = \pm\sqrt{2}$. The three vectors are linearly dependent if $k \in \{0, \sqrt{2}, -\sqrt{2}\}$ and linearly independent otherwise.

Exercise 3.12. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, \ldots, v_5\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$, where

$$v_1 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\0\\2\end{pmatrix}, \quad v_2 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad v_3 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\3\end{pmatrix}, \quad v_4 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\2\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad v_5 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\-1\\2\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Row-reduce $V = [v_1 \ \cdots \ v_5]$ to its RREF, and find all linear relations among $v_1, \ldots, v_5$.

(b) Find a basis of W that consists of some of the v_j.

(c) Write the remaining vectors as combinations of this basis.

Solution. (a)

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\1&0&2&0&1\\0&1&-1&2&-1\\2&1&3&1&2\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&-1&1&-1&0\\0&1&-1&2&-1\\0&-1&1&-1&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&1&0\\0&1&-1&2&-1\\0&-1&1&-1&0\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4+R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&1&0\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_3]{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&0&2\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&2&0&1\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

The last matrix is the RREF R of V. The relations $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_5v_5 = 0$ are the solutions of $Vc = 0$, that is, of $Rc = 0$ (Theorem 2.3(b)): $c_1 + 2c_3 + c_5 = 0$, $c_2 - c_3 + c_5 = 0$, $c_4 - c_5 = 0$, with $c_3 = s$ and $c_5 = t$ free (Proposition 2.7(b)):

$$c = s\begin{pmatrix}-2\\1\\1\\0\\0\end{pmatrix} + t\begin{pmatrix}-1\\-1\\0\\1\\1\end{pmatrix} \qquad (s, t \in \mathbb{R})$$

For $s = 1$, $t = 0$: $-2v_1 + v_2 + v_3 = 0$; for $s = 0$, $t = 1$: $-v_1 - v_2 + v_4 + v_5 = 0$.

(b) By these relations, v_3 and v_5 lie in $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_4\}$, so $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_4\}$ (Theorem 3.10(c)). The same row operations take $[v_1\ v_2\ v_4]$ to columns $1, 2, 4$ of R (Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), which are $e_1, e_2, e_3 \in \mathbb{R}^4$; every column is a pivot column, so v_1, v_2, v_4 are independent (Proposition 3.12) and form a basis of W.

(c) $v_3 = 2v_1 - v_2$ and $v_5 = v_1 + v_2 - v_4$. Check: $2(1,1,0,2)' - (1,0,1,1)' = (1,2,-1,3)'$ and $(1,1,0,2)' + (1,0,1,1)' - (1,0,2,1)' = (1,1,-1,2)'$.

Exercise 3.13. Let $W = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^5 :\ x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 + x_5 = 0,\ x_1 + 2x_2 + 3x_3 + 4x_4 + 5x_5 = 0\}$.

(a) Find a basis of W.

(b) Show that $w = (0, 0, 1, -2, 1)' \in W$, and find its coordinates in this basis.

Solution. (a) W is the solution set of $Ax = 0$ with $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 & 5 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Row-reduce:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

The free unknowns are x_3, x_4, x_5, and $x_1 = x_3 + 2x_4 + 3x_5$, $x_2 = -2x_3 - 3x_4 - 4x_5$ (Proposition 2.7(b)). So

$$W = \{x_3 b_1 + x_4 b_2 + x_5 b_3 :\ x_3, x_4, x_5 \in \mathbb{R}\}, \qquad b_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix},\ b_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -3 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix},\ b_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ -4 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The b_i lie in W and span it. Entries $3, 4, 5$ of $c_1 b_1 + c_2 b_2 + c_3 b_3$ are c_1, c_2, c_3, so the combination is 0 only for $c_1 = c_2 = c_3 = 0$. Hence b_1, b_2, b_3 form a basis of W.

(b) $0 + 0 + 1 - 2 + 1 = 0$ and $0 + 0 + 3 - 8 + 5 = 0$, so $w \in W$. By (a) its coordinates are its entries $3, 4, 5$, namely $(1, -2, 1)$, and they are unique (Theorem 3.18): $w = b_1 - 2b_2 + b_3 = (1 - 4 + 3,\ -2 + 6 - 4,\ 1,\ -2,\ 1)'$.

Exercise 3.14. Let $t = (1, 2, 3, 4)'$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4, t\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$.

(a) Show that $\mathbf{1}_4, t$ form a basis of W.

(b) Which $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3, y_4)'$ lie in W? Give the coordinates of such y.

(c) Find the coordinates of $(3, 5, 7, 9)'$. Does $(1, 2, 4, 8)'$ lie in W?

Solution. (a) The vectors lie in W and span it. If $a\mathbf{1}_4 + bt = (a + b,\ a + 2b,\ a + 3b,\ a + 4b)' = 0$, the second entry minus the first gives $b = 0$, and then $a = 0$. So they are independent.

(b) With $c = (a, b)'$, $y \in W$ if and only if $[\mathbf{1}_4\ t]c = y$ is consistent (the paragraph after Theorem 3.7). Row-reduce $[\mathbf{1}_4\ t \mid y]$, keeping the y_i as letters:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 1 & 2 & y_2 \\ 1 & 3 & y_3 \\ 1 & 4 & y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & y_2 - y_1 \\ 0 & 2 & y_3 - y_1 \\ 0 & 3 & y_4 - y_1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & y_2 - y_1 \\ 0 & 0 & y_1 - 2y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 2y_1 - 3y_2 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is in echelon form, and its last two rows are $(0\ 0 \mid y_1 - 2y_2 + y_3)$ and $(0\ 0 \mid 2y_1 - 3y_2 + y_4)$. So, by Theorem 2.26,

$$y \in W \iff y_1 - 2y_2 + y_3 = 0 \ \text{ and } \ 2y_1 - 3y_2 + y_4 = 0$$

Then back substitution gives the coordinates $b = y_2 - y_1$ and $a = y_1 - b = 2y_1 - y_2$: $y = (2y_1 - y_2)\mathbf{1}_4 + (y_2 - y_1)t$.

(c) For $(3, 5, 7, 9)'$: $3 - 10 + 7 = 0$ and $6 - 15 + 9 = 0$, so it lies in W, with $a = 1$, $b = 2$: $(3, 5, 7, 9)' = \mathbf{1}_4 + 2t$. For $(1, 2, 4, 8)'$: $1 - 4 + 4 = 1 \neq 0$, so it does not lie in W.

Exercise 3.15. Let $w_1 = (1,1,0,1)'$, $w_2 = (1,2,1,0)'$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, w_2\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$.

(a) Row-reduce $[w_1\ w_2 \mid y]$ for $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3, y_4)'$, keeping the y_i as letters. Show that $\mathcal{B} = (w_1, w_2)$ is an ordered basis of W, find the conditions for $y \in W$, and find $[y]_\mathcal{B}$ for $y \in W$.

(b) Which of $(3,4,1,2)'$ and $(1,1,1,1)'$ lie in W? Give the coordinate vector of the one that does.

(c) Find $w \in W$ with $[w]_\mathcal{B} = (3,-2)'$, and the coordinate vector of $y + w$ for $y = (3,4,1,2)'$.

Solution. (a)

$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 1 & 2 & y_2 \\ 0 & 1 & y_3 \\ 1 & 0 & y_4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & y_2 - y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & y_3 \\ 0 & -1 & y_4 - y_1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 1 & y_1 \\ 0 & 1 & y_2 - y_1 \\ 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & -2y_1 + y_2 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 0 & 2y_1 - y_2 \\ 0 & 1 & y_2 - y_1 \\ 0 & 0 & y_1 - y_2 + y_3 \\ 0 & 0 & -2y_1 + y_2 + y_4 \end{array}\right)$$

The left part of the last matrix is the RREF of $[w_1\ w_2]$, with both columns pivot columns; so w_1, w_2 are independent (Proposition 3.12), and $\mathcal{B}$ is an ordered basis of W. By Proposition 2.7(a), the system $[w_1\ w_2]c = y$ is consistent, that is, $y \in W$, if and only if

$$y_1 - y_2 + y_3 = 0, \qquad -2y_1 + y_2 + y_4 = 0$$

and then its unique solution is $[y]_\mathcal{B}$ (Definition 3.23 and the paragraph after it):

$$[y]_\mathcal{B} = \begin{pmatrix} 2y_1 - y_2 \\ y_2 - y_1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) For $(3,4,1,2)'$: $3 - 4 + 1 = 0$ and $-6 + 4 + 2 = 0$, so it lies in W, with coordinate vector $(6-4,\ 4-3)' = (2,1)'$. Check: $2(1,1,0,1)' + (1,2,1,0)' = (3,4,1,2)'$. For $(1,1,1,1)'$: $1 - 1 + 1 = 1 \neq 0$, so it does not lie in W.

(c) $w = 3w_1 - 2w_2 = (3,3,0,3)' - (2,4,2,0)' = (1,-1,-2,3)'$ (Proposition 3.24(b)). By Proposition 3.24(a), $[y + w]_\mathcal{B} = (2,1)' + (3,-2)' = (5,-1)'$. Check: $y + w = (4,3,-1,5)' = 5(1,1,0,1)' - (1,2,1,0)'$.

Exercise 3.16. Let $u_1 = (1,0,1,1)'$, $u_2 = (1,1,1,1)'$, $u_3 = (1,1,2,1)'$, $u_4 = (0,0,1,1)'$, $U = [u_1\ u_2\ u_3\ u_4]$, and $\tilde{v}_1 = (2,1,3,2)'$, $\tilde{v}_2 = (3,2,3,2)'$, $\tilde{v}_3 = (2,2,2,1)'$, $\tilde{v}_4 = (1,1,3,2)'$, $\tilde{V} = [\tilde{v}_1\ \tilde{v}_2\ \tilde{v}_3\ \tilde{v}_4]$.

(a) Find U^{-1}, and conclude that $\mathcal{B} = (u_1, u_2, u_3, u_4)$ is an ordered basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$.

(b) Find the matrix P with columns $[\tilde{v}_1]_\mathcal{B}, \ldots, [\tilde{v}_4]_\mathcal{B}$, and check that $UP = \tilde{V}$.

(c) Check that

$$Q = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

satisfies $PQ = I_4$, and conclude that $\tilde{\mathcal{B}} = (\tilde{v}_1, \tilde{v}_2, \tilde{v}_3, \tilde{v}_4)$ is an ordered basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$. For the vector w with $[w]_\mathcal{B} = (1,1,1,1)'$, find w and $[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}}$.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[U \mid I_4]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1&1&1&0&1&0&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0&0&1&0&0\\ 1&1&2&1&0&0&1&0\\ 1&1&1&1&0&0&0&1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1&1&1&0&1&0&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0&0&1&0&0\\ 0&0&1&1&-1&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1&-1&0&0&1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1&1&1&0&1&0&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0&0&1&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0&0&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&0&1&-1&0&0&1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_3]{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1&1&0&0&1&0&-1&1\\ 0&1&0&0&0&1&-1&1\\ 0&0&1&0&0&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&0&1&-1&0&0&1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1&0&0&0&1&-1&0&0\\ 0&1&0&0&0&1&-1&1\\ 0&0&1&0&0&0&1&-1\\ 0&0&0&1&-1&0&0&1 \end{array}\right)$$

The left half has become I_4, so U is invertible and U^{-1} is the right half (Corollary 2.17(a)). By Example 3.19, $\mathcal{B}$ is an ordered basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$, and $[y]_{\mathcal{B}} = U^{-1}y$ for every $y \in \mathbb{R}^4$.

(b) Column j of P is $[\tilde{v}_j]_{\mathcal{B}} = U^{-1}\tilde{v}_j$, so $P = U^{-1}\tilde{V}$ (Theorem 1.4(a)):

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1&-1&0&0\\ 0&1&-1&1\\ 0&0&1&-1\\ -1&0&0&1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2&3&2&1\\ 1&2&2&1\\ 3&3&2&3\\ 2&2&1&2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0\\ 1&1&1&1\\ 0&-1&-1&1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check:

$$UP = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&1&0\\ 0&1&1&0\\ 1&1&2&1\\ 1&1&1&1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1&1&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0\\ 1&1&1&1\\ 0&-1&-1&1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2&3&2&1\\ 1&2&2&1\\ 3&3&2&3\\ 2&2&1&2 \end{pmatrix} = \tilde{V}$$

(c) The product

$$PQ = \begin{pmatrix} 1&1&0&0\\ 0&1&1&0\\ 1&1&1&1\\ 0&-1&-1&1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 0&-2&1&-1\\ 1&2&-1&1\\ -1&-1&1&-1\\ 0&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1&0&0&0\\ 0&1&0&0\\ 0&0&1&0\\ 0&0&0&1 \end{pmatrix}$$

shows that P is invertible with $P^{-1} = Q$ (Theorem 2.16). As $\tilde{v}_j = U\,\mathrm{col}_j(P) = p_{1j}u_1 + p_{2j}u_2 + p_{3j}u_3 + p_{4j}u_4$, Theorem 3.28 shows that $\tilde{\mathcal{B}}$ is an ordered basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$, and P is the change-of-basis matrix from $\tilde{\mathcal{B}}$ to $\mathcal{B}$. Then $w = u_1 + u_2 + u_3 + u_4 = (3,2,5,4)'$ (Proposition 3.24(b)), and by Theorem 3.27(b)

$$[w]_{\tilde{\mathcal{B}}} = Q[w]_{\mathcal{B}} = \begin{pmatrix} 0&-2&1&-1\\ 1&2&-1&1\\ -1&-1&1&-1\\ 0&1&0&1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1\\1\\1\\1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2\\3\\-2\\2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $-2\tilde{v}_1 + 3\tilde{v}_2 - 2\tilde{v}_3 + 2\tilde{v}_4 = (-4,-2,-6,-4)' + (9,6,9,6)' + (-4,-4,-4,-2)' + (2,2,6,4)' = (3,2,5,4)' = w$.

Exercise 3.17. In $\mathbb{R}^4$ let $U = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2\}$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, w_2\}$, where $u_1 = (1,0,1,1)'$, $u_2 = (0,1,1,-1)'$, $w_1 = (1,1,2,0)'$ and $w_2 = (1,0,0,1)'$.

(a) Row-reduce $M = [u_1\ u_2\ w_1\ w_2]$ and find the linear relations among its columns.

(b) Find a basis of $U + W$.

(c) Find a basis of $U \cap W$. Is the sum $U + W$ direct?

Solution. (a)

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = R$$

$Rc = 0$ reads $c_1 + c_3 = 0$, $c_2 + c_3 = 0$, $c_4 = 0$, with $c_3 = t$ free; so the relations are $c = t(-1,-1,1,0)'$ (Theorem 2.3(b), Proposition 2.7(b)), the multiples of $-u_1 - u_2 + w_1 = 0$: $w_1 = u_1 + u_2$.

(b) By Theorem 3.31(c) and Theorem 3.10(c), $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, w_1, w_2\} = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, w_2\}$. The same row operations take $[u_1\ u_2\ w_2]$ to columns $1, 2, 4$ of R (Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), which are $e_1, e_2, e_3 \in \mathbb{R}^4$; so u_1, u_2, w_2 are independent (Proposition 3.12) and form a basis of $U + W$.

(c) $x \in U \cap W$ if and only if $x = a_1u_1 + a_2u_2 = b_1w_1 + b_2w_2$ for some scalars, that is, $M(a_1, a_2, -b_1, -b_2)' = 0$. By (a), $(a_1, a_2, -b_1, -b_2)' = t(-1,-1,1,0)'$, so $b_1 = -t$, $b_2 = 0$ and $x = -tw_1$. Hence $U \cap W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1\}$, with the basis $w_1 = (1,1,2,0)'$ (Proposition 3.13(a)). The sum is not direct, since $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$ (Definition 3.30).

Exercise 3.18. Let U and W be the subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^3$ spanned by the columns of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \qquad \text{and} \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

respectively. Find (a) a basis of $U + W$; (b) a basis of $U \cap W$ (is the sum $U + W$ direct?); (c) a vector of $U + W$ that is not in $U \cup W$.

Solution. Let $b_1 = (0,1,2)'$ and $b_2 = (2,1,3)'$ be the columns of B; the columns of A are e_1, e_2.

(a)

- By Theorem 3.31(c), $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{e_1, e_2, b_1, b_2\}$.
- e_1, e_2, b_1 are independent: $c_1e_1 + c_2e_2 + c_3b_1 = (c_1,\ c_2 + c_3,\ 2c_3)' = 0$ gives $c_3 = 0$, then $c_2 = 0$ and $c_1 = 0$.
- So $M = [e_1\ e_2\ b_1] \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$ has $Mc = 0$ only for $c = 0$. By Theorem 2.16, M is invertible, and by Example 3.19 its columns form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$.
- These columns lie in the subspace $U + W$, so every vector of $\mathbb{R}^3$, a combination of them, lies in $U + W$. Hence $U + W = \mathbb{R}^3$, and e_1, e_2, b_1 form a basis of $U + W$.

(b)

- U consists of the vectors $(x_1, x_2, 0)'$, and W of the vectors $y_1b_1 + y_2b_2 = (2y_2,\ y_1 + y_2,\ 2y_1 + 3y_2)'$ $(x_1, x_2, y_1, y_2 \in \mathbb{R})$.

- So $U \cap W$ consists of the vectors $y_1 b_1 + y_2 b_2$ with $2y_1 + 3y_2 = 0$. This equation holds exactly when $y_1 = 3t$ and $y_2 = -2t$ for some $t \in \mathbb{R}$: these values give $6t - 6t = 0$; conversely, if $2y_1 + 3y_2 = 0$, then $t = y_1 + y_2$ has $3t = 3y_1 - 2y_1 = y_1$ and $-2t = 3y_2 - 2y_2 = y_2$.
- For $y_1 = 3t$, $y_2 = -2t$: $y_1 b_1 + y_2 b_2 = (-4t,\ t,\ 0)' = t\,(-4, 1, 0)'$. Hence $U \cap W = \operatorname{span}\{(-4, 1, 0)'\}$, and the single nonzero vector $(-4, 1, 0)'$ is a basis of it (Proposition 3.13(a)).
- Since $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$, the sum $U + W$ is not direct (Definition 3.30).

(c) Take $x = (0, 2, 2)'$; it lies in $U + W = \mathbb{R}^3$.

- $x \notin U$, since its third entry is not 0.
- If $x = (2y_2,\ y_1 + y_2,\ 2y_1 + 3y_2)'$, the first two entries give $y_2 = 0$ and $y_1 = 2$, and then the third entry would be $4 \neq 2$. So $x \notin W$.

Exercise 3.19. In $\mathbb{R}^3$ let $W = \operatorname{span}\{e_1\}$ and $U = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2\}$, where $u_1 = (1, 1, 0)'$ and $u_2 = (0, 1, 1)'$. Show that $\mathbb{R}^3 = W \oplus U$, and write $x = (1, 2, 3)'$ as $x = w + u$ with $w \in W$ and $u \in U$.

Solution. The vectors e_1, u_1, u_2 are linearly independent: if $ae_1 + bu_1 + cu_2 = 0$, then

$$a + b = 0, \qquad b + c = 0, \qquad c = 0$$

so $c = 0$, then $b = 0$ and $a = 0$.

- $W \cap U = \{0\}$: e_1 is a basis of W, and u_1, u_2 (independent by Proposition 3.13(b)) form a basis of U. Their combined list e_1, u_1, u_2 is independent, so the sum $W + U$ is direct (Theorem 3.33).
- $W + U = \mathbb{R}^3$: the matrix $M = [e_1\ u_1\ u_2] \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$ has $Mc = 0$ only for $c = 0$, so it is invertible (Theorem 2.16), and its columns span $\mathbb{R}^3$ (Example 3.19). By Theorem 3.31(c), $W + U = \operatorname{span}\{e_1, u_1, u_2\} = \mathbb{R}^3$.

Hence $\mathbb{R}^3 = W \oplus U$. To write $x = (1, 2, 3)'$ as $ae_1 + bu_1 + cu_2$, solve the system whose augmented matrix is already in echelon form,

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 \end{array}\right)$$

Back substitution (Theorem 2.26) gives $c = 3$, $b = 2 - 3 = -1$, $a = 1 - (-1) = 2$. So $w = 2e_1 = (2, 0, 0)'$ and $u = -u_1 + 3u_2 = (-1, 2, 3)'$; indeed $w + u = (1, 2, 3)'$. By Theorem 3.32, this is the only such decomposition.

Problems

Problem 3.1. Is the set of vectors $(x, y)' \in \mathbb{R}^2$ with $x \geqslant 0$ and $y \geqslant 0$ a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^2$?

Solution. No: $(1, 1)'$ lies in the set, but $(-1)(1, 1)' = (-1, -1)'$ does not; so the set is not closed under scalar multiplication (Theorem 3.4(b)).

Problem 3.2. In the vector space $\mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$, show that the set of lower triangular matrices is a subspace.

Solution. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$ be lower triangular, that is, $a_{ij} = b_{ij} = 0$ for $i < j$, and let $c \in \mathbb{R}$. For $i < j$, $(A + B)_{ij} = a_{ij} + b_{ij} = 0$ and $(cA)_{ij} = ca_{ij} = 0$; so $A + B$ and cA are lower triangular, and so is 0. By Theorem 3.4(b), the lower triangular matrices form a subspace.

Problem 3.3. Let U and W be subspaces of a vector space V such that the union $U \cup W$ is also a subspace. Show that one of the spaces U, W is contained in the other.

Solution. Suppose that neither space is contained in the other: there are $u \in U$ with $u \notin W$, and $w \in W$ with $w \notin U$. Both u and w lie in $U \cup W$.

- If $u + w \in U$, then, as U is a subspace, $w = (u + w) + (-1)u \in U$ ✘.
- If $u + w \in W$, then, as W is a subspace, $u = (u + w) + (-1)w \in W$ ✘.
- So $u + w \notin U \cup W$: the set $U \cup W$ is not closed under addition, and it is not a subspace (Theorem 3.4(b)).

Hence, if $U \cup W$ is a subspace, then $U \subseteq W$ or $W \subseteq U$.

Problem 3.4. Suppose that $v_1, \ldots, v_k$ span a vector space V but do not form a basis of V. Show that, for any $v \in V$, the representation of v as a linear combination of $v_1, \ldots, v_k$ is not unique.

Solution. Let $v \in V$. Since $v_1, \ldots, v_k$ span V, there are scalars $x_1, \ldots, x_k$ with $v = \sum_i x_i v_i$. Since $v_1, \ldots, v_k$ span V but do not form a basis, they are linearly dependent (Definition 3.17): there are scalars $z_1, \ldots, z_k$, not all 0, with $\sum_i z_i v_i = 0$. Let $y_i = x_i + z_i$. Then $\sum_i y_i v_i = \sum_i x_i v_i + \sum_i z_i v_i = v + 0 = v$, and $(y_1, \ldots, y_k) \neq (x_1, \ldots, x_k)$ because some $z_i \neq 0$. So v has two different representations. (Compare Theorem 3.18.)

Problem 3.5. Show that every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ can be written in exactly one way as $A = B + C$ with B symmetric and C skew-symmetric, and conclude that $\mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is the direct sum of the subspace of symmetric matrices and the subspace of skew-symmetric matrices.

Solution. Both sets are subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ (Example 3.5(d)).

- Existence: let $B = \frac{1}{2}(A + A')$ and $C = \frac{1}{2}(A - A')$. Then $B + C = A$, and, since $(A')' = A$ (Theorem 1.9), $B' = \frac{1}{2}(A' + A) = B$ and $C' = \frac{1}{2}(A' - A) = -C$. (This is Proposition 1.27(b).)
- Uniqueness: let also $A = B_1 + C_1$ with B_1 symmetric and C_1 skew-symmetric. Then $B_1 - B = C - C_1$, where $B_1 - B$ is symmetric and $C - C_1$ is skew-symmetric. So $B_1 - B = (B_1 - B)' = (C - C_1)' = -(C - C_1) = -(B_1 - B)$, hence $2(B_1 - B) = 0$. Thus $B_1 = B$, and then $C_1 = A - B_1 = C$.
- So the sum of the two subspaces is all of $\mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, and by Theorem 3.32 their intersection is $\{0\}$: $\mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is their direct sum.

For a numerical instance, see Example 1.28, where the two parts of a 4×4 matrix are called S and K.

Problem 3.6. Let U, W and X be subspaces of a vector space V.

(a) Show that $(U \cap W) + (U \cap X) \subseteq U \cap (W + X)$.

(b) Show by an example that $U \cap W = \{0\}$ and $U \cap X = \{0\}$ do not imply $U \cap (W + X) = \{0\}$.

(c) Show that if $W \subseteq U$, then $U + W = U$ and $U \cap (W + X) = W + (U \cap X)$.

Solution. By Theorem 3.31(a), all the intersections and sums of subspaces below are subspaces of V.

(a) Let $y \in (U \cap W) + (U \cap X)$, that is, $y = w + x$ with $w \in U \cap W$ and $x \in U \cap X$. Since w and x lie in the subspace U, so does y; since $w \in W$ and $x \in X$, $y \in W + X$. So $y \in U \cap (W + X)$.

(b) In $V = \mathbb{R}^2$ let U, W and X be the spans of $(1, 1)'$, $(1, 0)'$ and $(0, 1)'$, respectively.

- $U \cap W = \{0\}$: a vector of $U \cap W$ is $a(1, 1)' = b(1, 0)'$ for some $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$; then $(a, a)' = (b, 0)'$, so $a = 0$, and the vector is 0. Likewise $a(1, 1)' = b(0, 1)'$ gives $(a, a)' = (0, b)'$, so $a = 0$, and $U \cap X = \{0\}$.

- $W + X = \text{span}\{e_1, e_2\} = \mathbb{R}^2$ (Theorem 3.31(c) and the standard basis, Definition 3.17). So $U \cap (W + X) = U \neq \{0\}$.

(c) Let $W \subseteq U$.

- $U + W = U$: $U \subseteq U + W$ by Theorem 3.31(b). Conversely, if $y = u + w$ with $u \in U$ and $w \in W$, then $w \in U$, so $y \in U$.
- $W + (U \cap X) \subseteq U \cap (W + X)$: this is (a), since $U \cap W = W$.
- $U \cap (W + X) \subseteq W + (U \cap X)$: let $y \in U \cap (W + X)$, say $y = w + x$ with $w \in W$ and $x \in X$. Then $x = y - w$, where $y \in U$ and $w \in U$ (as $W \subseteq U$); so $x \in U$, as U is a subspace. Hence $x \in U \cap X$, and $y = w + x \in W + (U \cap X)$.

Problem 3.7. Let $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$ have all entries nonzero, and let $W = \{w \in \mathbb{R}^n : v'w = 0\}$, a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Example 3.5(e), with the $1 \times n$ matrix v'). For $\varepsilon = (\varepsilon_1, \ldots, \varepsilon_n)'$ with every $\varepsilon_i \in \{1, -1\}$, the **orthant** O_ε is the set of the $w \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $\varepsilon_i w_i > 0$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n$. Show that W contains a vector of every orthant except the two orthants that contain v and $-v$, and that W contains no vector of these two orthants.

Solution. Here $v'w = \sum_i v_i w_i$ (Theorem 1.9), and $\varepsilon_i^2 = 1$ for every i.

- Let $v \in O_\varepsilon$. For $w \in O_\varepsilon$, $v_i w_i = (\varepsilon_i v_i)(\varepsilon_i w_i) > 0$ for every i, so $v'w > 0$ and $w \notin W$. Likewise, if $-v \in O_\varepsilon$ and $w \in O_\varepsilon$, then $-v_i w_i = (-\varepsilon_i v_i)(\varepsilon_i w_i) > 0$ for every i, so $v'w < 0$ and $w \notin W$.
- Let O_ε contain neither v nor $-v$. As $v \notin O_\varepsilon$, some $\varepsilon_j v_j \leqslant 0$, hence $\varepsilon_j v_j < 0$ since $v_j \neq 0$; as $-v \notin O_\varepsilon$, some $-\varepsilon_i v_i \leqslant 0$, hence $\varepsilon_i v_i > 0$, again since $v_i \neq 0$.
- The vector ε itself lies in O_ε, since $\varepsilon_i \varepsilon_i = 1 > 0$. Let $s = v'\varepsilon$. If $s = 0$, then $\varepsilon \in W \cap O_\varepsilon$.
- If $s > 0$, enlarge entry j: let $w = \varepsilon + t\varepsilon_j e_j$ with $t = s/(-\varepsilon_j v_j) > 0$. Entry j of w is $(1 + t)\varepsilon_j$, so $\varepsilon_j w_j = 1 + t > 0$, and the other entries are those of ε; so $w \in O_\varepsilon$. Moreover $v'w = s + t\varepsilon_j v_j = s - s = 0$.
- If $s < 0$, enlarge entry i: let $w = \varepsilon + t\varepsilon_i e_i$ with $t = -s/(\varepsilon_i v_i) > 0$. As before, $w \in O_\varepsilon$, and $v'w = s + t\varepsilon_i v_i = s - s = 0$.

In each case W contains a vector of O_ε. For $v = \mathbf{1}_n$, W is the subspace W_0 of centered vectors (Example 3.5(f)): a centered vector without zero entries can have any pattern of signs except all entries positive and all entries negative.

Problem 3.8. Let $v_1, \ldots, v_m \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) Show that if $m \geqslant n+2$, then there are numbers $\alpha_1, \ldots, \alpha_m$, not all 0, with $\alpha_1 v_1 + \cdots + \alpha_m v_m = 0$ and $\alpha_1 + \cdots + \alpha_m = 0$.

(b) A **convex combination** of $v_1, \ldots, v_m$ is a vector $x = t_1 v_1 + \cdots + t_m v_m$ with $t_1, \ldots, t_m \geqslant 0$ and $t_1 + \cdots + t_m = 1$. Show that every convex combination of $v_1, \ldots, v_m$ is a convex combination of at most $n + 1$ of the vectors $v_1, \ldots, v_m$.

Solution. (a) For $i = 1, \ldots, m$, let $u_i \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ be v_i with the entry 1 appended: its first n entries are those of v_i, and its last entry is 1. For numbers $\alpha_1, \ldots, \alpha_m$, the first n entries of $\sum_i \alpha_i u_i$ form the vector $\sum_i \alpha_i v_i$, and its last entry is $\sum_i \alpha_i$. The m vectors $u_1, \ldots, u_m$ of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ are more than $n + 1$, so they are linearly dependent (Proposition 3.12): $\sum_i \alpha_i u_i = 0$ for some $\alpha_1, \ldots, \alpha_m$, not all 0. These numbers satisfy $\sum_i \alpha_i v_i = 0$ and $\sum_i \alpha_i = 0$.

(b) We show, by induction on m, that a convex combination x of any m vectors of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a convex combination of at most $n + 1$ of them.

- If $m \leqslant n + 1$, there is nothing to prove.

- Let $m \geqslant n+2$, assume the statement for $m-1$ vectors, and let $x = \sum_i t_i v_i$ with all $t_i \geqslant 0$ and $\sum_i t_i = 1$. Take $\alpha_1, \ldots, \alpha_m$ as in (a). Some α_i is positive: otherwise all $\alpha_i \leqslant 0$, and as $\sum_i \alpha_i = 0$, all α_i would be 0.
- For every $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$, $x = \sum_i t_i v_i + \lambda \sum_i \alpha_i v_i = \sum_i \tilde{t}_i v_i$ with $\tilde{t}_i = t_i + \lambda\alpha_i$, and $\sum_i \tilde{t}_i = \sum_i t_i + \lambda \sum_i \alpha_i = 1$.
- Among the indices i with $\alpha_i > 0$, choose k with $t_k/\alpha_k \leqslant t_i/\alpha_i$ for all of them, and take $\lambda = -t_k/\alpha_k \leqslant 0$. Then $\tilde{t}_k = t_k - t_k = 0$. If $\alpha_i > 0$, then $\tilde{t}_i = \alpha_i\big(t_i/\alpha_i - t_k/\alpha_k\big) \geqslant 0$; if $\alpha_i \leqslant 0$, then $\lambda\alpha_i \geqslant 0$ and $\tilde{t}_i \geqslant t_i \geqslant 0$.
- So $x = \sum_{i\neq k} \tilde{t}_i v_i$ with all $\tilde{t}_i \geqslant 0$ and $\sum_{i\neq k} \tilde{t}_i = 1$: x is a convex combination of the $m-1$ vectors v_i $(i \neq k)$. By the induction hypothesis, it is a convex combination of at most $n+1$ of them.

Chapter 4. Bases, dimension, and rank

Bases and dimension of subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$

Theorem 4.1. Let R be the RREF of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, with r nonzero rows. The following are equivalent:

(i) the columns $a_1, \dots, a_n$ of A are linearly independent;

(ii) the system $Ax = 0$ has only the solution $x = 0$;

(iii) $r = n$, that is, every column of R is a pivot column.

In particular, if $n > m$, then any n vectors of $\mathbb{R}^m$ are linearly dependent.

We call this the **pivot test**.

Proof. This is Proposition 3.12 with $V = A$ and $k = n$: each nonzero row of R contains exactly one pivot, and the pivots lie in different columns (Definition 2.4), so R has r pivot columns, and every column of R is a pivot column exactly when $r = n$. □

Remark 4.2. For the pivot test one may stop at an echelon form E of A (Definitions 2.4 and 2.5). Backward elimination adds multiples of a row i, whose leading 1 is in column k_i, to rows $l < i$, whose leading 1 is in a column $k_l < k_i$. Row i is 0 before column k_i, so row l changes only in columns $\geqslant k_i$ and keeps its leading 1 in column k_l. Hence the RREF of A reached from E has the same leading columns as E. As the RREF of A is unique (Theorem 2.8), the pivot columns of A, and their number r, can be read off from any echelon form of A. In particular, (iii) of Theorem 4.1 says that every column of E contains a leading 1. The same holds before the leading entries are scaled to 1: scaling a row does not move its leading entry.

Theorem 4.3. Let R be the RREF of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, with r nonzero rows, pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$ and entries R_{ij}.

(a) The columns of A and those of R satisfy the same linear relations: for $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $x_1a_1+\cdots+x_na_n = 0$ if and only if $x_1 \operatorname{col}_1(R) + \cdots + x_n \operatorname{col}_n(R) = 0$.

(b) If $r \geqslant 1$, the pivot columns $a_{k_1}, \dots, a_{k_r}$ of A form a basis of $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_n\}$, and for every $j = 1, \dots, n$

$$a_j = R_{1j}a_{k_1} + R_{2j}a_{k_2} + \cdots + R_{rj}a_{k_r}$$

If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$ and $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_n\} = \{0\}$.

In particular, every finite list that spans a subspace W contains a basis of W.

Proof. (a) The two sums are Ax and Rx, and $Ax = 0$ if and only if $Rx = 0$ (Theorem 2.3(b)).

(b) If $r = 0$, then $R = 0$, and $A = P^{-1}R = 0$, where $R = PA$ with $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ invertible (Theorem 2.15(c)). Let $r \geqslant 1$.

- Columns of R: $\operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R) = e_i$, and rows $r+1, \dots, m$ of R are zero, so $\operatorname{col}_j(R) = \sum_{i=1}^r R_{ij}e_i = \sum_{i=1}^r R_{ij} \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R)$ for every j.
- Relations: for a column $j \notin \{k_1, \dots, k_r\}$ let $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ have $x_j = 1$, $x_{k_i} = -R_{ij}$ $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant r)$ and all other entries 0. By the first item, $Rx = \operatorname{col}_j(R) - \sum_i R_{ij} \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R) = 0$; by (a), $Ax = a_j - \sum_i R_{ij}a_{k_i} = 0$. For $j = k_l$ the formula reads $a_{k_l} = a_{k_l}$, since R_{ik_l} is 1 for $i = l$ and 0 otherwise.
- Spanning: each a_j lies in the subspace $U = \operatorname{span}\{a_{k_1}, \dots, a_{k_r}\}$, so $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_n\} \subseteq U$ (Theorem 3.7); the reverse inclusion is clear.
- Independence: if $c_1a_{k_1}+\cdots+c_ra_{k_r} = 0$, then by (a) $c_1 \operatorname{col}_{k_1}(R)+\cdots+c_r \operatorname{col}_{k_r}(R) = c_1e_1+\cdots+c_re_r = 0$, so every $c_i = 0$.

For the last sentence, write the spanning vectors as the columns of a matrix and apply (b). □

By Theorem 4.3(a), a_j is a linear combination of $a_1, \dots, a_{j-1}$ if and only if $\operatorname{col}_j(R)$ is a linear combination of $\operatorname{col}_1(R), \dots, \operatorname{col}_{j-1}(R)$ (take $x_j = -1$ and $x_l = 0$ for $l > j$). In R this happens exactly when j is not a pivot column: $\operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R) = e_i$, while the columns before k_i are 0 in rows $i, \dots, m$; and a non-pivot column j equals $\sum_{k_i<j} R_{ij} \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R)$. So the pivot columns of A are the columns that are not combinations of the earlier ones; they do not depend on the row operations used.

Theorem 4.4. Every subspace W of $\mathbb{R}^n$ has a basis, and any two bases of W have the same number of elements. This number is the **dimension** of W, written $\dim W$. For example, $\dim \mathbb{R}^n = n$ (standard basis) and $\dim\{0\} = 0$ (the empty list is a basis of $\{0\}$). Conversely, $\dim W = 0$ only for $W = \{0\}$: a basis of W with no vectors is the empty list, which spans $\{0\}$ (Definition 3.6). Moreover, if W is spanned by m vectors, then any $k > m$ vectors of W are linearly dependent.

Proof. • If W is spanned by $w_1, \dots, w_m$, then any $k > m$ vectors $v_1, \dots, v_k$ of W are linearly dependent. Indeed, write $v_j = a_{1j}w_1 + \cdots + a_{mj}w_m$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant k)$ and $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times k}$. As $k > m$, the columns of A are dependent (Theorem 4.1): $Ax = 0$ for some $x \neq 0$. Then

$$x_1v_1 + \cdots + x_kv_k = \sum_{j=1}^{k} x_j \sum_{i=1}^{m} a_{ij}w_i = \sum_{i=1}^{m} (Ax)_i w_i = 0$$

- Same size: if $v_1, \dots, v_k$ and $w_1, \dots, w_m$ are bases of W, each list spans W and is independent, so the first item gives $k \leqslant m$ and $m \leqslant k$.
- Existence: start with the empty list and, as long as the vectors chosen do not span W, adjoin a vector $v \in W$ outside their span. The list stays independent: in a relation $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k + cv = 0$, $c \neq 0$ would put v in the span of $v_1, \dots, v_k$, so $c = 0$, and then every $c_i = 0$. More than n vectors of $\mathbb{R}^n$ are dependent (Theorem 4.1), so the process stops after at most n steps, at a basis of W. □

By Theorem 4.3, $\dim \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_n\} = r$, the number of pivots of the RREF of $[a_1 \ \cdots \ a_n]$.

Theorem 4.5. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\dim W = d$.

(a) If U is a subspace of W, then $\dim U \leqslant d$, and $\dim U = d$ only for $U = W$. In particular $d \leqslant n$, and $d = n$ only for $W = \mathbb{R}^n$.

(b) Every linearly independent list of vectors of W can be extended to a basis of W.

(c) More than d vectors of W are linearly dependent; fewer than d vectors do not span W.

(d) d vectors of W are linearly independent $\Leftrightarrow$ they span $W \Leftrightarrow$ they form a basis of W.

Proof. If $d = 0$, then $W = \{0\}$ (Theorem 4.4), and (a)–(c) are immediate: every subspace U of W is $\{0\} = W$; every vector of W is 0, so a nonempty list of vectors of W is dependent (Proposition 3.13(a)); and the empty list, the only independent one, is a basis of W (Definition 3.17). This also gives (d): the only list of 0 vectors is the empty list, which is independent, spans $\{0\} = W$ (Definition 3.6) and is a basis of W. Let $d \geqslant 1$, and let $w_1, \dots, w_d$ be a basis of W (Theorem 4.4). We prove (c) first.

(c)

- The vectors $w_1, \dots, w_d$ span W, so any $k > d$ vectors of W are linearly dependent, by Theorem 4.4 (with $m = d$).
- If $k < d$ vectors spanned W, Theorem 4.4, applied to them (with $m = k$), would make the $d > k$ vectors $w_1, \dots, w_d$ of W dependent ✘

(b)

- Let $v_1, \dots, v_k$ be linearly independent vectors of W. If they span W, they form a basis of W.

- Otherwise take $v \in W$ outside $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$. Then $v_1, \dots, v_k, v$ are independent: in a relation $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_kv_k + cv = 0$, $c \neq 0$ would put v in the span, so $c = 0$, and then every $c_i = 0$.
- Repeat this. Each list obtained consists of independent vectors of W, so it has at most d vectors by (c); hence the process stops, at a basis of W that contains $v_1, \dots, v_k$.

(a)

- A basis of U (Theorem 4.4) consists of $\dim U$ independent vectors of W, so $\dim U \leqslant d$ by (c).
- If $U \neq W$, take $v \in W$ outside U. Adjoining v to a basis of U gives, as in (b), $\dim U + 1$ independent vectors of W, so $\dim U + 1 \leqslant d$ by (c). Hence $\dim U = d$ only for $U = W$.
- For the last sentence, apply this to W as a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$, which has dimension n (Theorem 4.4).

(d) Let $v_1, \dots, v_d \in W$. A basis of W is independent and spans W (Definition 3.17).

- Let $v_1, \dots, v_d$ be independent, and let $w \in W$. By (c), the $d+1$ vectors $w, v_1, \dots, v_d$ are dependent: $x_0w + x_1v_1 + \cdots + x_dv_d = 0$ with not all $x_i = 0$. Here $x_0 \neq 0$, since $v_1, \dots, v_d$ are independent; so $w = -(x_1/x_0)v_1 - \cdots - (x_d/x_0)v_d$. Thus $v_1, \dots, v_d$ span W, and they form a basis.
- Let $v_1, \dots, v_d$ span W. By Theorem 4.3, some of them form a basis of W, which has d vectors (Theorem 4.4); so it consists of all of $v_1, \dots, v_d$, and they form a basis. □

Transposition carries a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ onto a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ and preserves linear combinations, hence independence, spanning and bases; so Theorems 4.4 and 4.5 also hold for subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$, such as the row space $\mathcal{R}(A)$ below.

Example 4.6. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, \dots, u_5\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$, where

$$u_1 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad u_2 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\3\\2\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad u_3 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\0\\1\end{pmatrix}, \quad u_4 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\2\\3\end{pmatrix}, \quad u_5 = \begin{pmatrix}1\\3\\1\\-1\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Are $u_1, \dots, u_5$ linearly independent? (b) Find a basis of W among $u_1, \dots, u_5$, and $\dim W$. (c) Express the remaining vectors in this basis.

Solution. Row-reduce $A = [u_1 \ \cdots \ u_5]$:

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\2&3&1&2&3\\1&2&0&2&1\\1&1&1&3&-1\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&1&-1&1&0\\0&0&0&2&-2\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&2&-2\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&0&2\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&2&0&1\\0&1&-1&0&1\\0&0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} = R$$

So $r = 3$, with pivot columns $k_1 = 1$, $k_2 = 2$, $k_3 = 4$.

(a) No: $r = 3 < 5$ (Theorem 4.1); indeed any five vectors of $\mathbb{R}^4$ are dependent.

(b) By Theorem 4.3, u_1, u_2, u_4 form a basis of W, and $\dim W = 3$. As $3 < 4$, $W \neq \mathbb{R}^4$ (Theorem 4.5(a)).

(c) Columns 3 and 5 of R give $u_3 = 2u_1 - u_2$ and $u_5 = u_1 + u_2 - u_4$ (Theorem 4.3(b)). Check: $2(1,2,1,1)' - (1,3,2,1)' = (1,1,0,1)' = u_3$ and $(1,2,1,1)' + (1,3,2,1)' - (1,2,2,3)' = (1,3,1,-1)' = u_5$. Equivalently, $2u_1 - u_2 - u_3 = 0$ and $u_1 + u_2 - u_4 - u_5 = 0$.

The four subspaces of a matrix

Definition 4.7. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$,

$$\mathcal{C}(A) = \{Ax : x \in \mathbb{R}^n\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m, \qquad \mathcal{R}(A) = \{y'A : y \in \mathbb{R}^m\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$$
$$\mathcal{N}(A) = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : Ax = 0\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n, \qquad \mathcal{N}(A') = \{y \in \mathbb{R}^m : A'y = 0\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m$$

are the **column space**, **row space**, **null space** and **left null space** of A. The columns of A span $\mathcal{C}(A)$, the rows of A span $\mathcal{R}(A)$ (a space of row vectors), $\mathcal{N}(A)$ is the set of solutions of $Ax = 0$, and $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$ if and only if $y'A = 0$ (transpose both sides). All four are subspaces (Theorem 3.7 for $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{R}(A)$, Example 3.5(e) for $\mathcal{N}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A')$).

Let R be the RREF of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, with r nonzero rows, pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$ and other columns $f_1 < \cdots < f_{n-r}$, so that $x_{f_1}, \ldots, x_{f_{n-r}}$ are the free unknowns of $Ax = 0$ (Proposition 2.7(b)). For $j = 1, \ldots, n-r$, the **special solution** $s_j \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is the solution of $Ax = 0$ with free unknowns $x_{f_j} = 1$ and $x_{f_l} = 0$ ($l \neq j$). By Proposition 2.7(b), its entries are

$$(s_j)_{f_l} = \delta_{jl} \quad (1 \leqslant l \leqslant n-r), \qquad (s_j)_{k_i} = -R_{if_j} \quad (1 \leqslant i \leqslant r)$$

Theorem 4.8. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, and let row operations take $[A \mid I_m]$ to $[R \mid P]$, where R is the RREF of A, with nonzero rows $\rho_1', \ldots, \rho_r'$ ($\rho_i \in \mathbb{R}^n$), pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$ and free columns $f_1 < \cdots < f_{n-r}$. Then $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ is invertible, $PA = R$, and:

(a) if $r \geqslant 1$, the pivot columns $a_{k_1}, \ldots, a_{k_r}$ of A form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$;

(b) $\mathcal{R}(R) = \mathcal{R}(A)$, and if $r \geqslant 1$, the nonzero rows $\rho_1', \ldots, \rho_r'$ of R form a basis of $\mathcal{R}(A)$;

(c) the special solutions $s_1, \ldots, s_{n-r}$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ (if $r = n$, then $\mathcal{N}(A) = \{0\}$, with the empty basis);

(d) the transposed rows $\mathrm{row}_{r+1}(P)', \ldots, \mathrm{row}_m(P)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A')$ (if $r = m$, then $\mathcal{N}(A') = \{0\}$, with the empty basis).

Hence $\dim \mathcal{C}(A) = \dim \mathcal{R}(A) = r$, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - r$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = m - r$ (if $r = 0$, then $A = 0$ and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{R}(A) = \{0\}$).

Proof. The row operations multiply $[A \mid I_m]$ on the left by an invertible matrix E (Theorem 2.15(c)), and $E[A \mid I_m] = [EA \mid E]$, column by column (Theorem 1.4(a)). So $P = E$ is invertible and $PA = R$.

(a) $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathrm{span}\{a_1, \ldots, a_n\}$; apply Theorem 4.3.

(b)

- Same row space: with $P = (p_{ij})$, row i of $R = PA$ is $\mathrm{row}_i(R) = \mathrm{row}_i(P)A = p_{i1}\,\mathrm{row}_1(A) + \cdots + p_{im}\,\mathrm{row}_m(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), a linear combination of the rows of A. So every row of R lies in $\mathcal{R}(A)$, and so does their span $\mathcal{R}(R)$ (Theorem 3.7): $\mathcal{R}(R) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$. Likewise $A = P^{-1}R$ gives $\mathcal{R}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(R)$. Hence $\mathcal{R}(R) = \mathcal{R}(A)$.
- Spanning: the rows of R span $\mathcal{R}(R)$, and rows $r+1, \ldots, m$ are zero, so $\rho_1', \ldots, \rho_r'$ span $\mathcal{R}(R) = \mathcal{R}(A)$.
- Independent: $\mathrm{col}_{k_i}(R) = e_i$, so entry k_i of $c_1\rho_1' + \cdots + c_r\rho_r'$ is c_i; if this combination is 0, every $c_i = 0$.

(c) The solutions of $Ax = 0$ are those of $Rx = 0$ (Theorem 2.3(b)).

- Independent: by the definition of the special solutions before the theorem, $(s_j)_{f_l} = \delta_{jl}$, so the f_lth entry of $c_1s_1 + \cdots + c_{n-r}s_{n-r}$, that is, its value of the unknown x_{f_l}, is $\sum_j c_j\delta_{jl} = c_l$. If this combination is 0, all its entries are 0, so every $c_l = 0$.
- Spanning: let $t \in \mathcal{N}(A)$, with free unknowns $t_{f_1}, \ldots, t_{f_{n-r}}$, and put $\tilde{t} = t_{f_1}s_1 + \cdots + t_{f_{n-r}}s_{n-r}$. Then $\tilde{t} \in \mathcal{N}(A)$, as $\mathcal{N}(A)$ is a subspace (Definition 4.7).

- By the previous item, with $c_l = t_{f_l}$, the f_lth entry of $\tilde{t}$ is t_{f_l}: $\tilde{t}$ has the same free unknowns as t.
- By Proposition 2.7(b), with $b = 0$ and so $z = 0$, the pivot unknowns of a solution are computed from its free unknowns: $x_{k_i} = -\sum_l R_{if_l} x_{f_l}$. So two solutions with the same free unknowns are equal, and $t = \tilde{t} \in \operatorname{span}\{s_1, \dots, s_{n-r}\}$.
- If $r = n$, there are no free unknowns, and $x = 0$ is the only solution.

(d)

- In $\mathcal{N}(A')$: for $i > r$, $\operatorname{row}_i(P)A = \operatorname{row}_i(PA) = \operatorname{row}_i(R) = 0$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), so $A' \operatorname{row}_i(P)' = (\operatorname{row}_i(P)A)' = 0$.
- Independent: if $c'P = c_1 \operatorname{row}_1(P) + \cdots + c_m \operatorname{row}_m(P) = 0$, then $c' = c'PP^{-1} = 0$; so the rows of P are independent, and so are rows $r+1, \dots, m$ (Proposition 3.13(b)).
- Spanning: let $A'y = 0$, so $y'A = 0$, and put $z' = y'P^{-1}$, so that $y' = z'P = \sum_{i=1}^m z_i \operatorname{row}_i(P)$. Then $0 = y'A = z'PA = z'R = z_1\rho_1' + \cdots + z_r\rho_r'$, and (b) gives $z_1 = \cdots = z_r = 0$. So $y' = \sum_{i>r} z_i \operatorname{row}_i(P)$ (and $y = 0$ if $r = m$). □

Example 4.9. Find bases of the four subspaces of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 0 & 5 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 8 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Row-reduce $[A \mid I_3]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 3 & 0 & 5 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 8 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 3 & -1 & 3 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) = [R \mid P]$$

So $r = 2$, with pivot columns $1, 2$ and free unknowns x_3, x_4. (The pivots are already visible in the echelon form after the second arrow; Remark 4.2.)

- $\mathcal{C}(A)$: $a_1 = (1,1,2)'$ and $a_2 = (2,3,5)'$ form a basis; $\dim \mathcal{C}(A) = 2$. Columns 3, 4 of R give

  $$a_3 = 3a_1 - a_2, \qquad a_4 = -a_1 + 2a_2$$

  Check: $3(1,1,2)' - (2,3,5)' = (1,0,1)'$ and $-(1,1,2)' + 2(2,3,5)' = (3,5,8)'$.
- $\mathcal{R}(A)$: $\rho_1' = (1,0,3,-1)$ and $\rho_2' = (0,1,-1,2)$ form a basis; $\dim \mathcal{R}(A) = 2$.
- $\mathcal{N}(A)$: $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 3x_3 - x_4 = 0$, $x_2 - x_3 + 2x_4 = 0$. The special solutions

  $$s_1 = \begin{pmatrix} -3 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \ (x_3 = 1,\ x_4 = 0), \qquad s_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \ (x_3 = 0,\ x_4 = 1)$$

  form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$; $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 2 = 4 - 2$. Note $As_1 = -3a_1 + a_2 + a_3 = 0$ is the relation $a_3 = 3a_1 - a_2$: each special solution is a column relation.
- $\mathcal{N}(A')$: row 3 of P gives the basis $y = (-1,-1,1)'$; $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = 1 = 3 - 2$. Indeed $y'A = -\operatorname{row}_1(A) - \operatorname{row}_2(A) + \operatorname{row}_3(A) = 0$, that is, $\operatorname{row}_3(A) = \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \operatorname{row}_2(A)$: each vector of $\mathcal{N}(A')$ is a row relation.

- Warning: every column of R has third entry 0, so every vector of $\mathcal{C}(R)$ does; but a_1 has third entry 2. Thus $\mathcal{C}(R) \neq \mathcal{C}(A)$, and the pivot columns e_1, e_2 of R do not span $\mathcal{C}(A)$.

Remark 4.10. Row operations do not change $\mathcal{R}(A)$ or $\mathcal{N}(A)$: $\mathcal{R}(R) = \mathcal{R}(A)$ (Theorem 4.8(b)) and $\mathcal{N}(R) = \mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 2.3(b)), so R may be used for these two spaces. They do change $\mathcal{C}(A)$ in general: a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$ consists of the pivot columns of A itself, not of R (Example 4.9).

Rank

Definition 4.11. By Theorem 4.8, $\dim \mathcal{C}(A) = \dim \mathcal{R}(A) = r$, the number of pivots of the RREF of A (also when $r = 0$). This common number is the **rank** of A, written $\operatorname{rank} A$; by Remark 4.2 it is also the number of nonzero rows of any echelon form of A. A has **full column rank** if $\operatorname{rank} A = n$, and **full row rank** if $\operatorname{rank} A = m$. The number $\dim \mathcal{N}(A)$ is the **nullity** of A.

Theorem 4.12. For every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$,

$$\operatorname{rank} A + \dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n, \qquad \operatorname{rank} A + \dim \mathcal{N}(A') = m$$

Proof. Each of the n columns of R is either a pivot column (r of them) or a free column ($n - r$ of them), and by Theorem 4.8(c), $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - r$, the number of free unknowns. Likewise $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = m - r$, the number of zero rows of R (Theorem 4.8(d)). Since $\operatorname{rank} A = r$, both equalities follow. □

Theorem 4.13. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) $\operatorname{rank} A' = \operatorname{rank} A$, and $\operatorname{rank} A \leqslant \min\{m, n\}$.

(b) A has full column rank $\Leftrightarrow$ its columns are linearly independent $\Leftrightarrow \mathcal{N}(A) = \{0\}$.

(c) A has full row rank $\Leftrightarrow$ its rows are linearly independent $\Leftrightarrow \mathcal{N}(A') = \{0\} \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{C}(A) = \mathbb{R}^m$.

(d) If $m = n$, then A is invertible $\Leftrightarrow \operatorname{rank} A = n$.

Proof. Let R be the RREF of A, with r nonzero rows and pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$, so that $\operatorname{rank} A = r$ (Definition 4.11).

(a) For $y \in \mathbb{R}^m$, $(y'A)' = A'y$, so transposing maps $\mathcal{R}(A)$ onto $\mathcal{C}(A')$. It preserves linear combinations and is undone by transposing again, so it carries a basis of $\mathcal{R}(A)$ to a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A')$, and $\operatorname{rank} A' = \dim \mathcal{C}(A') = \dim \mathcal{R}(A) = \operatorname{rank} A$. Also $\operatorname{rank} A = r \leqslant m$, as R has m rows, and $r \leqslant n$, as $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$ lie in $\{1, \ldots, n\}$.

(b) A has full column rank if and only if $r = n$ (Definition 4.11); so (b) is Theorem 4.1: (iii) $\Leftrightarrow$ (i) $\Leftrightarrow$ (ii).

(c)

- $\operatorname{rank} A = m$ if and only if $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = m - \operatorname{rank} A = 0$ (Theorem 4.12), that is, $\mathcal{N}(A') = \{0\}$ (Theorem 4.4).
- $y'A = y_1 \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \cdots + y_m \operatorname{row}_m(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), and $y'A = 0$ if and only if $A'y = 0$. So $\mathcal{N}(A') = \{0\}$ says exactly that the rows of A are independent.
- $\operatorname{rank} A = \dim \mathcal{C}(A)$, and a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^m$ has dimension m only if it is $\mathbb{R}^m$ (Theorem 4.5(a)); conversely, $\dim \mathbb{R}^m = m$ (Theorem 4.4); so $\operatorname{rank} A = m$ if and only if $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathbb{R}^m$.

(d) A square matrix A is invertible if and only if $Ax = 0$ has only the solution $x = 0$ (Theorem 2.16), that is, $\mathcal{N}(A) = \{0\}$; by (b), this means $\operatorname{rank} A = n$. □

Corollary 4.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $b \in \mathbb{R}^m$, and let $[A \mid b] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times(n+1)}$ be the augmented matrix.

(a) $Ax = b$ is consistent $\Leftrightarrow b \in \mathcal{C}(A) \Leftrightarrow \operatorname{rank}[A \mid b] = \operatorname{rank} A$.

(b) If $Ax = b$ is consistent, its solution is unique $\Leftrightarrow \operatorname{rank} A = n$.

Proof. (a)

- $Ax = x_1a_1 + \cdots + x_na_n$ (Theorem 1.4(b)), so $Ax = b$ has a solution if and only if b is a linear combination of the columns of A, that is, $b \in \mathcal{C}(A)$.
- $\mathcal{C}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{C}([A \mid b])$: a combination of $a_1, \ldots, a_n$ is one of $a_1, \ldots, a_n, b$, with coefficient 0 on b.
- If $b = Ac$, then $x_1a_1 + \cdots + x_na_n + tb = A(x + tc) \in \mathcal{C}(A)$; so $\mathcal{C}([A \mid b]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$, and the ranks are equal.
- If the ranks are equal, the subspace $\mathcal{C}(A)$ of $\mathcal{C}([A \mid b])$ has the same dimension, so the two are equal (Theorem 4.5(a)), and $b \in \mathcal{C}([A \mid b]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$.

(b) By Theorem 2.27(a), the solutions are $x_p + z$, where x_p is one solution and z runs through the solutions of $Ax = 0$, that is, through $\mathcal{N}(A)$. So the solution is unique if and only if $\mathcal{N}(A) = \{0\}$, that is, $\operatorname{rank} A = n$ (Theorem 4.13(b)). □

In practice, consistency is read off from an echelon form of $[A \mid b]$ (Theorem 2.26).

Rank equalities and inequalities

Theorem 4.15. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$.

(a) $\mathcal{C}(AB) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(AB)$; and $\operatorname{rank}(AB) \leqslant \min\{\operatorname{rank} A, \operatorname{rank} B\}$.

(b) If A has full column rank, then $\mathcal{N}(AB) = \mathcal{N}(B)$ and $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank} B$.

(c) If B has full row rank, then $\mathcal{C}(AB) = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank} A$.

(d) $\operatorname{rank}(PAQ) = \operatorname{rank} A$ for all invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ and $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

Proof. (a)

- $ABx = A(Bx) \in \mathcal{C}(A)$, and $Bx = 0$ gives $ABx = A0 = 0$.
- So $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \dim \mathcal{C}(AB) \leqslant \dim \mathcal{C}(A) = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.5(a)).
- By this, $(AB)' = B'A'$ (Theorem 1.9) and Theorem 4.13(a), $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank}(B'A') \leqslant \operatorname{rank} B' = \operatorname{rank} B$.

(b)

- If $ABx = 0$, then $Bx \in \mathcal{N}(A) = \{0\}$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), so $x \in \mathcal{N}(B)$. With (a), $\mathcal{N}(AB) = \mathcal{N}(B)$.
- AB and B both have p columns, so by Theorem 4.12, $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = p - \dim \mathcal{N}(AB) = p - \dim \mathcal{N}(B) = \operatorname{rank} B$.

(c)

- $\mathcal{C}(B) = \mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.13(c)): every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is Bw for some $w \in \mathbb{R}^p$, and then $Ax = (AB)w \in \mathcal{C}(AB)$.
- So $\mathcal{C}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(AB)$; with (a), $\mathcal{C}(AB) = \mathcal{C}(A)$, and the ranks are equal.

(d) $Px = 0$ gives $x = P^{-1}Px = 0$, so P has full column rank (Theorem 4.13(b)); and $\operatorname{rank} Q = n$ (Theorem 4.13(d)), so Q has full row rank. By (b) and (c), $\operatorname{rank}(P(AQ)) = \operatorname{rank}(AQ) = \operatorname{rank} A$. □

Theorem 4.16. (a) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, let $[A\ B] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times(n+p)}$ have the columns of A followed by those of B. Then

$$\max\{\operatorname{rank} A, \operatorname{rank} B\} \leqslant \operatorname{rank}[A\ B] \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$$

(b) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times n}$, let $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A \\ C \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{(m+q)\times n}$ have the rows of A followed by those of C. Then $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A \\ C \end{smallmatrix}\right)' = [A'\ C']$, and

$$\max\{\operatorname{rank} A, \operatorname{rank} C\} \leqslant \operatorname{rank} \begin{pmatrix} A \\ C \end{pmatrix} \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} C$$

(c) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$, let $\operatorname{diag}(A, B) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & B \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{(m+q)\times(n+p)}$, with zero blocks of sizes $m \times p$ and $q \times n$. Then $\operatorname{rank}\operatorname{diag}(A, B) = \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$.

Proof. (a)

- A combination of the columns of A, or of those of B, is a combination of the columns of $[A\ B]$ (the others with coefficient 0). So $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{C}(B)$ are subspaces of $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$, and Theorem 4.5(a) gives the lower bound.
- Let $r = \operatorname{rank} A$, $s = \operatorname{rank} B$, and take bases $v_1, \ldots, v_r$ of $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $w_1, \ldots, w_s$ of $\mathcal{C}(B)$. Every column of $[A\ B]$ is a combination of these $r + s$ vectors of $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$, so they span $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$ (Theorem 3.7), and $\operatorname{rank}[A\ B] \leqslant r + s$ (Theorem 4.5(c)).

(b) Transposing turns the rows of $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A \\ C \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ into the columns of $[A'\ C']$, so $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A \\ C \end{smallmatrix}\right)' = [A'\ C']$. Apply (a) to A' and C', and use Theorem 4.13(a).

(c) Let $M = \operatorname{diag}(A, B)$, $r = \operatorname{rank} A$ and $s = \operatorname{rank} B$.

- Upper bound: $M = [M_1\ M_2]$ with $M_1 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A \\ 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $M_2 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 \\ B \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By (b), and as a zero matrix has rank 0, $r \leqslant \operatorname{rank} M_1 \leqslant r + 0$; so $\operatorname{rank} M_1 = r$, and likewise $\operatorname{rank} M_2 = s$. By (a), $\operatorname{rank} M \leqslant r + s$.
- Lower bound: let $a_{k_1}, \ldots, a_{k_r}$ and $b_{l_1}, \ldots, b_{l_s}$ be the pivot columns of A and of B, bases of $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{C}(B)$ (Theorem 4.8(a)). The corresponding columns $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a_{k_i} \\ 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 \\ b_{l_j} \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ of M are independent: a combination of them is $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} \sum_i \alpha_i a_{k_i} \\ \sum_j \beta_j b_{l_j} \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, which is 0 only if all α_i and β_j are 0. These $r + s$ vectors lie in $\mathcal{C}(M)$, so $\operatorname{rank} M \geqslant r + s$ (Theorem 4.5(c)). □

Corollary 4.17. For $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $\operatorname{rank}(A + B) \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$.

Proof. For $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $(A + B)x = Ax + Bx$ is a combination of the columns of A and of B, so it lies in $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$. Hence $\mathcal{C}(A + B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}([A\ B])$, so $\operatorname{rank}(A + B) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}[A\ B]$ (Theorem 4.5(a)), and $\operatorname{rank}[A\ B] \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$ (Theorem 4.16(a)). □

Theorem 4.18. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) $\mathcal{N}(A'A) = \mathcal{N}(A)$.

(b) $\operatorname{rank}(A'A) = \operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank}(AA')$.

(c) $\mathcal{C}(A'A) = \mathcal{C}(A')$ and $\mathcal{C}(AA') = \mathcal{C}(A)$.

Proof. (a)

- If $Ax = 0$, then $A'Ax = A'0 = 0$.
- If $A'Ax = 0$, then $(Ax)'(Ax) = x'A'Ax = 0$. But $(Ax)'(Ax)$ is the sum of the squares of the entries of Ax (Theorem 1.9), so $Ax = 0$.

(b) $A'A$ and A both have n columns, so by (a) and Theorem 4.12, $\operatorname{rank}(A'A) = n - \dim\mathcal{N}(A'A) = n - \dim\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{rank} A$. Applied to A' in place of A, this gives $\operatorname{rank}(AA') = \operatorname{rank} A' = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.13(a)).

(c) $\mathcal{C}(A'A) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A')$ (Theorem 4.15(a)), and both have dimension $\operatorname{rank} A$, by (b) and Theorem 4.13(a); so they are equal (Theorem 4.5(a)). Likewise $\mathcal{C}(AA') \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$, both of dimension $\operatorname{rank} A$. □

Theorem 4.19 (Sylvester's inequality)**.** For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$,

$$\dim \mathcal{N}(AB) \leqslant \dim \mathcal{N}(A) + \dim \mathcal{N}(B), \qquad \text{equivalently} \qquad \operatorname{rank}(AB) \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B - n$$

In particular, if $AB = 0$, then $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B \leqslant n$.

Proof.
- Let $z_1, \dots, z_s$ be a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B)$. Since $\mathcal{N}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(AB)$ (Theorem 4.15(a)), it extends to a basis $z_1, \dots, z_s, w_1, \dots, w_t$ of $\mathcal{N}(AB)$ (Theorem 4.5(b)); so $\dim \mathcal{N}(AB) = s + t$.
- The vectors $Bw_1, \dots, Bw_t$ lie in $\mathcal{N}(A)$, since $A(Bw_j) = (AB)w_j = 0$.
- They are independent: if $c_1Bw_1 + \cdots + c_tBw_t = 0$, then $B(c_1w_1 + \cdots + c_tw_t) = 0$, so $c_1w_1 + \cdots + c_tw_t \in \mathcal{N}(B)$ equals some $\lambda_1 z_1 + \cdots + \lambda_s z_s$; as $z_1, \dots, z_s, w_1, \dots, w_t$ are independent, every $c_j = 0$.
- Hence $t \leqslant \dim \mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 4.5(c)), and $\dim \mathcal{N}(AB) = s + t \leqslant \dim \mathcal{N}(B) + \dim \mathcal{N}(A)$.
- By Theorem 4.12, $\dim \mathcal{N}(AB) = p - \operatorname{rank}(AB)$, $\dim \mathcal{N}(B) = p - \operatorname{rank} B$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - \operatorname{rank} A$. Substituting gives $p - \operatorname{rank}(AB) \leqslant (p - \operatorname{rank} B) + (n - \operatorname{rank} A)$, which is the rank form. If $AB = 0$, then $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = 0$. □

Example 4.20. Let $A = \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 1, 0)$ and $B = \operatorname{diag}(0, 0, 1, 1)$ in $\mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$. Their columns are $e_1, e_2, e_3, 0$ and $0, 0, e_3, e_4$. A zero column adds nothing to the span (Theorem 3.10(c)), so $\mathcal{C}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{e_1, e_2, e_3\}$ and $\mathcal{C}(B) = \operatorname{span}\{e_3, e_4\}$; unit vectors are independent, as part of the standard basis (Definition 3.17 and Proposition 3.13(b)). So $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$ and $\operatorname{rank} B = 2$.

- $AB = \operatorname{diag}(0, 0, 1, 0)$ (row i of AB is $a_{ii} \operatorname{row}_i(B)$, Theorem 1.4(c)) has the columns $0, 0, e_3, 0$; in the same way, $\mathcal{C}(AB) = \operatorname{span}\{e_3\}$ and $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = 1$: less than $\min\{3, 2\}$ (Theorem 4.15(a)), and equal to $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B - 4 = 1$, so Sylvester's bound is attained (Theorem 4.19).
- $A + B = \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 2, 1)$ is invertible, with inverse $\operatorname{diag}(1, 1, \frac{1}{2}, 1)$ (Definition 2.12); so $\operatorname{rank}(A + B) = 4 < 3 + 2$ (Theorem 4.13(d) and Corollary 4.17). And $A + (-A) = 0$ has rank 0, as $\mathcal{C}(0) = \{0\}$ and $\dim\{0\} = 0$ (Theorem 4.4).
- $[A\ B] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 8}$ has the columns $e_1, e_2, e_3, 0, 0, 0, e_3, e_4$, so $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathbb{R}^4$ and $\operatorname{rank}[A\ B] = \dim \mathbb{R}^4 = 4$ (Theorem 4.4), strictly between $\max\{3, 2\}$ and $3 + 2$ (Theorem 4.16(a)).
- $\operatorname{diag}(A, B) = \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 1, 0, 0, 0, 1, 1) \in \mathbb{R}^{8\times 8}$ has rank $5 = 3 + 2$ (Theorem 4.16(c)).
- $A'A = A^2 = A$ has rank $3 = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.18).

Theorem 4.21. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ have rank r. If $r \geqslant 1$, a product $A = BC$ with $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times r}$ of full column rank and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of full row rank is a **full-rank factorization** of A.

(a) If $r \geqslant 1$, let R be the RREF of A, with pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$; let $B = [a_{k_1}\ \cdots\ a_{k_r}] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times r}$ consist of the pivot columns of A, and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of the r nonzero rows of R. Then $A = BC$ is a full-rank factorization. If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$, and there is nothing to factor.

(b) For every full-rank factorization $A = BC$, $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{C}(B)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{N}(C)$.

(c) For every full-rank factorization $A = BC$, the $r \times r$ matrices $B'B$ and CC' are invertible, and

$$L = (B'B)^{-1}B' \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times m}, \qquad K = C'(CC')^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$$

satisfy $LB = I_r$ and $CK = I_r$: B has a left inverse and C has a right inverse.

Proof. (a)

- Column j of BC is $B \operatorname{col}_j(C) = R_{1j}a_{k_1} + \cdots + R_{rj}a_{k_r}$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)), which is a_j by Theorem 4.3(b). So $BC = A$.
- The columns of B form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$, so they are independent: B has full column rank (Theorem 4.13(b)).

- The rows of C form a basis of $\mathcal{R}(A)$ (Theorem 4.8(b)), so they are independent: C has full row rank (Theorem 4.13(c)).
- If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$ (Theorem 4.8).

(b) Theorem 4.15(b) gives $\mathcal{N}(BC) = \mathcal{N}(C)$, as B has full column rank, and Theorem 4.15(c) gives $\mathcal{C}(BC) = \mathcal{C}(B)$, as C has full row rank.

(c)

- $\operatorname{rank}(B'B) = \operatorname{rank} B = r$ and $\operatorname{rank}(CC') = \operatorname{rank} C = r$ (Theorem 4.18(b)), so the $r \times r$ matrices $B'B$ and CC' are invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).
- $LB = (B'B)^{-1}(B'B) = I_r$ and $CK = (CC')(CC')^{-1} = I_r$. □

Example 4.22. For A of Example 4.9, Theorem 4.21(a) gives

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 0 & 5 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 8 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Columns 1, 2 of BC are a_1, a_2, and columns 3, 4 are $3a_1 - a_2 = a_3$ and $-a_1 + 2a_2 = a_4$ (Example 4.9).
- By Theorem 4.21(b), $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{C}(B) = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, a_2\}$ and $\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{N}(C) = \operatorname{span}\{s_1, s_2\}$: the system $Cx = 0$ is $Rx = 0$ without its zero row.
- The 4×2 matrix $[s_1 \ s_2]$ has $A[s_1 \ s_2] = 0$ and $\operatorname{rank}[s_1 \ s_2] = 2$, and Sylvester's inequality $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank}[s_1 \ s_2] \leqslant 4$ holds with equality: $2 + 2 = 4$.

Sums and intersections of subspaces

Theorem 4.23. Let U and W be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$. Then

$$\dim(U + W) + \dim(U \cap W) = \dim U + \dim W$$

Proof. $U \cap W$ and $U + W$ are subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 3.31(a)). The lists below may be empty (the empty list is a basis of $\{0\}$, Definition 3.17).

- Bases: let $x_1, \dots, x_k$ be a basis of $U \cap W$ (Theorem 4.4). It is an independent list of vectors of U, and also of W; so it extends to a basis $x_1, \dots, x_k, u_1, \dots, u_p$ of U and to a basis $x_1, \dots, x_k, w_1, \dots, w_q$ of W (Theorem 4.5(b)). Thus $\dim U = k + p$ and $\dim W = k + q$.
- Spanning: a vector of $U + W$ is $u + w$ with $u \in U$ and $w \in W$, that is, a combination of $x_1, \dots, x_k, u_1, \dots, u_p$ plus a combination of $x_1, \dots, x_k, w_1, \dots, w_q$; so it is a combination of the $k + p + q$ vectors

  $$x_1, \dots, x_k, \ u_1, \dots, u_p, \ w_1, \dots, w_q$$

  These vectors lie in $U + W$ (Theorem 3.31(b)), so they span $U + W$.
- Independent: let $\sum_i a_i x_i + \sum_j b_j u_j + \sum_l c_l w_l = 0$. Then $\sum_l c_l w_l = -\sum_i a_i x_i - \sum_j b_j u_j$ lies in U as well as in W, hence in $U \cap W$; so $\sum_l c_l w_l = \sum_i \lambda_i x_i$ for some scalars λ_i. Since $x_1, \dots, x_k, w_1, \dots, w_q$ are independent, the relation $\sum_i \lambda_i x_i - \sum_l c_l w_l = 0$ forces every $c_l = 0$. Then $\sum_i a_i x_i + \sum_j b_j u_j = 0$, and the independence of $x_1, \dots, x_k, u_1, \dots, u_p$ gives every $a_i = 0$ and every $b_j = 0$.
- So these $k + p + q$ vectors form a basis of $U + W$, and

$$\dim(U + W) + \dim(U \cap W) = (k + p + q) + k = (k + p) + (k + q) = \dim U + \dim W \qquad \square$$

Example 4.24. Write a 2×2 matrix $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ as the column $(a_{11}, a_{12}, a_{21}, a_{22})'$ of its entries. The matrices $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} x & -x \\ y & z \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a & b \\ -a & c \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ $(a, b, c, x, y, z \in \mathbb{R})$ then form the subspaces

$$U = \{(x, -x, y, z)' : x, y, z \in \mathbb{R}\}, \qquad W = \{(a, b, -a, c)' : a, b, c \in \mathbb{R}\}$$

of $\mathbb{R}^4$: U consists of the vectors whose second entry is minus the first, and W of those whose third entry is minus the first; so U and W are the solution sets of $x_1 + x_2 = 0$ and of $x_1 + x_3 = 0$, subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^4$ by Example 3.5(e).

- $(x, -x, y, z)' = x\,u_1 + y\,e_3 + z\,e_4$ with $u_1 = (1, -1, 0, 0)'$, and this vector is 0 only for $x = y = z = 0$; so u_1, e_3, e_4 form a basis of U (Definition 3.17), and $\dim U = 3$ (Theorem 4.4). Likewise $(a, b, -a, c)' = a\,w_1 + b\,e_2 + c\,e_4$ with $w_1 = (1, 0, -1, 0)'$, so w_1, e_2, e_4 form a basis of W, and $\dim W = 3$.
- A vector $(x, -x, y, z)'$ of U lies in W if and only if $y = -x$. So $U \cap W = \{(x, -x, -x, z)' : x, z \in \mathbb{R}\}$, and $(x, -x, -x, z)' = x\,(1, -1, -1, 0)' + z\,e_4$ is 0 only for $x = z = 0$; so $(1, -1, -1, 0)'$ and e_4 form a basis of $U \cap W$, a subspace by Theorem 3.31(a), and $\dim(U \cap W) = 2$ (Theorem 4.4).
- By Theorem 4.23, $\dim(U + W) = \dim U + \dim W - \dim(U \cap W) = 3 + 3 - 2 = 4$, so $U + W = \mathbb{R}^4$ (Theorem 4.5(a)). Directly: $e_3, e_4 \in U$ and $e_2 \in W$ lie in $U + W$ (Theorem 3.31(b)), and $e_1 = u_1 + e_2 \in U + W$; so the subspace $U + W$ (Theorem 3.31(a)) contains every $x = x_1e_1 + x_2e_2 + x_3e_3 + x_4e_4$ of $\mathbb{R}^4$.

With this direct computation of $U + W$, $\dim(U + W) + \dim(U \cap W) = 4 + 2 = 3 + 3 = \dim U + \dim W$.

Corollary 4.25. Let U and W be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) $\dim(U + W) \leqslant \dim U + \dim W$, with equality if and only if $U \cap W = \{0\}$. In particular $\dim(U \oplus W) = \dim U + \dim W$.

(b) If $\dim U + \dim W > n$, then $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$.

(c) W has a **complement** in $\mathbb{R}^n$, that is, a subspace V with $\mathbb{R}^n = W \oplus V$; and every complement V of W has $\dim V = n - \dim W$.

Proof. (a) Let $u_1, \ldots, u_p$ and $w_1, \ldots, w_q$ be bases of U and of W (Theorem 4.4).

- If $U \cap W = \{0\}$, then $u_1, \ldots, u_p, w_1, \ldots, w_q$ form a basis of $U \oplus W$ (Theorem 3.33), so $\dim(U \oplus W) = p + q$.
- If $U \cap W \neq \{0\}$, these $p + q$ vectors are dependent (Theorem 3.33). They span $U + W$ (Theorem 3.31(c)), so some of them form a basis of $U + W$ (Theorem 4.3), and not all of them, as a basis is independent. Hence $\dim(U + W) < p + q$.

(b) If $U \cap W = \{0\}$, then (a) and Theorem 4.5(a), applied to the subspace $U + W$ of $\mathbb{R}^n$, give $n < \dim U + \dim W = \dim(U + W) \leqslant n$ ✘

(c)

- Let $w_1, \ldots, w_d$ be a basis of W (Theorem 4.4). By Theorem 4.5(b), applied to $\mathbb{R}^n$, it extends to a basis $w_1, \ldots, w_d, v_1, \ldots, v_{n-d}$ of $\mathbb{R}^n$, which has n vectors (Theorem 4.4). Let $V = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, \ldots, v_{n-d}\}$ ($V = \{0\}$ if $d = n$).
- $W + V = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, \ldots, w_d, v_1, \ldots, v_{n-d}\} = \mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 3.31(c)).
- $W \cap V = \{0\}$: if $x = \sum_i a_i w_i = \sum_j b_j v_j$, then $\sum_i a_i w_i - \sum_j b_j v_j = 0$, so every a_i and every b_j is 0, and $x = 0$.
- Hence $\mathbb{R}^n = W \oplus V$ (Definition 3.30). If V is any complement of W, then $n = \dim(W \oplus V) = \dim W + \dim V$ by (a). □

A complement is not unique in general: in $\mathbb{R}^4$, both $\operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}$ and $\operatorname{span}\{e_4\}$ are complements of the centered vectors W_0 (Examples 3.35 and 3.34(b)).

Column spaces and the system $AX = B$

Proposition 4.26. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) For $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$ the following are equivalent: $\mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$; every column of B lies in $\mathcal{C}(A)$; $B = AF$ for some $F \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$.

(b) For $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times n}$ the following are equivalent: $\mathcal{R}(C) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$; every row of C lies in $\mathcal{R}(A)$; $C = LA$ for some $L \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times m}$.

Proof. (a) The columns of A span $\mathcal{C}(A)$, and those of B span $\mathcal{C}(B)$ (Definition 4.7); so (a) is Theorem 3.10(a).

(b)

- If $\mathcal{R}(C) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$, then $\text{row}_i(C) = e_i'C \in \mathcal{R}(C) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(c), with $e_i \in \mathbb{R}^q$). Conversely, if every row of C lies in the subspace $\mathcal{R}(A)$, so does every $y'C = y_1 \text{row}_1(C) + \cdots + y_q \text{row}_q(C)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)).
- For $L \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times m}$ with rows $l_1', \ldots, l_q'$, $\text{row}_i(LA) = l_i'A$ (Theorem 1.4(c)). So $C = LA$ for some L if and only if every $\text{row}_i(C)$ has the form $l'A$ with $l \in \mathbb{R}^m$, that is, lies in $\mathcal{R}(A) = \{y'A : y \in \mathbb{R}^m\}$. □

Theorem 4.27. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, and let $[A\ B]$ be as in Theorem 4.16(a).

(a) $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A) + \mathcal{C}(B)$, and

$$\text{rank}[A\ B] = \text{rank}\, A + \text{rank}\, B - \dim\Big(\mathcal{C}(A) \cap \mathcal{C}(B)\Big)$$

(b) $\text{rank}[A\ B] = \text{rank}\, A \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A) \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$.

(c) $\text{rank}[A\ B] = \text{rank}\, A + \text{rank}\, B \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{C}(A) \cap \mathcal{C}(B) = \{0\}$.

(d) For $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times n}$ and $\binom{A}{C}$ as in Theorem 4.16(b),

$$\text{rank}\binom{A}{C} = \text{rank}\, A + \text{rank}\, C - \dim\Big(\mathcal{R}(A) \cap \mathcal{R}(C)\Big)$$

and $\text{rank}\binom{A}{C} = \text{rank}\, A$ if and only if $\mathcal{R}(C) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$.

Proof. (a) The columns of $[A\ B]$ are those of A followed by those of B, so $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A) + \mathcal{C}(B)$ (Theorem 3.31(c) and Definition 4.7). Theorem 4.23 with $U = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $W = \mathcal{C}(B)$ gives the formula, since $\text{rank}\, M = \dim \mathcal{C}(M)$ for every matrix M (Definition 4.11).

(b)

- By (a), $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{C}(B)$ lie in $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$ (Theorem 3.31(b)).
- If $\mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$, then $B = AF$ for some $F = [f_1\ \cdots\ f_p]$ (Proposition 4.26(a)), and the columns of $[A\ B]$ are $a_1, \ldots, a_n, Af_1, \ldots, Af_p$ (Theorem 1.4(a)), all in $\mathcal{C}(A)$. So $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$ (Proposition 4.26(a)), and with the first item the two spaces are equal. Conversely, if $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$, then $\mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$.
- Equal column spaces have equal dimensions, so $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$ gives $\text{rank}[A\ B] = \text{rank}\, A$. Conversely, if $\text{rank}[A\ B] = \text{rank}\, A$, the subspace $\mathcal{C}(A)$ of $\mathcal{C}([A\ B])$ has the same dimension, so the two are equal (Theorem 4.5(a)).

(c) This is Corollary 4.25(a) for $U = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $W = \mathcal{C}(B)$, by (a).

(d)

- $\binom{A}{C}' = [A'\ C']$ (Theorem 4.16(b)), and a matrix and its transpose have the same rank (Theorem 4.13(a)).
- For every matrix G with n columns, $(y'G)' = G'y$, so a row vector z lies in $\mathcal{R}(G)$ if and only if $z' \in \mathcal{C}(G')$. Hence transposition maps $\mathcal{R}(A) \cap \mathcal{R}(C)$ onto $\mathcal{C}(A') \cap \mathcal{C}(C')$, and $\mathcal{R}(C) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(A)$ holds if and only if $\mathcal{C}(C') \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A')$. Transposition preserves linear combinations and is undone by transposing again, so it carries bases to bases, and the two intersections have the same dimension.
- Now apply (a) and (b) to $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ and $C' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$. □

For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, the **system** $AX = B$ asks for the matrices $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ with $AX = B$, its **solutions**; it is **consistent** if it has a solution. By Theorem 1.4(a), $X = [x_1\ \cdots\ x_p]$ is a solution if and only if $Ax_j = \operatorname{col}_j(B)$ for $j = 1, \dots, p$: the system collects p systems with the same coefficient matrix. For $p = 1$ it is the system $Ax = b$ of Definition 2.1.

Corollary 4.28. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$. The following are equivalent:

(i) the system $AX = B$ is consistent;

(ii) $\mathcal{C}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$, that is, every column of B lies in $\mathcal{C}(A)$;

(iii) $\mathcal{C}([A\ B]) = \mathcal{C}(A)$;

(iv) $\operatorname{rank}[A\ B] = \operatorname{rank} A$.

If A has full row rank, then $AX = B$ is consistent for every $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$.

Proof. $AX = B$ is consistent if and only if $B = AF$ for some $F \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, which is (ii) by Proposition 4.26(a); and (ii) ⇔ (iii) ⇔ (iv) is Theorem 4.27(b). If $\operatorname{rank} A = m$, then $m = \operatorname{rank} A \leqslant \operatorname{rank}[A\ B] \leqslant m$ (Theorems 4.16(a) and 4.13(a)), so (iv) holds. □

Theorem 4.29. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$. The system $AX = B$ is consistent if and only if $y'B = 0$ for every $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$, that is, if and only if every linear relation $y_1 \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \cdots + y_m \operatorname{row}_m(A) = 0$ among the rows of A also holds among the rows of B. In particular, $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $y'b = 0$ for every $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$.

Proof. If $AX_0 = B$ and $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$, that is, $y'A = 0$ (Definition 4.7), then $y'B = y'AX_0 = 0$. Conversely, let $y'B = 0$ for every $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$.

- If $A = 0$, every $y \in \mathbb{R}^m$ lies in $\mathcal{N}(A')$; with $y = e_i$, $\operatorname{row}_i(B) = e_i'B = 0$ for every i (Theorem 1.4(c)), so $B = 0$ and $X = 0$ is a solution. Let $A \neq 0$ and $r = \operatorname{rank} A \geqslant 1$.
- The rows of A span $\mathcal{R}(A)$, so r of them, $\operatorname{row}_{h_1}(A), \dots, \operatorname{row}_{h_r}(A)$ with $h_1 < \cdots < h_r$, form a basis of $\mathcal{R}(A)$ (Theorem 4.3, last sentence, for row vectors by transposition, as in the paragraph after Theorem 4.5). Let $A_h \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ and $B_h \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times p}$ consist of rows $h_1, \dots, h_r$ of A and of B. The rows of A_h are independent, so A_h has full row rank (Theorem 4.13(c)), and $A_hX = B_h$ has a solution X^* (Corollary 4.28): $\operatorname{row}_{h_j}(A)X^* = \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(B)$ for $j = 1, \dots, r$ (Theorem 1.4(c)).
- Let $i \notin \{h_1, \dots, h_r\}$. Then $\operatorname{row}_i(A) = \sum_j \lambda_{ij} \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(A)$ for some scalars λ_{ij}, so $y = e_i - \sum_j \lambda_{ij} e_{h_j} \in \mathbb{R}^m$ has $y'A = \operatorname{row}_i(A) - \sum_j \lambda_{ij} \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(A) = 0$, that is, $y \in \mathcal{N}(A')$. Hence $0 = y'B = \operatorname{row}_i(B) - \sum_j \lambda_{ij} \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(B)$, and

$$\operatorname{row}_i(A)X^* = \sum_j \lambda_{ij} \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(A)X^* = \sum_j \lambda_{ij} \operatorname{row}_{h_j}(B) = \operatorname{row}_i(B)$$

- Thus $\operatorname{row}_i(AX^*) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)X^* = \operatorname{row}_i(B)$ for every i (Theorem 1.4(c)), that is, $AX^* = B$. The last sentence is the case $p = 1$. □

In practice, $\mathcal{C}(A)$ is described by equations obtained from the reduction of $[A \mid I_m]$ to $[R \mid P]$ (Theorem 4.8). The same row operations take $[A \mid b]$ to $[R \mid Pb]$: by Theorem 2.15(c) they multiply on the left by an invertible E, and $E[A \mid I_m] = [EA \mid E]$, column by column (Theorem 1.4(a)), so $E = P$, $EA = R$ and $E[A \mid b] = [R \mid Pb]$. As $b \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ if and only if $Ax = b$ is consistent (Corollary 4.14(a)), Proposition 2.7(a) gives, with $r = \operatorname{rank} A$,

$$b \in \mathcal{C}(A) \iff \operatorname{row}_i(P)\, b = 0 \quad \text{for } i = r+1, \ldots, m$$

(no condition if $r = m$; Example 2.25 is an instance). The vectors $\operatorname{row}_i(P)'$ $(i > r)$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A')$ (Theorem 4.8(d)), so these $m - r$ equations are the conditions $y'b = 0$ of Theorem 4.29.

Example 4.30. For A of Example 4.9, $r = 2$ and $\operatorname{row}_3(P) = (-1, -1, 1)$, so

$$b \in \mathcal{C}(A) \iff -b_1 - b_2 + b_3 = 0$$

This is the row relation $\operatorname{row}_3(A) = \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \operatorname{row}_2(A)$ found there, which every right side must share (Theorem 4.29).

(a) $Ax = (1, t, 4)'$ is consistent if and only if $-1 - t + 4 = 0$, that is, $t = 3$. For $t = 3$ and $b = (1, 3, 4)'$, $Pb = (3 - 6,\ -1 + 3,\ -1 - 3 + 4)' = (-3, 2, 0)'$, and $Rx = Pb$ reads $x_1 + 3x_3 - x_4 = -3$, $x_2 - x_3 + 2x_4 = 2$. The free unknowns $x_3 = x_4 = 0$ give the solution $x_p = (-3, 2, 0, 0)'$, and all solutions are $x_p + c_1 s_1 + c_2 s_2$ $(c_1, c_2 \in \mathbb{R})$, by Theorems 2.27(a) and 4.8(c). Check: $Ax_p = -3a_1 + 2a_2 = (-3 + 4,\ -3 + 6,\ -6 + 10)' = (1, 3, 4)'$.

(b) For the two right sides

$$B_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $y = (-1, -1, 1)'$, $y'B_1 = (-1 - 1 + 2,\ 0 - 1 + 1) = (0, 0)$ and $y'B_2 = (-1, -1) \neq (0, 0)$. Every vector of $\mathcal{N}(A')$ is a multiple of y, so $AX = B_1$ is consistent and $AX = B_2$ is not. Indeed the columns of B_1 are a_1 and $a_2 - 2a_1$, so

$$X = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

solves $AX = B_1$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)).

The normal form of a matrix

Theorem 4.31. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$ have rank r, and let $N_r \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$ be the matrix whose first r columns are the unit vectors $e_1, \ldots, e_r \in \mathbb{R}^m$ and whose other $n - r$ columns are 0 $(N_0 = 0)$:

$$N_r = \begin{pmatrix} I_r & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

There are invertible matrices $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times m}$ and $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ such that $PAQ = N_r$. This N_r is the **normal form** of A.

Proof. If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$ (Theorem 4.8); take $P = I_m$ and $Q = I_n$. Let $r \geqslant 1$.

- By Theorem 4.21(a), $A = B_1 C_1$ with $B_1 \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times r}$ of full column rank and $C_1 \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times n}$ of full row rank. So the columns $b_1, \ldots, b_r$ of B_1 are independent, and so are the rows $c_1', \ldots, c_r'$ of C_1 $(c_j \in \mathbb{R}^n$; Theorem 4.13(b),(c)).

- By Theorem 4.5(b), $b_1, \dots, b_r$ extend to a basis $b_1, \dots, b_m$ of $\mathbb{R}^m$, and $c'_1, \dots, c'_r$ extend to a basis $c'_1, \dots, c'_n$ of $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ (the paragraph after Theorem 4.5; bases of $\mathbb{R}^m$ and of $\mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ have m and n vectors, and nothing is added if $r = m$, or $r = n$).
- Let $B = [b_1 \ \cdots \ b_m] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$, and let $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the rows $c'_1, \dots, c'_n$. The columns of B are independent, so $\operatorname{rank} B = m$ and B is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)); the rows of C are independent, so $\operatorname{rank} C = n$ and C is invertible (Theorem 4.13(c),(d)).
- By Theorem 1.4(a),(b), the columns of BN_r are $Be_j = b_j$ ($j \leqslant r$) and 0 ($j > r$). By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), applied to $(BN_r)C$ and to B_1C_1,

$$BN_rC = \sum_{j=1}^{r} b_j c'_j = B_1C_1 = A$$

- Hence $P = B^{-1}$ and $Q = C^{-1}$ are invertible (Theorem 2.13(a)), and $PAQ = B^{-1}(BN_rC)C^{-1} = N_r$. □

Remark 4.32. The matrices P and Q of Theorem 4.31 can be read off from the computation of Theorem 4.8. Let $[A \mid I_m]$ be reduced to $[R \mid P]$, with pivot columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$, free columns $f_1 < \cdots < f_{n-r}$ and special solutions $s_1, \dots, s_{n-r}$, and let

$$Q = [e_{k_1} \ \cdots \ e_{k_r} \ s_1 \ \cdots \ s_{n-r}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$$

Then P and Q are invertible and $PAQ = N_r$.

- P is invertible and $PA = R$ (Theorem 4.8). The columns of RQ are $Re_{k_i} = \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(R) = e_i$ ($i \leqslant r$; Definition 2.4) and $Rs_j = 0$, as $s_j \in \mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{N}(R)$ (Theorem 2.3(b)). So $PAQ = RQ = N_r$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).
- Let $Qx = 0$, that is, $\sum_{i=1}^{r} x_i e_{k_i} + \sum_{j=1}^{n-r} x_{r+j} s_j = 0$. Entry f_l of the left side is x_{r+l}, since e_{k_i} has entry 0 there and s_j has entry δ_{jl}; so $x_{r+1} = \cdots = x_n = 0$, and then $\sum_i x_i e_{k_i} = 0$ gives $x_1 = \cdots = x_r = 0$. By Theorem 2.16, Q is invertible.

Example 4.33. For A of Example 4.9, the pivot columns are $1, 2$ and the special solutions are $s_1 = (-3, 1, 1, 0)'$, $s_2 = (1, -2, 0, 1)'$. Remark 4.32 gives

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -2 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q = [e_1 \ e_2 \ s_1 \ s_2] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -3 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and

$$PAQ = RQ = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -3 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = N_2$$

These are also the matrices of the proof of Theorem 4.31 for the factorization $A = BC$ of Example 4.22, completed by e_3 and by the rows e'_3, e'_4:

- $\tilde{B} = [a_1 \ a_2 \ e_3]$ has $P\tilde{B} = [Pa_1 \ Pa_2 \ Pe_3] = [e_1 \ e_2 \ e_3] = I_3$, since Pa_1, Pa_2 are columns 1, 2 of $PA = R$ and $Pe_3 = \operatorname{col}_3(P) = e_3$; so $\tilde{B}^{-1} = P$ (Theorem 2.16);
- $\tilde{C} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$, with rows $(1, 0, 3, -1)$, $(0, 1, -1, 2)$, e'_3, e'_4, has $\tilde{C}Q = I_4$: the first two rows of $\tilde{C}$ form the matrix C with $Ce_1 = e_1$, $Ce_2 = e_2$, $Cs_1 = Cs_2 = 0$, and e'_3Q, e'_4Q are rows 3, 4 of Q, that is, e'_3 and e'_4. So $\tilde{C}^{-1} = Q$.

One-sided inverses

Definition 4.34. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. A **right inverse** of A is a matrix $K \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ with $AK = I_m$, and a **left inverse** of A is a matrix $L \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ with $LA = I_n$ (as for the factors of a full-rank factorization in Theorem 4.21(c)).

Theorem 4.35. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) A has a right inverse if and only if A has full row rank, $\operatorname{rank} A = m$.

(b) A has a left inverse if and only if A has full column rank, $\operatorname{rank} A = n$.

(c) A has both a right and a left inverse if and only if $m = n$ and A is invertible; then every right inverse and every left inverse of A equals A^{-1}.

Proof. (a)

- If $\operatorname{rank} A = m$, the system $AX = I_m$ is consistent (Corollary 4.28, last sentence): it has a solution $K \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$, a right inverse of A.
- Conversely, if $AK = I_m$, then $m = \operatorname{rank} I_m = \operatorname{rank}(AK) \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A \leqslant m$ (Theorems 4.13(d), 4.15(a) and 4.13(a)); so $\operatorname{rank} A = m$.

(b) $LA = I_n$ if and only if $A'L' = I_n$ (Theorem 1.9), so L is a left inverse of A if and only if L' is a right inverse of $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$. By (a), A' has a right inverse if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A' = n$, and $\operatorname{rank} A' = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.13(a)).

(c)

- Let $AK = I_m$ and $LA = I_n$. By (a) and (b), $\operatorname{rank} A = m$ and $\operatorname{rank} A = n$, so $m = n$, and A is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).
- Then $L = LI_m = L(AK) = (LA)K = I_nK = K$ (Theorem 1.3), so K is a two-sided inverse of A, that is, $K = L = A^{-1}$ (Definition 2.12). This holds for every right inverse K and every left inverse L.
- Conversely, if $m = n$ and A is invertible, A^{-1} is a right and a left inverse of A. □

For instance, if A has full column rank, then $A'A$ is invertible (Theorems 4.18(b) and 4.13(d)), and $(A'A)^{-1}A'$ is a left inverse of A. A one-sided inverse of a matrix that is not square is never unique: if $AK_0 = I_m$ and $m \neq n$, then $\operatorname{rank} A = m$ by (a), so $m < n$ (Theorem 4.13(a)) and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - m \geqslant 1$ (Theorem 4.12), and for a nonzero $s \in \mathcal{N}(A)$ every $K = K_0 + st'$ ($t \in \mathbb{R}^m$) satisfies $AK = AK_0 + (As)t' = I_m$; for left inverses apply this to A' (L is a left inverse of A if and only if L' is a right inverse of A', Theorem 1.9). The next example finds all right inverses of a 3×4 matrix.

Example 4.36. Find all right inverses of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

and show that A has no left inverse.

Solution.

- Row-reduce $[A \mid I_3]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_3]{R_1\leftarrow R_1-R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

- The RREF of A, the left part, has three pivots, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 3 = m$: A has right inverses (Theorem 4.35(a)). As $\operatorname{rank} A = 3 < 4 = n$, A has no left inverse (Theorem 4.35(b)).
- Column j of a right inverse solves $Ax = e_j$, and the same row operations take $[A \mid e_j]$ to the left part and column j of the right part of the last matrix (Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)). Let $K_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$ have this right part as its first three rows and a zero fourth row:

$$K_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad s = \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The unknown x_4 is free; with $x_4 = t_j$, Proposition 2.7(b) gives $x_1 = k_{1j} - 2t_j$, $x_2 = k_{2j} - t_j$, $x_3 = k_{3j}$, where k_{ij} are the entries of K_0. So the solutions are $x = \operatorname{col}_j(K_0) + t_j s$ $(t_j \in \mathbb{R})$.
- Hence the right inverses of A are the matrices $K = K_0 + st'$ with $t = (t_1, t_2, t_3)' \in \mathbb{R}^3$, as column j of st' is $t_j s$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(d)); there are infinitely many. Check: $As = (-2+2,\ -1+1,\ -2-1+3)' = 0$, and by rows, $\operatorname{row}_3(AK_0) = 1\,(2,1,-1) + 1\,(1,2,-1) + 3\,(-1,-1,1) = (0,0,1)$; likewise $\operatorname{row}_1(AK_0) = (1,0,0)$ and $\operatorname{row}_2(AK_0) = (0,1,0)$, so $AK_0 = I_3$.

Exercises

Exercise 4.1. Let $u_1 = (1,-2,1,-1)'$ and $u_2 = (0,1,-1,1)'$ in $\mathbb{R}^4$, and let $e_1, \dots, e_4$ be the unit vectors.

(a) Row-reduce $[u_1\ u_2\ e_1\ e_2\ e_3\ e_4] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 6}$, and find a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$ that consists of u_1, u_2 and two of the unit vectors.

(b) Do u_1, u_2, e_1, e_2 form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$?

Solution. (a) Call the matrix $A = [u_1\ u_2\ e_1\ e_2\ e_3\ e_4]$; its columns span $\mathbb{R}^4$, since they include $e_1, \dots, e_4$.

$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

The last matrix is an echelon form, with leading 1s in columns $1, 2, 3, 5$; these are the pivot columns of A (Remark 4.2). By Theorem 4.3(b), u_1, u_2, e_1, e_3 form a basis of the span of the columns, which is $\mathbb{R}^4$.

(b) No. Backward elimination finishes the RREF:

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

Column 4 of the RREF gives $e_2 = -u_1 - u_2 + e_1$ (Theorem 4.3(b)). So u_1, u_2, e_1, e_2 are linearly dependent and do not form a basis. Check: $-(1,-2,1,-1)' - (0,1,-1,1)' + (1,0,0,0)' = (0,1,0,0)' = e_2$.

Exercise 4.2. Let $a_1, \dots, a_9$ be the columns of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 5 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 3 & -1 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 3 & 5 & 5 & 1 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Which of the following form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$? (a) a_1, a_2; (b) a_1, a_4, a_6, a_8; (c) a_2, a_4, a_7; (d) a_3, a_5, a_9.

Solution. (a), (b) No: $\dim \mathbb{R}^3 = 3$, so two vectors cannot span $\mathbb{R}^3$, and four vectors of $\mathbb{R}^3$ are dependent (Theorem 4.5(c)).

(c) Yes. Three vectors of $\mathbb{R}^3$ form a basis if and only if they are independent (Theorem 4.5(d)). Row-reduce $[a_2\ a_4\ a_7]$:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{5} R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 3R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

All three columns are pivot columns, so a_2, a_4, a_7 are independent (Theorem 4.1).

(d) No: the three vectors are dependent, since

$$7a_3 - 2a_5 - a_9 = 7\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} - 2\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 5 \\ 3 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 7 - 2 - 5 \\ 7 - 4 - 3 \\ 14 - 10 - 4 \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

Exercise 4.3. Let $W = \mathcal{C}(A) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$ for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ -2 & 3 & 8 \\ 5 & 1 & -3 \\ -3 & -4 & -5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find a basis of W. (b) What is $\dim W$?

Solution. Let a_1, a_2, a_3 be the columns of A; they span W.

(a) a_1, a_2 are independent: otherwise, as $a_1 \neq 0$, $a_2 = ca_1$ for some c (Proposition 3.13(c)); the first entries give $c = 2$, and then the second entries give $3 = 2(-2)$ ✘. But

$$a_1 - 2a_2 + a_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 - 4 + 3 \\ -2 - 6 + 8 \\ 5 - 2 - 3 \\ -3 + 8 - 5 \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

so $a_3 = 2a_2 - a_1$, and every combination $x_1a_1 + x_2a_2 + x_3a_3 = (x_1 - x_3)a_1 + (x_2 + 2x_3)a_2$ is a combination of a_1, a_2. Thus a_1, a_2 span W and form a basis of W.

(b) $\dim W = 2$.

Exercise 4.4. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 4 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find $\operatorname{rank} A$ and bases of $\mathcal{C}(A)$, $\mathcal{R}(A)$, $\mathcal{N}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A')$, and write the non-pivot columns of A as combinations of the pivot columns.

(b) For which $b \in \mathbb{R}^4$ is $Ax = b$ consistent? Give all solutions for $b = (1, 2, 3, 3)'$.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[A \mid I_4]$ (Theorem 4.8):

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 & 4 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = [R \mid P]$$

Row 1 has entry 0 in column 3, so no backward arrow is needed. Thus $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$, with pivot columns $1, 3$ and free unknowns x_2, x_4, x_5.

- $\mathcal{C}(A)$: $a_1 = (1, 1, 2, 1)'$ and $a_3 = (0, 1, 1, 2)'$. Columns 2, 4, 5 of R give $a_2 = 2a_1$, $a_4 = a_1 - a_3$ and $a_5 = -a_1 + 2a_3$ (Theorem 4.3(b)). Check: $(1, 1, 2, 1)' - (0, 1, 1, 2)' = (1, 0, 1, -1)' = a_4$ and $-(1, 1, 2, 1)' + 2(0, 1, 1, 2)' = (-1, 1, 0, 3)' = a_5$.
- $\mathcal{R}(A)$: $\rho_1' = (1, 2, 0, 1, -1)$ and $\rho_2' = (0, 0, 1, -1, 2)$.
- $\mathcal{N}(A)$: $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 2x_2 + x_4 - x_5 = 0$, $x_3 - x_4 + 2x_5 = 0$. The special solutions

  $$s_1 = (-2, 1, 0, 0, 0)', \qquad s_2 = (-1, 0, 1, 1, 0)', \qquad s_3 = (1, 0, -2, 0, 1)'$$

  form a basis; $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 3 = 5 - 2$.
- $\mathcal{N}(A')$: rows 3, 4 of P give the basis $y_1 = (-1, -1, 1, 0)'$, $y_2 = (1, -2, 0, 1)'$; $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = 2 = 4 - 2$. Indeed $\operatorname{row}_3(A) = \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \operatorname{row}_2(A)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(A) = -\operatorname{row}_1(A) + 2\operatorname{row}_2(A)$.

(b) The row operations of (a) multiply on the left by the invertible matrix P of $[R \mid P]$ (Theorem 2.15(c)), so they take $[A \mid b]$ to $P[A \mid b] = [R \mid Pb]$ (Theorem 1.4(a)), where

$$Pb = (b_1,\ b_2 - b_1,\ b_3 - b_1 - b_2,\ b_4 + b_1 - 2b_2)'$$

By Proposition 2.7(a), $Ax = b$ is consistent if and only if $b_3 = b_1 + b_2$ and $b_4 = 2b_2 - b_1$, that is, $y_1'b = y_2'b = 0$. For $b = (1, 2, 3, 3)'$ both hold, and $Pb = (1, 1, 0, 0)'$. By Proposition 2.7(b), $x_1 = 1 - 2x_2 - x_4 + x_5$ and $x_3 = 1 + x_4 - 2x_5$, so the solutions are

$$x = (1, 0, 1, 0, 0)' + x_2 s_1 + x_4 s_2 + x_5 s_3 \qquad (x_2, x_4, x_5 \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $A(1, 0, 1, 0, 0)' = a_1 + a_3 = (1, 2, 3, 3)'$.

Exercise 4.5. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 & 5 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 & 5 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Row-reduce $[A \mid I_4]$. Find $\operatorname{rank} A$, bases of $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{R}(A)$, and the non-pivot columns of A as combinations of the pivot columns.

(b) Find bases of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A')$.

(c) Find an equation describing $\mathcal{C}(A)$. Which of $b = (1,3,0,1)'$ and $u = (1,1,1,1)'$ lie in $\mathcal{C}(A)$? For each one that does, find an x with Ax equal to it.

Solution. (a)

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 1 & 5 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 & 5 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 & 4 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 2 & -3 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & -1 & 4 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 2 & -3 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = [R \mid P]$$

So $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$, with pivot columns $1, 2, 4$ and free unknowns x_3, x_5.

- $\mathcal{C}(A)$: $a_1 = (1,2,1,0)'$, $a_2 = (1,3,2,1)'$ and $a_4 = (0,1,2,1)'$ form a basis. Columns 3 and 5 of R give $a_3 = 2a_1 - a_2$ and $a_5 = -a_1 + 2a_2 + a_4$ (Theorem 4.3(b)). Check: $2(1,2,1,0)' - (1,3,2,1)' = (1,1,0,-1)'$ and $-(1,2,1,0)' + 2(1,3,2,1)' + (0,1,2,1)' = (1,5,5,3)'$.
- $\mathcal{R}(A)$: $\rho_1' = (1,0,2,0,-1)$, $\rho_2' = (0,1,-1,0,2)$ and $\rho_3' = (0,0,0,1,1)$ form a basis.

(b)

- $\mathcal{N}(A)$: $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 2x_3 - x_5 = 0$, $x_2 - x_3 + 2x_5 = 0$, $x_4 + x_5 = 0$. The special solutions $s_1 = (-2,1,1,0,0)'$ ($x_3 = 1$, $x_5 = 0$) and $s_2 = (1,-2,0,-1,1)'$ ($x_3 = 0$, $x_5 = 1$) form a basis; $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 2 = 5 - 3$.
- $\mathcal{N}(A')$: row 4 of P gives the basis $y = (2,-1,0,1)'$ (Theorem 4.8(d)); $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = 1 = 4 - 3$. Indeed $y'A = 2\,\mathrm{row}_1(A) - \mathrm{row}_2(A) + \mathrm{row}_4(A) = 0$.

(c)

- By the paragraph after Theorem 4.29, $b \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ if and only if $\mathrm{row}_4(P)\, b = 0$, that is, $2b_1 - b_2 + b_4 = 0$.
- For $b = (1,3,0,1)'$: $2 - 3 + 1 = 0$, so $b \in \mathcal{C}(A)$. Then $Pb = (4-6,\ -3+6,\ 1-3,\ 2-3+1)' = (-2,3,-2,0)'$, and $Rx = Pb$ reads $x_1 + 2x_3 - x_5 = -2$, $x_2 - x_3 + 2x_5 = 3$, $x_4 + x_5 = -2$. The free unknowns $x_3 = x_5 = 0$ give the solution $x = (-2,3,0,-2,0)'$. Check: $Ax = -2a_1 + 3a_2 - 2a_4 = (-2+3,\ -4+9-2,\ -2+6-4,\ 3-2)' = (1,3,0,1)'$.
- For $u = (1,1,1,1)'$: $2 - 1 + 1 = 2 \neq 0$, so $u \notin \mathcal{C}(A)$.

Exercise 4.6. Find $\operatorname{rank} A$, bases of $\mathcal{C}(A)$, $\mathcal{R}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A)$, and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A')$ for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

and write the non-pivot column of A as a combination of the pivot columns.

Solution. Row-reduce A:

$$A \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = R$$

After the second arrow column 3 has no nonzero entry in rows $3, 4$, and the next pivot column, 4, has its nonzero entry in row 4; so rows 3 and 4 are interchanged. The echelon form after the third arrow has three nonzero rows: $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$, with pivot columns $1, 2, 4$.

- $\mathcal{C}(A)$: $a_1 = (1, 0, 1, 0)'$, $a_2 = (2, 1, 1, -2)'$ and $a_4 = (1, -1, 2, 3)'$ form a basis (Theorem 4.8(a)). Column 3 of R gives $a_3 = -a_1 + a_2$; check: $-(1, 0, 1, 0)' + (2, 1, 1, -2)' = (1, 1, 0, -2)' = a_3$.
- $\mathcal{R}(A)$: $\rho_1' = (1, 0, -1, 0)$, $\rho_2' = (0, 1, 1, 0)$ and $\rho_3' = (0, 0, 0, 1)$ form a basis (Theorem 4.8(b)).
- $\mathcal{N}(A)$: $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 - x_3 = 0$, $x_2 + x_3 = 0$, $x_4 = 0$; the special solution $s = (1, -1, 1, 0)'$ ($x_3 = 1$) is a basis (Theorem 4.8(c)), and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 1 = 4 - 3$.
- $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = 4 - \operatorname{rank} A = 1$ (Theorem 4.12).

Exercise 4.7. Let $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^4 : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0\}$, the centered vectors of $\mathbb{R}^4$, and let

$$v_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad v_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad v_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ -1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad w = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 3 \\ -4 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find $\dim W_0$.

(b) Show that v_1, v_2, v_3 form a basis of W_0, and find the coordinates of w in this basis.

(c) Does $(1, 2, 3, 4)'$ lie in $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\}$?

Solution. (a) $W_0 = \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{1}_4')$, where the 1×4 matrix $\mathbf{1}_4' = (1, 1, 1, 1)$ is in RREF with one nonzero row. So $\operatorname{rank} \mathbf{1}_4' = 1$ and $\dim W_0 = 4 - 1 = 3$ (Theorem 4.12).

(b) The entries of each of v_1, v_2, v_3, w add up to 0, so these vectors lie in W_0. Row-reduce $[v_1\ v_2\ v_3 \mid w]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & -4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -2 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 0 & 5 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

- Row operations act on each column separately (Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), so the left part shows the RREF of $[v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$: every column is a pivot column, and v_1, v_2, v_3 are independent (Theorem 4.1). Three independent vectors of the 3-dimensional space W_0 form a basis of it (Theorem 4.5(d)).
- The last column is not a pivot column, and the coordinates are read off: $c = (5, 2, -3)'$ (Proposition 2.7), that is, $w = 5v_1 + 2v_2 - 3v_3$. Check: $5(1,0,0,-1)' + 2(0,1,0,-1)' - 3(1,1,-1,-1)' = (5-3,\ 2-3,\ 3,\ -5-2+3)' = (2,-1,3,-4)'$.

(c) No. By (b), $\operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\} = W_0$, and the entries of $(1,2,3,4)'$ add up to $10 \neq 0$.

Exercise 4.8. Find the dimension of the space of solutions $(x, y, z)' \in \mathbb{R}^3$ of each system, and a basis of it: (a) $x - y + z = 0$; (b) $x + y + z = 0$, $x - y = 0$, $y + z = 0$.

Solution. The space of solutions is $\mathcal{N}(A)$ for the coefficient matrix A, of dimension $3 - \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.12).

(a) $A = (1, -1, 1)$ is a nonzero RREF with one row, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 1$ and the dimension is 2. The vectors $(1,1,0)'$ and $(0,1,1)'$ are solutions ($1 - 1 + 0 = 0$, $0 - 1 + 1 = 0$) and are independent ($c_1(1,1,0)' + c_2(0,1,1)' = (c_1, c_1 + c_2, c_2)' = 0$ forces $c_1 = c_2 = 0$); so they form a basis (Theorem 4.5(d)).

(b) Row-reduce the coefficient matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

This echelon form has three nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$ (Definition 4.11): the space of solutions has dimension $3 - 3 = 0$, so it is $\{0\}$ (Theorem 4.4), with the empty basis.

Exercise 4.9. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$ let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 4 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & t \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find $\operatorname{rank} A$ for every t.

(b) For the value of t with $\operatorname{rank} A < 4$, find a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$, write the non-pivot column as a combination of the pivot columns, and find a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$.

Solution. (a) Forward elimination, keeping t as a letter:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 4 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & t \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & t+1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The last row is $(0,0,0,t+1)$. If $t \neq -1$, scaling row 4 by $1/(t+1)$ gives an echelon form with four nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 4$ (Remark 4.2 and Definition 4.11). If $t = -1$, the last row is zero, and the last matrix is an echelon form with three nonzero rows: $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$.

(b) Let $t = -1$. Backward elimination finishes the RREF:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = R$$

- The pivot columns are $1, 2, 3$: $a_1 = (1,2,1,1)'$, $a_2 = (2,5,3,1)'$ and $a_3 = (1,1,1,2)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$. Column 4 of R gives $a_4 = -3a_1 + 2a_2$ (Theorem 4.3(b)); check: $-3(1,2,1,1)' + 2(2,5,3,1)' = (1,4,3,-1)'$, the last column of A for $t = -1$.
- $Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 - 3x_4 = 0$, $x_2 + 2x_4 = 0$, $x_3 = 0$. The special solution $s = (3,-2,0,1)'$ ($x_4 = 1$) is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$, and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 1 = 4 - 3$.

Exercise 4.10. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$ let

$$A_t = \begin{pmatrix} t & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & t & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & t & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & t \end{pmatrix}$$

Find $\operatorname{rank} A_t$ for every t, and a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A_t)$ whenever A_t is not invertible.

Solution. Interchange the rows so that the first row is $(1,1,1,t)$, and eliminate, keeping t as a letter:

$$A_t \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3]{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & t \\ 1 & 1 & t & 1 \\ 1 & t & 1 & 1 \\ t & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - tR_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 1-t & 1-t & 1-t^2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 1-t & 0 & -(t-1)(t+2) \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -(t-1)(t+3) \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & t \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -(t-1)(t+3) \end{pmatrix} = E_t$$

since $(1-t^2) + (1-t) = -(t-1)(t+2)$ and $-(t-1)(t+2) + (1-t) = -(t-1)(t+3)$. The pivot columns can be read off before the leading entries are scaled to 1 (Remark 4.2).

- $t \neq 1$, $t \neq -3$: all four diagonal entries of E_t are nonzero, so $\operatorname{rank} A_t = 4$ (Definition 4.11) and A_t is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).
- $t = 1$: rows 2, 3, 4 of E_1 are zero, so $\operatorname{rank} A_1 = 1$. Here $\mathcal{N}(A_1)$ is given by $x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0$, with special solutions $(-1,1,0,0)'$, $(-1,0,1,0)'$, $(-1,0,0,1)'$ as a basis (Theorem 4.8(c)); $\dim \mathcal{N}(A_1) = 3$.
- $t = -3$: E_{-3} has nonzero rows $(1,1,1,-3)$, $(0,-4,0,4)$, $(0,0,-4,4)$ and a zero row, so $\operatorname{rank} A_{-3} = 3$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A_{-3}) = 1$ (Theorem 4.12). Every row of A_t has sum $t+3$, so $A_{-3}\mathbf{1}_4 = 0$; the nonzero vector $\mathbf{1}_4 = (1,1,1,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A_{-3})$ (Proposition 3.13(a), Theorem 4.5(d)).

Exercise 4.11. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 3 & 7 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ t \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

(a) For which t is $Ax = b$ consistent? Compare $\operatorname{rank} A$ and $\operatorname{rank}[A \mid b]$.

(b) For this t, find all solutions. Is the solution unique?

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[A \mid b]$, keeping t as a letter:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 5 & 3 & t \\ 1 & 3 & 2 & 2 \\ 3 & 7 & 4 & 4 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & t-2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & t-2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3-t \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3-t \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & t-2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3-t \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

- The left part of the last matrix is an echelon form with two nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$ (Remark 4.2).
- If $t \neq 3$, row 3 reads $(0\ 0\ 0 \mid 3-t)$ with $3 - t \neq 0$: the equation $0 = 3 - t$ has no solution (Theorem 2.26). Scaling row 3 by $1/(3-t)$ gives an echelon form of $[A \mid b]$ with three nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank}[A \mid b] = 3 > \operatorname{rank} A$.
- If $t = 3$, rows 3 and 4 are zero: $\operatorname{rank}[A \mid b] = 2 = \operatorname{rank} A$, and the system is consistent (Corollary 4.14(a)).

(b) Let $t = 3$. Backward elimination:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

With the free unknown $x_3 = c$: $x_1 = -1 + c$, $x_2 = 1 - c$, that is,

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + c \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (c \in \mathbb{R})$$

The solution is not unique, since $\operatorname{rank} A = 2 < 3$ (Corollary 4.14(b)); $(1, -1, 1)'$, the special solution of the left part, spans $\mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)). Check: $A(-1, 1, 0)' = -a_1 + a_2 = (1, 3, 2, 4)'$ and $A(1, -1, 1)' = a_1 - a_2 + a_3 = (1 - 2 + 1,\ 2 - 5 + 3,\ 1 - 3 + 2,\ 3 - 7 + 4)' = 0$.

Exercise 4.12. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find $\operatorname{rank} A$ and $\operatorname{rank} B$.

(b) Compute AB, BA and their ranks, and compare them with the bounds of Theorems 4.15(a) and 4.19.

(c) Compute $A + B$ and its rank, and compare it with the bound of Corollary 4.17.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce A and B. For A, Step 2 interchanges rows 3 and 4 after the second arrow; for B, Step 2 interchanges rows 1 and 3 at the first arrow and rows 3 and 4 at the fourth:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank} B = 3$.

(b) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_i(AB) = \operatorname{row}_i(A)B$ and $\operatorname{row}_i(BA) = \operatorname{row}_i(B)A$: $\operatorname{row}_1(AB) = \operatorname{row}_1(B) + \operatorname{row}_2(B) = (0,0,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(AB) = \operatorname{row}_2(B) + \operatorname{row}_3(B) + \operatorname{row}_4(B) = (1,1,0,-1)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(AB) = \operatorname{row}_1(B) + 2\operatorname{row}_2(B) + \operatorname{row}_3(B) + \operatorname{row}_4(B) = (1,1,0,-1)$, $\operatorname{row}_4(AB) = \operatorname{row}_1(B) + \operatorname{row}_2(B) + \operatorname{row}_3(B) + \operatorname{row}_4(B) = (1,2,0,0)$; and $\operatorname{row}_1(BA) = \operatorname{row}_2(A) + \operatorname{row}_4(A)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(BA) = -\operatorname{row}_2(A) - \operatorname{row}_4(A)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(BA) = \operatorname{row}_1(A) + \operatorname{row}_2(A) + \operatorname{row}_3(A) - \operatorname{row}_4(A)$, $\operatorname{row}_4(BA) = \operatorname{row}_2(A) - \operatorname{row}_3(A) + \operatorname{row}_4(A)$:

$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BA = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The rows of AB span $\operatorname{span}\{(1,1,0,-1),(1,2,0,0)\}$, and these two rows are independent (neither is a multiple of the other, Proposition 3.13(c)); so $\dim \mathcal{R}(AB) = 2 = \operatorname{rank}(AB)$ (Definition 4.11). For

BA:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $\operatorname{rank}(BA) = 3$.

- Theorem 4.15(a): $\operatorname{rank}(AB) = 2 < \min\{3, 3\}$ and $\operatorname{rank}(BA) = 3 = \min\{3, 3\}$.
- Theorem 4.19: both ranks are at least $3 + 3 - 4 = 2$; AB attains the bound. The products AB and BA have different ranks.

(c) $A + B$ is the first matrix below; row-reduce it (Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 3):

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank}(A + B) = 4 < 3 + 3$ (Corollary 4.17).

Exercise 4.13. Let $N \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ be the matrix of Exercise 1.2: its entries are $n_{12} = n_{23} = n_{34} = 1$ and 0 elsewhere, so that $Ne_1 = 0$ and $Ne_j = e_{j-1}$ $(j = 2, 3, 4)$.

(a) Compute N^2, N^3, N^4, and $\operatorname{rank} N^k$ for $k = 0, \ldots, 4$.

(b) Show that Sylvester's inequality for the product $N^k \cdot N$ is an equality for $k = 1, 2, 3$.

(c) Compute $N'N$, NN' and $\operatorname{rank}(N + N')$.

Solution. (a) $\operatorname{col}_j(N^k) = N^k e_j$ (Theorem 1.4(b)), and applying N repeatedly gives $N^k e_j = e_{j-k}$ for $j > k$ and $N^k e_j = 0$ for $j \leqslant k$. So

$$N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^4 = 0$$

The nonzero columns of N^k are $e_1, \ldots, e_{4-k}$. They are independent, as part of the standard basis (Definition 3.17 and Proposition 3.13(b)), and they span $\mathcal{C}(N^k)$, since the zero columns add nothing to the span (Theorem 3.10(c)); so $\operatorname{rank} N^k = 4 - k$ $(k = 0, \ldots, 4)$.

(b) Theorem 4.19 gives $\operatorname{rank}(N^k \cdot N) \geqslant \operatorname{rank} N^k + \operatorname{rank} N - 4 = (4 - k) + 3 - 4 = 3 - k$, and $N^k \cdot N = N^{k+1}$ has rank $4 - (k + 1) = 3 - k$ by (a).

(c) N' has entries 1 in positions $(2,1)$, $(3,2)$, $(4,3)$ and 0 elsewhere, so $N'e_j = e_{j+1}$ $(j = 1,2,3)$ and $N'e_4 = 0$. Hence $N'Ne_1 = 0$, $N'Ne_j = N'e_{j-1} = e_j$ $(j \geqslant 2)$, and $NN'e_j = Ne_{j+1} = e_j$ $(j \leqslant 3)$, $NN'e_4 = 0$:

$$N'N = \operatorname{diag}(0,1,1,1), \qquad NN' = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,1,0)$$

both of rank $3 = \operatorname{rank} N$ (Theorem 4.18(b)). For $N + N'$:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

an echelon form with four nonzero rows; so $\operatorname{rank}(N + N') = 4$, below the bound $\operatorname{rank} N + \operatorname{rank} N' = 6$ of Corollary 4.17.

Exercise 4.14. Four variables are measured on four units: $x_1 = (1,1,2,0)'$, $x_2 = 2x_1$ (the first variable in other units), $x_3 = (1,2,3,1)'$ and $x_4 = x_1 - x_3$. Let $A = [x_1\ x_2\ x_3\ x_4] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$.

(a) Row-reduce A and find $\operatorname{rank} A$.

(b) Find the full-rank factorization $A = BC$ of Theorem 4.21(a), and check it.

(c) Write A as a sum of $\operatorname{rank} A$ matrices of rank 1.

Solution. (a)

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$, with pivot columns 1 and 3.

(b) B consists of the pivot columns of A, and C of the nonzero rows of the RREF:

$$B = [x_1\ x_3] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check by columns (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)): $B\operatorname{col}_1(C) = x_1$, $B\operatorname{col}_2(C) = 2x_1 = x_2$, $B\operatorname{col}_3(C) = x_3$, $B\operatorname{col}_4(C) = x_1 - x_3 = x_4$. So $BC = A$, with $\operatorname{rank} B = \operatorname{rank} C = 2$.

(c) By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $A = x_1 \operatorname{row}_1(C) + x_3 \operatorname{row}_2(C)$:

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & 4 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Each term is nonzero and its rows are multiples of one row, so each has rank 1. Check: the sum has rows $(1,2,1,0)$, $(1,2,2,-1)$, $(2,4,3,-1)$, $(0,0,1,-1)$, the rows of A.

Exercise 4.15. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the RREF R and rank A, and the full-rank factorization $A = BC$ of Theorem 4.21(a).

(b) Compute $B'B$, CC' and the matrices L, K of Theorem 4.21(c), and verify $LB = I_2$ and $CK = I_2$.

(c) Find a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce A:

$$A \xrightarrow[R_5 \leftarrow R_5 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2,\ R_5 \leftarrow R_5 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = R$$

So $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$, with pivot columns $1, 2$, and

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Columns 3, 4 of R say $a_3 = a_1 - a_2$ and $a_4 = a_1 + a_2$; check: $a_1 - a_2 = (0, -1, 2, -1, 1)'$ and $a_1 + a_2 = (2, -1, 0, 1, 1)'$.

(b) With $a_1 = (1, -1, 1, 0, 1)'$ and $a_2 = (1, 0, -1, 1, 0)'$, the entries of $B'B$ are the products $a_j' a_l$ (Theorem 1.4(d)):

$$B'B = \begin{pmatrix} a_1'a_1 & a_1'a_2 \\ a_2'a_1 & a_2'a_2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CC' = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

($a_1'a_2 = 1+0-1+0+0 = 0$ and $\operatorname{row}_1(C)\operatorname{row}_2(C)' = 0+0-1+1 = 0$). Hence, as $(B'B)^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(\frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{3})$ and $(CC')^{-1} = \frac{1}{3} I_2$ (Definition 2.12),

$$L = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{4} & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{3} \end{pmatrix} B' = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{1}{4} & -\frac{1}{4} & \frac{1}{4} & 0 & \frac{1}{4} \\ \frac{1}{3} & 0 & -\frac{1}{3} & \frac{1}{3} & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad K = \frac{1}{3} C' = \frac{1}{3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Then $LB = \operatorname{diag}(\frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{3}) B'B = \operatorname{diag}(\frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{3}) \operatorname{diag}(4, 3) = I_2$ and $CK = \frac{1}{3} CC' = I_2$.

(c) $\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{N}(C)$ (Theorem 4.21(b)); $Cx = 0$ reads $x_1 = -x_3 - x_4$, $x_2 = x_3 - x_4$, and the special solutions $(-1, 1, 1, 0)'$ and $(-1, -1, 0, 1)'$ form a basis (Theorem 4.8(c)). They are the relations $a_3 = a_1 - a_2$ and $a_4 = a_1 + a_2$.

Exercise 4.16. For $A = BC$ of Exercise 4.15:

(a) compute $A'A$ from $A'A = C'(B'B)C$;

(b) row-reduce $A'A$, and check that $\operatorname{rank}(A'A) = \operatorname{rank} A$ and $\mathcal{N}(A'A) = \mathcal{N}(A)$;

(c) find $\operatorname{rank}(AA')$ without computing the 5×5 matrix AA'.

Solution. (a) $A'A = C'B'BC$ (Theorem 1.9), with $B'B = \operatorname{diag}(4, 3)$ (Exercise 4.15(b)). The rows of C are γ_1' and γ_2', with $\gamma_1 = (1, 0, 1, 1)'$ and $\gamma_2 = (0, 1, -1, 1)'$ in $\mathbb{R}^4$. The columns of $C' \operatorname{diag}(4, 3)$ are $4\gamma_1$ and $3\gamma_2$ (Proposition 1.13(a)), so the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) gives

$$A'A = 4\gamma_1\gamma_1' + 3\gamma_2\gamma_2' = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 4 & 0 & 4 & 4 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 3 \\ 0 & -3 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 3 \\ 4 & -3 & 7 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) Row-reduce $A'A$:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 3 \\ 4 & -3 & 7 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 7 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{3}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 4 & -3 & 7 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 7 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 4R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 4R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -3 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The RREF of $A'A$ is the matrix R of Exercise 4.15 without its last row. So $\operatorname{rank}(A'A) = 2 = \operatorname{rank} A$, and $A'Ax = 0$ and $Ax = 0$ both reduce to $Cx = 0$: $\mathcal{N}(A'A) = \mathcal{N}(A)$, as Theorem 4.18(a),(b) asserts.

(c) $\operatorname{rank}(AA') = \operatorname{rank} A = 2$ (Theorem 4.18(b)).

Exercise 4.17. In $\mathbb{R}^4$ let $U = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, u_3\}$ and $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, w_2\}$, where

$$u_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad u_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad u_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 3 \\ -1 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad w_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad w_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find $\dim U$, $\dim W$ and $\dim(U + W)$ by one row reduction.

(b) Find $\dim(U \cap W)$ by Theorem 4.23, and a basis of $U \cap W$.

Solution. (a) $U + W = \operatorname{span}\{u_1, u_2, u_3, w_1, w_2\}$ (Theorem 3.31(c)). Row-reduce $M = [u_1\ u_2\ u_3\ w_1\ w_2]$:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The last matrix is the RREF of M, with pivot columns $1, 2, 4$.

- $\dim U = 2$: row operations act on each column separately (Theorems 2.15(c) and 1.4(a)), so the first three columns of the last matrix form the RREF of $[u_1\ u_2\ u_3]$, with pivot columns $1, 2$. So u_1, u_2 form a basis of U, and column 3 gives $u_3 = u_1 + 2u_2$ (Theorem 4.3(b)).
- $\dim W = 2$: w_1 and w_2 are not multiples of each other (the first entry of w_1 is 0, that of w_2 is not, and $w_1 \neq 0$), so they are independent (Proposition 3.13(c)).
- $\dim(U + W) = 3$, with the basis u_1, u_2, w_1 (Theorem 4.3(b)).

(b)

- $\dim(U \cap W) = \dim U + \dim W - \dim(U + W) = 2 + 2 - 3 = 1$ (Theorem 4.23).
- Column 5 gives $w_2 = u_1 + u_2 + 2w_1$, so $v = w_2 - 2w_1 = u_1 + u_2 = (1, 2, -1, 2)'$ lies in W and in U. This nonzero vector is a basis of the one-dimensional space $U \cap W$ (Theorem 4.5(d)). Check: $w_2 - 2w_1 = (1,\ 2,\ 1-2,\ 0+2)' = (1, 2, -1, 2)'$ and $u_1 + u_2 = (1, 2, -1, 2)'$.

Exercise 4.18. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Find invertible matrices P and Q with $PAQ = N_r$, where $r = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.31), by Remark 4.32, and check the product.

Solution. Row-reduce $[A \mid I_4]$; after the first arrow column 2 has no nonzero entry in rows 2–4, so the next pivot column is 3:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 3 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$, with pivot columns $1, 3, 4$, the free column 2, and

$$R = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$Rx = 0$ reads $x_1 + 2x_2 = 0$, $x_3 = 0$, $x_4 = 0$, and the special solution is $s = (-2, 1, 0, 0)'$. By Remark 4.32, P and

$$Q = [e_1\ e_3\ e_4\ s] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

are invertible and $PAQ = N_3$. Check: the columns of AQ are a_1, a_3, a_4 and $As = -2a_1 + a_2 = 0$, so

$$PAQ = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = N_3$$

Problems

Problem 4.1. Show that, for all $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) \geqslant |\operatorname{rank} A - \operatorname{rank} B|$.

Solution.

- $\operatorname{rank}(-B) = \operatorname{rank} B$: $-B = (-I_m)BI_n$ (Theorem 1.3), and $-I_m$ is invertible, as $(-I_m)(-I_m) = I_m$ (Definition 2.12); so Theorem 4.15(d) applies. Likewise $\operatorname{rank}(-A) = \operatorname{rank} A$.
- By Corollary 4.17, applied to $A+B$ and $-B$,

  $$\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank}\Big((A+B)+(-B)\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(A+B) + \operatorname{rank}(-B) = \operatorname{rank}(A+B) + \operatorname{rank} B$$

  so $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A - \operatorname{rank} B$.
- Similarly, $\operatorname{rank} B = \operatorname{rank}\Big((A+B)+(-A)\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(A+B) + \operatorname{rank} A$, so $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) \geqslant \operatorname{rank} B - \operatorname{rank} A = -(\operatorname{rank} A - \operatorname{rank} B)$.

Together, $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) \geqslant |\operatorname{rank} A - \operatorname{rank} B|$.

Problem 4.2. Show that $\operatorname{rank}(A'AB) = \operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank}(ABB')$ for all $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$.

Solution. Apply Theorem 4.18(b) to AB, with $(AB)' = B'A'$ (Theorem 1.9), and Theorem 4.15(a) twice:

$$\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank}\Big((AB)'AB\Big) = \operatorname{rank}\Big(B'(A'AB)\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(A'AB) = \operatorname{rank}\Big(A'(AB)\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(AB)$$
$$\operatorname{rank}(AB) = \operatorname{rank}\Big(AB(AB)'\Big) = \operatorname{rank}\Big((ABB')A'\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(ABB') = \operatorname{rank}\Big((AB)B'\Big) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(AB)$$

So equality holds throughout.

Problem 4.3. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $A^2 = I$. Show that $\operatorname{rank}(I-A) + \operatorname{rank}(I+A) = n$.

Solution.

- $2I = (I-A) + (I+A)$, and $2I = \operatorname{diag}(2, \ldots, 2)$ is invertible (Definition 2.12). By Theorem 4.13(d) and Corollary 4.17, $n = \operatorname{rank}(2I) \leqslant \operatorname{rank}(I-A) + \operatorname{rank}(I+A)$.
- $(I-A)(I+A) = I + A - A - A^2 = I - A^2 = 0$ (Theorem 1.3), so $\operatorname{rank}(I-A) + \operatorname{rank}(I+A) \leqslant n$ by Theorem 4.19.

Together, $\operatorname{rank}(I-A) + \operatorname{rank}(I+A) = n$.

Problem 4.4. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ have rank r. Show that A is the sum of r matrices of rank 1.

Solution. If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$, the empty sum. Let $r \geqslant 1$, and let $A = BC$ be the full-rank factorization of Theorem 4.21(a), where $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times r}$ has columns $b_1, \dots, b_r$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$. By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)),

$$A = \sum_{j=1}^{r} A_j, \qquad A_j = b_j \operatorname{row}_j(C) \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$$

- The columns of B are independent, and so are the rows of C (Theorem 4.13(b),(c)); hence every b_j and every $\operatorname{row}_j(C)$ is nonzero, since a list containing 0 is dependent (Proposition 3.13(a)).
- If the lth entry c_{jl} of $\operatorname{row}_j(C)$ is nonzero, then $\operatorname{col}_l(A_j) = c_{jl}b_j \neq 0$; so $A_j \neq 0$, and $\operatorname{rank} A_j \geqslant 1$.
- $\operatorname{rank} A_j \leqslant \operatorname{rank} b_j \leqslant 1$ (Theorems 4.15(a) and 4.13(a)), as b_j has one column.

So each A_j has rank 1.

Problem 4.5. Let $A, X, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Show the following generalization of Sylvester's inequality (Theorem 4.19) for square matrices:

$$\operatorname{rank}(AXB) \geqslant \operatorname{rank}(AX) + \operatorname{rank}(XB) - \operatorname{rank} X$$

Solution. If $X = 0$, then AX, XB and AXB are zero, and both sides are 0. Let $r = \operatorname{rank} X \geqslant 1$.

- Let $X = UV$ be a full-rank factorization (Theorem 4.21(a)), with $U \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$ of full column rank and $V \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of full row rank. Then $AXB = (AU)(VB)$, $AX = (AU)V$ and $XB = U(VB)$ (Theorem 1.3).
- As V has full row rank, $\operatorname{rank}(AX) = \operatorname{rank}\big((AU)V\big) = \operatorname{rank}(AU)$ (Theorem 4.15(c)); as U has full column rank, $\operatorname{rank}(XB) = \operatorname{rank}\big(U(VB)\big) = \operatorname{rank}(VB)$ (Theorem 4.15(b)).
- Sylvester's inequality (Theorem 4.19) for $AU \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$ and $VB \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$, whose product has the inner size r, gives

  $$\operatorname{rank}(AXB) = \operatorname{rank}\big((AU)(VB)\big) \geqslant \operatorname{rank}(AU) + \operatorname{rank}(VB) - r = \operatorname{rank}(AX) + \operatorname{rank}(XB) - \operatorname{rank} X$$

Problem 4.6. Let $x_1, \dots, x_p$ and $y_1, \dots, y_q$ be linearly independent lists of vectors of $\mathbb{R}^n$, where $p < q \leqslant n$. Show that there is an $i \in \{1, \dots, q\}$ such that $x_1, \dots, x_p, y_i$ are linearly independent.

Solution. Let $A = [x_1 \ \cdots \ x_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $B = [y_1 \ \cdots \ y_q] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$, and suppose that $x_1, \dots, x_p, y_i$ are dependent for every i.

- Then each y_i lies in $\operatorname{span}\{x_1, \dots, x_p\} = \mathcal{C}(A)$: otherwise $x_1, \dots, x_p, y_i$ would be independent, by Proposition 3.14(b), as $x_1, \dots, x_p$ are independent.
- By Proposition 4.26(a), $B = AC$ for some $C \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$.
- The columns of A and of B are independent, so $\operatorname{rank} A = p$ and $\operatorname{rank} B = q$ (Theorem 4.13(b)). By Theorem 4.15(a),

  $$q = \operatorname{rank} B = \operatorname{rank}(AC) \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A = p < q \ \text{✘}$$

Problem 4.7. (a) Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$. Show that if $\operatorname{rank}(AC) = \operatorname{rank} C$, then $\mathcal{R}(ACB) = \mathcal{R}(CB)$ and $\operatorname{rank}(ACB) = \operatorname{rank}(CB)$; and that if $\operatorname{rank}(CB) = \operatorname{rank} C$, then $\mathcal{C}(ACB) = \mathcal{C}(AC)$ and $\operatorname{rank}(ACB) = \operatorname{rank}(AC)$.

(b) Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. Show that (1) if $C \in \mathbb{R}^{s\times q}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times m}$ satisfy $\operatorname{rank}(CD) = \operatorname{rank} D$, then $CDA = CDB$ implies $DA = DB$; and (2) if $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ satisfy $\operatorname{rank}(CD) = \operatorname{rank} C$, then $ACD = BCD$ implies $AC = BC$.

Solution. (a)

- $\mathcal{R}(ACB) = \mathcal{R}(A(CB)) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(CB)$ and $\mathcal{C}(ACB) = \mathcal{C}((AC)B) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(AC)$ (Proposition 4.26(b),(a)).
- Let $\operatorname{rank}(AC) = \operatorname{rank} C$. Then $\mathcal{R}(AC) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(C)$ (Proposition 4.26(b)), and both have dimension $\operatorname{rank} C$ (Definition 4.11), so $\mathcal{R}(AC) = \mathcal{R}(C)$ (Theorem 4.5(a), for row spaces). Hence $C = LAC$ for some L (Proposition 4.26(b)), and $\mathcal{R}(CB) = \mathcal{R}(L(ACB)) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(ACB)$. With the first item, $\mathcal{R}(ACB) = \mathcal{R}(CB)$, and the two ranks, the dimensions of these spaces, are equal.
- Let $\operatorname{rank}(CB) = \operatorname{rank} C$. Then $\mathcal{C}(CB) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(C)$ (Theorem 4.15(a)), both of dimension $\operatorname{rank} C$, so $\mathcal{C}(CB) = \mathcal{C}(C)$ (Theorem 4.5(a)). Hence $C = CBG$ for some G (Proposition 4.26(a)), and $\mathcal{C}(AC) = \mathcal{C}((ACB)G) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(ACB)$. With the first item, $\mathcal{C}(ACB) = \mathcal{C}(AC)$, and $\operatorname{rank}(ACB) = \operatorname{rank}(AC)$.

(b) Let $F = A - B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

- For (1): by (a), applied to C, D, F in place of A, C, B (so that the hypothesis is $\operatorname{rank}(CD) = \operatorname{rank} D$), $\operatorname{rank}(DF) = \operatorname{rank}(CDF) = \operatorname{rank}(CDA - CDB) = \operatorname{rank} 0 = 0$. So $DF = 0$ (Theorem 4.8), that is, $DA = DB$.
- For (2): by (a), applied to F, C, D in place of A, C, B (so that the hypothesis is $\operatorname{rank}(CD) = \operatorname{rank} C$), $\operatorname{rank}(FC) = \operatorname{rank}(FCD) = \operatorname{rank}(ACD - BCD) = 0$. So $FC = 0$, that is, $AC = BC$.

Problem 4.8. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. Show that $B = PAQ$ for some invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ and $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank} B$.

Solution. If P and Q are invertible, then $\operatorname{rank}(PAQ) = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.15(d)). Conversely, let $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank} B = r$. By Theorem 4.31 there are invertible $P_1, P_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ and $Q_1, Q_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $P_1AQ_1 = N_r = P_2BQ_2$. Hence

$$B = P_2^{-1}P_1AQ_1Q_2^{-1} = PAQ, \qquad P = P_2^{-1}P_1, \quad Q = Q_1Q_2^{-1}$$

and P, Q are invertible (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)).

Problem 4.9. Let $x_1, \dots, x_n, y_1, \dots, y_n \in \mathbb{R}$, and let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the entries $a_{ij} = x_i + y_j$. Show that $\operatorname{rank} A \leqslant 2$.

Solution. Let

$$X = \begin{pmatrix} x_1 & 1 \\ \vdots & \vdots \\ x_n & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times 2}, \qquad Y = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \cdots & 1 \\ y_1 & \cdots & y_n \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times n}$$

By Theorem 1.4(d), $(XY)_{ij} = \operatorname{row}_i(X)\operatorname{col}_j(Y) = x_i \cdot 1 + 1 \cdot y_j = a_{ij}$, so $A = XY$. Hence, by Theorems 4.15(a) and 4.13(a), $\operatorname{rank} A \leqslant \operatorname{rank} X \leqslant \min\{n, 2\} \leqslant 2$.

Problem 4.10. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, where n is odd, satisfy $AB = 0$. Show that at least one of the matrices $A + A'$ and $B + B'$ is not invertible.

Solution. Write $n = 2m + 1$.

- By Sylvester's inequality (Theorem 4.19, the case $AB = 0$), $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B \leqslant n = 2m + 1$. So $\operatorname{rank} A \leqslant m$ or $\operatorname{rank} B \leqslant m$: otherwise $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B \geqslant 2(m + 1) > 2m + 1$.
- If $\operatorname{rank} A \leqslant m$, then, as $\operatorname{rank} A' = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.13(a)), Corollary 4.17 gives

$$\operatorname{rank}(A + A') \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} A' = 2 \operatorname{rank} A \leqslant 2m < n$$

  so $A + A'$ is not invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).
- If $\operatorname{rank} B \leqslant m$, the same argument, with B in place of A, shows that $B + B'$ is not invertible.

Problem 4.11. Let $A_1, A_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) Show that $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = \operatorname{rank} A_1 + \operatorname{rank} A_2$ if and only if $\mathcal{R}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{R}(A_2) = \{0\}$ and $\mathcal{C}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{C}(A_2) = \{0\}$.

(b) Show that if $A_2'A_1 = 0$ and $A_1A_2' = 0$, then $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = \operatorname{rank} A_1 + \operatorname{rank} A_2$.

Solution. (a) Let $r_i = \operatorname{rank} A_i$ $(i = 1, 2)$.

- If $r_1 = 0$, then $A_1 = 0$ (Theorem 4.8), so $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = r_2 = r_1 + r_2$, and $\mathcal{R}(A_1) = \{0\}$ and $\mathcal{C}(A_1) = \{0\}$ meet $\mathcal{R}(A_2)$ and $\mathcal{C}(A_2)$ only in 0: both sides of the equivalence hold. The case $r_2 = 0$ is the same. Let $r_1, r_2 \geqslant 1$.
- Let $A_i = B_iC_i$ be full-rank factorizations (Theorem 4.21(a)), with $B_i \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times r_i}$ of full column rank and $C_i \in \mathbb{R}^{r_i\times n}$ of full row rank. Then $\mathcal{C}(B_i) = \mathcal{C}(A_i)$ (Theorem 4.21(b)). Also $\mathcal{R}(A_i) \subseteq \mathcal{R}(C_i)$, as $A_i = B_iC_i$ (Proposition 4.26(b)), and both spaces have dimension r_i (Definition 4.11); so $\mathcal{R}(C_i) = \mathcal{R}(A_i)$ (Theorem 4.5(a), for row spaces by the paragraph after it).
- Let $B = [B_1\ B_2] \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times(r_1+r_2)}$ and $C = \binom{C_1}{C_2} \in \mathbb{R}^{(r_1+r_2)\times n}$, as in Theorem 4.16(a),(b). The first r_1 columns of B and rows of C are those of B_1 and C_1, and the last r_2 are those of B_2 and C_2. So, by the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), applied to BC, B_1C_1 and B_2C_2,

$$BC = \sum_{j=1}^{r_1} \operatorname{col}_j(B_1) \operatorname{row}_j(C_1) + \sum_{j=1}^{r_2} \operatorname{col}_j(B_2) \operatorname{row}_j(C_2) = B_1C_1 + B_2C_2 = A_1 + A_2$$

- By Theorem 4.27(a),(d) and the second item,

$$\operatorname{rank} B = r_1 + r_2 - \dim\Big(\mathcal{C}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{C}(A_2)\Big), \qquad \operatorname{rank} C = r_1 + r_2 - \dim\Big(\mathcal{R}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{R}(A_2)\Big)$$

- If both intersections are $\{0\}$, then $\operatorname{rank} B = r_1 + r_2$, so B has full column rank, and by Theorem 4.15(b), $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = \operatorname{rank}(BC) = \operatorname{rank} C = r_1 + r_2$.
- Conversely, let $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = r_1 + r_2$. By Theorem 4.15(a), $r_1 + r_2 = \operatorname{rank}(BC) \leqslant \min\{\operatorname{rank} B, \operatorname{rank} C\}$, so by the fourth item both intersections have dimension 0; a subspace of dimension 0 is $\{0\}$ (Theorem 4.4).

(b)

- $\mathcal{C}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{C}(A_2) = \{0\}$: if $z = A_1u = A_2w$, then $z'z = (A_2w)'(A_1u) = w'(A_2'A_1)u = 0$, so $z = 0$, as $z'z = \sum_i z_i^2$ (Theorem 1.9).
- $\mathcal{R}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{R}(A_2) = \{0\}$: if $h = y_1'A_1 = y_2'A_2$ with $y_1, y_2 \in \mathbb{R}^m$, then $hh' = (y_1'A_1)(y_2'A_2)' = y_1'(A_1A_2')y_2 = 0$, so $h = 0$, as hh' is the sum of the squares of the entries of h (Theorem 1.9, for the column h').

- By (a), $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = \operatorname{rank} A_1 + \operatorname{rank} A_2$.

Neither condition in (a) suffices alone, and the hypothesis $A_1 A_2' = 0$ cannot be omitted in (b). For $A_1 = E_{11} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $A_2 = E_{21} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $\mathcal{C}(A_1) \cap \mathcal{C}(A_2) = \operatorname{span}\{e_1\} \cap \operatorname{span}\{e_2\} = \{0\}$ and, as $A_2' = E_{12}$, $A_2' A_1 = E_{12} E_{11} = \delta_{21} E_{11} = 0$ (Proposition 1.18(b),(c)), but $\mathcal{R}(A_1) = \mathcal{R}(A_2) = \operatorname{span}\{e_1'\}$ and $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 + A_2) = \operatorname{rank}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 < 2$. The transposes A_1', A_2' have $\mathcal{R}(A_1') \cap \mathcal{R}(A_2') = \{0\}$, and again $\operatorname{rank}(A_1' + A_2') = 1 < 2$.

Chapter 5. Block matrices and determinants

Block matrices

Definition 5.1. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$. A **partition** of A splits the rows into consecutive groups of $m_1, \dots, m_r$ rows ($m_1 + \cdots + m_r = m$) and the columns into consecutive groups of $n_1, \dots, n_s$ columns ($n_1 + \cdots + n_s = n$). Put $M_0 = 0$, $M_i = m_1 + \cdots + m_i$ and $N_0 = 0$, $N_j = n_1 + \cdots + n_j$: row group i consists of the rows $M_{i-1}+1, \dots, M_i$, and column group j of the columns $N_{j-1}+1, \dots, N_j$. The **block** $A_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times n_j}$ consists of the entries in row group i and column group j:

$$(A_{ij})_{xy} = a_{M_{i-1}+x,\, N_{j-1}+y} \qquad (1 \leqslant x \leqslant m_i,\ 1 \leqslant y \leqslant n_j)$$

We write

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11} & \cdots & A_{1s} \\ \vdots & & \vdots \\ A_{r1} & \cdots & A_{rs} \end{pmatrix}$$

Lines between rows and between columns may mark the partition. The group sizes are arbitrary positive integers, so a block A_{ij} is square only when $m_i = n_j$. Two matrices of the same size, partitioned in the same way, are equal if and only if their corresponding blocks are equal (both statements say that all entries agree, Definition 1.1).

Definition 5.2. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ be partitioned with row groups $m_1, \dots, m_r$ and column groups $n_1, \dots, n_s$.

(a) A partition of $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ is **conformal for addition** with that of A if it has the same row groups $m_1, \dots, m_r$ and the same column groups $n_1, \dots, n_s$.

(b) A partition of $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ is **conformal for multiplication** with that of A (in the product AB) if its row groups are $n_1, \dots, n_s$, the column groups of A. Its column groups $p_1, \dots, p_t$ ($p_1 + \cdots + p_t = p$) may be any.

Conformality for multiplication restricts only the column groups of A and the row groups of B; the row groups m_i of A and the column groups p_k of B are free. It means exactly that every block $A_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times n_j}$ has as many columns as every block $B_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_j\times p_k}$ has rows, so that the product $A_{ij}B_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times p_k}$ is defined (Definition 1.2).

Theorem 5.3. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ be partitioned into blocks $A_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times n_j}$ ($1 \leqslant i \leqslant r$, $1 \leqslant j \leqslant s$).

(a) If $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ is partitioned conformally for addition, into blocks $B_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times n_j}$, then $A + B$ has the blocks $A_{ij} + B_{ij}$, and for $c \in \mathbb{R}$ the matrix cA has the blocks cA_{ij} (same partition).

(b) Partition $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ with row groups $n_1, \dots, n_s$ and column groups $m_1, \dots, m_r$. Its (j, i) block is $A'_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_j\times m_i}$: transpose the array of blocks and also each block.

(c) If $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ is partitioned conformally for multiplication, into blocks $B_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_j\times p_k}$ ($1 \leqslant j \leqslant s$, $1 \leqslant k \leqslant t$), then $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, partitioned with row groups $m_1, \dots, m_r$ and column groups $p_1, \dots, p_t$, has the blocks

$$(AB)_{ik} = \sum_{j=1}^{s} A_{ij}B_{jk} = A_{i1}B_{1k} + A_{i2}B_{2k} + \cdots + A_{is}B_{sk} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i\times p_k}$$

where the term $A_{ij}B_{jk}$ is the product of an $m_i \times n_j$ and an $n_j \times p_k$ matrix.

So conformal block matrices are added and multiplied as if the blocks were numbers, but the order of the factors in each $A_{ij}B_{jk}$ must be kept. No group size has to equal another, and no block has to be square. For $r = s = t = 2$,

$$\begin{pmatrix} A_{11} & A_{12} \\ A_{21} & A_{22} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} B_{11} & B_{12} \\ B_{21} & B_{22} \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11}B_{11} + A_{12}B_{21} & A_{11}B_{12} + A_{12}B_{22} \\ A_{21}B_{11} + A_{22}B_{21} & A_{21}B_{12} + A_{22}B_{22} \end{pmatrix}$$

whenever A_{11} and A_{21} have as many columns as B_{11} and B_{12} have rows (the second groups then match as well, since $n_1 + n_2 = n$ is the number of columns of A and of rows of B). The cases $r = t = 1,\ s = 2$; $r = t = 2,\ s = 1$; and $r = s = 1,\ t = 2$ read

$$[A_1\ A_2]\begin{pmatrix}B_1\\B_2\end{pmatrix} = A_1B_1 + A_2B_2, \qquad \begin{pmatrix}A_1\\A_2\end{pmatrix}[B_1\ B_2] = \begin{pmatrix}A_1B_1 & A_1B_2\\A_2B_1 & A_2B_2\end{pmatrix}, \qquad A[B_1\ B_2] = [AB_1\ \ AB_2]$$

Proof. Let M_i and N_j be as in Definition 5.1. Each row index u of A lies in exactly one row group i, and then $u = M_{i-1} + x$ with $1 \leqslant x \leqslant m_i$; likewise for columns.

(a) Fix i, j and $1 \leqslant x \leqslant m_i$, $1 \leqslant y \leqslant n_j$, and put $u = M_{i-1} + x$, $v = N_{j-1} + y$. Since B has the same groups as A, entry (x, y) of B_{ij} is b_{uv}. By Definition 1.1, entry (x, y) of block (i, j) of $A + B$ is

$$(A + B)_{uv} = a_{uv} + b_{uv} = (A_{ij})_{xy} + (B_{ij})_{xy} = (A_{ij} + B_{ij})_{xy}$$

and in the same way $(cA)_{uv} = ca_{uv} = (cA_{ij})_{xy}$.

(b) Row group j of A' consists of the rows $N_{j-1} + 1, \dots, N_j$ and column group i of the columns $M_{i-1} + 1, \dots, M_i$. By Definition 1.8, entry (y, x) of the (j, i) block of A' is

$$(A')_{N_{j-1}+y,\, M_{i-1}+x} = a_{M_{i-1}+x,\, N_{j-1}+y} = (A_{ij})_{xy} = (A'_{ij})_{yx}$$

(c) For a row group i of A and a column group k of B, let $A_{i*} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i \times n}$ consist of the rows of A in row group i, and $B_{*k} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p_k}$ of the columns of B in column group k. By Definition 5.1, the columns of A_{i*} in column group j are, in order, the columns of A_{ij}; since the row groups of B are $n_1, \dots, n_s$ (conformality), the rows of B_{*k} in row group j are, in order, the rows of B_{jk}. In blocks,

$$A_{i*} = [A_{i1}\ \cdots\ A_{is}], \qquad B_{*k} = \begin{pmatrix}B_{1k}\\\vdots\\B_{sk}\end{pmatrix}$$

- Columns. By Theorem 1.4(a), each column of AB is A times the column of B with the same index. The columns of B in column group k are, in order, the columns of B_{*k}, so the columns of AB in column group k are, in order, A times the columns of B_{*k}, that is, the columns of the product AB_{*k} (again Theorem 1.4(a)).
- Rows. By Theorem 1.4(c), each row of AB_{*k} is the row of A with the same index times B_{*k}. The rows of A in row group i are, in order, the rows of A_{i*}, so the rows of AB_{*k} in row group i are, in order, the rows of $A_{i*}B_{*k}$ (again Theorem 1.4(c)). These are the entries of AB in row group i and column group k, that is, the block $(AB)_{ik}$ (Definition 5.1): $(AB)_{ik} = A_{i*}B_{*k} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i \times p_k}$.
- Inner sum. By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)),

$$A_{i*}B_{*k} = \sum_{l=1}^{n} \operatorname{col}_l(A_{i*}) \operatorname{row}_l(B_{*k})$$

The column groups of A cut $l = 1, \dots, n$ into s consecutive stretches of $n_1, \dots, n_s$ indices. In stretch j, the columns $\operatorname{col}_l(A_{i*})$ are $\operatorname{col}_1(A_{ij}), \dots, \operatorname{col}_{n_j}(A_{ij})$ and the rows $\operatorname{row}_l(B_{*k})$ are $\operatorname{row}_1(B_{jk}), \dots, \operatorname{row}_{n_j}(B_{jk})$, in this order (see above). So the terms of stretch j add up to

$$\sum_{y=1}^{n_j} \operatorname{col}_y(A_{ij}) \operatorname{row}_y(B_{jk}) = A_{ij}B_{jk}$$

the outer product expansion of the product of $A_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{m_i \times n_j}$ and $B_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_j \times p_k}$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). Adding the s stretches,

$$(AB)_{ik} = A_{i*}B_{*k} = \sum_{j=1}^{s} A_{ij}B_{jk}$$ □

In entries: let $u = M_{i-1} + x$ (row x of row group i) and let column v be the zth column of column group k of B. By Definition 1.2, $(AB)_{uv} = \sum_{l=1}^{n} a_{ul}b_{lv}$. Split the sum into the stretches of the column groups of A and write $l = N_{j-1} + y$ in stretch j; by Definition 5.1 (for A, and for B with row groups $n_1, \dots, n_s$),

$$\sum_{l=N_{j-1}+1}^{N_j} a_{ul}b_{lv} = \sum_{y=1}^{n_j} (A_{ij})_{xy}(B_{jk})_{yz} = (A_{ij}B_{jk})_{xz}$$

so the part of stretch j is the entry (x, z) of $A_{ij}B_{jk}$: this is (c), entry by entry.

Example 5.4. Partition $A \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 6}$ with row groups $(2, 3)$ and column groups $(4, 2)$, and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{6\times 5}$ with row groups $(4, 2)$ and column groups $(3, 2)$:

$$A = \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11} & A_{12} \\ A_{21} & A_{22} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} B_{11} & B_{12} \\ B_{21} & B_{22} \end{pmatrix}$$

The blocks are

$$A_{11} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 4}, \quad A_{12} = I_2, \quad A_{21} = \mathbf{1}_3\mathbf{1}_4' \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 4}, \quad A_{22} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$$

$$B_{11} = \begin{pmatrix} I_3 \\ \mathbf{1}_3' \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}, \quad B_{12} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 2}, \quad B_{21} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}, \quad B_{22} = I_2$$

Only A_{12} and B_{22} are square.

(a) The column groups $(4, 2)$ of A are the row groups of B, so the partitions are conformal for multiplication (Definition 5.2). By Theorem 5.3(c), $AB \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 5}$ has row groups $(2, 3)$, those of A, and column groups $(3, 2)$, those of B. Every term is a product of a block with n_j columns and a block with n_j rows:

$$\begin{aligned} (AB)_{11} &= A_{11}B_{11} + A_{12}B_{21}: \quad (2\times 4)(4\times 3) + (2\times 2)(2\times 3) \quad \text{is } 2\times 3 \\ (AB)_{12} &= A_{11}B_{12} + A_{12}B_{22}: \quad (2\times 4)(4\times 2) + (2\times 2)(2\times 2) \quad \text{is } 2\times 2 \\ (AB)_{21} &= A_{21}B_{11} + A_{22}B_{21}: \quad (3\times 4)(4\times 3) + (3\times 2)(2\times 3) \quad \text{is } 3\times 3 \\ (AB)_{22} &= A_{21}B_{12} + A_{22}B_{22}: \quad (3\times 4)(4\times 2) + (3\times 2)(2\times 2) \quad \text{is } 3\times 2 \end{aligned}$$

(b) The column sums of B_{11} and B_{12} are $\mathbf{1}_4'B_{11} = (2, 2, 2)$ and $\mathbf{1}_4'B_{12} = (2, 2)$, so $A_{21}B_{11} = (\mathbf{1}_3\mathbf{1}_4')B_{11} = \mathbf{1}_3(\mathbf{1}_4'B_{11})$ (Theorem 1.3) has all entries 2, and so has $A_{21}B_{12}$. With $A_{12} = B_{22} = I_2$,

$$\begin{aligned} (AB)_{11} &= A_{11}B_{11} + B_{21} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \\ (AB)_{12} &= A_{11}B_{12} + I_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} + I_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \\ (AB)_{21} &= A_{21}B_{11} + A_{22}B_{21} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \\ 3 & 3 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \\ (AB)_{22} &= A_{21}B_{12} + A_{22} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

So

$$AB = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 3 & 2 & 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ \hline 4 & 2 & 0 & 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 0 & 3 & 3 \end{array}\right)$$

(c) Check of one entry. Entry $(4,2)$ of AB lies in row group 2 (row $u = 4 = M_1 + 2$, so $x = 2$) and column group 1 ($z = 2$). As in the paragraph after the proof of Theorem 5.3, the sum over $l = 1, \ldots, 6$ splits at $N_1 = 4$:

$$(AB)_{42} = \underbrace{1\cdot 0 + 1\cdot 1 + 1\cdot 0 + 1\cdot 1}_{l=1,\ldots,4} + \underbrace{0\cdot 0 + 1\cdot 1}_{l=5,6} = 2 + 1 = 3$$

The first part is row 2 of A_{21} times column 2 of B_{11}, entry $(2,2)$ of $A_{21}B_{11}$; the second is row 2 of A_{22} times column 2 of B_{21}, entry $(2,2)$ of $A_{22}B_{21}$.

(d) A partition of B that is not conformal. Give B the row groups $(3,3)$, with any column groups. The product AB is still defined, but $A_{11} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 4}$ has 4 columns while the new B_{11} has 3 rows, so $A_{11}B_{11}$ is not defined, and the blocks of AB cannot be computed from these blocks. By contrast, the column groups of B are free: with its row groups $(4,2)$ and the column groups changed, say to $(1,4)$, the partitions are still conformal (Definition 5.2).

(e) By Theorem 5.3(b), $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{6\times 5}$ with row groups $(4,2)$ and column groups $(2,3)$ is $A' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A'_{11} & A'_{21} \\ A'_{12} & A'_{22} \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, where $A'_{11} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 2}$, $A'_{21} = \mathbf{1}_4\mathbf{1}'_3 \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$, $A'_{12} = I_2$ and $A'_{22} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$.

Definition 5.5. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be partitioned with the same groups $n_1, \ldots, n_r$ for rows and columns. Then the **diagonal blocks** $A_{ii} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_i\times n_i}$ are square, while an off-diagonal block $A_{ij} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_i\times n_j}$ $(i \neq j)$ is rectangular when $n_i \neq n_j$. A is **block diagonal**, written $A = \operatorname{diag}(A_{11}, \ldots, A_{rr})$, if $A_{ij} = 0$ for $i \neq j$; **upper block triangular** if $A_{ij} = 0$ for $i > j$; and **lower block triangular** if $A_{ij} = 0$ for $i < j$.

Proposition 5.6. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be partitioned as in Definition 5.5, with the same groups.

(a) If A and B are upper (lower) block triangular, so is AB, and its diagonal blocks are $A_{ii}B_{ii}$.

(b) $\operatorname{diag}(A_{11}, \ldots, A_{rr}) \operatorname{diag}(B_{11}, \ldots, B_{rr}) = \operatorname{diag}(A_{11}B_{11}, \ldots, A_{rr}B_{rr})$. If every A_{ii} is invertible, then $\operatorname{diag}(A_{11}, \ldots, A_{rr})^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(A_{11}^{-1}, \ldots, A_{rr}^{-1})$.

(c) If $A_{11} \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ and $A_{22} \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$ are invertible and $A_{12} \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, then

$$\begin{pmatrix} A_{11} & A_{12} \\ 0 & A_{22} \end{pmatrix}^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11}^{-1} & -A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1} \\ 0 & A_{22}^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

In (c) only the diagonal blocks must be square; for $p \neq q$ the blocks A_{12} and $-A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1}$ are $p \times q$.

Proof. (a)

- The column groups $n_1, \ldots, n_r$ of A are the row groups of B, so by Theorem 5.3(c) the (i,k) block of AB is $\sum_{j=1}^{r} A_{ij}B_{jk} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_i\times n_k}$.
- Let A and B be upper block triangular. Then $A_{ij} = 0$ unless $i \leqslant j$, and $B_{jk} = 0$ unless $j \leqslant k$. So the term $A_{ij}B_{jk}$ has a zero factor, and is 0, unless $i \leqslant j \leqslant k$.
- If $i > k$, no j satisfies $i \leqslant j \leqslant k$, so $(AB)_{ik} = 0$: AB is upper block triangular. If $i = k$, only $j = i$ remains, so $(AB)_{ii} = A_{ii}B_{ii}$.
- For lower block triangular A, B, the term j can be nonzero only if $i \geqslant j \geqslant k$; the same argument applies with the inequalities reversed.

(b) A block diagonal matrix is upper and lower block triangular, so by (a) the product is upper and lower block triangular, that is, block diagonal, with diagonal blocks $A_{ii}B_{ii}$. With $B_{ii} = A_{ii}^{-1}$ this gives $\operatorname{diag}(A_{11}, \dots, A_{rr}) \operatorname{diag}(A_{11}^{-1}, \dots, A_{rr}^{-1}) = \operatorname{diag}(I_{n_1}, \dots, I_{n_r}) = I_n$ (both have entry 1 at every (u, u) and 0 elsewhere), and likewise in the other order; so the second matrix is the inverse of the first (Definition 2.12).

(c) Call the two matrices T and X; both have row and column groups (p, q), so the 2×2 block formula of Theorem 5.3(c) applies. The four blocks of TX are

$$(TX)_{11} = A_{11}A_{11}^{-1} + A_{12} \cdot 0 = I_p, \quad (TX)_{12} = A_{11}\left(-A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1}\right) + A_{12}A_{22}^{-1} = 0$$
$$(TX)_{21} = 0 \cdot A_{11}^{-1} + A_{22} \cdot 0 = 0, \quad (TX)_{22} = 0 \cdot \left(-A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1}\right) + A_{22}A_{22}^{-1} = I_q$$

and those of XT are

$$(XT)_{11} = A_{11}^{-1}A_{11} + \left(-A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1}\right) \cdot 0 = I_p, \quad (XT)_{12} = A_{11}^{-1}A_{12} - A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1}A_{22} = 0$$
$$(XT)_{21} = 0 \cdot A_{11} + A_{22}^{-1} \cdot 0 = 0, \quad (XT)_{22} = 0 \cdot A_{12} + A_{22}^{-1}A_{22} = I_q$$

So $TX = XT = I_{p+q}$, and $X = T^{-1}$ (Definition 2.12). □

Example 5.7. Find the inverse of

$$T = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 3 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11} & A_{12} \\ 0 & A_{22} \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 5}$$

Solution. The groups are $(2, 3)$: $A_{11} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is 2×2, $A_{12} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is 2×3, and

$$A_{22} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

is 3×3. By Proposition 2.18 ($3 \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 1 = 1$), $A_{11}^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. For

$$Y = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A_{22}Y = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1+1 & 1-1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1+1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = I_3$$

so $A_{22}^{-1} = Y$ (Theorem 2.16). Then

$$A_{11}^{-1}A_{12} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -2 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$-A_{11}^{-1}A_{12}A_{22}^{-1} = -\begin{pmatrix} -1 & -2 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -2 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

This block is 2×3. By Proposition 5.6(c) with $p = 2$, $q = 3$,

$$T^{-1} = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & -2 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 3 & -2 & -1 & 0 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

Block elimination and the Schur complement

Proposition 5.8. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$, and let $V \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$, $F \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $H \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$. Then

$$\begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ V & I_n \end{pmatrix} M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C+VA & D+VB \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \begin{pmatrix} I_m & F \\ 0 & I_n \end{pmatrix} M = \begin{pmatrix} A+FC & B+FD \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

$$M \begin{pmatrix} I_p & H \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A & B+AH \\ C & D+CH \end{pmatrix}$$

These **block elementary matrices** are invertible: $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ V & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ -V & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & -F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & H \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -H \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

None of A, B, C, D, V, F, H needs to be square.

Proof. • M has row groups (m, n) and column groups (p, q). The matrices $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ V & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ have column groups (m, n), and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & H \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ has row groups (p, q); so all three products are conformal, and Theorem 5.3(c) applies.

- First product: block row 1 is $(I_mA + 0C,\ I_mB + 0D) = (A,\ B)$, and block row 2 is $(VA + I_nC,\ VB + I_nD) = (C + VA,\ D + VB)$, where $VA \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $VB \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$ have the sizes of C and D.
- Second product: block row 1 is $(I_mA + FC,\ I_mB + FD) = (A + FC,\ B + FD)$, and block row 2 is $(0A + I_nC,\ 0B + I_nD) = (C,\ D)$.
- Third product: block column 1 is $(AI_p + B0,\ CI_p + D0) = (A,\ C)$, and block column 2 is $(AH + BI_q,\ CH + DI_q) = (B + AH,\ D + CH)$.
- Thus left multiplication by $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I & 0 \\ V & I \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ adds V times the first block row to the second, the block analogue of the row operation $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + cR_1$ of Definition 2.2; right multiplication by $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I & H \\ 0 & I \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ adds the first block column times H to the second.
- Inverses. The first identity with $A = I_m$, $B = 0$, $C = V$, $D = I_n$ (so $p = m$, $q = n$) and with $-V$ in place of V gives

$$\begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ -V & I_n \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ V & I_n \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ V - VI_m & I_n - V\cdot 0 \end{pmatrix} = I_{m+n}$$

  and with $C = -V$ and V itself it gives the product in the other order, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ -V+V & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right) = I_{m+n}$. In the same way the second identity gives $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & -F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & F-F \\ 0 & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right) = I_{m+n}$ and the product in the other order; the third case is the second with p, q, H in place of m, n, F. □

Theorem 5.9. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ invertible, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$. Then

$$\begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_n \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D - CA^{-1}B \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D - CA^{-1}B \end{pmatrix}$$

and hence $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right) M \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & D-CA^{-1}B \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. The matrix $D - CA^{-1}B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$ is the **Schur complement** of A in M.

Only A has to be square: B, C, D and M itself may be rectangular.

Proof. • Apply Proposition 5.8 with $m = p$. The choice $V = -CA^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ makes the $(2,1)$ block $C + VA = C - CA^{-1}A = 0$, and then $D + VB = D - CA^{-1}B$. This is the first identity.

- The choice $H = -A^{-1}B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$ makes $B+AH = B-AA^{-1}B = 0$, and then $D+CH = D-CA^{-1}B$. This is the second identity.
- Put $S = D-CA^{-1}B$. Applying the column step to the result of the row step, by the third identity of Proposition 5.8 with C replaced by 0 and D by S, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & S \end{smallmatrix}\right)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B-AA^{-1}B \\ 0 & S-0\cdot A^{-1}B \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & S \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. □

In Theorem 5.9 the left factor adds $-CA^{-1}$ times the first block row of M to the second, and the right factor adds the first block column times $-A^{-1}B$ to the second (Proposition 5.8). When D is invertible, the matrix $A - BD^{-1}C$ is likewise called the **Schur complement** of D in M.

Let R_1, R_2 be the block rows of a matrix with row groups (p, q). The **block row operations** are $R_1 \leftarrow XR_1$ and $R_2 \leftarrow YR_2$ with $X \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ and $Y \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$ invertible, $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + VR_1$ with $V \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$, and $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + WR_2$ with $W \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$. They are the left multiplications by $\operatorname{diag}(X, I_q)$, $\operatorname{diag}(I_p, Y)$, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ V & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & W \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.3(c) and Proposition 5.8), and these matrices are invertible (Propositions 5.6(b) and 5.8). **Block elimination** applies the steps of Gauss–Jordan elimination (Definition 2.5) to the block rows of $[M \mid I]$, with the inverse of a pivot block in place of the reciprocal of a pivot entry: the first pivot is a diagonal block of M, the second its Schur complement, and the result is $[I \mid M^{-1}]$, as in Corollary 2.17.

Corollary 5.10 (Block elimination)**.** Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$.

(a) If A and its Schur complement $S = D-CA^{-1}B$ are invertible, then M is invertible, the block row operations $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - CA^{-1}R_1$, then $R_1 \leftarrow A^{-1}R_1$ and $R_2 \leftarrow S^{-1}R_2$, then $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - A^{-1}BR_2$ take $[M \mid I_{p+q}]$ to $[I_{p+q} \mid M^{-1}]$,

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} & 0 \\ 0 & S^{-1} \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_q \end{pmatrix}$$

and $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)\operatorname{diag}(A, S)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

(b) If D and its Schur complement $F = A-BD^{-1}C$ are invertible, then M is invertible, the block row operations $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - BD^{-1}R_2$, then $R_1 \leftarrow F^{-1}R_1$ and $R_2 \leftarrow D^{-1}R_2$, then $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - D^{-1}CR_1$ take $[M \mid I_{p+q}]$ to $[I_{p+q} \mid M^{-1}]$,

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -D^{-1}C & I_q \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} F^{-1} & 0 \\ 0 & D^{-1} \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_p & -BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix}$$

and $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)\operatorname{diag}(F, D)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ D^{-1}C & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

For $p \neq q$ the blocks B and C are rectangular.

Proof. (a)

- The three steps are the left multiplications by $E_1 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $E_2 = \operatorname{diag}(I_p, S^{-1})\operatorname{diag}(A^{-1}, I_q) = \operatorname{diag}(A^{-1}, S^{-1})$ (Proposition 5.6(b)) and $E_3 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.
- By Theorem 5.9 (with $n = q$), $E_1M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & S \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By the block product formula (Theorem 5.3(c)), $E_2E_1M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A^{-1}A & A^{-1}B \\ S^{-1}\cdot 0 & S^{-1}S \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Proposition 5.8 (second identity, with upper right block $-A^{-1}B$), $E_3E_2E_1M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & A^{-1}B-A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) = I_{p+q}$.
- Put $E = E_3E_2E_1$, the displayed product. Then $EM = I_{p+q}$, so M is invertible with $M^{-1} = E$ (Theorem 2.16), and $E[M \mid I_{p+q}] = [EM \mid E] = [I_{p+q} \mid M^{-1}]$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).

- $E_1^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $E_3^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Proposition 5.8), and $E_2^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(A, S)$ (Proposition 5.6(b)). So $M = E^{-1} = E_1^{-1}E_2^{-1}E_3^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)).

(b) The three steps are the left multiplications by $E_1' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $E_2' = \operatorname{diag}(F^{-1}, D^{-1})$ (as in (a)) and $E_3' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -D^{-1}C & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Proposition 5.8 and Theorem 5.3(c),

$$E_1'M = \begin{pmatrix} A - BD^{-1}C & B - BD^{-1}D \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} F & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_2'E_1'M = \begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ D^{-1}C & I_q \end{pmatrix}$$

and $E_3'E_2'E_1'M = I_{p+q}$. The last two bullets of (a) apply to $E' = E_3'E_2'E_1'$, the displayed product, with $E_1'^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $E_2'^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(F, D)$ and $E_3'^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ D^{-1}C & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Propositions 5.8 and 5.6(b)). □

Example 5.11. Partition $M \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 5}$ with groups $(2, 3)$ for rows and columns. Find the Schur complement S of A, the factorization of M in Corollary 5.10(a), and M^{-1}.

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ \hline 2 & 1 & 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 & 3 & 3 & 7 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \quad C = B', \quad D = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

Here A is 2×2, D is 3×3, B is 2×3 and C is 3×2. By Proposition 2.18 ($2 \cdot 1 - 1 \cdot 1 = 1$), $A^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Then

$$A^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CA^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

These are 2×3 and 3×2, and the Schur complement of A is the 3×3 matrix

$$S = D - CA^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 7 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 7 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 2 & 5 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 5.9,

$$\left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) M \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

All matrices here have integer entries, because A^{-1} does. Multiplying on the left and on the right by the inverses of the two outer factors (Proposition 5.8),

$$\begin{aligned} M &= \begin{pmatrix} I_2 & 0 \\ CA^{-1} & I_3 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & S \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_2 & A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_3 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)\left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right)\left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \end{aligned}$$

so M is the product of a lower block triangular, a block diagonal and an upper block triangular factor, whose off-diagonal blocks $CA^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$ and $A^{-1}B \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$ are rectangular. Since $A' = A$ and $C = B'$, $A^{-1}B = (A^{-1})'C' = (CA^{-1})'$ (Theorems 2.13(c) and 1.9), and the right factor is the transpose of the left (Theorem 5.3(b)).

Finally, M^{-1} is found by Corollary 5.10(a). The Schur complement S is invertible, with

$$S^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -2 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

since $SS^{-1} = I_3$ (Theorem 2.16). By the corollary and the block product formula (Theorem 5.3(c)),

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} I_2 & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_3 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} & 0 \\ 0 & S^{-1} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} I_2 & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} + A^{-1}BS^{-1}CA^{-1} & -A^{-1}BS^{-1} \\ -S^{-1}CA^{-1} & S^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

With $A^{-1}B$ and CA^{-1} from above,

$$-A^{-1}BS^{-1} = -\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -2 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 3 & -2 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$-S^{-1}CA^{-1} = -\begin{pmatrix} 3 & -2 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 1 \\ 3 & -1 \\ -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and

$$A^{-1} + A^{-1}BS^{-1}CA^{-1} = A^{-1} - (A^{-1}B)(-S^{-1}CA^{-1}) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 1 \\ 3 & -1 \\ -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$= \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} -6 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 7 & -2 \\ -2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

So

$$M^{-1} = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 7 & -2 & -4 & 3 & -2 \\ -2 & 3 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ \hline -4 & 1 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 3 & -1 & -2 & 2 & -1 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(M)M^{-1} = 2(7,-2,-4,3,-2) + (-2,3,1,-1,0) + 2(-4,1,3,-2,1) + (3,-1,-2,2,-1) + 3(-2,0,1,-1,1) = (1,0,0,0,0)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)).

Theorem 5.12. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$.

(a) If A and its Schur complement $E = D - CA^{-1}B$ are invertible, then M is invertible and

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} + A^{-1}BE^{-1}CA^{-1} & -A^{-1}BE^{-1} \\ -E^{-1}CA^{-1} & E^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) If D and its Schur complement $F = A - BD^{-1}C$ are invertible, then M is invertible and

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} F^{-1} & -F^{-1}BD^{-1} \\ -D^{-1}CF^{-1} & D^{-1} + D^{-1}CF^{-1}BD^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

In particular, in (a) the lower right block of M^{-1} is the inverse of the Schur complement of A.

Proof. (a)

- By Theorem 5.9, $LM = U$ with $L = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $U = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & E \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.
- L is invertible with inverse $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Proposition 5.8), so $M = L^{-1}U$; and U is invertible with $U^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A^{-1} & -A^{-1}BE^{-1} \\ 0 & E^{-1} \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Proposition 5.6(c)).
- Hence M is invertible and $M^{-1} = U^{-1}(L^{-1})^{-1} = U^{-1}L$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)). By the block product formula (Theorem 5.3(c)),

$$U^{-1}L = \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} & -A^{-1}BE^{-1} \\ 0 & E^{-1} \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_q \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1}+A^{-1}BE^{-1}CA^{-1} & -A^{-1}BE^{-1} \\ -E^{-1}CA^{-1} & E^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) Look for $X = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} P & Q \\ R & T \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $MX = I_{p+q}$; by the block product formula this means

$$AP + BR = I_p, \qquad CP + DR = 0, \qquad AQ + BT = 0, \qquad CQ + DT = I_q$$

- The second equation gives $R = -D^{-1}CP$; then the first becomes $(A - BD^{-1}C)P = FP = I_p$, so $P = F^{-1}$ and $R = -D^{-1}CF^{-1}$.
- The fourth equation gives $T = D^{-1} - D^{-1}CQ$; then the third becomes $AQ + BD^{-1} - BD^{-1}CQ = FQ + BD^{-1} = 0$, so $Q = -F^{-1}BD^{-1}$ and $T = D^{-1} + D^{-1}CF^{-1}BD^{-1}$.
- Conversely, these blocks satisfy the four equations: $AP+BR = (A-BD^{-1}C)F^{-1} = I_p$, $CP+DR = CF^{-1} - CF^{-1} = 0$, $AQ + BT = -(A - BD^{-1}C)F^{-1}BD^{-1} + BD^{-1} = 0$ and $CQ + DT = -CF^{-1}BD^{-1} + I_q + CF^{-1}BD^{-1} = I_q$.
- So $MX = I_{p+q}$, and since M is square, M is invertible with $M^{-1} = X$ (Theorem 2.16). □

Determinants: definition and computation

Definition 5.13. Let $n \geqslant 1$. A function D that assigns a number $D(A)$ to each $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is a **determinant function** if, for every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, all row indices $r \neq s$ and every $c \in \mathbb{R}$:

(a) multiplying row r of A by c multiplies $D(A)$ by c;

(b) adding c times row s to row r does not change $D(A)$;

(c) interchanging rows r and s changes the sign of $D(A)$;

(d) $D(I_n) = 1$.

We show that for each n there is exactly one determinant function (Theorems 5.15 and 5.21). It is written det, and $\det A$ is the **determinant** of A; many books write $|A|$, but in these notes $|\cdot|$ always means absolute value. Until its existence is proved, every statement about det holds for every determinant function. For $n = 1$, (a) and (d) give $\det(a) = a\det(1) = a$.

For $n = 2$, conditions (a)–(d) are the rules for the area of the parallelogram whose sides are the two rows u', v' of A ($u, v \in \mathbb{R}^2$), counted with a sign: stretching the side u' by c multiplies the area by c; replacing u' by $u' + cv'$ slides that side along v' and keeps both the base v' and the height; and the unit square, with sides e_1' and e_2', has area 1. The sign records the orientation of the pair u', v', which an interchange reverses. For $n \geqslant 3$, $|\det A|$ is accordingly taken as the volume of the box spanned by the rows. This is why determinants appear in the change-of-variables formula for probability densities; we do not use this here.

Theorem 5.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) If two rows of A are equal, then $\det A = 0$.

(b) If A has a zero row, then $\det A = 0$.

(c) If A is upper triangular, then $\det A = a_{11}a_{22}\cdots a_{nn}$. In particular $\det \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n) = d_1 d_2 \cdots d_n$.

(d) For the elementary matrices of Definition 2.14, $\det D_r(c) = c$, $\det T_{rs}(c) = 1$ and $\det P_{rs} = -1$; and $\det(EA) = \det E \cdot \det A$ for every elementary matrix $E \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

Proof. (a) Interchanging the two equal rows does not change A, but it changes the sign of $\det A$ (Definition 5.13(c)). So $\det A = -\det A$, that is, $\det A = 0$.

(b) Multiplying the zero row by 2 does not change A, but it doubles $\det A$ (Definition 5.13(a)). So $\det A = 2\det A$, that is, $\det A = 0$.

(c)

- Let $a_{11}, \ldots, a_{nn}$ be nonzero. Multiplying row i by $1/a_{ii}$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n$ gives an upper triangular matrix B with diagonal entries 1, and $\det B = \det A/(a_{11}\cdots a_{nn})$ (Definition 5.13(a)).
- Backward elimination (Step 5 of Definition 2.5, with the diagonal entries of B as pivots) turns B into I_n by adding multiples of rows to other rows; so $\det B = \det I_n = 1$ (Definition 5.13(b),(d)), and $\det A = a_{11}\cdots a_{nn}$.
- Now let some a_{ii} be 0, with i the largest such index. Row i of A is 0 in columns $1, \ldots, i$. For $j = i+1, \ldots, n$ in turn, subtract a multiple of row j from row i so that entry (i, j) becomes 0 (possible as $a_{jj} \neq 0$); row j is 0 before column j, so the zeros already made stay 0. These additions do not change $\det A$ and turn row i into a zero row; so $\det A = 0$ by (b), and also $a_{11}\cdots a_{nn} = 0$.

(d)

- $D_r(c)$, $T_{rs}(c)$ and P_{rs} are obtained from I_n by $R_r \leftarrow cR_r$, $R_r \leftarrow R_r + cR_s$ and $R_r \leftrightarrow R_s$, so by Definition 5.13 their determinants are c, 1 and -1.
- EA is obtained from A by the row operation of E (Theorem 2.15(a)), so $\det(EA)$ is $c\det A$, $\det A$ or $-\det A$, that is, $\det E \cdot \det A$. □

Theorem 5.15. Let interchanges of two rows and additions of a multiple of one row to another take $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ to an upper triangular matrix U, with t interchanges. Then

$$\det A = (-1)^t u_{11}u_{22}\cdots u_{nn}$$

Forward elimination (Steps 1, 2 and 4 of Definition 2.5, without scaling the leading entries to 1) always ends with such a matrix U. In particular, for each n there is at most one determinant function.

Proof.

- $\det U = u_{11}\cdots u_{nn}$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). Each addition leaves the determinant unchanged and each interchange changes its sign (Definition 5.13(b),(c)); so $\det U = (-1)^t \det A$, and the formula follows.
- In the result of forward elimination, the leading entries of the nonzero rows lie in columns $k_1 < k_2 < \cdots$, so $k_i \geqslant i$, and the zero rows lie at the bottom (Definition 2.5); hence the result is upper triangular.
- For each A, fix one forward elimination of A (Step 2 may allow several; any one will do). By the first item, every determinant function takes the value $(-1)^t u_{11}\cdots u_{nn}$ of this reduction at A; so two determinant functions are equal. □

If a row is multiplied by $c \neq 0$ on the way, the determinant is multiplied by c (Definition 5.13(a)); so divide by c at the end.

Example 5.16. Compute $\det A$ for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 6 & 4 & 4 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Since $a_{11} = 0$, begin with an interchange:

$$A \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 6 & 4 & 4 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 4 \\ 0 & -2 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = U$$

The interchange changes the sign and the additions change nothing (Theorem 5.15, $t = 1$), so $\det A = -\det U = -\big(1 \cdot 2 \cdot 1 \cdot (-2)\big) = 4$.

Example 5.17. Compute $\det A$ for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 2 & 0 & 2 \\ 4 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution.

$$A \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 4R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 4 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 5 & -9 & -13 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 5 & -9 & -13 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 5R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -8 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -8 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -8 \end{pmatrix} = U$$

Only the second arrow changes the determinant: it multiplies it by $\frac{1}{4}$ (Definition 5.13(a)). Hence $\det A = 4 \det U = 4 \cdot 1 \cdot 1 \cdot (-4) \cdot (-8) = 128$.

Main properties

Theorem 5.18. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$.

(a) A is invertible $\Leftrightarrow \det A \neq 0 \Leftrightarrow \operatorname{rank} A = n$.

(b) $\det(AB) = \det A \cdot \det B$.

(c) If A is invertible, then $\det A^{-1} = 1/\det A$. Moreover $\det(cA) = c^n \det A$ for $c \in \mathbb{R}$, and $\det A^k = (\det A)^k$ for $k = 1, 2, \ldots$

Proof. For $n = 1$, $\det(a) = a$: (a) holds since (a) is invertible, and $\operatorname{rank}(a) = 1$, if and only if $a \neq 0$ (Definition 4.11), and (b), (c) are identities between numbers; let $n \geqslant 2$.

(a)

- Let $R = PA$ be the RREF of A, where $P = E_k \cdots E_1$ is a product of elementary matrices (Theorem 2.15(c)). By Theorem 5.14(d), applied k times, $\det R = \det E_k \cdots \det E_1 \cdot \det A$, and each $\det E_i$ is $c \neq 0$, 1 or -1.
- If A is invertible, then $R = I_n$ (Theorem 2.16), so $\det A \neq 0$. If not, then $\operatorname{rank} A < n$ (Theorem 4.13(d)), so R has fewer than n nonzero rows (Definition 4.11), that is, a zero row; then $\det R = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(b)) and $\det A = 0$. Finally, A is invertible if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A = n$ (Theorem 4.13(d)).

(b)

- If A is not invertible, neither is AB: an inverse G of AB would give $A(BG) = I_n$, and A would be invertible (Theorem 2.16). By (a), $\det(AB) = 0 = \det A \cdot \det B$.
- If A is invertible, then $A = F_1 \cdots F_k$ with elementary matrices F_i (Theorem 2.16). By Theorem 5.14(d), applied k times, $\det(AB) = \det F_1 \cdots \det F_k \cdot \det B$; for $B = I_n$ this reads $\det A = \det F_1 \cdots \det F_k$, so $\det(AB) = \det A \cdot \det B$.

(c) By (b), $\det A \cdot \det A^{-1} = \det(AA^{-1}) = \det I_n = 1$. Next, $cA = (cI_n)A$ and $\det(cI_n) = c^n$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), so $\det(cA) = c^n \det A$ by (b). Finally $\det A^{k+1} = \det(A^k A) = \det A^k \cdot \det A$ by (b), which gives the powers by induction on k. □

Cofactor expansion and the transpose

Lemma 5.19. Let $A_1, A_2, A_3 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ agree in all rows except row i, and let $\operatorname{row}_i(A_3) = \operatorname{row}_i(A_1) + \operatorname{row}_i(A_2)$. Then $\det A_3 = \det A_1 + \det A_2$. Together with Definition 5.13(a): det is linear in each row when the other rows are held fixed.

Proof. Let ρ_l' ($l \neq i$, $\rho_l \in \mathbb{R}^n$) be the common rows, and let $u' = \operatorname{row}_i(A_1)$ and $v' = \operatorname{row}_i(A_2)$ ($u, v \in \mathbb{R}^n$).

- Let the $n-1$ vectors ρ_l be linearly dependent. The columns of A_1' are u and the ρ_l (Definition 1.8), so they are dependent too (Proposition 3.13(b)). So A_1' is not invertible (Theorems 4.1 and 2.16), neither is A_1 (Theorem 2.13(c)), and $\det A_1 = 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)). Likewise $\det A_2 = \det A_3 = 0$.
- Otherwise extend the $n-1$ vectors ρ_l by one vector β to a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(b); a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ has n vectors, Theorem 4.4). Write $u = \sum_{l\neq i} x_l\rho_l + x_i\beta$ and $v = \sum_{l\neq i} y_l\rho_l + y_i\beta$; then $u + v = \sum_{l\neq i}(x_l + y_l)\rho_l + (x_i + y_i)\beta$.
- Let G have row i equal to β' and the rows ρ_l' elsewhere. Subtracting x_l times row l from row i for every $l \neq i$ turns A_1 into G with row i multiplied by x_i; so $\det A_1 = x_i \det G$ (Definition 5.13(b),(a)). Likewise $\det A_2 = y_i \det G$ and $\det A_3 = (x_i + y_i) \det G$. Hence $\det A_3 = \det A_1 + \det A_2$. □

Definition 5.20. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. For $1 \leqslant i, j \leqslant n$, $A(i|j) \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$ is the matrix obtained from A by deleting row i and column j. The number $\det A(i|j)$ is the **minor** of a_{ij}, and $c_{ij} = (-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j)$ is its **cofactor**.

The signs $(-1)^{i+j}$ form a checkerboard with + on the diagonal, for $n = 3$ $\begin{pmatrix} + & - & + \\ - & + & - \\ + & - & + \end{pmatrix}$.

Theorem 5.21. For each $n \geqslant 1$ there is exactly one determinant function on $\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, with cofactors c_{ij}. For every column j and every row i,

$$\det A = a_{1j}c_{1j} + a_{2j}c_{2j} + \cdots + a_{nj}c_{nj} = a_{i1}c_{i1} + a_{i2}c_{i2} + \cdots + a_{in}c_{in}$$

(**expansion along column** j and **along row** i).

Proof. Existence and the expansion along a column, by induction on n.

- $n = 1$: the function $(a) \mapsto a$ satisfies Definition 5.13. Multiplying the only row by c multiplies the value by c; conditions (b) and (c) concern two different rows and say nothing for $n = 1$; and $(1) \mapsto 1$. By Theorem 5.15 it is the only determinant function.
- Let $n \geqslant 2$, and let det be the determinant function on $\mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$, which exists by the induction hypothesis. Fix a column j and let $E(A) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} a_{ij}c_{ij} = \sum_{i=1}^{n}(-1)^{i+j}a_{ij} \det A(i|j)$ for $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. We show that E is a determinant function on $\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. By Theorem 5.15 it is then the only one, so $E = \det$: a determinant function exists for n, and the expansion along column j holds.
- E is linear in each row k. For $i \neq k$, a_{ij} does not depend on row k, and $\det A(i|j)$ is linear in row k (Lemma 5.19; row k of A without its entry in column j is a row of $A(i|j)$). For $i = k$, $\det A(k|j)$ does not depend on row k, and a_{kj} is linear in it. In particular E satisfies Definition 5.13(a).
- If two adjacent rows k, $k+1$ of A are equal, then $E(A) = 0$. For $i \neq k, k+1$, $A(i|j)$ has two equal rows, so $\det A(i|j) = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(a)). The two remaining terms $(-1)^{k+j}a_{kj} \det A(k|j)$ and $(-1)^{k+1+j}a_{k+1,j} \det A(k+1|j)$ cancel, as $a_{kj} = a_{k+1,j}$ and $A(k|j) = A(k+1|j)$.
- An interchange of two adjacent rows changes the sign of E. Write $E(u, v)$ for the value of E when rows k, $k+1$ are u', v' $(u, v \in \mathbb{R}^n)$ and the other rows are fixed. By the first two items, $0 = E(u+v, u+v) = E(u, u) + E(u, v) + E(v, u) + E(v, v) = E(u, v) + E(v, u)$.
- An interchange of rows $k < l$ is a succession of $2(l-k)-1$ interchanges of adjacent rows (move row l up to position k, then the former row k down to position l), an odd number; so it changes the sign of E, which is Definition 5.13(c). In particular $E(A) = 0$ if two rows of A are equal.
- If B is A with λ times row s added to row r, then by linearity in row r, $E(B) = E(A) + \lambda E(A_s)$, where A_s is A with row r replaced by row s. As A_s has two equal rows, $E(A_s) = 0$ and $E(B) = E(A)$: Definition 5.13(b).
- Column j of I_n is e_j, and $I_n(j|j) = I_{n-1}$; so $E(I_n) = \det I_{n-1} = 1$: Definition 5.13(d).

The expansion along row i.

- Row i of A is $\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}e'_j$. As det is linear in row i (Lemma 5.19 and Definition 5.13(a)), $\det A = \sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij} \det G_j$, where G_j is A with row i replaced by e'_j.
- In G_j, subtract a_{kj} times row i from row k, for every $k \neq i$. As row i is e'_j, this makes entry (k, j) zero and leaves the other entries of row k unchanged; it does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)). The resulting matrix H_j has column j equal to e_i, and $H_j(i|j) = A(i|j)$.
- Expanding $\det H_j$ along column j (proved above), whose only nonzero entry is the 1 in row i: $\det G_j = \det H_j = (-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j) = c_{ij}$. Hence $\det A = \sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}c_{ij}$. □

For $n = 2$, the expansion along row 1 gives $\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} \end{smallmatrix}\right) = a_{11}a_{22} - a_{12}a_{21}$, the number $ad - bc$ of the 2×2 inverse formula of Proposition 2.18; for $n = 3$ it gives

$$\det A = a_{11}(a_{22}a_{33} - a_{23}a_{32}) - a_{12}(a_{21}a_{33} - a_{23}a_{31}) + a_{13}(a_{21}a_{32} - a_{22}a_{31})$$

In practice one expands along a row or column with many zeros; a row or column with a single nonzero entry is expanded at once. Since a determinant function exists, Theorem 5.15 shows that every reduction of A to an upper triangular matrix by interchanges and additions gives the same number $(-1)^t u_{11} \cdots u_{nn}$, namely $\det A$.

Theorem 5.22. For every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $\det A' = \det A$. Consequently Definition 5.13(a)–(c), Theorem 5.14(a),(b) and Lemma 5.19 hold with columns in place of rows, and the determinant of a lower triangular matrix is the product of its diagonal entries.

Proof. • Induction on n. For $n = 1$, $A' = A$. Let $n \geqslant 2$, and assume $\det B' = \det B$ for every $B \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$.

- The $(k, 1)$ entry of A' is a_{1k}, and deleting row k and column 1 of A' leaves the transpose of $A(1|k)$: $A'(k|1) = A(1|k)'$. By the expansion of $\det A'$ along column 1 and the induction hypothesis, $\det A' = \sum_k (-1)^{k+1} a_{1k} \det A(1|k)' = \sum_k (-1)^{1+k} a_{1k} \det A(1|k)$, which is the expansion of $\det A$ along row 1 (Theorem 5.21).
- An operation on the columns of A is the same operation on the rows of A', and two equal columns or a zero column of A are two equal rows or a zero row of A'. As $\det A = \det A'$, the statements for rows give those for columns. If A is lower triangular, A' is upper triangular with the same diagonal, so $\det A = \det A' = a_{11} \cdots a_{nn}$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). □

In computing a determinant one may therefore use column operations as well as row operations.

Example 5.23. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 3 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Compute $\det A$ by expansion along the first row, and check the value by expansion along the third column.

Solution. Row 1 has the nonzero entries $a_{11} = 2$ and $a_{13} = 1$, so $\det A = 2 \det A(1|1) + 1 \det A(1|3)$. Each 3×3 minor has a row with a single nonzero entry, and expanding along that row (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A(1|1) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (-1)^{3+3} \cdot 1 \cdot \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = 6$$

$$\det A(1|3) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (-1)^{2+2} \cdot 1 \cdot \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -1$$

so $\det A = 2 \cdot 6 + 1 \cdot (-1) = 11$. Column 3 has the nonzero entries $a_{13} = 1$ and $a_{33} = 2$, with cofactors $c_{13} = \det A(1|3) = -1$ and

$$c_{33} = (-1)^{3+3} \det A(3|3) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (-1)^{1+1} \cdot 2 \cdot \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 6$$

(expansion along row 1). By Theorem 5.21, $\det A = 1 \cdot (-1) + 2 \cdot 6 = 11$.

Theorem 5.24. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $n \geqslant 2$, and let c_{ij} be the cofactors of A. The **adjugate** of A is the transpose of the matrix of cofactors: $\operatorname{adj} A = (c_{ij})'$, that is, $(\operatorname{adj} A)_{ij} = c_{ji}$. Then

$$A \operatorname{adj} A = (\det A)\, I_n$$

Hence, if $\det A \neq 0$, then $A^{-1} = \frac{1}{\det A} \operatorname{adj} A$.

Proof. • The (i, k) entry of $A \operatorname{adj} A$ is $\sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij} (\operatorname{adj} A)_{jk} = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij} c_{kj}$.

- For $k = i$, this is the expansion of $\det A$ along row i (Theorem 5.21).
- For $k \neq i$, let $\tilde{A}$ be A with row k replaced by row i. Since $\tilde{A}(k|j) = A(k|j)$, the cofactors of row k of $\tilde{A}$ are $c_{k1}, \ldots, c_{kn}$, and the sum is the expansion of $\det \tilde{A}$ along row k. As $\tilde{A}$ has two equal rows, the sum is 0 (Theorem 5.14(a)).

- If $\det A \neq 0$, then $A\big(\frac{1}{\det A}\operatorname{adj} A\big) = I_n$, so $\frac{1}{\det A}\operatorname{adj} A$ is the inverse of A (Theorem 2.16). □

For $n = 2$, $\operatorname{adj}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} d & -b \\ -c & a \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and the theorem gives again the formula of Proposition 2.18.

Remark 5.25. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $n \geqslant 2$, be symmetric. Deleting row j and column i of $A = A'$ gives the transpose of $A(i|j)$: $A(j|i) = A'(j|i) = A(i|j)'$. By Theorem 5.22, $\det A(j|i) = \det A(i|j)$, so the cofactors satisfy $c_{ji} = c_{ij}$.

Example 5.26. Find A^{-1} by Theorem 5.24 for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. The cofactors are

$$\begin{aligned}
c_{11} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1, & c_{12} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{13} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{14} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{21} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{22} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{23} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1, & c_{24} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1 \\
c_{31} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1, & c_{32} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1 \\
c_{33} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1, & c_{34} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{41} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{42} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{43} &= -\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{44} &= \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1
\end{aligned}$$

Each 3×3 minor here is triangular, so that its determinant is the product of its diagonal entries (Theorems 5.14(c) and 5.22), or has a row with a single nonzero entry, along which it is expanded (Theorem 5.21). Along row 1 (Theorem 5.21), $\det A = 1 \cdot c_{11} + 1 \cdot c_{12} + 0 \cdot c_{13} + 0 \cdot c_{14} = 2$. Hence

$$A^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}\operatorname{adj} A = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} c_{11} & c_{21} & c_{31} & c_{41} \\ c_{12} & c_{22} & c_{32} & c_{42} \\ c_{13} & c_{23} & c_{33} & c_{43} \\ c_{14} & c_{24} & c_{34} & c_{44} \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_4(A)\operatorname{adj} A = (-1, 0, 0, 1)\operatorname{adj} A = (-1+1,\ 1-1,\ -1+1,\ 1+1) = (0, 0, 0, 2)$, the last row of $2I_4$.

Theorem 5.27. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ ($n \geqslant 2$) with $\det A \neq 0$, and let $b \in \mathbb{R}^n$. The system $Ax = b$ has exactly one solution x, and

$$x_j = \frac{\det A_j}{\det A} \qquad (1 \leqslant j \leqslant n)$$

where A_j is A with column j replaced by b (**Cramer's rule**).

Proof. • By Theorem 5.24, A is invertible with $A^{-1} = \frac{1}{\det A}\operatorname{adj} A$. If $Ax = b$, then $x = A^{-1}(Ax) = A^{-1}b$, so there is at most one solution; and $A(A^{-1}b) = b$, so $A^{-1}b$ is a solution. Hence the only solution is $x = \frac{1}{\det A}(\operatorname{adj} A)b$.

- Let c_{ij} be the cofactors of A. Entry j of $(\operatorname{adj} A)b$ is $\sum_{i=1}^{n}(\operatorname{adj} A)_{ji}b_i = \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_{ij}b_i$.

- A_j differs from A only in column j, so $A_j(i|j) = A(i|j)$, and the (i,j) entry of A_j is b_i. Expanding $\det A_j$ along column j (Theorem 5.21) gives

$$\det A_j = \sum_{i=1}^{n} b_i(-1)^{i+j} \det A_j(i|j) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} b_i(-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j) = \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_{ij} b_i$$

  Hence $x_j = \det A_j / \det A$. □

Example 5.28. For the matrix A of Example 5.26 and $b = (3,1,0,0)'$, find x_3 in $Ax = b$ by Cramer's rule, and check it against $x = A^{-1}b$ computed with that example.

Solution. Here $\det A = 2$, and A_3 is A with column 3 replaced by b. Row 3 of A_3 has the single nonzero entry 1, at position $(3,4)$; expanding along it and then along the last row of the 3×3 minor (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A_3 = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (-1)^{3+4} \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = -(-1)(-1)^{3+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -2$$

So $x_3 = -2/2 = -1$ by Theorem 5.27. With $\operatorname{adj} A$ of Example 5.26 and $b = 3e_1 + e_2$, $(\operatorname{adj} A)b = 3\operatorname{col}_1(\operatorname{adj} A) + \operatorname{col}_2(\operatorname{adj} A)$ (Theorem 1.4(b)), so

$$x = \frac{1}{2}(\operatorname{adj} A)b = \frac{1}{2}\big(3(1,1,-1,1)' + (-1,1,1,-1)'\big) = \frac{1}{2}(2,4,-2,2)' = (1,2,-1,1)'$$

Its third entry is -1; indeed $Ax = (1+2,\ 2-1,\ -1+1,\ -1+1)' = b$.

Determinants of block matrices and the Schur complement

Theorem 5.29. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$. Then

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix} = \det A \cdot \det D = \det \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

In particular $\det \operatorname{diag}(A, D) = \det A \cdot \det D$.

The diagonal blocks A and D are square, of possibly different sizes; for $p \neq q$ the off-diagonal blocks B and C are rectangular.

Proof.
- The first row of $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is $(1,0,\dots,0)$, and deleting row 1 and column 1 leaves $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_{p-1} & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$; expanding along the first row (Theorem 5.21) p times gives $\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \det D$. Likewise, expanding $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ q times along its last row $(0,\dots,0,1)$, whose entry 1 is a diagonal entry (sign $+1$), gives $\det A$.
- $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is upper triangular with diagonal entries 1, so its determinant is 1 (Theorem 5.14(c)).
- By the block product formula (Theorem 5.3),

$$\begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} I_p & B \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & I_q \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix}$$

  and by Theorem 5.18(b) its determinant is $\det D \cdot 1 \cdot \det A$.
- The transpose of $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A' & C' \\ 0 & D' \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.3(b)); by Theorem 5.22 and the case just proved, its determinant is $\det A' \cdot \det D' = \det A \cdot \det D$. Finally, $\operatorname{diag}(A, D)$ is the case $B = 0$. □

Theorem 5.30. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$.

(a) If A is invertible, then $\det M = \det A \cdot \det(D - CA^{-1}B)$.

(b) If D is invertible, then $\det M = \det D \cdot \det(A - BD^{-1}C)$.

In particular, if A is invertible, then M is invertible if and only if its Schur complement $D - CA^{-1}B$ is invertible.

Proof. (a) By Theorem 5.9, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D-CA^{-1}B \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. The left factor is lower triangular with diagonal entries 1, so its determinant is 1 (Theorem 5.22). By Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.29, $\det M = \det A \cdot \det(D - CA^{-1}B)$.

(b) By the block product formula, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A-BD^{-1}C & B-BD^{-1}D \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A-BD^{-1}C & 0 \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. The left factor is upper triangular with diagonal entries 1 (Theorem 5.14(c)); as in (a), $\det M = \det(A - BD^{-1}C) \cdot \det D$.

If A is invertible, then $\det A \neq 0$, so by (a) $\det M \neq 0$ if and only if $\det(D - CA^{-1}B) \neq 0$; apply Theorem 5.18(a) to M and to $D - CA^{-1}B$. □

Here A and D are square, of possibly different sizes p and q; $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$ are rectangular when $p \neq q$. For $p = q = 1$ and $a \neq 0$, (a) reads $\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{smallmatrix}\right) = a\left(d - \frac{cb}{a}\right) = ad - bc$.

Theorem 5.31. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible and $u, v \in \mathbb{R}^n$. Then

$$\det(A + uv') = \det A \cdot (1 + v'A^{-1}u)$$

In particular $\det(I_n + uv') = 1 + v'u$. (This is the **matrix determinant lemma**.)

Proof. Apply Theorem 5.30 to $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & -u \\ v' & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{(n+1)\times(n+1)}$ ($p = n$, $q = 1$).

- By (a), with the invertible block A, whose Schur complement is the 1×1 matrix $1 - v'A^{-1}(-u)$: $\det M = \det A \cdot (1 + v'A^{-1}u)$.
- By (b), with the invertible block $D = (1)$: $\det M = \det(1) \cdot \det\left(A - (-u)(1)^{-1}v'\right) = \det(A + uv')$.
- Comparing gives the formula; for $A = I_n$, $A^{-1} = I_n$. □

Theorem 5.32. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $T \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ be invertible, and let $U \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$ and $V \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$.

(a) $\det(A + UTV) = \det A \cdot \det T \cdot \det(T^{-1} + VA^{-1}U)$. Hence $A + UTV$ is invertible if and only if $T^{-1} + VA^{-1}U$ is invertible, and then

$$(A + UTV)^{-1} = A^{-1} - A^{-1}U(T^{-1} + VA^{-1}U)^{-1}VA^{-1}$$

(the **Sherman–Morrison–Woodbury formula**).

(b) For $u, v \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $A + uv'$ is invertible if and only if $1 + v'A^{-1}u \neq 0$, and then

$$(A + uv')^{-1} = A^{-1} - \frac{1}{1 + v'A^{-1}u}A^{-1}uv'A^{-1}$$

Proof. (a) Let $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & -U \\ V & T^{-1} \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{(n+m)\times(n+m)}$.

- The Schur complement of A in M is $E = T^{-1} - VA^{-1}(-U) = T^{-1} + VA^{-1}U$, and that of T^{-1} is $F = A - (-U)(T^{-1})^{-1}V = A + UTV$.
- By Theorem 5.30(a),(b), $\det M = \det A \cdot \det E = \det T^{-1} \cdot \det F$. As $\det T^{-1} = 1/\det T$ (Theorem 5.18(c)), $\det F = \det A \cdot \det T \cdot \det E$.

- Since $\det A \neq 0$ and $\det T \neq 0$, $\det F \neq 0$ if and only if $\det E \neq 0$; so F is invertible if and only if E is (Theorem 5.18(a)).
- Let E and F be invertible. Theorem 5.12, with the blocks A, $-U$, V, T^{-1} of M in place of A, B, C, D, gives M^{-1} twice. Its upper left block is $A^{-1}+A^{-1}(-U)E^{-1}VA^{-1}$ by (a) of that theorem and F^{-1} by (b). An invertible matrix has only one inverse (Definition 2.12), so $F^{-1} = A^{-1} - A^{-1}UE^{-1}VA^{-1}$.

(b) Take $m = 1$, $U = u$, $T = (1)$ and $V = v'$ in (a). Then $T^{-1} + VA^{-1}U$ is the 1×1 matrix $1 + v'A^{-1}u$, which is invertible if and only if it is not 0, with inverse $1/(1 + v'A^{-1}u)$. □

For instance, let $G \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times n}$ with $G'G$ invertible, and let $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$. Appending the row x' to G changes $G'G$ into $G'G + xx'$: by the block transpose and the block product formula (Theorem 5.3(b),(c)), $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} G \\ x' \end{smallmatrix}\right)' \left(\begin{smallmatrix} G \\ x' \end{smallmatrix}\right) = [G' \;\; x] \left(\begin{smallmatrix} G \\ x' \end{smallmatrix}\right) = G'G + xx'$. So (b), with $A = G'G$ and $u = v = x$, gives $(G'G + xx')^{-1}$ from $(G'G)^{-1}$ without a new inversion. The condition of (b) holds: with $w = (G'G)^{-1}x$, $x'(G'G)^{-1}x = (G'Gw)'w = (Gw)'(Gw) \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 1.9), so $1 + x'(G'G)^{-1}x \geqslant 1$.

Example 5.33. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $\rho \in \mathbb{R}$. The **equicorrelation matrix** is $R = (1-\rho)I_n + \rho J_n \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, with diagonal entries 1 and all other entries ρ: if n variables have correlation ρ for every pair, their correlation matrix is R. Find $\det R$, the values of ρ for which R is invertible, and R^{-1} for these ρ.

Solution.

- If $\rho = 1$, then $R = J_n$ has equal rows ($n \geqslant 2$), so $\det R = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(a)).
- Let $\rho \neq 1$. As $J_n = \mathbf{1}_n\mathbf{1}_n'$, $R = A + uv'$ with $A = (1-\rho)I_n$, $u = \rho\mathbf{1}_n$ and $v = \mathbf{1}_n$. Here $\det A = (1-\rho)^n$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), $A^{-1} = (1-\rho)^{-1}I_n$ and $v'A^{-1}u = \frac{\rho}{1-\rho}\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = \frac{n\rho}{1-\rho}$ (Proposition 1.15). By Theorem 5.31,

$$\det R = (1-\rho)^n\Big(1 + \frac{n\rho}{1-\rho}\Big) = (1-\rho)^{n-1}(1-\rho+n\rho) = (1-\rho)^{n-1}\Big(1+(n-1)\rho\Big)$$

  This formula also gives 0 for $\rho = 1$.
- By Theorem 5.18(a), R is invertible if and only if $\det R \neq 0$, that is, $\rho \neq 1$ and $\rho \neq -1/(n-1)$. For instance, for $n = 4$ and $\rho = -\frac{1}{3}$ every row of R has sum $1 + 3 \cdot (-\frac{1}{3}) = 0$, so $R\mathbf{1}_4 = 0$.
- For these ρ, $1 + v'A^{-1}u = 1 + \frac{n\rho}{1-\rho} = \frac{1+(n-1)\rho}{1-\rho} \neq 0$ and $A^{-1}uv'A^{-1} = \frac{\rho}{(1-\rho)^2}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = \frac{\rho}{(1-\rho)^2}J_n$. By Theorem 5.32(b),

$$R^{-1} = \frac{1}{1-\rho}I_n - \frac{1-\rho}{1+(n-1)\rho}\cdot\frac{\rho}{(1-\rho)^2}J_n = \frac{1}{1-\rho}\Big(I_n - \frac{\rho}{1+(n-1)\rho}J_n\Big)$$

  For instance, for $n = 4$ and $\rho = \frac{1}{3}$, $R^{-1} = \frac{3}{2}\Big(I_4 - \frac{1}{6}J_4\Big) = \frac{3}{2}I_4 - \frac{1}{4}J_4$. Check, with $J_4^2 = 4J_4$ (Proposition 1.15): $\Big(\frac{2}{3}I_4 + \frac{1}{3}J_4\Big)\Big(\frac{3}{2}I_4 - \frac{1}{4}J_4\Big) = I_4 - \frac{1}{6}J_4 + \frac{1}{2}J_4 - \frac{1}{3}J_4 = I_4$.

Rank and the Schur complement

Theorem 5.34. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$.

(a) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ is invertible, and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, $D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$, then $\operatorname{rank} M = p + \operatorname{rank}(D - CA^{-1}B)$.

(b) If $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$ is invertible, and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times p}$, then $\operatorname{rank} M = q + \operatorname{rank}(A - BD^{-1}C)$.

Proof. (a)

- By Theorem 5.9, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_n \end{smallmatrix}\right) M \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & D-CA^{-1}B \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and the two outer factors are invertible (Proposition 5.8).
- Invertible factors do not change the rank (Theorem 4.15(d)), and the rank of a block-diagonal matrix is the sum of the ranks of its blocks (Theorem 4.16(c)); so $\operatorname{rank} M = \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank}(D - CA^{-1}B)$, where $\operatorname{rank} A = p$ (Theorem 4.13(d)).

(b)

- By the block product formula, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & -BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right) M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A-BD^{-1}C & 0 \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (as in the proof of Theorem 5.30(b)), and multiplying on the right by $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -D^{-1}C & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ gives $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A-BD^{-1}C & 0 \\ C-DD^{-1}C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A-BD^{-1}C & 0 \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.
- Both outer factors are invertible (Proposition 5.8); as in (a), $\operatorname{rank} M = \operatorname{rank}(A - BD^{-1}C) + \operatorname{rank} D = \operatorname{rank}(A - BD^{-1}C) + q$. □

Example 5.35. Find the rank of

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ \hline 2 & 3 & 2 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 5}$$

Solution. Here $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ has $\det A = 1$ and $A^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Proposition 2.18), $B \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$. Then

$$CA^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CA^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and the Schur complement of A is

$$D - CA^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

It is nonzero and its two rows are equal, so its row space is spanned by the nonzero row $(1, -1, 0)$ and its rank is 1 (Definition 4.11 and Proposition 3.13(a)). By Theorem 5.34(a), $\operatorname{rank} M = 2 + 1 = 3$. The equal rows of the Schur complement give a relation among the rows of M: by Theorem 5.9, the last two rows of $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_2 & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) M$ are those of $[0 \;\; D - CA^{-1}B]$, that is (Theorem 1.4(c)),

$$\operatorname{row}_3(M) - \operatorname{row}_1(M) - \operatorname{row}_2(M) = (0, 0, 1, -1, 0) = \operatorname{row}_4(M) - \operatorname{row}_2(M)$$

so $\operatorname{row}_3(M) = \operatorname{row}_1(M) + \operatorname{row}_4(M)$.

Rank and subdeterminants

Definition 5.36. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $1 \leqslant k \leqslant \min\{m, n\}$. For rows $i_1 < \cdots < i_k$ and columns $j_1 < \cdots < j_k$ of A, the $k \times k$ matrix with (s, t) entry $a_{i_s j_t}$ is a $k \times k$ **submatrix** of A, and its determinant is a $k \times k$ **minor** of A.

Theorem 5.37. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ have rank r.

(a) Every $k \times k$ minor of A with $k > r$ is 0.

(b) If $r \geqslant 1$, then A has an $r \times r$ submatrix with nonzero determinant.

So if $A \neq 0$, then $\operatorname{rank} A$ is the largest k for which A has a nonzero $k \times k$ minor.

Proof. (a)

- Let A_* be the $k \times k$ submatrix in rows $i_1 < \cdots < i_k$ and columns $j_1 < \cdots < j_k$, with $k > r$. The k columns $a_{j_1}, \ldots, a_{j_k}$ of A lie in $\mathcal{C}(A)$, of dimension $r < k$, so they are linearly dependent (Theorem 4.5(c)): $c_1 a_{j_1} + \cdots + c_k a_{j_k} = 0$ for some $c = (c_1, \ldots, c_k)' \neq 0$.
- Entries $i_1, \ldots, i_k$ of this vector equation read $A_* c = 0$. So the columns of A_* are linearly dependent, $\operatorname{rank} A_* < k$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), and $\det A_* = 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

(b)

- $\operatorname{rank} A' = r$ (Theorem 4.13(a)), so the pivot columns of A' are r linearly independent columns of A' (Theorem 4.8(a)): A has r linearly independent rows, say rows $i_1 < \cdots < i_r$.
- The matrix $B \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times n}$ formed by these rows has full row rank, $\operatorname{rank} B = r$ (Theorem 4.13(c)); so it has r linearly independent columns, say columns $j_1 < \cdots < j_r$ (its pivot columns, Theorem 4.8(a)).
- They form an $r \times r$ submatrix A_* of B, and so of A, with independent columns: $\operatorname{rank} A_* = r$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), and $\det A_* \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

By (a) and (b), no $k \times k$ minor with $k > r$ is nonzero, and some $r \times r$ minor is. □

Example 5.38. Find, by minors, the ranks of

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 2 & 5 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 & 2 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 2 & 5 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 & 2 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Both are 3×4, so their ranks are at most 3 (Theorem 4.13(a)).

- B: in the 3×3 submatrix in columns $1, 2, 3$, row 3, $(4, 3, 1)$, is the sum of rows 1 and 2. The operations $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1$, $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2$ do not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)) and give a zero row; so this minor is 0 (Theorem 5.14(b)). The minor in columns $2, 3, 4$ is, along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 5 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 \\ 3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 1 \cdot (-1 - 2) - 2 \cdot (2 - 6) + 5 \cdot (2 + 3) = -3 + 8 + 25 = 30 \neq 0$$

  So $\operatorname{rank} B = 3$ (Theorem 5.37).
- C: row 3 of C is the sum of rows 1 and 2, and so is row 3 of each of its four 3×3 submatrices; as for B, all four 3×3 minors are 0. The 2×2 minor in rows $1, 2$ and columns $1, 2$ is $3 \cdot 2 - 1 \cdot 1 = 5 \neq 0$. So $\operatorname{rank} C = 2$ (Theorem 5.37).

Permutations

Definition 5.39. A **permutation** of degree n is a function φ from $\{1, \ldots, n\}$ to itself that is one-to-one and onto: each of $1, \ldots, n$ equals $\varphi(i)$ for exactly one i. We write $\varphi = \langle \varphi(1), \ldots, \varphi(n) \rangle$; the **identity permutation** is $\mathrm{id} = \langle 1, 2, \ldots, n \rangle$. The **product** of permutations φ, ψ of degree n is the composite $\varphi\psi$, $(\varphi\psi)(i) = \varphi(\psi(i))$, again a permutation, and the **inverse** φ^{-1}, also a permutation, is given by $\varphi^{-1}(k) = i$ when $\varphi(i) = k$; thus $\varphi\varphi^{-1} = \varphi^{-1}\varphi = \mathrm{id}$.

There are $n! = n(n-1) \cdots 2 \cdot 1$ permutations of degree n: $\varphi(1)$ can be chosen in n ways, then $\varphi(2)$ in $n - 1$ ways, and so on. For $n = 3$ they are $\langle 1, 2, 3 \rangle$, $\langle 1, 3, 2 \rangle$, $\langle 2, 1, 3 \rangle$, $\langle 2, 3, 1 \rangle$, $\langle 3, 1, 2 \rangle$ and $\langle 3, 2, 1 \rangle$.

Definition 5.40. The **permutation matrix** of a permutation φ of degree n is the matrix $P_\varphi \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ with rows $e'_{\varphi(1)}, \ldots, e'_{\varphi(n)}$: its (i, j) entry is 1 if $j = \varphi(i)$ and 0 otherwise.

So P_φ has exactly one entry 1 in each row and in each column, and $P_{\mathrm{id}} = I_n$. The interchange matrix P_{rs} of Definition 2.14 is P_φ for the permutation φ that exchanges r and s and leaves the other numbers in place.

Proposition 5.41. Let φ, ψ be permutations of degree n.

(a) For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$, row i of $P_\varphi A$ is row $\varphi(i)$ of A: $P_\varphi A$ lists the rows of A in the order $\varphi(1), \ldots, \varphi(n)$.

(b) $P_\psi P_\varphi = P_{\varphi\psi}$.

(c) $P'_\varphi = P_{\varphi^{-1}}$, and $P'_\varphi P_\varphi = P_\varphi P'_\varphi = I_n$; so P_φ is invertible, with $P_\varphi^{-1} = P'_\varphi$.

Proof. (a) $\mathrm{row}_i(P_\varphi A) = \mathrm{row}_i(P_\varphi)A = e'_{\varphi(i)}A = \mathrm{row}_{\varphi(i)}(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)).

(b) By (a), row i of $P_\psi P_\varphi$ is row $\psi(i)$ of P_φ, which is $e'_{\varphi(\psi(i))} = e'_{(\varphi\psi)(i)}$, row i of $P_{\varphi\psi}$.

(c)

- The (i,j) entry of P'_φ is the (j,i) entry of P_φ. It is 1 if $i = \varphi(j)$, that is, $j = \varphi^{-1}(i)$, and 0 otherwise; this is the (i,j) entry of $P_{\varphi^{-1}}$.
- By (b), $P'_\varphi P_\varphi = P_{\varphi^{-1}} P_\varphi = P_{\varphi\varphi^{-1}} = P_{\mathrm{id}} = I_n$, and likewise $P_\varphi P'_\varphi = P_\varphi P_{\varphi^{-1}} = P_{\varphi^{-1}\varphi} = I_n$. □

If the rows of a data matrix X_0 hold the measurements on n units, $P_\varphi X_0$ lists the same units in another order, for instance sorted by one variable. By Theorem 1.9 and Proposition 5.41(c), $(P_\varphi X_0)'(P_\varphi X_0) = X_0' P'_\varphi P_\varphi X_0 = X_0' X_0$: reordering the units does not change $X_0' X_0$.

Example 5.42. (a) The data matrix X_0 below holds the measurements of two variables on four units. Sorting the units by the first variable puts them in the order $3, 1, 4, 2$; so for $\varphi = \langle 3, 1, 4, 2\rangle$ (Proposition 5.41(a))

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 7 \\ 5 & 1 \\ 1 & 4 \\ 3 & 6 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_\varphi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_\varphi X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 4 \\ 2 & 7 \\ 3 & 6 \\ 5 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) Let $\varphi = \langle 2, 3, 1\rangle$ and $\psi = \langle 2, 1, 3\rangle$. Then $\varphi\psi = \langle \varphi(2), \varphi(1), \varphi(3)\rangle = \langle 3, 2, 1\rangle$ and $\psi\varphi = \langle \psi(2), \psi(3), \psi(1)\rangle = \langle 1, 3, 2\rangle$, so $\varphi\psi \neq \psi\varphi$. Since $\varphi(3) = 1$, $\varphi(1) = 2$ and $\varphi(2) = 3$, the inverse is $\varphi^{-1} = \langle 3, 1, 2\rangle$.

Exercises

Exercise 5.1. Let

$$A = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 2 \\ \hline 2 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{array}\right), \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

where the rows of A are split into groups of 2 and 1 rows and its columns into groups of 2 and 2 columns.

(a) Split the columns of B into groups of 1 and 2 columns, and split its rows so that the partitions of A and B are conformal for multiplication. Write down the blocks A_{ij} and B_{jk}.

(b) Compute the blocks of AB by Theorem 5.3(c).

(c) Check the result against the ordinary product AB.

Solution. (a) The row groups of B must be the column groups of A, of 2 and 2 (Definition 5.2):

$$B = \left(\begin{array}{c|cc} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ \hline 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

So $A_{11} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $A_{12} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $A_{21} = (2,\ -1)$, $A_{22} = (1,\ 0)$, and $B_{11} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B_{12} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B_{21} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B_{22} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 3 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

(b) AB is partitioned with the row groups of A (2 and 1 rows) and the column groups of B (1 and 2 columns), so its blocks are 2×1, 2×2, 1×1 and 1×2:

$$\begin{aligned} (AB)_{11} &= A_{11}B_{11} + A_{12}B_{21} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 6 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix} \\ (AB)_{12} &= A_{11}B_{12} + A_{12}B_{22} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 1 \\ 6 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 \\ 7 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \\ (AB)_{21} &= A_{21}B_{11} + A_{22}B_{21} = 3 + 2 = 5 \\ (AB)_{22} &= A_{21}B_{12} + A_{22}B_{22} = (-1,\ 4) + (0,\ 1) = (-1,\ 5) \end{aligned}$$

For instance, the first row of $A_{12}B_{22}$ is $0\cdot(0,\ 1) + (-1)(3,\ -1) = (-3,\ 1)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)). Hence

$$AB = \left(\begin{array}{c|cc} -1 & -1 & 3 \\ 5 & 7 & 1 \\ \hline 5 & -1 & 5 \end{array}\right)$$

(c) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\mathrm{row}_i(AB) = \mathrm{row}_i(A)B$:

- $\mathrm{row}_1(A)B = (1,0,2) + 2(-1,1,0) - (0,3,-1) = (-1,-1,3)$;
- $\mathrm{row}_2(A)B = (-1,1,0) + 3(2,0,1) + 2(0,3,-1) = (5,7,1)$;
- $\mathrm{row}_3(A)B = 2(1,0,2) - (-1,1,0) + (2,0,1) = (5,-1,5)$.

These are the rows found in (b).

Exercise 5.2. Let A and B be the 3×5 matrices and C the 5×4 matrix partitioned as

$$A = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 3 & -2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 3 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right), \quad B = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & -3 & -2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right), \quad C = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ \hline 3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

With blocks $A = (A_{st})$, $B = (B_{st})$, $C = (C_{st})$ $(s,t = 1,2)$, show that

$$A + B = (A_{st} + B_{st}), \qquad A' = \begin{pmatrix} A'_{11} & A'_{21} \\ A'_{12} & A'_{22} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AC = \begin{pmatrix} A_{11}C_{11} + A_{12}C_{21} & A_{11}C_{12} + A_{12}C_{22} \\ A_{21}C_{11} + A_{22}C_{21} & A_{21}C_{12} + A_{22}C_{22} \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Adding entrywise,

$$A + B = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 2 & 0 & -4 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 3 & 3 & 1 & 3 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & 3 & 2 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

and each block is the sum of the corresponding blocks of A and B. Transposing,

$$A' = \left(\begin{array}{cc|c} 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A'_{11} & A'_{21} \\ A'_{12} & A'_{22} \end{pmatrix}$$

Multiplying in the ordinary way,

$$AC = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 10 & 5 & -2 & 3 \\ 5 & -2 & 7 & 3 \\ \hline 7 & 1 & 4 & 6 \end{array}\right)$$

The blockwise products give the same four blocks:

$$\begin{aligned} A_{11}C_{11} + A_{12}C_{21} &= \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 6 \\ 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 7 & -1 \\ 3 & -4 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 10 & 5 \\ 5 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \\ A_{11}C_{12} + A_{12}C_{22} &= \begin{pmatrix} -4 & -1 \\ 4 & 2 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 4 \\ 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 3 \\ 7 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \\ A_{21}C_{11} + A_{22}C_{21} &= (-1,\ 0) + (8,\ 1) = (7,\ 1) \\ A_{21}C_{12} + A_{22}C_{22} &= (3,\ 1) + (1,\ 5) = (4,\ 6) \end{aligned}$$

For instance, $A_{12}C_{21} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ -1 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 7 & -1 \\ 3 & -4 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. This agrees with Theorem 5.3.

Exercise 5.3. Let

$$N = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

Here $A \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$. Find N^{-1} by applying Proposition 5.6(c) to N', and check the answer by multiplication.

Solution. By Theorem 5.3(b), N' with groups $(3, 2)$ is $N' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A' & C' \\ 0 & D' \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, upper block triangular, with

$$A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}, \qquad D' = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The matrix A' is the block A_{22} of Example 5.7, so

$$(A')^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and by Proposition 2.18 ($3 \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 1 = 1$), $(D')^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Then

$$(A')^{-1}C' = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad -(A')^{-1}C'(D')^{-1} = -\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 4 \\ 1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

so by Proposition 5.6(c) with $p = 3$, $q = 2$

$$(N')^{-1} = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -2 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 3 \end{array}\right), \qquad N^{-1} = \left((N')^{-1}\right)' = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 4 & -2 & -1 & -2 & 3 \end{array}\right)$$

by Theorem 2.13(c). Check, with the blocks

$$A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}, \qquad D^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

of N^{-1}: the $(2,1)$ block of NN^{-1} is

$$CA^{-1} + DR = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

The $(1,2)$ block is $A \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot D^{-1} = 0$, and the diagonal blocks are $AA^{-1} = I_3$ and $DD^{-1} = I_2$. So $NN^{-1} = I_5$.

Exercise 5.4. Let

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & 1 & 1 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 3 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

Here $A \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$, $D \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$. Find the Schur complement E of A and $\det M$. Then compute M^{-1} with Corollary 5.10(a).

Solution. Here A is the block A_{22} of Example 5.7, so

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $\det A = 1$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). With $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $D = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$,

$$A^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CA^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$E = D - CA^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\det M = \det A \cdot \det E = 1 \cdot 1 = 1$ (Theorem 5.30(a)), and $E^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ by Proposition 2.18.

- With $L = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_3 & 0 \\ -CA^{-1} & I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $U = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_3 & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, Corollary 5.10(a), with E in place of S, gives $M^{-1} = U \operatorname{diag}(A^{-1}, E^{-1})L$.
- By the block product formula,

$$U \operatorname{diag}(A^{-1}, E^{-1}) = \begin{pmatrix} A^{-1} & -A^{-1}BE^{-1} \\ 0 & E^{-1} \end{pmatrix} = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

  Here $-A^{-1}BE^{-1} = -\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -2 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$. Multiplying on the right by L adds to block column 1 the block column 2 times $-CA^{-1} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$:

$$M^{-1} = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & -1 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{array}\right) \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline -1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 3 & -3 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ \hline -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -2 & -1 & -1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_1(M)M^{-1}$ is the sum of rows 1, 2, 4 of M^{-1}, namely $(3-1-1,\ -3+2+1,\ 1-1+0,\ -2+1+1,\ 2-1-1) = (1,0,0,0,0)$; and $\operatorname{row}_4(M)M^{-1} = (1,1,1,4,2)M^{-1} = (3-1+0-4+2,\ -3+2+1+4-4,\ 1-1+2+0-2,\ -2+1+0+4-2,\ 2-1-1-4+4) = (0,0,0,1,0)$.

Exercise 5.5. Let

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 4 & 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that A is not invertible, so that Theorem 5.12(a) does not apply.

(b) Find D^{-1}, the Schur complement $F = A - BD^{-1}C$ of D, and $\det M$.

(c) Use Theorem 5.12(b) to find M^{-1}, and check the answer.

Solution. (a) Here $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $D = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Since $\det A = 4 \cdot 1 - 2 \cdot 2 = 0$, A is not invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)).

(b)

- $\det D = 1 \cdot 2 - 1 \cdot 1 = 1$, so $D^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (the 2×2 case of Theorem 5.24).
- Then

$$BD^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BD^{-1}C = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- So $F = A - BD^{-1}C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Its determinant is $2 \cdot 0 - 1 \cdot 1 = -1$, so F is invertible, and by the same formula $F^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.
- By Theorem 5.30(b), $\det M = \det D \cdot \det F = 1 \cdot (-1) = -1$.

(c)

- The products in the formula of Theorem 5.12(b):

$$\begin{aligned} F^{-1}BD^{-1} &= \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \\ D^{-1}C &= \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \\ D^{-1}CF^{-1} &= \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \\ D^{-1}CF^{-1}BD^{-1} &= \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

- So $D^{-1} + D^{-1}CF^{-1}BD^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and by Theorem 5.12(b)

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} F^{-1} & -F^{-1}BD^{-1} \\ -D^{-1}CF^{-1} & D^{-1} + D^{-1}CF^{-1}BD^{-1} \end{pmatrix} = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -2 & -2 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

- Check: $\mathrm{row}_1(M)M^{-1} = 4(0,1,1,-1) + 2(1,-2,-2,1) + (1,-2,0,0) + 2(-1,1,0,1) = (1,0,0,0)$ and $\mathrm{row}_3(M)M^{-1} = (0,1,1,-1) + (1,-2,0,0) + (-1,1,0,1) = (0,0,1,0)$; rows 2 and 4 likewise give $(0,1,0,0)$ and $(0,0,0,1)$.

Exercise 5.6. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 3 & 4 \\ -1 & 3 & -4 & 2 \\ 3 & -2 & 5 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $\det A$ by forward elimination (Theorem 5.15), keeping track of the interchanges.

(b) Compute $\det B$ in the same way.

(c) Which of A and B is invertible?

Solution. (a)

$$A \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = U$$

- Since $a_{11} = 0$, Step 2 of Definition 2.5 interchanges rows 1 and 2. After the first column is cleared, the entry in position $(2, 2)$ is 0, and rows 2 and 3 are interchanged.
- There are two interchanges, and the additions do not change the determinant. By Theorem 5.15, $\det A = (-1)^2 \cdot 1 \cdot (-1) \cdot 2 \cdot 3 = -6$.

(b)

$$B \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = U$$

There are no interchanges, and U is upper triangular with $u_{33} = u_{44} = 0$. So $\det B = 1 \cdot 1 \cdot 0 \cdot 0 = 0$ by Theorem 5.15.

(c) By Theorem 5.18(a), A is invertible, as $\det A = -6 \neq 0$, and B is not. Indeed $\mathrm{row}_4(B) = \mathrm{row}_1(B) + \mathrm{row}_2(B)$.

Exercise 5.7. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 5 & -5 \\ 3 & 2 & -5 \\ 6 & -2 & -5 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 6 & 5 \\ -2 & -3 & -5 \\ 2 & 3 & 9 \end{pmatrix}$$

Show that $\det A = -5$ and $\det B = 24$, in each case (i) by expansion along the first row and (ii) by row and column operations.

Solution. (A)

- (i) Along the first row (Theorem 5.21), $\det A = 1 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & -5 \\ -2 & -5 \end{smallmatrix} \right) - 5 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -5 \\ 6 & -5 \end{smallmatrix} \right) - 5 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 6 & -2 \end{smallmatrix} \right) = (-10 - 10) - 5(-15 + 30) - 5(-6 - 12) = -20 - 75 + 90 = -5$.
- (ii) Column 3 is -5 times $(1, 1, 1)'$. Taking the factor -5 out of column 3 (Definition 5.13(a) for columns, Theorem 5.22) and then subtracting row 1 from rows 2 and 3 (Definition 5.13(b)),

$$\det A = -5 \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 5 & 1 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 6 & -2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 5 & 1 \\ 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 6 & -2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 5 & 1 \\ 2 & -3 & 0 \\ 5 & -7 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The last matrix has the single nonzero entry 1 in column 3, at position $(1,3)$; expanding along column 3 (Theorem 5.21), its determinant is $(-1)^{1+3}\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&-3\\5&-7\end{smallmatrix}\right) = -14+15 = 1$. Hence $\det A = -5\cdot 1 = -5$.

(B)

- (i) Along the first row, $\det B = 2\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-3&-5\\3&9\end{smallmatrix}\right) - 6\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-2&-5\\2&9\end{smallmatrix}\right) + 5\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-2&-3\\2&3\end{smallmatrix}\right) = 2(-27+15) - 6(-18+10) + 5(-6+6) = -24+48+0 = 24$.
- (ii)
$$B \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2+R_1} \begin{pmatrix}2&6&5\\0&3&0\\0&-3&4\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_2} \begin{pmatrix}2&6&5\\0&3&0\\0&0&4\end{pmatrix}$$
No arrow changes the determinant (Theorem 5.15 with $t=0$), so $\det B = 2\cdot 3\cdot 4 = 24$.

Exercise 5.8. Compute, by row and column operations,
$$\det\begin{pmatrix}1&2&-1&3\\2&1&0&3\\3&1&2&3\\1&0&1&3\end{pmatrix} \qquad \text{and} \qquad \det\begin{pmatrix}1&2&0&1\\2&5&1&2\\-1&-2&3&1\\1&2&6&7\end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Call the two matrices A and B.

(A) Column 4 is 3 times $\mathbf{1}_4$. Taking the factor 3 out of column 4 (Definition 5.13(a) for columns, Theorem 5.22) and then subtracting row 1 from rows 2, 3, 4 (Definition 5.13(b)),
$$\det A = 3\det\begin{pmatrix}1&2&-1&1\\2&1&0&1\\3&1&2&1\\1&0&1&1\end{pmatrix} = 3\det\begin{pmatrix}1&2&-1&1\\1&-1&1&0\\2&-1&3&0\\0&-2&2&0\end{pmatrix}$$
The last matrix has the single nonzero entry 1 in column 4, at position $(1,4)$. Expanding along column 4 and then the 3×3 determinant along its first row (Theorem 5.21),
$$\det A = 3\cdot(-1)^{1+4}\det\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&1\\2&-1&3\\0&-2&2\end{pmatrix} = -3\Big(1(-2+6)+1(4-0)+1(-4-0)\Big) = -3\cdot 4 = -12$$

(B)
$$B \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0&1\\0&1&1&0\\0&0&3&2\\0&0&6&6\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_3} \begin{pmatrix}1&2&0&1\\0&1&1&0\\0&0&3&2\\0&0&0&2\end{pmatrix}$$
No arrow changes the determinant (Theorem 5.15 with $t=0$), so $\det B = 1\cdot 1\cdot 3\cdot 2 = 6$.

Exercise 5.9. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ with $\det A = 2$ and $\det B = -3$. Find

(a) $\det(AB)$, $\det A'$ and $\det(A'B)$;

(b) $\det(2A)$, $\det(-B)$ and $\det(-2AB)$;

(c) $\det A^{-1}$, $\det(A^{-1}B)$ and $\det(B^{-1}AB)$;

(d) $\det(A^3B^2)$, and the real numbers c with $\det(cA) = 162$.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 5.18(b), $\det(AB) = \det A \cdot \det B = 2 \cdot (-3) = -6$. By Theorem 5.22, $\det A' = \det A = 2$, so $\det(A'B) = \det A' \cdot \det B = -6$.

(b) By Theorem 5.18(c) with $n = 4$, $\det(2A) = 2^4 \det A = 32$ and $\det(-B) = (-1)^4 \det B = -3$. With (a) of this exercise, $\det(-2AB) = (-2)^4 \det(AB) = 16 \cdot (-6) = -96$.

(c) $\det A \neq 0$ and $\det B \neq 0$, so A and B are invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)). By Theorem 5.18(b),(c),

$$\det A^{-1} = \frac{1}{\det A} = \frac{1}{2}, \qquad \det(A^{-1}B) = \det A^{-1} \cdot \det B = \frac{1}{2} \cdot (-3) = -\frac{3}{2}$$
$$\det(B^{-1}AB) = \det B^{-1} \cdot \det A \cdot \det B = -\frac{1}{3} \cdot 2 \cdot (-3) = 2$$

(d) By Theorem 5.18(b),(c), $\det(A^3B^2) = (\det A)^3(\det B)^2 = 8 \cdot 9 = 72$. Also $\det(cA) = c^4 \det A = 2c^4$, and $2c^4 = 162$ gives $c^4 = 81$, that is, $(c^2 - 9)(c^2 + 9) = 0$. As $c^2 + 9 > 0$, $c^2 = 9$: $c = 3$ or $c = -3$.

Exercise 5.10. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ with $\det A = 2$ and $\det B = -3$. Compute $\det(3A)$, $\det(A'B^{-1})$, $\det(A^2B')$, $\det(B^{-1}AB)$, $\det(-B)$ and $\det(\operatorname{adj} A)$.

Solution. By Theorems 5.18(b),(c) and 5.22 (B is invertible since $\det B \neq 0$):

$$\det(3A) = 3^4 \cdot 2 = 162, \qquad \det(A'B^{-1}) = \det A \cdot \frac{1}{\det B} = -\frac{2}{3}$$
$$\det(A^2B') = 2^2 \cdot (-3) = -12, \quad \det(B^{-1}AB) = \frac{1}{-3} \cdot 2 \cdot (-3) = 2$$
$$\det(-B) = (-1)^4(-3) = -3$$

By Theorem 5.24, $A \operatorname{adj} A = 2I_4$, so $\det A \cdot \det(\operatorname{adj} A) = \det(2I_4) = 2^4$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.14(c)) and $\det(\operatorname{adj} A) = 16/2 = 8$.

Exercise 5.11. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 4 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 2 & 3 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $\det A$ by expansion along the third column, and check the value by expansion along the first row; expand each 3×3 minor along a row or a column that contains a zero.

(b) Compute $\det B$ by expansion along the third row, expanding each 3×3 minor along a row or a column that contains a zero.

(c) Check the value of $\det B$ by expansion along the second column.

Solution. (a) Column 3 of A is $(0, 4, -2, 0)'$, so by Theorem 5.21, $\det A = 4c_{23} + (-2)c_{33}$. Expanding the first 3×3 minor along its third column $(0, 0, 2)'$ and the second along its first row $(3, 1, 0)$,

$$c_{23} = (-1)^{2+3} \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -2 \cdot 5 = -10$$
$$c_{33} = (-1)^{3+3} \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = 3 \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} - 1 \cdot \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = 3 \cdot (-3) - 4 = -13$$

Hence $\det A = 4 \cdot (-10) + (-2) \cdot (-13) = -40 + 26 = -14$. Along the first row $(3, 1, 0, 0)$, $\det A = 3c_{11} + 1 \cdot c_{12}$; expanding the first minor along its second row $(2, -2, 0)$ and the second along its third row $(0, 0, 2)$,

$$c_{11} = (-1)^{1+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 4 & 1 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} + (-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -16 + 6 = -10$$

$$c_{12} = (-1)^{1+2} \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 4 & 1 \\ 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 4 \\ 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = -2 \cdot (-8) = 16$$

So $\det A = 3 \cdot (-10) + 1 \cdot 16 = -14$, as before.

(b)

- Row 3 of B is $(2, 0, 0, -2)$, so only the cofactors c_{31} and c_{34} are needed: $\det B = 2c_{31} + (-2)c_{34}$, where
$$c_{31} = (-1)^{3+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad c_{34} = (-1)^{3+4} \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 2 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$
- The first minor, along its first column $(-1, 3, 0)'$: $(-1) \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -2 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) - 3 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) + 0 = -1 \cdot 6 - 3 \cdot (-5) = 9$. So $c_{31} = 9$.
- The second minor, along its second row $(-2, 3, 0)$: $-(-2) \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) + 3 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) - 0 = 2 \cdot (-3) + 3 \cdot 4 = 6$. So $c_{34} = -6$.
- Hence $\det B = 2 \cdot 9 + (-2) \cdot (-6) = 18 + 12 = 30$.

(c) Column 2 of B is $(-1, 3, 0, 0)'$, so $\det B = (-1)c_{12} + 3c_{22}$.

- The two minors are
$$B(1|2) = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B(2|2) = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 3 \\ 2 & 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$
- Along the second column $(0, 0, 3)'$ of $B(1|2)$, $\det B(1|2) = 3 \cdot (-1)^{3+2} \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -3 \cdot 8 = -24$, so $c_{12} = (-1)^{1+2} \cdot (-24) = 24$.
- Along the second row $(2, 0, -2)$ of $B(2|2)$, $\det B(2|2) = -2 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) + 0 - (-2) \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -2 \cdot (-5) + 2 \cdot 4 = 18$, so $c_{22} = (-1)^{2+2} \cdot 18 = 18$.
- Hence $\det B = (-1) \cdot 24 + 3 \cdot 18 = 30$, as in (b).

Exercise 5.12. Compute the determinant of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 4 & 0 & 5 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) by repeated cofactor expansion: expand $\det A$ in terms of determinants of 3×3 matrices, these in terms of determinants of 2×2 matrices, and finally these in terms of determinants of 1×1 matrices; (b) by row reduction to triangular form.

Solution. (a)

- Column 1 has the single nonzero entry $a_{21} = 1$; expanding along column 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A = 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 5 \\ 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Row 3 of this 3×3 matrix has the single nonzero entry -6, in column 2:

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 5 \\ 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = (-6)(-1)^{3+2} \det \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 5 \\ 3 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Expanding the 2×2 determinant along its first row, $4(-1)^{1+1}\det(-2)+5(-1)^{1+2}\det(3) = -8-15 = -23$.
- Hence $\det A = (-1) \cdot 6 \cdot (-23) = 138$.

(b)

$$A \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & 5 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 7 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 7 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -23 \\ 0 & 0 & -6 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 7 \\ 0 & 0 & -6 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -23 \end{pmatrix}$$

There are two interchanges, and the additions do not change the determinant (Theorem 5.15, $t = 2$); so $\det A = (-1)^2 \cdot 1 \cdot 1 \cdot (-6) \cdot (-23) = 138$.

Exercise 5.13. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$ let

$$A(t) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & t & 1 & 2-t \\ 1 & 1 & t & 2-t \\ 1 & t & t & 5-t \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $\det A(t)$ by row operations, and factor it.

(b) For which t is $A(t)$ invertible?

(c) Find $\operatorname{rank} A(t)$ for each t for which $A(t)$ is not invertible.

Solution. (a)

$$A(t) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & t-1 & t-1 & 4-t \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 1-t \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & t+2 \end{pmatrix}$$

using $(4-t)-(1-t) = 3$ and $3-(1-t) = t+2$. Every operation adds a multiple of a row to another row, for every value of t, and there are no interchanges; the last matrix is upper triangular. By Theorem 5.15,

$$\det A(t) = 1 \cdot (t-1) \cdot (t-1) \cdot (t+2) = (t-1)^2(t+2)$$

(b) By Theorem 5.18(a), $A(t)$ is invertible if and only if $\det A(t) \neq 0$, that is, $t \neq 1$ and $t \neq -2$.

(c) The operations of (a) do not depend on t, so for $t = 1$ and for $t = -2$ they take $A(t)$ to the last matrix of (a) with that value of t.

- For $t = 1$ its rows 2 and 3 are zero, and row 4 is not (the second and third arrows of (a) subtract these zero rows and change nothing). The next pivot column is column 4 (Step 1 of Definition 2.5), and Step 2 interchanges rows 2 and 4:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- For $t = -2$ it is

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- The matrix after the interchange ($t = 1$) and this matrix ($t = -2$) are the results of forward elimination of $A(1)$ and $A(-2)$ (Definition 2.5, with the scaling of Step 3 postponed), and $\operatorname{rank} A(t)$ is their number of nonzero rows (Definition 4.11 and Remark 4.2). So $\operatorname{rank} A(1) = 2$ and $\operatorname{rank} A(-2) = 3$.

Exercise 5.14. Let $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \alpha & 0 \\ 4 & 5 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

For which α is $\det A = 0$? Show that the columns of A are linearly dependent in that case.

Solution. Expanding along the first row (Theorem 5.21), $\det A = 1 \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 5 & 3 \\ 0 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) - \alpha \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 4 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 10 - 5\alpha$, so $\det A = 0$ exactly when $\alpha = 2$ (and A is invertible exactly when $\alpha \neq 2$, Theorem 5.18(a)). For $\alpha = 2$ and $x = (2, -1, -1)'$, $Ax = (2 - 2 + 0,\ 8 - 5 - 3,\ 2 - 0 - 2)' = 0$; that is, $2a_1 - a_2 - a_3 = 0$, a nontrivial relation among the columns.

Exercise 5.15. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ -3 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute the sixteen cofactors c_{ij} of A, and $\det A$ by expansion along the second row.

(b) Find $\operatorname{adj} A$ and A^{-1} (Theorem 5.24), and check that $AA^{-1} = I_4$.

(c) Solve $Ax = b$ by Cramer's rule (Theorem 5.27), and check the solution with $A^{-1}b$.

Solution. (a) By Definition 5.20,

$$\begin{aligned}
c_{11} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 2, & c_{12} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{13} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -2, & c_{14} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 4 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 2 \\
c_{21} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{22} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 4 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1 \\
c_{23} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 2, & c_{24} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 4 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -2 \\
c_{31} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1, & c_{32} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1 \\
c_{33} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1, & c_{34} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1 \\
c_{41} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0, & c_{42} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & 3 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0 \\
c_{43} &= -\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0, & c_{44} &= \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 4 & -2 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1
\end{aligned}$$

- Each of the twelve minors with $i \leqslant 3$ has a third row or a third column whose only nonzero entry is the 1 in position $(3,3)$; expanding along it (Theorem 5.21) leaves the 2×2 determinant of its first two rows and columns. For instance, $\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -2 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0 + 2 = 2$ for c_{11}.
- The minors $\det A(4|j)$ with $j \leqslant 3$ have a zero third column, so they are 0 (Theorem 5.14(b) for columns, Theorem 5.22).
- $c_{44} = \det A(4|4)$, along its second row $(1,0,1)$, is $-\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ -2 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) - \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & -1 \\ 4 & -2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -1 + 2 = 1$.
- Along row 2 of A (Theorem 5.21), $\det A = 1 \cdot c_{21} + 0 \cdot c_{22} + 1 \cdot c_{23} + 0 \cdot c_{24} = -1 + 2 = 1$.

(b) Since $\det A = 1$, Theorem 5.24 gives

$$A^{-1} = \operatorname{adj} A = \begin{pmatrix} c_{11} & c_{21} & c_{31} & c_{41} \\ c_{12} & c_{22} & c_{32} & c_{42} \\ c_{13} & c_{23} & c_{33} & c_{43} \\ c_{14} & c_{24} & c_{34} & c_{44} \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_1(A)A^{-1} = 3(2,-1,-1,0) - (1,1,-1,0) + 2(-2,2,1,0) = (1,0,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(A)A^{-1} = (2,-1,-1,0)+(-2,2,1,0) = (0,1,0,0)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(A)A^{-1} = 4(2,-1,-1,0)-2(1,1,-1,0)+3(-2,2,1,0) = (0,0,1,0)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(A)A^{-1} = (-2,2,1,0) + (2,-2,-1,1) = (0,0,0,1)$ (Theorem 1.4(c)).

(c)

- As $\det A = 1 \neq 0$, Theorem 5.27 applies. Replacing column j of A by b gives

$$A_1 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -3 & -2 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & -3 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$A_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Each second row contains zeros; expanding along it (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A_1 = 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+3} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -3 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(2-3) = 1$$

$$\det A_2 = 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 \\ -3 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+3} \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & 0 \\ 4 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(-3+6) - (-9+4) = 2$$

$$\det A_3 = 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(3-2) = -1$$

$$\det A_4 = 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+1} \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + 1 \cdot (-1)^{2+3} \det \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -1 \\ 4 & -2 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = -(-1) - 0 = 1$$

  Here the 3×3 determinants with the third column $(0,0,1)'$ are 2×2 determinants, as in (a); the last one has a zero row, so it is 0 (Theorem 5.14(b)); and the one before it, along its third row $(0,1,0)$, is $(-1)^{3+2} \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & -1 \\ -2 & -3 \end{smallmatrix} \right) = -(3-2) = -1$.

- Hence $x_1 = \frac{1}{1}$, $x_2 = \frac{2}{1}$, $x_3 = \frac{-1}{1}$, $x_4 = \frac{1}{1}$, that is, $x = (1,2,-1,1)'$. Check: $A^{-1}b = (-2+0+3+0,\ -1+0+3+0,\ 2+0-3+0,\ -2+0+3+0)' = (1,2,-1,1)'$.

Exercise 5.16. Let

$$T = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute all cofactors of T.

(b) Compute $\det T$ by expansion along the second row, and check the answer by expansion along the fourth column.

(c) Use Theorem 5.24 to show that T^{-1} is the matrix K with entries $k_{ij} = \min(i, j)$.

(d) For $b = (1, 2, 3, 4)'$, find x_2 in $Tx = b$ by Cramer's rule, and check it with $x = Kb$.

Solution. (a) T is symmetric, so $c_{ji} = c_{ij}$ (Remark 5.25). The ten cofactors with $i \leqslant j$ are (each minor is expanded along a row or column with at most two nonzero entries, Theorem 5.21)

$$\begin{aligned}
c_{11} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 2 \cdot 1 + 1 \cdot (-1) = 1, & c_{12} &= -\det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(-1) = 1 \\
c_{13} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (-1)(-1)(1) = 1, & c_{14} &= -\det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = -(-1) = 1 \\
c_{22} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 2(2 - 1) = 2, & c_{23} &= -\det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(-2) = 2 \\
c_{24} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = 2(-1)(-1) = 2, & c_{33} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 4 - 1 = 3 \\
c_{34} &= -\det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = -(-3) = 3, & c_{44} &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = 2 \cdot 3 + 1 \cdot (-2) = 4
\end{aligned}$$

(the triangular minors by Theorem 5.14(c)). So $c_{ij} = \min(i, j)$ for all i, j.

(b) Along row 2: $\det T = (-1)c_{21} + 2c_{22} + (-1)c_{23} = -1 + 4 - 2 = 1$. Along column 4: $\det T = (-1)c_{34} + 1 \cdot c_{44} = -3 + 4 = 1$ (Theorem 5.21).

(c) Since $\det T = 1$, Theorem 5.24 gives $T^{-1} = \operatorname{adj} T = (c_{ij})'$, and $(c_{ij})' = (c_{ji}) = (\min(i, j)) = K$ by (a):

$$T^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_4(T)K = -(1, 2, 3, 3) + (1, 2, 3, 4) = (0, 0, 0, 1)$ and $\operatorname{row}_2(T)K = -(1, 1, 1, 1) + 2(1, 2, 2, 2) - (1, 2, 3, 3) = (0, 1, 0, 0)$.

(d) T_2 is T with column 2 replaced by b. Expanding along column 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\begin{aligned}
\det T_2 &= \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 4 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 3 & 2 & -1 \\ 4 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 2 & -1 \\ 4 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= 2\Big(2(2 - 1) + 1 \cdot (3 + 4)\Big) + 1 \cdot (2 - 1) = 19
\end{aligned}$$

(the 3×3 determinants along their first rows), and $\det T = 1$ by (b), so $x_2 = 19$ (Theorem 5.27). Check: $x_2 = \operatorname{row}_2(K)b = 1 + 4 + 6 + 8 = 19$; indeed $x = Kb = (10, 19, 26, 30)'$.

Exercise 5.17. Use Cramer's rule (Theorem 5.27) to solve the first system of Exercise 2.19, $Ax = b$ with

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution.

- Let A_j be A with column j replaced by b. Subtracting row 2 from row 3 does not change a determinant (Definition 5.13(b)). It turns row 3 of A into $(0, 0, 1, 0)$, and row 3 of A_j into the same row with its jth entry replaced by $b_3 - b_2 = -1$: the five matrices become

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} (A), \quad \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} (A_1), \quad \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} (A_2)$$

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} (A_3), \quad \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} (A_4)$$

- Expanding along the new row 3 (Theorem 5.21), and then the 3×3 determinants along their first rows,

$$\det A = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 1(2-1) + 3(-1-0) - 1(-1-0) = -1$$

$$\det A_1 = -\det \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -2 & -1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -(0+2-1) + (1-6+3) = -3$$

$$\det A_2 = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (0-2+1) + (-2+1+1) = -1$$

$$\det A_3 = -\det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 1$$

$$\det A_4 = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -3 & -2 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (3-3-1) + (1-3+2) = -1$$

  (the minor of $\det A_3$ is the one of $\det A$, as columns 1, 2, 4 of A_3 are those of A).

- So $x = \left(\frac{-3}{-1}, \frac{-1}{-1}, \frac{1}{-1}, \frac{-1}{-1}\right)' = (3, 1, -1, 1)'$ (Theorem 5.27), the solution found by elimination in Exercise 2.19.

Exercise 5.18. Let

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{cc|ccc} 3 & 1 & 4 & -1 & 7 \\ 5 & 2 & 2 & 9 & 3 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{array}\right)$$

Compute $\det M$, $\det M^3$ and $\det(2M^{-1})$.

Solution. $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 1 \\ 5 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $\det A = 6 - 5 = 1$, and

$$D = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

whose expansion along the first row (Theorem 5.21) gives $\det D = 2(4-1) - 1(2-0) = 4$. By Theorem 5.29, $\det M = 1 \cdot 4 = 4$; the block B plays no role. As $\det M \neq 0$, M is invertible, and by Theorem 5.18(a),(c), $\det M^3 = 4^3 = 64$ and $\det(2M^{-1}) = 2^5 \cdot \frac{1}{4} = 8$.

Exercise 5.19. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$ let

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 2 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline 1 & 1 & 0 & t & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & t+2 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

Here $A \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 3}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}$, $D \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$. (a) Find $\det M$ with the Schur complement of A. (b) For which t is M invertible? (c) Find $\operatorname{rank} M$ for these exceptional values of t.

Solution. (a) Here $A = \operatorname{diag}(A_1, 1)$ with $A_1 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $C = B'$ and $D = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} t & 2 \\ 2 & t+2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Theorem 5.29, $\det A = \det A_1 \cdot 1 = 1$, as $\det A_1 = 2 \cdot 1 - 1 \cdot 1 = 1$; by Propositions 2.18 and 5.6(b),

$$A^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(A_1^{-1}, 1) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Then

$$CA^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CA^{-1}B = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

so the Schur complement is $S = D - CA^{-1}B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} t-1 & 1 \\ 1 & t-1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Theorem 5.30(a), $\det M = \det A \cdot \det S = (t-1)^2 - 1 = t(t-2)$.

(b) By Theorem 5.18(a), M is invertible if and only if $t \neq 0$ and $t \neq 2$.

(c) For $t = 0$, $S = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$; for $t = 2$, $S = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. In both cases the second row of S is a multiple of the first and $S \neq 0$, so $\operatorname{rank} S = 1$ (the row space is spanned by the nonzero first row; Definition 4.11 and Proposition 3.13(a)). By Theorem 5.34(a) with $p = 3$, $\operatorname{rank} M = 3 + 1 = 4$.

Exercise 5.20. Let

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad M = \begin{pmatrix} I_3 & B \\ C & I_2 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 5}$$

(a) Compute $\det M$ with the Schur complement of I_3, and again with the Schur complement of I_2.

(b) Compute M^{-1} with Corollary 5.10(a).

Solution. (a) The Schur complement of I_3 is $S = I_2 - CI_3^{-1}B = I_2 - CB$ and that of I_2 is $I_3 - BC$, with

$$CB = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \quad S = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BC = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad I_3 - BC = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 5.30(a), $\det M = \det I_3 \cdot \det S = 0 - 1 = -1$. Expanding $\det(I_3 - BC)$ along the first row (Theorem 5.21) gives $(-1)^{1+2}(-1)\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0 - 1 = -1$, so Theorem 5.30(b) gives again $\det M = \det I_2 \cdot \det(I_3 - BC) = -1$.

(b) The Schur complement $S = I_2 - CB$ of I_3 is invertible ($\det S = -1$), with $S^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ by the 2×2 formula of Proposition 2.18. Corollary 5.10(a) with $A = I_3$ gives $M^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_3 & -B \\ 0 & I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right) \operatorname{diag}(I_3, S^{-1}) \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_3 & 0 \\ -C & I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By the block product formula,

$$M^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} I_3 & -BS^{-1} \\ 0 & S^{-1} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} I_3 & 0 \\ -C & I_2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_3 + BS^{-1}C & -BS^{-1} \\ -S^{-1}C & S^{-1} \end{pmatrix}$$

where

$$-BS^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad -S^{-1}C = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BS^{-1}C = -B(-S^{-1}C) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Hence

$$M^{-1} = \left(\begin{array}{ccc|cc} 2 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ \hline -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_4(M)M^{-1} = (1,1,0,1,0)M^{-1} = (2-1-1,\ 0+0+0,\ -1+0+1,\ -1+1+1,\ 1+0-1) = (0,0,0,1,0)$.

Exercise 5.21. Let

$$M = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 1 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ \hline 2 & 2 & 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right) = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find D^{-1} and the Schur complement $F = A - BD^{-1}C$ of D.

(b) Find $\det M$ and $\operatorname{rank} M$ from F.

(c) Find a basis of $\mathcal{N}(M)$.

Solution. (a)

- Here $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $B = C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $D = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. As $\det D = 3\cdot 1 - 2\cdot 2 = -1$, $D^{-1} = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 2 & -3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (the 2×2 case of Theorem 5.24).

- Then

$$BD^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 2 & -3 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BD^{-1}C = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- So $F = A - BD^{-1}C = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$.

(b) $\det F = 1 - 1 = 0$, so $\det M = \det D \cdot \det F = 0$ (Theorem 5.30(b)), and M is not invertible. The second row of F is -1 times the first and $F \neq 0$, so $\operatorname{rank} F = 1$ (the row space is spanned by the nonzero first row; Definition 4.11 and Proposition 3.13(a)); by Theorem 5.34(b) with $q = 2$, $\operatorname{rank} M = 2 + 1 = 3$.

(c)

- By Proposition 5.8, with $-BD^{-1}$ in the upper right block of the block elementary matrix,

$$L = \begin{pmatrix} I_2 & -BD^{-1} \\ 0 & I_2 \end{pmatrix} \text{ is invertible, and } \quad LM = \begin{pmatrix} A - BD^{-1}C & B - BD^{-1}D \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} F & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$$

- So for $x = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} y \\ z \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $y, z \in \mathbb{R}^2$: $Mx = 0$ if and only if $LMx = 0$, that is, $Fy = 0$ and $Cy + Dz = 0$.
- $Fy = 0$ means $y_1 - y_2 = 0$, so $y = s(1,1)'$ with $s \in \mathbb{R}$. Then $Cy = s(4,3)'$ and $z = -D^{-1}Cy = -s(-4+6,\ 8-9)' = s(-2,1)'$.
- Hence $\mathcal{N}(M) = \{s(1,1,-2,1)' : s \in \mathbb{R}\}$, and $(1,1,-2,1)'$ is a basis. This agrees with $\dim \mathcal{N}(M) = 4 - \operatorname{rank} M = 1$ (Theorem 4.12). Check: $M(1,1,-2,1)' = (1+1-4+2,\ 1+2-4+1,\ 2+2-6+2,\ 2+1-4+1)' = 0$.

Exercise 5.22. Use Theorem 5.31 to compute

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 4 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 7 \end{pmatrix} \qquad \text{and} \qquad \det \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 2 & -2 \\ 3 & -3 & 4 & -3 \\ 4 & -4 & 4 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. The first matrix is $D + \mathbf{1}_4\mathbf{1}_4'$ with $D = \operatorname{diag}(1,2,3,6)$, $\det D = 36$ (Theorem 5.14(c)) and $D^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(1, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{3}, \frac{1}{6})$ (Proposition 5.6(b)). By Theorem 5.31,

$$\det(D + \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}') = \det D \cdot (1 + \mathbf{1}'D^{-1}\mathbf{1}) = 36\Big(1 + 1 + \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{3} + \frac{1}{6}\Big) = 36 \cdot 3 = 108$$

The second matrix is $I_4 + uv'$ with $u = (1,2,3,4)'$ and $v = (1,-1,1,-1)'$: its (i,j) entry is $\delta_{ij} + u_i v_j$, where $\delta_{ij} = 1$ if $i = j$ and 0 otherwise. Hence, by Theorem 5.31, its determinant is $1 + v'u = 1 + (1 - 2 + 3 - 4) = -1$.

Exercise 5.23. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad u = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad v = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $A^{-1}u$, $v'A^{-1}$ and $\det A$, and find $\det(A + uv')$ by Theorem 5.31.

(b) Find $(A + uv')^{-1}$ by Theorem 5.32(b), and check the answer by multiplication.

(c) For which $s \in \mathbb{R}$ is $A + s\,uv'$ invertible?

Solution. (a)

- By Theorem 1.4(b),(c), $A^{-1}u = \mathrm{col}_3(A^{-1}) + \mathrm{col}_4(A^{-1}) = (0,-1,1,0)'$ and $v'A^{-1} = \mathrm{row}_1(A^{-1}) + 2\,\mathrm{row}_2(A^{-1}) = (5,-4,-2,0)$. So $v'A^{-1}u = 5\cdot 0 + (-4)\cdot 0 + (-2)\cdot 1 + 0\cdot 1 = -2$.
- Along the fourth column, whose only nonzero entry is $a_{44} = 1$, and then along the second row $(0,1,1)$ of the 3×3 minor (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A = \det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = \det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} - \det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = -1 + 2 = 1$$

- By Theorem 5.31, $\det(A + uv') = \det A \cdot (1 + v'A^{-1}u) = 1\cdot(1-2) = -1$.

(b)

- $1 + v'A^{-1}u = -1 \neq 0$, so Theorem 5.32(b) applies, with

$$A^{-1}uv'A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}(5,\ -4,\ -2,\ 0) = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -5 & 4 & 2 & 0 \\ 5 & -4 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Hence

$$(A+uv')^{-1} = A^{-1} - \frac{1}{-1}A^{-1}uv'A^{-1} = A^{-1} + A^{-1}uv'A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 3 & -2 & -1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Check:

$$A + uv' = A + \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 3 & 4 & 3 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  and, with the rows of $(A+uv')^{-1}$, $(1,-2,0,0) + 2(-3,3,1,0) + 2(3,-2,-1,0) = (1,0,0,0)$, $(-3,3,1,0) + (3,-2,-1,0) = (0,1,0,0)$, $3(1,-2,0,0) + 4(-3,3,1,0) + 3(3,-2,-1,0) = (0,0,1,0)$ and $(1,-2,0,0)+2(-3,3,1,0)+(3,-2,-1,0)+(2,-2,-1,1) = (0,0,0,1)$. So $(A+uv')(A+uv')^{-1} = I_4$.

(c) $A + s\,uv' = A + (su)v'$. By Theorem 5.31 with su in place of u, $\det(A + s\,uv') = \det A\cdot(1 + s\,v'A^{-1}u) = 1 - 2s$. By Theorem 5.18(a), $A + s\,uv'$ is invertible if and only if $s \neq \frac{1}{2}$.

Exercise 5.24. Let $\varphi = \langle 2,4,1,3\rangle$ and $\psi = \langle 4,1,3,2\rangle$.

(a) Find $\varphi\psi$, $\psi\varphi$ and φ^{-1}.

(b) Write down P_φ and P_ψ, and compute $P_\psi P_\varphi$.

(c) Turn P_φ into I_4 by interchanges of rows, and find $\det P_\varphi$.

Solution. (a) By Definition 5.39,

- $\varphi\psi = \langle \varphi(4), \varphi(1), \varphi(3), \varphi(2)\rangle = \langle 3,2,1,4\rangle$ and $\psi\varphi = \langle \psi(2), \psi(4), \psi(1), \psi(3)\rangle = \langle 1,2,4,3\rangle$, so $\varphi\psi \neq \psi\varphi$;
- since $\varphi(3) = 1$, $\varphi(1) = 2$, $\varphi(4) = 3$ and $\varphi(2) = 4$, $\varphi^{-1} = \langle 3,1,4,2\rangle$.

(b) P_φ has rows e'_2, e'_4, e'_1, e'_3, and P_ψ has rows e'_4, e'_1, e'_3, e'_2. By Proposition 5.41(a), the rows of $P_\psi P_\varphi$ are rows $4, 1, 3, 2$ of P_φ:

$$P_\varphi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_\psi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_\psi P_\varphi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

This is $P_{\langle 3,2,1,4\rangle} = P_{\varphi\psi}$, as Proposition 5.41(b) says.

(c)

$$P_\varphi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = I_4$$

Each interchange changes the sign of the determinant, and $\det I_4 = 1$ (Definition 5.13(c),(d)). Three interchanges turn P_φ into I_4, so $\det P_\varphi = (-1)^3 = -1$.

Exercise 5.25. (a) The data matrix

$$X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 8 \\ 1 & 5 \\ 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

holds the measurements of two variables on four units. Find the permutation φ for which $P_\varphi X_0$ lists the units in increasing order of the second variable. Write down P_φ and $P_\varphi X_0$, and find $\det P_\varphi$ by turning P_φ into I_4 by interchanges of rows.

(b) Find φ^{-1} and $P_{\varphi^{-1}}$, and check that $P_{\varphi^{-1}} = P'_\varphi$ and $P'_\varphi(P_\varphi X_0) = X_0$.

Solution. (a)

- The second variable takes the values $8, 5, 2, 6$ on units $1, 2, 3, 4$. In increasing order these are $2, 5, 6, 8$, the values of units $3, 2, 4, 1$. Row i of $P_\varphi X_0$ is row $\varphi(i)$ of X_0 (Proposition 5.41(a)), so $\varphi = \langle 3, 2, 4, 1\rangle$.
- P_φ has the rows e'_3, e'_2, e'_4, e'_1 (Definition 5.40):

$$P_\varphi = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_\varphi X_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 \\ 1 & 5 \\ 2 & 6 \\ 3 & 8 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Interchanging rows 1 and 4 of P_φ, and then rows 3 and 4, gives I_4:

$$P_\varphi \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = I_4$$

Each interchange changes the sign of the determinant, and $\det I_4 = 1$ (Definition 5.13(c),(d)); so $\det P_\varphi = (-1)^2 = 1$.

(b) Since $\varphi(4)=1$, $\varphi(2)=2$, $\varphi(1)=3$ and $\varphi(3)=4$, the inverse is $\varphi^{-1}=\langle 4,2,1,3\rangle$ (Definition 5.39), and $P_{\varphi^{-1}}$ has the rows e'_4, e'_2, e'_1, e'_3:

$$P_{\varphi^{-1}}=\begin{pmatrix}0&0&0&1\\0&1&0&0\\1&0&0&0\\0&0&1&0\end{pmatrix}=P'_\varphi, \qquad P'_\varphi(P_\varphi X_0)=\begin{pmatrix}3&8\\1&5\\4&2\\2&6\end{pmatrix}=X_0$$

The last product lists rows $4,2,1,3$ of $P_\varphi X_0$ (Proposition 5.41(a)): the units return to their original order, as Proposition 5.41(c) says.

Problems

Problem 5.1. Let $A\in\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible and partitioned by columns as $A=[A_1\ A_2]$, where A_1 has k columns, and let A^{-1} be partitioned by rows into B_1 (k rows) and B_2. Show that

$$B_1A_1=I,\quad B_1A_2=0,\quad B_2A_1=0,\quad B_2A_2=I,\qquad A_1B_1=I-A_2B_2,\quad A_2B_2=I-A_1B_1$$

Solution. With the partition $(k,n-k)$ of I_n, Theorem 5.3(c) gives

$$\begin{pmatrix}B_1A_1&B_1A_2\\B_2A_1&B_2A_2\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}B_1\\B_2\end{pmatrix}[A_1\ A_2]=A^{-1}A=I_n=\begin{pmatrix}I_k&0\\0&I_{n-k}\end{pmatrix}$$

and comparing blocks gives the first four identities. Also $A_1B_1+A_2B_2=[A_1\ A_2]\left(\begin{smallmatrix}B_1\\B_2\end{smallmatrix}\right)=AA^{-1}=I_n$, which gives the last two.

Problem 5.2. Show that the matrix $Z=\begin{pmatrix}-I_m&B\\C&I_n\end{pmatrix}$ ($B\in\mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $C\in\mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$) satisfies $Z^2=I_{m+n}$ if $B=0$ or $C=0$. Is this condition necessary?

Solution. By the 2×2 block formula (Theorem 5.3),

$$Z^2=\begin{pmatrix}(-I)(-I)+BC&-B+B\\-C+C&CB+I\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}I_m+BC&0\\0&I_n+CB\end{pmatrix}$$

so $Z^2=I_{m+n}$ if and only if $BC=0$ and $CB=0$. This holds if $B=0$ or $C=0$. The condition is not necessary when $m,n\geqslant 2$: for $m=n=2$ and $B=C=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}0&1\\0&0\end{smallmatrix}\right)\neq 0$ we have $BC=CB=0$ (Proposition 1.21(c)); for larger m,n put this 2×2 matrix in the top left corner of zero matrices. If $m=1$, then $CB\in\mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ has entries c_ib_j, so $CB=0$ forces $B=0$ or $C=0$; the case $n=1$ is the same with BC.

Problem 5.3. Show that $Z_1=\begin{pmatrix}I_m&B_1\\0&I_n\end{pmatrix}$ and $Z_2=\begin{pmatrix}I_m&B_2\\0&I_n\end{pmatrix}$ ($B_1,B_2\in\mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$) commute.

Solution. Write $Z_1=I_{m+n}+X_1$ and $Z_2=I_{m+n}+X_2$ with $X_i=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}0&B_i\\0&0\end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By the block formula, $X_1X_2=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}0\cdot 0+B_1\cdot 0&0\cdot B_2+B_1\cdot 0\\0&0\end{smallmatrix}\right)=0$, and likewise $X_2X_1=0$. Hence

$$Z_1Z_2=I+X_1+X_2+X_1X_2=I+X_1+X_2=I+X_2+X_1+X_2X_1=Z_2Z_1$$

Problem 5.4. Let $a, b, c \in \mathbb{R}$. Show that the **Vandermonde matrix**

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & a & a^2 \\ 1 & b & b^2 \\ 1 & c & c^2 \end{pmatrix}$$

has $\det A = (b-a)(c-a)(c-b)$, so that A is invertible if and only if a, b, c are distinct.

Solution.

- Subtracting row 1 from rows 2 and 3 does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)); it gives the rows $(0,\ b-a,\ b^2-a^2)$ and $(0,\ c-a,\ c^2-a^2)$.
- Expanding along column 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A = \det \begin{pmatrix} b-a & b^2-a^2 \\ c-a & c^2-a^2 \end{pmatrix} = (b-a)(c^2-a^2) - (c-a)(b^2-a^2)$$

- As $c^2-a^2 = (c-a)(c+a)$ and $b^2-a^2 = (b-a)(b+a)$, this is $(b-a)(c-a)\Big((c+a)-(b+a)\Big) = (b-a)(c-a)(c-b)$.
- The product is nonzero exactly when a, b, c are distinct, so A is invertible exactly then (Theorem 5.18(a)).

Problem 5.5. Let $K \in \mathbb{R}^{12\times 12}$ satisfy $K^5 = 3K$. What is the numerical value of $\det K$? Is there more than one possibility? If so, give all possible values.

Solution.

- By Theorem 5.18(c), $\det K^5 = (\det K)^5$ and $\det(3K) = 3^{12}\det K$. So $(\det K)^5 = 3^{12}\det K$, that is, $\det K \cdot \Big((\det K)^4 - 3^{12}\Big) = 0$.
- Hence $\det K = 0$ or $(\det K)^4 = 3^{12}$, that is, $\Big((\det K)^2 - 3^6\Big)\Big((\det K)^2 + 3^6\Big) = 0$. The second factor is positive, so $(\det K)^2 = 3^6$ and $\det K = \pm 3^3 = \pm 27$.
- All three values occur. Let t be the positive number with $t^4 = 3$, so $t^5 = 3t$. For $K = 0$, $\det K = 0$. For $K = tI_{12}$, $K^5 = t^5 I_{12} = 3K$ and $\det K = t^{12} = 3^3 = 27$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). For $K = \operatorname{diag}(-t, t, \ldots, t)$, $K^5 = \operatorname{diag}(-t^5, t^5, \ldots, t^5) = 3K$ and $\det K = -t^{12} = -27$.

So $\det K$ is 0, 27 or -27.

Problem 5.6. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have integer entries.

(a) Show that if A is invertible and all entries of A^{-1} are integers, then $\det A = \pm 1$.

(b) Conversely, show that if $\det A = \pm 1$, then A is invertible and all entries of A^{-1} are integers.

Solution. (a)

- A matrix with integer entries has an integer determinant, by induction on its size. For $n = 1$, $\det(a) = a$ (Definition 5.13). For $n \geqslant 2$, the expansion along the first row (Theorem 5.21) gives $\det A = \sum_{k=1}^{n} (-1)^{1+k} a_{1k} \det A(1|k)$, where every $A(1|k) \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$ has integer entries; so every $\det A(1|k)$ is an integer, and so is $\det A$. Hence $d = \det A$ and $\det A^{-1}$ are integers.
- By Theorem 5.18(a),(c), $d \neq 0$ and $\det A^{-1} = 1/d$. So d and $1/d$ are nonzero integers.
- A nonzero integer has absolute value at least 1: $|d| \geqslant 1$ and $|1/d| \geqslant 1$, that is, $|d| \leqslant 1$. Hence $|d| = 1$, and $\det A = \pm 1$.

(b) As $\det A = \pm 1 \neq 0$, A is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)). For $n = 1$, $A = (\pm 1)$ and $A^{-1} = (\pm 1)$. For $n \geqslant 2$, each cofactor $c_{ij} = (-1)^{i+j}\det A(i|j)$ is an integer by the first item of (a), applied to $A(i|j)$. By Theorem 5.24, $A^{-1} = \frac{1}{\det A}\operatorname{adj} A = \pm \operatorname{adj} A$, whose entries $\pm c_{ji}$ are integers.

Problem 5.7. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$. Show that $\det(I_m - AB) = \det(I_n - BA)$.

Solution. By the block product formula (Theorem 5.3),

$$\begin{pmatrix} I_m - AB & A \\ 0 & I_n \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ B & I_n \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_m - AB + AB & A \\ B & I_n \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_m & A \\ B & I_n \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\begin{pmatrix} I_m & 0 \\ B & I_n \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} I_m & A \\ 0 & I_n - BA \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_m & A \\ B & BA + I_n - BA \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} I_m & A \\ B & I_n \end{pmatrix}$$

So the two products are equal. By Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.29, the first has determinant $\det(I_m - AB)\det I_n \cdot \det I_m \det I_n = \det(I_m - AB)$, and the second $\det I_m \det I_n \cdot \det I_m \det(I_n - BA) = \det(I_n - BA)$.

Problem 5.8. Let $A, B, C, D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with A invertible and $AC = CA$. Show that

$$\det\begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \det(AD - CB)$$

Solution.

- Subtracting CA^{-1} times the first block row from the second turns the matrix into $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D - CA^{-1}B \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.9). By Theorems 5.30(a) and 5.18(b),

$$\det\begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \det A \cdot \det(D - CA^{-1}B) = \det\Big(A(D - CA^{-1}B)\Big) = \det(AD - ACA^{-1}B)$$

  the last equality by Theorem 1.3.
- From $AC = CA$, $ACA^{-1} = CAA^{-1} = C$, so the last determinant is $\det(AD - CB)$.

Problem 5.9. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times p}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times q}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times q}$.

(a) Show that

$$\operatorname{rank}\begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix} \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} D \qquad \text{and} \qquad \operatorname{rank}\begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} D$$

(b) Show that $\operatorname{rank}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right) \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} D$ is not true in general.

Solution. (a)

- Let $Z = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & B \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $r = \operatorname{rank} A$ and $s = \operatorname{rank} D$. By Theorem 4.8(a), the pivot columns of A, say columns $k_1 < \cdots < k_r$, are linearly independent, and so are the pivot columns of D, say columns $l_1 < \cdots < l_s$ (a list is empty if the rank is 0). Column k_i of Z is $\operatorname{col}_{k_i}(A)$ followed by zeros, and column $p + l_j$ of Z is $\operatorname{col}_{l_j}(B)$ followed by $\operatorname{col}_{l_j}(D)$.
- These $r + s$ columns of Z are linearly independent. Let

$$\sum_{i=1}^{r} \alpha_i \begin{pmatrix} \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(A) \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \sum_{j=1}^{s} \beta_j \begin{pmatrix} \operatorname{col}_{l_j}(B) \\ \operatorname{col}_{l_j}(D) \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

  The last n entries give $\sum_j \beta_j \operatorname{col}_{l_j}(D) = 0$, so every $\beta_j = 0$; then the first m entries give $\sum_i \alpha_i \operatorname{col}_{k_i}(A) = 0$, so every $\alpha_i = 0$.
- The $r + s$ columns lie in $\mathcal{C}(Z)$, whose dimension is $\operatorname{rank} Z$ (Definition 4.11); so $r + s \leqslant \operatorname{rank} Z$ (Theorem 4.5(c)).

- For the second matrix, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A' & C' \\ 0 & D' \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.3(b)). By Theorem 4.13(a) and the first inequality, applied to A', C', D',

$$\operatorname{rank}\begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix} = \operatorname{rank}\begin{pmatrix} A' & C' \\ 0 & D' \end{pmatrix} \geqslant \operatorname{rank} A' + \operatorname{rank} D' = \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} D$$

(b) Let $m = n = p = q \geqslant 1$ and $A = B = C = D = I_m$. Then $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} D = 2m$ (Theorem 4.13(d)). Every column of $Z = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m & I_m \\ I_m & I_m \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is a column of its first block column $G = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_m \\ I_m \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, so $\mathcal{C}(Z) = \mathcal{C}(G)$ (Theorem 3.10(c)). If $Gx = 0$, the first m entries give $x = I_m x = 0$; so G has full column rank (Theorem 4.13(b)), and $\operatorname{rank} Z = \dim \mathcal{C}(G) = m < 2m$ (Definition 4.11).

Problem 5.10. Let $n \geqslant 1$ and $\rho \in \mathbb{R}$, and let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the entries $a_{ij} = \rho^{|i-j|}$, with $\rho^0 = 1$ also for $\rho = 0$:

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \rho & \rho^2 & \cdots & \rho^{n-1} \\ \rho & 1 & \rho & \cdots & \rho^{n-2} \\ \rho^2 & \rho & 1 & \cdots & \rho^{n-3} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \rho^{n-1} & \rho^{n-2} & \rho^{n-3} & \cdots & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Compute $\det A$.

Solution. For $n = 1$, $A = (1)$ and $\det A = 1$. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

- For $i = n, n-1, \ldots, 2$ in turn, subtract ρ times row $i-1$ from row i. Row $i-1$ is changed only after row i, so it is still row $i-1$ of A when it is used; and no step changes the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)).
- Row 1 is unchanged, and the new row i ($i \geqslant 2$) has the entries $\rho^{|i-j|} - \rho \cdot \rho^{|i-1-j|}$. For $j \leqslant i-1$ this is $\rho^{i-j} - \rho \cdot \rho^{i-1-j} = 0$, and for $j \geqslant i$ it is $\rho^{j-i} - \rho \cdot \rho^{j-i+1} = \rho^{j-i}(1-\rho^2)$. So the result is the upper triangular matrix

$$U = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \rho & \rho^2 & \cdots & \rho^{n-1} \\ 0 & 1-\rho^2 & \rho(1-\rho^2) & \cdots & \rho^{n-2}(1-\rho^2) \\ 0 & 0 & 1-\rho^2 & \cdots & \rho^{n-3}(1-\rho^2) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1-\rho^2 \end{pmatrix}$$

- By Theorem 5.14(c), $\det A = \det U = 1 \cdot (1-\rho^2)^{n-1}$.

So $\det A = (1-\rho^2)^{n-1}$ for every $n \geqslant 1$. In particular, for $n \geqslant 2$, A is invertible if and only if $\rho \neq \pm 1$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

Problem 5.11. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and suppose that $AP_\varphi = P_\varphi A$ for every permutation φ of degree n (Definition 5.40). Show that $A = cI_n + dJ_n$ for some $c, d \in \mathbb{R}$.

Solution.

- Let φ be a permutation of degree n. Multiplying $AP_\varphi = P_\varphi A$ on the right by P'_φ and using $P_\varphi P'_\varphi = I_n$ (Proposition 5.41(c)) gives $A = P_\varphi A P'_\varphi$.
- Column i of P'_φ is the transpose of row i of P_φ, which is $e'_{\varphi(i)}$ (Definition 5.40); so $P'_\varphi e_i = e_{\varphi(i)}$ (Proposition 1.18(a)). Hence, by Theorem 1.9 and Proposition 1.18(a), the (i,j) entry of $P_\varphi A P'_\varphi$ is

$$e'_i P_\varphi A P'_\varphi e_j = (P'_\varphi e_i)' A (P'_\varphi e_j) = e'_{\varphi(i)} A e_{\varphi(j)} = a_{\varphi(i)\varphi(j)}$$

and the first item gives $a_{ij} = a_{\varphi(i)\varphi(j)}$ for all i, j and every φ.

- Diagonal entries: let $p \neq q$, and let φ interchange p and q and leave the other numbers in place. Then $a_{qq} = a_{\varphi(q)\varphi(q)} = a_{pp}$. So all diagonal entries of A are equal, say to α.
- Off-diagonal entries: let $i \neq j$ and $p \neq q$. Put $\varphi(p) = i$ and $\varphi(q) = j$, and let φ map the other $n-2$ numbers of $\{1, \dots, n\}$, in increasing order, to the $n-2$ numbers other than i and j, in increasing order. Then φ is one-to-one and onto, a permutation (Definition 5.39), and $a_{pq} = a_{\varphi(p)\varphi(q)} = a_{ij}$. So all off-diagonal entries of A are equal, say to β.
- Every entry of J_n is 1 (Definition 1.14), so $A = \alpha I_n + \beta(J_n - I_n) = (\alpha - \beta)I_n + \beta J_n$: take $c = \alpha - \beta$ and $d = \beta$.

Conversely, every row and every column of P_φ has exactly one entry 1 (Definition 5.40, as φ is one-to-one and onto), so $P_\varphi \mathbf{1}_n = \mathbf{1}_n$ and $P'_\varphi \mathbf{1}_n = \mathbf{1}_n$ (Theorem 1.4(b)); hence $P_\varphi J_n = \mathbf{1}_n \mathbf{1}'_n = J_n P_\varphi$, and every $cI_n + dJ_n$ commutes with every P_φ. In statistical terms: listing n variables in the order $\varphi(1), \dots, \varphi(n)$ replaces their correlation matrix R by $P_\varphi R P'_\varphi$, with (i,j) entry $r_{\varphi(i)\varphi(j)}$, and $P_\varphi R P'_\varphi = R$ is the same as $RP_\varphi = P_\varphi R$; so R is unchanged by every reordering exactly when $R = (1-\rho)I_n + \rho J_n$, the equicorrelation matrix of Example 5.33 (the diagonal entries 1 give $c + d = 1$).

Problem 5.12. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and let $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the entries $b_{ij} = (-1)^{i+j} a_{ij}$. Show that $\det B = \det A$.

Solution. Let k be the integer part of $n/2$, the number of even numbers among $1, \dots, n$.

- Multiply the rows $2, 4, \dots, 2k$ of B by -1. An entry in an odd row i stays $(-1)^{i+j} a_{ij} = (-1)^{j+1} a_{ij}$, and an entry in an even row i becomes $-(-1)^{i+j} a_{ij} = (-1)^{j+1} a_{ij}$: every entry (i,j) is now $(-1)^{j+1} a_{ij}$.
- Multiply the columns $2, 4, \dots, 2k$ of this matrix by -1. An entry in an odd column j stays $(-1)^{j+1} a_{ij} = a_{ij}$, and an entry in an even column j becomes $-(-1)^{j+1} a_{ij} = a_{ij}$. The result is A.
- Each of these $2k$ steps multiplies the determinant by -1 (Definition 5.13(a), for columns by Theorem 5.22). So $\det A = (-1)^{2k} \det B = \det B$.

For example, for $n \geqslant 2$ the matrix of the cofactors $c_{ij} = (-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j)$ of A and the matrix of the minors $\det A(i|j)$ (Definition 5.20) have the same determinant.

Problem 5.13. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be skew-symmetric (Definition 1.26).

(a) Show that $\det A = 0$ if n is odd.

(b) Let n be even. Show that adding the same number $x \in \mathbb{R}$ to all entries of A does not change the determinant: $\det(A + xJ_n) = \det A$.

Solution. (a)

- $A' = -A$, so by Theorems 5.22 and 5.18(c), $\det A = \det A' = \det(-A) = (-1)^n \det A = -\det A$, as n is odd.
- Hence $2 \det A = 0$, and $\det A = 0$.

(b) Let $\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}_n$. The matrices below have order $n+1$ and are partitioned after the first row and column.

- Let $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & \mathbf{1}' \\ -\mathbf{1} & A \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Theorem 5.3(b), $M' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -\mathbf{1}' \\ \mathbf{1} & A' \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -\mathbf{1}' \\ \mathbf{1} & -A \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -M$. So M is skew-symmetric of the odd order $n+1$, and $\det M = 0$ by (a).
- The matrix $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & \mathbf{1}' \\ -x\mathbf{1} & A \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is M with its first column multiplied by x; so its determinant is $x \det M = 0$ (Definition 5.13(a) for columns, Theorem 5.22). Also $\det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ -x\mathbf{1} & A \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \det(1) \cdot \det A = \det A$ (Theorem 5.29).

- These two matrices differ only in the first row, and their first rows $(0, 1, \dots, 1)$ and $(1, 0, \dots, 0)$ add up to $(1, 1, \dots, 1)$. By Lemma 5.19,

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \mathbf{1}' \\ -x\mathbf{1} & A \end{pmatrix} = 0 + \det A = \det A$$

- Subtract column 1 from each of the columns $2, \dots, n+1$; this does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b) for columns, Theorem 5.22). Column $j+1$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant n)$ is $\binom{1}{\operatorname{col}_j(A)}$ and column 1 is $\binom{1}{-x\mathbf{1}}$, so column $j+1$ becomes $\binom{0}{\operatorname{col}_j(A)+x\mathbf{1}}$. As every column of $xJ_n = x\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'$ is $x\mathbf{1}$ (Definition 1.14), Theorem 5.29 gives

$$\det A = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ -x\mathbf{1} & A + xJ_n \end{pmatrix} = \det(A + xJ_n)$$

Problem 5.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, let $s_i = a_{i1} + \cdots + a_{in}$ be the sum of row i of A, and let $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the entries $b_{ij} = s_i - a_{ij}$. Show that $\det B = (-1)^{n-1}(n-1)\det A$.

Solution. Let $s = (s_1, \dots, s_n)'$ and $\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}_n$. The matrices below have order $n+1$ and are partitioned after the nth row and column.

- $\det \binom{B\ \ 0}{-\mathbf{1}'\ 1} = \det B \cdot \det(1) = \det B$ (Theorem 5.29).
- Add the columns $1, \dots, n$ to column $n+1$; this does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b) for columns, Theorem 5.22). Entry $i \leqslant n$ of the new last column is $0 + \sum_{j=1}^{n}(s_i - a_{ij}) = ns_i - s_i = (n-1)s_i$, and its last entry is $1 + n\cdot(-1) = -(n-1)$; so the new last column is $n-1$ times $\binom{s}{-1}$. Taking out this factor (Definition 5.13(a) for columns),

$$\det B = \det \begin{pmatrix} B & (n-1)s \\ -\mathbf{1}' & -(n-1) \end{pmatrix} = (n-1)\det \begin{pmatrix} B & s \\ -\mathbf{1}' & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- Subtract column $n+1$ from each of the columns $1, \dots, n$; this does not change the determinant either (Definition 5.13(b) for columns, Theorem 5.22). Entry (i, j) with $i \leqslant n$ becomes $(s_i - a_{ij}) - s_i = -a_{ij}$, and the last entry of column j becomes $-1 - (-1) = 0$. So, by Theorems 5.29 and 5.18(c),

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} B & s \\ -\mathbf{1}' & -1 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} -A & s \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = \det(-A)\cdot(-1) = (-1)^{n+1}\det A$$

- Hence $\det B = (n-1)(-1)^{n+1}\det A = (-1)^{n-1}(n-1)\det A$.

Problem 5.15. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $1 \leqslant i, j \leqslant n$. Give an example of a matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ whose adjugate $\operatorname{adj} A$ (Theorem 5.24) has exactly one nonzero entry, in position (i, j).

Solution. Insert into I_{n-1} a column of zeros so that it becomes column i, and then a row of zeros so that it becomes row j. The result $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ has the zero row j and the zero column i, and deleting them gives back I_{n-1}: $A(j|i) = I_{n-1}$. For instance, for $n = 4$ and $(i, j) = (1, 2)$,

$$I_3 \to \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \to A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 5.24, the (k, l) entry of $\operatorname{adj} A$ is the cofactor $c_{lk} = (-1)^{l+k}\det A(l|k)$ (Definition 5.20).

- $(k, l) = (i, j)$: $c_{ji} = (-1)^{j+i}\det I_{n-1} = (-1)^{i+j} \neq 0$ (Definition 5.13(d)).

- $l \neq j$: row j of A, without its entry in column k, is a zero row of $A(l|k)$; so $\det A(l|k) = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(b)).
- $l = j$ and $k \neq i$: column i of A, without its entry in row j, is a zero column of $A(j|k)$; so $\det A(j|k) = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(b) for columns, Theorem 5.22).

So $\operatorname{adj} A$ has exactly one nonzero entry, $(-1)^{i+j}$ in position (i, j). In the instance, $\operatorname{adj} A = -E_{12}$, with E_{12} as in Proposition 1.18(b).

Problem 5.16. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be skew-symmetric. Show that $\operatorname{adj} A$ is symmetric if n is odd and skew-symmetric if n is even.

Solution. Let c_{ij} be the cofactors of A (Definition 5.20).

- Deleting row j and column i of A and then transposing gives the same matrix as deleting row i and column j of A': $A(j|i)' = A'(i|j)$. As $A' = -A$, $A'(i|j) = -A(i|j)$.
- $A(i|j)$ has order $n-1$, so by Theorems 5.22 and 5.18(c), $\det A(j|i) = \det A(j|i)' = \det\big(-A(i|j)\big) = (-1)^{n-1} \det A(i|j)$. Hence

$$c_{ji} = (-1)^{j+i} \det A(j|i) = (-1)^{n-1}(-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j) = (-1)^{n-1} c_{ij}$$

- By Theorem 5.24, the (i, j) entry of $\operatorname{adj} A$ is c_{ji}, and that of $(\operatorname{adj} A)'$ is c_{ij}. So $\operatorname{adj} A = (-1)^{n-1}(\operatorname{adj} A)'$, that is, $(\operatorname{adj} A)' = (-1)^{n-1} \operatorname{adj} A$.
- For odd n, $(\operatorname{adj} A)' = \operatorname{adj} A$: $\operatorname{adj} A$ is symmetric. For even n, $(\operatorname{adj} A)' = -\operatorname{adj} A$: $\operatorname{adj} A$ is skew-symmetric (Definition 1.26).

Problem 5.17. Let $n \geqslant 2$, let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the cofactors c_{ij} (Definition 5.20), and let $x, y, u, v \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) Show that

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} A & x \\ y' & 0 \end{pmatrix} = -\sum_{i=1}^{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n} x_i y_j c_{ij} = -y'(\operatorname{adj} A)x$$

(b) Show that $\det(A + uv') = \det A + v'(\operatorname{adj} A)u$, also when A is not invertible.

Solution. (a) Let M be the matrix of order $n+1$ on the left.

- Column $n+1$ of M is $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} x \\ 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Expanding along it (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det M = \sum_{i=1}^{n} x_i (-1)^{i+n+1} \det M(i|n+1)$$

- $M(i|n+1) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ consists of the rows of A other than row i, followed by the row y'; deleting this last row and column j leaves $A(i|j)$. Expanding along the last row (Theorem 5.21), $\det M(i|n+1) = \sum_{j=1}^{n} y_j (-1)^{n+j} \det A(i|j)$.
- As $(-1)^{i+n+1}(-1)^{n+j} = -(-1)^{i+j}$,

$$\det M = -\sum_{i=1}^{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n} x_i y_j (-1)^{i+j} \det A(i|j) = -\sum_{i=1}^{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n} x_i y_j c_{ij}$$

- By Theorem 5.24, $(\operatorname{adj} A)_{ji} = c_{ij}$; so entry j of $(\operatorname{adj} A)x$ is $\sum_{i=1}^{n} c_{ij} x_i$, and $y'(\operatorname{adj} A)x = \sum_{j=1}^{n} y_j \sum_{i=1}^{n} c_{ij} x_i$ is the double sum.

(b) Let $N = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A & -u \\ v' & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) \in \mathbb{R}^{(n+1)\times(n+1)}$. We compute $\det N$ in two ways.

- By Theorem 5.30(b), with the invertible block $D = (1)$, $\det N = \det(1) \cdot \det\big(A - (-u)(1)^{-1}v'\big) = \det(A + uv')$.
- The last column of N is $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} -u \\ 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) + \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, and the other columns are kept. By Lemma 5.19 for columns (Theorem 5.22), then by (a) with $x = -u$, $y = v$, and by Theorem 5.29,

$$\det N = \det \begin{pmatrix} A & -u \\ v' & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \det \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ v' & 1 \end{pmatrix} = -v'(\operatorname{adj} A)(-u) + \det A \cdot \det(1)$$

- Comparing the two values, $\det(A + uv') = \det A + v'(\operatorname{adj} A)u$.

If A is invertible, then $\operatorname{adj} A = (\det A)A^{-1}$ (Theorem 5.24), and (b) is Theorem 5.31. If A is not invertible, then $\det A = 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)), and (b) reads $\det(A + uv') = v'(\operatorname{adj} A)u$.

Problem 5.18. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ be symmetric with $\operatorname{rank} A = r \geqslant 1$. By Theorem 5.37(b), A has an $r \times r$ submatrix with nonzero determinant. Show that there is one whose rows and columns have the same indices: for some $i_1 < \cdots < i_r$, the $r \times r$ submatrix A_* of A in the rows $i_1, \ldots, i_r$ and the columns $i_1, \ldots, i_r$ (Definition 5.36) has $\det A_* \neq 0$.

Solution.

- Let R be the RREF of A; it has r nonzero rows (Definition 4.11). Let $i_1 < \cdots < i_r$ be its pivot columns. By Theorem 4.3(b), the columns $a_{i_1}, \ldots, a_{i_r}$ of A form a basis of $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \ldots, a_n\}$, so they are linearly independent, and $a_j = R_{1j}a_{i_1} + \cdots + R_{rj}a_{i_r}$ for every j.
- Let $S = [e_{i_1} \ \cdots \ e_{i_r}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times r}$, and let $X \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times n}$ consist of the first r rows of R. Then $AS = [a_{i_1} \ \cdots \ a_{i_r}]$ (Proposition 1.18(a)), and the first item reads $A = (AS)X$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)).
- Multiplying on the left by S' gives $S'A = (S'AS)X$. The (s,t) entry of $S'AS$ is $e'_{i_s}Ae_{i_t} = a_{i_s i_t}$ (Proposition 1.18(a)), so $S'AS = A_*$.
- As $A' = A$, $S'A = S'A' = (AS)'$ (Theorem 1.9). The r columns of AS are linearly independent, so $\operatorname{rank}(S'A) = \operatorname{rank}\big((AS)'\big) = \operatorname{rank}(AS) = r$ (Theorem 4.13(a),(b)). So $S'A$ has full row rank, and its rows, which are the rows $i_1, \ldots, i_r$ of A (Proposition 1.18(a)), are linearly independent too (Theorem 4.13(c)).
- By Theorems 4.15(a) and 4.13(a), $r = \operatorname{rank}(S'A) = \operatorname{rank}(A_*X) \leqslant \operatorname{rank} A_* \leqslant r$. So $\operatorname{rank} A_* = r$, A_* is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)), and $\det A_* \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

Chapter 6. Orthogonality and projections

Inner products, lengths, and orthogonality

Definition 6.1. For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the **inner product** of x and y is the number $x'y = x_1y_1 + \cdots + x_ny_n$; it equals $y'x$ (Theorem 1.9). The **length** (or norm) of x is $\|x\| = \sqrt{x'x} = (x_1^2 + \cdots + x_n^2)^{1/2}$, and $\|x - y\|$ is the **distance** between x and y. The vectors x and y are **orthogonal**, written $x \perp y$, if $x'y = 0$.

Since $x'x$ is a sum of squares, $\|x\| \geqslant 0$, and $\|x\| = 0$ only for $x = 0$; also $\|cx\| = |c|\,\|x\|$ for $c \in \mathbb{R}$. A vector of length 1 is a **unit vector**; for $x \neq 0$, $x/\|x\|$ is one. The zero vector is orthogonal to every vector, and it is the only vector orthogonal to itself.

Proposition 6.2. For $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $\|x + y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 + 2x'y + \|y\|^2$. In particular, if $x \perp y$, then $\|x + y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 + \|y\|^2$ (**Pythagoras**).

Proof. $(x + y)'(x + y) = x'x + x'y + y'x + y'y$, and $y'x = x'y$. □

Proposition 6.3. Let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) $\|x - y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 - 2x'y + \|y\|^2$, and $x'y = \frac{1}{4}\|x + y\|^2 - \frac{1}{4}\|x - y\|^2$ (**polarization**).

(b) (**Pythagoras for k vectors**) If $u_1, \ldots, u_k \in \mathbb{R}^n$ are pairwise orthogonal ($u_i'u_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$), then $\|u_1 + \cdots + u_k\|^2 = \|u_1\|^2 + \cdots + \|u_k\|^2$.

Proof. (a)

- Proposition 6.2 with $-y$ in place of y gives the first identity, as $x'(-y) = -x'y$ and $\|-y\| = \|y\|$.
- Subtracting it from $\|x + y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 + 2x'y + \|y\|^2$ gives $\|x + y\|^2 - \|x - y\|^2 = 4x'y$.

(b) Induction on k; for $k = 1$ there is nothing to prove.

- Let $k \geqslant 2$ and $s = u_1 + \cdots + u_{k-1}$. Then $s'u_k = u_1'u_k + \cdots + u_{k-1}'u_k = 0$, so $s \perp u_k$.
- By Proposition 6.2, $\|s + u_k\|^2 = \|s\|^2 + \|u_k\|^2$, and $\|s\|^2 = \|u_1\|^2 + \cdots + \|u_{k-1}\|^2$ by the induction hypothesis. □

Theorem 6.4. Let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) (**Cauchy–Schwarz inequality**) $|x'y| \leqslant \|x\|\,\|y\|$, with equality if and only if one of x, y is a multiple of the other.

(b) (**Triangle inequality**) $\|x + y\| \leqslant \|x\| + \|y\|$, with equality if and only if $y = 0$ or $x = cy$ for some $c \geqslant 0$.

Proof. (a) If $x = 0$, both sides are 0, and $x = 0y$. Let $x \neq 0$.

- Put $c = x'y/\|x\|^2$ and $w = y - cx$. Then $x'w = x'y - c\,x'x = 0$, so $cx \perp w$.
- Pythagoras for $y = cx + w$ gives $\|y\|^2 = c^2\|x\|^2 + \|w\|^2 \geqslant c^2\|x\|^2 = (x'y)^2/\|x\|^2$. Multiply by $\|x\|^2$ and take square roots.
- Equality holds if and only if $w = 0$, that is, $y = cx$. Conversely, if $y = ax$, then $c = a$ and $w = 0$; if $x = ay$ with $x \neq 0$, then $a \neq 0$ and $y = a^{-1}x$.

(b)

- By Proposition 6.2 and (a),

  $$\|x + y\|^2 = \|x\|^2 + 2x'y + \|y\|^2 \leqslant \|x\|^2 + 2|x'y| + \|y\|^2 \leqslant \|x\|^2 + 2\|x\|\,\|y\| + \|y\|^2 = (\|x\| + \|y\|)^2$$

  and both $\|x + y\|$ and $\|x\| + \|y\|$ are $\geqslant 0$.

- Equality holds if and only if both steps are equalities: $x'y = |x'y|$, that is, $x'y \geqslant 0$; and $|x'y| = \|x\|\,\|y\|$.
- If $y = 0$, both hold. Let $y \neq 0$. By (a), the second holds if and only if $x = cy$ for some c (if $y = ax$, then $a \neq 0$ and $x = a^{-1}y$); and then $x'y = c\|y\|^2 \geqslant 0$ if and only if $c \geqslant 0$. □

Definition 6.5. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$. A vector $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is **orthogonal to** W, written $y \perp W$, if $y'w = 0$ for every $w \in W$. The **orthogonal complement** of W is $W^\perp = \{y \in \mathbb{R}^n : y \perp W\}$. Subspaces U and W of $\mathbb{R}^n$ are **orthogonal**, written $U \perp W$, if $u'w = 0$ for all $u \in U$ and $w \in W$; their sum $U + W$ is then called an **orthogonal sum**.

Theorem 6.6. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) If $w_1, \ldots, w_k$ span W and $A = [w_1 \ \cdots \ w_k] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$, then $y \perp W$ if and only if $y'w_1 = \cdots = y'w_k = 0$, that is, $A'y = 0$. So $W^\perp = \mathcal{N}(A')$, a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(b) $W \cap W^\perp = \{0\}$.

(c) $\dim W + \dim W^\perp = n$ and $\mathbb{R}^n = W \oplus W^\perp$: every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is $y = w + v$ with $w \in W$ and $v \in W^\perp$ in exactly one way.

Proof. (a) If $y \perp W$, then $y'w_j = 0$, as $w_j \in W$. Conversely, let all $y'w_j = 0$. Every $w \in W$ is $w = Ac$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}^k$ (Definition 3.6 and Theorem 1.4(b)), and $y'w = (A'y)'c = 0$. The jth entry of $A'y$ is $w_j'y$ (Theorem 1.4(d)).

(b) If $y \in W \cap W^\perp$, then $y \perp y$, so $y = 0$.

(c) Let $d = \dim W$. If $d = 0$, then $W = \{0\}$ and $W^\perp = \mathbb{R}^n$. Let $d \geqslant 1$.

- Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times d}$ have a basis of W as its columns, so $\operatorname{rank} A = d$ (Definition 4.11, as $\mathcal{C}(A) = W$). By (a) and Theorem 4.12, $\dim W^\perp = \dim \mathcal{N}(A') = n - \operatorname{rank} A = n - d$.
- By (b), the sum $W + W^\perp$ is direct (Definition 3.30), and a basis of W together with a basis of $W^\perp$, $d + (n - d) = n$ vectors, is a basis of $W \oplus W^\perp$ (Theorem 3.33). So $W \oplus W^\perp$ is a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 3.31(a)) of dimension n, hence equal to $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(a)). The decomposition $y = w + v$ is unique by Theorem 3.32. □

Corollary 6.7. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$,

$$\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{C}(A')^\perp, \quad \mathbb{R}^n = \mathcal{C}(A') \oplus \mathcal{N}(A); \qquad \mathcal{N}(A') = \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp, \quad \mathbb{R}^m = \mathcal{C}(A) \oplus \mathcal{N}(A')$$

So $Ax = 0$ if and only if x is orthogonal to every (transposed) row of A, and the four subspaces of A (Definition 4.7) are orthogonal in pairs: the transposed row space $\mathcal{C}(A')$ and the null space in $\mathbb{R}^n$, the column space and the left null space in $\mathbb{R}^m$.

Proof. The columns of A' span $\mathcal{C}(A')$, so Theorem 6.6(a) gives $\mathcal{C}(A')^\perp = \mathcal{N}((A')') = \mathcal{N}(A)$; applied to the columns of A, it gives $\mathcal{C}(A)^\perp = \mathcal{N}(A')$. The direct sums follow from Theorem 6.6(c). □

Theorem 6.8. Let W, W_1 and W_2 be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) $(W^\perp)^\perp = W$.

(b) $W_1 \subseteq W_2$ if and only if $W_2^\perp \subseteq W_1^\perp$.

(c) $W_1 = W_2$ if and only if $W_1^\perp = W_2^\perp$.

Proof. (a)

- If $w \in W$, then $w'v = v'w = 0$ for every $v \in W^\perp$, so $w \in (W^\perp)^\perp$. Thus $W \subseteq (W^\perp)^\perp$.
- Conversely, let $y \in (W^\perp)^\perp$, and write $y = w + v$ with $w \in W$ and $v \in W^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(c)).

- Then $y'v = 0$, as $y \perp W^\perp$, and $w'v = 0$, as $v \perp W$; so $v'v = (y-w)'v = y'v - w'v = 0$.
- Hence $v = 0$ and $y = w \in W$.

(b)

- For subspaces Y, U of $\mathbb{R}^n$: $Y \subseteq U$ if and only if $Y \perp U^\perp$. Indeed, $Y \perp U^\perp$ says that every vector of Y lies in $(U^\perp)^\perp$, which is U by (a).
- By this, (a) for W_1, the symmetry of $\perp$ ($u'w = w'u$), and this again with $Y = W_2^\perp$ and $U = W_1^\perp$,

$$W_1 \subseteq W_2 \iff W_1 \perp W_2^\perp \iff (W_1^\perp)^\perp \perp W_2^\perp \iff W_2^\perp \perp (W_1^\perp)^\perp \iff W_2^\perp \subseteq W_1^\perp$$

(c) If $W_1^\perp = W_2^\perp$, then $W_1^\perp \subseteq W_2^\perp$ and $W_2^\perp \subseteq W_1^\perp$, so $W_2 \subseteq W_1$ and $W_1 \subseteq W_2$ by (b). Conversely, if $W_1 = W_2$, then $W_1 \subseteq W_2$ and $W_2 \subseteq W_1$, so $W_2^\perp \subseteq W_1^\perp$ and $W_1^\perp \subseteq W_2^\perp$ by (b). □

Corollary 6.9. For $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times n}$, $\mathcal{C}(A') = \mathcal{N}(A)^\perp$ and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{N}(A')^\perp$. Hence, for $b \in \mathbb{R}^m$, the system $Ax = b$ has a solution if and only if $z'b = 0$ for every $z \in \mathbb{R}^m$ with $A'z = 0$; if $z_1, \dots, z_s$ span $\mathcal{N}(A')$, it suffices that $z_1'b = \cdots = z_s'b = 0$.

Proof. • By Corollary 6.7, $\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{C}(A')^\perp$ and $\mathcal{N}(A') = \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$. By Theorem 6.8(a), $\mathcal{N}(A)^\perp = (\mathcal{C}(A')^\perp)^\perp = \mathcal{C}(A')$ and $\mathcal{N}(A')^\perp = \mathcal{C}(A)$.

- $Ax = b$ has a solution if and only if $b \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ (Definition 4.7), that is, $b \perp \mathcal{N}(A')$. By Theorem 6.6(a), applied to $\mathcal{N}(A')$ and its spanning vectors $z_1, \dots, z_s$, this means $z_1'b = \cdots = z_s'b = 0$. □

Example 6.10. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 0 & 5 \\ 2 & 5 & 1 & 8 \end{pmatrix}$$

be the matrix of Example 4.9. The nonzero rows of its RREF are ρ_1' and ρ_2', with $\rho_1 = (1,0,3,-1)'$ and $\rho_2 = (0,1,-1,2)'$, and they form a basis of $\mathcal{R}(A)$; $s_1 = (-3,1,1,0)'$ and $s_2 = (1,-2,0,1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ (Example 4.9). Transposing maps $\mathcal{R}(A)$ onto $\mathcal{C}(A')$, as $(z'A)' = A'z$ ($z \in \mathbb{R}^3$), preserves linear combinations and is undone by transposing again; so ρ_1, ρ_2 form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A')$. Indeed

$$\rho_1's_1 = -3+0+3+0 = 0, \quad \rho_1's_2 = 1+0+0-1 = 0, \quad \rho_2's_1 = 0+1-1+0 = 0, \quad \rho_2's_2 = 0-2+0+2 = 0$$

and $2+2=4$. In $\mathbb{R}^3$, $y = (-1,-1,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A')$, orthogonal to the basis $a_1 = (1,1,2)'$, $a_2 = (2,3,5)'$ of $\mathcal{C}(A)$: $-1-1+2=0$ and $-2-3+5=0$; and $2+1=3$. By Corollary 6.9, $Ax = b$ has a solution exactly when $y'b = -b_1 - b_2 + b_3 = 0$. For $b = (1,2,3)'$, $-1-2+3=0$, and indeed $A(-1,1,0,0)' = -a_1 + a_2 = (1,2,3)'$ (Theorem 1.4(b)); for $b = e_1$, $y'e_1 = -1 \neq 0$, so $Ax = e_1$ has no solution.

Orthonormal bases, Gram–Schmidt, and QR

Proposition 6.11. Let $u_1, \dots, u_k \in \mathbb{R}^n$ be nonzero and pairwise orthogonal ($u_i'u_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$).

(a) If $y = c_1u_1 + \cdots + c_ku_k$, then $c_j = u_j'y/\|u_j\|^2$ for $j = 1, \dots, k$.

(b) $u_1, \dots, u_k$ are linearly independent.

Proof. (a) $u_j'y = \sum_i c_i u_j'u_i = c_j\|u_j\|^2$, and $\|u_j\|^2 > 0$. (b) If $\sum_i c_iu_i = 0$, then (a) with $y = 0$ gives every $c_j = 0$. □

Definition 6.12. Vectors $q_1, \dots, q_p \in \mathbb{R}^n$ are **orthonormal** if $q_i'q_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ and $\|q_j\| = 1$ for every j. A matrix $Q = [q_1 \ \cdots \ q_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ has **orthonormal columns** if $Q'Q = I_p$, since $(Q'Q)_{ij} = q_i'q_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). A square matrix $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $Q'Q = I_n$ is an **orthogonal matrix**. A basis of a subspace consisting of orthonormal vectors is an **orthonormal basis**.

Proposition 6.13. Let $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ satisfy $Q'Q = I_p$.

(a) $(Qx)'(Qy) = x'y$ and $\|Qx\| = \|x\|$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^p$: Q preserves inner products and lengths.

(b) If $p = n$, then Q is invertible, $Q^{-1} = Q'$ and $QQ' = I_n$: the transposed rows of Q are orthonormal too.

Proof. (a) $(Qx)'(Qy) = x'Q'Qy = x'y$; take $y = x$. (b) Q' is a left inverse of the square matrix Q, so $Q^{-1} = Q'$ (Theorem 2.16), and $QQ' = QQ^{-1} = I_n$. □

Theorem 6.14 (Gram–Schmidt)**.** Let $a_1, \dots, a_p \in \mathbb{R}^n$ be linearly independent. Put $b_1 = a_1$ and, for $j = 2, \dots, p$,

$$b_j = a_j - t_{1j}b_1 - t_{2j}b_2 - \cdots - t_{j-1,j}b_{j-1}, \qquad t_{ij} = \frac{a_j'b_i}{\|b_i\|^2} \quad (i < j)$$

Then $b_1, \dots, b_p$ are nonzero and pairwise orthogonal, and $\operatorname{span}\{b_1, \dots, b_j\} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_j\}$ for every j. Hence the vectors $q_j = b_j/\|b_j\|$ $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant p)$ form an orthonormal basis of $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_p\}$.

Proof. Induction on j: $b_1 = a_1 \neq 0$, since an independent list does not contain 0. Let $j \geqslant 2$, and let $b_1, \dots, b_{j-1}$ be nonzero, pairwise orthogonal, with span $W_{j-1} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_{j-1}\}$; so b_j is defined.

- Orthogonal: for $l < j$, $b_l'b_j = b_l'a_j - \sum_{i<j} t_{ij}b_l'b_i = b_l'a_j - t_{lj}\|b_l\|^2 = 0$.
- Nonzero: otherwise $a_j = \sum_{i<j} t_{ij}b_i \in W_{j-1}$, and $a_1, \dots, a_j$ would be dependent (Proposition 3.13(c)) ✘
- Span: b_j is a combination of a_j and $b_1, \dots, b_{j-1} \in W_{j-1}$, and $a_j = b_j + \sum_{i<j} t_{ij}b_i$; so each of the lists $a_1, \dots, a_j$ and $b_1, \dots, b_j$ lies in the span of the other, and the two spans are equal (Theorem 3.7).

Finally, the q_j are pairwise orthogonal unit vectors, hence independent (Proposition 6.11), and they span $\operatorname{span}\{b_1, \dots, b_p\} = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_p\}$. □

Corollary 6.15. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\dim W = d \geqslant 1$.

(a) W has an orthonormal basis.

(b) If $q_1, \dots, q_p \in W$ are orthonormal and $p < d$, there are $q_{p+1}, \dots, q_d \in W$ such that $q_1, \dots, q_d$ form an orthonormal basis of W.

(c) If $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ has orthonormal columns and $p < n$, there is $T \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times(n-p)}$ such that $[Q\ T]$ is an orthogonal matrix. For every such T, the columns of T form an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{C}(Q)^\perp$, and $QQ' + TT' = I_n$.

Proof. (a) W has a basis $a_1, \dots, a_d$ (Theorem 4.4). By Theorem 6.14, the vectors $q_j = b_j/\|b_j\|$ obtained from it form an orthonormal basis of $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_d\} = W$.

(b)

- $q_1, \dots, q_p$ are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), so they extend to a basis $q_1, \dots, q_p, a_{p+1}, \dots, a_d$ of W (Theorem 4.5(b)).
- Apply Theorem 6.14 to this list. Its first p outputs are $b_j = q_j$: $b_1 = q_1$, and if $b_i = q_i$ for all $i < j \leqslant p$, then $t_{ij} = q_j'q_i/\|q_i\|^2 = 0$, so $b_j = q_j$.
- Hence the normalized outputs $q_1, \dots, q_p, b_{p+1}/\|b_{p+1}\|, \dots, b_d/\|b_d\|$ form an orthonormal basis of W (Theorem 6.14), and its first p vectors are the given ones.

(c)

- The columns $q_1, \dots, q_p$ of Q are orthonormal (Definition 6.12). By (b) with $W = \mathbb{R}^n$, there are $q_{p+1}, \dots, q_n$ such that $q_1, \dots, q_n$ form an orthonormal basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$; then $T = [q_{p+1}\ \cdots\ q_n]$ makes $[Q\ T]$ an $n \times n$ matrix with orthonormal columns, that is, an orthogonal matrix.

- Let T be any such matrix. Each column of T is orthogonal to every column of Q, so it lies in $\mathcal{C}(Q)^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). Orthonormal vectors are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)); so $\operatorname{rank} Q = p$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), $\dim \mathcal{C}(Q)^\perp = n - p$ (Theorem 6.6(c)), and the $n - p$ independent columns of T form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(Q)^\perp$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).
- $[Q\ T][Q\ T]' = I_n$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), and by the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $[Q\ T][Q\ T]' = q_1 q_1' + \cdots + q_n q_n' = QQ' + TT'$. □

Theorem 6.16 (QR decomposition)**.** Let $A = [a_1\ \cdots\ a_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ have full column rank p. Then $A = QR$, where $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ has orthonormal columns ($Q'Q = I_p$) and $R \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries; moreover $R = Q'A$.

Proof.
- The columns of A are independent (Theorem 4.13(b)). Apply Theorem 6.14 to them, and let $Q = [q_1\ \cdots\ q_p]$.
- The construction gives $a_j = b_j + \sum_{i<j} t_{ij} b_i = \sum_{i\leqslant j} r_{ij} q_i$, where $r_{jj} = \|b_j\| > 0$ and $r_{ij} = t_{ij}\|b_i\|$ for $i < j$. Let $R = (r_{ij})$, with $r_{ij} = 0$ for $i > j$. Then $\operatorname{col}_j(QR) = Q \operatorname{col}_j(R) = \sum_{i\leqslant j} r_{ij} q_i = a_j$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)), so $A = QR$.
- $Q'Q = I_p$, as the q_j are orthonormal; hence $Q'A = Q'QR = R$. □

Example 6.17. Find the QR decomposition of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 2 & 4 \\ 2 & 2 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. Apply Gram–Schmidt (Theorem 6.14) to the columns a_1, a_2, a_3.

- $b_1 = a_1 = (1, 2, 0, 2)'$, $\|b_1\|^2 = 1 + 4 + 0 + 4 = 9$.
- $a_2' b_1 = 3 + 2 + 0 + 4 = 9$, so $t_{12} = 1$ and $b_2 = a_2 - b_1 = (3, 1, 2, 2)' - (1, 2, 0, 2)' = (2, -1, 2, 0)'$, with $\|b_2\|^2 = 4 + 1 + 4 + 0 = 9$.
- $a_3' b_1 = 2 + 6 + 0 + 10 = 18$ and $a_3' b_2 = 4 - 3 + 8 + 0 = 9$, so $t_{13} = 2$, $t_{23} = 1$ and

$$b_3 = a_3 - 2b_1 - b_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 3 \\ 4 \\ 5 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 0 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \|b_3\|^2 = 4 + 0 + 4 + 1 = 9$$

- Check: $b_1' b_2 = 2 - 2 + 0 + 0 = 0$, $b_1' b_3 = -2 + 0 + 0 + 2 = 0$, $b_2' b_3 = -4 + 0 + 4 + 0 = 0$.
- All three lengths are 3, so $q_j = \frac{1}{3} b_j$, $r_{jj} = 3$, $r_{12} = 3t_{12} = 3$, $r_{13} = 3t_{13} = 6$ and $r_{23} = 3t_{23} = 3$:

$$Q = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 3 & 6 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

As a check, $R = Q'A$; for instance $r_{23} = q_2' a_3 = \frac{1}{3}(4 - 3 + 8 + 0) = 3$.

Example 6.18. Extend the orthonormal columns q_1, q_2, q_3 of Q in Example 6.17 to an orthonormal basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$.

Solution. By Corollary 6.15(c) we need a unit vector q_4 orthogonal to q_1, q_2, q_3, that is, a normalized $v \neq 0$ with $b_1' v = b_2' v = b_3' v = 0$:

$$v_1 + 2v_2 + 2v_4 = 0, \qquad 2v_1 - v_2 + 2v_3 = 0, \qquad -2v_1 + 2v_3 + v_4 = 0$$

- The third equation gives $v_4 = 2v_1 - 2v_3$, and the second $v_2 = 2v_1 + 2v_3$.
- Substituting both into the first: $v_1 + (4v_1 + 4v_3) + (4v_1 - 4v_3) = 9v_1 = 0$, so $v_1 = 0$, $v_2 = 2v_3$ and $v_4 = -2v_3$.
- With $v_3 = 1$: $v = (0, 2, 1, -2)'$, $v'v = 0 + 4 + 1 + 4 = 9$, so $q_4 = \frac{1}{3}v$.

Hence

$$[Q\ q_4] = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

is an orthogonal matrix. By Corollary 6.15(c), q_4 alone is an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{C}(Q)^\perp = \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$ ($\mathcal{C}(Q) = \mathcal{C}(A)$ by Theorem 6.14), and $QQ' + q_4q_4' = I_4$.

Orthogonal matrices

Theorem 6.19. (a) For $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ the following are equivalent:

(i) $Q'Q = I_n$, that is, Q is orthogonal;
(ii) $QQ' = I_n$;
(iii) Q is invertible and $Q^{-1} = Q'$;
(iv) the columns of Q are orthonormal;
(v) the transposed rows of Q are orthonormal;
(vi) $(Qx)'(Qy) = x'y$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$;
(vii) $\|Qx\| = \|x\|$ for all $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(b) If $P, Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ are orthogonal, so are PQ, Q' and Q^{-1}.

(c) If Q is orthogonal, then $\det Q = 1$ or $\det Q = -1$.

(d) Every permutation matrix P_φ (Definition 5.40) is orthogonal, and $\det P_\varphi = 1$ or $\det P_\varphi = -1$.

Proof. (a)

- (i)⇒(ii),(iii): Proposition 6.13(b).
- (ii)⇒(iii): Q' is a right inverse of the square matrix Q, so Q is invertible and $Q^{-1} = Q'$ (Theorem 2.16). (iii)⇒(i): $Q'Q = Q^{-1}Q = I_n$.
- (i)⇔(iv): $(Q'Q)_{ij} = q_i'q_j$ for the columns $q_1, \dots, q_n$ of Q (Theorem 1.4(d)); so $Q'Q = I_n$ exactly when $q_i'q_j$ is 1 for $i = j$ and 0 for $i \neq j$ (Definition 6.12).
- (ii)⇔(v): likewise, $(QQ')_{ij} = \operatorname{row}_i(Q)\operatorname{row}_j(Q)'$.
- (i)⇒(vi): Proposition 6.13(a). (vi)⇒(vii): take $y = x$.
- (vi)⇒(i): with $x = e_i$ and $y = e_j$, $(Q'Q)_{ij} = q_i'q_j = (Qe_i)'(Qe_j) = e_i'e_j$, which is 1 for $i = j$ and 0 otherwise (Theorem 1.4(b),(d)).
- (vii)⇒(vi): by polarization (Proposition 6.3(a)) and $Q(x \pm y) = Qx \pm Qy$,

$$4(Qx)'(Qy) = \|Q(x+y)\|^2 - \|Q(x-y)\|^2 = \|x+y\|^2 - \|x-y\|^2 = 4x'y$$

(b)

- By (iii), $P^{-1} = P'$ and $Q^{-1} = Q'$, so $(PQ)^{-1} = Q^{-1}P^{-1} = Q'P' = (PQ)'$ (Theorems 2.13(b) and 1.9); by (iii), PQ is orthogonal.

- $(Q')'Q' = QQ' = I_n$ by (ii), so Q' is orthogonal; and $Q^{-1} = Q'$.

(c) $1 = \det I_n = \det(Q'Q) = \det Q' \cdot \det Q = (\det Q)^2$ (Definition 5.13(d), Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.22).

(d) $P'_\varphi P_\varphi = I_n$ (Proposition 5.41(c)), so P_φ is orthogonal, and $\det P_\varphi = \pm 1$ by (c). □

So multiplying by an orthogonal matrix keeps inner products, lengths and distances: $\|Qx - Qy\| = \|Q(x-y)\| = \|x-y\|$. It only changes the coordinates in which a data vector is written.

Example 6.20. Let $n \geqslant 2$. For $k = 2, \ldots, n$ let $u_k = (1, \ldots, 1, -(k-1), 0, \ldots, 0)' \in \mathbb{R}^n$: $k-1$ entries 1, then $-(k-1)$ in position k, then zeros. The **Helmert matrix** of order n is the $n \times n$ matrix K_n with rows

$$p'_1 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{n}}\,\mathbf{1}'_n, \qquad p'_k = \frac{1}{\sqrt{k(k-1)}}\,u'_k \quad (k = 2, \ldots, n)$$

For instance

$$K_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 1/2 & 1/2 & 1/2 & 1/2 \\ 1/\sqrt{2} & -1/\sqrt{2} & 0 & 0 \\ 1/\sqrt{6} & 1/\sqrt{6} & -2/\sqrt{6} & 0 \\ 1/\sqrt{12} & 1/\sqrt{12} & 1/\sqrt{12} & -3/\sqrt{12} \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) K_n is orthogonal. By Theorem 6.19(a) it suffices that $p_1, \ldots, p_n$ are orthonormal.

- $\mathbf{1}'_n u_k = (k-1) - (k-1) = 0$ for $k \geqslant 2$.
- For $2 \leqslant j < k$: u_j is 0 outside positions $1, \ldots, j$, and these positions of u_k hold 1 (as $j \leqslant k-1$); so $u'_j u_k$ is the sum of the entries of u_j, which is $\mathbf{1}'_n u_j = 0$.
- $\mathbf{1}'_n \mathbf{1}_n = n$ and $u'_k u_k = (k-1) \cdot 1 + (k-1)^2 = k(k-1)$, so every p_k has length 1.

(b) For data $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with mean $\bar{y}$, the first entry of $K_n y$ is $p'_1 y = \frac{1}{\sqrt{n}}\mathbf{1}'y = \sqrt{n}\,\bar{y}$, and for $k \geqslant 2$ its kth entry is the **contrast** $p'_k y = \big(y_1 + \cdots + y_{k-1} - (k-1)y_k\big)/\sqrt{k(k-1)}$, a combination of $y_1, \ldots, y_n$ whose coefficients add up to 0.

- By (a) and Theorem 6.19(a)(vii), $\sum_i y_i^2 = \|K_n y\|^2 = n\bar{y}^2 + \sum_{k=2}^n (p'_k y)^2$. As $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2 = \sum_i y_i^2 - n\bar{y}^2$ (Example 1.16), the sum of squared deviations is the sum of the squares of the $n-1$ contrasts:

$$\sum_{i=1}^n (y_i - \bar{y})^2 = \sum_{k=2}^n (p'_k y)^2$$

- In matrix form: $K'_n K_n = I_n$ reads $p_1 p'_1 + \cdots + p_n p'_n = I_n$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), and $p_1 p'_1 = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = \bar{J}_n$; hence $p_2 p'_2 + \cdots + p_n p'_n = I_n - \bar{J}_n = C_n$.

(c) For $n = 4$ and $y = (5, 3, 1, 7)'$: $\bar{y} = 4$, $p'_1 y = 16/2 = 8 = \sqrt{4} \cdot 4$, and

$$p'_2 y = \frac{5-3}{\sqrt{2}} = \sqrt{2}, \qquad p'_3 y = \frac{5+3-2}{\sqrt{6}} = \sqrt{6}, \qquad p'_4 y = \frac{5+3+1-21}{\sqrt{12}} = -\sqrt{12}$$

so the contrasts give $2 + 6 + 12 = 20 = 1 + 1 + 9 + 9 = \sum_i (y_i - 4)^2$, and $\|y\|^2 = 25 + 9 + 1 + 49 = 84 = 64 + 20$.

Example 6.21. (a) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is symmetric and idempotent, then $I_n - 2A$ is symmetric and orthogonal: $(I - 2A)'(I - 2A) = (I - 2A)^2 = I - 4A + 4A^2 = I$.

(b) Let $h \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $h \neq 0$. The matrix $A = hh'/(h'h)$ is symmetric and idempotent, since $(hh')' = hh'$ and $hh'hh' = h(h'h)h'$. So the **reflection**

$$F_h = I_n - \frac{2}{h'h}\,hh'$$

is symmetric and orthogonal, and $F_h^2 = F'_h F_h = I_n$. It reverses h and fixes every vector orthogonal to h: $F_h h = h - 2h = -h$, and $F_h x = x - \frac{2h'x}{h'h}h = x$ if $h'x = 0$. By Theorem 5.31 with $u = -\frac{2}{h'h}h$ and $v = h$, $\det F_h = 1 + v'u = 1 - 2 = -1$.

(c) For $h = e_r - e_s$ ($r \neq s$), $h'h = 2$ and $F_h = I_n - (e_r - e_s)(e_r - e_s)'$ is the interchange matrix P_{rs} of Definition 2.14: its entries (r,r) and (s,s) are $1-1=0$, its entries (r,s) and (s,r) are 1, and the others are those of I_n. Interchanging two coordinates is a reflection.

(d) For $h = (1,1,2,2)'$, $h'h = 10$ and

$$F_h = I_4 - \frac{1}{5}\begin{pmatrix}1&1&2&2\\1&1&2&2\\2&2&4&4\\2&2&4&4\end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{5}\begin{pmatrix}4&-1&-2&-2\\-1&4&-2&-2\\-2&-2&1&-4\\-2&-2&-4&1\end{pmatrix}$$

Its columns are orthonormal (for instance $16+1+4+4=25$ and $-4-4+4+4=0$), and $F_h h = \frac{1}{5}(4-1-4-4,\ -1+4-4-4,\ -2-2+2-8,\ -2-2-8+2)' = -(1,1,2,2)'$.

Orthogonal projections

Definition 6.22. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ and $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$. By Theorem 6.6(c), $y = \hat{w} + (y - \hat{w})$ with $\hat{w} \in W$ and $y - \hat{w} \in W^\perp$ for exactly one vector $\hat{w}$, the **orthogonal projection** of y onto W. Thus $\hat{w}$ is the only vector of W with $y - \hat{w} \perp W$.

Theorem 6.23. Let $\hat{w}$ be the orthogonal projection of $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ onto a subspace W of $\mathbb{R}^n$. Then

$$\|y - w\|^2 = \|y - \hat{w}\|^2 + \|\hat{w} - w\|^2 \qquad (w \in W)$$

Hence $\hat{w}$ is the vector of W closest to y: $\|y-w\| > \|y-\hat{w}\|$ for every $w \in W$ with $w \neq \hat{w}$. Equivalently, a vector $w_0 \in W$ satisfies $\|y - w_0\| \leqslant \|y - w\|$ for every $w \in W$ if and only if $y - w_0 \perp W$, and only $w_0 = \hat{w}$ does.

Proof. $y-w = (y-\hat{w})+(\hat{w}-w)$, where $\hat{w}-w \in W$ and $y-\hat{w} \perp W$; apply Pythagoras (Proposition 6.2). If $w \neq \hat{w}$, then $\|\hat{w}-w\|^2 > 0$. So $w_0 \in W$ is a closest vector if and only if $w_0 = \hat{w}$, and by Definition 6.22 this holds if and only if $y - w_0 \perp W$. □

The number $\|y - \hat{w}\| = \min_{w \in W}\|y - w\|$ is the **distance** from y to W.

Theorem 6.24. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$, $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, and $\hat{w}$ the orthogonal projection of y onto W.

(a) If $u_1, \ldots, u_k$ ($k \geqslant 1$) form an orthogonal basis of W, that is, a basis of pairwise orthogonal vectors, then

$$\hat{w} = \frac{u_1'y}{u_1'u_1}\,u_1 + \cdots + \frac{u_k'y}{u_k'u_k}\,u_k$$

In particular, if $q_1, \ldots, q_k$ form an orthonormal basis of W and $Q = [q_1\ \cdots\ q_k]$, then $\hat{w} = (q_1'y)q_1 + \cdots + (q_k'y)q_k = QQ'y$.

(b) $\hat{w} = y$ if and only if $y \in W$.

(c) (**Bessel's inequality**) In (a), $\|\hat{w}\|^2 = \sum_{j=1}^k (u_j'y)^2/u_j'u_j \leqslant \|y\|^2$, with equality if and only if $y \in W$; for an orthonormal basis, $\sum_{j=1}^k (q_j'y)^2 \leqslant \|y\|^2$.

(d) $y - \hat{w}$ is the orthogonal projection of y onto $W^\perp$.

Proof. By Definition 6.22, $\hat{w}$ is the only vector of W with $y - \hat{w} \perp W$.

(a)

- The u_j are nonzero (Proposition 3.13(a)); put $c_j = u_j'y/u_j'u_j$ and $w_0 = c_1u_1 + \cdots + c_ku_k \in W$.
- For $i = 1, \ldots, k$, $u_i'(y-w_0) = u_i'y - \sum_j c_j u_i'u_j = u_i'y - c_iu_i'u_i = 0$. As $u_1, \ldots, u_k$ span W, $y - w_0 \perp W$ (Theorem 6.6(a)); so $w_0 = \hat{w}$.

- For an orthonormal basis, $q_j'q_j = 1$, and $\sum_j (q_j'y)q_j = Q(Q'y)$, as $Q'y$ has the entries $q_j'y$ (Theorem 1.4(b),(d)).

(b) If $\hat{w} = y$, then $y \in W$. Conversely, if $y \in W$, then $y - y = 0 \perp W$, so $\hat{w} = y$.

(c)

- $y = \hat{w} + (y - \hat{w})$ with $\hat{w} \perp y - \hat{w}$, so $\|y\|^2 = \|\hat{w}\|^2 + \|y - \hat{w}\|^2 \geqslant \|\hat{w}\|^2$ (Proposition 6.2).
- The vectors $c_j u_j$ are pairwise orthogonal, so $\|\hat{w}\|^2 = \sum_j c_j^2\, u_j'u_j = \sum_j (u_j'y)^2/u_j'u_j$ (Proposition 6.3(b)).
- Equality holds if and only if $\|y - \hat{w}\| = 0$, that is, $y = \hat{w}$, that is, $y \in W$ by (b).

(d) $y - \hat{w} \in W^\perp$, and $y - (y - \hat{w}) = \hat{w} \in W = (W^\perp)^\perp$ (Theorem 6.8(a)), that is, $y - (y - \hat{w}) \perp W^\perp$. By Definition 6.22 for the subspace $W^\perp$, $y - \hat{w}$ is the orthogonal projection of y onto $W^\perp$. □

Example 6.25. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, a_2\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$, where $a_1 = (1, 2, 0, 2)'$ and $a_2 = (3, 1, 2, 2)'$ are the first two columns of A in Example 6.17, and let $y = (-2, 7, 1, 3)'$. Find the orthogonal projections of y onto W and onto $W^\perp$, and the distance from y to the nearest vector of W.

Solution. By Example 6.17 and Theorem 6.14, $b_1 = (1, 2, 0, 2)'$ and $b_2 = (2, -1, 2, 0)'$ form an orthogonal basis of W, with $b_1'b_1 = b_2'b_2 = 9$.

- $b_1'y = -2 + 14 + 0 + 6 = 18$ and $b_2'y = -4 - 7 + 2 + 0 = -9$. By Theorem 6.24(a),

$$\hat{w} = \frac{18}{9}\, b_1 - \frac{9}{9}\, b_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 0 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -1 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 5 \\ -2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

- By Theorem 6.24(d), the projection of y onto $W^\perp$ is $y - \hat{w} = (-2, 2, 3, -1)'$. Check: $b_1'(y - \hat{w}) = -2 + 4 + 0 - 2 = 0$ and $b_2'(y - \hat{w}) = -4 - 2 + 6 + 0 = 0$.
- The vector of W nearest to y is $\hat{w}$ (Theorem 6.23), at distance $\|y - \hat{w}\| = \sqrt{4 + 4 + 9 + 1} = \sqrt{18} = 3\sqrt{2}$.
- Bessel's inequality (Theorem 6.24(c)): $\|\hat{w}\|^2 = 18^2/9 + 9^2/9 = 36 + 9 = 45 \leqslant \|y\|^2 = 4 + 49 + 1 + 9 = 63$, and $63 = 45 + 18$.

Theorem 6.26. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ have full column rank p. Then $A'A$ is invertible. Put

$$P = A(A'A)^{-1}A' \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$$

(a) For every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, Py is the orthogonal projection of y onto $\mathcal{C}(A)$, and $y = Py + (I_n - P)y$ is the decomposition of y along $\mathbb{R}^n = \mathcal{C}(A) \oplus \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$.

(b) $P' = P = P^2$ and $(I_n - P)' = I_n - P = (I_n - P)^2$: both are symmetric and idempotent.

(c) $PA = A$, $(I_n - P)A = 0$ and $P(I_n - P) = (I_n - P)P = 0$.

Proof. $\operatorname{rank}(A'A) = \operatorname{rank} A = p$ (Theorem 4.18(b)), so the $p \times p$ matrix $A'A$ is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).

(a) $Py = A\big((A'A)^{-1}A'y\big) \in \mathcal{C}(A)$, and $A'(y - Py) = A'y - (A'A)(A'A)^{-1}A'y = 0$, so $(I_n - P)y = y - Py \in \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). By Definition 6.22, Py is the projection.

(b) $A'A$ is symmetric, hence so is its inverse: $((A'A)^{-1})' = ((A'A)')^{-1} = (A'A)^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(c)). So $P' = A((A'A)^{-1})'A' = P$ and $P^2 = A(A'A)^{-1}(A'A)(A'A)^{-1}A' = P$. Then $(I_n - P)' = I_n - P' = I_n - P$ and $(I_n - P)^2 = I_n - 2P + P^2 = I_n - P$.

(c) $PA = A(A'A)^{-1}A'A = A$, $(I_n - P)A = A - PA = 0$, and $P(I_n - P) = P - P^2 = 0 = (I_n - P)P$. □

Example 6.27. For $A = \mathbf{1}_n$ ($p = 1$), $A'A = \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = n$, so the matrix $P = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ of Theorem 6.26 is $\frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = \bar{J}_n$, and $I_n - P = I_n - \bar{J}_n = C_n$, the centering matrix of Definition 1.14: by Theorem 6.26(a), $\bar{J}_n y = \bar{y}\mathbf{1}$ (Example 3.35) is the orthogonal projection of y onto $\text{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$, and $C_n y = y - \bar{y}\mathbf{1}$ (Example 1.16). The centered vectors form $W_0 = \{x : \mathbf{1}'x = 0\} = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}^{\perp}$ (Theorem 6.6(a)), so the decomposition $y = \bar{y}\mathbf{1} + C_n y$ along $\mathbb{R}^n = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}\} \oplus W_0$ of Example 3.35 is the orthogonal one, and $\bar{y}\mathbf{1}$ is the constant vector closest to y (Theorem 6.23): $\sum_i (y_i - c)^2 = \|y - c\mathbf{1}\|^2 > \|y - \bar{y}\mathbf{1}\|^2 = \sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2$ for every $c \neq \bar{y}$. For instance, $y = (9, 3, 5, 3)'$ has $\bar{y} = 5$ and $y = 5\,\mathbf{1}_4 + (4, -2, 0, -2)'$, with $\mathbf{1}_4'(4, -2, 0, -2)' = 0$. Likewise, for any nonzero $a \in \mathbb{R}^n$ the projection of y onto $\text{span}\{a\}$ is $a(a'a)^{-1}a'y = \frac{a'y}{a'a}\,a$ (Theorem 6.26(a) with the matrix a, which has full column rank 1 as $a \neq 0$).

Example 6.28. Let $a_1 = \mathbf{1}_4$, $a_2 = (2, 0, 2, 0)'$, $a_3 = (3, 3, 1, 1)'$, $A = [a_1\ a_2\ a_3] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$, $W = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $y = (9, 3, 5, 3)'$. Find $(A'A)^{-1}$, the matrix $P = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ of Theorem 6.26, the vector of W closest to y, and the distance from y to W.

Solution.

- The (j, l) entry of $A'A$ is $a_j'a_l$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), so

$$A'A = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 4 & 8 \\ 4 & 8 & 8 \\ 8 & 8 & 20 \end{pmatrix}$$

It is symmetric (Theorem 1.9), so its cofactors (Definition 5.20) satisfy $c_{ji} = c_{ij}$ (Remark 5.25), and six of them are needed (each 2×2 determinant along its row 1, Theorem 5.21):

$$c_{11} = \det\begin{pmatrix} 8 & 8 \\ 8 & 20 \end{pmatrix} = 96, \quad c_{12} = -\det\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 8 \\ 8 & 20 \end{pmatrix} = -16, \quad c_{13} = \det\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 8 \\ 8 & 8 \end{pmatrix} = -32$$
$$c_{22} = \det\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 8 \\ 8 & 20 \end{pmatrix} = 16, \quad c_{23} = -\det\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 4 \\ 8 & 8 \end{pmatrix} = 0, \qquad c_{33} = \det\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 4 \\ 4 & 8 \end{pmatrix} = 16$$

Along row 1 (Theorem 5.21), $\det(A'A) = 4 \cdot 96 + 4 \cdot (-16) + 8 \cdot (-32) = 64$. Hence, by Theorem 5.24,

$$(A'A)^{-1} = \frac{1}{64}\begin{pmatrix} 96 & -16 & -32 \\ -16 & 16 & 0 \\ -32 & 0 & 16 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 6 & -1 & -2 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

As $A'A$ is invertible, $\text{rank}\, A = \text{rank}(A'A) = 3$ (Theorems 4.18(b) and 4.13(d)): A has full column rank, and Theorem 6.26 applies.

- Then

$$(A'A)^{-1}A' = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 6 & -1 & -2 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 3 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 2 & 4 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$P = A(A'A)^{-1}A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 2 & 4 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 3 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 3 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

- By Theorem 6.26(a), Py is the orthogonal projection of y onto W, so it is the vector of W closest to y (Theorem 6.23):

$$Py = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 27 + 3 + 5 - 3 \\ 9 + 9 - 5 + 3 \\ 9 - 3 + 15 + 3 \\ -9 + 3 + 5 + 9 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 8 \\ 4 \\ 6 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad (I_4 - P)y = y - Py = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ -1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The distance from y to W is $\|y - Py\| = \sqrt{1 + 1 + 1 + 1} = 2$. Check: $A'(I_4 - P)y = (1 - 1 - 1 + 1,\ 2 - 2,\ 3 - 3 - 1 + 1)' = 0$, and $(Py)'(I_4 - P)y = 8 - 4 - 6 + 2 = 0$.

- Check through $W^\perp$: $h = (1,-1,-1,1)'$ is orthogonal to a_1, a_2, a_3 ($1-1-1+1=0$, $2-2=0$, $3-3-1+1=0$), so $h \in W^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). As $\dim W = \operatorname{rank} A = 3$ (Definition 4.11), $\dim W^\perp = 4-3=1$ (Theorem 6.6(c)), and the nonzero h spans $W^\perp$ (Theorem 4.5(d)). By Theorem 6.24(d) and the last sentence of Example 6.27, $(I_4 - P)y = y - Py$ is the projection $\frac{1}{4}(h'y)h = \frac{1}{4}hh'y$ of y onto $W^\perp = \operatorname{span}\{h\}$, for every $y \in \mathbb{R}^4$; so (Theorem 1.4(b), with $y = e_j$)

$$I_4 - P = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{4}hh'$$

  which agrees with P above. Pythagoras (Proposition 6.2): $\|y\|^2 = 81+9+25+9 = 124$ and $\|Py\|^2 + \|(I_4-P)y\|^2 = (64+16+36+4)+4 = 124$.

Idempotent matrices: rank equals trace

Theorem 6.29. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be idempotent, $A^2 = A$.

(a) $Av = v$ for every $v \in \mathcal{C}(A)$, and $\mathbb{R}^n = \mathcal{N}(A) \oplus \mathcal{C}(A)$: every $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is $v = (v - Av) + Av$ with $v - Av \in \mathcal{N}(A)$ and $Av \in \mathcal{C}(A)$.

(b) $I_n - A$ is idempotent.

(c) $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{tr} A$.

(d) If moreover $A' = A$, then Av is the orthogonal projection of v onto $\mathcal{C}(A)$, for every $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof. (a)

- If $v = Aw$, then $Av = A^2w = Aw = v$. For every v, $A(v - Av) = Av - A^2v = 0$.
- If $v \in \mathcal{N}(A) \cap \mathcal{C}(A)$, then $v = Av = 0$. So the sum $\mathcal{N}(A) + \mathcal{C}(A)$ is direct (Definition 3.30), and it is $\mathbb{R}^n$ by the displayed decomposition.

(b) $(I-A)^2 = I - 2A + A^2 = I - A$.

(c) If $A = 0$, then $\operatorname{rank} A = 0 = \operatorname{tr} A$. Let $r = \operatorname{rank} A \geqslant 1$.

- Take a full-rank factorization $A = BC$, with $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$, $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$, and $L \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$, $K \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$ such that $LB = I_r$ and $CK = I_r$ (Theorem 4.21(a),(c)).
- $A^2 = A$ reads $BCBC = BC$. Multiplying on the left by L and on the right by K, $L(BCBC)K = (LB)(CB)(CK) = CB$ and $L(BC)K = (LB)(CK) = I_r$; so $CB = I_r$.
- Hence $\operatorname{tr} A = \operatorname{tr}(BC) = \operatorname{tr}(CB) = \operatorname{tr} I_r = r$ (Theorem 1.11(b)).

(d) By Corollary 6.7, $\mathcal{N}(A) = \mathcal{C}(A')^\perp = \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$. So in (a), $Av \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $v - Av \in \mathcal{C}(A)^\perp$: by Definition 6.22, Av is the orthogonal projection of v onto $\mathcal{C}(A)$. □

Corollary 6.30. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ have full column rank, and let $P = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ (Theorem 6.26). Then $\operatorname{rank} P = \operatorname{tr} P = p = \operatorname{rank} A$ and $\operatorname{rank}(I_n - P) = \operatorname{tr}(I_n - P) = n - p$. In particular $\operatorname{rank} C_n = \operatorname{tr} C_n = n - 1$.

Proof. By Theorem 1.11(a),(b), $\operatorname{tr} P = \operatorname{tr}\big(A(A'A)^{-1}A'\big) = \operatorname{tr}\big((A'A)^{-1}A'A\big) = \operatorname{tr} I_p = p$ and $\operatorname{tr}(I_n - P) = \operatorname{tr} I_n - \operatorname{tr} P = n - p$. Both matrices are idempotent (Theorem 6.26(b)), so their ranks equal their traces (Theorem 6.29(c)). For $A = \mathbf{1}_n$, $I_n - P = C_n$ (Example 6.27). □

In Example 6.28, $\operatorname{tr} P = \frac{1}{4}(3+3+3+3) = 3$ and $\operatorname{tr}(I_4 - P) = \frac{1}{4}(1+1+1+1) = 1$; indeed every column of $I_4 - P = \frac{1}{4}hh'$ is a nonzero multiple of $h = (1,-1,-1,1)'$, so $\mathcal{C}(I_4 - P) = \operatorname{span}\{h\}$ and $\operatorname{rank}(I_4 - P) = 1$ (Definition 4.11 and Proposition 3.13(a)).

Projection matrices

Theorem 6.31. Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) There is exactly one matrix $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ such that Py is the orthogonal projection of y onto W for every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$. It is the **(orthogonal) projection matrix** for W, written P_W. For $W = \{0\}$, $P_W = 0$.

(b) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ has full column rank and $\mathcal{C}(A) = W$, then $P_W = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$. If the columns of $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ form an orthonormal basis of W, then $P_W = QQ'$.

(c) P_W is symmetric and idempotent; $P_W w = w$ for $w \in W$ and $P_W v = 0$ for $v \in W^\perp$; $\mathcal{C}(P_W) = W$ and $\operatorname{rank} P_W = \operatorname{tr} P_W = \dim W$; $\|P_W y\|^2 = y'P_W y$ for $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$; and $P_{W^\perp} = I_n - P_W$.

Proof. (a)

- Uniqueness: if $Py = \tilde{P}y$ for every y, then $\operatorname{col}_j(P) = Pe_j = \tilde{P}e_j = \operatorname{col}_j(\tilde{P})$ for every j (Theorem 1.4(b)), so $P = \tilde{P}$.
- Existence for $W = \{0\}$: $y = 0 + y$ with $0 \in W$ and $y \perp W$, so the projection of every y is $0 = 0y$, and $P = 0$ has the property.
- Existence for $W \neq \{0\}$: W has a basis $a_1, \ldots, a_p$ ($p \geqslant 1$; Theorem 4.4), so $A = [a_1 \ \cdots \ a_p]$ has full column rank (Theorem 4.13(b)) and $\mathcal{C}(A) = W$. By Theorem 6.26(a), $P = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ has the property.

(b) By Theorem 6.26(a), every A of full column rank with $\mathcal{C}(A) = W$ has the property in (a), so $A(A'A)^{-1}A' = P_W$ by the uniqueness in (a). If the columns of Q form an orthonormal basis of W, then $\mathcal{C}(Q) = W$, Q has full column rank (Proposition 6.11(b), Theorem 4.13(b)) and $Q'Q = I_k$ (Definition 6.12), so $P_W = Q(Q'Q)^{-1}Q' = QQ'$.

(c)

- For $w \in W$, $w = w + 0$ with $0 \in W^\perp$; for $v \in W^\perp$, $v = 0 + v$ with $0 \in W$. By the uniqueness in Definition 6.22, $P_W w = w$ and $P_W v = 0$.
- If $W = \{0\}$, then $P_W = 0$ is symmetric and idempotent, $\mathcal{C}(0) = \{0\}$ and $\operatorname{rank} 0 = \operatorname{tr} 0 = 0$. Let $W \neq \{0\}$, and $P_W = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ as in (b).
- P_W is symmetric and idempotent, and $P_W A = A$ (Theorem 6.26(b),(c)).
- $\mathcal{C}(P_W) = \mathcal{C}\big(A(A'A)^{-1}A'\big) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{C}(P_W A) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(P_W)$ (Theorem 4.15(a)); so $\mathcal{C}(P_W) = W$, and $\operatorname{rank} P_W = \dim W = \operatorname{tr} P_W$ (Definition 4.11, Theorem 6.29(c)).
- For every W and $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, as P_W is symmetric and idempotent, $\|P_W y\|^2 = (P_W y)'(P_W y) = y'P_W'P_W y = y'P_W^2 y = y'P_W y$ (Theorem 1.9).
- For every W: $(I_n - P_W)y = y - P_W y$ is the orthogonal projection of y onto $W^\perp$ for every y (Theorem 6.24(d)); so $P_{W^\perp} = I_n - P_W$ by (a) for $W^\perp$. □

By (a) and (b), QQ' does not depend on the choice of the orthonormal basis of W.

Corollary 6.32. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ have full column rank p, and let $A = QR$ as in Theorem 6.16. Then $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{C}(Q)$ and $P_{\mathcal{C}(A)} = QQ'$.

Proof.

- $\operatorname{col}_j(A) = Q \operatorname{col}_j(R) \in \mathcal{C}(Q)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)), so $\mathcal{C}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(Q)$.
- R is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries, so R is invertible (Theorem 2.31(a)). Then $Q = AR^{-1}$, so $\operatorname{col}_j(Q) = A \operatorname{col}_j(R^{-1}) \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ for every j, and $\mathcal{C}(Q) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$.

- The columns of Q are orthonormal, hence linearly independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), and they span $\mathcal{C}(Q) = \mathcal{C}(A)$. So they form an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$, and $P_{\mathcal{C}(A)} = QQ'$ by Theorem 6.31(b). □

Example 6.33. For $W = \text{span}\{a_1, a_2\}$ of Example 6.25, find P_W in two ways, and $P_{W^\perp}$.

Solution.

- By Example 6.17, $q_1 = \frac{1}{3}b_1$ and $q_2 = \frac{1}{3}b_2$ form an orthonormal basis of W. By Theorem 6.31(b) and the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $P_W = q_1q_1' + q_2q_2' = \frac{1}{9}(b_1b_1' + b_2b_2')$:

$$P_W = \frac{1}{9}\left[\begin{pmatrix}1&2&0&2\\2&4&0&4\\0&0&0&0\\2&4&0&4\end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix}4&-2&4&0\\-2&1&-2&0\\4&-2&4&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}\right] = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}5&0&4&2\\0&5&-2&4\\4&-2&4&0\\2&4&0&4\end{pmatrix}$$

- With $B = [a_1\ a_2]$: $B'B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}9&9\\9&18\end{smallmatrix}\right)$, of determinant 81, so $(B'B)^{-1} = \frac{1}{81}\left(\begin{smallmatrix}18&-9\\-9&9\end{smallmatrix}\right) = \frac{1}{9}\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&-1\\-1&1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.24), and

$$B(B'B)^{-1} = \frac{1}{9}[2a_1 - a_2 \quad -a_1 + a_2] = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}-1&2\\3&-1\\-2&2\\2&0\end{pmatrix}, \qquad B(B'B)^{-1}B' = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}5&0&4&2\\0&5&-2&4\\4&-2&4&0\\2&4&0&4\end{pmatrix}$$

  the same matrix, as Theorem 6.31(a),(b) asserts. Also $\text{tr}\, P_W = \frac{1}{9}(5+5+4+4) = 2 = \dim W$, and $P_W y = (0, 5, -2, 4)' = \hat{w}$ for y of Example 6.25.

- By Theorem 6.31(c),

$$P_{W^\perp} = I_4 - P_W = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}4&0&-4&-2\\0&4&2&-4\\-4&2&5&0\\-2&-4&0&5\end{pmatrix}$$

  The columns $q_3 = \frac{1}{3}b_3$, $q_4 = \frac{1}{3}v$ of the orthogonal matrix of Example 6.18 form an orthonormal basis of $W^\perp$ (Corollary 6.15(c)), and indeed $\frac{1}{9}(b_3b_3' + vv')$ is this matrix.

Theorem 6.34. A matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is the projection matrix for some subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ if and only if $A' = A = A^2$. In that case $A = P_{\mathcal{C}(A)}$. In particular, two symmetric idempotent matrices with the same column space are equal.

Proof. • If $A = P_W$, then A is symmetric and idempotent and $\mathcal{C}(A) = W$ (Theorem 6.31(c)).

- Conversely, let $A' = A = A^2$. By Theorem 6.29(d), Av is the orthogonal projection of v onto $\mathcal{C}(A)$ for every $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$; so $A = P_{\mathcal{C}(A)}$ (Theorem 6.31(a)).
- If A and B are symmetric and idempotent with $\mathcal{C}(A) = \mathcal{C}(B) = W$, then $A = P_W = B$. □

Corollary 6.35. Let $W_0 = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : \mathbf{1}_n'x = 0\}$.

(a) $P_{\text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\}} = \bar{J}_n$ and $P_{W_0} = C_n$.

(b) $\text{rank}\, C_n = \text{tr}\, C_n = n - 1$.

Proof. (a) The vector $q = n^{-1/2}\mathbf{1}_n$ satisfies $q'q = n^{-1}\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = 1$ (Proposition 1.15), so it is an orthonormal basis of $\text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\}$, and $P_{\text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\}} = qq' = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = \bar{J}_n$ (Theorem 6.31(b) and Definition 1.14). By Theorem 6.6(a), $W_0 = \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{1}') = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\}^\perp$, so $P_{W_0} = I_n - \bar{J}_n = C_n$ (Theorem 6.31(c)).

(b) By (a) and Theorem 6.31(c), $\text{rank}\, C_n = \text{tr}\, C_n$. Every diagonal entry of $\bar{J}_n$ is $\frac{1}{n}$, so $\text{tr}\, C_n = \text{tr}\, I_n - \text{tr}\, \bar{J}_n = n - 1$ (Theorem 1.11(a)). □

Projections onto orthogonal sums and nested subspaces

Theorem 6.36. Let $U \subseteq W$ be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$, with projection matrices P_U and P_W.

(a) $P_W P_U = P_U P_W = P_U$.

(b) $P_W - P_U$ is symmetric and idempotent, of rank $\dim W - \dim U$, and it is the projection matrix for $W \cap U^\perp$. Moreover $(P_W - P_U)P_U = 0$ and $(P_W - P_U)(I_n - P_W) = 0$, and W is the orthogonal sum of U and $W \cap U^\perp$.

(c) Every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ splits as $y = P_U y + (P_W - P_U)y + (I_n - P_W)y$ into three pairwise orthogonal parts, so that

$$\|y\|^2 = \|P_U y\|^2 + \|(P_W - P_U)y\|^2 + \|(I_n - P_W)y\|^2, \qquad \|P_W y\|^2 = \|P_U y\|^2 + \|(P_W - P_U)y\|^2$$

Proof. (a) If $U = \{0\}$, then $P_U = 0$ and (a) is clear. Otherwise let Z have full column rank with $\mathcal{C}(Z) = U$ (a basis of U as columns; Theorems 4.4 and 4.13(b)), so that $P_U = Z(Z'Z)^{-1}Z'$ (Theorem 6.31(b)).

- Each column of Z lies in $U \subseteq W$, so it is its own projection onto W (Theorem 6.24(b)): $P_W Z = Z$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).
- Hence $P_W P_U = P_W Z(Z'Z)^{-1}Z' = Z(Z'Z)^{-1}Z' = P_U$. As P_W and P_U are symmetric (Theorem 6.31(c)), $P_U P_W = P_U' P_W' = (P_W P_U)' = P_U' = P_U$.

(b)

- P_W and P_U are symmetric and idempotent (Theorem 6.31(c)), so $P_W - P_U$ is symmetric, and by (a), $(P_W - P_U)^2 = P_W^2 - P_W P_U - P_U P_W + P_U^2 = P_W - P_U - P_U + P_U = P_W - P_U$.
- Its rank is its trace (Theorem 6.29(c)): $\operatorname{tr} P_W - \operatorname{tr} P_U = \dim W - \dim U$ (Theorems 1.11(a) and 6.31(c)).
- $(P_W - P_U)P_U = P_W P_U - P_U^2 = P_U - P_U = 0$, and $(P_W - P_U)(I - P_W) = P_W - P_W^2 - P_U + P_U P_W = 0$.
- By Theorem 6.34, $P_W - P_U$ is the projection matrix for $\mathcal{C}(P_W - P_U)$. If $v = (P_W - P_U)y$, then $P_W v = (P_W^2 - P_W P_U)y = v$, so $v \in \mathcal{C}(P_W) = W$; and $P_U v = (P_U P_W - P_U^2)y = 0$, so $v \in \mathcal{N}(P_U) = \mathcal{C}(P_U')^\perp = U^\perp$ (Corollary 6.7, with $P_U' = P_U$, and $\mathcal{C}(P_W) = W$, $\mathcal{C}(P_U) = U$ by Theorem 6.31(c)). Thus $\mathcal{C}(P_W - P_U) \subseteq W \cap U^\perp$.
- Conversely, if $v \in W \cap U^\perp$, then $P_W v = v$ (Theorem 6.24(b)) and $P_U v = 0$ (as $v = 0 + v$ with $v \perp U$), so $v = (P_W - P_U)v \in \mathcal{C}(P_W - P_U)$.
- $W \cap U^\perp$ is a subspace (Theorems 6.6(a) and 3.31(a)), orthogonal to U, as it lies in $U^\perp$. For $w \in W$, $w = P_U w + (w - P_U w)$, where $P_U w \in U$, and $w - P_U w$ lies in W (as $P_U w \in U \subseteq W$) and in $U^\perp$ (Definition 6.22). So $W \subseteq U + (W \cap U^\perp)$; conversely $U + (W \cap U^\perp) \subseteq W$, as U and $W \cap U^\perp$ lie in the subspace W (Theorem 3.31(b)). Hence $W = U + (W \cap U^\perp)$, an orthogonal sum (Definition 6.5).

(c)

- $P_U + (P_W - P_U) + (I - P_W) = I$ gives the splitting.
- For symmetric A, B with $AB = 0$, $(Ay)'(By) = y'ABy = 0$. Here $P_U(P_W - P_U) = P_U P_W - P_U^2 = 0$, $P_U(I - P_W) = P_U - P_U P_W = 0$ and $(P_W - P_U)(I - P_W) = 0$, by (a) and (b); so the three parts are pairwise orthogonal.
- Proposition 6.3(b) gives the equation for $\|y\|^2$. As $P_W y = P_U y + (P_W - P_U)y$, with $P_U y \perp (P_W - P_U)y$, Pythagoras (Proposition 6.2) gives the equation for $\|P_W y\|^2$. □

Corollary 6.37. Let $W_1 \perp W_2$ be orthogonal subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$, and $P_1 = P_{W_1}$, $P_2 = P_{W_2}$. Then $W_1 \cap W_2 = \{0\}$, so the orthogonal sum $W_1 + W_2$ (Definition 6.5) is direct, written $W_1 \oplus W_2$, and

$$P_{W_1 \oplus W_2} = P_1 + P_2, \qquad P_1 P_2 = P_2 P_1 = 0, \qquad \|P_{W_1 \oplus W_2} y\|^2 = \|P_1 y\|^2 + \|P_2 y\|^2 \quad (y \in \mathbb{R}^n)$$

Proof. • If $w \in W_1 \cap W_2$, then $w'w = 0$, as $W_1 \perp W_2$; so $w = 0$, and the sum is direct (Definition 3.30). Let $W = W_1 \oplus W_2$, a subspace that contains W_1 and W_2 (Theorem 3.31(a),(b)).

- Apply Theorem 6.36 to $U = W_1 \subseteq W$. Every vector of W_2 lies in W and is orthogonal to W_1, so $W_2 \subseteq W \cap W_1^\perp$. By Theorem 6.36(b), $P_W - P_1$ is the projection matrix for $W \cap W_1^\perp$, of rank $\dim W - \dim W_1$; so $\dim(W \cap W_1^\perp) = \dim W - \dim W_1 = \dim W_2$ (Theorem 6.31(c) and Corollary 4.25(a)). Hence $W \cap W_1^\perp = W_2$ (Theorem 4.5(a)), and $P_W - P_1 = P_2$, that is, $P_W = P_1 + P_2$.
- By Theorem 6.36(b), $P_2P_1 = (P_W - P_1)P_1 = 0$. As P_1 and P_2 are symmetric (Theorem 6.31(c)), $P_1P_2 = P_1'P_2' = (P_2P_1)' = 0$ (Theorem 1.9).
- The second equation of Theorem 6.36(c), with $P_W - P_1 = P_2$, gives $\|P_W y\|^2 = \|P_1 y\|^2 + \|P_2 y\|^2$. □

Example 6.38. In Example 6.25 take $U = \text{span}\{a_1\} \subseteq W = \text{span}\{a_1, a_2\}$. Then $P_U = q_1q_1' = \frac{1}{9}b_1b_1'$ (Theorem 6.31(b)), and by Example 6.33, $P_W - P_U = q_2q_2' = \frac{1}{9}b_2b_2'$. By Theorem 6.36(b), this is the projection matrix for $W \cap U^\perp$, of dimension $2 - 1 = 1$ (Theorem 6.31(c)); as $0 \neq b_2 \in W$ and $b_2 \perp U$ ($b_2'a_1 = 0$; Theorem 6.6(a)), $W \cap U^\perp = \text{span}\{b_2\}$ (Theorem 4.5(a)). For $y = (-2, 7, 1, 3)'$,

$$P_U y = \frac{b_1'y}{9}\, b_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 0 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad (P_W - P_U)y = \frac{b_2'y}{9}\, b_2 = \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ -2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad (I_4 - P_W)y = \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 2 \\ 3 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $\|y\|^2 = 63 = 36 + 9 + 18$, as Theorem 6.36(c) asserts. Here $U \perp \text{span}\{b_2\}$ and $W = U \oplus \text{span}\{b_2\}$, so Corollary 6.37 gives $P_W = P_U + \frac{1}{9}b_2b_2'$ and $\|P_W y\|^2 = 36 + 9 = 45$.

Exercises

Exercise 6.1. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -2 \\ 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

with columns a_1, a_2, a_3.

(a) Apply the Gram–Schmidt process to a_1, a_2, a_3.

(b) Find the QR decomposition of A, and check that $R = Q'A$.

(c) The vector $y = (5, 0, 1, 1)'$ lies in $\mathcal{C}(A)$. Find its coordinates $q_j'y$ in the orthonormal basis q_1, q_2, q_3 of (b), and check that $\|y\|^2 = \sum_j (q_j'y)^2$.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 6.14:

- $b_1 = a_1 = (1, 1, 1, 0)'$, $b_1'b_1 = 1 + 1 + 1 + 0 = 3$.
- $a_2'b_1 = 3 + 1 + 2 + 0 = 6$, so $t_{12} = 2$ and $b_2 = a_2 - 2b_1 = (3, 1, 2, 1)' - (2, 2, 2, 0)' = (1, -1, 0, 1)'$, with $b_2'b_2 = 1 + 1 + 0 + 1 = 3$.
- $a_3'b_1 = 1 - 2 - 2 + 0 = -3$ and $a_3'b_2 = 1 + 2 + 0 + 0 = 3$, so $t_{13} = -1$, $t_{23} = 1$ and

$$b_3 = a_3 + b_1 - b_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ -2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b_3'b_3 = 1 + 0 + 1 + 1 = 3$$

- Check: $b_1'b_2 = 1-1+0+0 = 0$, $b_1'b_3 = 1+0-1+0 = 0$, $b_2'b_3 = 1+0+0-1 = 0$.

(b) All three lengths are $\sqrt{3}$, so $q_j = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}b_j$, $r_{jj} = \sqrt{3}$, $r_{12} = 2\sqrt{3}$, $r_{13} = -\sqrt{3}$ and $r_{23} = \sqrt{3}$ (Theorem 6.16):

$$Q = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \sqrt{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: the entries of $\sqrt{3}\,Q'A$ are the products $b_i'a_j$, so

$$Q'A = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}\begin{pmatrix} 3 & 6 & -3 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = R$$

(c) $b_1'y = 5+0+1+0 = 6$, $b_2'y = 5-0+0+1 = 6$ and $b_3'y = 5+0-1-1 = 3$, so $q_1'y = 2\sqrt{3}$, $q_2'y = 2\sqrt{3}$ and $q_3'y = \sqrt{3}$: $y = 2\sqrt{3}\,q_1 + 2\sqrt{3}\,q_2 + \sqrt{3}\,q_3 = 2b_1 + 2b_2 + b_3$ (Theorem 6.24(a),(b)). Check: $2(1,1,1,0)' + 2(1,-1,0,1)' + (1,0,-1,-1)' = (5,0,1,1)'$, and $\sum_j (q_j'y)^2 = 12+12+3 = 27 = 25+0+1+1 = \|y\|^2$ (Theorem 6.24(c)).

Exercise 6.2. Let $A = [a_1\ a_2\ a_3] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$ have the columns $a_1 = \mathbf{1}_4$, $a_2 = (2,0,2,0)'$ and $a_3 = (3,3,1,1)'$.

(a) Find the QR decomposition of A by the Gram–Schmidt process.

(b) Show that $Q'Q = I_3$ but $QQ' \neq I_4$, and that QQ' is the matrix P of Example 6.28.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 6.14:

- $b_1 = a_1$, $\|b_1\|^2 = 4$.
- $a_2'b_1 = 4$, so $t_{12} = 1$ and $b_2 = a_2 - b_1 = (1,-1,1,-1)'$, with $\|b_2\|^2 = 4$.
- $a_3'b_1 = 8$ and $a_3'b_2 = 3-3+1-1 = 0$, so $t_{13} = 2$, $t_{23} = 0$ and $b_3 = a_3 - 2b_1 = (1,1,-1,-1)'$, with $\|b_3\|^2 = 4$.
- All three lengths are 2: $q_j = \frac{1}{2}b_j$, $r_{jj} = 2$, $r_{12} = 2t_{12} = 2$, $r_{13} = 2t_{13} = 4$ and $r_{23} = 0$:

$$Q = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 4 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: the third column of QR is $Q(4,0,2)' = \frac{1}{2}(4+2,\ 4+2,\ 4-2,\ 4-2)' = (3,3,1,1)' = a_3$.

(b) The columns of Q are orthonormal, so $Q'Q = I_3$. By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)),

$$QQ' = \tfrac{1}{4}\big(b_1b_1' + b_2b_2' + b_3b_3'\big) = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 3 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 3 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \neq I_4$$

For instance, its $(1,1)$ entry is $\frac{1}{4}(1+1+1) = \frac{3}{4}$. The transposed rows of Q are not orthonormal. By Corollary 6.32, $QQ' = P_{\mathcal{C}(A)}$, and $P_{\mathcal{C}(A)} = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$ by Theorem 6.31(b): QQ' is the matrix P of Example 6.28.

Exercise 6.3. Let

$$Q = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

with columns $q_1, \dots, q_4$, and let $y = (4, 2, 0, 6)'$.

(a) Show that Q is a symmetric orthogonal matrix, and find Q^{-1}.

(b) Find $c \in \mathbb{R}^4$ with $y = c_1 q_1 + \cdots + c_4 q_4$, and check that $\|c\| = \|y\|$.

(c) Find the vector of $\operatorname{span}\{q_1, q_2\}$ closest to y, and its distance from y.

Solution. (a) $Q' = Q$ by inspection. Each column of $2Q$ has squared length 4, and any two of them are orthogonal (each pair of columns agrees in two entries and differs in the other two), for instance $(1, -1, 1, -1)'$ and $(1, 1, -1, -1)'$ have inner product $1 - 1 - 1 + 1 = 0$; so $Q'Q = I_4$ (Definition 6.12), and $Q^{-1} = Q' = Q$ (Proposition 6.13(b)).

(b) $y = Qc$ (Theorem 1.4(b)) gives $c = Q^{-1}y = Q'y$:

$$c = \tfrac{1}{2}\big(4 + 2 + 0 + 6,\ 4 - 2 + 0 - 6,\ 4 + 2 - 0 - 6,\ 4 - 2 - 0 + 6\big)' = (6, -2, 0, 4)'$$

(equivalently, $c_j = q_j' y$ by Proposition 6.11(a)). Then $\|c\|^2 = 36+4+0+16 = 56 = 16+4+0+36 = \|y\|^2$, as Proposition 6.13(a) says.

(c) q_1, q_2 are orthonormal by (a), hence linearly independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), so they form an orthonormal basis of $V = \operatorname{span}\{q_1, q_2\}$, and $P_V y = q_1(q_1'y) + q_2(q_2'y) = 6q_1 - 2q_2$ (Theorems 6.31(b) and 1.4(d)):

$$P_V y = 3\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 4 \\ 2 \\ 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad y - P_V y = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ -2 \\ -2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} = 4q_4$$

By Theorem 6.23, $(2, 4, 2, 4)'$ is the closest vector, at distance $\|y - P_V y\| = \sqrt{16} = 4$; by (b), $y - P_V y = c_3 q_3 + c_4 q_4$ and $\|y - P_V y\|^2 = c_3^2 + c_4^2 = 16$.

Exercise 6.4. Let $B = [a_1\ a_2\ a_3\ a_4] \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$, with a_1, a_2, a_3 of Exercise 6.2 and $a_4 = (4, 0, 0, 0)'$.

(a) Continue the Gram–Schmidt process of Exercise 6.2(a) to find the QR decomposition of B. Which matrix of Exercise 6.3 is its Q?

(b) Solve $Bx = b$ for $b = (9, 3, 5, 3)'$ by solving $Rx = Q'b$.

(c) Show that $|\det B| = \det R = 16$, without expanding $\det B$.

Solution. (a) $a_4'b_1 = 4$, $a_4'b_2 = 4$, $a_4'b_3 = 4$, so $t_{14} = t_{24} = t_{34} = 1$ and

$$b_4 = a_4 - b_1 - b_2 - b_3 = (4 - 1 - 1 - 1,\ 0 - 1 + 1 - 1,\ 0 - 1 - 1 + 1,\ 0 - 1 + 1 + 1)' = (1, -1, -1, 1)'$$

with $\|b_4\|^2 = 4$. So $q_4 = \frac{1}{2}b_4$, $r_{44} = 2$ and $r_{14} = r_{24} = r_{34} = 2 \cdot 1 = 2$: $B = QR$ with

$$Q = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

This Q is the orthogonal matrix of Exercise 6.3.

(b) $Bx = b$ is $QRx = b$; multiplying by Q', and back by Q, it is equivalent to $Rx = Q'b$, as $Q'Q = QQ' = I_4$. Here $Q'b = \frac{1}{2}(20, 8, 4, 4)' = (10, 4, 2, 2)'$, and back substitution gives

$$2x_4 = 2, \quad 2x_3 + 2x_4 = 2, \quad 2x_2 + 2x_4 = 4, \quad 2x_1 + 2x_2 + 4x_3 + 2x_4 = 10 : \qquad x = (3, 1, 0, 1)'$$

Check: $3a_1 + a_2 + a_4 = (3 + 2 + 4,\ 3,\ 3 + 2,\ 3)' = (9, 3, 5, 3)'$.

(c) $\det B = \det Q \det R$ (Theorem 5.18(b)). As Q is orthogonal, $\det Q = \pm 1$ (Theorem 6.19(c)); and R is upper triangular, so $\det R = 2 \cdot 2 \cdot 2 \cdot 2 = 16$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). Hence $|\det B| = |\det Q| \det R = 16$.

Exercise 6.5. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{v_1, v_2, v_3\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$ with $v_1 = (1, 1, -2, 3)'$, $v_2 = (2, 1, -3, 5)'$ and $v_3 = (1, 2, -3, 4)'$.

(a) Find a basis of $W^\perp$, and check that $\dim W + \dim W^\perp = 4$.

(b) Find an orthonormal basis of $W^\perp$.

(c) Using (b), write $y = (1, 2, 0, 4)'$ as $y = w + z$ with $w \in W$ and $z \in W^\perp$, and check that $w'z = 0$.

Solution. (a) $W^\perp = \mathcal{N}(V')$ for $V = [v_1\ v_2\ v_3]$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). Row-reduce V':

$$V' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 3 \\ 2 & 1 & -3 & 5 \\ 1 & 2 & -3 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\dim W = \operatorname{rank} V' = 2$ (Definition 4.11, Theorem 4.13(a)). With $x_3 = s$ and $x_4 = t$ free, $x_1 = s - 2t$ and $x_2 = s - t$: $s_1 = (1, 1, 1, 0)'$ and $s_2 = (-2, -1, 0, 1)'$ form a basis of $W^\perp$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), and $2 + 2 = 4$ (Theorem 6.6(c)). Check: $s_1'v_1 = 1 + 1 - 2 + 0 = 0$, $s_1'v_2 = 2 + 1 - 3 + 0 = 0$, $s_1'v_3 = 1 + 2 - 3 + 0 = 0$, $s_2'v_1 = -2 - 1 + 0 + 3 = 0$, $s_2'v_2 = -4 - 1 + 0 + 5 = 0$, $s_2'v_3 = -2 - 2 + 0 + 4 = 0$.

(b) Gram–Schmidt: $s_1's_1 = 3$ and $s_2's_1 = -2 - 1 + 0 + 0 = -3$, so $u_2 = s_2 + s_1 = (-1, 0, 1, 1)'$, with $u_2'u_2 = 3$ and $s_1'u_2 = -1 + 0 + 1 + 0 = 0$. An orthonormal basis of $W^\perp$ is $\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(1, 1, 1, 0)'$, $\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(-1, 0, 1, 1)'$.

(c) $s_1'y = 1 + 2 + 0 + 0 = 3$ and $u_2'y = -1 + 0 + 0 + 4 = 3$. By Theorem 6.24(a) for $W^\perp$, the projection of y onto $W^\perp$ is $z = \frac{3}{3}s_1 + \frac{3}{3}u_2 = (0, 1, 2, 1)'$. By Theorem 6.24(d) for $W^\perp$, with $(W^\perp)^\perp = W$ (Theorem 6.8(a)), $w = y - z = (1, 1, -2, 3)'$ is the projection of y onto W; indeed $w = v_1$. Check: $w'z = 0 + 1 - 4 + 3 = 0$.

Exercise 6.6. (a) Find all vectors of $\mathbb{R}^3$ that are orthogonal to $x = (2, 2, -1)'$.

(b) What is the dimension of the subspace of $\mathbb{R}^6$ consisting of the vectors orthogonal to both $(1, 1, -2, 3, 4, 5)'$ and $(0, 0, 1, 1, 0, 7)'$?

Solution. (a) $y = (y_1, y_2, y_3)'$ is orthogonal to x if and only if $x'y = 2y_1 + 2y_2 - y_3 = 0$, that is, $y_3 = 2y_1 + 2y_2$. So these vectors are

$$y = \begin{pmatrix} y_1 \\ y_2 \\ 2y_1 + 2y_2 \end{pmatrix} = y_1 \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} + y_2 \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (y_1, y_2 \in \mathbb{R})$$

Hence $\operatorname{span}\{x\}^\perp = \mathcal{N}(x') = \operatorname{span}\{(1, 0, 2)', (0, 1, 2)'\}$, of dimension $2 = 3 - 1$ (Theorem 6.6).

(b) Let a_1, a_2 be the two vectors and $A = [a_1\ a_2] \in \mathbb{R}^{6\times 2}$. The subspace is $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, a_2\}^\perp = \mathcal{N}(A')$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). The vectors are independent: if $c_1a_1 + c_2a_2 = 0$, the first entry gives $c_1 = 0$, and then $c_2a_2 = 0$ with $a_2 \neq 0$ gives $c_2 = 0$. So $\dim \operatorname{span}\{a_1, a_2\} = 2$, and the answer is $6 - 2 = 4$ (Theorem 6.6(c)).

Exercise 6.7. Let $b = (2,3,1,5)'$, $c = \mathbf{1}_4$ and

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 5 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 0 \\ 3 & 4 & 7 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A')$.

(b) Use Corollary 6.9 to decide whether $Ax = b$ and $Ax = c$ have solutions.

(c) Solve the consistent system, and check that $\mathcal{N}(A)$ is orthogonal to the transposed rows of A.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce A':

$$A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 3 & 2 & 4 \\ 2 & 5 & 3 & 7 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

With $w_3 = s$ and $w_4 = t$ free, $A'w = 0$ gives $w_1 = s - t$ and $w_2 = -s - t$; so $z_1 = (1,-1,1,0)'$ and $z_2 = (-1,-1,0,1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A')$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), and rank A = rank $A' = 2$ (Definition 4.11, Theorem 4.13(a)).

(b) $z_1'b = 2 - 3 + 1 + 0 = 0$ and $z_2'b = -2 - 3 + 0 + 5 = 0$, while $z_1'c = 1 - 1 + 1 + 0 = 1 \neq 0$. By Corollary 6.9, $Ax = b$ has a solution and $Ax = c$ has none.

(c) Row-reduce $[A \mid b]$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 3 & 5 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 0 & 1 \\ 3 & 4 & 7 & 2 & 5 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|c} 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

With $x_3 = s$ and $x_4 = t$ free:

$$x = \begin{pmatrix} 3 - s - 2t \\ -1 - s + t \\ s \\ t \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + s \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + t \begin{pmatrix} -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} \qquad (s, t \in \mathbb{R})$$

Check: $A(3,-1,0,0)' = (3-1,\ 6-3,\ 3-2,\ 9-4)' = (2,3,1,5)' = b$. So $\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{s_1, s_2\}$ with $s_1 = (-1,-1,1,0)'$ and $s_2 = (-2,1,0,1)'$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), and both are orthogonal to the four transposed rows of A: $-1-1+2+0 = 0$, $-2-3+5+0 = 0$, $-1-2+3+0 = 0$, $-3-4+7+0 = 0$ for s_1, and $-2+1+0+1 = 0$, $-4+3+0+1 = 0$, $-2+2+0+0 = 0$, $-6+4+0+2 = 0$ for s_2 (Corollary 6.7).

Exercise 6.8. Let $q_1 = \frac{1}{3}(1,0,2,2)'$, $q_2 = \frac{1}{3}(0,1,2,-2)'$ and $q_3 = \frac{1}{3}(2,2,-1,0)'$.

(a) Check that q_1, q_2, q_3 are orthonormal, and find all vectors of $\mathbb{R}^4$ orthogonal to them.

(b) Extend q_1, q_2, q_3 to an orthonormal basis $q_1, \dots, q_4$ of $\mathbb{R}^4$, and write down the orthogonal matrix $U = [q_1 \ \cdots \ q_4]$ and U^{-1}.

(c) Find the coordinates $q_j'y$ of $y = (3,3,3,3)'$ in this basis, and check that $\|y\|^2 = \sum_j (q_j'y)^2$.

Solution. (a) Put $u_1 = (1,0,2,2)'$, $u_2 = (0,1,2,-2)'$, $u_3 = (2,2,-1,0)'$, so $q_j = \frac{1}{3}u_j$. Then $u_1'u_2 = 0+0+4-4 = 0$, $u_1'u_3 = 2+0-2+0 = 0$, $u_2'u_3 = 0+2-2+0 = 0$, and $u_1'u_1 = 1+0+4+4 = 9$, $u_2'u_2 = 0+1+4+4 = 9$, $u_3'u_3 = 4+4+1+0 = 9$; so the q_j are orthonormal. The vectors orthogonal to them form $\mathcal{N}(B)$, where B has the rows u_j' (Theorem 6.6(a)):

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 2 & -5 & -4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -9 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{9}R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

With $x_4 = t$ free, $x_1 = -2t$, $x_2 = 2t$, $x_3 = 0$: the vectors are $t(-2,2,0,1)'$ ($t \in \mathbb{R}$).

(b) $v = (-2,2,0,1)'$ has $v'v = 4+4+0+1 = 9$, so $q_4 = \frac{1}{3}(-2,2,0,1)'$ completes an orthonormal basis (Corollary 6.15(b)), and by Theorem 6.19(a),

$$U = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U^{-1} = U' = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(c) $u_1'y = 3(1+0+2+2) = 15$, $u_2'y = 3(0+1+2-2) = 3$, $u_3'y = 3(2+2-1+0) = 9$ and $v'y = 3(-2+2+0+1) = 3$; so $q_1'y = 5$, $q_2'y = 1$, $q_3'y = 3$, $q_4'y = 1$, and $y = 5q_1 + q_2 + 3q_3 + q_4$ (Theorem 6.24(a),(b) with $W = \mathbb{R}^4$). Check: $25+1+9+1 = 36 = 9+9+9+9 = \|y\|^2$.

Exercise 6.9. Let $Q = \frac{1}{3}G$ with

$$G = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that Q is orthogonal, and write down Q^{-1}.

(b) Find $\det Q$ by row-reducing G.

(c) For $x = (3,3,0,0)'$ and $y = (0,3,3,0)'$, check that $\|Qx\| = \|x\|$ and $(Qx)'(Qy) = x'y$.

Solution. (a) The product of G' and G is

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 9 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 9 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 9 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 9 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $Q'Q = \frac{1}{9}G'G = I_4$: Q is orthogonal, and $Q^{-1} = Q' = \frac{1}{3}G'$ (Theorem 6.19(a)).

(b)

$$G \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_1]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&-2&-2\\0&1&-2&2\\0&2&5&4\\0&-2&4&5\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4+2R_2]{R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&-2&-2\\0&1&-2&2\\0&0&9&0\\0&0&0&9\end{pmatrix}$$

Adding multiples of rows does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)), and the last matrix is upper triangular; so $\det G = 1\cdot 1\cdot 9\cdot 9 = 81$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), and $\det Q = \left(\frac{1}{3}\right)^4 \cdot 81 = 1$ (Theorem 5.18(c)), as Theorem 6.19(c) allows.

(c) $Qx = \frac{1}{3}(3{+}0,\ 0{+}3,\ 6{+}6,\ 6{-}6)' = (1,1,4,0)'$, so $\|Qx\|^2 = 1{+}1{+}16{+}0 = 18 = 9{+}9{+}0{+}0 = \|x\|^2$. Next $Qy = \frac{1}{3}(0+0-6+0,\ 0+3-6+0,\ 0+6+3+0,\ 0-6+0+0)' = (-2,-1,3,-2)'$, and $(Qx)'(Qy) = -2-1+12+0 = 9 = 0+9+0+0 = x'y$.

Exercise 6.10. Let K_4 be the Helmert matrix of order 4 printed in Example 6.20, with rows $p_1', \dots, p_4'$, and let $y = (7,3,2,0)'$.

(a) Check that $p_1, \dots, p_4$ are orthonormal.

(b) Compute $K_4 y$, and check that $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2$ is the sum of the squares of the three contrasts.

(c) Check that $p_2p_2' + p_3p_3' + p_4p_4' = C_4$.

Solution. (a) The rows are $p_1' = \frac{1}{2}(1,1,1,1)$, $p_2' = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(1,-1,0,0)$, $p_3' = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(1,1,-2,0)$ and $p_4' = \frac{1}{\sqrt{12}}(1,1,1,-3)$. Then

$$p_1'p_2 = \frac{1-1+0+0}{2\sqrt{2}} = 0, \quad p_1'p_3 = \frac{1+1-2+0}{2\sqrt{6}} = 0, \quad p_1'p_4 = \frac{1+1+1-3}{2\sqrt{12}} = 0$$
$$p_2'p_3 = \frac{1-1+0+0}{\sqrt{12}} = 0, \quad p_2'p_4 = \frac{1-1+0+0}{\sqrt{24}} = 0, \quad p_3'p_4 = \frac{1+1-2+0}{\sqrt{72}} = 0$$

and $p_1'p_1 = \frac{4}{4} = 1$, $p_2'p_2 = \frac{2}{2} = 1$, $p_3'p_3 = \frac{1+1+4}{6} = 1$, $p_4'p_4 = \frac{1+1+1+9}{12} = 1$.

(b) $K_4 y = \left(\frac{7+3+2+0}{2},\ \frac{7-3}{\sqrt{2}},\ \frac{7+3-4}{\sqrt{6}},\ \frac{7+3+2-0}{\sqrt{12}}\right)' = (6,\ 2\sqrt{2},\ \sqrt{6},\ 2\sqrt{3})'$. Here $\bar{y} = 3$, and $p_1'y = 6 = \sqrt{4}\,\bar{y}$. The contrasts give $(2\sqrt{2})^2 + (\sqrt{6})^2 + (2\sqrt{3})^2 = 8+6+12 = 26$, and $\sum_i (y_i - 3)^2 = 16+0+1+9 = 26$ (Example 6.20(b)).

(c)

$$p_2p_2' + p_3p_3' + p_4p_4' = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&0\\-1&1&0&0\\0&0&0&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix}1&1&-2&0\\1&1&-2&0\\-2&-2&4&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{12}\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&-3\\1&1&1&-3\\1&1&1&-3\\-3&-3&-3&9\end{pmatrix}$$
$$= \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix}3&-1&-1&-1\\-1&3&-1&-1\\-1&-1&3&-1\\-1&-1&-1&3\end{pmatrix} = I_4 - \bar{J}_4 = C_4$$

(the $(1,1)$ entry, for instance, is $\frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{6} + \frac{1}{12} = \frac{3}{4}$).

Exercise 6.11. Let $h = \mathbf{1}_4$ and $F_h = I_4 - \frac{2}{h'h}hh'$ (Example 6.21).

(a) Compute F_h, and check that $F_h^2 = I_4$.

(b) Check that $F_h h = -h$ and that $F_h x = x$ for $x = (1, -1, 0, 0)'$, and find $\det F_h$.

(c) For $y = (3, 1, 0, 4)'$, compute $F_h y$ and check that $\|F_h y\| = \|y\|$.

Solution. (a) $h'h = 4$, so $F_h = I_4 - \frac{1}{2}J_4 = \frac{1}{2}N$ with

$$N = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

(each diagonal entry of N^2 is $1+1+1+1$, each other entry is, for instance, $-1-1+1+1$); so $F_h^2 = \frac{1}{4}N^2 = I_4$.

(b) $F_h h = \frac{1}{2}(1-1-1-1,\ -1+1-1-1,\ -1-1+1-1,\ -1-1-1+1)' = (-1,-1,-1,-1)' = -h$, and $F_h x = \frac{1}{2}(1+1,\ -1-1,\ -1+1,\ -1+1)' = (1,-1,0,0)' = x$ (here $h'x = 0$). By Theorem 5.31 with $u = -\frac{1}{2}h$ and $v = h$, $\det F_h = 1 + v'u = 1 - \frac{1}{2}\cdot 4 = -1$.

(c) $h'y = 3+1+0+4 = 8$, so $F_h y = y - \frac{2\cdot 8}{4}\,h = y - 4h = (-1,-3,-4,0)'$, and $\|F_h y\|^2 = 1+9+16+0 = 26 = 9+1+0+16 = \|y\|^2$. (Here $F_h y = y - 2\bar{y}\mathbf{1}$: the mean $\bar{y} = 2$ is reflected to -2, and the deviations $y - \bar{y}\mathbf{1}$ are kept.)

Exercise 6.12. Let $W = \operatorname{span}\{w_1, w_2\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$ with $w_1 = (1,0,1,1)'$ and $w_2 = (2,1,1,0)'$, and let $y = (1,0,1,4)'$.

(a) Find an orthogonal basis of W by the Gram–Schmidt process.

(b) Find the orthogonal projection $\hat{w}$ of y onto W and the projection of y onto $W^\perp$, and check that the latter is orthogonal to w_1 and w_2.

(c) Find the distance from y to the nearest vector of W, and check Bessel's inequality.

Solution. (a) $u_1 = w_1$, $u_1'u_1 = 1+0+1+1 = 3$; $w_2'u_1 = 2+0+1+0 = 3$, so $u_2 = w_2 - u_1 = (1,1,0,-1)'$, with $u_2'u_2 = 3$ and $u_1'u_2 = 1+0+0-1 = 0$.

(b) $u_1'y = 1+0+1+4 = 6$ and $u_2'y = 1+0+0-4 = -3$. By Theorem 6.24(a),

$$\hat{w} = \frac{6}{3}\,u_1 - \frac{3}{3}\,u_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \\ 2 \\ 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

and the projection onto $W^\perp$ is $y - \hat{w} = (0,1,-1,1)'$ (Theorem 6.24(d)). Check: $w_1'(y-\hat{w}) = 0+0-1+1 = 0$ and $w_2'(y-\hat{w}) = 0+1-1+0 = 0$.

(c) The distance is $\|y - \hat{w}\| = \sqrt{0+1+1+1} = \sqrt{3}$ (Theorem 6.23). Bessel: $\|\hat{w}\|^2 = 6^2/3 + 3^2/3 = 12 + 3 = 15 \leqslant \|y\|^2 = 1+0+1+16 = 18$, and $18 = 15 + 3$.

Exercise 6.13. Let $a_1 = (1,2,2,0)'$, $a_2 = (3,2,1,2)'$, $W = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, a_2\} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^4$ and $y = (4,2,5,3)'$.

(a) Find an orthonormal basis q_1, q_2 of W by the Gram–Schmidt process.

(b) Compute P_W, and check that $\operatorname{tr} P_W = 2$.

(c) Find the vector of W closest to y, and write it as a combination of a_1 and a_2. Find the distance from y to W.

Solution. (a) $b_1 = a_1$, with $\|b_1\|^2 = 1+4+4+0 = 9$; $a_2'b_1 = 3+4+2+0 = 9$, so $t_{12} = 1$ and $b_2 = a_2 - b_1 = (2,0,-1,2)'$, with $\|b_2\|^2 = 4+0+1+4 = 9$ (Theorem 6.14). Hence $q_1 = \frac{1}{3}(1,2,2,0)'$ and $q_2 = \frac{1}{3}(2,0,-1,2)'$.

(b) With $Q = [q_1\ q_2]$, Theorems 6.31(b) and 1.4(d) give

$$P_W = QQ' = \frac{1}{9}\left(b_1b_1' + b_2b_2'\right) = \frac{1}{9}\left[\begin{pmatrix}1&2&2&0\\2&4&4&0\\2&4&4&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix}4&0&-2&4\\0&0&0&0\\-2&0&1&-2\\4&0&-2&4\end{pmatrix}\right] = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}5&2&0&4\\2&4&4&0\\0&4&5&-2\\4&0&-2&4\end{pmatrix}$$

and $\operatorname{tr} P_W = \frac{1}{9}(5+4+5+4) = 2 = \dim W$ (Theorem 6.31(c)).

(c) The closest vector is the projection (Theorem 6.23):

$$P_W y = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}20+4+0+12\\8+8+20+0\\0+8+25-6\\16+0-10+12\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}4\\4\\3\\2\end{pmatrix} = a_1 + a_2$$

The distance is $\|y - P_W y\| = \|(0,-2,2,1)'\| = \sqrt{0+4+4+1} = 3$. Check: $a_1'(y - P_W y) = 0-4+4+0 = 0$ and $a_2'(y - P_W y) = 0-4+2+2 = 0$.

Exercise 6.14. Let A be the matrix of Example 6.17, $W = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $y = (0,6,3,3)'$.

(a) Show that $h = (0,2,1,-2)'$ spans $W^\perp$.

(b) Compute $P_W = QQ'$, with Q of Example 6.17, and check that $P_W = I_4 - \frac{1}{9}hh'$.

(c) Find the vector of W closest to y and its distance from y, and write the closest vector as Ax by solving $Rx = Q'y$.

Solution. (a) By Example 6.17, $W = \operatorname{span}\{b_1, b_2, b_3\}$ with $b_1 = (1,2,0,2)'$, $b_2 = (2,-1,2,0)'$, $b_3 = (-2,0,2,1)'$ (Theorem 6.14). Now $b_1'h = 0+4+0-4 = 0$, $b_2'h = 0-2+2+0 = 0$ and $b_3'h = 0+0+2-2 = 0$, so $h \in W^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). As $\dim W = 3$ (the nonzero, pairwise orthogonal b_j are linearly independent, Proposition 6.11(b)), $\dim W^\perp = 1$ (Theorem 6.6(c)), and the nonzero vector h spans $W^\perp$ (Theorem 4.5(d)). (This h is the vector v found in Example 6.18.)

(b) By Corollary 6.32 and Theorem 1.4(d),

$$P_W = QQ' = \tfrac{1}{9}\left(b_1b_1' + b_2b_2' + b_3b_3'\right) = \frac{1}{9}\begin{pmatrix}9&0&0&0\\0&5&-2&4\\0&-2&8&2\\0&4&2&5\end{pmatrix}$$

For instance, the $(2,3)$ entry is $\frac{1}{9}(0-2+0)$ and the $(3,3)$ entry is $\frac{1}{9}(0+4+4)$. Since $h'h = 9$, $\frac{1}{9}hh' = h(h'h)^{-1}h'$ is the projection matrix for $\operatorname{span}\{h\} = W^\perp$ (Theorem 6.31(b) with the matrix h), and $P_W = I_4 - \frac{1}{9}hh'$ (Theorem 6.31(c)); entry by entry, $I_4 - \frac{1}{9}hh'$ is the matrix above, as hh' has rows 0, $(0,4,2,-4)$, $(0,2,1,-2)$, $(0,-4,-2,4)$.

(c) $h'y = 0+12+3-6 = 9$, so $(I_4 - P_W)y = \frac{h'y}{h'h}h = h$ and $P_W y = y - h = (0,4,2,5)'$. This is the closest vector (Theorem 6.23), at distance $\|h\| = 3$. Next $Q'y = \frac{1}{3}(b_1'y, b_2'y, b_3'y)' = \frac{1}{3}(18,0,9)' = (6,0,3)'$, and with R of Example 6.17,

$$3x_3 = 3, \quad 3x_2 + 3x_3 = 0, \quad 3x_1 + 3x_2 + 6x_3 = 6 : \qquad x = (1,-1,1)'$$

Then $Ax = QRx = QQ'y = P_W y$ (Corollary 6.32); directly, $Ax = a_1 - a_2 + a_3 = (1-3+2,\ 2-1+3,\ 0-2+4,\ 2-2+5)' = (0,4,2,5)'$.

Exercise 6.15. Let $W = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $y = (2,1,1,4,8)'$, where

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find a basis of $W^\perp$.

(b) Find the QR decomposition of A, and compute $P_W = QQ'$. Check that $P_W A = A$ and $\operatorname{tr} P_W = 2$.

(c) Write $y = P_W y + (I_5 - P_W)y$, the decomposition along $\mathbb{R}^5 = W \oplus W^\perp$, check that the two parts are orthogonal, and find the distance from y to W.

Solution. (a) $W^\perp = \mathcal{N}(A')$ (Theorem 6.6(a)). Row-reduce A':

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

With x_3, x_4, x_5 free, $x_1 = -x_5$ and $x_2 = -x_3 - 2x_4 - 2x_5$; so $v_1 = (0,-1,1,0,0)'$, $v_2 = (0,-2,0,1,0)'$, $v_3 = (-1,-2,0,0,1)'$ form a basis of $W^\perp$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), of dimension $5 - 2 = 3$.

(b) By Theorem 6.14, $b_1 = a_1 = (1,1,1,2,3)'$, $\|b_1\|^2 = 1+1+1+4+9 = 16$; $a_2'b_1 = 1+3 = 4$, so $t_{12} = \frac{1}{4}$ and

$$b_2 = a_2 - \tfrac{1}{4}b_1 = \tfrac{1}{4}(3,-1,-1,-2,1)', \qquad \|b_2\|^2 = \tfrac{1}{16}(9+1+1+4+1) = 1$$

So $q_1 = \frac{1}{4}b_1$, $q_2 = b_2$, $r_{11} = 4$, $r_{12} = t_{12}\|b_1\| = 1$, $r_{22} = 1$ (Theorem 6.16):

$$Q = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 \\ 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 \\ 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_W = QQ' = \frac{1}{8}\begin{pmatrix} 5 & -1 & -1 & -2 & 3 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & 2 & 4 & 2 \\ 3 & 1 & 1 & 2 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(Corollary 6.32); for instance, the $(1,5)$ entry is $\frac{1}{16}(1 \cdot 3 + 3 \cdot 1) = \frac{3}{8}$. Row by row, $P_W a_1 = \frac{1}{8}(5-1-1-4+9,\ -1+1+1+4+3,\ -1+1+1+4+3,\ -2+2+2+8+6,\ 3+1+1+4+15)' = (1,1,1,2,3)'$ and $P_W a_2 = \frac{1}{8}(5+3,\ -1+1,\ -1+1,\ -2+2,\ 3+5)' = (1,0,0,0,1)'$, so $P_W A = A$; and $\operatorname{tr} P_W = \frac{1}{8}(5+1+1+4+5) = 2 = \dim W$ (Theorem 6.31(c)).

(c) $Q'y = (\frac{1}{4}(2+1+1+8+24),\ \frac{1}{4}(6-1-1-8+8))' = (9,1)'$, so $P_W y = Q(Q'y) = 9q_1 + q_2 = \frac{1}{4}(9+3,\ 9-1,\ 9-1,\ 18-2,\ 27+1)' = (3,2,2,4,7)'$, and

$$\begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 4 \\ 8 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 \\ 2 \\ 2 \\ 4 \\ 7 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \\ -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The second part is $v_3 - v_1 \in W^\perp$, and $(P_W y)'(I_5 - P_W)y = -3-2-2+0+7 = 0$. The distance is $\|(-1,-1,-1,0,1)'\| = 2$ (Theorem 6.23).

Exercise 6.16. Let $v = \mathbf{1}_4$ and

$$E = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that E is idempotent but not symmetric.

(b) Find $\operatorname{rank} E$, $\operatorname{tr} E$, $\operatorname{rank}(I_4 - E)$ and $\operatorname{tr}(I_4 - E)$.

(c) Decompose v along $\mathbb{R}^4 = \mathcal{N}(E) \oplus \mathcal{C}(E)$. Are the two parts orthogonal?

Solution. Let $\rho_1', \dots, \rho_4'$ be the rows of E ($\rho_i \in \mathbb{R}^4$); then $\rho_3 = \rho_2 - \rho_1$ and $\rho_4 = -\rho_1$. Write $E = (e_{ij})$.

(a) By Theorem 1.4(c), $\operatorname{row}_i(E^2) = \rho_i' E = e_{i1}\rho_1' + e_{i2}\rho_2' + e_{i3}\rho_3' + e_{i4}\rho_4'$. So $\rho_1' E = \rho_1' + \rho_2' - \rho_3' + \rho_4' = \rho_1' + \rho_2' - (\rho_2' - \rho_1') - \rho_1' = \rho_1'$ and $\rho_2' E = \rho_1' + \rho_3' = \rho_2'$; then $\rho_3' E = \rho_2' E - \rho_1' E = \rho_3'$ and $\rho_4' E = -\rho_1' E = \rho_4'$. Hence $E^2 = E$. It is not symmetric: $e_{13} = -1 \neq 0 = e_{31}$.

(b) Row-reduce E:

$$E \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Scaling row 2 by -1 gives an echelon form with two nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank} E = 2 = 1+0+2-1 = \operatorname{tr} E$ (Remark 4.2 and Definition 4.11). Next

$$I_4 - E = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

whose rows $\sigma_1', \dots, \sigma_4'$ ($\sigma_i \in \mathbb{R}^4$) satisfy $\sigma_3 = -\sigma_1$ and $\sigma_4 = -2\sigma_1 - \sigma_2$. Row-reduce it:

$$I_4 - E \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Scaling rows 1 and 2 by -1 gives an echelon form with two nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank}(I_4 - E) = 2 = 0 + 1 - 1 + 2 = \operatorname{tr}(I_4 - E)$ (Remark 4.2 and Definition 4.11), as Theorem 6.29(b),(c) say.

(c) $Ev = (2, 2, 0, -2)' \in \mathcal{C}(E)$ (the row sums of E) and $v - Ev = (-1, -1, 1, 3)'$, which lies in $\mathcal{N}(E)$: $E(-1, -1, 1, 3)' = (-1 - 1 - 1 + 3,\ -1 + 0 + 1 + 0,\ 0 + 1 + 2 - 3,\ 1 + 1 + 1 - 3)' = 0$. So $v = (-1, -1, 1, 3)' + (2, 2, 0, -2)'$ (Theorem 6.29(a)). The parts are not orthogonal: $(v - Ev)'(Ev) = -2 - 2 + 0 - 6 = -10$. (By Theorem 6.29(d), they would be if E were symmetric.)

Exercise 6.17. Let $W = \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $y = (2, 1, 2, 0)'$, where

$$A = [a_1\ a_2] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute $P_W = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$.

(b) Find an orthonormal basis q_1, q_2 of W by the Gram–Schmidt process, and check that $q_1q_1' + q_2q_2' = P_W$.

(c) Find $P_{W^\perp}$, check that $\operatorname{tr} P_W = \operatorname{tr} P_{W^\perp} = 2$, and split y along $\mathbb{R}^4 = W \oplus W^\perp$.

Solution. (a) $A'A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 6 \\ 6 & 15 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, with determinant $45 - 36 = 9$, so $(A'A)^{-1} = \frac{1}{9}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 15 & -6 \\ -6 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \frac{1}{3}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 5 & -2 \\ -2 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.24). Then

$$(A'A)^{-1}A' = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 5 & -2 \\ -2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 3 & 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$P_W = A(A'A)^{-1}A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}\frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & -2 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b) $u_1 = a_1 = (1, 1, 0, 1)'$, $u_1'u_1 = 3$; $a_2'u_1 = 3 + 1 + 0 + 2 = 6$, so $u_2 = a_2 - 2u_1 = (1, -1, 1, 0)'$, with $u_2'u_2 = 3$ and $u_1'u_2 = 0$. So $q_j = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}u_j$, and

$$q_1q_1' + q_2q_2' = \frac{1}{3}\left[\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}\right] = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = P_W$$

as Theorem 6.31(b) asserts.

(c) By Theorem 6.31(c),

$$P_{W^\perp} = I_4 - P_W = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $\operatorname{tr} P_W = \frac{1}{3}(2 + 2 + 1 + 1) = 2$, $\operatorname{tr} P_{W^\perp} = \frac{1}{3}(1 + 1 + 2 + 2) = 2$. Next $P_Wy = \frac{1}{3}(4 + 0 + 2 + 0,\ 0 + 2 - 2 + 0,\ 2 - 1 + 2 + 0,\ 2 + 1 + 0 + 0)' = (2, 0, 1, 1)'$ and $P_{W^\perp}y = y - P_Wy = (0, 1, 1, -1)'$; check: $(2, 0, 1, 1)(0, 1, 1, -1)' = 0 + 0 + 1 - 1 = 0$.

Exercise 6.18. Let $a_1 = (0,1,1,1)'$, $a_2 = (1,2,0,1)'$, $U = \text{span}\{a_1\}$, $W = \text{span}\{a_1, a_2\}$, and $y = (2,2,1,3)'$.

(a) Compute P_U and P_W, and check that $P_W a_1 = a_1$ and hence $P_W P_U = P_U$.

(b) Compute $P_W - P_U$, check that it is idempotent of rank 1, and find a vector spanning $W \cap U^\perp$.

(c) Split $y = P_U y + (P_W - P_U)y + (I_4 - P_W)y$, and check the equation of Theorem 6.36(c).

Solution. (a) $a_1'a_1 = 3$, so $P_U = \frac{1}{3}a_1a_1'$ (Theorem 6.31(b)). For $A = [a_1\ a_2]$, $A'A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 6 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ ($a_1'a_2 = 0+2+0+1 = 3$, $a_2'a_2 = 1+4+0+1 = 6$), with determinant 9, so $(A'A)^{-1} = \frac{1}{3}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.24) and $A(A'A)^{-1} = \frac{1}{3}[2a_1 - a_2 \quad -a_1 + a_2]$; by Theorem 6.31(b), $P_W = A(A'A)^{-1}A'$:

$$P_U = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_W = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Then $P_W a_1 = \frac{1}{3}(0+1-1+0,\ 0+2+0+1,\ 0+0+2+1,\ 0+1+1+1)' = (0,1,1,1)' = a_1$, so $P_W P_U = \frac{1}{3}(P_W a_1)a_1' = P_U$.

(b)

$$P_W - P_U = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{3}uu', \qquad u = (1,1,-1,0)'$$

As $u'u = 3$, $\left(\frac{1}{3}uu'\right)^2 = \frac{1}{9}u(u'u)u' = \frac{1}{3}uu'$: it is idempotent, of rank $\text{tr}(P_W - P_U) = \frac{1}{3}(1+1+1+0) = 1$ (Theorem 6.29(c)). By Theorem 6.36(b), it is the projection matrix for $W \cap U^\perp = \mathcal{C}(P_W - P_U) = \text{span}\{u\}$; indeed $u = a_2 - a_1 \in W$ and $u'a_1 = 0+1-1+0 = 0$.

(c) $P_U y = \frac{a_1'y}{3}\, a_1 = \frac{6}{3}\, a_1 = (0,2,2,2)'$, $(P_W - P_U)y = \frac{u'y}{3}\, u = \frac{3}{3}\, u = (1,1,-1,0)'$, and $(I_4 - P_W)y = y - (0,2,2,2)' - (1,1,-1,0)' = (1,-1,0,1)'$. Then $\|y\|^2 = 4+4+1+9 = 18 = 12+3+3$.

Problems

Problem 6.1. Let U, W and Z be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$, and $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) Show (1) that if $y \perp W$ and $y \perp Z$, then $y \perp W + Z$; and (2) that if $U \perp W$ and $U \perp Z$, then $U \perp W + Z$.

(b) Show (1) that $(U+W)^\perp = U^\perp \cap W^\perp$; and (2) that $(U \cap W)^\perp = U^\perp + W^\perp$.

Solution. (a)

- (1) Let $t \in W + Z$, say $t = w + z$ with $w \in W$ and $z \in Z$ (Definition 3.30). Then $y't = y'w + y'z = 0 + 0 = 0$. So $y \perp W + Z$.
- (2) Every $u \in U$ satisfies $u \perp W$ and $u \perp Z$, so $u \perp W + Z$ by (1). Hence $U \perp W + Z$.

(b)

- (1) $U \subseteq U + W$ and $W \subseteq U + W$ (Theorem 3.31(b)). So, using (a)(1) for the converse, $y \in (U+W)^\perp \iff y \perp U + W \iff y \perp U$ and $y \perp W \iff y \in U^\perp \cap W^\perp$.
- (2) $U^\perp + W^\perp$ is a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorems 6.6(a) and 3.31(a)). By Theorem 6.8(a), used three times, and (1) for the subspaces $U^\perp$ and $W^\perp$,

$$U^\perp + W^\perp = \left((U^\perp + W^\perp)^\perp\right)^\perp = \left((U^\perp)^\perp \cap (W^\perp)^\perp\right)^\perp = (U \cap W)^\perp$$

Problem 6.2. Let $a_1, \dots, a_k \in \mathbb{R}^n$ ($k \geqslant 2$) be linearly independent, and let $b_1, \dots, b_k$ be obtained from them by the Gram–Schmidt process (Theorem 6.14). Show that for $j = 2, \dots, k$ the vector b_j is the orthogonal projection of a_j onto some subspace U_j of $\mathbb{R}^n$, and describe U_j.

Solution. Let $q_i = b_i/\|b_i\|$ ($i = 1, \dots, k$) and $W_j = \operatorname{span}\{q_1, \dots, q_j\}$.

- For $j = 2, \dots, k$, since $t_{ij} b_i = \frac{a_j' b_i}{\|b_i\|^2}\, b_i = (a_j' q_i) q_i$,

$$b_j = a_j - \sum_{i=1}^{j-1} t_{ij} b_i = a_j - \sum_{i=1}^{j-1} (a_j' q_i) q_i$$

- $q_1, \dots, q_{j-1}$ are orthonormal (Theorem 6.14), so they form an orthonormal basis of W_{j-1}, and $\sum_{i<j} (a_j' q_i) q_i$ is the orthogonal projection of a_j onto W_{j-1} (Theorem 6.24(a)).
- By Theorem 6.24(d), b_j is the orthogonal projection of a_j onto $W_{j-1}^{\perp}$.
- Each q_i is a multiple of b_i and vice versa, so $W_{j-1} = \operatorname{span}\{b_1, \dots, b_{j-1}\}$ (Theorem 3.7), and this is $\operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_{j-1}\}$ (Theorem 6.14).

Hence b_j is the orthogonal projection of a_j onto $U_j = \operatorname{span}\{a_1, \dots, a_{j-1}\}^{\perp}$, the orthogonal complement of the span of the preceding vectors.

Problem 6.3. Let $A = [a_1 \ \cdots \ a_p] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ have full column rank, and let $A = QR$ be a QR decomposition as in Theorem 6.16: $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ has orthonormal columns and $R \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times p}$ is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries. Show that this decomposition is unique: if $Q^* \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ has orthonormal columns, $R^* \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times p}$ is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries, and $A = Q^* R^*$, then $Q^* = Q$ and $R^* = R$.

Solution. The columns $a_1, \dots, a_p$ of A are linearly independent (Theorem 4.13(b)). Let $b_1, \dots, b_p$ and t_{ij} ($i < j$) be the vectors and coefficients obtained from them by the Gram–Schmidt process (Theorem 6.14), so that $b_1, \dots, b_p$ are nonzero and pairwise orthogonal.

- Step 1. Let $A = BX$, where the columns $c_1, \dots, c_p$ of $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ are nonzero and pairwise orthogonal, and $X = (x_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times p}$ is unit upper triangular (upper triangular with diagonal entries 1). We show that $c_j = b_j$ for every j and $x_{ij} = t_{ij}$ for $i < j$. By Theorem 1.4(a),(b), $a_j = \operatorname{col}_j(BX) = B \operatorname{col}_j(X) = c_j + \sum_{i<j} x_{ij} c_i$, that is,

$$c_j = a_j - \sum_{i<j} x_{ij} c_i \qquad (j = 1, \dots, p)$$

  We use induction on j. For $j = 1$, $c_1 = a_1 = b_1$. Let $j \geqslant 2$, and let $c_i = b_i$ for $i < j$. For $l < j$, as the c_i are pairwise orthogonal, $0 = c_l' c_j = c_l' a_j - \sum_{i<j} x_{ij} c_l' c_i = b_l' a_j - x_{lj} \|b_l\|^2$; so $x_{lj} = a_j' b_l / \|b_l\|^2 = t_{lj}$, and $c_j = a_j - \sum_{i<j} t_{ij} b_i = b_j$.

- Step 2. Let $A = Q^* R^*$ be as in the statement, with columns $q_1^*, \dots, q_p^*$ of Q^* and entries r_{ij}^* of R^*. Put $E^* = \operatorname{diag}(r_{11}^*, \dots, r_{pp}^*)$ and $D^* = \operatorname{diag}(1/r_{11}^*, \dots, 1/r_{pp}^*)$, so that $E^* D^* = I_p$, and let $B^* = Q^* E^*$ and $X^* = D^* R^*$. The columns of B^* are $r_{jj}^* q_j^*$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)): nonzero, as $r_{jj}^* > 0$ and $\|q_j^*\| = 1$, and pairwise orthogonal. The rows of X^* are $\operatorname{row}_i(R^*)/r_{ii}^*$ (Theorem 1.4(c)), so X^* is unit upper triangular, with entries r_{ij}^*/r_{ii}^*. And $B^* X^* = Q^* E^* D^* R^* = Q^* R^* = A$.

- By Step 1, $r_{jj}^* q_j^* = b_j$ for every j, and $r_{ij}^*/r_{ii}^* = t_{ij}$ for $i < j$. Taking lengths, $r_{jj}^* = \|b_j\|$, as $r_{jj}^* > 0$ and $\|q_j^*\| = 1$. Hence

$$q_j^* = \frac{b_j}{\|b_j\|}, \qquad r_{jj}^* = \|b_j\|, \qquad r_{ij}^* = t_{ij}\|b_i\| \quad (i < j), \qquad r_{ij}^* = 0 \quad (i > j)$$

- Step 2 applies to the decomposition $A = QR$ as well, with the same right sides. So Q and Q^* have the same columns, and R and R^* the same entries: $Q^* = Q$ and $R^* = R$.

Problem 6.4. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be idempotent.

(a) Show that $A+B$ is idempotent if and only if $AB = BA = 0$.

(b) If $A+B$ is idempotent, show that $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) = \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$.

Solution. (a)

- If $AB = BA = 0$, then $(A+B)^2 = A^2 + AB + BA + B^2 = A^2 + B^2 = A + B$.
- Conversely, if $(A+B)^2 = A+B$, expanding as above gives $AB + BA = 0$. Multiplying on the left by A gives $AB + ABA = 0$; multiplying on the right by A gives $ABA + BA = 0$.
- Subtracting, $AB - BA = 0$, so $AB = BA$; then $AB + BA = 2AB = 0$, and $AB = BA = 0$.

(b) By Theorem 6.29(c), applied to $A+B$, A and B, and Theorem 1.11(a), $\operatorname{rank}(A+B) = \operatorname{tr}(A+B) = \operatorname{tr} A + \operatorname{tr} B = \operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank} B$.

Problem 6.5. Let $A = [A_1\ A_2] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, with $A_1 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n_1}$ and $A_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n_2}$ ($n_1, n_2 \geqslant 1$, $n_1 + n_2 = n$). Suppose that $\operatorname{rank} A_1 + \operatorname{rank} A_2 = n$ and $A_1'A_2 = 0$. Show that A_1 and A_2 have full column rank and that

$$A_1(A_1'A_1)^{-1}A_1' + A_2(A_2'A_2)^{-1}A_2' = I_n$$

Solution.

- $\operatorname{rank} A_1 \leqslant n_1$ and $\operatorname{rank} A_2 \leqslant n_2$ (Theorem 4.13(a)), and the ranks add up to $n = n_1 + n_2$; so $\operatorname{rank} A_1 = n_1$ and $\operatorname{rank} A_2 = n_2$.
- The columns of A are independent: let $A_1c + A_2d = 0$ with $c \in \mathbb{R}^{n_1}$, $d \in \mathbb{R}^{n_2}$, and put $v = A_1c = -A_2d$. Then $v'v = -c'A_1'A_2d = 0$, so $v = 0$; hence $A_1c = 0$ and $A_2d = 0$, and $c = 0$, $d = 0$ because $\mathcal{N}(A_1) = \{0\}$ and $\mathcal{N}(A_2) = \{0\}$ (Theorem 4.13(b)). So A is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)).
- $A_2'A_1 = (A_1'A_2)' = 0$, so by Theorem 5.3(c),

$$A'A = \begin{pmatrix} A_1'A_1 & A_1'A_2 \\ A_2'A_1 & A_2'A_2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} A_1'A_1 & 0 \\ 0 & A_2'A_2 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Here $A_1'A_1$ and $A_2'A_2$ are invertible (Theorems 4.18(b) and 4.13(d)), so $(A'A)^{-1}$ is block diagonal with the diagonal blocks $(A_1'A_1)^{-1}$ and $(A_2'A_2)^{-1}$ (Proposition 5.6(b)).
- As A is invertible, $(A'A)^{-1} = A^{-1}(A')^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(b),(c)), so $A(A'A)^{-1}A' = AA^{-1}(A')^{-1}A' = I_n$. By Theorem 5.3(c), therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} I_n &= [A_1\ A_2] \begin{pmatrix} (A_1'A_1)^{-1} & 0 \\ 0 & (A_2'A_2)^{-1} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A_1' \\ A_2' \end{pmatrix} \\ &= A_1(A_1'A_1)^{-1}A_1' + A_2(A_2'A_2)^{-1}A_2' \end{aligned}$$

Problem 6.6. Let U, W be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$. Show that P_UP_W is symmetric if and only if $P_UP_W = P_WP_U$, and that then $P_UP_W = P_{U\cap W}$.

Solution. $(P_UP_W)' = P_W'P_U' = P_WP_U$ (Theorems 1.9 and 6.31(c)), so P_UP_W is symmetric if and only if $P_UP_W = P_WP_U$. Let them commute, and put $P = P_UP_W$.

- $P^2 = P_UP_WP_UP_W = P_UP_UP_WP_W = P_UP_W = P$. So P is symmetric idempotent, and $P = P_{\mathcal{C}(P)}$ (Theorem 6.34).
- $\mathcal{C}(P) = U \cap W$: for $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $Py = P_U(P_Wy) \in U$ and $Py = P_W(P_Uy) \in W$; conversely, for $x \in U \cap W$, $Px = P_U(P_Wx) = P_Ux = x$ (Theorem 6.31(c)), so $x \in \mathcal{C}(P)$. Hence $P = P_{U\cap W}$.

Problem 6.7. Let $v_1, \dots, v_m \in \mathbb{R}^n$ satisfy $v_i' v_j < 0$ for all $i \neq j$.

(a) Show that if $m = n + 1$, then any n of the vectors $v_1, \dots, v_m$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

(b) Show that $m \leqslant n + 1$.

Solution. Both parts use the following fact.

(∗) If $c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_m v_m = 0$, then the nonzero numbers among $c_1, \dots, c_m$ all have the same sign.

- Suppose not: the sets $S_+ = \{i : c_i > 0\}$ and $S_- = \{j : c_j < 0\}$ are both nonempty. They are disjoint, and the terms with $c_i = 0$ vanish, so

$$z = \sum_{i \in S_+} c_i v_i = \sum_{j \in S_-} (-c_j) v_j$$

- Multiplying the transpose of the first expression by the second (Theorems 1.9 and 1.3),

$$z'z = \sum_{i \in S_+} \sum_{j \in S_-} c_i (-c_j)\, v_i' v_j$$

  Every term is < 0, as $c_i > 0$, $-c_j > 0$ and $v_i' v_j < 0$ ($i \neq j$, since S_+ and S_- are disjoint), and there is at least one term. So $z'z < 0$, while $z'z = \|z\|^2 \geqslant 0$ (Definition 6.1) ✘

(a) Let $m = n + 1$, fix $r \in \{1, \dots, n + 1\}$, and let $\sum_{i \neq r} c_i v_i = 0$, the sum over the n indices $i \neq r$.

- With $c_r = 0$, this is a relation $c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_{n+1} v_{n+1} = 0$. Suppose that some $c_i \neq 0$. By (∗), the nonzero c_i have one sign; replacing every c_i by $-c_i$ if necessary, every $c_i \geqslant 0$ and some $c_l > 0$, where $l \neq r$, as $c_r = 0$.
- Multiplying the relation on the left by v_r' gives $\sum_{i \neq r} c_i\, v_r' v_i = 0$. But every term $c_i\, v_r' v_i$ is $\leqslant 0$, as $v_r' v_i < 0$, and the term with $i = l$ is < 0; so the sum is < 0 ✘
- Hence every $c_i = 0$: the n vectors v_i ($i \neq r$) are linearly independent. As $\dim \mathbb{R}^n = n$ (Theorem 4.4), they form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

(b) Suppose that $m \geqslant n + 2$.

- Consider the homogeneous linear equations

$$c_1 v_1 + c_2 v_2 + \cdots + c_{n+2} v_{n+2} = 0, \qquad c_1 + c_2 + \cdots + c_{n+2} = 0$$

  in the unknowns $c_1, \dots, c_{n+2}$. The first is a system of n equations, one for each entry, whose coefficient matrix is $[v_1 \ \cdots \ v_{n+2}]$ (Theorem 1.4(b)); so there are $n+1$ equations in $n+2$ unknowns, and by Theorem 2.11(a) they have a solution with some $c_i \neq 0$.
- Put $c_i = 0$ for $n + 2 < i \leqslant m$. Then $c_1 v_1 + \cdots + c_m v_m = 0$, so by (∗) the nonzero c_i all have one sign. As some $c_i \neq 0$, the sum $c_1 + \cdots + c_{n+2}$, which is the sum of the nonzero c_i, is then $\neq 0$ ✘

Hence $m \leqslant n + 1$.

Problem 6.8. Let U and W be subspaces of $\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\dim U = \dim W = m$. Suppose that some $u \in U$, $u \neq 0$, is orthogonal to W. Show that some $w \in W$, $w \neq 0$, is orthogonal to U.

Solution. As $u \neq 0$, $m \geqslant 1$. Put $q_1 = u/\|u\|$, a unit vector of U.

- If $m = 1$, then q_1 alone is an orthonormal basis of U (Proposition 3.13(a), Theorem 4.5(d)). If $m \geqslant 2$, there are $q_2, \dots, q_m \in U$ such that $q_1, \dots, q_m$ form an orthonormal basis of U (Corollary 6.15(b)).
- Let $Z = \operatorname{span}\{q_2, \dots, q_m\}$, so $Z = \{0\}$ if $m = 1$ (Definition 3.6). The vectors $q_2, \dots, q_m$ are orthonormal, hence linearly independent (Proposition 6.11(b)); so they form a basis of Z, and $\dim Z = m - 1$. By Theorem 6.6(c), $\dim Z^\perp = n - m + 1$.

- Hence $\dim Z^\perp + \dim W = (n-m+1)+m = n+1 > n$, and $Z^\perp \cap W \neq \{0\}$ (Corollary 4.25(b)). Take $w \in Z^\perp \cap W$ with $w \neq 0$.
- Then $w'q_j = 0$ for $j = 2, \ldots, m$, as $w \in Z^\perp$ and $q_j \in Z$; and $w'q_1 = u'w/\|u\| = 0$, as $u \perp W$ and $w \in W$ (Definition 6.5). Since $q_1, \ldots, q_m$ span U, $w \perp U$ (Theorem 6.6(a)).

Problem 6.9. Let $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ and $y_1, \ldots, y_n$ be two bases of $\mathbb{R}^n$ such that $x_i'x_j = y_i'y_j$ for all i, j. Show that there is an orthogonal matrix $U \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $Ux_i = y_i$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n$.

Solution. Let $A = [x_1 \ \cdots \ x_n]$ and $B = [y_1 \ \cdots \ y_n]$.

- The (i,j) entries of $A'A$ and $B'B$ are $x_i'x_j$ and $y_i'y_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), so $A'A = B'B$.
- The columns of A are linearly independent, so A has full column rank and is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)). By Theorem 6.16, $A = Q_1R$, where $Q_1'Q_1 = I_n$ and R is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries. So Q_1 is orthogonal (Definition 6.12), and $R = Q_1'A = Q_1^{-1}A$ is invertible (Theorems 6.19(a) and 2.13(a),(b)), with $AR^{-1} = Q_1$.
- Apply the same combinations to $y_1, \ldots, y_n$: let $Q_2 = BR^{-1}$. By Theorem 1.9 and $B'B = A'A$,

$$Q_2'Q_2 = (R^{-1})'B'BR^{-1} = (R^{-1})'A'AR^{-1} = (AR^{-1})'(AR^{-1}) = Q_1'Q_1 = I_n$$

  so Q_2 is orthogonal too.
- Let $U = Q_2Q_1'$. It is orthogonal (Theorem 6.19(b)), and $UA = Q_2(Q_1'Q_1)R = Q_2R = B$. Column i of this equation reads $Ux_i = y_i$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).

In fact $U = BR^{-1}Q_1' = B(Q_1R)^{-1} = BA^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(b)).

Chapter 7. Eigenvalues and diagonalization

Eigenvalues and eigenvectors

Definition 7.1. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. A real number λ is an **eigenvalue** of A if $Ax = \lambda x$ for some $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $x \neq 0$; such a vector x is an **eigenvector** of A **belonging to** λ. Since $Ax = \lambda x$ if and only if $(A - \lambda I)x = 0$, the set

$$\mathcal{N}(A - \lambda I) = \{x \in \mathbb{R}^n : Ax = \lambda x\}$$

is called the **eigenspace** of A for λ.

The eigenspace $\mathcal{N}(A - \lambda I)$ is a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Example 3.5(e)), and its nonzero vectors are exactly the eigenvectors belonging to λ. So a nonzero multiple of an eigenvector, and a nonzero sum of eigenvectors belonging to the same λ, are again eigenvectors belonging to λ. An eigenvector belongs to only one eigenvalue: if $Ax = \lambda_1 x$ and $Ax = \lambda_2 x$, then $(\lambda_1 - \lambda_2)x = 0$ with $x \neq 0$, so $\lambda_1 = \lambda_2$ (Proposition 3.13(a)).

Example 7.2. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 & -2 \\ -1 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad v_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad v_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad v_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad v_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Multiplying out,

$$Av_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Av_2 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ -1 \\ -1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Av_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 2 \\ 0 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Av_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ -2 \\ -2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $Av_1 = v_1$, $Av_2 = -v_2$, $Av_3 = 2v_3$ and $Av_4 = -2v_4$: the numbers 1, -1, 2 and -2 are eigenvalues of A, and v_1, v_2, v_3, v_4 are eigenvectors belonging to them (Definition 7.1). The vector e_1 is not an eigenvector: $Ae_1 = (1, -1, 0, -1)'$ is not a multiple of e_1.

Theorem 7.3. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$. The following are equivalent:

(i) λ is an eigenvalue of A;

(ii) $A - \lambda I$ is not invertible;

(iii) $\det(\lambda I - A) = 0$;

(iv) $\operatorname{rank}(A - \lambda I) < n$.

Proof. • (i)⇔(ii): λ is an eigenvalue if and only if $(A - \lambda I)x = 0$ has a solution $x \neq 0$, that is, if and only if $A - \lambda I$ is not invertible (Theorem 2.16, (i)⇔(iii)).

• (ii)⇔(iii): $\det(\lambda I - A) = \det\big((-1)(A - \lambda I)\big) = (-1)^n \det(A - \lambda I)$ (Theorem 5.18(c)), and $A - \lambda I$ is invertible if and only if $\det(A - \lambda I) \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

• (ii)⇔(iv): Theorem 4.13(d). □

So the eigenvalues of A are the real solutions λ of $\det(\lambda I - A) = 0$, and the eigenvectors belonging to λ are the nonzero solutions of $(A - \lambda I)x = 0$, found by row reduction.

Polynomials

Complex numbers. A **complex number** is $z = a + bi$ with $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, where $i^2 = -1$; $\mathbb{C}$ is the set of complex numbers, and a real number a is the complex number $a + 0i$. Sums and products are $(a + bi) + (c + di) = (a + c) + (b + d)i$ and $(a + bi)(c + di) = (ac - bd) + (ad + bc)i$; they obey the rules of arithmetic of real numbers (commutative, associative and distributive laws), as one checks by multiplying out both sides. The **conjugate** of $z = a + bi$ is $\bar{z} = a - bi$; multiplying out likewise gives: $\bar{z} = z$ if and only if z is real, $\overline{z + w} = \bar{z} + \bar{w}$, $\overline{zw} = \bar{z}\,\bar{w}$, and $z\bar{z} = a^2 + b^2 > 0$ for $z \neq 0$. Hence every $z \neq 0$ has the inverse $z^{-1} = \bar{z}/(a^2 + b^2)$, and $zw = 0$ only if $z = 0$ or $w = 0$ (if $z \neq 0$, then $w = z^{-1}zw = 0$).

Definition 7.4. A **polynomial** (in the variable t) is an expression $f = c_0 + c_1 t + \cdots + c_m t^m$ with **coefficients** $c_0, \ldots, c_m \in \mathbb{C}$; we put $c_k = 0$ for $k > m$, and f equals $g = d_0 + d_1 t + \cdots$ if $c_k = d_k$ for every $k \geqslant 0$. We write $f(t)$ for f when the variable is to be shown.

- f is **real** if every $c_k \in \mathbb{R}$; the **zero polynomial** 0 has all coefficients 0. For $f \neq 0$, the **degree** $\deg f$ is the largest k with $c_k \neq 0$, and $c_{\deg f}$ is the **leading coefficient**; f is **monic** if its leading coefficient is 1. c_0 is the **constant term**, and a polynomial with $c_k = 0$ for all $k \geqslant 1$ is written as the number c_0.
- The sum $f + g$, the multiple af ($a \in \mathbb{C}$) and the product fg have the coefficients $c_k + d_k$, ac_k and $\sum_{i+j=k} c_i d_j = c_0 d_k + c_1 d_{k-1} + \cdots + c_k d_0$; thus $(ct^i)(dt^j) = cd\,t^{i+j}$. These operations obey the rules of arithmetic of numbers ($fg = gf$, $(fg)h = f(gh)$, $f(g + h) = fg + fh$, and so on), because these hold coefficient by coefficient; for instance, with $h = \sum_l h_l t^l$, the coefficient of t^k in $(fg)h$ and in $f(gh)$ is $\sum_{i+j+l=k} c_i d_j h_l$.
- The **value** of f at $z \in \mathbb{C}$ is $f(z) = c_0 + c_1 z + \cdots + c_m z^m$, and z is a **root** of f if $f(z) = 0$. For a real polynomial f and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $f(A) = c_0 I_n + c_1 A + \cdots + c_m A^m$ (with $A^0 = I_n$; Definition 1.23); for instance, for $f = t - c$, $f(A) = A - cI$.

Proposition 7.5. Let f, g, h be polynomials.

(a) If $f \neq 0$ and $g \neq 0$, then $fg \neq 0$, $\deg(fg) = \deg f + \deg g$, and the leading coefficient of fg is the product of those of f and g. If $f \neq 0$ and $fg = fh$, then $g = h$.

(b) $(af + g)(z) = af(z) + g(z)$ and $(fg)(z) = f(z)g(z)$ for $a, z \in \mathbb{C}$; the same holds for real f, g, $a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $z = A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(c) (**Factor theorem**) For $c \in \mathbb{C}$, $f(c) = 0$ if and only if $f = (t - c)q$ for some polynomial q.

(d) A nonzero polynomial of degree m has at most m roots. Consequently, if $f(z) = g(z)$ for infinitely many z (for instance, for all real z, or for all real $z \neq 0$), then $f = g$.

(e) For $\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_n \in \mathbb{C}$ ($n \geqslant 1$), $(t - \mu_1)\cdots(t - \mu_n) = t^n - (\mu_1 + \cdots + \mu_n)t^{n-1} + r$, where $r = 0$ or $\deg r \leqslant n - 2$; and the constant term of this product is $(-1)^n \mu_1 \cdots \mu_n$.

Proof. Write $f = \sum_k c_k t^k$ and $g = \sum_k d_k t^k$.

(a)

- Let $\deg f = m$ and $\deg g = l$. A term $c_i d_{m+l+j-i}$ ($j \geqslant 0$) of the coefficient of t^{m+l+j} in fg can be nonzero only if $i \leqslant m$ and $m + l + j - i \leqslant l$, that is, $m + j \leqslant i \leqslant m$; so $j = 0$ and $i = m$. Hence the coefficient of t^{m+l} is $c_m d_l \neq 0$, and all higher coefficients are 0.
- If $fg = fh$, then $f(g - h) = 0$; if $g \neq h$, the first item would give $f(g - h) \neq 0$ ✘ So $g = h$.

(b)

- $af + g$ has the coefficients $ac_k + d_k$, so $(af + g)(z) = \sum_k (ac_k + d_k)z^k = af(z) + g(z)$.

- By the product rule of Definition 7.4 and the distributive laws, $(fg)(z) = \sum_k \sum_{i+j=k} c_i d_j z^{i+j} = \sum_{i,j} (c_i z^i)(d_j z^j) = f(z)g(z)$.
- For real f, g, a and a matrix $z = A$, both rules are Proposition 1.24(a),(b).

(c)

- First, $f = (t-c)q + r$ for a polynomial q and a number r, by induction on the degree: if $f = 0$ or $\deg f = 0$, take $q = 0$ and $r = f$; if $\deg f = m \geqslant 1$ and a is the leading coefficient, then $f - at^{m-1}(t-c)$ has coefficient 0 at t^m, so it is 0 or of degree less than m; by the induction hypothesis it equals $(t-c)q_1 + r$, and $f = (t-c)(q_1 + at^{m-1}) + r$.
- By (b), $f(c) = (c-c)q(c) + r = r$. So if $f(c) = 0$, then $r = 0$ and $f = (t-c)q$. Conversely, if $f = (t-c)q$, then $f(c) = (c-c)q(c) = 0$ by (b).

(d)

- Induction on m. If $m = 0$, f is a nonzero number and has no root. Let $m \geqslant 1$, and let f have a root a (otherwise there is nothing to prove). By (c), $f = (t-a)q$; here $q \neq 0$, as $f \neq 0$, so $\deg q = m - 1$ by (a).
- If $f(b) = 0$, then $(b-a)q(b) = 0$ by (b), so $b = a$ or $q(b) = 0$. By the induction hypothesis q has at most $m-1$ roots, so f has at most m.
- If $f \neq g$, then $f - g$ is a nonzero polynomial, and every z with $f(z) = g(z)$ is a root of it (by (b)); so there are only finitely many such z.

(e)

- Induction on n; for $n = 1$, $t - \mu_1$ has this form with $r = 0$.
- If $(t-\mu_1)\cdots(t-\mu_n) = t^n - s_n t^{n-1} + r_n$ with $s_n = \mu_1 + \cdots + \mu_n$, then multiplying by $t - \mu_{n+1}$ gives $t^{n+1} - (s_n + \mu_{n+1})t^n + r_{n+1}$ with $r_{n+1} = s_n \mu_{n+1} t^{n-1} + r_n(t - \mu_{n+1})$, which is 0 or of degree at most $n-1$ by (a).
- The constant term of a polynomial is its value at 0, here $(0-\mu_1)\cdots(0-\mu_n) = (-1)^n \mu_1 \cdots \mu_n$ by (b). □

The characteristic polynomial

Lemma 7.6. For every $t \in \mathbb{R}$ let $M(t) \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$ have entries of the form $\alpha + \beta t$, where the numbers $\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$ do not depend on t. If at most d rows of $M(t)$ contain an entry with $\beta \neq 0$, then there is a real polynomial q, which is 0 or of degree at most d, such that $\det M(t) = q(t)$ for every $t \in \mathbb{R}$.

Proof. Induction on m. For $m = 1$, $\det M(t) = \alpha + \beta t$ (Definition 5.13(a),(d)), and $q = \alpha + \beta t$ has the required form, since $\beta = 0$ if $d = 0$. Let $m \geqslant 2$.

- If no entry has $\beta \neq 0$, then $M(t) = M(0)$ for every t, and $q = \det M(0)$, a number, will do.
- Otherwise $d \geqslant 1$; let row i contain an entry with $\beta \neq 0$, write $m_{ij}(t) = \alpha_{ij} + \beta_{ij} t$ for its entries, and expand along row i (Theorem 5.21):

$$\det M(t) = \sum_{j=1}^{m} (-1)^{i+j} m_{ij}(t) \det\Big(M(t)(i|j)\Big)$$

- Each $M(t)(i|j) \in \mathbb{R}^{(m-1)\times(m-1)}$ has entries of the same form, and its rows are the rows of $M(t)$ other than row i, each shortened by one entry; so at most $d-1$ of them contain an entry with $\beta \neq 0$. By the induction hypothesis, $\det\Big(M(t)(i|j)\Big) = q_j(t)$ for a real polynomial q_j that is 0 or of degree at most $d-1$.

- By Proposition 7.5(b), $\det M(t)$ is the value at t of $q = \sum_j (-1)^{i+j}(\alpha_{ij} + \beta_{ij}t)q_j$. Each term is 0 or of degree at most $1 + (d-1) = d$ (Proposition 7.5(a)), so its coefficients of t^k, $k > d$, are 0, and so are those of q (Definition 7.4). □

Definition 7.7. Let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, the (i,j) entry of $tI - A$ is $\delta_{ij}t - a_{ij}$. By Lemma 7.6 (with $m = d = n$) there is a real polynomial whose value at every $c \in \mathbb{R}$ is $\det(cI - A)$, and by Proposition 7.5(d) there is only one. It is the **characteristic polynomial** of A, written

$$p_A(t) = \det(tI - A)$$

The equation $p_A(t) = 0$ is the **characteristic equation** of A. Moreover:

(a) $p_A(c) = \det(cI - A)$ for every $c \in \mathbb{R}$; so the eigenvalues of A are the real roots of p_A (Theorem 7.3);

(b) p_A is monic of degree n, its coefficient of t^{n-1} is $-\operatorname{tr} A$, and its constant term is $(-1)^n \det A$ (for $n = 1$ both say $p_A(t) = t - a_{11}$). For $n = 2$, $p_A(t) = t^2 - (\operatorname{tr} A)t + \det A$.

Proof. (a) By the choice of p_A, $p_A(c) = \det(cI - A)$ for every real c. By Theorem 7.3, a real λ is an eigenvalue of A if and only if $\det(\lambda I - A) = 0$, that is, $p_A(\lambda) = 0$.

(b) Induction on n. For $n = 1$, $\det(cI_1 - A) = c - a_{11}$ for every real c (Definition 5.13(a),(d)), so $p_A = t - a_{11}$ (Proposition 7.5(d)), and $-a_{11} = -\operatorname{tr} A = (-1)^1 \det A$. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

- For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, expand $\det(cI - A)$ along row 1, whose entries are $c - a_{11}, -a_{12}, \ldots, -a_{1n}$ (Theorem 5.21); as $(cI - A)(1|1) = cI_{n-1} - A(1|1)$,

$$\det(cI - A) = (c - a_{11})\, p_{A(1|1)}(c) + \sum_{j=2}^{n} (-1)^{1+j}(-a_{1j}) \det\Big((cI - A)(1|j)\Big)$$

- For $j \geqslant 2$, the rows of $(cI - A)(1|j)$ are rows $2, \ldots, n$ of $cI - A$ without their jth entry. Row i of $cI - A$ contains c only in column i, so the row that comes from row j does not contain c, and at most $n - 2$ rows contain c. By Lemma 7.6, $\det\Big((cI - A)(1|j)\Big) = q_j(c)$ for a real polynomial q_j that is 0 or of degree at most $n - 2$.

- By the induction hypothesis, $p_{A(1|1)} = t^{n-1} - st^{n-2} + r$ with $s = \operatorname{tr} A(1|1) = a_{22} + \cdots + a_{nn}$ and $r = 0$ or $\deg r \leqslant n - 3$ ($r = 0$ if $n = 2$). Multiplying out, $(t - a_{11})p_{A(1|1)} = t^n - (a_{11} + s)t^{n-1} + r_1$ with $r_1 = a_{11}st^{n-2} + (t - a_{11})r$, which is 0 or of degree at most $n - 2$ (Proposition 7.5(a)); and $a_{11} + s = \operatorname{tr} A$ (Definition 1.10).

- By Proposition 7.5(b), $\det(cI - A)$ is the value at c of $q = (t - a_{11})p_{A(1|1)} + \sum_{j=2}^{n}(-1)^{1+j}(-a_{1j})q_j$, so $p_A = q$ (Proposition 7.5(d)). The coefficients of t^k, $k \geqslant n - 1$, of r_1 and of every q_j are 0; so p_A has the coefficient 1 at t^n, the coefficient $-\operatorname{tr} A$ at t^{n-1}, and 0 above t^n.

- The constant term is the value at 0: by (a), $p_A(0) = \det(-A) = (-1)^n \det A$ (Theorem 5.18(c)). □

In examples, $\det(tI - A)$ is computed for each real t by row and column operations and cofactor expansion (Definition 5.13, Theorems 5.22 and 5.21). If this gives $\det(tI - A) = q(t)$ for a polynomial q and every real t, then $p_A = q$, by (a) and Proposition 7.5(d). Many books call $\det(A - tI) = (-1)^n p_A(t)$ the characteristic polynomial; it has the same roots. By (a), (b) and Proposition 7.5(d), a matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ has at most n eigenvalues; so the four eigenvalues 1, −1, 2, −2 of the 4×4 matrix of Example 7.2 are all its eigenvalues.

Example 7.8. Find the eigenvalues of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

and a basis of each eigenspace.

Solution.

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, expanding along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det(tI - A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & -2 & -1 \\ -2 & t & 2 \\ 1 & -2 & t-3 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)\Big(t(t-3)+4\Big) + 2\Big(-2(t-3)-2\Big) - (4-t)$$
$$= (t^3 - 4t^2 + 7t - 4) + (-4t + 8) + (t - 4) = t^3 - 4t^2 + 4t = t(t-2)^2$$

  So $p_A(t) = t(t-2)^2$, and the eigenvalues are 0 and 2 (Definition 7.7).

- $\lambda = 0$: row-reduce $A - 0I = A$.

$$A \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{4}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The free unknown is x_3; the special solution $(1, -1, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 2$: row-reduce $A - 2I$.

$$\begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & -2 & -2 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(1, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 2I)$.

Both eigenspaces are lines, although p_A has the factor $(t-2)^2$.

Theorem 7.9. (a) (**Fundamental theorem of algebra**; not proved here.) Every polynomial of degree at least 1 has a root in $\mathbb{C}$.

(b) Every monic polynomial f of degree $n \geqslant 1$ is a product

$$f = (t - \lambda_1)(t - \lambda_2) \cdots (t - \lambda_n) \qquad (\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n \in \mathbb{C})$$

and the list $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ is unique up to order: if also $f = (t - \mu_1) \cdots (t - \mu_n)$, then $\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_n$ are $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ in some order.

(c) In (b), the roots of f are exactly $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$.

Proof. (b)

- Existence, by induction on n. For $n = 1$, $f = t + c_0 = t - (-c_0)$. Let $n \geqslant 2$. By (a), f has a root λ_n, so $f = (t - \lambda_n)g$ (Proposition 7.5(c)); here $g \neq 0$, as $f \neq 0$, so g is monic of degree $n - 1$ (Proposition 7.5(a)). By the induction hypothesis, $g = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_{n-1})$.
- Uniqueness, by induction on n. For $n = 1$, $t - \lambda_1 = t - \mu_1$ gives $\lambda_1 = \mu_1$ (constant terms). Let $n \geqslant 2$. The value of both products at λ_n (Proposition 7.5(b)) gives $0 = (\lambda_n - \mu_1) \cdots (\lambda_n - \mu_n)$, so $\lambda_n = \mu_k$ for some k.

- Renumber the μ_i so that $k = n$, and cancel the factor $t - \lambda_n \neq 0$ (Proposition 7.5(a)): $(t - \lambda_1)\cdots(t-\lambda_{n-1}) = (t-\mu_1)\cdots(t-\mu_{n-1})$. By the induction hypothesis, $\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_{n-1}$ are $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_{n-1}$ in some order, and $\mu_n = \lambda_n$.

(c) By Proposition 7.5(b), $f(z) = (z - \lambda_1)\cdots(z - \lambda_n)$, which is 0 if and only if $z = \lambda_i$ for some i. □

Definition 7.10. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. By Definition 7.7(b) and Theorem 7.9(b),

$$p_A(t) = (t - \lambda_1)(t - \lambda_2)\cdots(t - \lambda_n)$$

for complex numbers $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$, unique up to order. These n numbers are the **eigenvalues** of A, listed **with multiplicity**; by Theorem 7.9(c) they are the roots of p_A. For $c \in \mathbb{C}$, the **algebraic multiplicity** $a_A(c)$ is the number of indices i with $\lambda_i = c$ ($a_A(c) = 0$ if c is not an eigenvalue); so if $c_1, \ldots, c_k$ are the distinct eigenvalues, then $p_A = (t - c_1)^{a_A(c_1)}\cdots(t - c_k)^{a_A(c_k)}$ and $a_A(c_1) + \cdots + a_A(c_k) = n$. An eigenvalue c is **simple** if $a_A(c) = 1$ and **multiple** if $a_A(c) \geqslant 2$. A real number is an eigenvalue in this sense if and only if it is one in the sense of Definition 7.1, since both mean that it is a real root of p_A (Definition 7.7(a)); these are the **real eigenvalues**. Eigenvectors and eigenspaces belong to real eigenvalues only.

Proposition 7.11. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) If z is a non-real eigenvalue of A, then so is $\bar{z}$, and $a_A(\bar{z}) = a_A(z)$: the non-real eigenvalues come in conjugate pairs.

(b) If n is odd, then A has a real eigenvalue.

Proof. (a)

- For a polynomial $f = \sum_k c_k t^k$ put $\bar{f} = \sum_k \bar{c}_k t^k$. Conjugation respects sums and products of numbers, so the coefficient $\overline{\sum_{i+j=k} c_i d_j}$ of $\overline{fg}$ is $\sum_{i+j=k} \bar{c}_i \bar{d}_j$: $\overline{fg} = \bar{f}\,\bar{g}$. Hence $\overline{(t - \lambda_1)\cdots(t - \lambda_n)} = (t - \bar{\lambda}_1)\cdots(t - \bar{\lambda}_n)$.
- p_A is real, so $p_A = \overline{p_A}$, that is, $(t - \lambda_1)\cdots(t - \lambda_n) = (t - \bar{\lambda}_1)\cdots(t - \bar{\lambda}_n)$ (Definition 7.10). By Theorem 7.9(b), $\bar{\lambda}_1, \ldots, \bar{\lambda}_n$ are $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ in some order.
- So the number of indices i with $\lambda_i = \bar{z}$ equals the number of i with $\bar{\lambda}_i = \bar{z}$, that is, with $\lambda_i = z$: $a_A(\bar{z}) = a_A(z) \geqslant 1$.

(b) By (a), the non-real numbers in the list $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ fall into pairs $z \neq \bar{z}$ that occur equally often, so there is an even number of them. If n is odd, some λ_i is real: a real eigenvalue. □

Example 7.12. Find the eigenvalues of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and the eigenspace of each real eigenvalue.

Solution.

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 3 of $tI - A$ has the entry $t - 1$ in position $(3, 3)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det(tI - A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-2 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & t-2 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)\det \begin{pmatrix} t-2 & 1 \\ -1 & t-2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)\Big((t-2)^2 + 1\Big)$$

- Since $(t-2-i)(t-2+i) = (t-2)^2 - i^2 = (t-2)^2 + 1$, $p_A(t) = (t-1)\Big(t-(2+i)\Big)\Big(t-(2-i)\Big)$: the eigenvalues are 1, $2+i$ and $2-i$, each simple, and $2 \pm i$ is a conjugate pair (Proposition 7.11(a)). The only real eigenvalue is 1.

- Row-reduce $A - I$:

$$\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0\\1&1&0\\1&1&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0\\0&2&0\\0&2&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0\\0&2&0\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_2\leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0\\0&1&0\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1\leftarrow R_1+R_2} \begin{pmatrix}1&0&0\\0&1&0\\0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

  So $x_1 = x_2 = 0$ and x_3 is free: $\mathcal{N}(A - I) = \operatorname{span}\{e_3\}$. The eigenvalues $2 \pm i$ have no eigenvectors in $\mathbb{R}^3$ (Definition 7.10).

Remark 7.13 (Stationary autoregressions)**.** In time series, the **autoregressive model** of order p is $y_k = \beta_0 + \beta_1 y_{k-1} + \cdots + \beta_p y_{k-p} + \varepsilon_k$. It describes a stationary process when every root z of the real polynomial $\Phi(t) = 1 - \beta_1 t - \cdots - \beta_p t^p$ lies outside the unit circle, that is, $|z| > 1$, where $|a + bi| = \sqrt{a^2 + b^2}$ (not proved here). The recursion $y_k = \beta_0 + \beta_1 y_{k-1} + \cdots + \beta_p y_{k-p}$, written for the vector $(y_{k-p+1}, \ldots, y_k)'$, uses the $p \times p$ **companion matrix**

$$C = \begin{pmatrix}0&1&0&\cdots&0\\0&0&1&\cdots&0\\\vdots&\vdots&&\ddots&\vdots\\0&0&0&\cdots&1\\\beta_p&\beta_{p-1}&\beta_{p-2}&\cdots&\beta_1\end{pmatrix}$$

whose eigenvalues are the roots of $f = t^p - \beta_1 t^{p-1} - \cdots - \beta_p$ (Abadir and Magnus, Appendix A.4.1). As $\Phi(0) = 1$ and $z^p \Phi(1/z) = f(z)$ for $z \neq 0$, the nonzero roots of f are the numbers $1/z$ for the roots z of Φ, and $|1/z| = 1/|z|$ (as $1/z = \bar{z}/(a^2 + b^2)$ for $z = a + bi \neq 0$); so the condition says that every eigenvalue λ of C, real or not, has $|\lambda| < 1$.

Similar and triangular matrices

Definition 7.14. A matrix $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is **similar** to $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ if $B = P^{-1}AP$ for some invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Then $A = PBP^{-1} = (P^{-1})^{-1}BP^{-1}$, so A is similar to B.

Theorem 7.15. Let $A, P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with P invertible, and let $B = P^{-1}AP$.

(a) $p_B = p_A$. Hence A and B have the same eigenvalues with the same algebraic multiplicities, $\operatorname{tr} B = \operatorname{tr} A$ and $\det B = \det A$.

(b) For every $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $x \mapsto P^{-1}x$ maps $\mathcal{N}(A - cI)$ onto $\mathcal{N}(B - cI)$, with inverse $y \mapsto Py$; so x is an eigenvector of A belonging to c if and only if $P^{-1}x$ is an eigenvector of B belonging to c. Moreover $\dim \mathcal{N}(B - cI) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI)$, and $\operatorname{rank} B = \operatorname{rank} A$.

Proof. (a)

- For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $cI - B = P^{-1}(cI)P - P^{-1}AP = P^{-1}(cI - A)P$ (Theorem 1.3), so $\det(cI - B) = \det P^{-1} \cdot \det(cI - A) \cdot \det P = \det(cI - A)$ (Theorem 5.18(b),(c)).
- So $p_B(c) = p_A(c)$ for every real c (Definition 7.7(a)), and $p_B = p_A$ (Proposition 7.5(d)).
- The eigenvalues of A and B come from the same factorization (Definition 7.10); $-\operatorname{tr} B$ and $-\operatorname{tr} A$ are the same coefficient of t^{n-1}, and $(-1)^n \det B$, $(-1)^n \det A$ the same constant term (Definition 7.7(b)).

(b)

- $B - cI = P^{-1}(A - cI)P$ and $A - cI = P(B - cI)P^{-1}$. If $(A - cI)x = 0$, then $(B - cI)P^{-1}x = P^{-1}(A - cI)x = 0$; if $(B - cI)y = 0$, then $(A - cI)Py = P(B - cI)y = 0$.
- The two maps are inverse to each other ($PP^{-1}x = x$, $P^{-1}Py = y$), and $P^{-1}x \neq 0$ if and only if $x \neq 0$.
- $\operatorname{rank}(B - cI) = \operatorname{rank}\Big(P^{-1}(A - cI)P\Big) = \operatorname{rank}(A - cI)$ (Theorem 4.15(d)), so the two null spaces have the same dimension (Theorem 4.12). In the same way, $\operatorname{rank} B = \operatorname{rank}(P^{-1}AP) = \operatorname{rank} A$. □

Proposition 7.16. (a) Let $A = \begin{pmatrix} B & C \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix}$ or $A = \begin{pmatrix} B & 0 \\ C & D \end{pmatrix}$ with $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$. Then $p_A = p_B p_D$: the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are those of B together with those of D.

(b) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is upper or lower triangular, then $p_A = (t - a_{11}) \cdots (t - a_{nn})$: the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are $a_{11}, \ldots, a_{nn}$.

Proof. (a)

- For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $cI - A$ is block triangular of the same kind, with diagonal blocks $cI_p - B$ and $cI_q - D$ (Theorem 5.3(a)). By Theorem 5.29, $\det(cI - A) = \det(cI_p - B)\det(cI_q - D) = p_B(c)p_D(c)$, the value of $p_B p_D$ at c (Proposition 7.5(b)). So $p_A = p_B p_D$ (Proposition 7.5(d)).
- If $p_B = (t - \beta_1) \cdots (t - \beta_p)$ and $p_D = (t - \delta_1) \cdots (t - \delta_q)$ (Definition 7.10), then p_A is the product of these $p + q$ linear factors, and by Theorem 7.9(b) the eigenvalues of A are $\beta_1, \ldots, \beta_p, \delta_1, \ldots, \delta_q$.

(b)

- For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $cI - A$ is triangular of the same kind with diagonal entries $c - a_{ii}$, so $\det(cI - A) = (c - a_{11}) \cdots (c - a_{nn})$ (Theorem 5.14(c) for upper, Theorem 5.22 for lower triangular matrices), the value of $(t - a_{11}) \cdots (t - a_{nn})$ at c.
- As in (a), $p_A = (t - a_{11}) \cdots (t - a_{nn})$, and Definition 7.10 gives the eigenvalues. □

Example 7.17. Find the eigenvalues of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} B & F \\ 0 & D \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 \\ 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad D = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and a basis of each eigenspace.

Solution.

- By Proposition 7.16(a) and the formula for $n = 2$ in Definition 7.7(b), with $\operatorname{tr} B = -2$, $\det B = -3$, $\operatorname{tr} D = 2$ and $\det D = -3$,

$$p_A = p_B p_D = (t^2 + 2t - 3)(t^2 - 2t - 3) = (t + 3)(t - 1)(t - 3)(t + 1)$$

  So the eigenvalues are -3, -1, 1 and 3, each simple (Definition 7.10). Check: $p_A = (t^2-9)(t^2-1) = t^4 - 10t^2 + 9$; the coefficient 0 of t^3 is $-\operatorname{tr} A = -(-1 - 1 + 1 + 1)$, and the constant term 9 is $(-1)^4 \det A$, as $\det A = \det B \det D = (-3)(-3) = 9$ (Theorem 5.29, Definition 7.7(b)).

- $\lambda = -3$:

$$A + 3I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

An echelon form with three nonzero rows: $\operatorname{rank}(A+3I) = 3$ (Definition 4.11), so $\dim \mathcal{N}(A+3I) = 4-3 = 1$ (Theorem 4.12). Back substitution gives $x_4 = 0$, $x_3 = 0$ and $x_1 = -x_2$; so $(-1,1,0,0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A+3I)$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

- $\lambda = -1$:

$$A + I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3]{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

Again $\operatorname{rank}(A+I) = 3$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A+I) = 1$. With $x_4 = 1$, back substitution gives $x_3 = -1$, $x_2 = 2$ and $x_1 = 0$; so $(0,2,-1,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A+I)$.

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank}(A-I) = 3$, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A-I) = 1$, and back substitution gives $x_3 = x_4 = 0$ and $x_1 = x_2$: the vector $(1,1,0,0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-I)$.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$A - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 2 & -4 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -4 & 1 & 1 \\ -4 & 2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -4 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -6 & 5 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank}(A-3I) = 3$, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A-3I) = 1$, and back substitution gives $x_3 = x_4$, $x_2 = x_4$ and $x_1 = x_4$: the vector $\mathbf{1}_4$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-3I)$. Indeed every row of A adds up to 3.

Check: $A(-1,1,0,0)' = (3,-3,0,0)'$ and $A(0,2,-1,1)' = (0,-2,1,-1)'$.

Eigenvalues of related matrices; trace and determinant

Proposition 7.18. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$.

(a) If $Ax = \lambda x$ with $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$ and $x \neq 0$, then $A^k x = \lambda^k x$ $(k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots)$ and $f(A)x = f(\lambda)x$ for every real polynomial f; in particular $(cA)x = (c\lambda)x$ and $(A + cI)x = (\lambda + c)x$ $(c \in \mathbb{R})$. So x is an eigenvector of A^k, $f(A)$, cA and $A + cI$, belonging to λ^k, $f(\lambda)$, $c\lambda$ and $\lambda + c$.

(b) If, moreover, A is invertible, then $\lambda \neq 0$ and $A^{-1}x = \lambda^{-1}x$.

(c) If A has the eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ (with multiplicity) and $c \in \mathbb{R}$, then $A + cI$ has the eigenvalues $\lambda_1 + c, \ldots, \lambda_n + c$, and, if $c \neq 0$, cA has the eigenvalues $c\lambda_1, \ldots, c\lambda_n$.

(d) $p_{A'} = p_A$: A' and A have the same eigenvalues with the same algebraic multiplicities.

Proof. (a)

- By induction on k: $A^0 x = x = \lambda^0 x$, and if $A^k x = \lambda^k x$, then $A^{k+1}x = A^k(Ax) = A^k(\lambda x) = \lambda A^k x = \lambda^{k+1} x$ (Theorem 1.3).

- If $f = \sum_k c_k t^k$, then $f(A)x = \sum_k c_k A^k x = \sum_k c_k \lambda^k x = f(\lambda)x$. For $f = ct$ and $f = t + c$ this gives $(cA)x = c\lambda x$ and $(A + cI)x = (\lambda + c)x$. In each case $x \neq 0$.

(b) If $\lambda = 0$, then $Ax = 0$ with $x \neq 0$, and A would not be invertible (Theorem 2.16) ✘ So $\lambda \neq 0$, and $x = A^{-1}(Ax) = A^{-1}(\lambda x) = \lambda A^{-1}x$, that is, $A^{-1}x = \lambda^{-1}x$.

(c)

- For $s \in \mathbb{R}$, $\det\big(sI - (A + cI)\big) = \det\big((s - c)I - A\big) = p_A(s - c) = (s - c - \lambda_1)\cdots(s - c - \lambda_n)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(b)), the value at s of $\big(t - (\lambda_1 + c)\big)\cdots\big(t - (\lambda_n + c)\big)$. By Proposition 7.5(d) this product is p_{A+cI}, and Definition 7.10 gives the eigenvalues.
- Let $c \neq 0$. For $s \in \mathbb{R}$, $\det(sI - cA) = \det\big(c(\frac{s}{c}I - A)\big) = c^n p_A(\frac{s}{c}) = c^n(\frac{s}{c} - \lambda_1)\cdots(\frac{s}{c} - \lambda_n) = (s - c\lambda_1)\cdots(s - c\lambda_n)$ (Theorem 5.18(c)); conclude as before.

(d) For $c \in \mathbb{R}$, $(cI - A)' = cI - A'$ (Theorem 1.9), so $\det(cI - A') = \det(cI - A)$ (Theorem 5.22). By Definition 7.7(a) and Proposition 7.5(d), $p_{A'} = p_A$. □

In Example 7.2, by (a), v_1 and v_2 are eigenvectors of A^2 belonging to 1, v_3 and v_4 eigenvectors of A^2 belonging to 4, and $v_1, \ldots, v_4$ eigenvectors of $A - 2I$ belonging to -1, -3, 0, -4. The eigenvalues of that A are 1, -1, 2, -2 (the remark after Definition 7.7), so A is invertible (Theorem 7.3 with $\lambda = 0$), and by (b), $v_1, \ldots, v_4$ are eigenvectors of A^{-1} belonging to 1, -1, $\frac{1}{2}$, $-\frac{1}{2}$.

Theorem 7.19. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ have the eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$, listed with multiplicity. Then

$$\operatorname{tr} A = \lambda_1 + \lambda_2 + \cdots + \lambda_n, \qquad \det A = \lambda_1\lambda_2\cdots\lambda_n$$

Hence A is invertible if and only if 0 is not an eigenvalue of A.

Proof.
- $p_A = (t - \lambda_1)\cdots(t - \lambda_n)$ (Definition 7.10). By Proposition 7.5(e), its coefficient of t^{n-1} is $-(\lambda_1 + \cdots + \lambda_n)$ and its constant term is $(-1)^n\lambda_1\cdots\lambda_n$.
- By Definition 7.7(b), the same two coefficients are $-\operatorname{tr} A$ and $(-1)^n \det A$.
- A is invertible if and only if $\det A \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)), that is, if and only if no λ_i is 0. □

For the matrix of Example 7.8, $\operatorname{tr} A = 4 = 0 + 2 + 2$ and $\det A = 0 = 0 \cdot 2 \cdot 2$, so A is not invertible; for that of Example 7.12, $\operatorname{tr} A = 5 = 1 + (2 + i) + (2 - i)$ and $\det A = 5 = 1 \cdot (2 + i)(2 - i)$.

Eigenvectors of distinct eigenvalues; multiplicities

Theorem 7.20. Let $v_1, \ldots, v_m$ be eigenvectors of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ belonging to real eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_m$ that are pairwise distinct ($\lambda_i \neq \lambda_j$ for $i \neq j$). Then $v_1, \ldots, v_m$ are linearly independent. In particular, if A has n distinct real eigenvalues, then eigenvectors belonging to them form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof. Induction on m. For $m = 0$ the empty list is independent (Definition 3.11). Let $m \geqslant 1$, assume the statement for $m - 1$ eigenvectors, and let $c_1v_1 + \cdots + c_mv_m = 0$.

- Multiplying by λ_m gives $\sum_i c_i\lambda_m v_i = 0$; multiplying by A gives $\sum_i c_i\lambda_i v_i = 0$, since $Av_i = \lambda_i v_i$ (Theorem 1.3).
- Subtracting, the v_m term vanishes: $c_1(\lambda_m - \lambda_1)v_1 + \cdots + c_{m-1}(\lambda_m - \lambda_{m-1})v_{m-1} = 0$.
- By the induction hypothesis, $c_i(\lambda_m - \lambda_i) = 0$ for $i < m$, and $c_i = 0$ since $\lambda_m \neq \lambda_i$.
- Then $c_m v_m = 0$ with $v_m \neq 0$, so $c_m = 0$ (Proposition 3.13(a)).

If A has n distinct real eigenvalues, eigenvectors belonging to them are n independent vectors of $\mathbb{R}^n$, which has dimension n (Theorem 4.4); so they form a basis (Theorem 4.5(d)). □

Definition 7.21. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$. The **geometric multiplicity** of c is

$$g_A(c) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI) = n - \operatorname{rank}(A - cI)$$

(Theorem 4.12). So $g_A(c) \geqslant 1$ if c is a real eigenvalue of A, and $g_A(c) = 0$ otherwise (Definition 7.1, Theorem 4.4).

By Theorem 7.15(a),(b), similar matrices have the same algebraic and geometric multiplicities. In Example 7.8, $g_A(0) = a_A(0) = 1$, but $g_A(2) = 1 < 2 = a_A(2)$.

Theorem 7.22. If c is a real eigenvalue of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, then $1 \leqslant g_A(c) \leqslant a_A(c)$. In particular, if c is simple, then $g_A(c) = 1$, that is, $\operatorname{rank}(A - cI) = n - 1$.

Proof. • $g = g_A(c) \geqslant 1$ (Definition 7.21). Extend a basis $x_1, \dots, x_g$ of $\mathcal{N}(A - cI)$ to a basis $x_1, \dots, x_n$ of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(b)). Then $P = [x_1 \ \cdots \ x_n]$ has independent columns, so it is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)).

- For $j \leqslant g$, $Ax_j = cx_j$; put $m_{ij} = c\delta_{ij}$. For $j > g$, write $Ax_j = \sum_{i=1}^n m_{ij}x_i$, as $x_1, \dots, x_n$ span $\mathbb{R}^n$. With $M = (m_{ij})$, $\operatorname{col}_j(AP) = Ax_j = \sum_i m_{ij}x_i = P\operatorname{col}_j(M)$ for every j (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); so $AP = PM$ and $M = P^{-1}AP$.
- The first g columns of M are $ce_1, \dots, ce_g$: $M = cI_n$ if $g = n$, and $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} cI_g & C \\ 0 & D \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $D \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-g)\times(n-g)}$ if $g < n$. By Theorem 7.15(a) and Proposition 7.16(a),(b), the eigenvalues of A are those of M: c (g times), together with those of D if $g < n$. Hence $a_A(c) \geqslant g$.
- If c is simple, then $1 \leqslant g_A(c) \leqslant a_A(c) = 1$, and $\operatorname{rank}(A - cI) = n - g_A(c) = n - 1$. □

Diagonalization

Definition 7.23. A matrix $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is **diagonalizable** if $P^{-1}AP$ is diagonal for some invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, that is, if A is similar to a diagonal matrix; P is then said to **diagonalize** A. Let $P = [p_1 \ \cdots \ p_n] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n)$ with $\lambda_j \in \mathbb{R}$. Then

$$P^{-1}AP = \Lambda \iff AP = P\Lambda \iff A = P\Lambda P^{-1} \iff Ap_j = \lambda_j p_j \quad (1 \leqslant j \leqslant n)$$

Consequently A is diagonalizable if and only if $\mathbb{R}^n$ has a basis consisting of eigenvectors of A. If $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$, then p_j is an eigenvector belonging to λ_j, and $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity; in particular all eigenvalues of a diagonalizable matrix are real.

Proof. • If $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$, then $AP = P(P^{-1}AP) = P\Lambda$ and $A = P\Lambda P^{-1}$; if $AP = P\Lambda$ or $A = P\Lambda P^{-1}$, then $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$.

- $\operatorname{col}_j(AP) = Ap_j$ and $\operatorname{col}_j(P\Lambda) = P(\lambda_j e_j) = \lambda_j p_j$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); two matrices are equal if and only if their columns are.
- If $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$, the columns of P form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Example 3.19), so they are nonzero (Proposition 3.13(a)) and, as $Ap_j = \lambda_j p_j$, eigenvectors. Conversely, if eigenvectors $p_1, \dots, p_n$ with $Ap_j = \lambda_j p_j$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$, then $P = [p_1 \ \cdots \ p_n]$ is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)) and $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$.
- By Theorem 7.15(a) and Proposition 7.16(b), $p_A = p_\Lambda = (t - \lambda_1)\cdots(t - \lambda_n)$; so $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A (Definition 7.10). □

If $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$ and $c = P^{-1}x$ is the vector of coordinates of $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ in the basis $p_1, \dots, p_n$ (Example 3.19), then the coordinates of Ax are $P^{-1}Ax = \Lambda P^{-1}x = \Lambda c = (\lambda_1 c_1, \dots, \lambda_n c_n)'$ (as $P^{-1}A = \Lambda P^{-1}$; Proposition 1.13(a)): in a basis of eigenvectors, A multiplies the jth coordinate by λ_j.

Lemma 7.24. Let $c_1, \dots, c_k$ ($k \geqslant 1$) be distinct real eigenvalues of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and $W_i = \mathcal{N}(A - c_i I)$.

(a) If $w_i \in W_i$ ($1 \leqslant i \leqslant k$) and $w_1 + \cdots + w_k = 0$, then $w_i = 0$ for every i.

(b) If $v_{i1}, \dots, v_{id_i}$ is a basis of W_i for each i, then the $d_1 + \cdots + d_k$ vectors $v_{11}, \dots, v_{1d_1}, \dots, v_{k1}, \dots, v_{kd_k}$ are linearly independent.

Proof. (a)

- For a real polynomial f and $w \in W_i$, $f(A)w = f(c_i)w$ (Proposition 7.18(a) if $w \neq 0$; both sides are 0 if $w = 0$). Applying $f(A)$ to $w_1 + \cdots + w_k = 0$ gives $f(c_1)w_1 + \cdots + f(c_k)w_k = 0$ (Theorem 1.3).
- For a fixed i, let $f_i = \prod_{j\neq i} \frac{t-c_j}{c_i-c_j}$, the product over $j \in \{1, \dots, k\}$, $j \neq i$ ($f_1 = 1$ if $k = 1$). By Proposition 7.5(b), $f_i(c_l) = \prod_{j\neq i} \frac{c_l-c_j}{c_i-c_j}$, which is 1 for $l = i$ and 0 for $l \neq i$ (the factor $j = l$ vanishes).
- With $f = f_i$, the relation of the first item reads $w_i = 0$.

(b) A linear relation among these vectors has the form $w_1 + \cdots + w_k = 0$ with $w_i = \sum_l a_{il} v_{il} \in W_i$. By (a), every $w_i = 0$, and then every $a_{il} = 0$, since $v_{i1}, \dots, v_{id_i}$ are independent. □

Theorem 7.25. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, let $c_1, \dots, c_k$ be the distinct real eigenvalues of A ($k \geqslant 0$; an empty sum is 0, an empty product 1), and let $W_i = \mathcal{N}(A - c_i I)$. The following are equivalent:

(i) A is diagonalizable;

(ii) $p_A = (t - c_1)^{d_1} \cdots (t - c_k)^{d_k}$ for some positive integers $d_1, \dots, d_k$, and $\dim W_i = d_i$ for each i;

(iii) $\dim W_1 + \cdots + \dim W_k = n$.

In other words, A is diagonalizable if and only if all its eigenvalues are real and $g_A(c) = a_A(c)$ for each of them, that is, $\operatorname{rank}(A - c_i I) = n - a_A(c_i)$ for each i. In particular, an $n \times n$ matrix with n distinct real eigenvalues is diagonalizable.

Proof.
- (i)⇒(ii): let $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n)$. By Definition 7.23, $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A; they are real, so each is one of $c_1, \dots, c_k$. Let d_i be the number of j with $\lambda_j = c_i$; $d_i \geqslant 1$, as c_i is an eigenvalue. Then $p_A = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_n) = (t - c_1)^{d_1} \cdots (t - c_k)^{d_k}$.
- Still (i)⇒(ii): $\dim W_i = \dim \mathcal{N}(\Lambda - c_i I)$ (Theorem 7.15(b)). The jth entry of $(\Lambda - c_i I)x$ is $(\lambda_j - c_i)x_j$, so $\mathcal{N}(\Lambda - c_i I)$ consists of the x with $x_j = 0$ whenever $\lambda_j \neq c_i$; it has the basis $\{e_j : \lambda_j = c_i\}$ of d_i vectors (Definition 3.17, Proposition 3.13(b)).
- (ii)⇒(iii): $\dim W_1 + \cdots + \dim W_k = d_1 + \cdots + d_k = \deg p_A = n$ (Proposition 7.5(a), Definition 7.7(b)).
- (iii)⇒(i): as $n \geqslant 1$, $k \geqslant 1$. By Lemma 7.24(b), bases of $W_1, \dots, W_k$ together give n independent eigenvectors of A; they form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(d)), and A is diagonalizable (Definition 7.23).
- In (ii), $d_i = a_A(c_i)$ (Theorem 7.9(b)), and p_A has no other roots (Theorem 7.9(c)); so (ii) says that all eigenvalues are real and $g_A(c_i) = a_A(c_i)$. Conversely, if all eigenvalues are real, then $p_A = (t - c_1)^{a_A(c_1)} \cdots (t - c_k)^{a_A(c_k)}$ (Definition 7.10), and (ii) holds when $g_A(c_i) = a_A(c_i)$ for each i. By Definition 7.21, $g_A(c_i) = a_A(c_i)$ means $\operatorname{rank}(A - c_i I) = n - a_A(c_i)$.
- If A has n distinct real eigenvalues, eigenvectors belonging to them form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 7.20), so A is diagonalizable (Definition 7.23). □

For example, the matrix of Example 7.8 is not diagonalizable: its eigenvalues 0, 2, 2 are real, but $g_A(2) = 1 < 2 = a_A(2)$. Nor is the matrix of Example 7.12, which has non-real eigenvalues. The

matrix A of Example 7.17 has the four distinct real eigenvalues -3, -1, 1, 3, so it is diagonalizable. The eigenvectors found there are independent (Theorem 7.20), so

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)), and $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(-3, -1, 1, 3)$ (Definition 7.23).

To diagonalize $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$: find the eigenvalues, the roots of p_A; if one of them is not real, A is not diagonalizable (Definition 7.23). For each real eigenvalue c, the special solutions of $(A - cI)x = 0$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - cI)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), and $g_A(c)$ is their number, the number of free unknowns. If $g_A(c) = a_A(c)$ for every eigenvalue c, put these bases into the columns of P and the corresponding eigenvalues, in the same order, on the diagonal of Λ; then $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$ (Lemma 7.24(b), Theorem 4.5(d), Definition 7.23). By Theorem 7.22, only the eigenvalues with $a_A(c) \geqslant 2$ need to be checked.

Example 7.26. Show that

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & -6 & -6 \\ -1 & 4 & 2 \\ 3 & -6 & -4 \end{pmatrix}$$

is diagonalizable, and find an invertible P and a diagonal Λ with $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$.

Solution.

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, subtract column 3 from column 2 and take the factor $t - 2$ out of column 2 (Definition 5.13(b),(a) for columns, Theorem 5.22):

$$\det(tI - A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & 6 & 6 \\ 1 & t-4 & -2 \\ -3 & 6 & t+4 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & 0 & 6 \\ 1 & t-2 & -2 \\ -3 & 2-t & t+4 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$= (t-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & 0 & 6 \\ 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -3 & -1 & t+4 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Add row 2 to row 3 (Definition 5.13(b)) and expand along column 2, whose only nonzero entry is the $(2, 2)$ entry 1 (Theorem 5.21):

$$\det(tI - A) = (t-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & 0 & 6 \\ 1 & 1 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & 6 \\ -2 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2)(t^2 - 3t + 2)$$

  As $t^2 - 3t + 2 = (t-1)(t-2)$, $p_A = (t-1)(t-2)^2$: the eigenvalues are 1, 2, 2, with $a_A(1) = 1$ and $a_A(2) = 2$.

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -6 & -6 \\ -1 & 3 & 2 \\ 3 & -6 & -5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & 2 \\ 4 & -6 & -6 \\ 3 & -6 & -5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 4R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & 2 \\ 0 & 6 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 6 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 3 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $\operatorname{rank}(A - I) = 2$ (Definition 4.11) and $g_A(1) = 1$ (Definition 7.21). The equations $-x_1 + 3x_2 + 2x_3 = 0$, $3x_2 + x_3 = 0$ with $x_3 = 3$ give $x_2 = -1$ and $x_1 = 3$: $\alpha_1 = (3, -1, 3)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - I)$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

- $\lambda = 2$:

$$A - 2I = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -6 & -6 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 \\ 3 & -6 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 2 \\ 3 & -6 & -6 \\ 3 & -6 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $g_A(2) = 3 - 1 = 2$, and the special solutions $\alpha_2 = (2, 1, 0)'$, $\alpha_3 = (2, 0, 1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 2I)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $g_A(1) + g_A(2) = 3$, so A is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25), and $\alpha_1, \alpha_2, \alpha_3$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$ (Lemma 7.24(b), Theorem 4.5(d)). With

$$P = [\alpha_1\ \alpha_2\ \alpha_3] = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 3 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(1, 2, 2), \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 4 & 4 \\ -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = P\Lambda$$

  we have $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$ (Definition 7.23).

Powers and rank of a diagonalizable matrix

Proposition 7.27. Let $A = P\Lambda P^{-1}$ with $P = [p_1\ \cdots\ p_n] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ invertible and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n)$, $\lambda_i \in \mathbb{R}$.

(a) $A^k = P\Lambda^k P^{-1} = P \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^k, \ldots, \lambda_n^k) P^{-1}$ for $k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$; hence, for $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $c = P^{-1}x$,

$$A^k x = c_1 \lambda_1^k p_1 + c_2 \lambda_2^k p_2 + \cdots + c_n \lambda_n^k p_n$$

(b) $f(A) = P f(\Lambda) P^{-1} = P \operatorname{diag}\Big(f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)\Big) P^{-1}$ for every real polynomial f.

(c) A is invertible if and only if every $\lambda_i \neq 0$. Then $A^{-1} = P\Lambda^{-1}P^{-1}$, and for $k \geqslant 1$ the power $A^{-k} = (A^{-1})^k$ equals $P \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^{-k}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-k}) P^{-1}$.

Proof. (a)

- By induction on k: $A^0 = I = P\Lambda^0 P^{-1}$, and if $A^k = P\Lambda^k P^{-1}$, then $A^{k+1} = A^k A = P\Lambda^k P^{-1} P\Lambda P^{-1} = P\Lambda^{k+1} P^{-1}$ (Theorem 1.3).
- $\Lambda^k = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^k, \ldots, \lambda_n^k)$ (Proposition 1.19(d)).
- $A^k x = P\Lambda^k P^{-1} x = P\Lambda^k c$, and $\Lambda^k c = (\lambda_1^k c_1, \ldots, \lambda_n^k c_n)'$ (Proposition 1.13(a)); so $A^k x = \sum_j \lambda_j^k c_j p_j$ (Theorem 1.4(b)).

(b) If $f = \sum_k d_k t^k$, then by (a) and Theorem 1.3, $f(A) = \sum_k d_k P\Lambda^k P^{-1} = P f(\Lambda) P^{-1}$; and $f(\Lambda) = \sum_k d_k \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^k, \ldots, \lambda_n^k) = \operatorname{diag}\Big(f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)\Big)$, entry by entry.

(c)

- The eigenvalues of A are $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ (Definition 7.23), so A is invertible if and only if every $\lambda_i \neq 0$ (Theorem 7.19).
- Then $\Lambda^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^{-1}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-1})$ (Definition 2.12), and $A^{-1} = (P^{-1})^{-1}\Lambda^{-1}P^{-1} = P\Lambda^{-1}P^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)). Applying (a) to $A^{-1} = P\Lambda^{-1}P^{-1}$ gives $A^{-k} = P(\Lambda^{-1})^k P^{-1} = P \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^{-k}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-k}) P^{-1}$. □

Example 7.28. Let

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ -2 & 3 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 3 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Show that 3 and 1 are eigenvalues of B, diagonalize B, and find B^k for $k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$

Solution.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$B - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ -2 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $\operatorname{rank}(B - 3I) = 2 < 4$ (Definition 4.11): 3 is an eigenvalue (Theorem 7.3), with $g_B(3) = 4 - 2 = 2$ (Definition 7.21). The special solutions $p_1 = (-1, 0, 1, 0)'$ and $p_2 = (0, -1, 0, 1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - 3I)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$B - I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ -2 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $\operatorname{rank}(B - I) = 2$: 1 is an eigenvalue with $g_B(1) = 2$, and the special solutions $p_3 = (0, 1, 1, 0)'$ and $p_4 = (-1, -1, 0, 1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - I)$.

- By Lemma 7.24(b), $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ are four independent eigenvectors, a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$ (Theorem 4.5(d)). So $P^{-1}BP = \Lambda$ (Definition 7.23) with

$$P = [p_1\ p_2\ p_3\ p_4] = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(3, 3, 1, 1), \qquad P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Check: $P^{-1}P = I_4$, so this is the inverse (Theorem 2.16); for instance, row 1 of P^{-1} times p_4 is $0 + 1 + 0 - 1 = 0$. The eigenvalues of B, listed with multiplicity, are 3, 3, 1, 1 (Definition 7.23), so $a_B(3) = g_B(3) = 2$ and $a_B(1) = g_B(1) = 2$.

- By Proposition 7.27(a), $B^k = P \operatorname{diag}(3^k, 3^k, 1, 1) P^{-1}$. As $\operatorname{diag}(3^k, 3^k, 1, 1) = 3^k \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 0, 0) + \Big(I_4 - \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 0, 0)\Big)$ and $PP^{-1} = I_4$,

$$B^k = 3^k E + (I_4 - E), \qquad E = P \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 0, 0) P^{-1}$$

For $k = 1$, $B = 3E + I_4 - E = I_4 + 2E$, so $E = \frac{1}{2}(B - I_4)$ and

$$B^k = I_4 + \tfrac{1}{2}(3^k - 1)(B - I_4), \qquad B^2 = I_4 + 4(B - I_4) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 8 & -8 & 8 \\ -8 & 9 & -8 & 0 \\ 0 & -8 & 9 & -8 \\ 8 & -8 & 8 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Proposition 7.29. Let $A = P\Lambda P^{-1}$ with $P = [p_1 \ \cdots \ p_n] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ invertible and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n)$, $\lambda_i \in \mathbb{R}$.

(a) $\operatorname{rank} A$ is the number of indices i with $\lambda_i \neq 0$, and the columns p_i with $\lambda_i \neq 0$ form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$. So $\operatorname{rank} A$ is the number of nonzero eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity.

(b) For every real polynomial f, $f(A)$ is diagonalizable, and its eigenvalues, listed with multiplicity, are $f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)$; hence $\operatorname{tr} f(A) = f(\lambda_1) + \cdots + f(\lambda_n)$ and $\det f(A) = f(\lambda_1) \cdots f(\lambda_n)$. In particular, A^k has the eigenvalues $\lambda_1^k, \ldots, \lambda_n^k$ $(k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots)$, and, if A is invertible, A^{-1} has the eigenvalues $\lambda_1^{-1}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-1}$.

Proof. (a) Let S be the set of indices i with $\lambda_i \neq 0$, and r the number of its elements.

- $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank}(P\Lambda P^{-1}) = \operatorname{rank} \Lambda$ (Theorem 4.15(d)).
- Column i of Λ is $\lambda_i e_i$ (Definition 1.12), which is 0 for $i \notin S$; so the r columns $\lambda_i e_i$, $i \in S$, span $\mathcal{C}(\Lambda)$ (Definition 4.7). They are independent: if $\sum_{i\in S} c_i \lambda_i e_i = 0$, then every $c_i \lambda_i = 0$, as $e_1, \ldots, e_n$ are independent (Definition 3.17), and so $c_i = 0$. Hence $\operatorname{rank} \Lambda = \dim \mathcal{C}(\Lambda) = r$ (Definition 4.11).
- If $r = 0$, then $\Lambda = 0$, so $A = 0$ and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \{0\}$, with the empty basis. Let $r \geqslant 1$, let $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$ consist of the columns p_i, $i \in S$, and let Δ be the $r \times r$ diagonal matrix of the corresponding λ_i. As $Ap_i = \lambda_i p_i$ (Definition 7.23), $AX = X\Delta$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). Δ is invertible (Definition 2.12), so $X = AX\Delta^{-1} = A(X\Delta^{-1})$, and $\mathcal{C}(X) \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$ (Theorem 4.15(a)).
- The columns of X are columns of the invertible P, hence independent (Example 3.19, Proposition 3.13(b)). So $\dim \mathcal{C}(X) = r = \operatorname{rank} A = \dim \mathcal{C}(A)$, and $\mathcal{C}(X) = \mathcal{C}(A)$ (Theorem 4.5(a)): the columns of X form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(A)$.
- The eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ (Definition 7.23).

(b)

- By Proposition 7.27(b), $f(A) = Pf(\Lambda)P^{-1}$, that is, $P^{-1}f(A)P = f(\Lambda)$, with $f(\Lambda) = \operatorname{diag}\big(f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)\big)$. So $f(A)$ is diagonalizable, and its eigenvalues, listed with multiplicity, are $f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)$ (Definition 7.23).
- Theorem 7.19 gives the trace and the determinant; $f = t^k$ gives the statement on A^k.
- If A is invertible, then $P^{-1}A^{-1}P = \Lambda^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^{-1}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-1})$ (Proposition 7.27(c)), and Definition 7.23 gives the eigenvalues of A^{-1}. □

Orthogonal triangularization

Theorem 7.30 (Schur triangularization)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and let all eigenvalues of A be real, listed with multiplicity in any order as $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$. Then $A = QTQ'$, where $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is orthogonal and $T \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$, in this order.

Proof. Induction on n; for $n = 1$, $A = (\lambda_1) = I_1(\lambda_1)I_1'$. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

- λ_1 is a real eigenvalue, so $Ax = \lambda_1 x$ for some $x \neq 0$ (Definition 7.10). Then $u = x/\|x\|$ has $u'u = 1$ and $Au = \lambda_1 u$. By Corollary 6.15(c) (with $p = 1$), there is $V \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times(n-1)}$ such that $Q_1 = [u\ V]$ is orthogonal; comparing blocks in $Q_1'Q_1 = I_n$ (Theorem 5.3(b),(c)) gives $V'u = 0$.
- By Theorem 5.3(b),(c) and $Au = \lambda_1 u$,

$$Q_1'AQ_1 = \begin{pmatrix} u'Au & u'AV \\ V'Au & V'AV \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \lambda_1 & b' \\ 0 & A_1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad b' = u'AV, \qquad A_1 = V'AV \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$$

- $Q_1' = Q_1^{-1}$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), so A and $Q_1'AQ_1$ have the same eigenvalues (Theorem 7.15(a)); by Proposition 7.16(a) these are λ_1 together with the eigenvalues of A_1. By Theorem 7.9(b), the eigenvalues of A_1, listed with multiplicity, are $\lambda_2, \dots, \lambda_n$, all real.
- By the induction hypothesis, $A_1 = Q_2T_2Q_2'$ with $Q_2 \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$ orthogonal and T_2 upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_2, \dots, \lambda_n$; so $Q_2'A_1Q_2 = T_2$. Let $S = \operatorname{diag}(1, Q_2)$. Then $S'S = \operatorname{diag}(1, Q_2'Q_2) = I_n$ (Theorem 5.3(b), Proposition 5.6(b)), so S is orthogonal, and so is $Q = Q_1S$ (Theorem 6.19(b)). As $Q' = S'Q_1'$ (Theorem 1.9), Theorem 5.3(c) gives

$$Q'AQ = S'(Q_1'AQ_1)S = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & Q_2' \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} \lambda_1 & b' \\ 0 & A_1 \end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & Q_2 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \lambda_1 & b'Q_2 \\ 0 & T_2 \end{pmatrix}$$

  an upper triangular matrix T with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$. As $QQ' = I_n$, $A = Q(Q'AQ)Q' = QTQ'$. □

Conversely, if $A = QTQ'$ with Q orthogonal and T upper triangular, then A is similar to T, as $Q' = Q^{-1}$, and its eigenvalues are the diagonal entries of T (Theorem 7.15(a), Proposition 7.16(b)), which are real. So such a factorization exists exactly when all eigenvalues of A are real; the matrix of Example 7.12 has none.

Example 7.31. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad G = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q = \tfrac{1}{2}G$$

Every row of A adds up to 4, so $A\mathbf{1}_4 = 4\mathbf{1}_4$, and $u = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{1}_4$, the first column of Q, has $u'u = 1$ and $Au = 4u$. The columns of G are orthogonal and have squared length 4 (for instance, columns 2 and 3 give $1 - 1 - 1 + 1 = 0$), so $G'G = 4I_4$ and $Q'Q = I_4$: $Q = [u\ V]$ is an orthogonal matrix as in the first step of the proof of Theorem 7.30. As $G' = G$,

$$AG = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 0 & -2 \\ 4 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 4 & -2 & 0 & 2 \\ 4 & -2 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q'AQ = \tfrac{1}{4}G(AG) = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = T$$

In the notation of that proof, $\lambda_1 = 4$, $b' = (0, -1, 0)$, and $A_1 = V'AV$ is already upper triangular, so the induction stops after one step. Hence $A = QTQ'$, and the eigenvalues of A are 4, 2, 1,

-1 (Theorem 7.15(a), Proposition 7.16(b)); $\operatorname{tr} T = 6 = \operatorname{tr} A$ and $\det T = -8 = \det A$. As these four eigenvalues are real and distinct, A is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25); but no orthogonal Q_0 makes $Q_0' A Q_0$ diagonal: if $Q_0' A Q_0 = \Lambda$, then $A = Q_0 \Lambda Q_0'$ (as $Q_0 Q_0' = I$, Proposition 6.13(b)) and $(Q_0 \Lambda Q_0')' = Q_0 \Lambda' Q_0' = Q_0 \Lambda Q_0'$ (Theorem 1.9), while A is not symmetric ($a_{12} = 2 \neq 1 = a_{21}$).

Corollary 7.32. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, and let all eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ of A, listed with multiplicity, be real.

(a) For every real polynomial f, the eigenvalues of $f(A)$, listed with multiplicity, are $f(\lambda_1), \dots, f(\lambda_n)$. In particular $\operatorname{tr} A^k = \lambda_1^k + \cdots + \lambda_n^k$ for $k = 0, 1, 2, \dots$

(b) If A is invertible, the eigenvalues of A^{-1}, listed with multiplicity, are $\lambda_1^{-1}, \dots, \lambda_n^{-1}$.

Proof. Let $A = QTQ'$ as in Theorem 7.30: $Q' = Q^{-1}$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), and T is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$.

(a)

- $A^k = QT^kQ'$ for $k = 0, 1, 2, \dots$, by induction: $A^0 = I = QQ'$, and $A^{k+1} = A^k A = QT^kQ'QTQ' = QT^{k+1}Q'$ (Theorem 1.3). So, for $f = \sum_k c_k t^k$, $f(A) = \sum_k c_k QT^kQ' = Qf(T)Q'$.
- T^k is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1^k, \dots, \lambda_n^k$ (Proposition 1.19(e)); adding multiples of these matrices entry by entry, $f(T)$ is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $f(\lambda_1), \dots, f(\lambda_n)$.
- $f(A)$ is similar to $f(T)$, so by Theorem 7.15(a) and Proposition 7.16(b) its eigenvalues are $f(\lambda_1), \dots, f(\lambda_n)$. For $f = t^k$, Theorem 7.19 gives $\operatorname{tr} A^k = \lambda_1^k + \cdots + \lambda_n^k$.

(b) 0 is not an eigenvalue of A (Theorem 7.19), so every $\lambda_i \neq 0$; hence T is invertible, and T^{-1} is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1^{-1}, \dots, \lambda_n^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.31). Then $A^{-1} = (Q')^{-1} T^{-1} Q^{-1} = QT^{-1}Q'$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)), so A^{-1} is similar to T^{-1}; conclude as in (a). □

Proposition 7.29(b) gives (a) for a diagonalizable A; here A need not be diagonalizable. For the matrix A of Example 7.17, with the eigenvalues -3, -1, 1, 3,

$$A^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & -4 & 0 & 8 \\ -4 & 5 & 8 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 5 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 5 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \operatorname{tr} A^2 = 20 = (-3)^2 + (-1)^2 + 1^2 + 3^2$$

and, as $\det A = 9 \neq 0$ (Example 7.17), A^{-1} has the eigenvalues $-\frac{1}{3}$, -1, 1, $\frac{1}{3}$ (part (b)).

The products AB and BA

Theorem 7.33. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times m}$ with $m \leqslant n$.

(a) $p_{BA}(t) = t^{n-m} p_{AB}(t)$; in particular $p_{BA} = p_{AB}$ if $m = n$.

(b) The eigenvalues of BA, listed with multiplicity, are those of AB together with $n - m$ zeros. So AB and BA have the same nonzero eigenvalues, with the same algebraic multiplicities.

(c) $g_{AB}(c) = g_{BA}(c)$ for every real $c \neq 0$. More precisely, if $c \neq 0$ is a real eigenvalue of AB and the columns of $X \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times g}$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(AB - cI_m)$, then the g columns of BX are linearly independent eigenvectors of BA belonging to c.

Proof. (a)

- Let $t \in \mathbb{R}$, $t \neq 0$. Theorem 5.32(a), with I_n, I_m, $-t^{-1}B$ and A in place of its A, T, U and V, gives

$$\det(I_n - t^{-1}BA) = \det I_n \cdot \det I_m \cdot \det(I_m - t^{-1}AB) = \det(I_m - t^{-1}AB)$$

- By Theorem 5.18(c), $\det(tI_n - BA) = t^n \det(I_n - t^{-1}BA)$ and $\det(tI_m - AB) = t^m \det(I_m - t^{-1}AB)$. Hence $\det(tI_n - BA) = t^{n-m}\det(tI_m - AB)$.
- So p_{BA} and $t^{n-m}p_{AB}$ have the same value at every real $t \neq 0$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(b)), and they are equal (Proposition 7.5(d)).

(b) If $p_{AB} = (t-\mu_1)\cdots(t-\mu_m)$ (Definition 7.10), then by (a) $p_{BA} = (t-0)^{n-m}(t-\mu_1)\cdots(t-\mu_m)$, a product of n linear factors. By Theorem 7.9(b), the eigenvalues of BA are $\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_m$ and $n-m$ zeros; so $a_{BA}(c) = a_{AB}(c)$ for every $c \neq 0$.

(c)

- If c is not an eigenvalue of AB, then by (b) it is not one of BA, and both geometric multiplicities are 0 (Definition 7.21).
- Let $c \neq 0$ be a real eigenvalue of AB, $g = g_{AB}(c)$, and let $X \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times g}$ have a basis of $\mathcal{N}(AB - cI_m)$ as its columns. Then $\operatorname{rank} X = g$ (Theorem 4.13(b)) and $ABX = cX$ (Theorem 1.4(a)).
- By Theorem 4.15(a),(d), $g = \operatorname{rank} X \geqslant \operatorname{rank}(BX) \geqslant \operatorname{rank}(ABX) = \operatorname{rank}(cX) = g$, as $cX = X(cI_g)$ with cI_g invertible. So the g columns of BX are independent (Theorem 4.13(b)).
- $BA(BX) = B(ABX) = cBX$: the columns of BX lie in $\mathcal{N}(BA - cI_n)$. Being independent, they are nonzero (Proposition 3.13(a)), so they are eigenvectors of BA belonging to c, and $g_{BA}(c) \geqslant g$ (Theorem 4.5(c)).
- The argument does not use $m \leqslant n$; with the roles of A and B exchanged it gives $g_{AB}(c) \geqslant g_{BA}(c)$. □

Example 7.34. For $n \geqslant 2$, take $A = \mathbf{1}_n' \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$ and $B = \mathbf{1}_n \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$ in Theorem 7.33 ($m = 1$): $AB = \mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1} = n$ and $BA = \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = J_n$ (Definition 1.14, Proposition 1.15). So $p_{J_n}(t) = t^{n-1}(t-n)$: the eigenvalues of J_n are n (simple) and 0 ($n-1$ times). Indeed $J_n\mathbf{1} = \mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'\mathbf{1}) = n\mathbf{1}$, and $J_n x = \mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'x) = 0$ for every centered x, that is, $\mathbf{1}'x = 0$ (Example 3.5(f)).

Example 7.35. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A'A = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AA' = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Find the eigenvalues of $A'A$ and AA', and an eigenvector for each.

Solution.

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, expanding along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

  $$\det(tI_3 - A'A) = \det\begin{pmatrix} t-3 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & t-2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & t-3 \end{pmatrix} = (t-3)\Big((t-2)(t-3)-1\Big) - (t-3) = (t-3)(t^2-5t+4)$$

  So $p_{A'A} = (t-1)(t-3)(t-4)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)). Theorem 7.33(a), with $A' \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 4}$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 3}$ in place of A and B ($m = 3$, $n = 4$), gives $p_{AA'} = t^{4-3}p_{A'A} = t(t-1)(t-3)(t-4)$.
- Multiplying out, $A'A(1,1,1)' = (4,4,4)'$, $A'A(-1,0,1)' = (-3,0,3)'$ and $A'A(1,-2,1)' = (1,-2,1)'$: these are eigenvectors of $A'A$ belonging to 4, 3 and 1. Each of these eigenvalues is simple, so its eigenspace has dimension 1 (Theorem 7.22), and the vector found is a basis of it (Theorem 4.5(d)). By Theorem 7.33(c), the vectors

  $$A\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \\ 2 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A\begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -2 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 \\ 2 \\ -1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  are eigenvectors of AA' belonging to 4, 3 and 1; for instance $AA'(-1,0,1,2)' = (-3,0,3,6)'$.

- The eigenvalue 0 of AA' has the eigenspace $\mathcal{N}(AA') = \mathcal{N}(A')$ (Theorem 4.18(a), applied to A'). Row-reduce A':

$$A' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $\operatorname{rank} A' = 3$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A') = 1$ (Definition 4.11, Theorem 4.12). With $x_4 = 1$, back substitution gives $x_3 = -1$, $x_2 = 0$ and $x_1 = 1$; so $(1, 0, -1, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(AA')$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

Corollary 7.36. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ have rank r. Then $a_A(0) \geqslant n - r$: at most r of the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are nonzero. If A is diagonalizable, exactly r of them are nonzero.

Proof. • If $r = 0$, then $A = 0$ and $p_A = t^n$ (Proposition 7.16(b)), so $a_A(0) = n$.

- Let $r \geqslant 1$, and let $A = BC$ be a full-rank factorization, with $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times r}$ and $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times n}$ (Theorem 4.21(a)); here $r \leqslant n$ (Theorem 4.13(a)). Theorem 7.33(a), applied to $C \in \mathbb{R}^{r \times n}$ and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times r}$ in place of A and B, gives $p_A = p_{BC} = t^{n-r} p_{CB}$.
- By Theorem 7.33(b), the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are the r eigenvalues of the $r \times r$ matrix CB together with $n - r$ zeros. So at most r of them are nonzero, and $a_A(0) \geqslant n - r$.
- If A is diagonalizable, exactly r of them are nonzero, by Proposition 7.29(a). □

Example 7.37. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Find $\operatorname{rank} A$, a full-rank factorization $A = BC$, the eigenvalues of A, and compare $\operatorname{rank} A$ with the number of nonzero eigenvalues.

Solution.

- Row-reduce A to its RREF R:

$$\begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The pivot columns are columns 1 and 2, so $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$ (Definition 4.11). By Theorem 4.21(a), $A = BC$ with

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CB = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -3 \\ 2 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

- By Definition 7.7(b), $p_{CB} = t^2 - 5t + (-6 + 6) = t(t - 5)$, and, as in the proof of Corollary 7.36, $p_A = t^{3-2} p_{CB} = t^2(t - 5)$. So the eigenvalues of A are 0, 0, 5: $a_A(0) = 2$, and only one eigenvalue is nonzero, although $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$.
- Hence A is not diagonalizable (Proposition 7.29(a)). Indeed $g_A(0) = 3 - \operatorname{rank} A = 1 < 2 = a_A(0)$ (Definition 7.21, Theorem 7.25).
- Check: $\operatorname{tr} A = -1 + 2 + 4 = 5 = 0 + 0 + 5$ and $\det A = 0 = 0 \cdot 0 \cdot 5$ (Theorem 7.19), as $\operatorname{rank} A < 3$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

The Cayley–Hamilton theorem

Theorem 7.38 (Cayley–Hamilton)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $p_A(t) = c_0 + c_1 t + \cdots + c_n t^n$ (so $c_n = 1$). Then

$$p_A(A) = c_0 I + c_1 A + \cdots + c_n A^n = 0$$

Proof. For $n = 1$, $A = (a)$, $p_A = t - a$ and $p_A(A) = A - aI_1 = 0$. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, the (i, j) entry of $\operatorname{adj}(tI - A)$ is the cofactor $(-1)^{i+j} \det\big((tI - A)(j|i)\big)$ (Definition 5.20, Theorem 5.24). Every entry of the $(n-1) \times (n-1)$ matrix $(tI - A)(j|i)$ is an entry $\delta_{rs}t - a_{rs}$ of $tI - A$; by Lemma 7.6 (with $m = d = n - 1$) and Proposition 7.5(b), the cofactor is the value at t of a real polynomial h_{ij} that is 0 or of degree at most $n - 1$. Writing $h_{ij} = \sum_{s=0}^{n-1} k_{ij}^{(s)} t^s$ and $K_s = (k_{ij}^{(s)}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$,

$$\operatorname{adj}(tI - A) = K_0 + tK_1 + \cdots + t^{n-1}K_{n-1} \qquad (t \in \mathbb{R})$$

- By Theorem 5.24, which holds for every matrix, and Definition 7.7(a), $(tI - A)\operatorname{adj}(tI - A) = p_A(t)I$ for every real t. By Theorem 1.3 the left side is

$$(tI - A)\sum_{s=0}^{n-1} t^s K_s = T_0 + tT_1 + \cdots + t^n T_n$$

  with $T_0 = -AK_0$, $T_s = K_{s-1} - AK_s$ $(1 \leqslant s \leqslant n - 1)$ and $T_n = K_{n-1}$. So for each (i, j) the polynomials $\sum_s (T_s)_{ij} t^s$ and $\delta_{ij} p_A$ have the same value at every real t; by Proposition 7.5(d), their coefficients agree: $T_s = c_s I$ for $0 \leqslant s \leqslant n$.

- Hence

$$\begin{aligned} p_A(A) &= \sum_{s=0}^{n} A^s (c_s I) = \sum_{s=0}^{n} A^s T_s = -AK_0 + \sum_{s=1}^{n-1}\Big(A^s K_{s-1} - A^{s+1}K_s\Big) + A^n K_{n-1} \\ &= \sum_{s=1}^{n} A^s K_{s-1} - \sum_{s=0}^{n-1} A^{s+1} K_s = 0 \end{aligned}$$

  since the two sums are the same (replace s by $s - 1$ in the second). □

Corollary 7.39. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $p_A(t) = c_0 + c_1 t + \cdots + c_n t^n$ (so $c_n = 1$).

(a) $A^n = -(c_0 I + c_1 A + \cdots + c_{n-1} A^{n-1})$, and every power A^k $(k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots)$ is a linear combination of $I, A, \ldots, A^{n-1}$.

(b) If A is invertible, then $c_0 \neq 0$ and

$$A^{-1} = -\frac{1}{c_0}\big(c_1 I + c_2 A + \cdots + c_n A^{n-1}\big)$$

Proof. (a)

- By Theorem 7.38, $c_0 I + c_1 A + \cdots + c_{n-1} A^{n-1} + A^n = 0$, which is the formula for A^n.
- For $k \leqslant n - 1$, A^k is one of $I, A, \ldots, A^{n-1}$. Let $k \geqslant n - 1$ and $A^k = b_0 I + b_1 A + \cdots + b_{n-1} A^{n-1}$. Then $A^{k+1} = A^k A = b_0 A + \cdots + b_{n-2} A^{n-1} + b_{n-1} A^n$ (Theorem 1.3), and replacing A^n by the first item gives a linear combination of $I, A, \ldots, A^{n-1}$. By induction on k, this holds for every k.

(b)

- $c_0 = (-1)^n \det A$ (Definition 7.7(b)), which is nonzero, as A is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)).

- Multiplying $c_0I+c_1A+\cdots+c_nA^n=0$ (Theorem 7.38) by A^{-1} gives $c_0A^{-1}+c_1I+c_2A+\cdots+c_nA^{n-1}=0$; dividing by c_0 gives the formula. □

Example 7.40. Let A be the matrix of Example 7.2,

$$A=\begin{pmatrix}1&2&-2&-2\\-1&0&-2&2\\0&-1&-1&1\\-1&2&-2&0\end{pmatrix}$$

Find p_A, check Theorem 7.38, and use Corollary 7.39 to find A^{-1} and A^4.

Solution.

- By Example 7.2, 1, -1, 2 and -2 are eigenvalues of A, that is, roots of p_A (Definition 7.7(a)). The eigenvalues $\lambda_1,\dots,\lambda_4$ of A, listed with multiplicity, are the roots of p_A (Definition 7.10, Theorem 7.9(c)), so each of the four distinct numbers 1, -1, 2, -2 occurs among them, and there is no room for more. Hence

  $$p_A=(t-1)(t+1)(t-2)(t+2)=(t^2-1)(t^2-4)=t^4-5t^2+4$$

  and $c_0=4$, $c_1=0$, $c_2=-5$, $c_3=0$, $c_4=1$.

- Multiplying out,

  $$A^2=\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\-3&4&0&0\\0&3&1&-3\\-3&0&0&4\end{pmatrix},\qquad A^4=(A^2)^2=\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\-15&16&0&0\\0&15&1&-15\\-15&0&0&16\end{pmatrix}$$

  and entry by entry, $p_A(A)=A^4-5A^2+4I=0$.

- As $c_0=(-1)^4\det A$ (Definition 7.7(b)), $\det A=4\neq 0$, and A is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)). With

  $$A^3=A^2A=\begin{pmatrix}1&2&-2&-2\\-7&-6&-2&14\\0&-7&-1&7\\-7&2&-2&6\end{pmatrix}$$

  Corollary 7.39(b) gives

  $$A^{-1}=-\frac14\big(c_1I+c_2A+c_3A^2+c_4A^3\big)=\frac14(5A-A^3)=\frac12\begin{pmatrix}2&4&-4&-4\\1&3&-4&-2\\0&1&-2&-1\\1&4&-4&-3\end{pmatrix}$$

  Check: row 1 of AA^{-1} is $\frac12(2+2+0-2,\ 4+6-2-8,\ -4-8+4+8,\ -4-4+2+6)=(1,0,0,0)$, and likewise rows 2, 3, 4 are e_2', e_3', e_4'.

- By Corollary 7.39(a), $A^4=-(c_0I+c_1A+c_2A^2+c_3A^3)=5A^2-4I$, as found above; then $A^5=5A^3-4A$, and every power of A is a linear combination of I, A, A^2, A^3.

Exercises

Exercise 7.1. Find the characteristic polynomial and the eigenvalues of each matrix, and check the trace and the determinant against the eigenvalues (Theorem 7.19).

$$\text{(a)}\ \ A=\begin{pmatrix}1&-2&-3&-1\\0&-1&-3&-1\\0&0&2&1\\2&-2&0&3\end{pmatrix},\qquad \text{(b)}\ \ B=\begin{pmatrix}0&1&0&1\\-1&1&1&1\\-1&3&-1&1\\-1&2&-3&4\end{pmatrix},\qquad \text{(c)}\ \ M=\begin{pmatrix}2&1&1&-1\\4&-1&2&0\\0&0&0&1\\0&0&-2&3\end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. (a)

- For $t\in\mathbb{R}$, row 3 of $tI-A$ is $(0,\ 0,\ t-2,\ -1)$; expanding along it (Theorem 5.21),

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI-A)&=\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&2&3&1\\0&t+1&3&1\\0&0&t-2&-1\\-2&2&0&t-3\end{pmatrix}\\&=(t-2)\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&2&1\\0&t+1&1\\-2&2&t-3\end{pmatrix}+\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&2&3\\0&t+1&3\\-2&2&0\end{pmatrix}\end{aligned}$$

- Expanding the first 3×3 determinant along column 1 and the second along row 3,

$$\begin{aligned}\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&2&1\\0&t+1&1\\-2&2&t-3\end{pmatrix}&=(t-1)\Big((t+1)(t-3)-2\Big)-2\Big(2-(t+1)\Big)\\&=(t-1)(t^2-2t-5)+2(t-1)\\&=(t-1)(t^2-2t-3)=(t-1)(t+1)(t-3)\end{aligned}$$

$$\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&2&3\\0&t+1&3\\-2&2&0\end{pmatrix}=-2\Big(6-3(t+1)\Big)-2\cdot3(t-1)=(6t-6)-(6t-6)=0$$

  So $\det(tI-A)=(t-2)(t-1)(t+1)(t-3)$, and $p_A=(t+1)(t-1)(t-2)(t-3)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)): the eigenvalues are -1, 1, 2, 3.

- $\operatorname{tr}A=1-1+2+3=5=-1+1+2+3$. Expanding $\det A$ along row 3 in the same way, and the two 3×3 determinants along column 1,

$$\det A=2\det\begin{pmatrix}1&-2&-1\\0&-1&-1\\2&-2&3\end{pmatrix}-\det\begin{pmatrix}1&-2&-3\\0&-1&-3\\2&-2&0\end{pmatrix}=2\Big((-3-2)+2(2-1)\Big)-\Big((0-6)+2(6-3)\Big)=-6$$

  and $-6=(-1)\cdot1\cdot2\cdot3$.

(b)

- Every row of B has the sum 2. For $t\in\mathbb{R}$, add columns 2, 3 and 4 of $tI-B$ to column 1, and take the factor $t-2$ out of column 1 (Definition 5.13(b),(a) for columns, Theorem 5.22):

$$\det(tI-B)=\det\begin{pmatrix}t&-1&0&-1\\1&t-1&-1&-1\\1&-3&t+1&-1\\1&-2&3&t-4\end{pmatrix}=\det\begin{pmatrix}t-2&-1&0&-1\\t-2&t-1&-1&-1\\t-2&-3&t+1&-1\\t-2&-2&3&t-4\end{pmatrix}$$

$$=(t-2)\det\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&-1\\1&t-1&-1&-1\\1&-3&t+1&-1\\1&-2&3&t-4\end{pmatrix}$$

- Subtract row 1 from rows 2, 3 and 4 (Definition 5.13(b)), expand along column 1, and then along column 3 (Theorem 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI-B) &= (t-2)\det\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&0&-1\\0&t&-1&0\\0&-2&t+1&0\\0&-1&3&t-3\end{pmatrix} = (t-2)\det\begin{pmatrix}t&-1&0\\-2&t+1&0\\-1&3&t-3\end{pmatrix}\\ &= (t-2)(t-3)(t^2+t-2)\end{aligned}$$

  So $p_B = (t-2)(t-3)(t+2)(t-1)$, and the eigenvalues are -2, 1, 2, 3.

- $\operatorname{tr} B = 0+1-1+4 = 4 = -2+1+2+3$. Expanding $\det B$ along row 1, and the two 3×3 determinants along column 1,

$$\det B = -\det\begin{pmatrix}-1&1&1\\-1&-1&1\\-1&-3&4\end{pmatrix} - \det\begin{pmatrix}-1&1&1\\-1&3&-1\\-1&2&-3\end{pmatrix} = -(1+7-2)-(7-5+4) = -12$$

  and $-12 = (-2)\cdot 1\cdot 2\cdot 3$.

(c)

- $M = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}M_1 & M_2\\ 0 & M_3\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is block upper triangular, with $M_1 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&1\\4&-1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $M_3 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}0&1\\-2&3\end{smallmatrix}\right)$. By Definition 7.7(b) ($n=2$), $p_{M_1} = t^2-t-6 = (t-3)(t+2)$ and $p_{M_3} = t^2-3t+2 = (t-1)(t-2)$.
- By Proposition 7.16(a), $p_M = p_{M_1}p_{M_3} = (t-3)(t+2)(t-1)(t-2)$: the eigenvalues are -2, 1, 2, 3.
- $\operatorname{tr} M = 2-1+0+3 = 4 = -2+1+2+3$, and $\det M = \det M_1 \det M_3 = (-6)\cdot 2 = -12 = (-2)\cdot 1\cdot 2\cdot 3$ (Theorem 5.29).

Exercise 7.2. Find the eigenvalues of

$$B = \begin{pmatrix}3&1&0&-1\\0&1&0&0\\0&1&3&0\\-1&0&1&3\end{pmatrix}$$

and a basis of each eigenspace. Check that the coefficient of t^3 in $p_B(t)$ is $-\operatorname{tr} B$ and that the constant term is $\det B$.

Solution. For $t\in\mathbb{R}$, row 2 of $tI_4 - B$ is $(0,\ t-1,\ 0,\ 0)$. Expanding along it, and then the remaining 3×3 determinant (rows and columns 1, 3, 4) along its second row $(0,\ t-3,\ 0)$ (Theorem 5.21),

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI_4-B) &= (t-1)\det\begin{pmatrix}t-3&0&1\\0&t-3&0\\1&-1&t-3\end{pmatrix} = (t-1)(t-3)\det\begin{pmatrix}t-3&1\\1&t-3\end{pmatrix}\\ &= (t-1)(t-3)(t-2)(t-4)\end{aligned}$$

So $p_B = (t-1)(t-2)(t-3)(t-4)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)), and multiplying out, $p_B = t^4-10t^3+35t^2-50t+24$. Here $\operatorname{tr} B = 3+1+3+3 = 10$, and expanding $\det B$ in the same way, $\det B = 1\cdot 3\cdot(9-1) = 24$; so the coefficient of t^3 is $-\operatorname{tr} B$ and the constant term is $(-1)^4\det B$, as Definition 7.7(b) says. The eigenvalues are 1, 2, 3, 4 (Definition 7.7(a)).

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$B - I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{3}R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 3R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(1, -2, 1, 0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - I_4)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 2$:

$$B - 2I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(1, 0, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - 2I_4)$.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$B - 3I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3]{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(1, 0, 1, 0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - 3I_4)$.

- $\lambda = 4$:

$$B - 4I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{3}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(-1, 0, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - 4I_4)$.

Check: $B(1, -2, 1, 0)' = (1, -2, 1, 0)'$ and $B(-1, 0, 0, 1)' = (-4, 0, 0, 4)'$. Also $1+2+3+4 = 10 = \operatorname{tr} B$ and $1 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 \cdot 4 = 24 = \det B$ (Theorem 7.19).

Exercise 7.3. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the eigenvalues of A and a basis of each eigenspace.

(b) Do the same for B.

(c) Find an invertible P and a diagonal Λ with $AP = P\Lambda$, and an invertible Q and a diagonal Δ with $BQ = Q\Delta$; check both equations by multiplying out.

Solution. (a)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, row 2 of $tI - A$ is $(0,\ t-3,\ 0,\ 0)$; expanding along it, and then along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - A) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t & 0 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & t-3 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & t-1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-3) \det \begin{pmatrix} t & -2 & 1 \\ -1 & t-1 & 1 \\ 2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-3)\Big(t\Big((t-1)^2 + 2\Big) + 2\Big(-(t-1) - 2\Big) + \Big(2 - 2(t-1)\Big)\Big) \\ &= (t-3)\Big(t^3 - 2t^2 + 3t - 2t - 2 + 4 - 2t\Big) \\ &= (t-3)(t^3 - 2t^2 - t + 2) = (t-3)(t-2)(t^2-1) \end{aligned}$$

  So $p_A = (t+1)(t-1)(t-2)(t-3)$: the eigenvalues are -1, 1, 2, 3.

- $\lambda = -1$:

$$A + I = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 6 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 6 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 6 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 6 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{6} R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The special solution $(1, 0, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A + I)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1,\ R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The special solution $(1, 0, 1, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - I)$.

- $\lambda = 2$:

$$A - 2I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & -2 & 0 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{3} R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 3R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The special solution $(1, 0, 1, 0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 2I)$.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$A - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & -4 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{4}R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(-1, -1, -1, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 3I)$.

(b)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, row 3 of $tI - B$ is $(0,\ 0,\ t-1,\ 0)$; expanding along it, and then along row 1,

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - B) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & t-1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & t-1 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & t-1 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-1)\Big((t-1)\Big((t-1)^2 - 4\Big) - 2\Big(-2(t-1) + 4\Big) + 2\Big(4 - 2(t-1)\Big)\Big) \\ &= (t-1)\Big((t-1)(t-3)(t+1) + 4(t-1) - 8 + 8 - 4(t-1)\Big) \\ &= (t-1)^2(t-3)(t+1) \end{aligned}$$

  So $p_B = (t-1)^2(t-3)(t+1)$: the eigenvalues are 1, 1, 3, -1, with $a_B(1) = 2$.

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$B - I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The free unknowns are x_3, x_4; the special solutions $(-1, -1, 1, 0)'$, $(-1, -1, 0, 1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - I)$, and $g_B(1) = 2$.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$B - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & -4 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{4} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 4R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2} R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2} R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(-1, 0, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B - 3I)$.

- $\lambda = -1$:

$$B + I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 4 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $(0, -1, 0, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B + I)$.

(c)

- The four eigenvectors of A belong to distinct eigenvalues, so they are independent (Theorem 7.20), and P below is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)):

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(-1, 1, 2, 3), \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 2 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -3 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = P\Lambda$$

- The bases of $\mathcal{N}(B - I)$, $\mathcal{N}(B - 3I)$ and $\mathcal{N}(B + I)$ together are independent (Lemma 7.24(b)), so Q below is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)):

$$Q = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \Delta = \operatorname{diag}(1, 1, 3, -1), \qquad BQ = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & -3 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = Q\Delta$$

Exercise 7.4. Find the characteristic polynomial, the eigenvalues, and a basis of each eigenspace of

$$\text{(a)}\ \ A=\begin{pmatrix}4&0&1\\-2&1&0\\-2&0&1\end{pmatrix},\qquad \text{(b)}\ \ B=\begin{pmatrix}1&-3&3\\3&-5&3\\6&-6&4\end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. (a)

- For $t\in\mathbb{R}$, expanding along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det(tI-A)=\det\begin{pmatrix}t-4&0&-1\\2&t-1&0\\2&0&t-1\end{pmatrix}=(t-4)(t-1)^2-\det\begin{pmatrix}2&t-1\\2&0\end{pmatrix}=(t-4)(t-1)^2+2(t-1)$$

  So $p_A=(t-1)\Big((t-4)(t-1)+2\Big)=(t-1)(t^2-5t+6)=(t-1)(t-2)(t-3)$: the eigenvalues are 1, 2, 3.

- $Ax=\lambda x$ reads $4x_1+x_3=\lambda x_1$, $-2x_1+x_2=\lambda x_2$, $-2x_1+x_3=\lambda x_3$.
- $\lambda=1$: $3x_1+x_3=0$ and $-2x_1=0$; so $x_1=x_3=0$, x_2 is free, and $(0,1,0)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-I)$.
- $\lambda=2$: $2x_1+x_3=0$, $-2x_1-x_2=0$, $-2x_1-x_3=0$; so $x_3=-2x_1$ and $x_2=-2x_1$, and $(1,-2,-2)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-2I)$.
- $\lambda=3$: $x_1+x_3=0$, $-2x_1-2x_2=0$, $-2x_1-2x_3=0$; so $x_3=-x_1$ and $x_2=-x_1$, and $(1,-1,-1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-3I)$.

(b)

- For $t\in\mathbb{R}$, expanding along row 1,

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI-B)&=\det\begin{pmatrix}t-1&3&-3\\-3&t+5&-3\\-6&6&t-4\end{pmatrix}\\&=(t-1)\Big((t+5)(t-4)+18\Big)-3\Big(-3(t-4)-18\Big)-3\Big(-18+6(t+5)\Big)\\&=(t-1)(t^2+t-2)+9(t+2)-18(t+2)=(t+2)\Big((t-1)^2-9\Big)=(t+2)^2(t-4)\end{aligned}$$

  So $p_B=t^3-12t-16=(t+2)^2(t-4)$: the eigenvalues are -2, -2, 4.

- $\lambda=-2$: $Bx=-2x$ reads $3x_1-3x_2+3x_3=0$, $3x_1-3x_2+3x_3=0$, $6x_1-6x_2+6x_3=0$, that is, $x_1-x_2+x_3=0$. Every row of $B+2I$ is a multiple of $(1,-1,1)$, so the row space of $B+2I$ is $\operatorname{span}\{(1,-1,1)\}$, $\operatorname{rank}(B+2I)=1$ (Definition 4.11) and $\dim\mathcal{N}(B+2I)=2$ (Theorem 4.12). The solutions $(1,0,-1)'$ and $(0,1,1)'$ are not multiples of each other, so they are independent (Proposition 3.13(c)) and form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B+2I)$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).
- $\lambda=4$: $-3x_1-3x_2+3x_3=0$, $3x_1-9x_2+3x_3=0$, $6x_1-6x_2=0$; so $x_2=x_1$, then $x_3=2x_1$ by the first equation, and the second holds: $(1,1,2)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(B-4I)$.

Exercise 7.5. Let

$$A=\begin{pmatrix}3&0&0&2\\-2&1&0&-2\\0&-3&2&1\\-2&2&0&-1\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_A and all eigenvalues of A, and check Theorem 7.19.

(b) Find the eigenspace of each real eigenvalue. Is A diagonalizable?

Solution. (a)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 3 of $tI - A$ has the entry $t-2$ in position $(3,3)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it, and then along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI-A) &= \det\begin{pmatrix} t-3 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & t-1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & t-2 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2)\det\begin{pmatrix} t-3 & 0 & -2 \\ 2 & t-1 & 2 \\ 2 & -2 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-2)\Big((t-3)\big((t-1)(t+1)+4\big) - 2\big(-4-2(t-1)\big)\Big) \\ &= (t-2)(t^3-3t^2+7t-5)\end{aligned}$$

- Let $q = t^3-3t^2+7t-5$. Then $q(1) = 1-3+7-5 = 0$, so $q = (t-1)h$ for a polynomial h (Proposition 7.5(c)). Multiplying out, $(t-1)(t^2-2t+5) = t^3-3t^2+7t-5 = q$; so $h = t^2-2t+5$ (Proposition 7.5(a)). Since $t^2-2t+5 = (t-1)^2+4 = (t-1-2i)(t-1+2i)$, $p_A = (t-2)(t-1)\big(t-(1+2i)\big)\big(t-(1-2i)\big)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)): the eigenvalues are 2, 1, $1+2i$, $1-2i$.

- $\operatorname{tr} A = 3+1+2-1 = 5 = 2+1+(1+2i)+(1-2i)$. Expanding $\det A$ along column 3, and then along row 1 (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A = 2\det\begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 & 2 \\ -2 & 1 & -2 \\ -2 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = 2\big(3(-1+4)+2(-4+2)\big) = 10$$

  and $10 = 2\cdot 1\cdot(1+2i)(1-2i)$ (Theorem 7.19).

(b) The real eigenvalues are 1 and 2. Row-reduce $A-I$ and $A-2I$:

$$A-I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ -2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4+2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2+2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -3 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3+3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$A-2I = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ -2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4+2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2+2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & -3 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4-2R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3+3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{5}R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4-5R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1-2R_3,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2+2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The special solutions give $\mathcal{N}(A-I) = \operatorname{span}\{(-1,0,-1,1)'\}$ and $\mathcal{N}(A-2I) = \operatorname{span}\{e_3\}$ (Theorem 4.8(c)). A is not diagonalizable, since it has non-real eigenvalues (Definition 7.23).

Exercise 7.6. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find P^{-1} by Gauss–Jordan elimination, and compute $B = P^{-1}AP$.

(b) Find p_B, and check that $p_B = p_A$, $\operatorname{tr} B = \operatorname{tr} A$ and $\det B = \det A$.

(c) The vector $x = (1, 1, 0, 0)'$ is an eigenvector of A belonging to 2. Find an eigenvector of B belonging to 2.

(d) Show that

$$F = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad G = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

have the same characteristic polynomial, but are not similar.

Solution. (a) Row-reduce $[P \mid I_4]$ (Corollary 2.17(a)):

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ -3 & 3 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 & 0 \\ -4 & 4 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = P^{-1}(AP) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(b)

- A is upper triangular, so $p_A = (t-1)(t-2)(t-3)(t-4)$ (Proposition 7.16(b)).
- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 3 of $tI - B$ has the entry $t-3$ in position $(3,3)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it, and then along row 1,

$$\det(tI - B) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & t-3 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & t-3 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & t-3 \end{pmatrix} = (t-3) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & t-3 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & t-3 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$= (t-3)\Big((t-1)(t-3)^2 + (-2-(t-3))\Big) = (t-3)\Big((t-1)(t-3)^2 - (t-1)\Big)$$

  So $p_B = (t-3)(t-1)\Big((t-3)^2 - 1\Big) = (t-1)(t-2)(t-3)(t-4) = p_A$, as Theorem 7.15(a) asserts.
- $\operatorname{tr} B = 1 + 3 + 3 + 3 = 10 = \operatorname{tr} A$. Expanding $\det B$ along column 3 and then along row 1,

$$\det B = 3 \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 \\ -2 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = 3\Big(9 - (-2+3)\Big) = 24$$

  and $24 = 1 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 \cdot 4 = \det A$ (Theorem 5.14(c)).

(c) By Theorem 7.15(b), $P^{-1}x = (1, 2, -2, -1)'$ is an eigenvector of B belonging to 2. Check: $B(1, 2, -2, -1)' = (2, 4, -4, -2)' = 2(1, 2, -2, -1)'$.

(d)

- F and G are upper triangular with the diagonal entries 1, 1, 1, 2, so $p_F = p_G = (t-1)^3(t-2)$ (Proposition 7.16(b)).
- Row-reduce $F - I$ and $G - I$:

$$F - I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$G - I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  So $\operatorname{rank}(F - I) = 3$ and $\operatorname{rank}(G - I) = 2$ (Definition 4.11), that is, $\dim \mathcal{N}(F - I) = 1$ and $\dim \mathcal{N}(G - I) = 2$ (Theorem 4.12).
- Similar matrices have eigenspaces of equal dimension (Theorem 7.15(b)), so F and G are not similar.

Exercise 7.7. Let B be the matrix of Example 7.28, and

$$F = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad G = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that $p_B = p_F = p_G$.

(b) Diagonalize F, and find an invertible S with $F = S^{-1}BS$.

(c) Show that G is not similar to B.

Solution. (a) By Example 7.28, the eigenvalues of B, listed with multiplicity, are 3, 3, 1, 1, so $p_B = (t-3)^2(t-1)^2$ (Definition 7.10). F and G are upper triangular with the diagonal entries 3, 3, 1, 1, so $p_F = p_G = (t-3)^2(t-1)^2$ (Proposition 7.16(b)).

(b)

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$F - 3I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The free unknowns are x_1, x_2; the special solutions e_1, e_2 form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(F - 3I_4)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 1$:
$$F - I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
The free unknowns are x_3, x_4; the special solutions $(0,-1,1,0)'$ and $(0,1,0,1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(F - I_4)$.
- So $g_F(3) = a_F(3) = 2$ and $g_F(1) = a_F(1) = 2$, and $P_F^{-1} F P_F = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(3,3,1,1)$ (the paragraph after Theorem 7.25), where
$$P_F = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P_F^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$
Check: row 2 of the second matrix times columns 1, 2, 3, 4 of P_F gives 0, 1, $-1+1=0$, $1-1=0$, and the other rows are rows of I_4 times P_F; so the product is I_4, and the second matrix is P_F^{-1} (Theorem 2.16).
- With P of Example 7.28, $P^{-1}BP = \Lambda$ with the same Λ, so $F = P_F \Lambda P_F^{-1} = P_F P^{-1} B P P_F^{-1} = S^{-1}BS$ for $S = PP_F^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)):
$$S = PP_F^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BS = SF = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -3 & -2 & 2 \\ 3 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$
The equality $BS = SF$ confirms $F = S^{-1}BS$.

(c) Scaling rows 1 and 2 of
$$G - I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
by $\frac{1}{2}$ gives an echelon form with three nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank}(G - I_4) = 3$ (Remark 4.2, Definition 4.11) and $g_G(1) = 4 - 3 = 1$ (Definition 7.21). As $g_B(1) = 2$ (Example 7.28), Theorem 7.15(b) shows that G is not similar to B; by (a), the characteristic polynomial does not detect this.

Exercise 7.8. For each matrix, find the eigenvalues with their algebraic and geometric multiplicities, decide whether the matrix is diagonalizable, and compare its rank with the number of its nonzero eigenvalues, listed with multiplicity.

(a) $A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$, (b) $B = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & -2 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$

(c) $M = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$

Solution. (a)

- A is upper triangular, so $p_A = (t-2)^2(t+1)(t-3)$ (Proposition 7.16(b)): $a_A(2) = 2$ and $a_A(-1) = a_A(3) = 1$. As -1 and 3 are simple, $g_A(-1) = g_A(3) = 1$ (Theorem 7.22).
- Row-reduce $A - 2I$:

$$A - 2I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Scaling row 2 by $\frac{1}{3}$ gives an echelon form with three nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank}(A-2I) = 3$ (Remark 4.2, Definition 4.11) and $g_A(2) = 4 - 3 = 1 < 2 = a_A(2)$ (Definition 7.21): A is not diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25).
- $\det A = 2 \cdot 2 \cdot (-1) \cdot 3 = -12 \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), so $\operatorname{rank} A = 4$ (Theorem 5.18(a), Theorem 4.13(d)): all four eigenvalues 2, 2, -1, 3 are nonzero, and their number is $\operatorname{rank} A$, although A is not diagonalizable.

(b)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 2 of $tI - B$ has the entry $t-3$ in position $(2,2)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it, and then along row 1,

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - B) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t+1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & t-3 & 2 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 & t-1 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-3) \det \begin{pmatrix} t+1 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & t-1 & -2 \\ 1 & 1 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-3)\Big((t+1)\Big((t-1)(t+1)+2\Big) - \Big(-(t+1)+2\Big) + 2\Big(-1-(t-1)\Big)\Big) \\ &= (t-3)\Big(t^3 + t^2 + t + 1 - 1 + t - 2t\Big) = (t-3)(t^3+t^2) = (t-3)t^2(t+1) \end{aligned}$$

  So $a_B(0) = 2$ and $a_B(3) = a_B(-1) = 1$, and $g_B(3) = g_B(-1) = 1$ (Theorem 7.22).
- Row-reduce $B - 0I = B$:

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 1 & 3 & -2 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Scaling rows 1 and 2 by -1 and $\frac{1}{3}$ gives an echelon form with three nonzero rows, so $\operatorname{rank} B = 3$ and $g_B(0) = 4 - 3 = 1 < 2 = a_B(0)$: B is not diagonalizable.
- $\operatorname{rank} B = 3$, but only two eigenvalues, 3 and -1, are nonzero: the inequality of Corollary 7.36 is strict.

(c)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, rows 2 and 4 of $tI - M$ have the entry $t-2$ on the diagonal and 0 elsewhere; expanding along row 2, and then along the last row,

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - M) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & -1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & t-2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & t-1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & t-2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & -1 & -2 \\ 1 & t-1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & t-2 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-2)^2 \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & -1 \\ 1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2)^2(t^2 - 4t + 4) = (t-2)^4 \end{aligned}$$

So 2 is the only eigenvalue, with $a_M(2) = 4$.

- Row-reduce $M - 2I$:

$$M - 2I = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\operatorname{rank}(M - 2I) = 1$ and $g_M(2) = 3 < 4 = a_M(2)$: M is not diagonalizable.

- $\det M = (-1)^4 p_M(0) = 16 \neq 0$, so $\operatorname{rank} M = 4$, the number of the nonzero eigenvalues 2, 2, 2, 2.

Exercise 7.9. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the characteristic equation and the eigenvalues of A.

(b) What is the rank of A?

(c) What are the eigenvectors of A? Are they linearly independent? Are they orthogonal?

Solution. (a) For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 3 of $tI - A$ has the entry $t - 5$ at $(3, 3)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det(tI - A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & t-1 & 0 \\ -2 & -1 & t-5 \end{pmatrix} = (t-5) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & -3 \\ 0 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)^2(t-5)$$

The characteristic equation is $(t-1)^2(t-5) = 0$, and the eigenvalues are 1 (twice) and 5.

(b) The constant term of p_A is $(0-1)^2(0-5) = -5 = (-1)^3 \det A$ (Definition 7.7(b)), so $\det A = 5 \neq 0$: A is invertible and $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$ (Theorem 5.18(a)).

(c)

- $\lambda = 1$: $Ax = x$ reads $x_1 + 3x_2 = x_1$, $x_2 = x_2$, $2x_1 + x_2 + 5x_3 = x_3$; so $x_2 = 0$ and $x_1 + 2x_3 = 0$: the eigenvectors are the nonzero multiples of $(2, 0, -1)'$.
- $\lambda = 5$: $Ax = 5x$ reads $x_1 + 3x_2 = 5x_1$, $x_2 = 5x_2$, $2x_1 + x_2 + 5x_3 = 5x_3$; so $x_2 = 0$, then $x_1 = 0$, and x_3 is free: the eigenvectors are the nonzero multiples of $(0, 0, 1)'$.
- $(2, 0, -1)'$ and $(0, 0, 1)'$ are independent (Theorem 7.20) but not orthogonal: their inner product (Definition 6.1) is $2 \cdot 0 + 0 \cdot 0 + (-1) \cdot 1 = -1$. The double eigenvalue 1 has only one independent eigenvector: $g_A(1) = 1 < 2 = a_A(1)$ (Definitions 7.10 and 7.21), as Theorem 7.22 allows.

Exercise 7.10. Which of the following matrices are diagonalizable?

$$A_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution. (A_1) A_1 differs from the matrix B of Exercise 7.2 only in the $(2,2)$ entry. The same two expansions give $p_{A_1} = (t-3)\cdot(t-3)(t-2)(t-4) = (t-3)^2(t-2)(t-4)$, so $a_{A_1}(3) = 2$. But

$$A_1 - 3I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and scaling row 1 by -1 gives an echelon form with three nonzero rows; so $\operatorname{rank}(A_1 - 3I_4) = 3$ (Remark 4.2, Definition 4.11), $g_{A_1}(3) = 1 < 2$ (Definition 7.21), and A_1 is not diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25). The matrix B has four distinct real eigenvalues, so it is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25); changing one entry has destroyed diagonalizability.

(A_2) $p_{A_2} = t^2 - 0\cdot t + (-1+2) = t^2 + 1 = (t-i)(t+i)$ (Definition 7.7(b)). So the eigenvalues i and $-i$ of A_2 are not real, and A_2 is not diagonalizable (Definition 7.23).

(A_3) A_3 is upper triangular, so $p_{A_3} = (t-1)^2(t-2)^2$ (Proposition 7.16(b)).

$$A_3 - I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The free unknowns are x_1, x_3; the special solutions $(1,0,0,0)'$, $(0,-1,1,0)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A_3 - I_4)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)), and $g_{A_3}(1) = 2$.

$$A_3 - 2I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The free unknowns are x_2, x_4; the special solutions $(1,1,0,0)'$, $(-1,0,-1,1)'$ form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A_3 - 2I_4)$, and $g_{A_3}(2) = 2$. All eigenvalues of A_3 are real and both geometric multiplicities equal the algebraic ones, so A_3 is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25).

Exercise 7.11. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the eigenvalues of A, a basis of each eigenspace, and an invertible P with $P^{-1}AP$ diagonal.

(b) Find P^{-1} by Gauss–Jordan elimination.

(c) Find A^k for $k \geqslant 1$, and check the result for $k = 1$.

Solution. (a)

- For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 2 of $tI - A$ has the entry $t-3$ in position $(2,2)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it, and then along row 1,

$$\begin{aligned}\det(tI-A) &= \det\begin{pmatrix} t-2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & t-3 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & 0 & t-2 & 2 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & t-3 \end{pmatrix} = (t-3)\det\begin{pmatrix} t-2 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & t-2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & t-3 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-3)\Big((t-2)\Big((t-2)(t-3)-2\Big) - \Big(-2(t-3)-4\Big) + \Big(-2-2(t-2)\Big)\Big) \\ &= (t-3)\Big((t-2)(t^2-5t+4) + (2t-2) + (2-2t)\Big) \\ &= (t-3)(t-2)(t-1)(t-4)\end{aligned}$$

  So $p_A = (t-1)(t-2)(t-3)(t-4)$: the eigenvalues 1, 2, 3, 4 are distinct, and A is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25).

- $\lambda = 1$:

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{3}R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 3R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_3,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $p_1 = (1,1,0,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-I)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)).

- $\lambda = 2$:

$$A - 2I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The special solution $p_2 = (1,0,-1,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-2I)$.

- $\lambda = 3$:

$$A - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & -1 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The free unknown is x_2; the special solution $p_3 = e_2$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 3I)$.

- $\lambda = 4$:

$$A - 4I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{3} R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 3R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_3,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

The special solution $p_4 = (0, 0, -1, 1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 4I)$.

- The eigenvectors $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ are independent (Theorem 7.20). With

$$P = [p_1\ p_2\ p_3\ p_4] = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$P^{-1}AP = \operatorname{diag}(1, 2, 3, 4)$ (Definition 7.23).

(b) Row-reduce $[P \mid I_4]$ (Corollary 2.17(a)):

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_4,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(c) By Proposition 7.27(a), $A^k = P\,\mathrm{diag}(1, 2^k, 3^k, 4^k)P^{-1}$. With r_i' the ith row of P^{-1}, the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) gives $A^k = p_1 r_1' + 2^k p_2 r_2' + 3^k p_3 r_3' + 4^k p_4 r_4'$, where

$$p_1 r_1' = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad p_2 r_2' = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$p_3 r_3' = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad p_4 r_4' = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

So

$$A^k = \begin{pmatrix} 2^k & 0 & 1-2^k & 1-2^k \\ 0 & 3^k & 1-3^k & 1-3^k \\ 4^k-2^k & 0 & 2^k & 2^k-4^k \\ 2^k-4^k & 0 & 1-2^k & 1-2^k+4^k \end{pmatrix} \qquad (k \geqslant 1)$$

For $k = 1$ this is

$$\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix} = A$$

Exercise 7.12. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Show that $\mathrm{rank}(A - 3I_4) = 1$, diagonalize A, find a formula for A^k ($k \geqslant 0$), and compute A^3.

Solution.

- Subtracting 3 from the diagonal entries of A,

$$A - 3I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -2 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} = uv'$$

  with $u = (1, 1, 0, 1)'$ and $v' = (-1, -2, 1, -1)$: rows 1, 2 and 4 equal v', and row 3 is 0. So the row space of $A - 3I_4$ is $\mathrm{span}\{v'\}$, of dimension 1 as $v' \neq 0$ (Proposition 3.13(a)), and $\mathrm{rank}(A - 3I_4) = 1$ (Definition 4.11). Hence $g_A(3) = 4 - 1 = 3$ (Definition 7.21) and $a_A(3) \geqslant 3$ (Theorem 7.22).

- So at least three of the four eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity, are 3 (Definition 7.10); let μ be the fourth. By Theorem 7.19, $3 + 3 + 3 + \mu = \mathrm{tr}\, A = 2 + 1 + 3 + 2 = 8$, so $\mu = -1$ and $p_A = (t - 3)^3(t + 1)$.

- $\mathcal{N}(A - 3I_4) = \mathcal{N}(uv') = \mathcal{N}(v')$, as $uv'x = (v'x)u$ and $u \neq 0$. The equation $v'x = 0$, that is, $x_1 + 2x_2 - x_3 + x_4 = 0$, with x_2, x_3, x_4 free, has the special solutions $p_1 = (-2, 1, 0, 0)'$, $p_2 = (1, 0, 1, 0)'$ and $p_3 = (-1, 0, 0, 1)'$, a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 3I_4)$ (Theorem 4.8(c)). Next $Au = 3u + u(v'u) = 3u - 4u = -u$, so $p_4 = u$ spans $\mathcal{N}(A + I_4)$ (Theorem 7.22: $g_A(-1) \leqslant a_A(-1) = 1$).

- By Lemma 7.24(b) and Theorem 4.5(d), $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$, so $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$ with $P = [p_1\ p_2\ p_3\ p_4]$ and $\Lambda = \mathrm{diag}(3, 3, 3, -1)$ (Definition 7.23). The row $w' = -\frac{1}{4}v' = \frac{1}{4}(1, 2, -1, 1)$ satisfies $w'p_j = 0$ for $j \leqslant 3$ (as $v'p_j = 0$) and $w'p_4 = -\frac{1}{4}v'u = 1$; so $w'P = e_4'$, and $w' = e_4'P^{-1} = \mathrm{row}_4(P^{-1})$.

By Proposition 7.27(a),

$$A^k = P\,\mathrm{diag}\big(3^k, 3^k, 3^k, (-1)^k\big)P^{-1} = 3^k M_1 + (-1)^k M_2$$

with $M_1 = P\,\mathrm{diag}(1,1,1,0)P^{-1}$ and $M_2 = P\,\mathrm{diag}(0,0,0,1)P^{-1}$. By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $M_2 = p_4\,\mathrm{row}_4(P^{-1}) = -\frac{1}{4}uv'$, and $M_1 = I_4 - M_2$, as $M_1 + M_2 = PP^{-1}$. So

$$A^k = 3^k I_4 + \tfrac{1}{4}\big(3^k - (-1)^k\big)uv' \qquad (k \geqslant 0)$$

For $k = 1$ this gives back $A = 3I_4 + uv'$, and

$$A^3 = 27I_4 + 7uv' = \begin{pmatrix} 20 & -14 & 7 & -7 \\ -7 & 13 & 7 & -7 \\ 0 & 0 & 27 & 0 \\ -7 & -14 & 7 & 20 \end{pmatrix}$$

Exercise 7.13. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad p_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad p_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad p_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad p_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ are eigenvectors of A, and find p_A, $\mathrm{tr}\,A$ and $\det A$.

(b) Diagonalize A and compute A^{-1}.

(c) For $x_0 = (3,2,2,1)'$, find $A^k x_0$ ($k \geqslant 0$), and check $A^3 x_0$ by computing Ax_0, A^2x_0, A^3x_0 in turn.

Solution. (a) Multiplying out, $Ap_1 = (2,2,0,0)' = 2p_1$, $Ap_2 = (1,1,1,0)' = p_2$, $Ap_3 = (-1,0,-1,-1)' = -p_3$ and $Ap_4 = \mathrm{col}_4(A) = (0,0,0,-2)' = -2p_4$. The eigenvalues 2, 1, -1, -2 are distinct, so $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^4$ (Theorem 7.20), and $P^{-1}AP = \Lambda$ with $P = [p_1\ p_2\ p_3\ p_4]$ and $\Lambda = \mathrm{diag}(2,1,-1,-2)$ (Definition 7.23). By the same definition, 2, 1, -1, -2 are the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity; so $p_A = (t-2)(t-1)(t+1)(t+2)$ (Definition 7.10), $\mathrm{tr}\,A = 2+1-1-2 = 0$ and $\det A = 2\cdot 1\cdot(-1)\cdot(-2) = 4$ (Theorem 7.19). Directly, $\mathrm{tr}\,A = 0+1+1-2 = 0$.

(b)

$$P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: by Theorem 1.4(d), the (i,j) entry of the product of this matrix and P is its row i times p_j. For row 1, $(1,0,-1,0)p_j$ is 1, $1-1=0$, $1-1=0$, 0 ($j = 1,2,3,4$); for row 2, $(-1,1,1,0)p_j$ is $-1+1=0$, $-1+1+1=1$, $-1+1=0$, 0; for row 3, $(1,-1,0,0)p_j$ is $1-1=0$, $1-1=0$, 1, 0; for row 4, $(-1,1,0,1)p_j$ is $-1+1=0$, $-1+1=0$, $-1+1=0$, 1. So the product is I_4, and the matrix is P^{-1} (Theorem 2.16). By Proposition 7.27(c), $A^{-1} = P\Lambda^{-1}P^{-1} = (P\Lambda^{-1})P^{-1}$ with $\Lambda^{-1} = \mathrm{diag}(\frac{1}{2}, 1, -1, -\frac{1}{2})$; the columns of $P\Lambda^{-1}$ are those of P times $\frac{1}{2}$, 1, -1, $-\frac{1}{2}$ (Proposition 1.13(a)):

$$P\Lambda^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} -3 & 4 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ -4 & 4 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\mathrm{row}_1(A)\,\mathrm{col}_1(A^{-1}) = \frac{1}{2}(-2+4) = 1$ and $\mathrm{row}_1(A)\,\mathrm{col}_2(A^{-1}) = \frac{1}{2}(4-4) = 0$.

(c) $c = P^{-1}x_0 = (1,1,1,0)'$, that is, $x_0 = p_1 + p_2 + p_3$. By Proposition 7.27(a),

$$A^k x_0 = 2^k p_1 + p_2 + (-1)^k p_3 = \big(2^k + 1 + (-1)^k,\ 2^k + 1,\ 1 + (-1)^k,\ (-1)^k\big)'$$

For $k = 3$ this is $(8,9,0,-1)'$. Directly, $Ax_0 = (2,3,0,-1)'$, $A^2x_0 = A(2,3,0,-1)' = (6,5,2,1)'$ and $A^3x_0 = A(6,5,2,1)' = (8,9,0,-1)'$.

Exercise 7.14. The matrix A of Exercise 7.3 has the eigenvalues -1, 1, 2, 3, with the eigenvectors $(1,0,0,1)'$, $(1,0,1,1)'$, $(1,0,1,0)'$, $(-1,-1,-1,1)'$. Without computing the matrices, find the eigenvalues, the trace and the determinant of

(a) $A-2I$ and $-3A$;

(b) A^2, A^{-1} and A^3-4A;

(c) A'.

(d) Give an eigenvector of A^3-4A for each of its eigenvalues, and check $\operatorname{tr}(A^2)$ by computing the diagonal entries of A^2.

Solution. (a) By Proposition 7.18(c), $A-2I$ has the eigenvalues -3, -1, 0, 1, so $\operatorname{tr}(A-2I)=-3$ and $\det(A-2I)=0$ (Theorem 7.19); and $-3A$ has the eigenvalues 3, -3, -6, -9, so $\operatorname{tr}(-3A)=-15$ and $\det(-3A)=-486$.

(b) $A=P\Lambda P^{-1}$ with $\Lambda=\operatorname{diag}(-1,1,2,3)$ (Exercise 7.3(c)), so by Proposition 7.29(b):

- A^2 has the eigenvalues 1, 1, 4, 9; $\operatorname{tr}(A^2)=15$, $\det(A^2)=36$.
- 0 is not an eigenvalue, so A is invertible (Theorem 7.19), and A^{-1} has the eigenvalues -1, 1, $\frac{1}{2}$, $\frac{1}{3}$; $\operatorname{tr}(A^{-1})=-1+1+\frac{1}{2}+\frac{1}{3}=\frac{5}{6}$, and $\det(A^{-1})=-\frac{1}{6}$.
- For $f(t)=t^3-4t$, $f(-1)=3$, $f(1)=-3$, $f(2)=0$, $f(3)=15$: A^3-4A has the eigenvalues 3, -3, 0, 15; $\operatorname{tr}(A^3-4A)=15$, $\det(A^3-4A)=0$.

(c) By Proposition 7.18(d), A' has the eigenvalues -1, 1, 2, 3; $\operatorname{tr}A'=5$, $\det A'=-6$.

(d)

- By Proposition 7.18(a), $f(A)x=f(\lambda)x$: $(1,0,0,1)'$ belongs to 3, $(1,0,1,1)'$ to -3, $(1,0,1,0)'$ to 0, and $(-1,-1,-1,1)'$ to 15.
- By Theorem 1.4(d), the ith diagonal entry of A^2 is $\operatorname{row}_i(A)\operatorname{col}_i(A)$: $0\cdot0+0\cdot0+2\cdot1+(-1)(-2)=4$, $0\cdot0+3\cdot3+0\cdot0+0\cdot(-2)=9$, $1\cdot2+0\cdot0+1\cdot1+(-1)\cdot2=1$ and $(-2)(-1)+(-2)\cdot0+2\cdot(-1)+1\cdot1=1$; so $\operatorname{tr}(A^2)=4+9+1+1=15$.

Exercise 7.15. Let B be the matrix of Example 7.28.

(a) Without computing these matrices, find the eigenvalues and eigenvectors of B^3, B^{-1}, $B+cI_4$ ($c\in\mathbb{R}$) and $q(B)=B^2-4B+3I_4$, and the numbers $\operatorname{tr}B^3$, $\det B^3$, $\operatorname{tr}B^{-1}$, $\det B^{-1}$.

(b) Show that $q(B)=0$. Deduce $B^{-1}=\frac{1}{3}(4I_4-B)$ and $B^3=13B-12I_4$, and check the values of $\operatorname{tr}B^{-1}$ and $\operatorname{tr}B^3$.

Solution. (a) By Example 7.28, B has the eigenvalue 3, with the eigenvectors p_1,p_2, and the eigenvalue 1, with the eigenvectors p_3,p_4, and $B=P\Lambda P^{-1}$ with $\Lambda=\operatorname{diag}(3,3,1,1)$; so B is invertible (Proposition 7.27(c)). By Proposition 7.18(a),(b), p_1,p_2 and p_3,p_4 are eigenvectors of B^3 belonging to 27 and 1, of B^{-1} belonging to $\frac{1}{3}$ and 1, of $B+cI_4$ belonging to $3+c$ and $1+c$, and of $q(B)$ belonging to $q(3)=9-12+3=0$ and $q(1)=0$. By Proposition 7.29(b), these are the eigenvalues, listed with multiplicity (each twice), and $\operatorname{tr}B^3=56$, $\det B^3=729$, $\operatorname{tr}B^{-1}=\frac{8}{3}$, $\det B^{-1}=\frac{1}{9}$. For B^3, B^{-1} and $B+cI_4$, each of the two eigenvalues has algebraic multiplicity 2, so its eigenspace has dimension at most 2 (Theorem 7.22); it contains the independent p_1,p_2, respectively p_3,p_4, so it is spanned by them (Theorem 4.5(d)). For $q(B)$, the eigenspace for 0 contains $p_1,\dots,p_4$, so it is $\mathbb{R}^4$.

(b) $q(B)$ maps the basis $p_1,\dots,p_4$ of $\mathbb{R}^4$ to 0, so $q(B)x=0$ for every $x\in\mathbb{R}^4$; with $x=e_j$, every column of $q(B)$ is 0 (Theorem 1.4(b)), and $q(B)=0$ (multiplying out $(B-I_4)(B-3I_4)=q(B)$ gives 0 as well). Hence $B(4I_4-B)=4B-B^2=3I_4$, and $B^{-1}=\frac{1}{3}(4I_4-B)$ (Theorem 2.16):

$$B^{-1}=\frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix}3&-2&2&-2\\2&1&2&0\\0&2&1&2\\-2&2&-2&3\end{pmatrix}$$

Also $B^2 = 4B - 3I_4$, so $B^3 = 4B^2 - 3B = 4(4B - 3I_4) - 3B = 13B - 12I_4$. With $\operatorname{tr} B = 8$: $\operatorname{tr} B^{-1} = \frac{1}{3}(16 - 8) = \frac{8}{3}$ and $\operatorname{tr} B^3 = 104 - 48 = 56$.

Exercise 7.16. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ -1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and let $Q = \frac{1}{2}G$ be the orthogonal matrix of Example 7.31.

(a) Show that $\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{1}_4$ is an eigenvector of A of length 1, and that $T = Q'AQ$ is upper triangular. Read off the eigenvalues of A.

(b) Use (a) to find $\operatorname{tr}(A^2 + I_4)$ and $\det(A^2 + I_4)$, and check the trace directly.

(c) Is A diagonalizable? Is there an orthogonal U with $U'AU$ diagonal?

Solution. (a) Every row of A adds up to 3, so $A\mathbf{1}_4 = 3\mathbf{1}_4$, and $\|\frac{1}{2}\mathbf{1}_4\| = 1$. As $G' = G$,

$$AG = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 3 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 3 & -3 & 1 & 3 \\ 3 & -3 & -1 & -3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad T = Q'AQ = \tfrac{1}{4}G(AG) = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

As $Q' = Q^{-1}$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), T is similar to A, and by Theorem 7.15(a) and Proposition 7.16(b) the eigenvalues of A are 3, 2, 1, -2.

(b) As $Q'Q = QQ' = I_4$, $A = QTQ'$ and $A^2 + I_4 = Q(T^2 + I_4)Q'$, with

$$T^2 + I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 10 & -5 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 5 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Theorem 7.15(a), Proposition 7.16(b) and Theorem 7.19, $\operatorname{tr}(A^2 + I_4) = 10 + 5 + 2 + 5 = 22$ and $\det(A^2 + I_4) = 10 \cdot 5 \cdot 2 \cdot 5 = 500$, as Corollary 7.32(a) predicts ($q(t) = t^2 + 1$ has $q(3) = 10$, $q(2) = 5$, $q(1) = 2$, $q(-2) = 5$). Directly,

$$A^2 + I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 1 & 4 & 3 & 2 \\ -1 & 1 & 7 & 3 \\ 1 & -1 & 3 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

with trace 22.

(c) A has four distinct real eigenvalues, so it is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25). If $U'AU = \Lambda$ with U orthogonal and Λ diagonal, then $A = U\Lambda U'$ would be symmetric (Theorem 1.9); but $a_{14} = 0 \neq -1 = a_{41}$. So no such U exists.

Exercise 7.17. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 3}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{3\times 2}$$

(a) Compute AB and BA. Find p_{AB}, the eigenvalues of AB, and an eigenvector for each.

(b) Use Theorem 7.33 to find p_{BA} and the eigenvalues of BA, and check p_{BA} by expanding $\det(tI - BA)$.

(c) For each eigenvector x of AB from (a), check that Bx is an eigenvector of BA. Find a basis of $\mathcal{N}(BA)$, and compare $\operatorname{rank}(BA)$ with the number of nonzero eigenvalues of BA.

Solution. (a)

- Multiplying out,
$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BA = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$
- By Definition 7.7(b) ($n = 2$), $p_{AB} = t^2 - t - 2 = (t-2)(t+1)$: the eigenvalues of AB are 2 and -1.
- $(AB - 2I)x = 0$ reads $-x_1 + x_2 = 0$ and $2x_1 - 2x_2 = 0$, so $x = (1,1)'$; $(AB + I)x = 0$ reads $2x_1 + x_2 = 0$ (twice), so $x = (-1,2)'$.

(b)

- By Theorem 7.33(a) ($m = 2$, $n = 3$), $p_{BA} = t\,p_{AB} = t(t-2)(t+1)$, and by (b) of that theorem the eigenvalues of BA are 0, 2, -1.
- Check: for $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 2 of $tI - BA$ has the entry $t-2$ in position $(2,2)$ and 0 elsewhere, so
$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - BA) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & t-2 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-2) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & -2 \\ 1 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-2)(t^2+t) = t(t-2)(t+1) \end{aligned}$$

(c)

- $B(1,1)' = (0,2,0)'$ and $BA(0,2,0)' = (0,4,0)' = 2(0,2,0)'$; $B(-1,2)' = (3,1,-3)'$ and $BA(3,1,-3)' = (-3,-1,3)' = -(3,1,-3)'$.
- Row-reduce BA:
$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
The special solution $(-2,0,1)'$ is a basis of $\mathcal{N}(BA)$, and $\operatorname{rank}(BA) = 2$.
- BA has the two nonzero eigenvalues 2, -1, as many as its rank: BA has three distinct eigenvalues, so it is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25), and Proposition 7.29(a) applies.

Exercise 7.18. Let
$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute BA and AB, find p_{BA}, and deduce p_{AB}.

(b) Find eigenvectors of AB for its nonzero eigenvalues from those of BA, and a basis of $\mathcal{N}(AB)$. Diagonalize AB.

(c) Show that $\operatorname{tr}(AB)^k = 2^k + (-1)^k$ for $k \geqslant 1$.

Solution. (a)
$$BA = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AB = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By Definition 7.7(b) ($n = 2$), $p_{BA} = t^2 - t - 2 = (t-2)(t+1)$. By Theorem 7.33(a), applied with B and A in place of its A and B ($m = 2$, $n = 4$), $p_{AB} = t^2 p_{BA} = t^2(t-2)(t+1)$.

(b)

- $BA(1,1)' = (2,2)'$ and $BA(1,-2)' = (-1,2)'$: $(1,1)'$ and $(1,-2)'$ are eigenvectors of BA belonging to the simple eigenvalues 2 and -1, so each is a basis of its eigenspace (Theorem 7.22). By Theorem 7.33(c), applied as in (a),

  $$v_1 = A(1,1)' = (1,2,1,0)', \qquad v_2 = A(1,-2)' = (1,-1,-2,3)'$$

  are eigenvectors of AB belonging to 2 and -1; indeed $ABv_1 = (2,4,2,0)' = 2v_1$ and $ABv_2 = (-1,1,2,-3)' = -v_2$.
- B is in RREF, and $Bx = 0$ reads $x_1 + x_3 = 0$, $x_2 + x_4 = 0$, with the special solutions $n_1 = (-1,0,1,0)'$ and $n_2 = (0,-1,0,1)'$ (Theorem 4.8(c)). As $ABx = A(Bx)$, $\mathcal{N}(B) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(AB)$, so $g_{AB}(0) \geqslant 2$ (Theorem 4.5(a)); and $g_{AB}(0) \leqslant a_{AB}(0) = 2$ (Theorem 7.22). So $\mathcal{N}(B) = \mathcal{N}(AB)$ (Theorem 4.5(a)), with the basis n_1, n_2.
- All eigenvalues 2, -1, 0, 0 of AB are real, and $g_{AB} = a_{AB}$ for each of them; so AB is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25), and by the paragraph after that theorem, $Q^{-1}(AB)Q = \Lambda$ with $Q = [v_1\ v_2\ n_1\ n_2]$ and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(2,-1,0,0)$.

(c) By (b), $AB = Q\Lambda Q^{-1}$, so by Proposition 7.29(b) (with $f = t^k$), $\operatorname{tr}(AB)^k = 2^k + (-1)^k + 0^k + 0^k = 2^k + (-1)^k$ for $k \geqslant 1$. For $k = 1$, $\operatorname{tr} AB = 1 + 1 + 0 - 1 = 1$.

Exercise 7.19. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_A.

(b) Compute A^2, A^3 and A^4, and check that $p_A(A) = 0$.

(c) Use Corollary 7.39(b) to find A^{-1}, and check that $AA^{-1} = I$.

(d) Use Corollary 7.39(a) to write A^5 as a linear combination of I, A, A^2, A^3, and compute A^5.

Solution. (a) For $t \in \mathbb{R}$, column 3 of $tI - A$ has the entry $t - 1$ in position $(3,3)$ and 0 elsewhere; expanding along it, and then along row 1,

$$\det(tI - A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} t & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ -2 & t+1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & t-1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & t \end{pmatrix} = (t-1) \det \begin{pmatrix} t & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & t+1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & t \end{pmatrix}$$
$$= (t-1)\Big(t\big((t+1)t - 2\big) - (-2t-2) + \big(-2 - (t+1)\big)\Big) = (t-1)(t^3 + t^2 - t - 1)$$

So $p_A = (t-1)(t^3 + t^2 - t - 1) = t^4 - 2t^2 + 1$: $c_0 = 1$, $c_1 = 0$, $c_2 = -2$, $c_3 = 0$, $c_4 = 1$.

(b) Multiplying out,

$$A^2 = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 2 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^3 = A^2 A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -3 & 0 & -3 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -3 & 0 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & -3 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^4 = A^3 A = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 4 & 0 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -4 & 0 & 1 & 4 \\ -4 & 4 & 0 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

Adding entry by entry, $p_A(A) = A^4 - 2A^2 + I = 0$, as Theorem 7.38 asserts.

(c) As $c_0 = (-1)^4 \det A$ (Definition 7.7(b)), $\det A = 1 \neq 0$, and A is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)). By Corollary 7.39(b), $A^{-1} = -\frac{1}{c_0}(c_1 I + c_2 A + c_3 A^2 + c_4 A^3) = 2A - A^3$, that is,

$$A^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 1 & 0 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ -3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AA^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(d)

- By Corollary 7.39(a), $A^4 = -(c_0 I + c_1 A + c_2 A^2 + c_3 A^3) = 2A^2 - I$, as found in (b). Then $A^5 = A^4 A = 2A^3 - A$.
- So

$$A^5 = 2\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -3 & 0 & -3 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -3 & 0 & 1 & 3 \\ 1 & -3 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix} - \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & 0 & -1 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & -5 & 0 & -5 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -5 & 0 & 1 & 5 \\ 3 & -5 & 0 & -4 \end{pmatrix}$$

Problems

Problem 7.1. Let $n \geqslant 2$ and $a_0, \ldots, a_{n-1} \in \mathbb{R}$. Show that the companion matrix

$$C = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 \\ \vdots & & & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 \\ -a_0 & -a_1 & -a_2 & \cdots & -a_{n-1} \end{pmatrix} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$$

whose entries are $c_{i,i+1} = 1$ $(i < n)$, the last row $(-a_0, \ldots, -a_{n-1})$ and 0 elsewhere, has the characteristic polynomial $p_C(t) = t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0$.

Solution. Fix $t \in \mathbb{R}$. For $2 \leqslant j \leqslant n$ and $x \in \mathbb{R}$, let $A_j(x) \in \mathbb{R}^{j \times j}$ have the entries t in positions (i,i) and -1 in positions $(i, i+1)$ for $i < j$, the last row $(a_0, a_1, \ldots, a_{j-2}, x)$, and 0 elsewhere. Then $tI - C = A_n(t + a_{n-1})$.

- Let $j \geqslant 3$. The last column of $A_j(x)$ has the entries -1 at $(j-1, j)$ and x at (j,j), and 0 elsewhere. Deleting row j and column j leaves an upper triangular matrix with diagonal entries t, of determinant t^{j-1} (Theorem 5.14(c)). Deleting row $j-1$ and column j leaves $A_{j-1}(a_{j-2})$. Expanding along the last column (Theorem 5.21),

$$\det A_j(x) = x\, t^{j-1} + (-1) \cdot (-1)^{(j-1)+j} \det A_{j-1}(a_{j-2}) = x\, t^{j-1} + \det A_{j-1}(a_{j-2})$$

- For $j = 2$, $\det A_2(x) = \det \left(\begin{smallmatrix} t & -1 \\ a_0 & x \end{smallmatrix}\right) = tx + a_0$.
- Hence

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - C) &= (t + a_{n-1})t^{n-1} + \det A_{n-1}(a_{n-2}) = t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + a_{n-2}t^{n-2} + \det A_{n-2}(a_{n-3}) \\ &= \cdots = t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_2 t^2 + \det A_2(a_1) = t^n + a_{n-1}t^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 t + a_0 \end{aligned}$$

(for $n = 2$, directly $\det A_2(t + a_1) = t(t + a_1) + a_0$). This holds for every real t, so p_C is this polynomial (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)).

Problem 7.2. Let $n \geqslant 2$. Show that for $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ to be similar to $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ it is not sufficient that B have the same rank, determinant, trace and characteristic polynomial as A.

Solution. Take $A = I_n$ and an upper triangular $B \neq I_n$ with all diagonal entries 1, for instance $B = I_n + E_{12}$ (Definition 3.17).

- $\det B = 1 = \det I_n$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), so B is invertible and $\operatorname{rank} B = n = \operatorname{rank} I_n$ (Theorem 5.18(a)); $\operatorname{tr} B = n = \operatorname{tr} I_n$; and $p_B = (t-1)^n = p_{I_n}$ (Proposition 7.16(b)).
- If B were similar to I_n, there would be an invertible C with $B = C^{-1}I_nC = C^{-1}C = I_n$ ✘

Problem 7.3. Let x_1 and x_2 be eigenvectors of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ belonging to λ_1 and λ_2, and let c_1, c_2 be nonzero numbers. When is $x = c_1x_1 + c_2x_2$ an eigenvector of A?

Solution.

- $Ax = c_1\lambda_1x_1 + c_2\lambda_2x_2 = \lambda_1x + (\lambda_2 - \lambda_1)c_2x_2$.
- If $\lambda_1 = \lambda_2$, then $Ax = \lambda_1x$: x is an eigenvector unless $x = 0$, that is, unless $x_2 = -(c_1/c_2)x_1$.
- If $\lambda_1 \neq \lambda_2$, then x_1 and x_2 are independent (Theorem 7.20), and so are x and x_2: if $ax + bx_2 = 0$, then $ac_1x_1 + (ac_2 + b)x_2 = 0$, so $ac_1 = 0$, $a = 0$, and then $b = 0$. If $Ax = cx$ for some c, then $(\lambda_1 - c)x + (\lambda_2 - \lambda_1)c_2x_2 = 0$, so $(\lambda_2 - \lambda_1)c_2 = 0$ ✘ Hence x is not an eigenvector.

So x is an eigenvector of A if and only if $\lambda_1 = \lambda_2$ and $x \neq 0$.

Problem 7.4. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{k\times k}$ and $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ satisfy $AX = XB$. A subspace U of $\mathbb{R}^n$ is **invariant** relative to A if $Au \in U$ for every $u \in U$.

(a) Show that $\mathcal{C}(X)$ is invariant relative to A.

(b) Show that if X has full column rank, then every real eigenvalue of B is an eigenvalue of A.

Solution. (a) Every $u \in \mathcal{C}(X)$ is $u = Xr$ for some $r \in \mathbb{R}^k$ (Definition 4.7), so $Au = AXr = XBr = X(Br) \in \mathcal{C}(X)$.

(b) Let $By = \lambda y$ with $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$ and $y \neq 0$. Then $A(Xy) = XBy = X(\lambda y) = \lambda(Xy)$. If X has full column rank, then $\mathcal{N}(X) = \{0\}$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), so $Xy \neq 0$: λ is an eigenvalue of A, and Xy is an eigenvector belonging to it.

Problem 7.5. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and let $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible with $Q^{-1}AQ = D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$. Let r_i' be row i of Q^{-1} $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant n)$. Show:

(a) $(Q^{-1})'$ diagonalizes A'.

(b) $d_1, \ldots, d_n$ are the eigenvalues of A'.

(c) r_i is an eigenvector of A' belonging to d_i.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 2.13(c),(a), $(Q^{-1})' = (Q')^{-1}$, so $\left((Q^{-1})'\right)^{-1} = Q'$. By Theorem 1.9, $D = D' = (Q^{-1}AQ)' = Q'A'(Q^{-1})' = \left((Q^{-1})'\right)^{-1}A'(Q^{-1})'$.

(b) By (a), $\left((Q^{-1})'\right)^{-1}A'(Q^{-1})' = D$; so by Definition 7.23, applied to A' and $(Q^{-1})'$, $d_1, \ldots, d_n$ are the eigenvalues of A'.

(c) Column i of $(Q^{-1})'$ is the transposed row i of Q^{-1}, that is, r_i (Definition 1.8). By Definition 7.23, applied as in (b), the columns of $(Q^{-1})'$ are eigenvectors of A': $A'r_i = d_ir_i$ with $r_i \neq 0$.

Problem 7.6. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and let λ be a real eigenvalue of A. A vector $w \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $w \neq 0$, with $w'A = \lambda w'$ is a **left eigenvector** of A belonging to λ.

(a) Show that a left eigenvector of A belonging to λ is an eigenvector of A' belonging to λ.

(b) Let $\lambda \neq \mu$ be real eigenvalues of A. Show that every left eigenvector of A belonging to μ is orthogonal to every eigenvector of A belonging to λ.

Solution. (a) Let $w'A = \lambda w'$ with $w \neq 0$. By Theorem 1.9, $A'w = (w'A)' = (\lambda w')' = \lambda w$; so w is an eigenvector of A' belonging to λ (Definition 7.1).

(b) Let $Ax = \lambda x$ with $x \neq 0$, and $w'A = \mu w'$ with $w \neq 0$. By Theorem 1.3,

$$w'Ax = w'(\lambda x) = \lambda(w'x), \qquad w'Ax = (\mu w')x = \mu(w'x)$$

So $(\lambda - \mu)\, w'x = 0$, and as $\lambda \neq \mu$, $w'x = 0$: w and x are orthogonal (Definition 6.1).

Problem 7.7. (a) Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $A \neq 0$, satisfy $A^n = 0$. Show that A is not diagonalizable.

(b) Find a 2×2 matrix that is not diagonalizable.

Solution. (a) Suppose $P^{-1}AP = D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ with P invertible. Then $A = PDP^{-1}$, and by Proposition 7.27(a), $0 = A^n = P \operatorname{diag}(d_1^n, \ldots, d_n^n)P^{-1}$. Multiplying by P^{-1} on the left and by P on the right gives $\operatorname{diag}(d_1^n, \ldots, d_n^n) = 0$; so every $d_i = 0$, $D = 0$ and $A = PDP^{-1} = 0$ ✘

(b) Let $N = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$. Multiplying out, $N^2 = 0$, while $N \neq 0$. By (a) (with $n = 2$), N is not diagonalizable.

Problem 7.8. Let $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(a) Show that xy' has $n - 1$ zero eigenvalues and one eigenvalue $y'x$.

(b) Show that $\det(I_n + xy') = 1 + y'x$.

Solution. (a) For $n = 1$, $xy' = (x_1y_1) = (y'x)$, and its only eigenvalue is $y'x$ (Definition 7.7(b)). Let $n \geqslant 2$, and let $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ be the eigenvalues of xy', listed with multiplicity (Definition 7.10).

- If $y = 0$, then $xy' = 0$, $p_{xy'} = t^n$ (Proposition 7.16(b)), and all n eigenvalues are $0 = y'x$.
- Let $y \neq 0$. The only row y' of the $1 \times n$ matrix y' is nonzero, so $\operatorname{rank} y' = 1$ (Proposition 3.13(a), Definition 4.11), and $\dim \mathcal{N}(y') = n - 1 \geqslant 1$ (Theorem 4.12): there are $n - 1$ linearly independent vectors $u_1, \ldots, u_{n-1}$ with $y'u_i = 0$. Each of them satisfies $xy'u_i = x(y'u_i) = 0$ (Theorem 1.3); so $\mathcal{N}(y') \subseteq \mathcal{N}(xy')$, $g_{xy'}(0) \geqslant n-1 \geqslant 1$ (Theorem 4.5(a)), 0 is an eigenvalue of xy', and $a_{xy'}(0) \geqslant n-1$ (Theorem 7.22).
- So we may number the eigenvalues so that $\lambda_1 = \cdots = \lambda_{n-1} = 0$. By Theorem 7.19 and Theorem 1.11(b),
$$\lambda_n = \lambda_1 + \cdots + \lambda_n = \operatorname{tr}(xy') = \operatorname{tr}(y'x) = y'x$$

(b) By (a) and Proposition 7.18(c) (with $c = 1$), the eigenvalues of $I_n + xy'$ are 1 ($n - 1$ times) and $1 + y'x$. The determinant is the product of the eigenvalues (Theorem 7.19), so $\det(I_n + xy') = 1^{n-1}(1 + y'x) = 1 + y'x$. (This is also the case $u = x$, $v = y$ of Theorem 5.31.)

Problem 7.9. (a) Let $A = (a_{ij})$ and $B = (b_{ij})$ be upper triangular $n \times n$ matrices, and let $1 \leqslant k < n$, such that $a_{ij} = 0$ for $1 \leqslant i \leqslant k$ and $1 \leqslant j \leqslant k$, and $b_{k+1,k+1} = 0$. Show that the matrix $C = AB$ is upper triangular with $c_{ij} = 0$ for $1 \leqslant i \leqslant k+1$ and $1 \leqslant j \leqslant k+1$.

(b) Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, and let all eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ of A, listed with multiplicity, be real. Show that

$$(\lambda_1 I_n - A)(\lambda_2 I_n - A) \cdots (\lambda_n I_n - A) = 0$$

and deduce that $p_A(A) = 0$.

Solution. (a) Partition A, B and C with diagonal blocks of sizes k and $n-k$ (Definition 5.1). The blocks below the diagonal blocks of A and B are 0, as A and B are upper triangular (Definition 1.12), and the upper left $k \times k$ block of A is 0 by assumption. By Theorem 5.3(c),

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & A_{12} \\ 0 & A_{22} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} B_{11} & B_{12} \\ 0 & B_{22} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad C = AB = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & A_{12}B_{22} \\ 0 & A_{22}B_{22} \end{pmatrix}$$

- C is upper triangular (Proposition 1.13(c)), and its first k columns are 0. It remains to show that column $k+1$ of C, which consists of the first columns of $A_{12}B_{22}$ and of $A_{22}B_{22}$, is 0.
- B_{22} is upper triangular, and its first diagonal entry is $b_{k+1,k+1} = 0$; so its first column is 0. Hence for every matrix E with $n-k$ columns, the first column of EB_{22} is $E \cdot 0 = 0$ (Theorem 1.4(a)); in particular the first columns of $A_{12}B_{22}$ and $A_{22}B_{22}$ are 0.

So the first $k+1$ columns of C are 0; in particular $c_{ij} = 0$ for $1 \leqslant i \leqslant k+1$ and $1 \leqslant j \leqslant k+1$.

(b) For $n = 1$, $A = (a_{11})$ with $\lambda_1 = a_{11}$ (Definition 7.7(b)), so $\lambda_1 I_1 - A = 0$ and $p_A(A) = A - \lambda_1 I_1 = 0$. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

- By Theorem 7.30, $A = QTQ'$, where Q is orthogonal and T is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$, in this order. Let $B_i = \lambda_i I_n - T$ $(1 \leqslant i \leqslant n)$: it is upper triangular, and its ith diagonal entry is 0.
- As $QQ' = Q'Q = I_n$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), $\lambda_i I_n - A = Q(\lambda_i I_n)Q' - QTQ' = QB_iQ'$ (Theorem 1.3), and
$$(\lambda_1 I_n - A) \cdots (\lambda_n I_n - A) = QB_1Q'QB_2Q' \cdots QB_nQ' = Q(B_1B_2 \cdots B_n)Q'$$
- By induction on j, $B_1 \cdots B_j$ is upper triangular, and its upper left $j \times j$ block is 0 $(1 \leqslant j \leqslant n)$. For $j = 1$, the $(1,1)$ entry of B_1 is 0. If this holds for some $j < n$, then (a), with $B_1 \cdots B_j$, B_{j+1} and j in place of A, B and k, gives it for $j+1$, as the $(j+1)$th diagonal entry of B_{j+1} is 0. For $j = n$, $B_1 \cdots B_n = 0$; so $(\lambda_1 I_n - A) \cdots (\lambda_n I_n - A) = 0$.
- $p_A = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_n)$ (Definition 7.10) is a product of the real polynomials $t - \lambda_i$, whose values at A are $A - \lambda_i I_n$ (Definition 7.4). By Proposition 7.5(b), applied $n-1$ times, and Theorem 1.3,
$$p_A(A) = (A - \lambda_1 I_n) \cdots (A - \lambda_n I_n) = (-1)^n (\lambda_1 I_n - A) \cdots (\lambda_n I_n - A) = 0$$

Problem 7.10. Show that every $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is the sum of two invertible matrices.

Solution.

- p_A has degree n (Definition 7.7(b)), so it has at most n roots (Proposition 7.5(d)), and the real eigenvalues of A are among them (Definition 7.7(a)). Let $c_1, \ldots, c_k$ $(0 \leqslant k \leqslant n)$ be the distinct real eigenvalues of A, and put $c = 1 + |c_1| + \cdots + |c_k|$ ($c = 1$ if $k = 0$).
- Then $c > |c_i|$ for every i, so neither c nor $-c$ is an eigenvalue of A. By Theorem 7.3, (i)$\Leftrightarrow$(ii), with $\lambda = c$ and with $\lambda = -c$, the matrices $A - cI$ and $A - (-c)I = A + cI$ are invertible.
- Hence $\frac{1}{2}(A + cI)$ and $\frac{1}{2}(A - cI)$ are invertible, as $\frac{1}{2}(A \pm cI) \cdot 2(A \pm cI)^{-1} = I$ (Theorem 2.16), and
$$A = \tfrac{1}{2}(A + cI) + \tfrac{1}{2}(A - cI)$$

Problem 7.11. Let $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be orthogonal, with $p_Q(t) = c_0 + c_1 t + \cdots + c_n t^n$, and let $\tilde{p}(t) = c_n + c_{n-1}t + \cdots + c_0 t^n$ be the polynomial with the coefficients of p_Q in reverse order, so that $\tilde{p}(t) = t^n p_Q(1/t)$ for real $t \neq 0$. Show that $\tilde{p} = p_Q$ or $\tilde{p} = -p_Q$.

Solution. Fix a real $t \neq 0$.

- $t^n p_Q(1/t) = t^n \sum_{k=0}^n c_k t^{-k} = \sum_{k=0}^n c_k t^{n-k} = \tilde{p}(t)$ (Definition 7.4).
- By Definition 7.7(a) and Theorem 5.18(c), $t^n p_Q(1/t) = t^n \det(t^{-1}I - Q) = \det\big(t(t^{-1}I - Q)\big) = \det(I - tQ)$.
- As $Q'Q = I$, $I - tQ = Q'Q - tQ = (Q' - tI)Q$ (Theorem 1.3), so $\det(I - tQ) = \det(Q' - tI) \cdot \det Q$ (Theorem 5.18(b)).
- By Theorem 5.18(c), Definition 7.7(a) and Proposition 7.18(d),

$$\det(Q' - tI) = \det\big((-1)(tI - Q')\big) = (-1)^n \det(tI - Q') = (-1)^n p_{Q'}(t) = (-1)^n p_Q(t)$$

So $\tilde{p}(t) = \varepsilon\, p_Q(t)$ for every real $t \neq 0$, where $\varepsilon = (-1)^n \det Q$; and $\varepsilon = 1$ or $\varepsilon = -1$, as $\det Q = \pm 1$ (Theorem 6.19(c)). The polynomials $\tilde{p}$ and εp_Q have the same value at infinitely many t (Proposition 7.5(b)), so $\tilde{p} = \varepsilon p_Q$ (Proposition 7.5(d)), that is, $c_{n-k} = \varepsilon c_k$ for $k = 0, \ldots, n$.

Problem 7.12. Let $n \geqslant 2$, let $d_1, \ldots, d_n$ be nonzero real numbers, and let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $a_{ij} = d_i/d_j$. Find the eigenvalues of A and the eigenvectors belonging to each of them.

Solution. Let $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ and $d = (d_1, \ldots, d_n)'$.

- D is invertible, with $D^{-1} = \operatorname{diag}(d_1^{-1}, \ldots, d_n^{-1})$ (Definition 2.12). Left multiplication by D multiplies row i by d_i, and right multiplication by D^{-1} multiplies column j by d_j^{-1} (Proposition 1.13(a)); as every entry of J_n is 1, the (i,j) entry of DJ_nD^{-1} is $d_i \cdot 1 \cdot d_j^{-1} = a_{ij}$. So $A = DJ_nD^{-1}$, that is, $J_n = D^{-1}AD$: J_n is similar to A (Definition 7.14).
- By Theorem 7.15(a) and Example 7.34, $p_A = p_{J_n} = t^{n-1}(t - n)$: the eigenvalues of A are n, simple, and 0, of algebraic multiplicity $n - 1$.
- Eigenvectors of $J_n = \mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'$: $J_n y = \mathbf{1}(\mathbf{1}'y)$ (Theorem 1.3), a multiple of $\mathbf{1}$. So $J_n y = 0$ if and only if $\mathbf{1}'y = 0$, as $\mathbf{1} \neq 0$ (Proposition 3.13(a)); and if $J_n y = ny$, then $y = \frac{1}{n}(\mathbf{1}'y)\mathbf{1}$. Hence $\mathcal{N}(J_n) = \{y : \mathbf{1}'y = 0\}$, and $\mathcal{N}(J_n - nI) = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$, as $J_n\mathbf{1} = n\mathbf{1}$.
- By Theorem 7.15(b), with $P = D$ and $J_n = D^{-1}AD$, x is an eigenvector of A belonging to c if and only if $D^{-1}x$ is an eigenvector of J_n belonging to c. For $c = n$: $D^{-1}x = s\mathbf{1}$ with $s \neq 0$, that is, $x = sD\mathbf{1} = sd$. For $c = 0$: $x \neq 0$ and $\mathbf{1}'D^{-1}x = 0$, that is,

$$\frac{x_1}{d_1} + \frac{x_2}{d_2} + \cdots + \frac{x_n}{d_n} = 0$$

- So the eigenvectors belonging to n are the nonzero multiples of d, and those belonging to 0 are the nonzero vectors of $\mathcal{N}(A) = \{x : x_1/d_1 + \cdots + x_n/d_n = 0\}$. Here $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = \dim \mathcal{N}(J_n) = n - 1$ (Theorem 7.15(b); $\mathcal{N}(J_n) = \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{1}')$, $\operatorname{rank}\mathbf{1}' = 1$ as its only row is nonzero, and Theorem 4.12), and the $n - 1$ vectors $d_1 e_1 - d_j e_j$ $(j = 2, \ldots, n)$ of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ are linearly independent, as only the jth of them has a nonzero entry in position j; so they form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

Check: entry i of Ad is $\sum_j (d_i/d_j)d_j = nd_i$, and entry i of Ax is $d_i \sum_j x_j/d_j$.

Problem 7.13. Find all idempotent matrices $P \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$.

Solution. Let $P \in \mathbb{R}^{2\times 2}$. First, P is idempotent if and only if $P = 0$, or $P = I_2$, or $\operatorname{tr} P = 1$ and $\det P = 0$.

- Let $P^2 = P$. Then $\operatorname{rank} P \in \{0, 1, 2\}$ (Theorem 4.13(a)). If $\operatorname{rank} P = 0$, then $\mathcal{C}(P) = \{0\}$ (Definition 4.11, Theorem 4.4), so every column of P is 0 (Definition 4.7) and $P = 0$. If $\operatorname{rank} P = 2$, then P is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)), and multiplying $P^2 = P$ on the left by P^{-1} gives $P = I_2$. If $\operatorname{rank} P = 1$, then $\operatorname{tr} P = \operatorname{rank} P = 1$ (Theorem 6.29(c)), and $\det P = 0$, as P is not invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)).
- Conversely, 0 and I_2 are idempotent. If $\operatorname{tr} P = 1$ and $\det P = 0$, then $p_P(t) = t^2 - (\operatorname{tr} P)t + \det P = t^2 - t$ (Definition 7.7(b)), and the Cayley–Hamilton theorem (Theorem 7.38) gives $P^2 - P = 0$.

Next, the matrices with $\operatorname{tr} P = 1$ and $\det P = 0$.

- Write $P = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} \alpha & \beta \\ \gamma & \delta \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. If $\operatorname{tr} P = 1$, then $\delta = 1 - \alpha$; with $a = 2\alpha - 1$, $b = 2\beta$ and $c = 2\gamma$,

$$P = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1+a & b \\ c & 1-a \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \det P = \tfrac{1}{4}(1+a)(1-a) - \tfrac{1}{4}bc = \tfrac{1}{4}\big(1 - a^2 - bc\big)$$

- So $\det P = 0$ if and only if $a^2 + bc = 1$. Conversely, every matrix of this form with $a, b, c \in \mathbb{R}$ has trace $\frac{1}{2}(1+a) + \frac{1}{2}(1-a) = 1$.

Hence the idempotent 2×2 matrices are 0, I_2, and the matrices

$$P = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1+a & b \\ c & 1-a \end{pmatrix} \qquad (a, b, c \in \mathbb{R},\ a^2 + bc = 1)$$

Problem 7.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ satisfy $A^2 = I_n$.

(a) Show that $E = \frac{1}{2}(I_n + A)$ is idempotent and that $A = 2E - I_n$.

(b) Show that A is diagonalizable, that its eigenvalues lie in $\{1, -1\}$, that $\mathcal{N}(A - I_n) = \mathcal{C}(I_n + A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A + I_n) = \mathcal{C}(I_n - A)$, and that $g_A(1) + g_A(-1) = n$. Compare with Problem 4.3.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 1.3 and $A^2 = I_n$, $E^2 = \frac{1}{4}(I_n + 2A + A^2) = \frac{1}{4}(2I_n + 2A) = E$, and $2E - I_n = I_n + A - I_n = A$.

(b)

- $(A - I_n)(I_n + A) = A^2 - I_n = 0$ and $(A + I_n)(I_n - A) = I_n - A^2 = 0$ (Theorem 1.3). So for every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $(I_n + A)y \in \mathcal{N}(A - I_n)$ and $(I_n - A)y \in \mathcal{N}(A + I_n)$: $\mathcal{C}(I_n + A) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(A - I_n)$ and $\mathcal{C}(I_n - A) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(A + I_n)$ (Definition 4.7).
- Conversely, if $Ax = x$, then $x = \frac{1}{2}(x + Ax) = (I_n + A)(\frac{1}{2}x) \in \mathcal{C}(I_n + A)$; and if $Ax = -x$, then $x = \frac{1}{2}(x - Ax) = (I_n - A)(\frac{1}{2}x) \in \mathcal{C}(I_n - A)$. Hence $\mathcal{N}(A - I_n) = \mathcal{C}(I_n + A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A + I_n) = \mathcal{C}(I_n - A)$.
- Every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is $x = \frac{1}{2}(x + Ax) + \frac{1}{2}(x - Ax)$, where $\frac{1}{2}(x + Ax) = (I_n + A)(\frac{1}{2}x)$ lies in $\mathcal{N}(A - I_n)$ and $\frac{1}{2}(x - Ax) = (I_n - A)(\frac{1}{2}x)$ in $\mathcal{N}(A + I_n)$, by the first item. So $\mathbb{R}^n = \mathcal{N}(A - I_n) + \mathcal{N}(A + I_n)$ (Definition 3.30). If x lies in both null spaces, then $x = Ax = -x$, so $x = 0$. By Theorems 4.23 and 4.4 and Definition 7.21, $g_A(1) + g_A(-1) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A - I_n) + \dim \mathcal{N}(A + I_n) = \dim \mathbb{R}^n = n$.
- If $Ax = \lambda x$ with $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$ and $x \neq 0$, then $x = A^2x = \lambda^2 x$ (Proposition 7.18(a)), so $\lambda^2 = 1$ (Proposition 3.13(a)): the real eigenvalues of A are among 1 and -1. So the dimensions of the eigenspaces of the distinct real eigenvalues of A add up to $g_A(1) + g_A(-1) = n$ (a null space $\mathcal{N}(A \mp I_n) = \{0\}$ adds 0), and A is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25, (iii)⇒(i)). By Definition 7.23, all eigenvalues of A are then real; so they lie in $\{1, -1\}$.

In terms of ranks, $g_A(1) = \dim \mathcal{C}(I_n + A) = \operatorname{rank}(I_n + A)$ and $g_A(-1) = \operatorname{rank}(I_n - A)$ (Definition 4.11), so $\operatorname{rank}(I_n + A) + \operatorname{rank}(I_n - A) = n$, the identity of Problem 4.3.

Chapter 8. The spectral theorem and quadratic forms

Real eigenvalues and orthogonal eigenvectors

Theorem 8.1. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric. Then every eigenvalue of A (every complex root of p_A, Definition 7.10) is real, and for each eigenvalue λ there is a nonzero $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $Ax = \lambda x$.

Proof. Let $\mu = \alpha + i\beta$ ($\alpha, \beta \in \mathbb{R}$) be a root of p_A, and put $Y = (A - \alpha I)^2 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

- For every real s, $\Big((\alpha + s)I - A\Big)\Big((\alpha - s)I - A\Big) = (\alpha I - A)^2 - s^2 I = Y - s^2 I$, as sI commutes with every matrix. By Theorem 5.18(b),

$$p_A(\alpha + s)\, p_A(\alpha - s) = \det(Y - s^2 I) \qquad (s \in \mathbb{R})$$

- Both sides are polynomials in s with real coefficients: p_A has real coefficients (Definition 7.7), and on the left we expand the powers of $\alpha \pm s$; on the right $\det(Y - rI) = (-1)^n p_Y(r)$ (Theorem 5.18(c)) with $r = s^2$. They agree at every real s, so they are equal as polynomials (Proposition 7.5(d)), and the identity also holds for $s = i\beta$ (Proposition 7.5(b)): $\det(Y + \beta^2 I) = p_A(\mu)\, p_A(\alpha - i\beta) = 0$.
- $A - \alpha I$ is symmetric, so $Y = (A - \alpha I)'(A - \alpha I)$, and for $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$

$$x'(Y + \beta^2 I)x = \|(A - \alpha I)x\|^2 + \beta^2 \|x\|^2$$

  If $\beta \neq 0$, this is > 0 for every $x \neq 0$, so $(Y + \beta^2 I)x \neq 0$: $Y + \beta^2 I$ is invertible (Theorem 2.16), and $\det(Y + \beta^2 I) \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)) ✘ Hence $\beta = 0$.
- So $\lambda = \mu = \alpha$ is real and $\det(\lambda I - A) = 0$; by Theorem 7.3, $Ax = \lambda x$ for some nonzero $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$. □

Most matrices of statistics in this book whose eigenvalues we use are symmetric, so their eigenvalues are real by Theorem 8.1: $A'A$ for every matrix A (Theorem 1.9), the projection matrices P_W (Theorem 6.31(c)), among them $\bar{J}_n$ and C_n (Proposition 1.15), the equicorrelation matrix of Example 5.33, and the covariance and correlation matrices of data. A matrix that is not symmetric may have eigenvalues that are not real: the matrix of Example 7.12 has the eigenvalues 1 and $2 \pm i$. The others are the matrices $A^{-1}B$ with A PD and B symmetric, which need not be symmetric, but whose eigenvalues are real too; this is shown in the section on simultaneous diagonalization.

Theorem 8.2. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, and let $Ax = \lambda x$, $Ay = \mu y$ with $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\lambda \neq \mu$. Then $x'y = 0$.

Proof. $\lambda x'y = (Ax)'y = x'A'y = x'Ay = \mu x'y$, so $(\lambda - \mu)x'y = 0$, and $\lambda - \mu \neq 0$. □

The spectral theorem

Theorem 8.3 (Spectral theorem)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric.

(a) $\mathbb{R}^n$ has an orthonormal basis $q_1, \ldots, q_n$ consisting of eigenvectors of A.

(b) Let $Aq_i = \lambda_i q_i$ ($i = 1, \ldots, n$), $Q = [q_1 \ \cdots \ q_n]$ and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n)$. Then Q is orthogonal and

$$Q'AQ = \Lambda, \qquad A = Q\Lambda Q'$$

Conversely, if $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ and $Q'BQ$ is diagonal for an orthogonal Q, then B is symmetric. The q_i may be numbered in any order, for instance so that $\lambda_1 \geqslant \lambda_2 \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \lambda_n$.

(c) $p_A(t) = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_n)$: the numbers $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A, each eigenvalue λ listed $a_A(\lambda)$ times.

Proof. (a) We show by induction on n that $Q'AQ$ is diagonal for some orthogonal $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

- For $n = 1$, take $Q = (1)$.
- Let $n \geqslant 2$, and assume the claim for symmetric matrices of size $n-1$. As p_A has $n \geqslant 1$ roots, A has an eigenvalue λ (Definition 7.10); by Theorem 8.1, λ is real and $Ax = \lambda x$ for some nonzero $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$. Then $u = x/\|x\|$ has $u'u = 1$ and $Au = \lambda u$.
- By Corollary 6.15(c), with $p = 1 < n$, there is $V \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times(n-1)}$ such that $[u\ V]$ is orthogonal. Comparing blocks of $[u\ V]'[u\ V] = I_n$ (Theorem 5.3(b),(c)) gives $V'u = 0$ and $V'V = I_{n-1}$.
- $V'Au = \lambda V'u = 0$, $u'AV = (V'A'u)' = (V'Au)' = 0$ and $u'Au = \lambda u'u = \lambda$; so, by block multiplication (Theorem 5.3(b),(c)),

$$[u\ V]'A[u\ V] = \begin{pmatrix} u'Au & u'AV \\ V'Au & V'AV \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \lambda & 0 \\ 0 & B \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = V'AV \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$$

- $B' = V'A'V = B$. By the induction hypothesis, $R'BR = \Lambda_2$ is diagonal for some orthogonal $R \in \mathbb{R}^{(n-1)\times(n-1)}$. Let $S = \operatorname{diag}(1, R)$ and $Q = [u\ V]S$. By Theorems 1.9 and 5.3(b) and Proposition 5.6(b),

$$Q'Q = S'[u\ V]'[u\ V]S = S'S = \operatorname{diag}(1, R'R) = I_n$$
$$Q'AQ = S' \operatorname{diag}(\lambda, B)\, S = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda, R'BR) = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda, \Lambda_2)$$

  so Q is orthogonal and $Q'AQ$ is diagonal.
- Let $\Lambda = Q'AQ$, and let $q_1, \dots, q_n$ be the columns of Q. As $QQ' = I_n$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), $AQ = QQ'AQ = Q\Lambda$, whose column i reads $Aq_i = \lambda_i q_i$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); and $q_i'q_j = \delta_{ij}$, as $Q'Q = I_n$. So $q_1, \dots, q_n$ are orthonormal eigenvectors of A, hence independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), and they form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).

(b)

- $(Q'Q)_{ij} = q_i'q_j = \delta_{ij}$, so $Q'Q = I_n$: Q is orthogonal, and $Q^{-1} = Q'$ (Proposition 6.13(b)).
- $AQ = [Aq_1\ \cdots\ Aq_n] = [\lambda_1 q_1\ \cdots\ \lambda_n q_n] = Q\Lambda$, since $\operatorname{col}_j(Q\Lambda) = Q(\lambda_j e_j) = \lambda_j q_j$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). Multiplying by Q' on the left, or on the right, gives $Q'AQ = \Lambda$ and $A = Q\Lambda Q'$.
- Conversely, if $Q'BQ = D$ is diagonal, then $B = QDQ'$ and $B' = QD'Q' = QDQ' = B$ (Theorem 1.9).
- Any renumbering of $q_1, \dots, q_n$ is again an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors of A, so the above applies to it; numbering the q_i by decreasing λ_i gives $\lambda_1 \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \lambda_n$.

(c) As $Q^{-1} = Q'$, $Q^{-1}AQ = \Lambda$; so $p_A = p_\Lambda = (t-\lambda_1)\cdots(t-\lambda_n)$ (Theorem 7.15(a), Proposition 7.16(b)), and $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity: this is the last sentence of Definition 7.23. □

Theorem 8.4. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric. For every real c, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI) = a_A(c)$ (which is 0 if c is not an eigenvalue). Hence $g_A(c) = a_A(c)$ for every eigenvalue c; $\operatorname{rank} A$ is the number of nonzero eigenvalues of A, counted with multiplicity; and $a_A(0) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - \operatorname{rank} A$. Moreover, if $c_1, \dots, c_k$ are the distinct eigenvalues of A, then orthonormal bases of $\mathcal{N}(A - c_1 I), \dots, \mathcal{N}(A - c_k I)$, put side by side in any order, form an orthonormal basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ consisting of eigenvectors of A, as in Theorem 8.3(a).

Proof. Let $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ as in Theorem 8.3.

- A diagonal matrix $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \dots, d_n)$ has rank equal to the number of i with $d_i \neq 0$: its nonzero columns $d_i e_i$ are nonzero and pairwise orthogonal, hence independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), and they span $\mathcal{C}(D)$.

- For real c, $A - cI = Q(\Lambda - cI)Q'$ with Q, Q' invertible, so $\operatorname{rank}(A - cI) = \operatorname{rank}(\Lambda - cI)$ (Theorem 4.15(d)), the number of i with $\lambda_i \neq c$.
- By Theorem 4.12, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI) = n - \operatorname{rank}(A - cI)$ is the number of i with $\lambda_i = c$, which is $a_A(c)$ by Theorem 8.3(c). For an eigenvalue c this is $g_A(c) = a_A(c)$ (Definition 7.21), and $c = 0$ gives the statements on $\operatorname{rank} A$ and $a_A(0)$.
- The c_j are real (Theorem 8.1) and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - c_j I) = a_A(c_j) \geqslant 1$, so each $\mathcal{N}(A - c_j I)$ has an orthonormal basis of $a_A(c_j)$ vectors (Corollary 6.15(a)). Vectors from different eigenspaces are orthogonal (Theorem 8.2), so all these vectors together are orthonormal, hence independent (Proposition 6.11(b)); there are $a_A(c_1) + \cdots + a_A(c_k) = n$ of them (Definition 7.10), so they form a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(d)). □

Example 8.5. Find an orthogonal Q with $Q'AQ$ diagonal for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 2J_3 - I_3$$

Solution. For real t, apply $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2 + R_3$, take the factor $t - 5$ out of row 1, and apply $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1$, $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1$ (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorem 5.14(c)):

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - A) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & t-1 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-5 & t-5 & t-5 \\ -2 & t-1 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-5) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & t-1 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-5) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & t+1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-5)(t+1)^2 \end{aligned}$$

This holds for every real t, hence as polynomials (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)): the eigenvalues are 5 with $a_A(5) = 1$ and -1 with $a_A(-1) = 2$.

- Every row sum of A is 5, so $A\mathbf{1}_3 = 5\mathbf{1}_3$; as $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - 5I) = a_A(5) = 1$ (Theorem 8.4), $\mathcal{N}(A - 5I) = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_3\}$.
- Reduce $A + I = 2J_3$:

$$A + I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

  so $\mathcal{N}(A + I) = \{x : x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 0\}$, of dimension 2. It contains $u_2 = (-2, 1, 1)'$. A second vector of $\mathcal{N}(A + I)$ orthogonal to u_2 solves $x_1 + x_2 + x_3 = 0$ and $u_2' x = 0$:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{3}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  so $x_1 = 0$, $x_2 = -x_3$; take $u_3 = (0, -1, 1)'$.
- $\mathbf{1}_3 \perp u_2, u_3$ (Theorem 8.2) and $u_2 \perp u_3$. Normalizing,

$$Q = \begin{pmatrix} 1/\sqrt{3} & -2/\sqrt{6} & 0 \\ 1/\sqrt{3} & 1/\sqrt{6} & -1/\sqrt{2} \\ 1/\sqrt{3} & 1/\sqrt{6} & 1/\sqrt{2} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q'AQ = \operatorname{diag}(5, -1, -1)$$

  by Theorem 8.3(b). Check: $Au_2 = (2, -1, -1)' = -u_2$ and $Au_3 = (0, 1, -1)' = -u_3$.

The spectral decomposition

Theorem 8.6 (Spectral decomposition)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric with distinct eigenvalues $c_1, \dots, c_k$, let $W_j = \mathcal{N}(A - c_j I)$, and let $E_j = P_{W_j} \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be the projection matrix for W_j (Theorem 6.31(a)): $E_j y$ is the orthogonal projection of y onto W_j (Definition 6.22), and $E_j = V_j(V_j'V_j)^{-1}V_j'$ whenever the columns of V_j form a basis of W_j (Theorem 6.31(b)). (Here E_j is a projection matrix, not an elementary matrix as in Theorem 2.15(c).)

(a) $W_i \perp W_j$ for $i \neq j$. Every $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$ can be written as $y = y_1 + \cdots + y_k$ with $y_j \in W_j$ in exactly one way, and then $E_j y = y_j$.

(b) $E_1 + \cdots + E_k = I_n$, $E_j' = E_j = E_j^2$, $E_i E_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$, each $E_j \neq 0$ (as $E_j w = w$ for $w \in W_j$, by (a)), and

$$A = c_1 E_1 + \cdots + c_k E_k, \qquad A^m = c_1^m E_1 + \cdots + c_k^m E_k \quad (m = 0, 1, 2, \dots)$$

If no c_j is 0, then A is invertible and $A^{-1} = c_1^{-1} E_1 + \cdots + c_k^{-1} E_k$.

(c) If $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ as in Theorem 8.3 and Q_j consists of the columns q_i of Q with $\lambda_i = c_j$, then $E_j = Q_j Q_j' = \sum_{\lambda_i = c_j} q_i q_i'$, $A = \sum_{i=1}^n \lambda_i q_i q_i'$, and $A^m = Q\Lambda^m Q'$ $(m = 0, 1, 2, \dots)$. Moreover $\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{q_i : \lambda_i = 0\}$ and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{q_i : \lambda_i \neq 0\}$.

(d) (Uniqueness) Let $A = b_1 F_1 + \cdots + b_r F_r$, where $b_1, \dots, b_r$ are distinct numbers and $F_1, \dots, F_r \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ are nonzero, symmetric and idempotent, with $F_1 + \cdots + F_r = I_n$ and $F_l F_m = 0$ for $l \neq m$. Then $r = k$, and after renumbering $b_j = c_j$ and $F_j = E_j$ for every j.

The expression $A = \sum_j c_j E_j$ is the **spectral decomposition** of A.

Proof. (a)

- $W_i \perp W_j$ by Theorem 8.2.
- Let $q_1, \dots, q_n$ be an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors (Theorem 8.3). Then $y = \sum_i (q_i' y) q_i$ (Proposition 6.11(a)), and each q_i lies in the W_j with $c_j = \lambda_i$; grouping the terms gives $y = \sum_j y_j$ with $y_j \in W_j$.
- If $z_1 + \cdots + z_k = 0$ with $z_j \in W_j$, then $0 = z_i' \sum_j z_j = \sum_j z_i' z_j = \|z_i\|^2$, so every $z_i = 0$. Applied to the differences of two such expressions of y, this gives uniqueness.
- $y - y_j = \sum_{l \neq j} y_l \perp W_j$ and $y_j \in W_j$, so y_j is the orthogonal projection of y onto W_j: $E_j y = y_j$.

(b)

- $\sum_j E_j y = \sum_j y_j = y$ for every y, so $\sum_j E_j = I_n$. $E_j' = E_j = E_j^2$ by Theorem 6.31(c).
- For $i \neq j$ and every y, $E_j y \in W_j$ is its own decomposition in (a), with zero part in W_i; so $E_i E_j y = 0$.
- $Ay = \sum_j A y_j = \sum_j c_j y_j = \sum_j c_j E_j y$ for every y, so $A = \sum_j c_j E_j$.
- $A^0 = I_n = \sum_j E_j$, and if $A^m = \sum_i c_i^m E_i$, then $A^{m+1} = \left(\sum_i c_i^m E_i\right)\left(\sum_j c_j E_j\right) = \sum_j c_j^{m+1} E_j$, since $E_i E_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ and $E_j^2 = E_j$.
- In the same way $A \sum_j c_j^{-1} E_j = \sum_j E_j = I_n$, so $A^{-1} = \sum_j c_j^{-1} E_j$ (Theorem 2.16).

(c)

- The columns of Q_j are orthonormal eigenvectors for c_j, so they lie in W_j and are independent; their number is $a_A(c_j) = \dim W_j$ (Theorem 8.4). So they form an orthonormal basis of W_j (Theorem 4.5(d)), and $E_j = Q_j Q_j'$ (Theorem 6.31(b)).
- By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $Q_j Q_j' = \sum_{\lambda_i = c_j} q_i q_i'$, and $A = (Q\Lambda)Q' = \sum_i \lambda_i q_i q_i'$, as $\operatorname{col}_i(Q\Lambda) = \lambda_i q_i$.

- $A = Q\Lambda Q^{-1}$ with $Q^{-1} = Q'$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), so $A^m = Q\Lambda^m Q^{-1} = Q\Lambda^m Q'$ (Proposition 7.27(a)).
- If $\lambda_i \neq 0$, then $q_i = A(\lambda_i^{-1} q_i) \in \mathcal{C}(A)$; if $\lambda_i = 0$, then $Aq_i = \lambda_i q_i = 0$. So $\operatorname{span}\{q_i : \lambda_i \neq 0\} \subseteq \mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\operatorname{span}\{q_i : \lambda_i = 0\} \subseteq \mathcal{N}(A)$ (Theorem 3.7). The q_i are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), and there are $\operatorname{rank} A = \dim \mathcal{C}(A)$ of them with $\lambda_i \neq 0$ and $a_A(0) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A)$ with $\lambda_i = 0$ (Theorems 8.3(c) and 8.4, Definition 4.11); so both inclusions are equalities (Theorem 4.5(a)).

(d)

- As $F_m \neq 0$, there is y with $x = F_m y \neq 0$; then $Ax = \sum_l b_l F_l F_m y = b_m x$. So every b_m is an eigenvalue of A, and $\mathcal{C}(F_m) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(A - b_m I)$.
- Let $Ax = cx$ with $x \neq 0$. Then $x = \sum_l F_l x$ and $0 = Ax - cx = \sum_l (b_l - c) F_l x$. The vectors $F_l x$ are pairwise orthogonal ($(F_l x)'(F_m x) = x' F_l F_m x = 0$), so $0 = \|\sum_l (b_l - c) F_l x\|^2 = \sum_l (b_l - c)^2 \|F_l x\|^2$. Hence $F_l x = 0$ whenever $b_l \neq c$. As $x \neq 0$, some $F_l x \neq 0$; so c is one of the b_l, and $x = F_l x \in \mathcal{C}(F_l)$ for that l.
- So $\{b_1, \ldots, b_r\} = \{c_1, \ldots, c_k\}$, $r = k$, and after renumbering $b_j = c_j$ and $\mathcal{C}(F_j) = W_j$. F_j is symmetric and idempotent, so $F_j y$ is the orthogonal projection of y onto $\mathcal{C}(F_j) = W_j$ (Theorem 6.29(d)): $F_j = E_j$. □

Example 8.7. For $A = 2J_3 - I_3$ of Example 8.5, with the distinct eigenvalues $c_1 = 5$ and $c_2 = -1$, Theorem 8.6(c) gives $E_1 = q_1 q_1' = \frac{1}{3}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}' = \bar{J}_3$, and then $E_2 = I_3 - E_1 = C_3$ by (b); indeed

$$q_2 q_2' + q_3 q_3' = \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix} 4 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = C_3$$

So $A = 5\bar{J}_3 - C_3$, $A^m = 5^m \bar{J}_3 + (-1)^m C_3$; for instance $A^2 = 25\bar{J}_3 + C_3 = I_3 + 8J_3$. As no eigenvalue is 0,

$$A^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{5}\bar{J}_3 - C_3 = \tfrac{2}{5}J_3 - I_3 = \frac{1}{5}\begin{pmatrix} -3 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & -3 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Example 8.8. Find an orthogonal Q with $Q'AQ$ diagonal, and the matrices E_j of Theorem 8.6, for

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 11 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 2 & 11 & 6 & 6 \\ 6 & 6 & 11 & 2 \\ 6 & 6 & 2 & 11 \end{pmatrix}$$

Solution.

- For real t, in $tI_4 - A$ subtract row 2 from row 1 and row 4 from row 3; the new rows 1 and 3 are $(t-9)(1,-1,0,0)$ and $(t-9)(0,0,1,-1)$. Take the two factors $t-9$ out, add column 1 to column 2 and column 3 to column 4 (Definition 5.13(b),(a), Theorem 5.22), and expand along row 1 and then along the row $(0,1,0)$ (Theorem 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI_4 - A) &= \det\begin{pmatrix} t-11 & -2 & -6 & -6 \\ -2 & t-11 & -6 & -6 \\ -6 & -6 & t-11 & -2 \\ -6 & -6 & -2 & t-11 \end{pmatrix} = (t-9)^2 \det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & t-11 & -6 & -6 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ -6 & -6 & -2 & t-11 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-9)^2 \det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & t-13 & -6 & -12 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -6 & -12 & -2 & t-13 \end{pmatrix} = (t-9)^2 \det\begin{pmatrix} t-13 & -6 & -12 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -12 & -2 & t-13 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-9)^2\Big((t-13)^2 - 144\Big) = (t-9)^2(t-25)(t-1) \end{aligned}$$

This holds for every real t, hence as polynomials (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)): the eigenvalues are $c_1 = 25$, $c_2 = 9$ and $c_3 = 1$, with $a_A(25) = a_A(1) = 1$ and $a_A(9) = 2$.

- The row sums of A are 25, so $A\mathbf{1}_4 = 25\,\mathbf{1}_4$; and $v = (1, 1, -1, -1)'$ has $Av = (11 + 2 - 12,\ 2 + 11 - 12,\ 12 - 11 - 2,\ 12 - 2 - 11)' = v$. By Theorem 8.4, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - 25I) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A - I) = 1$, so $q_1 = \frac{1}{2}\mathbf{1}_4$ and $q_4 = \frac{1}{2}v$ are orthonormal bases of $\mathcal{N}(A - 25I)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A - I)$.
- $\mathcal{N}(A - 9I)$: reduce $A - 9I$,

$$A - 9I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 2 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 6 & 6 & 2 & 2 \\ 6 & 6 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 6 & 6 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -16 & -16 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 0 & 0 & -16 & -16 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{16}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\mathcal{N}(A - 9I) = \{x : x_1 + x_2 = 0,\ x_3 + x_4 = 0\}$, with the free unknowns x_2, x_4 and the special solutions $u_2 = (-1, 1, 0, 0)'$ and $u_3 = (0, 0, -1, 1)'$. They are orthogonal, so $q_2 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}u_2$ and $q_3 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}u_3$ form an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 9I)$.

- $q_1, q_4 \perp q_2, q_3$ (Theorem 8.2), and $q_1'q_4 = 0$. So $Q = [q_1\ q_2\ q_3\ q_4]$ is orthogonal and $Q'AQ = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(25, 9, 9, 1)$ (Theorem 8.3(b)).
- By Theorem 8.6(c),

$$E_1 = q_1q_1' = \tfrac{1}{4}J_4, \qquad E_2 = q_2q_2' + q_3q_3' = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_3 = q_4q_4' = \tfrac{1}{4}vv'$$

$E_1 + E_2 + E_3 = I_4$, and $A = 25E_1 + 9E_2 + E_3$; for instance the $(1,1)$, $(1,2)$ and $(1,3)$ entries are $\frac{25}{4} + \frac{9}{2} + \frac{1}{4} = 11$, $\frac{25}{4} - \frac{9}{2} + \frac{1}{4} = 2$ and $\frac{25}{4} - \frac{1}{4} = 6$.

The vectors $\frac{1}{2}(1, -1, 1, -1)'$ and $\frac{1}{2}(1, -1, -1, 1)'$ also form an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{N}(A - 9I)$. They give another Q, with entries $\pm\frac{1}{2}$, but, by Theorem 8.6(c), the same projection matrix

$$E_2 = \tfrac{1}{4}\Big((1, -1, 1, -1)'(1, -1, 1, -1) + (1, -1, -1, 1)'(1, -1, -1, 1)\Big)$$

Functions of a symmetric matrix

Definition 8.9. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric with spectral decomposition $A = c_1E_1 + \cdots + c_kE_k$ (Theorem 8.6), and let f be a real-valued function defined at $c_1, \ldots, c_k$. The matrix

$$f(A) = f(c_1)E_1 + \cdots + f(c_k)E_k$$

is the **function** f of A.

Proposition 8.10. Let $A = c_1E_1 + \cdots + c_kE_k$ be as in Definition 8.9, let $W_j = \mathcal{N}(A - c_jI)$, and let f, g be real-valued functions defined at $c_1, \ldots, c_k$.

(a) $f(A)$ is symmetric, and $f(A)x = f(c_j)x$ for every $x \in W_j$. If $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ as in Theorem 8.3, then $f(A) = Q\, f(\Lambda)\, Q'$ with $f(\Lambda) = \operatorname{diag}\big(f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)\big)$, and the eigenvalues of $f(A)$, listed with multiplicity, are $f(\lambda_1), \ldots, f(\lambda_n)$.

(b) $f(A) + g(A) = (f+g)(A)$, $af(A) = (af)(A)$ for $a \in \mathbb{R}$, and $f(A)\, g(A) = (fg)(A)$. If $f(c_j) \neq 0$ for every j, then $f(A)$ is invertible and $f(A)^{-1} = h(A)$ for $h = 1/f$.

(c) If f is a real polynomial, then $f(A)$ is the matrix $f(A)$ of Definition 7.4. With the polynomials $e_j = \prod_{i \neq j} \frac{t - c_i}{c_j - c_i}$ ($e_1 = 1$ if $k = 1$), $E_j = e_j(A)$ for every j; hence $f(A) = p(A)$ for the polynomial $p = f(c_1)e_1 + \cdots + f(c_k)e_k$: every $f(A)$ is a polynomial in A.

Proof. (a)

- $f(A)' = \sum_j f(c_j)E_j' = f(A)$, as $E_j' = E_j$ (Theorem 8.6(b)).
- Let $x \in W_j$. Then x is its own decomposition in Theorem 8.6(a), so $E_jx = x$ and $E_ix = 0$ for $i \neq j$; hence $f(A)x = f(c_j)x$.
- Each q_i lies in the W_j with $c_j = \lambda_i$, so $f(A)q_i = f(\lambda_i)q_i$, that is, $f(A)Q = Q\, f(\Lambda)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); as $QQ' = I_n$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), $f(A) = Q\, f(\Lambda)\, Q'$.
- So $q_1, \ldots, q_n$ is an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors of the symmetric matrix $f(A)$, with $f(A)q_i = f(\lambda_i)q_i$, and Theorem 8.3(b),(c), applied to $f(A)$, gives its eigenvalues.

(b)

- The first two rules hold term by term. As $E_iE_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ and $E_j^2 = E_j$ (Theorem 8.6(b)), $f(A)\, g(A) = \sum_i \sum_j f(c_i)g(c_j)E_iE_j = \sum_j f(c_j)g(c_j)E_j = (fg)(A)$.
- If every $f(c_j) \neq 0$, then $h = 1/f$ is defined at every c_j, and $f(A)\, h(A) = (fh)(A) = \sum_j E_j = I_n$ (Theorem 8.6(b)); so $f(A)^{-1} = h(A)$ (Theorem 2.16).

(c)

- Let $f = a_0 + a_1t + \cdots + a_rt^r$. Since $\sum_j c_j^m E_j = A^m$ (Theorem 8.6(b)), the matrix of Definition 8.9 is $\sum_j \sum_m a_m c_j^m E_j = \sum_m a_m A^m$, the matrix of Definition 7.4.
- The c_i are real (Theorem 8.1), so each e_j is a real polynomial, and $e_j(c_l)$ is 1 for $l = j$ and 0 for $l \neq j$ (Proposition 7.5(b)). By the first item, $e_j(A) = \sum_l e_j(c_l)E_l = E_j$.
- Hence $f(A) = \sum_j f(c_j)E_j = \sum_j f(c_j)e_j(A) = p(A)$ (Proposition 7.5(b)). □

Example 8.11. Let $A = 2J_3 - I_3 = 5\bar{J}_3 - C_3$, with $c_1 = 5$, $c_2 = -1$, $E_1 = \bar{J}_3$ and $E_2 = C_3$ (Examples 8.5 and 8.7).

- $e_1 = \frac{t+1}{6}$ and $e_2 = \frac{5-t}{6}$, so by Proposition 8.10(c) $\bar{J}_3 = \frac{1}{6}(A + I_3)$ and $C_3 = \frac{1}{6}(5I_3 - A)$. Indeed $A + I_3 = 2J_3$ and $5I_3 - A = 6I_3 - 2J_3$.
- For $f(t) = |t|$,

$$f(A) = 5\bar{J}_3 + C_3 = I_3 + \tfrac{4}{3}J_3 = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 7 & 4 & 4 \\ 4 & 7 & 4 \\ 4 & 4 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

  By Proposition 8.10, $f(A)$ is symmetric with the eigenvalues 5, 1, 1; $f(A)^2 = 25\bar{J}_3 + C_3 = A^2$; and $f(A) = p(A)$ for $p = 5e_1 + e_2 = \frac{2t+5}{3}$: indeed $\frac{1}{3}(2A + 5I_3) = \frac{1}{3}(4J_3 + 3I_3)$.

Example 8.12. For $A = 25E_1 + 9E_2 + E_3$ of Example 8.8, Theorem 8.6(b) gives

$$A^k = 25^k E_1 + 9^k E_2 + E_3 \quad (k \geqslant 0), \qquad A^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{25}E_1 + \tfrac{1}{9}E_2 + E_3 = \frac{1}{225}\begin{pmatrix} 71 & 46 & -54 & -54 \\ 46 & 71 & -54 & -54 \\ -54 & -54 & 71 & 46 \\ -54 & -54 & 46 & 71 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: row 1 of A times the first three columns of $225A^{-1}$ gives $781 + 92 - 324 - 324 = 225$, $506 + 142 - 324 - 324 = 0$ and $-594 - 108 + 426 + 276 = 0$; the other entries in the same way. The polynomial $f(t) = (t-25)(t-9)(t-1)$ vanishes at 25, 9 and 1, so $f(A) = f(25)E_1 + f(9)E_2 + f(1)E_3 = 0$ (Definition 8.9). As $f(t) = t^3 - 35t^2 + 259t - 225$, Proposition 8.10(c) gives $f(A) = A^3 - 35A^2 + 259A - 225I_4$, which is $(A - 25I_4)(A - 9I_4)(A - I_4)$ (Proposition 7.5(b)); hence $(A - 25I_4)(A - 9I_4)(A - I_4) = 0$.

Idempotent, orthogonal, and patterned matrices

Theorem 8.13. (a) Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be idempotent with $\operatorname{rank} A = r$. Then $p_A(t) = t^{n-r}(t-1)^r$: the only eigenvalues of A are 0 and 1, with $g_A(0) = a_A(0) = n - r$ and $g_A(1) = a_A(1) = r$ (each an eigenvalue only when this number is positive). The eigenspaces are $\mathcal{N}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A - I) = \mathcal{C}(A)$, and A is diagonalizable.

(b) A symmetric matrix whose eigenvalues all lie in $\{0, 1\}$ is idempotent.

(c) If $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is symmetric and idempotent with $\operatorname{rank} A = r$, then $Q'AQ = \operatorname{diag}(1, \ldots, 1, 0, \ldots, 0)$ (r entries 1) for some orthogonal Q; if $r \geqslant 1$, then $A = Q_1 Q_1'$, where $Q_1 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times r}$ consists of the first r columns of Q, and $Q_1'Q_1 = I_r$.

Proof. (a)

- If $Ax = \lambda x$ with $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$ and $x \neq 0$, then $\lambda x = Ax = A^2x = \lambda Ax = \lambda^2 x$, so $\lambda^2 = \lambda$: λ is 0 or 1.
- $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - r$ (Theorem 4.12). $I - A$ is idempotent, so $\operatorname{rank}(I - A) = \operatorname{tr}(I - A) = n - \operatorname{tr} A = n - r$ (Theorems 6.29(b),(c) and 1.11(a)), and $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - I) = n - \operatorname{rank}(I - A) = r$.
- For real c, $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI) \leqslant a_A(c)$: by Theorem 7.22 if c is an eigenvalue, and as $\mathcal{N}(A - cI) = \{0\}$ otherwise (Theorem 7.3). The multiplicities of all eigenvalues add up to n (Definition 7.10). Hence

  $$n = \dim \mathcal{N}(A) + \dim \mathcal{N}(A - I) \leqslant a_A(0) + a_A(1) \leqslant n$$

  so $a_A(0) = n - r$, $a_A(1) = r$, and A has no other eigenvalue, real or not: $p_A(t) = t^{n-r}(t-1)^r$ (Definition 7.10).
- $Av = v$ for every $v \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ (Theorem 6.29(a)), and $v = Av \in \mathcal{C}(A)$ if $Av = v$; so $\mathcal{N}(A - I) = \mathcal{C}(A)$. As $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) + \dim \mathcal{N}(A - I) = n$, A is diagonalizable (Theorem 7.25).

(b) By Theorem 8.3, $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ with $Q'Q = I_n$, and the diagonal entries of Λ are 0 or 1, so $\Lambda^2 = \Lambda$. Then $A^2 = Q\Lambda Q'Q\Lambda Q' = Q\Lambda^2 Q' = A$.

(c) By Theorem 8.3, $Q'AQ = \Lambda$ with Q orthogonal. By (a) every λ_i is 0 or 1, and exactly r of them are 1, as $r = \operatorname{rank} A$ is the number of nonzero λ_i (Theorem 8.4). Numbering the columns of Q so that $\lambda_1 = \cdots = \lambda_r = 1$ (Theorem 8.3(b)) gives $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(1, \ldots, 1, 0, \ldots, 0)$. If $r \geqslant 1$, the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)) gives $A = (Q\Lambda)Q' = q_1 q_1' + \cdots + q_r q_r' = Q_1 Q_1'$, as $\operatorname{col}_i(Q\Lambda) = \lambda_i q_i$; and $Q_1'Q_1 = I_r$, as the columns of Q are orthonormal. □

Without symmetry (b) fails: the upper triangular matrix

$$N = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad N^2 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

has $p_N(t) = (t-1)^2 t$ (Proposition 7.16(b)), but $N^2 \neq N$.

Example 8.14. Let

$$E = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Show that E is idempotent, and find an invertible P with $P^{-1}EP$ diagonal.

Solution.

- Row 1 of E times the columns of E gives $1+1+0-1=1$, $1+0+1-1=1$, $-1+1-2+1=-1$ and $1+0+1-1=1$, the entries of row 1 of E; the other rows in the same way, so $E^2=E$. By Theorem 6.29(c), $\operatorname{rank} E = \operatorname{tr} E = 1+0+2-1=2$.
- The first two columns $p_1=(1,1,0,-1)'$ and $p_2=(1,0,-1,-1)'$ of E are not multiples of each other, so they are linearly independent; as $\dim \mathcal{C}(E)=2$, they form a basis of $\mathcal{C}(E)=\mathcal{N}(E-I)$ (Theorems 4.5(d) and 8.13(a)).
- The vectors $p_3=(-1,2,1,0)'$ and $p_4=(0,-1,0,1)'$ satisfy $Ep_3=Ep_4=0$ (multiply out), and they are not multiples of each other, so they are linearly independent; as $\dim \mathcal{N}(E)=4-2=2$ (Theorem 4.12), they form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(E)$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).
- By Lemma 7.24(b), $p_1,\dots,p_4$ are linearly independent, so $P=[p_1\ p_2\ p_3\ p_4]$ is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)), and by Definition 7.23

$$P^{-1}EP = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,0,0), \qquad P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Also $p_E(t)=t^2(t-1)^2$ (Theorem 8.13(a)). Here $\det P = 1$, so P^{-1} has integer entries (Theorem 5.24).
- E is not symmetric (its $(1,3)$ entry is -1, its $(3,1)$ entry 0), so no orthogonal Q makes $Q'EQ$ diagonal (Theorem 8.3(b)): E is diagonalizable, but not by an orthogonal matrix.

Proposition 8.15. If $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is orthogonal and λ is a real eigenvalue of P, then $\lambda=1$ or $\lambda=-1$.

Proof. Let $Px=\lambda x$ with $x\neq 0$. Then $x'x = x'P'Px = (Px)'(Px) = \lambda^2 x'x$, and $x'x>0$; so $\lambda^2=1$. □

An orthogonal matrix need not have a real eigenvalue: $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is orthogonal, with characteristic polynomial t^2+1.

Example 8.16. Let $n \geqslant 2$.

(a) $\bar{J}_n$ and C_n are symmetric and idempotent (Proposition 1.15), of ranks $\operatorname{tr}\bar{J}_n = 1$ and $n-1$ (Theorem 6.29(c), Corollary 6.30). By Theorem 8.13(a), $\bar{J}_n$ has the eigenvalues 1 (once) and 0 ($n-1$ times), and C_n the eigenvalues 1 ($n-1$ times) and 0 (once). Since $\bar{J}_n x = \bar{x}\mathbf{1}$ and $C_n x = x - \bar{x}\mathbf{1}$, the eigenspaces are $\mathcal{N}(\bar{J}_n - I_n) = \mathcal{N}(C_n) = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$ and $\mathcal{N}(\bar{J}_n) = \mathcal{N}(C_n - I_n) = \{x : \mathbf{1}'x = 0\} = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}^\perp$ (Theorem 6.6(a)).

(b) $\bar{J}_n + C_n = I_n$ and $\bar{J}_n C_n = C_n \bar{J}_n = \bar{J}_n - \bar{J}_n^2 = 0$. So, for numbers $a \neq b$, $a\bar{J}_n + bC_n$ satisfies the hypotheses of Theorem 8.6(d): its eigenvalues are a and b. As $a\bar{J}_n + bC_n - aI_n = (b-a)C_n$ and $a\bar{J}_n + bC_n - bI_n = (a-b)\bar{J}_n$, with $a-b\neq 0$, by (a) the eigenspace of a is $\mathcal{N}(C_n) = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$ and that of b is $\mathcal{N}(\bar{J}_n) = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}^\perp$; so a has multiplicity 1 and b multiplicity $n-1$ (Theorems 8.4 and 6.6(c)). For instance $J_n = n\bar{J}_n + 0\,C_n$ has the eigenvalues n (once) and 0 ($n-1$ times), as found in Example 7.34; and for numbers α, β with $\beta\neq 0$, $\alpha I_n + \beta J_n = (\alpha+n\beta)\bar{J}_n + \alpha C_n$ (as $I_n = \bar{J}_n + C_n$ and $J_n = n\bar{J}_n$) has the eigenvalues $\alpha+n\beta$, with eigenspace $\operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}\}$, and α, of multiplicity $n-1$.

(c) The equicorrelation matrix $R = (1-\rho)I_n + \rho J_n$ of Example 5.33 is, writing $I_n = \bar{J}_n + C_n$ and $J_n = n\bar{J}_n$,

$$R = \big(1 + (n-1)\rho\big)\bar{J}_n + (1-\rho)C_n$$

For $\rho \neq 0$, by (b), its eigenvalues are $1 + (n-1)\rho$, with eigenvector $\mathbf{1}$, and $1-\rho$, of multiplicity $n-1$. So $\det R = \big(1+(n-1)\rho\big)(1-\rho)^{n-1}$ (Theorem 7.19), as in Example 5.33, and for $\rho \neq 1$, $\rho \neq -1/(n-1)$, $R^{-1} = \big(1+(n-1)\rho\big)^{-1}\bar{J}_n + (1-\rho)^{-1}C_n$ (Theorem 8.6(b)). For $n = 4$ and $\rho = \frac{1}{3}$, $R = 2\bar{J}_4 + \frac{2}{3}C_4$ has the eigenvalues 2 and $\frac{2}{3}$ (three times), $\det R = 2 \cdot \left(\frac{2}{3}\right)^3 = \frac{16}{27}$, and $R^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}\bar{J}_4 + \frac{3}{2}C_4 = \frac{3}{2}I_4 - \frac{1}{4}J_4$, as in Example 5.33.

(d) Let W be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ with $\dim W = r$. The projection matrix P_W is symmetric and idempotent, of rank r (Theorem 6.31(c)). So P_W has the eigenvalue 1 with multiplicity r and 0 with multiplicity $n-r$ (Theorem 8.13(a)), and $I_n - P_W = P_{W^\perp}$ the reverse; $P_W y = y$ exactly for $y \in W$, and $P_W y = 0$ exactly for $y \in W^\perp$ (Theorem 6.31(c), Definition 6.22). For instance, the matrix P of Example 6.28 has the eigenvalues 1, 1, 1, 0, as $\operatorname{rank} P = \operatorname{tr} P = 3$ (Corollary 6.30); and for $W = \operatorname{span}\{\mathbf{1}_n\}$, $P_W = \bar{J}_n$ and $I_n - P_W = C_n$ (Corollary 6.35(a)), which is (a).

Quadratic forms and definiteness

Definition 8.17. The **quadratic form** of $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is the function $q_A(x) = x'Ax = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}x_i x_j$ ($x \in \mathbb{R}^n$). Collecting the terms in x_i^2 and in $x_i x_j$ ($i < j$),

$$x'Ax = \sum_{i=1}^n a_{ii}x_i^2 + \sum_{i<j}(a_{ij} + a_{ji})x_i x_j$$

As $x'Ax$ is a 1×1 matrix, $x'Ax = (x'Ax)' = x'A'x$; so $x'Ax = x'Bx$ for the symmetric matrix $B = \frac{1}{2}(A + A')$. Different matrices can give the same form, but only one symmetric matrix does.

Proposition 8.18. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric.

(a) $x'Ay = \frac{1}{2}\big(q_A(x+y) - q_A(x) - q_A(y)\big)$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(b) If $x'Ax = x'Bx$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, then $A = B$.

Proof. (a) $(x+y)'A(x+y) = x'Ax + x'Ay + y'Ax + y'Ay$, and $y'Ax = (y'Ax)' = x'A'y = x'Ay$.
(b) By (a), $x'Ay = x'By$ for all x, y. For $x = e_i$ and $y = e_j$ this reads $a_{ij} = b_{ij}$, since $e_i'Ae_j$ is entry i of $Ae_j = \operatorname{col}_j(A)$ (Theorem 1.4(b)). □

So every quadratic form is q_A for exactly one symmetric A, the **matrix of the form**: a_{ii} is the coefficient of x_i^2, and $a_{ij} = a_{ji}$ is half the coefficient of $x_i x_j$ ($i \neq j$).

Example 8.19. (a) For data $y \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the sum of squares about the mean $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2$ equals $y'C_n y$ (Example 1.16): it is the quadratic form of the symmetric matrix C_n.

(b) The matrices

$$T = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad T' = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & 3 & 0 \\ -2 & 2 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A = \tfrac{1}{2}(T + T') = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

give the same form $2x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 3x_3^2 + 3x_4^2 + 2x_1x_3 - 2x_1x_4 + 2x_2x_3 + 2x_2x_4$ (Definition 8.17: $t_{12} + t_{21} = 0$, $t_{13} + t_{31} = 2$, $t_{14} + t_{41} = -2$, $t_{23} + t_{32} = 2$, $t_{24} + t_{42} = 2$, $t_{34} + t_{43} = 0$); its matrix is A.

Definition 8.20. A symmetric $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and its quadratic form, are

- **positive definite** (PD) if $x'Ax > 0$ for every nonzero $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$;
- **positive semidefinite** (PSD) if $x'Ax \geqslant 0$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$;
- **negative definite** (ND) or **negative semidefinite** (NSD) if $-A$ is PD or PSD;
- **indefinite** if $x'Ax$ takes both positive and negative values.

A PD matrix is PSD.

Theorem 8.21. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, with spectral decomposition $A = c_1E_1 + \cdots + c_kE_k$, and let $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ as in Theorem 8.3(b), with $\lambda_1 \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \lambda_n$. Then, for $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $y = Q'x$,

$$x'Ax = \lambda_1 y_1^2 + \cdots + \lambda_n y_n^2 = c_1\|E_1x\|^2 + \cdots + c_k\|E_kx\|^2$$

(a) A is PSD if and only if every eigenvalue of A is $\geqslant 0$, and PD if and only if every eigenvalue is > 0.

(b) A is NSD (ND) if and only if every eigenvalue is $\leqslant 0$ (< 0), and indefinite if and only if A has a positive and a negative eigenvalue.

(c) If A is PD, then $\det A > 0$, and A is invertible; if A is PSD, then $\det A \geqslant 0$. A PSD matrix is PD if and only if it is invertible.

(d) $\lambda_n\, x'x \leqslant x'Ax \leqslant \lambda_1\, x'x$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$, with equality on the right for $x = q_1$ and on the left for $x = q_n$.

Proof. • Let $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $y = Q'x$. Then $x = QQ'x = Qy$ and $y'y = x'QQ'x = x'x$ (Proposition 6.13(b)), and, as $Q'AQ = \Lambda$,

$$x'Ax = x'QQ'AQQ'x = y'\Lambda y = \lambda_1 y_1^2 + \cdots + \lambda_n y_n^2$$

- Entry i of $y = Q'x$ is $y_i = q_i'x$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). As $E_j' = E_j = E_j^2$ and $E_j = \sum_{\lambda_i = c_j} q_iq_i'$ (Theorem 8.6(b),(c)), $\|E_jx\|^2 = x'E_j'E_jx = x'E_jx = \sum_{\lambda_i=c_j}(q_i'x)^2 = \sum_{\lambda_i=c_j} y_i^2$. Grouping the terms $\lambda_i y_i^2$ by the value c_j of λ_i gives the second expression.

(a)

- If every $\lambda_i \geqslant 0$, then $x'Ax \geqslant 0$. If every $\lambda_i > 0$ and $x \neq 0$, then $y \neq 0$, as $x = Qy$; so $x'Ax > 0$.
- Conversely, for $x = q_i$, $y = Q'Qe_i = e_i$ and $x'Ax = \lambda_i$; so $\lambda_i \geqslant 0$ if A is PSD, and $\lambda_i > 0$ if A is PD. The λ_i are the eigenvalues of A (Theorem 8.3(c)).

(b)

- $-A = \sum_j(-c_j)E_j$, so the eigenvalues of $-A$ are $-c_1, \ldots, -c_k$ (Theorem 8.6(d)); apply (a) to $-A$.
- If $c_i > 0 > c_l$, unit eigenvectors x, y for c_i, c_l give $x'Ax = c_i > 0$ and $y'Ay = c_l < 0$. If no eigenvalue is negative (positive), then A is PSD (NSD), hence not indefinite.

(c) If A is PD, its eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ are > 0 by (a), so $\det A = \lambda_1 \cdots \lambda_n > 0$ (Theorem 7.19), and A is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)). If A is PSD, its eigenvalues are $\geqslant 0$ by (a), and $\det A = \lambda_1 \cdots \lambda_n \geqslant 0$ in the same way. If A is PSD and invertible, then 0 is not an eigenvalue (Theorem 7.3), so every eigenvalue is > 0, and A is PD by (a).

(d) As $\lambda_n \leqslant \lambda_i \leqslant \lambda_1$ and $y_i^2 \geqslant 0$, $x'Ax = \sum_i \lambda_i y_i^2$ lies between $\lambda_n \sum_i y_i^2 = \lambda_n\, x'x$ and $\lambda_1 \sum_i y_i^2 = \lambda_1\, x'x$. Moreover $q_1'Aq_1 = \lambda_1 q_1'q_1 = \lambda_1$ and $q_n'Aq_n = \lambda_n$. □

Example 8.22. (a) C_n has the eigenvalues 1 and 0 (Example 8.16(a)), so it is PSD but not PD. Indeed $C_n = 1\cdot C_n + 0\cdot \bar{J}_n$, and the identity of Theorem 8.21 gives $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2 = y'C_ny = \|C_ny\|^2 \geqslant 0$ (Example 1.16), with equality exactly when $C_ny = 0$, that is, when $y = \bar{y}\mathbf{1}$ is constant.

(b) $A = 2J_3 - I_3$ (Example 8.5) has the eigenvalues 5 and -1, so it is indefinite: for $x = \mathbf{1}_3$ and $y = (1, -1, 0)'$, $x'Ax = 15$ and $y'Ay = -2$.

(c) By Example 8.16(c), the equicorrelation matrix R is PD if and only if $1 + (n-1)\rho > 0$ and $1 - \rho > 0$, that is, $-1/(n-1) < \rho < 1$, and PSD if and only if $-1/(n-1) \leqslant \rho \leqslant 1$ (for $\rho = 0$, $R = I_n$). For $n = 4$ and $\rho = -\frac{1}{3}$, R is PSD and singular ($R\mathbf{1}_4 = 0$, Example 5.33).

(d) The matrix A of Example 8.8 has the eigenvalues 25, 9, 9, 1, all > 0; so it is PD (Theorem 8.21(a)).

Proposition 8.23. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric.

(a) A diagonal matrix $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ is PD (PSD) if and only if every $d_i > 0$ ($d_i \geqslant 0$).

(b) If A and B are PSD and $\alpha, \beta \geqslant 0$, then $\alpha A + \beta B$ is PSD; if moreover A is PD and $\alpha > 0$, then $\alpha A + \beta B$ is PD.

(c) If A is PD, then A is invertible and A^{-1} is PD.

(d) If A is idempotent, then A is PSD.

(e) If A and $-A$ are PSD, then $A = 0$.

Proof. (a) $x'Dx = d_1x_1^2 + \cdots + d_nx_n^2$. This is > 0 for $x \neq 0$ if every $d_i > 0$, and $\geqslant 0$ for every x if every $d_i \geqslant 0$. Conversely $d_i = e_i'De_i$, which is > 0 if D is PD and $\geqslant 0$ if D is PSD.

(b) $\alpha A + \beta B$ is symmetric, and $x'(\alpha A + \beta B)x = \alpha\, x'Ax + \beta\, x'Bx$. Both terms are $\geqslant 0$; if A is PD, $\alpha > 0$ and $x \neq 0$, the first term is > 0.

(c)

- A is invertible (Theorem 8.21(c)), and $(A^{-1})' = (A')^{-1} = A^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(c)).
- Let $x \neq 0$ and $y = A^{-1}x$. Then $y \neq 0$, as $x = Ay$, and $x'A^{-1}x = (Ay)'y = y'A'y = y'Ay > 0$.

(d) As $A = A'$ and $A = A^2$, $x'Ax = x'A'Ax = (Ax)'(Ax) = \|Ax\|^2 \geqslant 0$.

(e) $x'Ax \geqslant 0$ and $-x'Ax \geqslant 0$, so $x'Ax = 0 = x'0x$ for every x. As 0 is symmetric, $A = 0$ (Proposition 8.18(b)). □

Congruence, $A'A$, and the factorization $A = P'P$

Theorem 8.24. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric and $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$.

(a) If A is PSD, then $P'AP$ is PSD.

(b) If A is PD and $\operatorname{rank} P = m$, then $P'AP$ is PD.

(c) If $m = n$ and P is invertible, then A is PD (PSD) if and only if $P'AP$ is PD (PSD).

Proof. $P'AP$ is symmetric, and $x'(P'AP)x = (Px)'A(Px)$ for $x \in \mathbb{R}^m$.

(a) This is $\geqslant 0$.

(b) If $x \neq 0$, then $Px \neq 0$ (Theorem 4.13(b)), so it is > 0.

(c) $\operatorname{rank} P = n$ (Theorem 4.13(d)), so (a) and (b) give one direction; for the other, apply them to $P'AP$ and P^{-1}: $A = (P^{-1})'(P'AP)P^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(c)). □

Theorem 8.25. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ have the columns $a_1, \ldots, a_p$. Then $A'A$, the **Gram matrix** of $a_1, \ldots, a_p$, with the entries $a_i'a_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), is PSD, and it is PD if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A = p$. Likewise AA' is PSD, and PD if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A = n$.

Proof. $A'A = A'I_nA$, and I_n is PD; so $A'A$ is PSD, and PD if $\operatorname{rank} A = p$ (Theorem 8.24(a),(b)). If $A'A$ is PD, it is invertible (Theorem 8.21(c)), so $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank}(A'A) = p$ (Theorems 4.18(b) and 4.13(d)). For AA' apply this to A', with $\operatorname{rank} A' = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.13(a)). □

For a data matrix $X_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$, the matrix of corrected sums of squares and products is $X_0'C_nX_0 = (C_nX_0)'(C_nX_0)$ (Example 1.17). So it is PSD, and PD exactly when $\operatorname{rank}(C_nX_0) = k$ (Theorem 8.25), that is, when the centered columns are linearly independent; in Example 1.17, $X_0'C_4X_0 = 4I_2$ is PD.

Theorem 8.26. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

(a) Let $1 \leqslant r \leqslant n$. Then A is symmetric, PSD and of rank r if and only if $A = P'P$ for some $P \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of rank r.

(b) A is symmetric and PSD if and only if $A = P'P$ for some matrix P with n columns.

(c) A is symmetric and PD if and only if $A = P'P$ for some invertible $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. In this case $\det A = (\det P)^2 > 0$, and $y'Ax = (Py)'(Px)$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

Proof. (a)

- Let A be symmetric, PSD and of rank r, and let $A = Q\Lambda Q' = \sum_{i=1}^n \lambda_i q_i q_i'$ (Theorems 8.3 and 8.6(c)). Exactly r of the λ_i, say $\lambda_{k_1}, \dots, \lambda_{k_r}$, are nonzero (Theorem 8.4), and they are > 0 (Theorem 8.21(a)).
- Let $P \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ have the rows $\sqrt{\lambda_{k_1}}\, q_{k_1}', \dots, \sqrt{\lambda_{k_r}}\, q_{k_r}'$. By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $P'P = \sum_{l=1}^r \lambda_{k_l} q_{k_l} q_{k_l}' = A$, since the other terms of $\sum_i \lambda_i q_i q_i'$ are 0. Moreover $\operatorname{rank} P = \operatorname{rank}(P'P) = \operatorname{rank} A = r$ (Theorem 4.18(b)).
- Conversely, if $A = P'P$ with $P \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of rank r, then A is symmetric (Theorem 1.9), PSD (Theorem 8.25), and $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank}(P'P) = \operatorname{rank} P = r$ (Theorem 4.18(b)).

(b) Let A be symmetric and PSD. If $A = 0$, then $A = P'P$ for the zero matrix $P \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$; otherwise (a) applies with $r = \operatorname{rank} A \geqslant 1$. Conversely, $P'P$ is symmetric and PSD (Theorems 1.9 and 8.25).

(c)

- If A is symmetric and PD, then A is invertible (Theorem 8.21(c)), so $\operatorname{rank} A = n$ (Theorem 4.13(d)). By (a) with $r = n$, $A = P'P$ with $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ of rank n, and P is invertible (Theorem 4.13(d)).
- Conversely, if $A = P'P$ with P invertible, then $\operatorname{rank} P = n$, and A is symmetric and PD (Theorems 1.9 and 8.25).
- Then $\det A = \det P' \cdot \det P = (\det P)^2$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.22), and $\det P \neq 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)). Finally $y'Ax = y'P'Px = (Py)'(Px)$. □

Corollary 8.27. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD and $X \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$. Then $X'AX = 0$ if and only if $AX = 0$. In particular $x'Ax = 0$ if and only if $Ax = 0$: the vectors x with $x'Ax = 0$ form the subspace $\mathcal{N}(A)$.

Proof. If $AX = 0$, then $X'AX = 0$. Conversely, let $X'AX = 0$, and write $A = P'P$ (Theorem 8.26(b)).

- $X'AX = (PX)'(PX)$, so $\operatorname{tr}\Big((PX)'(PX)\Big) = 0$, and $PX = 0$ (Theorem 1.11(d)).
- Hence $AX = P'(PX) = 0$. The case $m = 1$, $X = x$, gives the last sentence. □

For instance, $\sum_i (y_i - \bar{y})^2 = y'C_ny = 0$ only if $C_ny = 0$ (Example 1.16), and, for A and P as in Theorem 6.26, $y'(I_n - P)y = 0$ only if $(I_n - P)y = 0$: both C_n and $I_n - P$ are symmetric and idempotent (Proposition 1.15, Theorem 6.26(b)), hence PSD (Proposition 8.23(d)).

Example 8.28. For $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$, the sum of the squares of the two sums of three successive entries is

$$(x_1 + x_2 + x_3)^2 + (x_2 + x_3 + x_4)^2 = \|Dx\|^2 = x'Ax$$

where

$$D = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A = D'D = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Find the factor P of Theorem 8.26(a) and all x with $x'Ax = 0$.

Solution.

- A is symmetric and PSD, and $\operatorname{rank} A = \operatorname{rank} D = 2$ (Theorems 8.25 and 4.18(b)), as the two rows of D are independent.
- $A(1,2,2,1)' = (5,10,10,5)'$, $A(1,0,0,-1)' = (1,0,0,-1)'$, and $A(0,1,-1,0)' = A(2,-1,-1,2)' = 0$. So $a_A(c) \geqslant 1$ for $c = 5, 1$, and $a_A(0) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 4 - \operatorname{rank} A = 2$ (Theorem 8.4); as the multiplicities add up to 4 (Definition 7.10), the eigenvalues are 5, 1, 0, 0. The unit eigenvectors for 5 and 1 are $q_1 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{10}}(1,2,2,1)'$ and $q_2 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(1,0,0,-1)'$, and the orthogonal unit vectors $q_3 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(0,1,-1,0)'$, $q_4 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{10}}(2,-1,-1,2)'$ of $\mathcal{N}(A)$ complete them to an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors (Theorem 8.2).
- The proof of Theorem 8.26(a) takes the rows $\sqrt{5}\,q_1' = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(1,2,2,1)$ and $\sqrt{1}\,q_2' = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(1,0,0,-1)$:

$$P = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P'P = \frac{1}{2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 4 & 2 \\ 2 & 4 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = A$$

  The matrix D is another 2×4 factor of rank 2: the factor in Theorem 8.26(a) is not unique.
- By Corollary 8.27, $x'Ax = 0$ if and only if $x \in \mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{(0,1,-1,0)', (2,-1,-1,2)'\}$ ($\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = 4 - 2 = 2$, Theorem 4.12, and these two vectors are independent, Theorem 4.5(d)), that is, $x_1 = x_4 = -(x_2 + x_3)$.

Principal submatrices and Schur complements

Definition 8.29. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ and $1 \leqslant i_1 < \cdots < i_k \leqslant n$. The $k \times k$ matrix whose (s,t) entry is $a_{i_s i_t}$ (rows and columns $i_1, \ldots, i_k$ of A) is a **principal submatrix** of A; with $S = [e_{i_1} \ \cdots \ e_{i_k}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times k}$ it equals $S'AS$, as the (s,t) entry of $S'AS$ is $e_{i_s}' A e_{i_t} = a_{i_s i_t}$ (Theorem 1.4(b),(d)). The **leading principal submatrix** A_k uses rows and columns $1, \ldots, k$, and the numbers $\Delta_k(A) = \det A_k$ ($k = 1, \ldots, n$) are the **leading principal minors** of A; we put $\Delta_0(A) = 1$.

Theorem 8.30. If A is PD (PSD), then every principal submatrix of A is PD (PSD). In particular every diagonal entry a_{ii} is > 0 ($\geqslant 0$), and if A is PD, then $\Delta_k(A) > 0$ for $k = 1, \ldots, n$. If A is PSD, then moreover $a_{ij}^2 \leqslant a_{ii} a_{jj}$ for all i, j, and if $a_{ii} = 0$, then row i and column i of A are zero.

Proof. • With S as in Definition 8.29 and $y \in \mathbb{R}^k$, the vector $x = Sy$ has the entries $y_1, \ldots, y_k$ in the positions $i_1, \ldots, i_k$ and zeros elsewhere (Theorem 1.4(b)); so $x \neq 0$ if $y \neq 0$, and $y'(S'AS)y = x'Ax$. Hence $S'AS$, which is symmetric, is PD (PSD) when A is.

- (a_{ii}) is the principal submatrix with $k = 1$ and $i_1 = i$. If A is PD, then A_k is PD and $\Delta_k(A) = \det A_k > 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)).
- Let A be PSD and $i \neq j$. The principal submatrix with the rows and columns i and j is PSD (first item), and its determinant is $a_{ii}a_{jj} - a_{ij}a_{ji} = a_{ii}a_{jj} - a_{ij}^2$ (Theorem 5.21); so $a_{ii}a_{jj} - a_{ij}^2 \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)). For $i = j$ there is nothing to prove.

- If A is PSD and $a_{ii} = 0$, then $e_i'Ae_i = a_{ii} = 0$ (Theorem 1.4(b)), so $Ae_i = 0$ (Corollary 8.27): column i of A is zero, and so is row i, its transpose, as $A' = A$. □

So $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}1&2\\2&3\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ is not PSD ($2^2 > 1 \cdot 3$), and neither is $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}0&1\\1&5\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ ($a_{11} = 0$, but row 1 is not zero).

Theorem 8.31. Let $M = \begin{pmatrix} A & B \\ B' & D \end{pmatrix}$ be symmetric, with $A \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times p}$ invertible, $B \in \mathbb{R}^{p\times q}$ and $D \in \mathbb{R}^{q\times q}$, and let $M/A = D - B'A^{-1}B$ be the Schur complement of A. Then M is PD if and only if A and M/A are PD. If A is PD, then M is PSD if and only if M/A is PSD. In every case $\det M = \det A \cdot \det(M/A)$.

Proof. • A and D are symmetric, as $M' = M$ (Theorem 5.3(b)), hence so are A^{-1} (Theorem 2.13(c)) and M/A. Let $L = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & 0 \\ -B'A^{-1} & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$; then $L' = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} I_p & -A^{-1}B \\ 0 & I_q \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, L is invertible (Proposition 5.8), and by Theorem 5.9 (with $C = B'$)

$$LML' = \begin{pmatrix} A & 0 \\ 0 & M/A \end{pmatrix}$$

- If M is PD (PSD), so is LML' (Theorem 8.24(c)), and A and M/A are principal submatrices of it, hence PD (PSD) (Theorem 8.30).
- Let A be PD and M/A PSD, and let $x = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} y \\ z \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ ($y \in \mathbb{R}^p$, $z \in \mathbb{R}^q$). Then $x'(LML')x = y'Ay + z'(M/A)z \geqslant 0$, and if M/A is PD and $x \neq 0$, this is > 0, as $y \neq 0$ or $z \neq 0$. So LML' is PSD, and PD if M/A is PD; and so is M (Theorem 8.24(c)).
- The determinant is Theorem 5.30(a). □

Theorem 8.32 (Hadamard's inequality)**.** If $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is PSD, then $\det A \leqslant a_{11}a_{22}\cdots a_{nn}$. If A is PD, equality holds if and only if A is diagonal.

Proof. First let A be PD, with the leading principal submatrices $A_1, \ldots, A_n = A$ (Definition 8.29).

- For $2 \leqslant k \leqslant n$ write

$$A_k = \begin{pmatrix} A_{k-1} & b \\ b' & a_{kk} \end{pmatrix}$$

with $b \in \mathbb{R}^{k-1}$. A_{k-1} is PD (Theorem 8.30), so $\det A_{k-1} > 0$ and A_{k-1}^{-1} is PD (Theorem 8.21(c), Proposition 8.23(c)). By Theorem 5.30(a),

$$\det A_k = \det A_{k-1} \cdot \left(a_{kk} - b'A_{k-1}^{-1}b\right) \leqslant a_{kk} \det A_{k-1}$$

with equality if and only if $b'A_{k-1}^{-1}b = 0$, that is, $b = 0$.

- Every $a_{kk} > 0$ (Theorem 8.30). Applying the first item for $k = n, n-1, \ldots, 2$, $\det A \leqslant a_{nn} \det A_{n-1} \leqslant a_{nn}a_{n-1,n-1} \det A_{n-2} \leqslant \cdots \leqslant a_{nn}\cdots a_{22} \det A_1 = a_{11}a_{22}\cdots a_{nn}$.
- Each step multiplies one of these inequalities by positive numbers, so equality holds if and only if it holds at every step, that is, if and only if the off-diagonal entries of the last row and column of A_k vanish for $k = 2, \ldots, n$: A is diagonal.
- If A is PSD but not PD, then A is not invertible (Theorem 8.21(c)), so $\det A = 0$ (Theorem 5.18(a)), while every $a_{ii} \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.30). □

For the equicorrelation matrix R, whose diagonal entries are 1 and which is PSD for $-1/(n-1) \leqslant \rho \leqslant 1$ (Example 8.22(c)), Hadamard's inequality says that $\det R = \big(1 + (n-1)\rho\big)(1-\rho)^{n-1} \leqslant 1$ (Example 5.33), with equality for PD R only at $\rho = 0$.

Leading principal minors, LDU and Cholesky decompositions

Lemma 8.33. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $\Delta_k(A) \neq 0$ for $k = 1, \dots, n-1$. There is exactly one upper triangular $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with diagonal entries 1 such that AP is lower triangular, and $\Delta_k(AP) = \Delta_k(A)$ for $k = 1, \dots, n$.

Proof. Let P be upper triangular with $p_{kk} = 1$ $(k = 1, \dots, n)$, and $B = AP$.

- $b_{jk} = \sum_r a_{jr}p_{rk} = a_{jk} + \sum_{r=1}^{k-1} a_{jr}p_{rk}$, as $p_{rk} = 0$ for $r > k$. So B is lower triangular ($b_{jk} = 0$ for $j < k$) if and only if, for $k = 2, \dots, n$,
$$\sum_{r=1}^{k-1} a_{jr}p_{rk} = -a_{jk} \qquad (j = 1, \dots, k-1)$$
- For fixed k, this is a system of $k-1$ equations in the $k-1$ unknowns $p_{1k}, \dots, p_{k-1,k}$ with coefficient matrix A_{k-1}, and $\det A_{k-1} = \Delta_{k-1}(A) \neq 0$. So it has exactly one solution (Theorems 5.18(a) and 2.16): P exists and is unique.
- By the first item, column r of B is column r of A plus $\sum_{j<r} p_{jr}$ times column j of A. So B_k arises from A_k by adding to column r a combination of columns $j < r$, for $r = k, k-1, \dots, 2$ in turn (each step uses columns not yet changed). Such column operations do not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b) and Theorem 5.22); so $\Delta_k(B) = \Delta_k(A)$. □

Theorem 8.34 (Sylvester's criterion)**.** A symmetric $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is PD if and only if $\Delta_k(A) > 0$ for $k = 1, \dots, n$. In this case, with P as in Lemma 8.33 and $U = P^{-1}$,
$$P'AP = D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \dots, d_n), \qquad d_k = \frac{\Delta_k(A)}{\Delta_{k-1}(A)} > 0, \qquad A = U'DU$$
and U is upper triangular with diagonal entries 1.

Proof. If A is PD, every $\Delta_k(A) > 0$ by Theorem 8.30. Conversely, let every $\Delta_k(A) > 0$, and let $B = AP$ be lower triangular (Lemma 8.33).

- $D = P'AP = P'B$ is lower triangular: $(P'B)_{jk} = \sum_r p_{rj}b_{rk}$, with $p_{rj} = 0$ for $r > j$ and $b_{rk} = 0$ for $r < k$, so it is 0 for $j < k$. Also $D' = P'A'P = D$. A symmetric lower triangular matrix is diagonal.
- As $p_{jj} = 1$, row j of $P'B$ is row j of B plus $\sum_{r<j} p_{rj}$ times row r of B. So D_k arises from B_k by adding to row j a combination of the rows above it, for $j = k, \dots, 2$ in turn; this does not change the determinant (Definition 5.13(b)), and $\Delta_k(D) = \Delta_k(B) = \Delta_k(A)$.
- $\Delta_k(D) = d_1 \cdots d_k$ (Theorem 5.14(c)). So $d_1 \cdots d_k = \Delta_k(A) > 0$ for every k, and $d_k = \Delta_k(A)/\Delta_{k-1}(A) > 0$.
- $\det P = 1$ (Theorem 5.14(c)), so P is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)), and $A = (P')^{-1}DP^{-1} = U'DU$ (Theorem 2.13(c)). For $x \neq 0$, $Ux \neq 0$ and $x'Ax = (Ux)'D(Ux) = \sum_k d_k(Ux)_k^2 > 0$: A is PD.
- P is unit upper triangular, so $U = P^{-1}$ is unit upper triangular (Theorem 2.31). □

Example 8.35. Show that the matrix
$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$
of Example 8.19 is PD, and write $A = U'DU$.

Solution.

- $\Delta_1 = 2$, $\Delta_2 = \det(2I_2) = 4$, and along row 1 (Theorem 5.21), $\Delta_3 = 2(2\cdot 3 - 1\cdot 1) - 0 + 1(0\cdot 1 - 2\cdot 1) = 10 - 2 = 8$. For $\Delta_4 = \det A$, write $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} A_2 & B \\ B' & 3I_2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $A_2 = 2I_2$ and $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. As $B'B = 2I_2$, the Schur complement of A_2 is $A/A_2 = 3I_2 - B'(\frac{1}{2}I_2)B = 3I_2 - I_2 = 2I_2$, and $\Delta_4 = \det A_2 \cdot \det(2I_2) = 4\cdot 4 = 16$ (Theorems 5.30(a) and 5.14(c)). All are > 0, so A is PD (Theorem 8.34).
- P: for $k = 2$, $a_{11}p_{12} = -a_{12}$ gives $p_{12} = 0$; for $k = 3$, $A_2\left(\begin{smallmatrix} p_{13} \\ p_{23} \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 \\ 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ with $A_2 = 2I_2$ gives $p_{13} = p_{23} = -\frac{1}{2}$; for $k = 4$, $A_3(p_{14}, p_{24}, p_{34})' = -(a_{14}, a_{24}, a_{34})' = (1, -1, 0)'$ reads $2p_{14} + p_{34} = 1$, $2p_{24} + p_{34} = -1$ and $p_{14} + p_{24} + 3p_{34} = 0$. The sum of the first two equations gives $p_{14} + p_{24} = -p_{34}$, so the third gives $2p_{34} = 0$; hence $p_{34} = 0$, $p_{14} = \frac{1}{2}$ and $p_{24} = -\frac{1}{2}$. Then

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  and $D = P'(AP) = \operatorname{diag}(2, 2, 2, 2)$, with $d_k = \Delta_k/\Delta_{k-1} = 2/1,\ 4/2,\ 8/4,\ 16/8$. So $A = U'DU$, that is, $q_A(x) = 2(x_1 + \frac{1}{2}x_3 - \frac{1}{2}x_4)^2 + 2(x_2 + \frac{1}{2}x_3 + \frac{1}{2}x_4)^2 + 2x_3^2 + 2x_4^2$.
- Schur complement (Theorem 8.31, $p = 2$): $A_2 = 2I_2$ and $A/A_2 = 2I_2$ (first item) are PD (Proposition 8.23(a)); so again A is PD, and $\det A = \det A_2 \cdot \det(A/A_2) = 16$.
- Eigenvalues: $A(1, 1, 2, 0)' = (4, 4, 8, 0)'$, $A(-1, 1, 0, 2)' = (-4, 4, 0, 8)'$, $A(1, 1, -1, 0)' = (1, 1, -1, 0)'$ and $A(1, -1, 0, 1)' = (1, -1, 0, 1)'$. The two vectors for 4 are nonzero and orthogonal, hence independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), and so are the two for 1. So $a_A(c) = \dim \mathcal{N}(A - cI) \geqslant 2$ for $c = 4, 1$ (Theorems 8.4 and 4.5(c)); as the multiplicities add up to 4 (Definition 7.10), the eigenvalues are 4, 4, 1, 1, all > 0, as Theorem 8.21(a) requires.

Example 8.36. For which $a \in \mathbb{R}$ is

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & a & a & 0 \\ a & 1 & 0 & a \\ a & 0 & 1 & a \\ 0 & a & a & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

PD?

Solution.

- The first two leading principal minors are 1 and $1 - a^2$. Expanding along the first row (Theorem 5.21), $\Delta_3 = (1 - 0) - a(a - 0) + a(0 - a) = 1 - 2a^2$.
- For $\det A$, subtract row 3 from row 2, which becomes $(0, 1, -1, 0)$, and then add column 2 to column 3 (Definition 5.13(b), Theorem 5.22); then expand along row 2 and along the first row (Theorem 5.21):

$$\det A = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & a & 2a & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ a & 0 & 1 & a \\ 0 & a & 2a & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2a & 0 \\ a & 1 & a \\ 0 & 2a & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (1 - 2a^2) - 2a(a - 0) = 1 - 4a^2$$

- By Theorem 8.34, A is PD if and only if $1 - a^2$, $1 - 2a^2$ and $1 - 4a^2$ are positive, that is, $a^2 < \frac{1}{4}$, or $-\frac{1}{2} < a < \frac{1}{2}$.

Check with eigenvalues: the orthogonal vectors $h_1 = (1, 1, 1, 1)'$, $h_2 = (1, 1, -1, -1)'$, $h_3 = (1, -1, 1, -1)'$, $h_4 = (1, -1, -1, 1)'$ satisfy

$$Ah_1 = (1 + 2a)h_1, \qquad Ah_2 = h_2, \qquad Ah_3 = h_3, \qquad Ah_4 = (1 - 2a)h_4$$

(for instance, row 1 of A times h_4 is $1-a-a+0$). So $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ with $Q = \frac{1}{2}[h_1\ h_2\ h_3\ h_4]$ orthogonal and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(1+2a, 1, 1, 1-2a)$ (Theorem 8.3(b)), and by Theorem 8.21(a) A is PD if and only if $1-2|a| > 0$, the same condition. For $a = \pm\frac{1}{2}$ the eigenvalues are 2, 1, 1, 0: A is PSD but not PD; for $|a| > \frac{1}{2}$, A is indefinite (Theorem 8.21(b)).

Corollary 8.37. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $\Delta_k(A) \neq 0$ for $k = 1, \ldots, n-1$, and let P be as in Lemma 8.33.

(a) $A = LDU$, where L is unit lower triangular, $D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ with $d_k = \Delta_k(A)/\Delta_{k-1}(A)$, and $U = P^{-1}$ is unit upper triangular: an **LDU decomposition** of A.

(b) It is the only one: if $A = L_1D_1U_1$ with L_1 unit lower triangular, D_1 diagonal and U_1 unit upper triangular, then $L_1 = L$, $D_1 = D$ and $U_1 = U$.

(c) If A is symmetric, then $L = U'$; so $A = U'DU$ and $P'AP = D$.

Proof. Let $B = AP$; it is lower triangular, and $\Delta_k(B) = \Delta_k(A)$ for every k (Lemma 8.33).

(a)

- As B is lower triangular, $\Delta_k(B) = b_{11}\cdots b_{kk}$ (Theorems 5.14(c) and 5.22). So $b_{11}\cdots b_{kk} = \Delta_k(A)$ for every k, and $b_{kk} = \Delta_k(A)/\Delta_{k-1}(A) = d_k$, which is $\neq 0$ for $k \leqslant n-1$.
- Let L have the columns $\frac{1}{d_k}\operatorname{col}_k(B)$ ($k \leqslant n-1$) and the last column e_n. Column k of B has zeros above the diagonal and d_k on it, so L is unit lower triangular. For every k, $\operatorname{col}_k(LD) = L(d_ke_k) = d_k\operatorname{col}_k(L) = \operatorname{col}_k(B)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)); for $k = n$, both sides are d_ne_n, the last column of B. So $B = LD$.
- P is unit upper triangular, so $U = P^{-1}$ is unit upper triangular (Theorem 2.31), and $A = BP^{-1} = LDU$.

(b)

- U_1 is invertible and U_1^{-1} is unit upper triangular (Theorem 2.31), and $AU_1^{-1} = L_1D_1$ is lower triangular, as $\operatorname{col}_k(L_1D_1) = (D_1)_{kk}\operatorname{col}_k(L_1)$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). By the uniqueness in Lemma 8.33, $U_1^{-1} = P$, that is, $U_1 = U$.
- Then $L_1D_1 = AP = B = LD$. The diagonal entries of L_1D_1 and of LD are those of D_1 and of D, so $D_1 = D$.
- For $k \leqslant n-1$, $\operatorname{col}_k(L_1) = \frac{1}{d_k}\operatorname{col}_k(L_1D) = \frac{1}{d_k}\operatorname{col}_k(B) = \operatorname{col}_k(L)$, and the last columns of L_1 and L are both e_n. So $L_1 = L$.

(c) If $A' = A$, then $A = A' = U'D'L' = U'DL'$, where U' is unit lower and L' unit upper triangular. By (b), $L = U'$. So $A = U'DU$, and $P'AP = (UP)'D(UP) = D$, as $UP = I_n$. □

For a symmetric A with $\Delta_k(A) \neq 0$ ($k \leqslant n-1$), (c) writes the quadratic form as a combination of squares, $q_A(x) = (Ux)'D(Ux) = d_1(Ux)_1^2 + \cdots + d_n(Ux)_n^2$; this is completing the squares, as in Example 8.35.

Proposition 8.38. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. A factorization $A = L_0U_0$ with L_0 unit lower triangular and U_0 upper triangular is an **LU decomposition** of A.

(a) If $\Delta_k(A) \neq 0$ for $k = 1, \ldots, n-1$, and $A = LDU$ is the LDU decomposition of Corollary 8.37, then $A = L(DU)$ is an LU decomposition, and the diagonal entries of DU are $d_1, \ldots, d_n$.

(b) If row operations $R_i \leftarrow R_i + cR_j$ with $i > j$, and no others, take A to an upper triangular matrix U_0, then $A = L_0U_0$ for a unit lower triangular L_0.

Proof. (a) DU is a product of two upper triangular matrices, so it is upper triangular, with diagonal entries $d_k \cdot 1 = d_k$ (Proposition 1.13(c)).

(b)

- By Theorem 2.15(c), $U_0 = E_N \cdots E_1 A$, where each $E_k = T_{ij}(c)$ with $i > j$ is unit lower triangular (Definition 2.14).
- Each E_k is invertible, and $E_k^{-1} = T_{ij}(-c)$ is unit lower triangular (Theorem 2.15(b)); so $A = (E_N \cdots E_1)^{-1} U_0 = E_1^{-1} \cdots E_N^{-1} U_0$ (Theorem 2.13(b)).
- $L_0 = E_1^{-1} \cdots E_N^{-1}$ is a product of unit lower triangular matrices, hence unit lower triangular (Proposition 1.13(c)). □

Example 8.39. Find an LU decomposition of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 & 3 & 3 \\ 8 & 7 & 9 & 8 \\ 4 & 3 & 5 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

by Gauss elimination.

Solution.

- Elimination without interchanges:

$$\begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 4 & 3 & 3 & 3 \\ 8 & 7 & 9 & 8 \\ 4 & 3 & 5 & 6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 4R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 5 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = U_0$$

- The elimination matrices are $T_{21}(-2)$, $T_{31}(-4)$, $T_{41}(-2)$, $T_{32}(-3)$, $T_{42}(-1)$, $T_{43}(-1)$, in this order. By the proof of Proposition 8.38(b), $A = L_0 U_0$ with $L_0 = T_{21}(2)\, T_{31}(4)\, T_{41}(2)\, T_{32}(3)\, T_{42}(1)\, T_{43}(1)$ (Theorem 2.15(b)). Multiplying from the left, $T_{21}(2)\, T_{31}(4)\, T_{41}(2)$ is $T_{41}(2)$ with 4 times row 1 added to row 3 and then 2 times row 1 added to row 2, and $T_{32}(3)\, T_{42}(1)\, T_{43}(1)$ is $T_{43}(1)$ with row 2 added to row 4 and then 3 times row 2 added to row 3 (Theorem 2.15(a)); so

$$L_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  Below the diagonal of L_0 stand the multipliers 2, 4, 2, 3, 1, 1 of the elimination.

- Check by rows (Theorem 1.4(c)): $\operatorname{row}_1(L_0U_0) = (2,1,1,1)$, $\operatorname{row}_2(L_0U_0) = 2\,(2,1,1,1) + (0,1,1,1) = (4,3,3,3)$, $\operatorname{row}_3(L_0U_0) = 4\,(2,1,1,1) + 3\,(0,1,1,1) + (0,0,2,1) = (8,7,9,8)$ and $\operatorname{row}_4(L_0U_0) = 2\,(2,1,1,1) + (0,1,1,1) + (0,0,2,1) + (0,0,0,2) = (4,3,5,6)$.
- Let $D_0 = \operatorname{diag}(2,1,2,2)$, the diagonal of U_0. Dividing the rows of U_0 by 2, 1, 2, 2 (Proposition 1.13(a)) gives the unit upper triangular matrix

$$V_0 = D_0^{-1} U_0 = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  and $A = L_0 D_0 V_0$. As $\Delta_1 = 2$, $\Delta_2 = 2 \cdot 3 - 1 \cdot 4 = 2$ and, along row 1 (Theorem 5.21), $\Delta_3 = 2(3 \cdot 9 - 3 \cdot 7) - 1(4 \cdot 9 - 3 \cdot 8) + 1(4 \cdot 7 - 3 \cdot 8) = 12 - 12 + 4 = 4$ are nonzero, this

is the LDU decomposition of Corollary 8.37, by its part (b): $d_1 = 2$, $d_2 = 1$, $d_3 = 2$, $d_4 = 2$. Indeed $d_2 = \Delta_2/\Delta_1 = 1$, $d_3 = \Delta_3/\Delta_2 = \frac{4}{2} = 2$ and $d_4 = \Delta_4/\Delta_3 = \frac{8}{4} = 2$, with $\Delta_4 = \det A = \det L_0 \det U_0 = 1 \cdot (2 \cdot 1 \cdot 2 \cdot 2) = 8$ (Theorem 5.18(b); $\det U_0$ by Theorem 5.14(c), and $\det L_0 = \det L_0' = 1$ by Theorems 5.22 and 5.14(c)).

Theorem 8.40 (Cholesky decomposition)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PD, and let $A = U'DU$ as in Theorem 8.34. There is exactly one upper triangular $T \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with positive diagonal entries such that $A = T'T$, namely $T = D^{1/2}U$, where $D^{1/2} = \operatorname{diag}(\sqrt{d_1}, \dots, \sqrt{d_n})$. This T is the **Cholesky factor** of A, and $A = T'T$ is the **Cholesky decomposition** of A.

Proof. • Every $d_k > 0$ (Theorem 8.34), so $D^{1/2}$ is defined. $D^{1/2}U$ is U with row k multiplied by $\sqrt{d_k}$: it is upper triangular with the diagonal entries $\sqrt{d_k} > 0$, and $(D^{1/2}U)'(D^{1/2}U) = U'D^{1/2}D^{1/2}U = U'DU = A$.

- Let T be upper triangular with $t_{kk} > 0$ and $A = T'T$. Put $D_* = \operatorname{diag}(t_{11}^2, \dots, t_{nn}^2)$ and $U_* = \operatorname{diag}(t_{11}^{-1}, \dots, t_{nn}^{-1})\, T$, which is T with row k divided by t_{kk}, a unit upper triangular matrix. Then $T = \operatorname{diag}(t_{11}, \dots, t_{nn})\, U_*$ and $A = U_*' D_* U_*$.
- This is an LDU decomposition of A, and every $\Delta_k(A) > 0$ (Theorem 8.34). By Corollary 8.37(b),(c), $U_* = U$ and $D_* = D$. So $t_{kk} = \sqrt{d_k}$, and $T = D^{1/2}U$. □

Remark 8.41. For $i \leqslant j$, the (i, j) entry of $T'T$ is $\sum_{k\leqslant i} t_{ki}t_{kj}$, since $t_{ki} = 0$ for $k > i$. Comparing with a_{ij} gives T row by row ($i = 1, \dots, n$):

$$t_{ii} = \Big(a_{ii} - \sum_{k<i} t_{ki}^2\Big)^{1/2}, \qquad t_{ij} = \frac{1}{t_{ii}}\Big(a_{ij} - \sum_{k<i} t_{ki}t_{kj}\Big) \quad (j > i)$$

For a symmetric A, this succeeds with positive numbers under all square roots exactly when A is PD: if it succeeds, it gives an upper triangular T with positive diagonal entries and $T'T = A$, so A is PD (Theorems 2.31(a) and 8.26(c)); if A is PD, its Cholesky factor (Theorem 8.40) satisfies these equations. Moreover $A_k = T_k'T_k$ for the leading principal submatrices, as the first k columns of T are zero below row k; so $\Delta_k(A) = \det T_k' \det T_k = (t_{11} \cdots t_{kk})^2$ (Theorems 5.18(b), 5.22 and 5.14(c)).

Example 8.42. Find the Cholesky factor T of

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

the matrix with entries $a_{ij} = \min(i, j)$, and use it to compute A^{-1}.

Solution. By Remark 8.41:

- row 1: $t_{11} = \sqrt{1} = 1$ and $t_{1j} = a_{1j}/1 = 1$ for $j = 2, 3, 4$;
- row 2: $t_{22} = \sqrt{2 - 1^2} = 1$ and $t_{2j} = (2 - 1 \cdot 1)/1 = 1$ for $j = 3, 4$;
- row 3: $t_{33} = \sqrt{3 - 1 - 1} = 1$ and $t_{34} = (3 - 1 - 1)/1 = 1$;
- row 4: $t_{44} = \sqrt{4 - 1 - 1 - 1} = 1$.

So T is the upper triangular matrix with all entries $t_{ij} = 1$ for $i \leqslant j$; indeed the (i, j) entry of $T'T$ is $\operatorname{col}_i(T)' \operatorname{col}_j(T) = \min(i, j)$. Hence A is PD, and all its leading principal minors equal 1 (Remark 8.41); in particular $\det A = \Delta_4(A) = 1$, and in Theorem 8.34 $D = I_4$ and $U = T$ (Theorem 8.40: $T = D^{1/2}U$). The matrix

$$K = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

has $KT' = I_4$ (row i of K subtracts row $i-1$ of T' from row i), so $(T')^{-1} = K$ (Theorem 2.16) and, by Theorem 2.13(b),(c),

$$A^{-1} = T^{-1}(T')^{-1} = K'K = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Sylvester's law of inertia

Theorem 8.43 (Sylvester's law of inertia)**.** Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, and let $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be invertible with $P'AP = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \dots, d_n)$.

(a) The number n_0 of indices i with $d_i = 0$ is $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - \operatorname{rank} A$.

(b) The number n_+ of i with $d_i > 0$ and the number n_- of i with $d_i < 0$ do not depend on the choice of P.

(c) n_+ and n_- are the numbers of positive and of negative eigenvalues of A, counted with multiplicity.

(d) There is an invertible $R \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $R'AR = \operatorname{diag}(I_{n_+}, -I_{n_-}, 0)$, where 0 is the $n_0 \times n_0$ zero matrix.

Proof. Let $p_1, \dots, p_n$ be the columns of P. The (i,j) entry of $P'AP$ is $p_i'Ap_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), so $p_i'Ap_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ and $p_i'Ap_i = d_i$; and $p_1, \dots, p_n$ is a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Example 3.19).

(a)

- If $d_i = 0$, then $p_j'(Ap_i) = 0$ for every j, that is, $P'(Ap_i) = 0$; as P' is invertible, $Ap_i = 0$.
- Conversely, let $v \in \mathcal{N}(A)$ and $v = \sum_l x_l p_l$. For each j with $d_j \neq 0$, $0 = p_j'Av = \sum_l x_l p_j'Ap_l = x_j d_j$, so $x_j = 0$: v is a combination of the p_i with $d_i = 0$.
- These p_i are independent, so they form a basis of $\mathcal{N}(A)$, and $n_0 = \dim \mathcal{N}(A) = n - \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 4.12).

(b)

- Let R be another invertible matrix with $R'AR = \operatorname{diag}(g_1, \dots, g_n)$, with columns $r_1, \dots, r_n$, and let m_+ be the number of j with $g_j > 0$. Let $\mathcal{I} = \{i : d_i > 0\}$ (n_+ indices) and $\mathcal{J} = \{j : g_j \leqslant 0\}$ ($n - m_+$ indices).
- The $n_+ + n - m_+$ vectors p_i ($i \in \mathcal{I}$) and r_j ($j \in \mathcal{J}$) are linearly independent. Indeed, let $\sum_{i\in\mathcal{I}} x_i p_i + \sum_{j\in\mathcal{J}} y_j r_j = 0$ and $u = \sum_{i\in\mathcal{I}} x_i p_i = -\sum_{j\in\mathcal{J}} y_j r_j$. Then
$$u'Au = \sum_{i\in\mathcal{I}} d_i x_i^2 \geqslant 0, \qquad u'Au = \sum_{j\in\mathcal{J}} g_j y_j^2 \leqslant 0$$
so $u'Au = 0$, and every $x_i = 0$, as each $d_i > 0$ ($i \in \mathcal{I}$). Then $\sum_{j\in\mathcal{J}} y_j r_j = 0$, and every $y_j = 0$, as the columns of R are independent.
- Hence $n_+ + n - m_+ \leqslant n$ (Theorem 4.5(c)), that is, $n_+ \leqslant m_+$; exchanging the roles of P and R gives $m_+ \leqslant n_+$.
- By (a), $n_- = n - n_+ - n_0$ does not depend on P either.

(c) By Theorem 8.3, $Q'AQ = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n)$ with Q orthogonal, hence invertible, and $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A, listed with multiplicity. Apply (b) with Q in place of P.

(d) Number the orthonormal eigenvectors so that $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_{n_+} > 0$, $\lambda_{n_+ +1}, \dots, \lambda_{n_+ + n_-} < 0$ and the remaining λ_i are 0 (by (c)). Let $R = Q \operatorname{diag}(s_1, \dots, s_n)$, with $s_i = 1/\sqrt{|\lambda_i|}$ if $\lambda_i \neq 0$ and $s_i = 1$ otherwise. R is invertible (Theorem 2.13(b)), and $R'AR = \operatorname{diag}(s_1, \dots, s_n)\,\Lambda \operatorname{diag}(s_1, \dots, s_n) = \operatorname{diag}(s_1^2\lambda_1, \dots, s_n^2\lambda_n) = \operatorname{diag}(I_{n_+}, -I_{n_-}, 0)$. □

Definition 8.44. For a symmetric $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, the numbers n_+, n_- and n_0 of Theorem 8.43 are the **index of positivity**, the **index of negativity** and the **index of nullity** of A (and of its quadratic form q_A); the triple (n_+, n_-, n_0) is the **inertia** of A.

By Theorems 8.43(c) and 8.21(a),(b), A is PD if and only if $n_+ = n$, PSD if and only if $n_- = 0$, and indefinite if and only if $n_+ \geqslant 1$ and $n_- \geqslant 1$. So any diagonalization $P'AP$ decides the definiteness, for instance the one of Corollary 8.37(c), found by completing the squares; no eigenvalues are needed.

Example 8.45. (a) Let $C = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$, and let P have the columns $v_1 = (1,0)'$ and $v_2 = (1,1)'$. Then

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad CP = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P'CP = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so the inertia of C is $(0,1,1)$. Indeed C has the eigenvalues -2 and 0, with the eigenvectors $(1,-1)'$ and $(1,1)'$. Here P is the matrix of Lemma 8.33 ($p_{12} = -c_{12}/c_{11} = 1$), and $P'CP = \operatorname{diag}(\Delta_1, \Delta_2/\Delta_1)$ is Corollary 8.37(c).

(b) For $A = 2J_3 - I_3$ of Example 8.5, $\Delta_1 = 1$, $\Delta_2 = 1 - 4 = -3$ and $\Delta_3 = \det A = 5 \cdot (-1) \cdot (-1) = 5$ (Theorem 7.19). Solving for P as in Example 8.35 ($p_{12} = -2$, and $A_2 \left(\begin{smallmatrix} p_{13} \\ p_{23} \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 \\ 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ gives $p_{13} = p_{23} = -\frac{2}{3}$),

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & -\frac{2}{3} \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{2}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -3 & 0 \\ 2 & -2 & -\frac{5}{3} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{2}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $P'AP = \operatorname{diag}(1, -3, -\frac{5}{3})$ (Corollary 8.37(c)). So $q_A(x) = (x_1+2x_2+2x_3)^2 - 3\left(x_2+\frac{2}{3}x_3\right)^2 - \frac{5}{3}x_3^2$: the inertia is $(1,2,0)$, and A is indefinite, as the eigenvalues 5, -1, -1 show (Theorem 8.43(c)).

The square root of a PSD matrix

Theorem 8.46. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD, with spectral decomposition $A = c_1E_1 + \cdots + c_kE_k$, and let Q, Λ be as in Theorem 8.3.

(a) There is exactly one PSD matrix B with $B^2 = A$, namely

$$A^{1/2} := \sqrt{c_1}\, E_1 + \cdots + \sqrt{c_k}\, E_k = Q\Lambda^{1/2}Q', \qquad \Lambda^{1/2} = \operatorname{diag}(\sqrt{\lambda_1}, \ldots, \sqrt{\lambda_n})$$

the **square root** of A, which is $f(A)$ for $f(t) = \sqrt{t}$ (Definition 8.9).

(b) $A^{1/2}A = AA^{1/2}$, $\operatorname{rank} A^{1/2} = \operatorname{rank} A$, and $x'Ax = \|A^{1/2}x\|^2$ for $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

(c) If A is PD, then $A^{1/2}$ is PD, and $A^{-1/2} := (A^{1/2})^{-1} = \sum_j c_j^{-1/2} E_j = Q\Lambda^{-1/2}Q'$, with $\Lambda^{-1/2} = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1^{-1/2}, \ldots, \lambda_n^{-1/2})$, satisfies

$$A^{-1/2}AA^{-1/2} = I_n, \qquad A^{-1/2}A^{-1/2} = A^{-1}$$

Proof. Every $c_j \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.21(a)), so $\sqrt{c_j}$ is defined. Let $N = \sum_j \sqrt{c_j}\, E_j$.

(a)

- N is symmetric, $N^2 = \sum_i \sum_j \sqrt{c_i}\sqrt{c_j}\, E_iE_j = \sum_j c_jE_j = A$, and, as in the proof of Theorem 8.21, $x'Nx = \sum_j \sqrt{c_j}\|E_jx\|^2 \geqslant 0$: N is PSD. By Theorem 8.6(c), $N = \sum_i \sqrt{\lambda_i}\, q_iq_i' = Q\Lambda^{1/2}Q'$.
- Uniqueness: let B be PSD with $B^2 = A$, and let $B = \sum_m d_mF_m$ be its spectral decomposition. The d_m are distinct and $\geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.21(a)), so the d_m^2 are distinct, and $A = B^2 = \sum_m d_m^2 F_m$ (Theorem 8.6(b) for B). By Theorem 8.6(d), after renumbering $d_m^2 = c_m$ and $F_m = E_m$; so $d_m = \sqrt{c_m}$ and $B = N$.

(b)

- $AN = \sum_j c_j\sqrt{c_j}\,E_j = NA$, as $E_iE_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$.
- $N = f(A)$ for $f(t) = \sqrt{t}$, so its eigenvalues are $\sqrt{\lambda_1}, \dots, \sqrt{\lambda_n}$ (Proposition 8.10(a)), and $\sqrt{\lambda_i} \neq 0$ exactly when $\lambda_i \neq 0$; hence $\operatorname{rank} N = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 8.4, for N and for A).
- N is symmetric, so $x'Ax = x'NNx = (Nx)'(Nx) = \|Nx\|^2$.

(c)

- If A is PD, every $c_j > 0$, so $x'Nx > 0$ for $x \neq 0$ (some $E_jx \neq 0$), and $N\sum_j c_j^{-1/2}E_j = \sum_j E_j = I_n$ gives $A^{-1/2} = \sum_j c_j^{-1/2}E_j$ (Theorem 2.16). Then $A^{-1/2}AA^{-1/2} = \sum_j c_j^{-1/2}c_jc_j^{-1/2}E_j = I_n$.
- As $A = N^2$ with N invertible, $A^{-1} = (N^2)^{-1} = (N^{-1})^2 = A^{-1/2}A^{-1/2}$ (Theorem 2.13(b)); and $A^{-1/2} = f(A)$ for $f(t) = t^{-1/2}$, so $A^{-1/2} = Q\Lambda^{-1/2}Q'$ (Proposition 8.10(a)). □

Example 8.47. For $A = 25E_1 + 9E_2 + E_3$ of Example 8.8, all eigenvalues are positive, so A is PD (Theorem 8.21(a)), and Theorem 8.46(a),(c) gives

$$A^{1/2} = 5E_1 + 3E_2 + E_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^{-1/2} = \tfrac{1}{5}E_1 + \tfrac{1}{3}E_2 + E_3 = \frac{1}{15}\begin{pmatrix} 7 & 2 & -3 & -3 \\ 2 & 7 & -3 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & 7 & 2 \\ -3 & -3 & 2 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

(for instance the $(1,1)$ entry of $A^{1/2}$ is $\frac{5}{4} + \frac{3}{2} + \frac{1}{4} = 3$). Check: row 1 of $A^{1/2}$ times its columns gives $9 + 1 + 1 = 11$, $0 + 1 + 1 = 2$, $3 + 3 = 6$, $3 + 3 = 6$, the first row of A. The matrix

$$G = 5E_1 - 3E_2 + E_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 3 & 1 & 1 \\ 3 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 3 \\ 1 & 1 & 3 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

also satisfies $G^2 = 25E_1 + 9E_2 + E_3 = A$, because $E_j^2 = E_j$ and $E_jE_l = 0$ for $j \neq l$ (Theorem 8.6(b)); but G is not PSD, as its diagonal entry $g_{11} = 0$ stands in a nonzero row (Theorem 8.30). Among the matrices whose square is A, Theorem 8.46(a) singles out the PSD one.

The Loewner order

Definition 8.48. For symmetric $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ we write $A \succcurlyeq B$ (or $B \preccurlyeq A$) if $A - B$ is PSD, and $A \succ B$ if $A - B$ is PD. This is the **Loewner order**. In particular $A \succcurlyeq 0$ means that A is PSD, and $A \succ 0$ that A is PD.

Example 8.49. (a) Unlike numbers, two symmetric matrices need not be comparable: for $A = \operatorname{diag}(1, 0)$ and $B = \operatorname{diag}(0, 1)$, neither $A - B = \operatorname{diag}(1, -1)$ nor $B - A$ is PSD (Proposition 8.23(a)), so neither $A \succcurlyeq B$ nor $B \succcurlyeq A$.

(b) The Loewner order is not the entrywise order: $I_2 - \frac{1}{2}J_2 = \frac{1}{2}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ has the eigenvalues 0 and 1, with the eigenvectors $(1, 1)'$ and $(1, -1)'$, so $I_2 \succcurlyeq \frac{1}{2}J_2$ (Theorem 8.21(a)), although the $(1, 2)$ entry of $\frac{1}{2}J_2$ is the larger one.

Proposition 8.50. Let $A, B, D \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric.

(a) $A \succcurlyeq A$; if $A \succcurlyeq B$ and $B \succcurlyeq A$, then $A = B$; if $A \succcurlyeq B$ and $B \succcurlyeq D$, then $A \succcurlyeq D$.

(b) If $A \succcurlyeq B$, then $A + D \succcurlyeq B + D$, and $K'AK \succcurlyeq K'BK$ for every $K \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$. If $A \succ B$ and $K \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is invertible, then $K'AK \succ K'BK$.

(c) If $A \succcurlyeq B$ and $B \succ 0$, then $A \succ 0$.

(d) If $A \succcurlyeq B$, then $a_{ii} \geqslant b_{ii}$ for every i, and $\operatorname{tr} A \geqslant \operatorname{tr} B$.

Proof. (a) $A - A = 0$ is PSD. If $A - B$ and $B - A = -(A - B)$ are PSD, then $A - B = 0$ (Proposition 8.23(e)). If $A - B$ and $B - D$ are PSD, so is their sum $A - D$ (Proposition 8.23(b)).

(b) $(A + D) - (B + D) = A - B$, and $K'AK - K'BK = K'(A - B)K$, which is PSD if $A - B$ is (Theorem 8.24(a)), and PD if $A - B$ is PD and K is invertible (Theorem 8.24(c)).

(c) $A = B + (A - B)$ with B PD and $A - B$ PSD, so A is PD (Proposition 8.23(b)).

(d) $A - B$ is PSD, so its diagonal entries $a_{ii} - b_{ii}$ are $\geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.30); adding over i, $\operatorname{tr} A - \operatorname{tr} B = \operatorname{tr}(A - B) \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 1.11(a)). □

Theorem 8.51. If $A \succcurlyeq B \succ 0$, then $B^{-1} \succcurlyeq A^{-1}$.

Proof. A is PD (Proposition 8.50(c)), so A^{-1} and B^{-1} exist and are PD (Proposition 8.23(c)).

- First let $B = I_n$, and let $A = c_1E_1 + \cdots + c_kE_k$ be the spectral decomposition. By Proposition 8.10(c),(a) with $f(t) = t - 1$, the eigenvalues of $A - I_n$ are $c_j - 1$, and they are $\geqslant 0$, as $A - I_n$ is PSD (Theorem 8.21(a)). So every $c_j \geqslant 1$.
- $I_n - A^{-1} = g(A)$ for $g(t) = 1 - 1/t$ (Theorem 8.6(b) and Proposition 8.10(b)), with the eigenvalues $1 - c_j^{-1} \geqslant 0$ (Proposition 8.10(a)). So $I_n - A^{-1}$ is PSD (Theorem 8.21(a)), that is, $I_n \succcurlyeq A^{-1}$.
- In general, let $B^{-1/2} = (B^{1/2})^{-1}$, which is symmetric (Theorems 8.46 and 2.13(c)), and $M = B^{-1/2}AB^{-1/2}$. By Proposition 8.50(b) with $K = B^{-1/2}$, $M \succcurlyeq B^{-1/2}BB^{-1/2} = I_n$ (Theorem 8.46).
- By the first part, $I_n \succcurlyeq M^{-1} = B^{1/2}A^{-1}B^{1/2}$ (Theorem 2.13(a),(b)).
- By Proposition 8.50(b) with $K = B^{-1/2}$ again, $B^{-1/2}B^{-1/2} \succcurlyeq B^{-1/2}B^{1/2}A^{-1}B^{1/2}B^{-1/2} = A^{-1}$, and $B^{-1/2}B^{-1/2} = (B^{1/2}B^{1/2})^{-1} = B^{-1}$ (Theorem 2.13(b)). □

Theorem 8.52. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PD and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ PSD. Then $\det(A + B) \geqslant \det A$, with equality if and only if $B = 0$. Consequently, if $A \succcurlyeq B \succ 0$, then $\det A \geqslant \det B$, with equality if and only if $A = B$; and $\det A \geqslant \det B$ holds also when $A \succcurlyeq B \succcurlyeq 0$.

Proof. • By Theorem 8.26(b), $B = K'K$ for some $K \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$; let $k_1', \ldots, k_r'$ be the rows of K, and K_i the $i \times n$ matrix of its first i rows. Put $A_0 = A$ and $A_i = A + K_i'K_i$ $(i = 1, \ldots, r)$, so that $A_r = A + B$.

- By the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $K_i'K_i = K_{i-1}'K_{i-1} + k_ik_i'$, that is, $A_i = A_{i-1} + k_ik_i'$ $(i \geqslant 2$; for $i = 1$, $A_1 = A + k_1k_1')$. Each $K_i'K_i$ is PSD (Theorem 8.25), so each A_i is PD, and A_{i-1}^{-1} is PD (Proposition 8.23(b),(c)).
- By Theorem 5.31, $\det A_i = \det A_{i-1} \cdot (1 + k_i'A_{i-1}^{-1}k_i)$. Here $\det A_{i-1} > 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)) and $k_i'A_{i-1}^{-1}k_i \geqslant 0$, with equality if and only if $k_i = 0$. So $\det A_i \geqslant \det A_{i-1}$, with equality if and only if $k_i = 0$.
- Hence $\det(A + B) = \det A_r \geqslant \det A_{r-1} \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \det A_0 = \det A$, with equality if and only if equality holds at every step, that is, $k_1 = \cdots = k_r = 0$, that is, $K = 0$. And $K = 0$ if and only if $B = K'K = 0$: if $K'K = 0$, then $\operatorname{tr}(K'K) = 0$ and $K = 0$ (Theorem 1.11(d)).

- If $A \succcurlyeq B \succ 0$, apply this to the PD matrix B and the PSD matrix $A - B$: $\det A = \det\big(B + (A - B)\big) \geqslant \det B$, with equality if and only if $A - B = 0$.
- Let $A \succcurlyeq B \succcurlyeq 0$. Then $A \succcurlyeq 0$ (Proposition 8.50(a)), so $\det A \geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)); if $\det B = 0$, this is $\det A \geqslant \det B$. Otherwise B is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)), hence PD (Theorem 8.21(c)), and the previous item applies. □

Example 8.53. Let $B = (\min(i, j)) \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ be the matrix of Example 8.42, $x = e_4$ and $A = B + xx'$. Show that $A \succcurlyeq B \succ 0$, and compare A^{-1} with B^{-1} and $\det A$ with $\det B$.

Solution.

- $xx' = e_4 e_4'$ has the single nonzero entry 1 in position $(4, 4)$, so

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 3 \\ 1 & 2 & 3 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

  By Example 8.42, B is PD, $\det B = 1$ and $B^{-1} = K'K$. The matrix $A - B = xx'$ is PSD (Theorem 8.25, applied to the 1×4 matrix x'); so $A \succcurlyeq B \succ 0$.
- $w = B^{-1}x = \operatorname{col}_4(B^{-1}) = (0, 0, -1, 1)'$ (Theorem 1.4(b)), and $x'B^{-1}x = x'w = 1$. As B^{-1} is symmetric (Theorem 2.13(c)), $B^{-1}xx'B^{-1} = ww'$, and Theorem 5.32(b) gives

$$B^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A^{-1} = B^{-1} - \tfrac{1}{2}ww' = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 4 & -2 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 4 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  The difference $B^{-1} - A^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}ww'$, whose only nonzero entries are $\frac{1}{2}$ in positions $(3, 3)$, $(4, 4)$ and $-\frac{1}{2}$ in positions $(3, 4)$, $(4, 3)$, is PSD (Theorem 8.25), as Theorem 8.51 predicts: $B^{-1} \succcurlyeq A^{-1}$.
- $\det A = \det B \cdot (1 + x'B^{-1}x) = 1 \cdot 2 = 2 \geqslant 1 = \det B$ (Theorems 5.31 and 8.52); the inequality is strict, as $A \neq B$.

Simultaneous diagonalization

Lemma 8.54. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, and let $W \neq \{0\}$ be a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^n$ that is **invariant** under A: $Aw \in W$ for every $w \in W$. Then W has an orthonormal basis consisting of eigenvectors of A.

Proof. • Let $q_1, \ldots, q_m$ be an orthonormal basis of W (Corollary 6.15(a)), and $Q_W = [q_1 \ \cdots \ q_m] \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times m}$; so $Q_W'Q_W = I_m$.

- Each Aq_j lies in W, so $Aq_j = Q_W c_j$ for some $c_j \in \mathbb{R}^m$ (Theorem 1.4(b)). With $M = [c_1 \ \cdots \ c_m]$, $AQ_W = Q_W M$ (Theorem 1.4(a)); multiplying by Q_W' on the left gives $M = Q_W'AQ_W$, and $M' = Q_W'A'Q_W = M$.
- By Theorem 8.3(a),(b), applied to M, $R'MR = \Lambda$ is diagonal for an orthogonal $R \in \mathbb{R}^{m\times m}$, so $MR = RR'MR = R\Lambda$ (Proposition 6.13(b)). Let $U = Q_W R$. Then $U'U = R'Q_W'Q_W R = R'R = I_m$ and $AU = AQ_W R = Q_W MR = Q_W R\Lambda = U\Lambda$: the m columns of U are orthonormal eigenvectors of A (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)).
- They lie in W, as $\operatorname{col}_j(U) = Q_W \operatorname{col}_j(R)$, and they are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)); as $\dim W = m$, they form a basis of W (Theorem 4.5(d)). □

Theorem 8.55. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric. There is an orthogonal Q such that $Q'AQ$ and $Q'BQ$ are both diagonal if and only if $AB = BA$.

Proof. • If $Q'AQ = D_1$ and $Q'BQ = D_2$ are diagonal, then $D_1D_2 = D_2D_1$, and $AB = QD_1Q'QD_2Q' = QD_1D_2Q' = QD_2D_1Q' = BA$.

- Conversely, let $AB = BA$, let $c_1, \dots, c_k$ be the distinct eigenvalues of A, and $W_j = \mathcal{N}(A - c_jI)$. For $x \in W_j$, $A(Bx) = B(Ax) = c_jBx$, so $Bx \in W_j$: W_j is invariant under B.
- By Lemma 8.54, applied to B and W_j, W_j has an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors of B; they are eigenvectors of A belonging to c_j.
- Together, these vectors are orthonormal, as $W_i \perp W_j$ for $i \neq j$ (Theorem 8.2), and there are $\sum_j \dim W_j = \sum_j a_A(c_j) = n$ of them (Theorem 8.4, Definition 7.10). So they are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)) and form an orthonormal basis $q_1, \dots, q_n$ of $\mathbb{R}^n$ (Theorem 4.5(d)).
- Each q_i is an eigenvector of A and of B, so for $Q = [q_1 \ \cdots \ q_n]$, $Q'AQ$ and $Q'BQ$ are diagonal (Theorem 8.3(b), for A and for B). □

Example 8.56. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 11 & 2 & 6 & 6 \\ 2 & 11 & 6 & 6 \\ 6 & 6 & 11 & 2 \\ 6 & 6 & 2 & 11 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 4 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

where A is the matrix of Example 8.8. Find an orthogonal Q such that $Q'AQ$ and $Q'BQ$ are diagonal.

Solution.

- By rows (Theorem 1.4(c)),

$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} 54 & 36 & 47 & 38 \\ 36 & 54 & 38 & 47 \\ 47 & 38 & 54 & 36 \\ 38 & 47 & 36 & 54 \end{pmatrix}$$

  is symmetric, so $BA = B'A' = (AB)' = AB$ (Theorem 1.9). By Theorem 8.55, Q exists.
- The eigenspaces of A (Example 8.8) are $W_1 = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}$ (for 25), $W_2 = \{x : x_1 + x_2 = 0,\ x_3 + x_4 = 0\} = \text{span}\{u_2, u_3\}$ with $u_2 = (-1, 1, 0, 0)'$ and $u_3 = (0, 0, -1, 1)'$ (for 9), and $W_3 = \text{span}\{(1, 1, -1, -1)'\}$ (for 1). Every row sum of B is 7, so $B\mathbf{1}_4 = 7\mathbf{1}_4$; and $B(1, 1, -1, -1)' = (5, 5, -5, -5)'$.
- In W_2, $x = au_2 + bu_3 = (-a, a, -b, b)'$ and $Bx = (-2a - b,\ 2a + b,\ -a - 2b,\ a + 2b)'$. If $Bx = \mu x$, entries 2 and 4 give $2a + b = \mu a$ and $a + 2b = \mu b$; their sum and their difference give $(\mu - 3)(a + b) = 0$ and $(\mu - 1)(a - b) = 0$. So $\mu = 3$ with $x = a(-1, 1, -1, 1)'$, or $\mu = 1$ with $x = a(-1, 1, 1, -1)'$; entries 1 and 3 then agree. Indeed $B(1, -1, 1, -1)' = (3, -3, 3, -3)'$ and $B(1, -1, -1, 1)' = (1, -1, -1, 1)'$.
- The vectors $\mathbf{1}_4$, $(1, -1, 1, -1)'$, $(1, -1, -1, 1)'$, $(1, 1, -1, -1)'$ are eigenvectors of A and of B, of length 2 and pairwise orthogonal. So

$$Q = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q'AQ = \text{diag}(25, 9, 9, 1), \qquad Q'BQ = \text{diag}(7, 3, 1, 5)$$

  by Theorem 8.3(b), for A and for B.

Theorem 8.57. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, with A PD.

(a) There is an invertible $E \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $E'AE = I_n$ and $E'BE = \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n)$, and E can be chosen so that $\lambda_1 \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \lambda_n$.

(b) For every real λ, $\det(B - \lambda A) = \det A \cdot (\lambda_1 - \lambda) \cdots (\lambda_n - \lambda)$. So $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ are the roots of $\det(B - \lambda A) = 0$, and they are the eigenvalues of $A^{-1}B$, listed with multiplicity.

(c) An $n \times n$ matrix $E = [f_1 \ \cdots \ f_n]$ is as in (a) if and only if $Bf_i = \lambda_i Af_i$ and $f_i'Af_j = \delta_{ij}$ for all i, j. Moreover, if $Bx = \lambda Ax$ and $By = \mu Ay$ with $\lambda \neq \mu$, then $x'Ay = 0$.

Proof. (a)

- By Theorem 8.3, $P'AP = D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \ldots, d_n)$ for an orthogonal P, and every $d_i > 0$ (Theorem 8.21(a)). With $D^{-1/2} = \operatorname{diag}(d_1^{-1/2}, \ldots, d_n^{-1/2})$, $D^{-1/2}P'APD^{-1/2} = I_n$.
- $C = D^{-1/2}P'BPD^{-1/2}$ is symmetric (Theorem 1.9), so $Q'CQ = \Lambda$ is diagonal for an orthogonal Q, whose columns may be numbered so that $\lambda_1 \geqslant \cdots \geqslant \lambda_n$ (Theorem 8.3(b)).
- $E = PD^{-1/2}Q$ is invertible (Theorem 2.13(b)), $E'AE = Q'(D^{-1/2}P'APD^{-1/2})Q = Q'Q = I_n$, and $E'BE = Q'CQ = \Lambda$.

(b)

- For real λ, $E'(B - \lambda A)E = \Lambda - \lambda I_n$, so $\det E' \cdot \det(B - \lambda A) \cdot \det E = (\lambda_1 - \lambda) \cdots (\lambda_n - \lambda)$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.14(c)).
- From $E'AE = I_n$, $(\det E)^2 \det A = 1$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.22); multiplying by $\det A$ gives $\det(B - \lambda A) = \det A \cdot (\lambda_1 - \lambda) \cdots (\lambda_n - \lambda)$, and $\det A \neq 0$.
- For real t, $\det(tI_n - A^{-1}B) = \det A^{-1} \cdot \det(tA - B) = (\det A)^{-1}(-1)^n \det(B - tA) = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_n)$ (Theorem 5.18(b),(c)). By Definition 7.7(a) and Proposition 7.5(d), $p_{A^{-1}B} = (t - \lambda_1) \cdots (t - \lambda_n)$, and Definition 7.10 gives the eigenvalues of $A^{-1}B$.

(c)

- The (i, j) entries of $E'AE$ and $E'BE$ are $f_i'Af_j$ and $f_i'Bf_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). If $Bf_j = \lambda_j Af_j$ and $f_i'Af_j = \delta_{ij}$ for all i, j, then $E'AE = I_n$, so $(\det E)^2 \det A = 1$ and E is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)), and $f_i'Bf_j = \lambda_j f_i'Af_j = \lambda_j \delta_{ij}$: $E'BE = \Lambda$.
- Conversely, if E is as in (a), then $E'AE = I_n$ gives $AE = (E')^{-1}$, and $BE = (E')^{-1}\Lambda = AE\Lambda$, whose column i reads $Bf_i = \lambda_i Af_i$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)).
- If $Bx = \lambda Ax$ and $By = \mu Ay$, then $\lambda\, x'Ay = (\lambda Ax)'y = (Bx)'y = x'By = \mu\, x'Ay$, so $(\lambda - \mu)\, x'Ay = 0$. □

Corollary 8.58. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, with A PD, and let E and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n)$ be as in Theorem 8.57(a).

(a) $A^{-1}B = E\Lambda E^{-1}$: $A^{-1}B$ is diagonalizable, its eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \ldots, \lambda_n$ are real, and column i of E is an eigenvector of $A^{-1}B$ belonging to λ_i.

(b) $A^{-1}B$ and the symmetric matrix $A^{-1/2}BA^{-1/2}$ have the same eigenvalues, with the same multiplicities.

Proof. (a) By Theorem 8.57(c), $Bf_i = \lambda_i Af_i$ for the columns f_i of E, that is, $BE = AE\Lambda$ (Theorem 1.4(a),(b)). As A is invertible (Theorem 8.21(c)) and so is E, $A^{-1}BE = E\Lambda$ and $A^{-1}B = E\Lambda E^{-1}$; the rest is the last part of Definition 7.23.

(b) $A^{-1/2}$ is symmetric (Theorems 8.46(c) and 2.13(c)), so $A^{-1/2}BA^{-1/2}$ is symmetric (Theorem 1.9). As $A^{-1} = A^{-1/2}A^{-1/2}$ (Theorem 8.46(c)), $A^{1/2}(A^{-1}B)A^{-1/2} = A^{1/2}A^{-1/2}A^{-1/2}BA^{-1/2} = A^{-1/2}BA^{-1/2}$; that is, $A^{-1/2}BA^{-1/2} = P^{-1}(A^{-1}B)P$ with $P = A^{-1/2} = (A^{1/2})^{-1}$, as $P^{-1} = A^{1/2}$ (Theorem 2.13(a)), and Theorem 7.15(a) gives the claim. □

This covers the matrix $\Sigma_{11}^{-1}\Sigma_{12}\Sigma_{22}^{-1}\Sigma_{12}'$ of canonical correlation analysis, where Σ_{11} and Σ_{22} are the covariance matrices of two random vectors and Σ_{12} is their cross-covariance matrix: when Σ_{11} and Σ_{22} are PD, $A = \Sigma_{11}$ and the symmetric matrix $B = \Sigma_{12}\Sigma_{22}^{-1}\Sigma_{12}'$ are as above, so its eigenvalues are real.

Example 8.59. Let $A = (\min(i,j)) \in \mathbb{R}^{4\times 4}$ be the matrix of Example 8.42, and

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 3 & 3 & 3 \\ 3 & 5 & 5 & 5 \\ 3 & 5 & 6 & 6 \\ 3 & 5 & 6 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

the matrix with entries $b_{ij} = c_{\min(i,j)}$, where $(c_1, c_2, c_3, c_4) = (3, 5, 6, 5)$. Find E as in Theorem 8.57(a).

Solution.

- A is PD and $\det A = 1$ (Example 8.42). For real t, the (i,j) entry of $B - tA$ is $d_{\min(i,j)}$, with $d_m = c_m - tm$: $d_1 = 3 - t$, $d_2 = 5 - 2t$, $d_3 = 6 - 3t$, $d_4 = 5 - 4t$.
- Subtract row 3 from row 4, then row 2 from row 3, then row 1 from row 2 (Definition 5.13(b)). Row i minus row $i-1$ has the entry $d_j - d_j = 0$ for $j < i$ and $d_i - d_{i-1}$ for $j \geqslant i$, so the result is upper triangular, and (Theorem 5.14(c))

  $$\det(B - tA) = d_1(d_2 - d_1)(d_3 - d_2)(d_4 - d_3) = (3-t)(2-t)(1-t)(-1-t)$$

  As $\det A = 1$, Theorem 8.57(b) gives $\lambda_1 = 3$, $\lambda_2 = 2$, $\lambda_3 = 1$, $\lambda_4 = -1$.
- Let $f_k = e_k - e_{k-1}$ ($k = 1, \ldots, 4$, with $e_0 = 0$ and $d_0 = 0$). Entry i of $(B - tA)f_k$ is $d_{\min(i,k)} - d_{\min(i,k-1)}$, which is 0 for $i < k$ and $d_k - d_{k-1} = (c_k - c_{k-1}) - t$ for $i \geqslant k$. As $c_k - c_{k-1} = \lambda_k$ ($c_0 = 0$), $(B - \lambda_k A)f_k = 0$, that is, $Bf_k = \lambda_k A f_k$.
- Let $E = [f_1\ f_2\ f_3\ f_4]$. The columns of

  $$E = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AE = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

  give $E'AE = I_4$: the (j,k) entry $f_j' A f_k$ is entry j minus entry $j-1$ of column k of AE, which is 1 for $j = k$ and 0 otherwise. Then $E'BE = \operatorname{diag}(3, 2, 1, -1)$, since $(E'BE)_{jk} = f_j' B f_k = \lambda_k f_j' A f_k$.

Here $E = K' = T^{-1}$ for the Cholesky factor T of A and $K = (T')^{-1}$ (Example 8.42, Theorem 2.13(c)), and $B = T' \operatorname{diag}(3, 2, 1, -1)\, T$. In the coordinates $y = E^{-1}x = Tx$, that is, $y_k = x_k + \cdots + x_4$, $x'Ax = y_1^2 + y_2^2 + y_3^2 + y_4^2$ and $x'Bx = 3y_1^2 + 2y_2^2 + y_3^2 - y_4^2$.

Exercises

Exercise 8.1. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & 2 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & 5 & 4 \\ 2 & -2 & 4 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_A and the eigenvalues of A with their algebraic multiplicities.

(b) Find an orthogonal Q and a diagonal Λ with $Q'AQ = \Lambda$.

(c) Write down the spectral decomposition of A, and check that the projection for the simple eigenvalue is the polynomial in A of Proposition 8.10(c).

(d) Find A^{-1} and A^m for $m = 1, 2, \ldots$

Solution. (a) For real t, apply $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2$ and $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3$, take the factor $t-1$ out of rows 1 and 4, apply $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1$, $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_1$, expand along column 1, add column 3 to column 2, and expand along row 3 (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorems 5.22 and 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned}
\det(tI - A) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-2 & 1 & -2 & -2 \\ 1 & t-2 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & 2 & t-5 & -4 \\ -2 & 2 & -4 & t-5 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & t-1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & t-2 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & 2 & t-5 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1-t & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= (t-1)^2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & t-2 & 2 & 2 \\ -2 & 2 & t-5 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)^2 \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & t-3 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & t-5 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= (t-1)^2 \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & 2 & 2 \\ 4 & t-5 & -4 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-1)^2 \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & 4 & 2 \\ 4 & t-9 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= (t-1)^2\Big((t-3)(t-9) - 16\Big) = (t-1)^2(t^2 - 12t + 11) = (t-1)^3(t-11)
\end{aligned}$$

So $p_A(t) = (t-1)^3(t-11)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)): the eigenvalues are 11 with $a_A(11) = 1$ and 1 with $a_A(1) = 3$.

(b) Row-reduce $A - 11I$:

$$A - 11I = \begin{pmatrix} -9 & -1 & 2 & 2 \\ -1 & -9 & -2 & -2 \\ 2 & -2 & -6 & 4 \\ 2 & -2 & 4 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -10 & -10 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -9 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -10 & 10 \\ 2 & -2 & 4 & -6 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{10}R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{10}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & -9 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 4 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -8 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -4 & 4 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 4R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -8 & 0 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -4 & 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - \frac{1}{2}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -8 & 0 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $x_4 = 2$ gives $x_3 = x_4 = 2$, $x_2 = -\frac{1}{2}x_4 = -1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 = 1$: $u = (1, -1, 2, 2)'$ spans $\mathcal{N}(A - 11I)$.

Next,

$$A-I=\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&2\\-1&1&-2&-2\\2&-2&4&4\\2&-2&4&4\end{pmatrix}\xrightarrow[R_4\leftarrow R_4-2R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2+R_1,\ R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_1}\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&2\\0&0&0&0\\0&0&0&0\\0&0&0&0\end{pmatrix}$$

so $\mathcal{N}(A-I)=\{x:x_1=x_2-2x_3-2x_4\}$ has the basis $s_1=(1,1,0,0)'$, $s_2=(-2,0,1,0)'$, $s_3=(-2,0,0,1)'$. Gram–Schmidt (Theorem 6.14):

- $b_1=s_1$, with $\|b_1\|^2=2$;
- $s_2'b_1=-2$, so $b_2=s_2+b_1=(-1,1,1,0)'$, with $\|b_2\|^2=3$;
- $s_3'b_1=-2$ and $s_3'b_2=2$, so $b_3=s_3+b_1-\frac{2}{3}b_2=\frac{1}{3}(-1,1,-2,3)'$; we use $3b_3=(-1,1,-2,3)'$, with $\|3b_3\|^2=15$.

The vector u is orthogonal to b_1, b_2 and b_3 (Theorem 8.2). Normalizing (Theorem 8.3(b)),

$$Q=\begin{pmatrix}1/\sqrt{2}&-1/\sqrt{3}&-1/\sqrt{15}&1/\sqrt{10}\\1/\sqrt{2}&1/\sqrt{3}&1/\sqrt{15}&-1/\sqrt{10}\\0&1/\sqrt{3}&-2/\sqrt{15}&2/\sqrt{10}\\0&0&3/\sqrt{15}&2/\sqrt{10}\end{pmatrix},\qquad \Lambda=\operatorname{diag}(1,1,1,11)$$

Check: $A(-1,1,-2,3)'=(-1,1,-2,3)'$ and $A(1,-1,2,2)'=(11,-11,22,22)'$.

(c) With $c_1=11$ and $c_2=1$, Theorem 8.6(b),(c) gives $E_1=q_4q_4'=\frac{1}{10}uu'$ and $E_2=I_4-E_1$:

$$E_1=\frac{1}{10}\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&2&2\\-1&1&-2&-2\\2&-2&4&4\\2&-2&4&4\end{pmatrix},\qquad E_2=\frac{1}{10}\begin{pmatrix}9&1&-2&-2\\1&9&2&2\\-2&2&6&-4\\-2&2&-4&6\end{pmatrix},\qquad A=11E_1+E_2$$

The polynomial $e_1=\frac{t-1}{11-1}$ gives $E_1=\frac{1}{10}(A-I)$, and indeed $A-I=uu'$ is the matrix reduced in (b).

(d) No eigenvalue is 0, so by Theorem 8.6(b)

$$A^{-1}=\tfrac{1}{11}E_1+E_2=I_4-\tfrac{10}{11}E_1=\frac{1}{11}\begin{pmatrix}10&1&-2&-2\\1&10&2&2\\-2&2&7&-4\\-2&2&-4&7\end{pmatrix},\qquad A^m=11^mE_1+E_2=I_4+\tfrac{11^m-1}{10}\,uu'$$

Check: $\operatorname{row}_1(A)A^{-1}=\frac{1}{11}(20-1-4-4,\ 2-10+4+4,\ -4-2+14-8,\ -4-2-8+14)=(1,0,0,0)$, and likewise for rows 2, 3 and 4.

Exercise 8.2. Let

$$A=\begin{pmatrix}-1&-2&2&-2\\-2&-1&-2&2\\2&-2&-1&-2\\-2&2&-2&-1\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that $p_A(t)=(t-5)(t+3)^3$, find an orthonormal basis of each eigenspace, and an orthogonal Q with $Q'AQ$ diagonal.

(b) Find the projections E_1 and E_2 of the spectral decomposition of A ($c_1=5$, $c_2=-3$), onto $\mathcal{N}(A-5I)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A+3I)$, and check that $A=5E_1-3E_2$.

(c) Use Definition 8.9 to compute A^{-1} and A^3.

Solution. (a) For real t, subtract rows 2 and 4 of $tI_4 - A$ from row 1 and add row 3 to it; the new row 1 is $(t-5)(1,-1,1,-1)$. Take out $t-5$, and add column 1 to columns 2 and 4 and subtract it from column 3 (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorem 5.22):

$$\det(tI_4 - A) = \det\begin{pmatrix} t+1 & 2 & -2 & 2 \\ 2 & t+1 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & 2 & t+1 & 2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & t+1 \end{pmatrix} = (t-5)\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 2 & t+1 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & 2 & t+1 & 2 \\ 2 & -2 & 2 & t+1 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$= (t-5)\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & t+3 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & 0 & t+3 & 0 \\ 2 & 0 & 0 & t+3 \end{pmatrix} = (t-5)(t+3)^3$$

as the last matrix is lower triangular (Theorem 5.22). So $p_A(t) = (t-5)(t+3)^3$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)).

- $v = (1,-1,1,-1)'$ has $Av = (-1+2+2+2,\ -2+1-2-2,\ 2+2-1+2,\ -2-2-2+1)' = 5v$, and $\dim\mathcal{N}(A-5I) = a_A(5) = 1$ (Theorem 8.4); so $u_1 = \frac{1}{2}v$ is an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{N}(A-5I)$.
- $A+3I_4 = 2vv'$: row i of $A+3I_4$ is $2v_iv'$. So $\mathcal{N}(A+3I) = \{x : x_1 - x_2 + x_3 - x_4 = 0\}$, of dimension $a_A(-3) = 3$ (Theorem 8.4). The orthogonal vectors $(1,1,1,1)'$, $(1,1,-1,-1)'$, $(1,-1,-1,1)'$ lie in it, so $u_2 = \frac{1}{2}(1,1,1,1)'$, $u_3 = \frac{1}{2}(1,1,-1,-1)'$, $u_4 = \frac{1}{2}(1,-1,-1,1)'$ is an orthonormal basis of $\mathcal{N}(A+3I)$ (Proposition 6.11(b), Theorem 4.5(d)).
- $Q = [u_1\ u_2\ u_3\ u_4]$ is orthogonal ($u_1 \perp u_2, u_3, u_4$ by Theorem 8.2) and $Q'AQ = \mathrm{diag}(5,-3,-3,-3)$ (Theorem 8.3(b)).

(b) By Theorem 8.6(b),(c),

$$E_1 = u_1u_1' = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_2 = I_4 - E_1 = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 3 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 3 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $5E_1 - 3E_2 = 8E_1 - 3I_4 = 2vv' - 3I_4 = A$: the diagonal entries are $2-3 = -1$ and the others are $2v_iv_j = \pm 2$.

(c) By Definition 8.9 with $f(t) = 1/t$ and $f(t) = t^3$, which give A^{-1} and A^3 (Proposition 8.10(b),(c)),

$$A^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{5}E_1 - \tfrac{1}{3}E_2 = \tfrac{8}{15}E_1 - \tfrac{1}{3}I_4 = \tfrac{1}{15}(2vv' - 5I_4) = \frac{1}{15}\begin{pmatrix} -3 & -2 & 2 & -2 \\ -2 & -3 & -2 & 2 \\ 2 & -2 & -3 & -2 \\ -2 & 2 & -2 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$A^3 = 125E_1 - 27E_2 = 152E_1 - 27I_4 = 38vv' - 27I_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 11 & -38 & 38 & -38 \\ -38 & 11 & -38 & 38 \\ 38 & -38 & 11 & -38 \\ -38 & 38 & -38 & 11 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: row 1 of A times the first two columns of $15A^{-1}$ gives $3+4+4+4 = 15$ and $2+6-4-4 = 0$. (Thus $A^{-1} = \frac{1}{15}(A - 2I_4)$, that is, $A^2 - 2A - 15I_4 = (A-5I_4)(A+3I_4) = 0$.)

Exercise 8.3. Let

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_B and the eigenvalues of B.

(b) Find an orthogonal Q and a diagonal Λ with $Q'BQ = \Lambda$.

(c) Write down the spectral decomposition of B, and use it to find B^{-1}.

Solution. (a) For real t, add rows 2, 3 and 4 to row 1, take the factor $t-6$ out of row 1, subtract column 1 from columns 2, 3 and 4, and expand along row 1 and then along row 3 (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorems 5.22 and 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned} \det(tI - B) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-3 & -1 & 0 & -2 \\ -1 & t-2 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & t-3 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & t \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} t-6 & t-6 & t-6 & t-6 \\ -1 & t-2 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & t-3 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & t \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-6) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & t-2 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & t-3 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & t \end{pmatrix} = (t-6) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & t-1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & t-3 & -2 \\ -2 & 0 & 0 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= (t-6) \det \begin{pmatrix} t-1 & 0 & -1 \\ -1 & t-3 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & t+2 \end{pmatrix} = (t-6)(t+2)\Big((t-1)(t-3) - 0\Big) \end{aligned}$$

So $p_B(t) = (t-6)(t-3)(t-1)(t+2)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)), and the eigenvalues are 6, 3, 1, −2.

(b) Row-reduce $B - cI$ for $c = 6, 3, 1, -2$:

$$B - 6I = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & -4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & -4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 1 & -4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ -3 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 3R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & -5 & 0 & 5 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & 3 & -7 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow -\frac{1}{5}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 2 \\ 0 & 4 & 3 & -7 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 4R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 1$ gives $x_3 = x_4 = 1$, $x_2 = x_4 = 1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 + 3x_4 = 1$;

$$B - 3I = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & -7 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 4R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -15 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -15 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 0$, $x_2 = -2x_4 = 0$, and $x_3 = -1$ gives $x_1 = x_2 - x_3 - 2x_4 = 1$;

$$B - I = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & -1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 0$, and $x_3 = 1$ gives $x_2 = -2x_3 - 2x_4 = -2$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 - 2x_4 = 1$;

$$B + 2I = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2} R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 1 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 4 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 5 & 1 & 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 5R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & -4 & -5 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftrightarrow R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & -4 & -5 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 4R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -15 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 15 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -15 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = -3$ gives $x_3 = -\frac{1}{3}x_4 = 1$, $x_2 = -5x_3 - 2x_4 = 1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 - x_4 = 1$. So the eigenspaces are spanned by $(1,1,1,1)'$, $(1,0,-1,0)'$, $(1,-2,1,0)'$ and $(1,1,1,-3)'$. They belong to distinct eigenvalues, so they are pairwise orthogonal (Theorem 8.2). Normalizing them (Theorem 8.3(b)),

$$Q = \begin{pmatrix} 1/2 & 1/\sqrt{2} & 1/\sqrt{6} & 1/\sqrt{12} \\ 1/2 & 0 & -2/\sqrt{6} & 1/\sqrt{12} \\ 1/2 & -1/\sqrt{2} & 1/\sqrt{6} & 1/\sqrt{12} \\ 1/2 & 0 & 0 & -3/\sqrt{12} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad \Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(6, 3, 1, -2)$$

(c) Each eigenvalue has multiplicity 1, so $E_j = q_j q_j'$ (Theorem 8.6(c)), and $B = 6E_1 + 3E_2 + E_3 - 2E_4$ with

$$E_1 = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_2 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$E_3 = \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 4 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_4 = \frac{1}{12}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & -3 & 9 \end{pmatrix}$$

(for instance, entry $(1,1)$ of the sum is $\frac{6}{4} + \frac{3}{2} + \frac{1}{6} - \frac{2}{12} = 3$). No eigenvalue is 0, so by Theorem 8.6(b)

$$B^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{6}E_1 + \tfrac{1}{3}E_2 + E_3 - \tfrac{1}{2}E_4 = \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -2 & 0 & 1 \\ -2 & 4 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(B)B^{-1} = \frac{1}{6}(6 - 2 + 0 + 2,\ -6 + 4 + 0 + 2,\ 0 - 2 + 0 + 2,\ 3 + 1 + 0 - 4) = (1, 0, 0, 0)$, and likewise for rows 2, 3 and 4.

Exercise 8.4. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & 3 & 2 & 0 \\ 3 & 5 & 0 & 2 \\ 2 & 0 & 5 & 3 \\ 0 & 2 & 3 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

and let $h_1 = \mathbf{1}_4$, $h_2 = (1, 1, -1, -1)'$, $h_3 = (1, -1, 1, -1)'$ and $h_4 = (1, -1, -1, 1)'$ (the vectors of Example 8.36).

(a) Show that $h_1, \dots, h_4$ are eigenvectors of A. Find an orthogonal Q and a diagonal Λ with $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ and decreasing diagonal entries, and write the spectral decomposition of A.

(b) Find $\operatorname{rank} A$ and bases of $\mathcal{C}(A)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A)$. Is A PD? PSD?

(c) Find the largest and the smallest value of $x'Ax$ on the unit sphere $x'x = 1$ of $\mathbb{R}^4$, and all points where they are attained.

Solution. (a) Multiplying the rows of A by $h_1, \dots, h_4$:

$$Ah_1 = \begin{pmatrix} 10 \\ 10 \\ 10 \\ 10 \end{pmatrix} = 10h_1, \quad Ah_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 6 \\ 6 \\ -6 \\ -6 \end{pmatrix} = 6h_2, \quad Ah_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 4 \\ -4 \\ 4 \\ -4 \end{pmatrix} = 4h_3, \quad Ah_4 = \begin{pmatrix} 5-3-2 \\ 3-5+2 \\ 2-5+3 \\ -2-3+5 \end{pmatrix} = 0$$

The h_j are orthogonal with $\|h_j\| = 2$, so $Q = \frac{1}{2}[h_1 \ h_2 \ h_3 \ h_4]$ is orthogonal, $AQ = Q\Lambda$ with $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(10, 6, 4, 0)$, and $A = Q\Lambda Q'$; so $10, 6, 4, 0$ are the eigenvalues of A (Theorem 8.3(b),(c)). By Theorem 8.6(c), with $q_j = \frac{1}{2}h_j$,

$$A = 10q_1q_1' + 6q_2q_2' + 4q_3q_3' = \tfrac{5}{2}J_4 + \tfrac{3}{2}h_2h_2' + h_3h_3'$$

For instance, the entries in row 1 are $\frac{5}{2} + \frac{3}{2} + 1 = 5$, $\frac{5}{2} + \frac{3}{2} - 1 = 3$, $\frac{5}{2} - \frac{3}{2} + 1 = 2$ and $\frac{5}{2} - \frac{3}{2} - 1 = 0$.

(b) $\operatorname{rank} A = 3$, the number of nonzero eigenvalues (Theorem 8.4), and $\mathcal{C}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{h_1, h_2, h_3\}$, $\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{h_4\}$ (Theorem 8.6(c)); these vectors are independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), so they form bases. The eigenvalues $10, 6, 4, 0$ are $\geqslant 0$ and one is 0: A is PSD but not PD (Theorem 8.21(a)).

(c) Put $y = Q'x$. Then $x = QQ'x = Qy$ and $y'y = x'x = 1$ (Proposition 6.13(b),(a)), and $x'Ax = y'\Lambda y = 10y_1^2 + 6y_2^2 + 4y_3^2$. Hence $x'Ax = 10 - 4y_2^2 - 6y_3^2 - 10y_4^2 \leqslant 10$, with equality exactly when $y = \pm e_1$, that is, at $x = \pm q_1 = \pm\frac{1}{2}(1, 1, 1, 1)'$; and $x'Ax \geqslant 0$, with equality exactly when $y = \pm e_4$, that is, at $x = \pm q_4 = \pm\frac{1}{2}(1, -1, -1, 1)'$. The largest value is 10 and the smallest is 0 (Theorem 8.21(d)).

Exercise 8.5. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 6 & 5 & 0 & 5 \\ 5 & 7 & 1 & 4 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 5 & 4 & -1 & 7 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Check that $(1, 1, 0, 1)'$, $(0, 1, 1, -1)'$, $(0, 1, -2, -1)'$ and $(2, -1, 0, -1)'$ are eigenvectors of A, and find the spectral decomposition of A.

(b) Check that the projection E_3 for the eigenvalue $c_3 = 1$ (with $c_1 = 16$, $c_2 = 4$) equals $\frac{1}{45}(A - 16I)(A - 4I)$ (Proposition 8.10(c)).

(c) Find $A^{1/2}$, $A^{-1/2}$ and A^{-1}, and check $(A^{1/2})^2 = A$ and $A^{1/2}A^{-1/2} = I$.

Solution. (a) $A(1, 1, 0, 1)' = (16, 16, 0, 16)'$, $A(0, 1, 1, -1)' = (0, 4, 4, -4)'$, $A(0, 1, -2, -1)' = (0, 1, -2, -1)'$ and $A(2, -1, 0, -1)' = (2, -1, 0, -1)'$. The last two are orthogonal, hence independent (Proposition 6.11(b)), so $\dim \mathcal{N}(A - I) \geqslant 2$ (Theorem 4.5(c)). So $a_A(16) \geqslant 1$, $a_A(4) \geqslant 1$ and $a_A(1) \geqslant 2$

(Theorem 8.4); as the multiplicities add up to 4 (Definition 7.10), these are the eigenvalues, with $a_A(16) = a_A(4) = 1$ and $a_A(1) = 2$, and A is PD (Theorem 8.21(a)). The four vectors are pairwise orthogonal; with the unit vectors $q_1 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(1,1,0,1)'$, $q_2 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(0,1,1,-1)'$, $q_3 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(0,1,-2,-1)'$ and $q_4 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(2,-1,0,-1)'$, Theorem 8.6(c), with $c_1 = 16$, $c_2 = 4$, $c_3 = 1$, gives $E_1 = q_1q_1'$, $E_2 = q_2q_2'$, $E_3 = q_3q_3' + q_4q_4'$:

$$E_1 = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix}1&1&0&1\\1&1&0&1\\0&0&0&0\\1&1&0&1\end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_2 = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix}0&0&0&0\\0&1&1&-1\\0&1&1&-1\\0&-1&-1&1\end{pmatrix}, \qquad E_3 = \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix}4&-2&0&-2\\-2&2&-2&0\\0&-2&4&2\\-2&0&2&2\end{pmatrix}$$

and $A = 16E_1 + 4E_2 + E_3$ (for instance, entry $(1,1)$: $\frac{16}{3} + 0 + \frac{4}{6} = 6$).

(b) $e_3 = \frac{(t-16)(t-4)}{(1-16)(1-4)} = \frac{1}{45}(t-16)(t-4)$, and

$$(A-16I)(A-4I) = \begin{pmatrix}-10&5&0&5\\5&-9&1&4\\0&1&-14&-1\\5&4&-1&-9\end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}2&5&0&5\\5&3&1&4\\0&1&-2&-1\\5&4&-1&3\end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix}30&-15&0&-15\\-15&15&-15&0\\0&-15&30&15\\-15&0&15&15\end{pmatrix} = 45E_3$$

(c) By Definition 8.9 with $f(t) = \sqrt{t}$, $t^{-1/2}$ and t^{-1} (Theorem 8.46, Proposition 8.10(b)),

$$A^{1/2} = 4E_1 + 2E_2 + E_3 = \frac{1}{3}\begin{pmatrix}6&3&0&3\\3&7&1&2\\0&1&4&-1\\3&2&-1&7\end{pmatrix}$$

$$A^{-1/2} = \tfrac{1}{4}E_1 + \tfrac{1}{2}E_2 + E_3 = \frac{1}{12}\begin{pmatrix}9&-3&0&-3\\-3&7&-2&-1\\0&-2&10&2\\-3&-1&2&7\end{pmatrix}$$

$$A^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{16}E_1 + \tfrac{1}{4}E_2 + E_3 = \frac{1}{16}\begin{pmatrix}11&-5&0&-5\\-5&7&-4&-1\\0&-4&12&4\\-5&-1&4&7\end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(A^{1/2})A^{1/2} = \frac{1}{9}(36+9+0+9,\ 18+21+0+6,\ 0+3+0-3,\ 18+6+0+21) = (6,5,0,5) = \text{row}_1(A)$ and $\text{row}_1(A^{1/2})A^{-1/2} = \frac{1}{36}(54-9+0-9,\ -18+21+0-3,\ 0-6+0+6,\ -18-3+0+21) = (1,0,0,0)$, and likewise for rows 2, 3 and 4; also $A^{-1} = (A^{-1/2})^2$, as $\text{row}_1(A^{-1/2})A^{-1/2} = \frac{1}{144}(81+9+0+9,\ -27-21+0+3,\ 0+6+0-6,\ -27+3+0-21) = \frac{1}{16}(11,-5,0,-5) = \text{row}_1(A^{-1})$.

Exercise 8.6. Let $w = (1,-1,-1,1)'$ and

$$P = I_4 - \tfrac{1}{4}ww' = \frac{1}{4}\begin{pmatrix}3&1&1&-1\\1&3&-1&1\\1&-1&3&1\\-1&1&1&3\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that P is symmetric and idempotent, and find $\text{rank}\, P$.

(b) Find Q_1 with orthonormal columns and $P = Q_1Q_1'$, as in Theorem 8.13(c).

(c) For $y = (2,0,0,2)'$, find the orthogonal projection $\hat{y}$ of y onto $\mathcal{C}(P)$, and check that $y - \hat{y} \perp \mathcal{C}(P)$.

Solution. (a) $P' = I_4 - \frac{1}{4}(ww')' = P$, and with $w'w = 4$, $P^2 = I_4 - \frac{1}{2}ww' + \frac{1}{16}w(w'w)w' = I_4 - \frac{1}{4}ww' = P$. By Theorem 6.29(c), $\text{rank}\, P = \text{tr}\, P = \frac{1}{4}(3+3+3+3) = 3$.

(b) With $h_1, \dots, h_4$ of Exercise 8.4, $Q = \frac{1}{2}[h_1\ h_2\ h_3\ h_4]$ is orthogonal and $\frac{1}{2}h_4 = \frac{1}{2}w$. By Proposition 6.13(b) and the outer product expansion (Theorem 1.4(d)), $I_4 = QQ' = \frac{1}{4}\sum_j h_j h_j'$, so

$$P = I_4 - \tfrac{1}{4}h_4h_4' = \tfrac{1}{4}(h_1h_1' + h_2h_2' + h_3h_3') = Q_1Q_1', \qquad Q_1 = \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix}1 & 1 & 1\\ 1 & 1 & -1\\ 1 & -1 & 1\\ 1 & -1 & -1\end{pmatrix}$$

and $Q_1'Q_1 = I_3$.

(c) $P = P_{\mathcal{C}(P)}$ (Theorem 6.34), so $\hat{y} = Py = y - \frac{1}{4}(w'y)w = (2,0,0,2)' - (1,-1,-1,1)' = (1,1,1,1)'$. Then $y - \hat{y} = w$, and $Q_1'w = 0$, as $w = h_4$ is orthogonal to h_1, h_2, h_3. Moreover $\mathcal{C}(P) = \mathcal{C}(Q_1Q_1') \subseteq \mathcal{C}(Q_1)$ (Theorem 4.15(a)), and both have dimension 3 (by (a), and as the columns of Q_1 are independent, Proposition 6.11(b)), so $\mathcal{C}(P) = \mathcal{C}(Q_1)$ (Theorem 4.5(a)). Hence $y - \hat{y} \perp \mathcal{C}(P)$ (Theorem 6.6(a)).

Exercise 8.7. For each quadratic form on $\mathbb{R}^4$, write its symmetric matrix, complete the squares with Corollary 8.37, and find the inertia (Theorem 8.43). Which forms are PD, PSD, indefinite?

(a) $q_1(x) = x_1^2 + 3x_2^2 + 7x_3^2 + 4x_4^2 - 2x_1x_2 + 4x_1x_3 + 2x_1x_4 - 2x_2x_4 + 2x_3x_4$

(b) $q_2(x) = 2x_1^2 + x_2^2 + x_3^2 + 4x_1x_2 + 4x_1x_3 - 4x_1x_4 - 2x_2x_3 - 2x_2x_4 + 2x_3x_4$

(c) $q_3(x) = 2x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 2x_3^2 + x_4^2 + 2x_1x_3 - 2x_1x_4 + 2x_2x_3 - 2x_2x_4 - 2x_3x_4$; for this form, find also all x with $q_3(x) = 0$.

Solution. The matrix has the coefficient of x_i^2 as entry (i,i) and half the coefficient of x_ix_j as entries (i,j) and (j,i) (Proposition 8.18 and the paragraph after it). The 2×2 inverses come from Theorem 5.24, and column 4 of P solves the system of Lemma 8.33 with the coefficient matrix of the first three rows and columns; then $D = P'(AP)$ and $\Delta_4 = d_1d_2d_3d_4$ (Corollary 8.37(a)).

(a) The matrix is

$$A = \begin{pmatrix}1 & -1 & 2 & 1\\ -1 & 3 & 0 & -1\\ 2 & 0 & 7 & 1\\ 1 & -1 & 1 & 4\end{pmatrix}$$

$\Delta_1 = 1$, $\Delta_2 = 3-1 = 2$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 1(21-0)+1(-7-0)+2(0-6) = 2$. Next $p_{12} = 1$, and with $A_2^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}\left(\begin{smallmatrix}3 & 1\\ 1 & 1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$, $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}p_{13}\\ p_{23}\end{smallmatrix}\right) = -A_2^{-1}\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2\\ 0\end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix}-3\\ -1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Column 4 of P solves $A_3(p_{14}, p_{24}, p_{34})' = -(1,-1,1)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1 & -1 & 2 & -1\\ -1 & 3 & 0 & 1\\ 2 & 0 & 7 & -1\end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-2R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2+R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1 & -1 & 2 & -1\\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 0\\ 0 & 2 & 3 & 1\end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1 & -1 & 2 & -1\\ 0 & 2 & 2 & 0\\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1\end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34} = 1$, $p_{24} = -p_{34} = -1$ and $p_{14} = -1 + p_{24} - 2p_{34} = -4$. Hence

$$P = \begin{pmatrix}1 & 1 & -3 & -4\\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -1\\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1\\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1\end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix}1 & 0 & 0 & 0\\ -1 & 2 & 0 & 0\\ 2 & 2 & 1 & 0\\ 1 & 0 & -1 & 2\end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix}1 & -1 & 2 & 1\\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0\\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1\\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1\end{pmatrix}$$

and $D = \operatorname{diag}(1,2,1,2)$, so $\Delta_4 = 4$. So $q_1(x) = (x_1 - x_2 + 2x_3 + x_4)^2 + 2(x_2 + x_3)^2 + (x_3 - x_4)^2 + 2x_4^2$: the inertia is $(4,0,0)$, and q_1 is PD.

(b) The matrix is

$$B = \begin{pmatrix}2 & 2 & 2 & -2\\ 2 & 1 & -1 & -1\\ 2 & -1 & 1 & 1\\ -2 & -1 & 1 & 0\end{pmatrix}$$

$\Delta_1 = 2$, $\Delta_2 = 2 - 4 = -2$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 2(1-1) - 2(2+2) + 2(-2-2) = -16$. Next $p_{12} = -1$, and with $B_2^{-1} = -\frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -2 \\ -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$, $\binom{p_{13}}{p_{23}} = -B_2^{-1}\binom{2}{-1} = \binom{2}{-3}$. Column 4 of P solves $B_3(p_{14}, p_{24}, p_{34})' = -(-2,-1,1)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & -1 & 1 & -1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & -3 & -1 & -3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 8 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34} = 0$, $p_{24} = 1 - 3p_{34} = 1$ and $p_{14} = \frac{1}{2}(2 - 2p_{24} - 2p_{34}) = 0$. Hence

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BP = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & -3 & 8 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $D = \operatorname{diag}(2, -1, 8, -1)$, with $d_k = \Delta_k/\Delta_{k-1} = 2/1,\ -2/2,\ -16/(-2)$ for $k \leqslant 3$, and $\Delta_4 = 16$. So $q_2(x) = 2(x_1 + x_2 + x_3 - x_4)^2 - (x_2 + 3x_3 - x_4)^2 + 8x_3^2 - x_4^2$: the inertia is $(2, 2, 0)$, and q_2 is indefinite; for instance $q_2(1,0,0,0) = 2$ and $q_2(-1,1,0,0) = -1$.

(c) The matrix is

$$F = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$\Delta_1 = 2$, $\Delta_2 = 4$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 2(4-1) - 0 + 1(0-2) = 4$. Next $p_{12} = 0$, $\binom{p_{13}}{p_{23}} = -\frac{1}{2}I_2\binom{1}{1} = \binom{-1/2}{-1/2}$, and column 4 of P solves $F_3(p_{14}, p_{24}, p_{34})' = -(-1,-1,-1)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & -2 & -3 & -1 \end{array}\right)$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34} = 0$, $p_{24} = \frac{1}{2}(1 - p_{34}) = \frac{1}{2}$ and $p_{14} = 1 - p_{24} - 2p_{34} = \frac{1}{2}$. Hence

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad FP = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $D = \operatorname{diag}(2, 2, 1, 0)$, so $\Delta_4 = 0$. So $q_3(x) = 2\Big(x_1 + \frac{1}{2}x_3 - \frac{1}{2}x_4\Big)^2 + 2\Big(x_2 + \frac{1}{2}x_3 - \frac{1}{2}x_4\Big)^2 + x_3^2$: the inertia is $(3, 0, 1)$, and q_3 is PSD but not PD. By Corollary 8.27, $q_3(x) = 0$ exactly for $x \in \mathcal{N}(F)$:

$$F = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

With $x_4 = 2$, $x_3 = 0$, $x_2 = \frac{1}{2}(x_4 - x_3) = 1$ and $x_1 = x_2 = 1$: $q_3(x) = 0$ if and only if $x = c(1, 1, 0, 2)'$ for some $c \in \mathbb{R}$.

Exercise 8.8. Write each quadratic form with a symmetric matrix, and decide whether it is positive (negative) definite, semidefinite, or indefinite: (a) $x_1^2 + x_2^2 - x_1x_2$; (b) $4x_1^2 + 5x_2^2 + x_3^2 + 2x_1x_2 + 2x_2x_3$; (c) $-x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + x_1x_2$.

Solution. (a) $\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -\frac{1}{2} \\ -\frac{1}{2} & 1 \end{pmatrix}$: $x_1^2 + x_2^2 - x_1x_2 = (x_1 - \frac{1}{2}x_2)^2 + \frac{3}{4}x_2^2 > 0$ for $x \neq 0$; positive definite.

(b) The matrix is

$$\begin{pmatrix} 4 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 5 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and the form is $(x_1 + x_2)^2 + (x_2 + x_3)^2 + 3x_1^2 + 3x_2^2$, which is 0 only if $x_1 = x_2 = 0$ and $x_2 + x_3 = 0$, that is, $x = 0$; positive definite.

(c) $\begin{pmatrix} -1 & \frac{1}{2} \\ \frac{1}{2} & 2 \end{pmatrix}$: $-x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + x_1x_2 = (\frac{3}{2}x_2)^2 - (x_1 - \frac{1}{2}x_2)^2$ takes the value 9 at $x = (1, 2)'$ and -1 at $x = (1, 0)'$; indefinite.

Exercise 8.9. Write each quadratic form as $x'Ax$ with A symmetric, and decide whether A is PD, PSD, negative definite, negative semidefinite or indefinite: (a) $x_1^2+x_2^2+x_3^2+x_4^2+6x_1x_2+6x_2x_3+6x_3x_4+6x_1x_4$; (b) $x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 2x_3^2 + x_4^2 - 2x_1x_2 - 2x_2x_3 - 2x_3x_4$; (c) $-2x_1^2 - 2x_2^2 - 2x_3^2 - 2x_4^2 + 2x_1x_2 + 2x_2x_3 + 2x_3x_4$; (d) $2x_1^2 + 2x_2^2 + 2x_3^2 + x_4^2 - 2x_1x_2 - 2x_2x_3 - 2x_3x_4$.

Solution. (a) The matrix is

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 3 & 0 & 3 \\ 3 & 1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 1 & 3 \\ 3 & 0 & 3 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

It gives $4 + 24 = 28$ at $\mathbf{1}_4$ and $1 + 1 - 6 = -4$ at $(1, -1, 0, 0)'$: indefinite. (The eigenvalues are 7, 1, 1, -5: $A\mathbf{1}_4 = 7\mathbf{1}_4$, $A(1, 0, -1, 0)' = (1, 0, -1, 0)'$, $A(0, 1, 0, -1)' = (0, 1, 0, -1)'$ and $A(1, -1, 1, -1)' = -5(1, -1, 1, -1)'$.)

(b) The matrix is

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

The form equals $(x_1 - x_2)^2 + (x_2 - x_3)^2 + (x_3 - x_4)^2 \geqslant 0$, and it is 0 at $x = \mathbf{1}_4 \neq 0$: PSD but not PD.

(c) The matrix is

$$A = -\begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

Expanding along the last row (Theorem 5.21), the leading principal minors of $-A$ satisfy $\Delta_k = 2\Delta_{k-1} - \Delta_{k-2}$ for $k = 3, 4$; so they are 2, $4 - 1 = 3$, $2 \cdot 3 - 2 = 4$ and $2 \cdot 4 - 3 = 5$. They are positive, so $-A$ is PD (Theorem 8.34) and A is negative definite.

(d) The matrix is

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

the matrix $K'K$ of Example 8.42. So $x'Ax = \|Kx\|^2 = x_1^2 + (x_2 - x_1)^2 + (x_3 - x_2)^2 + (x_4 - x_3)^2$, and A is PD (Theorem 8.25, as $\operatorname{rank} K = 4$). Its leading principal minors are $2, 3, 4, 1$.

Exercise 8.10. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 5 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_A, the eigenvalues, and an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors.

(b) Show that A is PSD, find $\operatorname{rank} A$, and find the matrix P of Theorem 8.26(a) with $A = P'P$.

(c) Find all x with $x'Ax = 0$.

Solution. (a) For real t, apply $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2$, take the factor t out of row 1, add column 1 to column 2, and expand along row 1 and then along row 1 of the 3×3 matrix (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorems 5.22 and 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned}
\det(tI - A) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-2 & -2 & 1 & -1 \\ -2 & t-2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & t-5 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= \det \begin{pmatrix} t & -t & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & t-2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & t-5 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = t \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & t-2 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & t-5 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -2 & t-4 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 2 & t-5 & -1 \\ -1 & -2 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} = t \det \begin{pmatrix} t-4 & 1 & -1 \\ 2 & t-5 & -1 \\ -2 & -1 & t-1 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t\Big((t-4)\big((t-5)(t-1)-1\big) - \big(2(t-1)-2\big) - \big(-2+2(t-5)\big)\Big) \\
&= t(t^3 - 10t^2 + 24t)
\end{aligned}$$

So $p_A(t) = t^2(t-4)(t-6)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)), and the eigenvalues are 6, 4 and 0, with $a_A(0) = 2$. Row-reduce $A - cI$:

$$A - 6I = \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & -4 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -5 \\ 2 & -4 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -4 & 2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 4R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & -6 & -3 & 11 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -4 \\ 0 & 6 & 3 & -19 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & -6 & -3 & 11 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -8 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & -6 & -3 & 11 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 0$, and $x_2 = 1$ gives $x_3 = -2x_2 = -2$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 = 1$;

$$A - 4I = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 2 & -2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & -4 & -3 & 7 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 4 & 1 & -5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & -4 & -3 & 7 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & 2 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & -3 \\ 0 & -4 & -3 & 7 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 1$ gives $x_3 = x_4 = 1$, $x_2 = \frac{1}{4}(-3x_3 + 7x_4) = 1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 + 3x_4 = 1$;

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 5 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_1 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 5 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 2R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 6 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + 2R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $\mathcal{N}(A) = \{x : x_3 = -\frac{1}{3}x_4,\ x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 - x_4\}$ has the basis $s_1 = (-1, 1, 0, 0)'$ ($x_2 = 1$, $x_4 = 0$) and $s_2 = (-2, 0, -1, 3)'$ ($x_2 = 0$, $x_4 = 3$). So $\mathcal{N}(A - 6I)$ and $\mathcal{N}(A - 4I)$ are spanned by $(1, 1, -2, 0)'$ and $(1, 1, 1, 1)'$. In $\mathcal{N}(A)$, Gram–Schmidt (Theorem 6.14) gives $b_1 = s_1$, with $\|b_1\|^2 = 2$, and, as $s_2' b_1 = 2$, $b_2 = s_2 - b_1 = (-1, -1, -1, 3)'$, with $\|b_2\|^2 = 12$. The eigenspaces are pairwise orthogonal (Theorem 8.2), so an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors is $q_1 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(1, 1, -2, 0)'$, $q_2 = \frac{1}{2}(1, 1, 1, 1)'$, $q_3 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}(-1, 1, 0, 0)'$, $q_4 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{12}}(-1, -1, -1, 3)'$.

(b) The eigenvalues are $\geqslant 0$, so A is PSD (Theorem 8.21(a)), and $\operatorname{rank} A = 2$, the number of nonzero eigenvalues (Theorem 8.4). The leading minors 2, 0, 0, 0 do not decide here, as $\Delta_2 = 0$. The proof of Theorem 8.26(a) takes the rows $\sqrt{6}\, q_1' = (1, 1, -2, 0)$ and $\sqrt{4}\, q_2' = (1, 1, 1, 1)$:

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad P'P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \\ -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 5 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = A$$

(c) By Corollary 8.27, $x'Ax = 0$ if and only if $Ax = 0$, and by the last reduction in (a) this means $x = c_1(-1, 1, 0, 0)' + c_2(-2, 0, -1, 3)'$ for some $c_1, c_2 \in \mathbb{R}$. Equivalently, $x'Ax = \|Px\|^2 = (x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3)^2 + (x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4)^2$ vanishes exactly when $x_1 + x_2 - 2x_3 = 0$ and $x_1 + x_2 + x_3 + x_4 = 0$.

Exercise 8.11. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 1 & -3 \\ 2 & 4 & -1 & -3 \\ 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ -3 & -3 & 0 & 9 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the leading principal minors of A, and decide whether A is PD.

(b) Find P, D and U of Theorem 8.34, and write $q_A(x)$ as a sum of squares.

(c) Check (a) with Theorem 8.31, using the Schur complement of A_2.

(d) Show that $(1,1,0,-2)'$, $(1,-1,2,0)'$, $(1,1,0,1)'$ and $(1,-1,-1,0)'$ are eigenvectors of A, and check (a) once more.

Solution. (a) $\Delta_1 = 4$, $\Delta_2 = 16-4 = 12$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 4(12-1) - 2(6+1) + 1(-2-4) = 44-14-6 = 24$. For $\Delta_4 = \det A$, interchange rows 1 and 3, apply $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1$, $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 4R_1$, $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 3R_1$, then $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2$, $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2$, then $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + \frac{1}{2}R_3$ (Definition 5.13(b),(c), Theorem 5.14(c)):

$$\det A = -\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & -1 & -3 \\ 4 & 2 & 1 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & 0 & 9 \end{pmatrix} = -\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 & -7 & -3 \\ 0 & 6 & -11 & -3 \\ 0 & -6 & 9 & 9 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$= -\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 & -7 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 6 \end{pmatrix} = -\det\begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 & -7 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \end{pmatrix} = -1\cdot 6\cdot(-4)\cdot 6 = 144$$

All four minors are > 0, so A is PD (Theorem 8.34).

(b) For $k=2$: $4p_{12} = -2$, so $p_{12} = -\frac{1}{2}$. For $k=3$: with $A_2^{-1} = \frac{1}{12}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 4 & -2 \\ -2 & 4 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ (Theorem 5.24), $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} p_{13} \\ p_{23} \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -A_2^{-1}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = -\frac{1}{12}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 6 \\ -6 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} -1/2 \\ 1/2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. For $k=4$, $A_3(p_{14},p_{24},p_{34})' = -(-3,-3,0)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 4 & 2 & 1 & 3 \\ 2 & 4 & -1 & 3 \\ 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_1\leftrightarrow R_3} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 2 & 4 & -1 & 3 \\ 4 & 2 & 1 & 3 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-4R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 & -7 & 3 \\ 0 & 6 & -11 & 3 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & -1 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 & -7 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & 0 \end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34} = 0$, $p_{24} = \frac{1}{6}(3+7p_{34}) = \frac{1}{2}$ and $p_{14} = p_{24} - 3p_{34} = \frac{1}{2}$. So

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -\frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -\frac{3}{2} & 2 & 0 \\ -3 & -\frac{3}{2} & 0 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$D = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 6 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \frac{1}{2} & \frac{1}{4} & -\frac{3}{4} \\ 0 & 1 & -\frac{1}{2} & -\frac{1}{2} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

with $d_k = \Delta_k/\Delta_{k-1} = 4/1,\ 12/4,\ 24/12,\ 144/24$. Hence $q_A(x) = (Ux)'D(Ux) = 4(x_1 + \frac{1}{2}x_2 + \frac{1}{4}x_3 - \frac{3}{4}x_4)^2 + 3(x_2 - \frac{1}{2}x_3 - \frac{1}{2}x_4)^2 + 2x_3^2 + 6x_4^2$.

(c) A_2 is PD (its leading minors 4, 12 are positive; Theorem 8.34). With $B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & -3 \\ -1 & -3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, the upper right 2×2 block of A, $A_2^{-1}B = \frac{1}{12}\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 6 & -6 \\ -6 & -6 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $B'A_2^{-1}B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, so $A/A_2 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 9 \end{smallmatrix}\right) - B'A_2^{-1}B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, which is PD (Proposition 8.23(a)); so A is PD. Also $\det A = 12\cdot\det(A/A_2) = 12\cdot 12 = 144$.

(d) $A(1,1,0,-2)' = (12,12,0,-24)'$, $A(1,-1,2,0)' = (4,-4,8,0)'$, $A(1,1,0,1)' = (3,3,0,3)'$ and $A(1,-1,-1,0)' = (1,-1,-1,0)'$. So $a_A(c) \geqslant 1$ for $c = 12,4,3,1$ (Theorem 8.4), and as the multiplicities add up to 4, the eigenvalues are 12, 4, 3, 1, all > 0 (Theorem 8.21(a)); also $12\cdot 4\cdot 3\cdot 1 = 144 = \det A$.

Exercise 8.12. For $a \in \mathbb{R}$ let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 2 & 2 & a \\ 2 & 4 & a & 2 \\ 2 & a & 4 & 2 \\ a & 2 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

and let $h_1, \dots, h_4$ be the vectors of Exercise 8.4.

(a) Show that $h_1, \dots, h_4$ are eigenvectors of A, and find $\det A$.

(b) For which a is A PD? Answer with Theorem 8.34, and check with (a).

(c) For which a is A PSD? Find $\mathcal{N}(A)$ at the endpoints.

Solution. (a) The row sums are $8 + a$, so $Ah_1 = (8 + a)h_1$. Multiplying the rows of A by h_2, h_3,

$$Ah_2 = \begin{pmatrix} 4+2-2-a \\ 2+4-a-2 \\ 2+a-4-2 \\ a+2-2-4 \end{pmatrix} = (4-a)h_2, \quad Ah_3 = \begin{pmatrix} 4-2+2-a \\ 2-4+a-2 \\ 2-a+4-2 \\ a-2+2-4 \end{pmatrix} = (4-a)h_3$$

In the same way $Ah_4 = (4-2-2+a,\ 2-4-a+2,\ 2-a-4+2,\ a-2-2+4)' = ah_4$. So $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ with $Q = \frac{1}{2}[h_1\ h_2\ h_3\ h_4]$ and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(8+a, 4-a, 4-a, a)$, these are the eigenvalues of A, and $\det A = a(a+8)(a-4)^2$ (Theorems 8.3(b),(c) and 7.19).

(b) The leading principal minors are 4, $16 - 4 = 12$,

$$\Delta_3 = 4(16 - a^2) - 2(8 - 2a) + 2(2a - 8) = 32 + 8a - 4a^2 = -4(a-4)(a+2)$$

(expanding $\det A_3$ along the first row), and $\det A = a(a+8)(a-4)^2$. The third is positive exactly for $-2 < a < 4$, and the fourth exactly for $a \neq 4$ and $a(a+8) > 0$, that is, $a > 0$ or $a < -8$. By Theorem 8.34, A is PD if and only if $0 < a < 4$. By (a) and Theorem 8.21(a), A is PD if and only if $8 + a > 0$, $4 - a > 0$ and $a > 0$: the same condition.

(c) By (a) and Theorem 8.21(a), A is PSD if and only if $8+a \geqslant 0$, $4-a \geqslant 0$ and $a \geqslant 0$, that is, $0 \leqslant a \leqslant 4$. By Theorem 8.6(c), $\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{h_4\}$ for $a = 0$ (eigenvalues $8, 4, 4, 0$) and $\mathcal{N}(A) = \operatorname{span}\{h_2, h_3\}$ for $a = 4$ (eigenvalues $12, 0, 0, 4$).

Exercise 8.13. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 0 & 2 \\ 1 & 0 & 6 & 4 \\ 1 & 2 & 4 & 10 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that A is PD by its leading principal minors.

(b) Find P, D and U of Theorem 8.34.

(c) Find the Cholesky factor T of A, check $T'T = A$, and write $q_A(x)$ as a sum of squares.

Solution. (a) $\Delta_1 = 1$, $\Delta_2 = 2 - 1 = 1$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 1(12 - 0) - 1(6 - 0) + 1(0 - 2) = 4$. For $\Delta_4 = \det A$, apply $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1$, $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1$, $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1$, then $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2$, $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2$, then $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3$ (Definition 5.13(b), Theorem 5.14(c)):

$$\det A = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 5 & 3 \\ 0 & 1 & 3 & 9 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 8 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \end{pmatrix} = 16$$

All four minors are > 0, so A is PD (Theorem 8.34).

(b) For $k=2$, $p_{12}=-1$. For $k=3$, with $A_2^{-1}=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}2&-1\\-1&1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$ ($\det A_2=1$, Theorem 5.24), $\left(\begin{smallmatrix}p_{13}\\p_{23}\end{smallmatrix}\right)=-A_2^{-1}\left(\begin{smallmatrix}1\\0\end{smallmatrix}\right)=\left(\begin{smallmatrix}-2\\1\end{smallmatrix}\right)$. For $k=4$, $A_3(p_{14},p_{24},p_{34})'=-(1,2,4)'$:

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1&1&1&-1\\1&2&0&-2\\1&0&6&-4\end{array}\right)\xrightarrow[R_3\leftarrow R_3-R_1]{R_2\leftarrow R_2-R_1}\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1&1&1&-1\\0&1&-1&-1\\0&-1&5&-3\end{array}\right)\xrightarrow{R_3\leftarrow R_3+R_2}\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c}1&1&1&-1\\0&1&-1&-1\\0&0&4&-4\end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34}=-1$, $p_{24}=-1+p_{34}=-2$ and $p_{14}=-1-p_{24}-p_{34}=2$. So

$$P=\begin{pmatrix}1&-1&-2&2\\0&1&1&-2\\0&0&1&-1\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix},\qquad AP=\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\1&1&0&0\\1&-1&4&0\\1&1&4&4\end{pmatrix}$$

$$D=\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\0&1&0&0\\0&0&4&0\\0&0&0&4\end{pmatrix},\qquad U=P^{-1}=\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&1\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix}$$

with $d_k=\Delta_k/\Delta_{k-1}=1/1,\ 1/1,\ 4/1,\ 16/4$.

(c) By Theorem 8.40, $T=D^{1/2}U$ is U with rows 3 and 4 doubled:

$$T=\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&1\\0&0&2&2\\0&0&0&2\end{pmatrix},\qquad T'T=\begin{pmatrix}1&0&0&0\\1&1&0&0\\1&-1&2&0\\1&1&2&2\end{pmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&-1&1\\0&0&2&2\\0&0&0&2\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}1&1&1&1\\1&2&0&2\\1&0&6&4\\1&2&4&10\end{pmatrix}=A$$

So $q_A(x)=\|Tx\|^2=(x_1+x_2+x_3+x_4)^2+(x_2-x_3+x_4)^2+4(x_3+x_4)^2+4x_4^2$. Also $\det A=(\det T)^2=(1\cdot1\cdot2\cdot2)^2=16=\Delta_4$ (Theorem 8.26(c)).

Exercise 8.14. Let

$$A=\begin{pmatrix}9&3&-6&3\\3&5&0&-1\\-6&0&9&-1\\3&-1&-1&4\end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the Cholesky factor T of A. (b) Find $\det A$. (c) Solve $Ax=b$ for $b=(9,7,2,5)'$ by solving $T'y=b$ and then $Tx=y$.

Solution. (a) By Remark 8.41, row by row:

- row 1: $t_{11}=\sqrt{9}=3$, $t_{12}=\frac{3}{3}=1$, $t_{13}=-\frac{6}{3}=-2$, $t_{14}=\frac{3}{3}=1$;
- row 2: $t_{22}=\sqrt{5-1}=2$, $t_{23}=\big(0-1\cdot(-2)\big)/2=1$, $t_{24}=(-1-1\cdot1)/2=-1$;
- row 3: $t_{33}=\sqrt{9-4-1}=2$, $t_{34}=\big(-1-(-2)\cdot1-1\cdot(-1)\big)/2=1$;
- row 4: $t_{44}=\sqrt{4-1-1-1}=1$.

So

$$T=\begin{pmatrix}3&1&-2&1\\0&2&1&-1\\0&0&2&1\\0&0&0&1\end{pmatrix}$$

and $T'T=A$; in particular A is PD (Theorem 8.26(c)).

(b) $\det A=\det T'\cdot\det T=(3\cdot2\cdot2\cdot1)^2=144$ (Theorems 5.18(b), 5.22 and 5.14(c)).

(c) $Ax=T'(Tx)$, so x solves $Ax=b$ if $T'y=b$ and $Tx=y$. From the first equation downwards, $3y_1=9$, $y_1+2y_2=7$, $-2y_1+y_2+2y_3=2$, $y_1-y_2+y_3+y_4=5$ give $y=(3,2,3,1)'$. Back substitution in $Tx=y$: $x_4=1$, $2x_3+x_4=3$, $2x_2+x_3-x_4=2$, $3x_1+x_2-2x_3+x_4=3$ give $x=(1,1,1,1)'$. Check: the row sums of A are $9,7,2,5$. The solution is unique, as A is invertible.

Exercise 8.15. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find the leading principal minors and the matrices P, D, U with $P'AP = D$ and $A = U'DU$ (Corollary 8.37), and write $q_A(x)$ as a combination of squares.

(b) Find the inertia of A. Is A PD, PSD or indefinite?

(c) Check (b) with the eigenvectors $(1,1,1,-3)'$, $(1,1,1,1)'$, $(1,-1,0,0)'$ and $(1,1,-2,0)'$ of A.

(d) Find an invertible R with $R'AR = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,1,-1)$.

Solution. (a) $\Delta_1 = 1$, $\Delta_2 = 1$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3 = 1(-1-4) - 0 + 2(0-2) = -9$. Next $p_{12} = 0$, and as $A_2 = I_2$, $\binom{p_{13}}{p_{23}} = -\binom{2}{2}$. Column 4 of P solves $A_3(p_{14}, p_{24}, p_{34})' = -(-1,-1,-1)'$ (Lemma 8.33):

$$\left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 2 & 2 & -1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -5 & -1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_2} \left(\begin{array}{ccc|c} 1 & 0 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & -9 & -3 \end{array}\right)$$

so $p_{34} = \frac{1}{3}$, $p_{24} = 1 - 2p_{34} = \frac{1}{3}$ and $p_{14} = 1 - 2p_{34} = \frac{1}{3}$. So

$$P = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & -2 & \frac{1}{3} \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & \frac{1}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AP = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 2 & -9 & 0 \\ -1 & -1 & 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad U = P^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -\frac{1}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $D = P'AP = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,-9,4)$, so $\Delta_4 = d_1d_2d_3d_4 = -36$ (Corollary 8.37(a)). So $q_A(x) = (x_1 + 2x_3 - x_4)^2 + (x_2 + 2x_3 - x_4)^2 - 9\left(x_3 - \frac{1}{3}x_4\right)^2 + 4x_4^2$.

(b) Three diagonal entries of D are positive and one is negative: the inertia is $(3,1,0)$ (Theorem 8.43), and A is indefinite; for instance $q_A(e_1) = 1$ and $q_A(e_3) = -1$.

(c) $A(1,1,1,-3)' = (6,6,6,-18)'$, $A(1,1,1,1)' = (2,2,2,2)'$, $A(1,-1,0,0)' = (1,-1,0,0)'$ and $A(1,1,-2,0)' = (-3,-3,6,0)'$. So $a_A(c) \geqslant 1$ for $c = 6, 2, 1, -3$ (Theorem 8.4); as the multiplicities add up to 4, the eigenvalues are 6, 2, 1, -3: three positive and one negative, as Theorem 8.43(c) requires.

(d) Let $p_1, \ldots, p_4$ be the columns of P, so that $p_i'Ap_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ and $p_i'Ap_i = d_i$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). Scale p_3 by $\frac{1}{3}$ and p_4 by $\frac{1}{2}$, and interchange them: $R = [p_1\ p_2\ \frac{1}{2}p_4\ \frac{1}{3}p_3]$. The columns of R are nonzero multiples of those of the invertible P, in another order, so they are linearly independent and R is invertible (Theorem 4.13(b),(d)). Then

$$R = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \frac{1}{6} & -\frac{2}{3} \\ 0 & 1 & \frac{1}{6} & -\frac{2}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & \frac{1}{6} & \frac{1}{3} \\ 0 & 0 & \frac{1}{2} & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad R'AR = \operatorname{diag}\left(1, 1, \tfrac{1}{4} \cdot 4, \tfrac{1}{9} \cdot (-9)\right) = \operatorname{diag}(1,1,1,-1)$$

Exercise 8.16. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 6 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & 7 & -4 & 5 \\ -3 & -4 & 7 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Find p_A, the eigenvalues, and an orthonormal basis of eigenvectors.

(b) Is A PD? PSD? Find $\operatorname{rank} A$ and the leading principal minors.

(c) Find $A^{1/2}$.

Solution. (a) For real t, add rows 2 and 3 to row 1, take the factor t out of row 1, subtract column 1 from columns 2 and 3, and expand along row 1; in the 3×3 determinant, add row 2 to row 1, take the factor $t-9$ out of row 1, subtract column 1 from column 2, and expand along row 1 (Definition 5.13(a),(b), Theorems 5.22 and 5.21):

$$\begin{aligned}
\det(tI - A) &= \det \begin{pmatrix} t-6 & 3 & 3 & 0 \\ 3 & t-7 & 4 & -5 \\ 3 & 4 & t-7 & 5 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} t & t & t & 0 \\ 3 & t-7 & 4 & -5 \\ 3 & 4 & t-7 & 5 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 3 & t-7 & 4 & -5 \\ 3 & 4 & t-7 & 5 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} = t \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & t-10 & 1 & -5 \\ 3 & 1 & t-10 & 5 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t \det \begin{pmatrix} t-10 & 1 & -5 \\ 1 & t-10 & 5 \\ -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} = t \det \begin{pmatrix} t-9 & t-9 & 0 \\ 1 & t-10 & 5 \\ -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t(t-9) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & t-10 & 5 \\ -5 & 5 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} = t(t-9) \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & t-11 & 5 \\ -5 & 10 & t-6 \end{pmatrix} \\
&= t(t-9)\Big((t-11)(t-6) - 50\Big) = t(t-9)(t^2 - 17t + 16) = t(t-1)(t-9)(t-16)
\end{aligned}$$

So $p_A(t) = t(t-1)(t-9)(t-16)$ (Definition 7.7(a), Proposition 7.5(d)), and the eigenvalues are 16, 9, 1, 0. Row-reduce $A - cI$:

$$\begin{aligned}
A - 16I &= \begin{pmatrix} -10 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & -9 & -4 & 5 \\ -3 & -4 & -9 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & -10 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -10 & -8 & 2 & 10 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & 10 \\ -3 & -4 & -9 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & -10 \end{pmatrix} \\
&\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 2R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -16 & -16 & -16 & 0 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & 10 \\ -3 & -4 & -9 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{5}R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{16}R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ -3 & -4 & -9 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \\
&\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & -6 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & -7 & -7 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}
\end{aligned}$$

so $x_4 = 1$ gives $x_3 = -x_4 = -1$, $x_2 = x_3 + 2x_4 = 1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 = 0$;

$$A - 9I = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & -2 & -4 & 5 \\ -3 & -4 & -2 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & -7 & 1 & 8 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & -4 & 4 & 8 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & 4 & -4 & -8 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_4]{R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -5 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -7 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 0$, and $x_3 = -1$ gives $x_2 = x_3 + 2x_4 = -1$ and $x_1 = -x_2 - x_3 = 2$;

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} 5 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & 6 & -4 & 5 \\ -3 & -4 & 6 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 5 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -3 & -4 & 6 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 5 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + 3R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -4 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 5 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4} R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -5 & 5 & -5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{5} R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_1 = 0$, and $x_3 = -1$ gives $x_4 = 2x_3 = -2$ and $x_2 = -x_3 = 1$;

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 6 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & 7 & -4 & 5 \\ -3 & -4 & 7 & -5 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_4]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 6 & -3 & -3 & 0 \\ -3 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ -3 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 6 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -2 & -1 \\ -3 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 5 & -5 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + 2R_3]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 3 & -3 & 10 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - 3R_2]{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 16 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftrightarrow R_4} \begin{pmatrix} 3 & -1 & -2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 16 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 0$, and $x_3 = 1$ gives $x_2 = x_3 + 2x_4 = 1$ and $x_1 = \frac{1}{3}(x_2 + 2x_3 + x_4) = 1$. So the eigenspaces are spanned by $(0, 1, -1, 1)'$, $(2, -1, -1, 0)'$, $(0, 1, -1, -2)'$ and $(1, 1, 1, 0)'$, pairwise orthogonal (Theorem 8.2); an orthonormal basis is $q_1 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(0, 1, -1, 1)'$, $q_2 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(2, -1, -1, 0)'$, $q_3 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{6}}(0, 1, -1, -2)'$, $q_4 = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}(1, 1, 1, 0)'$.

(b) The eigenvalues are $\geqslant 0$ and one is 0, so A is PSD but not PD (Theorem 8.21(a)), and rank $A = 3$ (Theorem 8.4). The leading minors are 6, $42 - 9 = 33$, along row 1 $\Delta_3 = 6(49 - 16) + 3(-21 - 12) - 3(12 + 21) = 0$, and $\det A = 16 \cdot 9 \cdot 1 \cdot 0 = 0$ (Theorem 7.19).

(c) By Theorem 8.46,

$$\begin{aligned} A^{1/2} &= 4q_1q_1' + 3q_2q_2' + 1\,q_3q_3' + 0\,q_4q_4' \\ &= \frac{4}{3}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{2}\begin{pmatrix} 4 & -2 & -2 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ -2 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} + \frac{1}{6}\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & -2 \\ 0 & -1 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & -2 & 2 & 4 \end{pmatrix} \\ &= \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(A^{1/2})A^{1/2} = (4+1+1+0,\ -2-2+1+0,\ -2+1-2+0,\ 0-1+1+0) = (6,-3,-3,0) = \text{row}_1(A)$, and likewise for rows 2, 3 and 4.

Exercise 8.17. Let $A = I_4 + 6J_4$, the 4×4 matrix with diagonal entries 7 and all other entries 6.

(a) Find the eigenvalues of A, and compute $A^{1/2}$, $A^{-1/2}$ and A^{-1}. Check that $(A^{1/2})^2 = A$.

(b) Show that

$$G = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 2 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

also satisfies $G^2 = A$. Why does this not contradict Theorem 8.46(a)?

Solution. (a) By Example 8.16(b), with $\alpha = 1$ and $\beta = 6$, $A = 25\bar{J}_4 + C_4$, and the eigenvalues are 25, with $\mathcal{N}(A - 25I) = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}$, and 1 (three times), with $\mathcal{N}(A - I) = \text{span}\{\mathbf{1}_4\}^\perp = \{x : \mathbf{1}'x = 0\}$. The projection matrices onto these eigenspaces are $\bar{J}_4 = \frac{1}{4}J_4$ and $C_4 = I_4 - \frac{1}{4}J_4$ (Corollary 6.35(a)), so $A = 25\bar{J}_4 + C_4$ is the spectral decomposition of A (Theorem 8.6(b)), and by Theorem 8.46(a),(c) and Definition 8.9

$$A^{1/2} = 5\bar{J}_4 + C_4 = I_4 + J_4, \qquad A^{-1/2} = \tfrac{1}{5}\bar{J}_4 + C_4 = I_4 - \tfrac{1}{5}J_4, \qquad A^{-1} = \tfrac{1}{25}\bar{J}_4 + C_4 = I_4 - \tfrac{6}{25}J_4$$

Indeed $(I_4 + J_4)^2 = I_4 + 2J_4 + J_4^2 = I_4 + 6J_4$, as $J_4^2 = 4J_4$ (Proposition 1.15).

(b) The $(1,1)$, $(1,2)$, $(1,3)$, $(1,4)$ entries of G^2 are $1+4+1+1 = 7$, $2+2+1+1 = 6$, $1+2+1+2 = 6$, $1+2+2+1 = 6$, and the other rows follow in the same way: $G^2 = A$. But G is not PSD: $(1,-1,0,0)G(1,-1,0,0)' = 1 - 4 + 1 = -2$. Theorem 8.46(a) asserts uniqueness only among PSD matrices. (With $h_1, \ldots, h_4$ of Exercise 8.4, $G = \frac{1}{4}(5h_1h_1' + h_2h_2' - h_3h_3' - h_4h_4')$, with the eigenvalues $5, 1, -1, -1$.)

Exercise 8.18. Let

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 3 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 4 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that B is PD and that $A \succcurlyeq B$.

(b) Find B^{-1} by Gauss–Jordan elimination, and A^{-1} by Theorem 5.32(b).

(c) Check that $B^{-1} \succcurlyeq A^{-1}$ and $\det A \geqslant \det B$ (Theorems 8.51 and 8.52).

Solution. (a) $\Delta_1(B) = 1$, $\Delta_2(B) = 2 - 1 = 1$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3(B) = 1(4-1) + 1(-2-0) = 1$. For $\det B$, apply $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1$, $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1$, then $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2$, then $R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3$ (Definition 5.13(b), Theorem 5.14(c)):

$$\det B = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix} = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = 1$$

So B is PD (Theorem 8.34). $A - B = e_4e_4'$ is PSD (Theorem 8.25), so $A \succcurlyeq B$.

(b) Row-reduce $[B \mid I_4]$ (Corollary 2.17(a)):

$$\left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 2 & -1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 3 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & 2 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_4]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_4} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right) \xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

$$\xrightarrow{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 + R_2} \left(\begin{array}{cccc|cccc} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 3 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{array}\right)$$

So

$$B^{-1} = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Now $A = B + e_4 e_4'$, $w = B^{-1} e_4 = (0, 1, 1, 1)'$ and $1 + e_4' B^{-1} e_4 = 2$, so by Theorem 5.32(b)

$$A^{-1} = B^{-1} - \tfrac{1}{2} w w' = \frac{1}{2} \begin{pmatrix} 6 & 4 & 2 & 0 \\ 4 & 5 & 3 & 1 \\ 2 & 3 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

Check: $\text{row}_1(A) A^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}(6 - 4 + 0 + 0,\ 4 - 5 + 0 + 1,\ 2 - 3 + 0 + 1,\ 0 - 1 + 0 + 1) = (1, 0, 0, 0)$, and likewise for rows 2, 3 and 4.

(c) $B^{-1} - A^{-1} = \frac{1}{2} w w'$ is PSD (Theorem 8.25), so $B^{-1} \succcurlyeq A^{-1}$. And $\det A = \det B \cdot (1 + e_4' B^{-1} e_4) = 2 \geqslant 1 = \det B$ (Theorem 5.31).

Exercise 8.19. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 2 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 2 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Compute AB, and conclude that $AB = BA$.

(b) Find the eigenvalues and eigenspaces of A.

(c) Find an orthogonal Q such that $Q'AQ$ and $Q'BQ$ are both diagonal (Theorem 8.55).

Solution. (a) The product is

$$AB = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 2 & 2 & -1 \\ 2 & -2 & 1 & 2 \\ 2 & 1 & -2 & 2 \\ -1 & 2 & 2 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

It is symmetric, so $BA = B'A' = (AB)' = AB$ (Theorem 1.9).

(b) Row-reduce $A - 5I$ and $A - I$:

$$A - 5I = \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & -3 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -3 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 + R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -3 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ -1 & 1 & -3 & -1 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ -1 & 1 & -3 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 1 & 3 \\ 0 & -4 & -4 & -8 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

so $x_4 = 1$ gives $x_3 = -x_4 = -1$, $x_2 = -x_3 - 2x_4 = -1$ and $x_1 = x_2 + x_3 + 3x_4 = 1$;

$$A - I = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 + R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 + R_1} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $\mathcal{N}(A-5I) = \operatorname{span}\{v\}$ with $v = (1,-1,-1,1)'$, and $\mathcal{N}(A-I) = \{x : x_1 = x_2 + x_3 - x_4\}$, of dimension 3. As the dimensions add up to 4, the eigenvalues are 5 and 1, with $a_A(1) = 3$ (Theorem 8.4).

(c) $\mathcal{N}(A - I)$ is invariant under B: for x in it, $A(Bx) = B(Ax) = Bx$. For $x = (b + c - d, b, c, d)'$ in $\mathcal{N}(A - I)$, $Bx = (2b + 2c - d,\ 3c,\ 3b,\ b + c + d)'$. If $Bx = \mu x$, entries 2 and 3 give $3c = \mu b$ and $3b = \mu c$, so $9b = 3\mu c = \mu^2 b$ and likewise $9c = \mu^2 c$; entry 4 gives $b + c + d = \mu d$.

- If $\mu^2 \neq 9$, then $b = c = 0$, and $d = \mu d$ with $d \neq 0$ (as $x \neq 0$): $\mu = 1$ and $x = d(-1, 0, 0, 1)'$.
- If $\mu = 3$, then $c = b$ and $2b + d = 3d$, so $d = b$: $x = b(1, 1, 1, 1)'$.
- If $\mu = -3$, then $c = -b$ and $d = -3d$, so $d = 0$: $x = b(0, 1, -1, 0)'$.

The first entry then agrees. Also $Bv = (-1, 1, 1, -1)' = -v$. Normalizing,

$$Q = \begin{pmatrix} 1/2 & 1/2 & 0 & -1/\sqrt{2} \\ -1/2 & 1/2 & 1/\sqrt{2} & 0 \\ -1/2 & 1/2 & -1/\sqrt{2} & 0 \\ 1/2 & 1/2 & 0 & 1/\sqrt{2} \end{pmatrix}, \qquad Q'AQ = \operatorname{diag}(5, 1, 1, 1), \qquad Q'BQ = \operatorname{diag}(-1, 3, -3, 1)$$

Exercise 8.20. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & 2 & -1 \\ -1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that A is PD, and find the roots of $\det(B - tA) = 0$.

(b) Find an invertible E with $E'AE = I_4$ and $E'BE$ diagonal (Theorem 8.57).

Solution. (a) $\Delta_1(A) = 2$, $\Delta_2(A) = 3$, and along row 1, $\Delta_3(A) = 2(4 - 1) - 1(2 - 1) + 1(1 - 2) = 4$. Applying $R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_4$, $R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_4$ and $R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_4$ to A gives the lower triangular matrix with rows e_1', e_2', e_3', $\mathbf{1}_4'$, so $\det A = 1$ (Definition 5.13(b), Theorem 5.22); so A is PD (Theorem 8.34).

For real t, apply the same row operations to $B - tA$; the result is lower triangular:

$$\det(B-tA) = \det\begin{pmatrix} -2t & -1-t & -1-t & -1-t \\ -1-t & 1-2t & -1-t & -1-t \\ -1-t & -1-t & 2-2t & -1-t \\ -1-t & -1-t & -1-t & -1-t \end{pmatrix}$$
$$= \det\begin{pmatrix} 1-t & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 2-t & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 3-t & 0 \\ -1-t & -1-t & -1-t & -1-t \end{pmatrix} = (1-t)(2-t)(3-t)(-1-t)$$

The roots are -1, 1, 2, 3.

(b) Row-reduce $B - cA$ for $c = -1, 1, 2, 3$:

$$B + A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_3 \leftarrow \frac{1}{4}R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow \frac{1}{2}R_1,\ R_2 \leftarrow \frac{1}{3}R_2} \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$B - A = \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & -1 & -2 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & 0 & -2 \\ -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_1]{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_1,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & -2 & -2 & -2 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$B - 2A = \begin{pmatrix} -4 & -3 & -3 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & -3 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & -2 & -3 \\ -3 & -3 & -3 & -3 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_2]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_2,\ R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -3 & -3 & -3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - 3R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -3 & -3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$B - 3A = \begin{pmatrix} -6 & -4 & -4 & -4 \\ -4 & -5 & -4 & -4 \\ -4 & -4 & -4 & -4 \\ -4 & -4 & -4 & -4 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow[R_4 \leftarrow R_4 - R_3]{R_1 \leftarrow R_1 - R_3,\ R_2 \leftarrow R_2 - R_3} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -4 & -4 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 2R_1} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -4 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \xrightarrow{R_3 \leftarrow R_3 - 4R_2} \begin{pmatrix} -2 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -4 & -4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

So $Bf = cAf$ for $f_1 = (0,0,0,1)'$ ($c = -1$), $f_2 = (1,0,0,-1)'$ ($c = 1$), $f_3 = (0,1,0,-1)'$ ($c = 2$) and $f_4 = (0,0,1,-1)'$ ($c = 3$). The roots are distinct, so $f_i' A f_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$ (Theorem 8.57(c)); and $f_1' A f_1 = 1$, $f_2' A f_2 = 2-2+1 = 1$, $f_3' A f_3 = 2-2+1 = 1$, $f_4' A f_4 = 2-2+1 = 1$. By Theorem 8.57(c),

$$E = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad AE = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad BE = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 3 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and $E'AE = I_4$, $E'BE = \operatorname{diag}(-1, 1, 2, 3)$.

Exercise 8.21. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 4 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 4 & 7 & 3 & 0 \\ 0 & 3 & 5 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 \end{pmatrix}$$

(a) Show that A is PD, and find an invertible E with $E'AE = I_4$ and $E'BE$ diagonal.

(b) Show that $x'Ax \leqslant x'Bx \leqslant 4\,x'Ax$ for every $x \in \mathbb{R}^4$, that is, $A \preccurlyeq B \preccurlyeq 4A$.

Solution. (a) Expanding $\Delta_k(A) = \det A_k$ along its last row gives $\Delta_k(A) = 2\Delta_{k-1}(A) - \Delta_{k-2}(A)$ for $k = 3, 4$ (Theorem 5.21), so the leading principal minors are 1, $2-1=1$, $2-1=1$, $2-1=1$, and A is PD (Theorem 8.34). The rows of $B - \lambda A$ are $(4-\lambda,\ 4-\lambda,\ 0,\ 0)$, $(4-\lambda,\ 7-2\lambda,\ 3-\lambda,\ 0)$, $(0,\ 3-\lambda,\ 5-2\lambda,\ 2-\lambda)$, $(0,\ 0,\ 2-\lambda,\ 3-2\lambda)$. Subtract row 1 from row 2, then the new row 2 from row 3, then the new row 3 from row 4 (Definition 5.13(b)):

$$\det(B - \lambda A) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 4-\lambda & 4-\lambda & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 3-\lambda & 3-\lambda & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2-\lambda & 2-\lambda \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1-\lambda \end{pmatrix} = (4-\lambda)(3-\lambda)(2-\lambda)(1-\lambda)$$

(Theorem 5.14(c)), so $\lambda_1 = 4$, $\lambda_2 = 3$, $\lambda_3 = 2$, $\lambda_4 = 1$ (Theorem 8.57(b), as $\det A = 1$). The null spaces of

$$B - 4A = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & -3 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & -2 & -5 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B - 3A = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 & -3 \end{pmatrix}$$

$$B - 2A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 2 & 3 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B - A = \begin{pmatrix} 3 & 3 & 0 & 0 \\ 3 & 5 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & 3 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

contain $f_1 = (1,0,0,0)'$, $f_2 = (-1,1,0,0)'$, $f_3 = (1,-1,1,0)'$ and $f_4 = (-1,1,-1,1)'$. Here $Af_1 = (1,1,0,0)'$, $Af_2 = (0,1,1,0)'$, $Af_3 = (0,0,1,1)'$ and $Af_4 = (0,0,0,1)'$, so $f_k' A f_k = 1$, and $f_j' A f_k = 0$ for $j \neq k$ (Theorem 8.57(c)). Hence

$$E = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 1 & -1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

has $E'AE = I_4$ and $E'BE = \operatorname{diag}(4,3,2,1)$, since $(E'BE)_{jk} = f_j' B f_k = \lambda_k f_j' A f_k$.

(b) $\det E = 1$, so E is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)) and every x is $x = Ey$ with $y = E^{-1}x$; here E^{-1} is the upper triangular matrix with ones on the diagonal and on the superdiagonal (multiply out E with it), so $y_k = x_k + x_{k+1}$ for $k \leqslant 3$ and $y_4 = x_4$. Then $x'Ax = y'E'AEy = y_1^2 + y_2^2 + y_3^2 + y_4^2$ and $x'Bx = y'E'BEy = 4y_1^2 + 3y_2^2 + 2y_3^2 + y_4^2$. Hence $x'Ax \leqslant x'Bx \leqslant 4\,x'Ax$.

Problems

Problem 8.1. (a) Show that a symmetric matrix whose eigenvalues are all 0 is the zero matrix.

(b) Show by a 2×2 example that (a) fails without symmetry, and that the same example shows that Theorem 8.4 needs symmetry.

Solution. (a) By Theorem 8.3, $A = Q\Lambda Q'$, and the diagonal entries of Λ are the eigenvalues of A. If they are all 0, then $\Lambda = 0$ and $A = 0$.

(b) Let $A = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$. Then $p_A(t) = \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} t & -1 \\ 0 & t \end{smallmatrix}\right) = t^2$, so both eigenvalues are 0, but $A \neq 0$. Also $\operatorname{rank} A = 1$ (one nonzero row, in echelon form), although A has no nonzero eigenvalue.

Problem 8.2. Show that a symmetric $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ is idempotent if and only if $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank}(I_n - A) = n$.

Solution. Let $A = Q\Lambda Q'$ (Theorem 8.3), and let n_0 and n_1 be the numbers of eigenvalues λ_i equal to 0 and to 1.

- $\operatorname{rank} A = n - n_0$ (Theorem 8.4). $I_n - A = (-1)A + I_n$ is symmetric with the eigenvalues $1 - \lambda_i$ (Proposition 7.18(c), with $c = -1$ and then $c = 1$), of which n_1 are 0; so $\operatorname{rank}(I_n - A) = n - n_1$ (Theorem 8.4).
- Hence $\operatorname{rank} A + \operatorname{rank}(I_n - A) = n + (n - n_0 - n_1)$, which is n if and only if $n_0 + n_1 = n$, that is, every eigenvalue of A is 0 or 1.
- This holds if and only if A is idempotent: by Theorem 8.13(a) if A is idempotent, and by Theorem 8.13(b) conversely.

Problem 8.3. Find the matrix of the quadratic form $\sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n (x_i - x_j)^2$ on $\mathbb{R}^n$, and its eigenvalues and eigenvectors.

Solution.

$$\sum_{i,j}(x_i - x_j)^2 = \sum_{i,j}(x_i^2 + x_j^2 - 2x_ix_j) = 2n\sum_i x_i^2 - 2\Big(\sum_i x_i\Big)^2$$
$$= 2n\,x'x - 2(\mathbf{1}'x)^2 = 2n\,x'\Big(I_n - \tfrac{1}{n}\mathbf{1}\mathbf{1}'\Big)x = 2n\,x'C_nx$$

So the matrix of the form is the symmetric matrix $2nC_n$ (Proposition 8.18). C_n has the eigenvalues 1 ($n-1$ times) and 0 (once) (Example 8.16(a)), so $2nC_n$ has the eigenvalues (Proposition 7.18(c)) $2n$ ($n-1$ times), with eigenvectors the nonzero vectors orthogonal to $\mathbf{1}$, and 0 (once), with eigenvector $\mathbf{1}$. By Example 1.16, the form equals $2n\sum_i (x_i - \bar{x})^2$.

Problem 8.4. Show by examples that the leading principal minors of a symmetric matrix can all be $\geqslant 0$ although the matrix is not PSD: for a 2×2 matrix, and, for every $n \geqslant 3$, for a nonsingular $n \times n$ matrix.

Solution.

- $\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ has the leading minors 0, 0, but its diagonal entry -1 is negative, so it is not PSD (Theorem 8.30).
- Let
$$A_* = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & -1 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$
Its leading minors are 0, $\det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 0$ and, along row 1, $\det A_* = 1 \cdot \det\left(\begin{smallmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = 1$. So A_* is nonsingular, but not PSD, as $a_{22} = -1 < 0$.
- For $n \geqslant 4$ let $A = \operatorname{diag}(A_*, I_{n-3})$. Its first three leading minors are those of A_*, and for $k \geqslant 4$, $A_k = \operatorname{diag}(A_*, I_{k-3})$ has determinant $\det A_* = 1$ (Theorem 5.29). So A is nonsingular, with leading minors $\geqslant 0$, and not PSD, as $a_{22} = -1$.

Problem 8.5. Let $A = (a_{ij}) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Use Hadamard's inequality (Theorem 8.32) to show that

$$(\det A)^2 \leqslant \prod_{i=1}^{n}\Big(\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}^2\Big)$$

Solution.

- If $\det A = 0$, the inequality holds, as the right side is a product of sums of squares, hence $\geqslant 0$.
- Let $\det A \neq 0$. Then $\operatorname{rank} A = n$ (Theorem 5.18(a)), so AA' is PD (Theorem 8.25), with $\det(AA') = \det A \cdot \det A' = (\det A)^2$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.22).
- The ith diagonal entry of AA' is $\operatorname{row}_i(A)\operatorname{row}_i(A)' = \sum_j a_{ij}^2$ (Theorem 1.4(d)). By Theorem 8.32,

$$(\det A)^2 = \det(AA') \leqslant \prod_{i=1}^{n}(AA')_{ii} = \prod_{i=1}^{n}\Big(\sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij}^2\Big)$$

Problem 8.6. Let $V \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PD with $V = P'P$ for some $P \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, and let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric. Show that

(a) P is invertible;

(b) PAP' is idempotent if and only if AV is idempotent;

(c) if AV is idempotent, then $\operatorname{rank}(PAP') = \operatorname{tr}(AV)$.

Solution. (a) $\det V = \det P' \det P = (\det P)^2$ (Theorems 5.18(b) and 5.22), and $\det V \neq 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)); so $\det P \neq 0$, and P is invertible (Theorem 5.18(a)).

(b)

- If AV is idempotent, then $(AP'P)(AP'P) = AP'P$; multiplying on the right by $(P'P)^{-1} = V^{-1}$ gives $AP'PA = A$, and then $(PAP')(PAP') = P(AP'PA)P' = PAP'$.
- If PAP' is idempotent, then $P(AP'PA)P' = PAP'$; multiplying on the left by P^{-1} and on the right by $(P')^{-1}$ gives $AP'PA = A$, that is, $AVA = A$, and multiplying on the right by V gives $AVAV = AV$.

(c) By (b), PAP' is idempotent, so $\operatorname{rank}(PAP') = \operatorname{tr}(PAP') = \operatorname{tr}(AP'P) = \operatorname{tr}(AV)$ (Theorems 6.29(c) and 1.11(b)).

Problem 8.7. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD. Show that $\operatorname{tr}(AB) \geqslant 0$, with equality if and only if $AB = 0$.

Solution. If $B = 0$, then $\operatorname{tr}(AB) = 0$ and $AB = 0$. Let $B \neq 0$ and $r = \operatorname{rank} B \geqslant 1$.

- By Theorem 8.26(a), $B = Q'Q$ for some $Q \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times n}$ of rank r. Then $\operatorname{tr}(AB) = \operatorname{tr}(AQ'Q) = \operatorname{tr}(QAQ')$ (Theorem 1.11(b)).
- $M = QAQ' \in \mathbb{R}^{r\times r}$ is PSD (Theorem 8.24(a), with Q' in place of P), so its diagonal entries m_{ii} are $\geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.30) and $\operatorname{tr} M = m_{11} + \cdots + m_{rr} \geqslant 0$. If $\operatorname{tr} M = 0$, then every $m_{ii} = 0$, so every row of M is zero (Theorem 8.30): $M = 0$. Hence $\operatorname{tr}(AB) \geqslant 0$, with equality if and only if $QAQ' = 0$.
- $QAQ' = 0$ if and only if $BAB = 0$. Indeed $BAB = Q'(QAQ')Q$. Conversely, Q has a right inverse K, $QK = I_r$ (Theorem 4.35(a)), so $K'Q' = I_r$ (Theorem 1.9), and if $BAB = 0$, then $QAQ' = K'Q'(QAQ')QK = K'(BAB)K = 0$.
- $BAB = 0$ if and only if $AB = 0$. If $AB = 0$, then $BAB = 0$. Conversely, let $BAB = 0$. By Theorem 8.26(b), $A = P'P$ for some matrix P with n columns, and, as $B' = B$, $0 = BAB = (PB)'(PB)$. So $\operatorname{tr}\Big((PB)'(PB)\Big) = 0$, and $PB = 0$ (Theorem 1.11(d)); hence $AB = P'(PB) = 0$.

So $\operatorname{tr}(AB) = 0$ if and only if $QAQ' = 0$, if and only if $BAB = 0$, if and only if $AB = 0$.

Problem 8.8. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD. Show that $(x'Ay)^2 \leqslant (x'Ax)(y'Ay)$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{R}^n$.

Solution. Let $z = A^{1/2}x$ and $w = A^{1/2}y$ (Theorem 8.46). As $A^{1/2}$ is symmetric and $A^{1/2}A^{1/2} = A$, $z'w = x'Ay$, $z'z = x'Ax$ and $w'w = y'Ay$. By the Cauchy–Schwarz inequality (Theorem 6.4(a)), $(x'Ay)^2 = (z'w)^2 \leqslant (z'z)(w'w) = (x'Ax)(y'Ay)$.

Problem 8.9. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times p}$ have rank p, and let $A = QR$ as in Theorem 6.16. Show that $A'A = R'R$, and that R is the Cholesky factor of $A'A$.

Solution. $Q'Q = I_p$, so $A'A = R'Q'QR = R'R$. The matrix $A'A$ is PD (Theorem 8.25), and R is upper triangular with positive diagonal entries (Theorem 6.16); by the uniqueness in Theorem 8.40, R is the Cholesky factor of $A'A$.

Problem 8.10. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD, and let $A - B$ be PSD. Show that $\operatorname{rank} A \geqslant \operatorname{rank} B$.

Solution. It suffices to show $\mathcal{N}(A) \subseteq \mathcal{N}(B)$: then $\dim \mathcal{N}(A) \leqslant \dim \mathcal{N}(B)$ (Theorem 4.5(a)), and $\operatorname{rank} A = n - \dim \mathcal{N}(A) \geqslant n - \dim \mathcal{N}(B) = \operatorname{rank} B$ (Theorem 4.12).

- Let $x \in \mathcal{N}(A)$. Then $x'Ax = 0$, and $x'(A - B)x \geqslant 0$ gives $x'Bx \leqslant 0$; as B is PSD, $x'Bx = 0$.
- By Corollary 8.27, $Bx = 0$: $x \in \mathcal{N}(B)$.

Problem 8.11. Show that for symmetric matrices A and B, $A \succcurlyeq B \succcurlyeq 0$ does not imply $A^2 \succcurlyeq B^2$.

Solution. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix}, \qquad B = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

- $A - B = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 1 & 1 \end{smallmatrix}\right) = \mathbf{1}_2\mathbf{1}_2'$ and $B = e_1e_1'$ are PSD (Theorem 8.25), so $A \succcurlyeq B \succcurlyeq 0$.
- $A^2 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 5 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$ and $B^2 = B$, so $A^2 - B^2 = \left(\begin{smallmatrix} 4 & 3 \\ 3 & 2 \end{smallmatrix}\right)$, with $\det(A^2 - B^2) = 8 - 9 = -1 < 0$. A PSD matrix has a determinant $\geqslant 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)), so $A^2 - B^2$ is not PSD: $A^2 \succcurlyeq B^2$ fails. For instance $x = (2, -3)'$ gives $x'(A^2 - B^2)x = 16 - 36 + 18 = -2$.

Problem 8.12. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times k}$ with $A'B = I_k$. Show that $A'A \succcurlyeq (B'B)^{-1}$ and $B'B \succcurlyeq (A'A)^{-1}$.

Solution.

- $k = \operatorname{rank} I_k = \operatorname{rank}(A'B) \leqslant \operatorname{rank} B \leqslant k$ (Theorems 4.15(a) and 4.13(a)), so B has full column rank and $B'B$ is invertible (Theorem 6.26); likewise for A.
- $M = I_n - B(B'B)^{-1}B'$ is symmetric and idempotent (Theorem 6.26(b)), hence PSD (Proposition 8.23(d)), and $A'MA$ is PSD (Theorem 8.24(a)).
- $B'A = (A'B)' = I_k$, so $A'MA = A'A - A'B(B'B)^{-1}B'A = A'A - (B'B)^{-1}$: $A'A \succcurlyeq (B'B)^{-1}$.
- As $B'A = I_k$, the same argument with A and B exchanged, with $I_n - A(A'A)^{-1}A'$, gives $B'B \succcurlyeq (A'A)^{-1}$.

Problem 8.13. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric and idempotent. Show that $A \succcurlyeq B$ if and only if $AB = B$.

Solution.

- Let $AB = B$. Then $BA = B'A' = (AB)' = B' = B$, and $(A-B)^2 = A^2 - AB - BA + B^2 = A - B - B + B = A - B$. So $A - B$ is symmetric and idempotent; its eigenvalues are 0 and 1 (Theorem 8.13(a)), so it is PSD (Theorem 8.21(a)): $A \succcurlyeq B$.
- Conversely, let $A \succcurlyeq B$, and let $C = (I_n - A)B$. Then $C'C \succcurlyeq 0$ (Theorem 8.25).
- $I_n - A$ is symmetric and idempotent, so $C'C = B(I_n - A)^2B = B(I_n - A)B = B^2 - BAB = -B(A-B)B$, as $B^2 = B = B^3$; and $B(A-B)B = B'(A-B)B$ is PSD (Theorem 8.24(a)). So $0 \succcurlyeq C'C$.
- Hence $C'C = 0$ (Proposition 8.50(a)), so $\operatorname{tr}(C'C) = 0$ and $C = 0$ (Theorem 1.11(d)): $B = AB$.

Problem 8.14. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric and $B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ PD. Show that $A - B$ is PSD if and only if the n roots of $\det(A - \lambda B) = 0$, listed with multiplicity, are all $\geqslant 1$, and PD if and only if they are all > 1.

Solution.

- By Theorem 8.57(a),(b), applied to the PD matrix B and the symmetric matrix A, there is an invertible E with $E'BE = I_n$ and $E'AE = D = \operatorname{diag}(d_1, \dots, d_n)$, and $\det(A - \lambda B) = \det B \cdot (d_1 - \lambda) \cdots (d_n - \lambda)$: the roots are $d_1, \dots, d_n$.
- So $E'(A-B)E = D - I_n = \operatorname{diag}(d_1 - 1, \dots, d_n - 1)$.
- By Theorem 8.24(c), $A - B$ is PSD (PD) if and only if $D - I_n$ is, that is (Proposition 8.23(a)), if and only if every $d_i \geqslant 1$ ($d_i > 1$).

Problem 8.15. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be symmetric, $A \neq 0$. Show that

$$\operatorname{rank} A \geqslant \frac{(\operatorname{tr} A)^2}{\operatorname{tr}(A^2)}$$

Solution. Let $A = Q\Lambda Q'$, with Q orthogonal and $\Lambda = \operatorname{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n)$, where $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ are the eigenvalues of A (Theorem 8.3).

- Let $S = \{i : \lambda_i \neq 0\}$, and let r be the number of its elements. Then $r = \operatorname{rank} A$ (Theorem 8.4), and $r \geqslant 1$, as $A \neq 0$.
- $\operatorname{tr} A = \lambda_1 + \cdots + \lambda_n = \sum_{i\in S} \lambda_i$ (Theorem 7.19).
- $A^2 = Q\Lambda Q'Q\Lambda Q' = Q\Lambda^2 Q'$, so $\operatorname{tr}(A^2) = \operatorname{tr}(\Lambda^2 Q'Q) = \operatorname{tr}(\Lambda^2) = \sum_i \lambda_i^2 = \sum_{i\in S} \lambda_i^2$ (Theorem 1.11(b), Proposition 1.19(d)). Also $\operatorname{tr}(A^2) = \operatorname{tr}(A'A) > 0$, as $A \neq 0$ (Theorem 1.11(d)).
- Let $\mu \in \mathbb{R}^r$ have the entries λ_i, $i \in S$. By the Cauchy–Schwarz inequality (Theorem 6.4(a)) for $\mathbf{1}_r$ and μ,

$$(\operatorname{tr} A)^2 = (\mathbf{1}_r'\mu)^2 \leqslant (\mathbf{1}_r'\mathbf{1}_r)(\mu'\mu) = r\sum_{i\in S} \lambda_i^2 = \operatorname{rank} A \cdot \operatorname{tr}(A^2)$$

Dividing by $\operatorname{tr}(A^2) > 0$ gives the inequality.

Problem 8.16. Let $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PD and $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$. Show that

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 0 & x' \\ x & A \end{pmatrix} \leqslant 0$$

Solution. Let M be the $(n+1)\times(n+1)$ matrix in question, partitioned into the blocks $0 \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times 1}$, $x' \in \mathbb{R}^{1\times n}$, $x \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times 1}$ and $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$.

- A is invertible and $\det A > 0$ (Theorem 8.21(c)). By Theorem 5.30(b), with A as the invertible lower right block,
$$\det M = \det A \cdot \det\bigl(0 - x'A^{-1}x\bigr) = -\det A \cdot x'A^{-1}x$$
as the determinant of a 1×1 matrix is its entry (Definition 5.13).
- A^{-1} is PD (Proposition 8.23(c)), so $x'A^{-1}x \geqslant 0$, with equality only for $x = 0$. Hence $\det M \leqslant 0$, with equality only for $x = 0$.

Problem 8.17. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ be PSD. Show that $|\operatorname{tr}(AB)| \leqslant \operatorname{tr} A \cdot \operatorname{tr} B$.

Solution. Let $N = A^{1/2}$ and $K = B^{1/2}$ (Theorem 8.46); they are symmetric, with $N^2 = A$ and $K^2 = B$. Let $G = NK$.

- By Theorem 1.11(b), applied to the factors NNK and K, and by Theorem 1.9,
$$\operatorname{tr}(AB) = \operatorname{tr}(NNKK) = \operatorname{tr}(KNNK) = \operatorname{tr}\bigl((NK)'(NK)\bigr) = \operatorname{tr}(G'G) = \sum_{i=1}^{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n} g_{ij}^2$$
(Theorem 1.11(d)). In particular $\operatorname{tr}(AB) \geqslant 0$, so $|\operatorname{tr}(AB)| = \operatorname{tr}(AB)$.
- Let $u_i' = \operatorname{row}_i(N)$ and $v_j = \operatorname{col}_j(K)$. Then $g_{ij} = u_i'v_j$ (Theorem 1.4(d)), and $g_{ij}^2 \leqslant \|u_i\|^2\|v_j\|^2$ (Theorem 6.4(a)).
- $\sum_i \|u_i\|^2$ is the sum of the squares of all entries of N, which is $\operatorname{tr}(N'N) = \operatorname{tr}(N^2) = \operatorname{tr} A$; likewise $\sum_j \|v_j\|^2 = \operatorname{tr}(K'K) = \operatorname{tr}(K^2) = \operatorname{tr} B$ (Theorem 1.11(d)).
- Hence
$$\operatorname{tr}(AB) = \sum_{i,j} g_{ij}^2 \leqslant \sum_{i,j}\|u_i\|^2\|v_j\|^2 = \Bigl(\sum_i \|u_i\|^2\Bigr)\Bigl(\sum_j \|v_j\|^2\Bigr) = \operatorname{tr} A \cdot \operatorname{tr} B$$

Problem 8.18. Let $A, B \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$, $n \geqslant 2$, with A PD and B PSD. Show that $\det(A+B) \geqslant \det A + \det B$, with equality only for $B = 0$.

Solution.

- By Theorem 8.57(a), there is an invertible $E \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$ with $E'AE = I_n$ and $E'BE = M = \operatorname{diag}(\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_n)$. M is PSD (Theorem 8.24(a)), so every $\mu_i \geqslant 0$ (Proposition 8.23(a)).
- Let $\delta = (\det E)^2$, which is > 0 (Theorem 5.18(a)). As $E'(A+B)E = I_n + M = \operatorname{diag}(1+\mu_1, \ldots, 1+\mu_n)$, Theorems 5.18(b), 5.22 and 5.14(c) give
$$\delta \det A = 1, \qquad \delta \det(A+B) = (1+\mu_1)\cdots(1+\mu_n), \qquad \delta \det B = \mu_1 \cdots \mu_n$$
- For $k \geqslant 2$ and numbers $\mu_1, \ldots, \mu_k \geqslant 0$,
$$(1+\mu_1)\cdots(1+\mu_k) \geqslant 1 + (\mu_1 + \cdots + \mu_k) + \mu_1 \cdots \mu_k$$
by induction on k. For $k = 2$ both sides are $1+\mu_1+\mu_2+\mu_1\mu_2$. If it holds for k, let $s = \mu_1 + \cdots + \mu_k$ and $\pi = \mu_1 \cdots \mu_k$; multiplying by $1 + \mu_{k+1} > 0$,
$$(1+\mu_1)\cdots(1+\mu_{k+1}) \geqslant (1+s+\pi)(1+\mu_{k+1}) = 1 + (s+\mu_{k+1}) + \pi\mu_{k+1} + \pi + s\mu_{k+1}$$
which is $\geqslant 1 + (s+\mu_{k+1}) + \pi\mu_{k+1}$, as $\pi \geqslant 0$ and $s\mu_{k+1} \geqslant 0$.

- With $k = n \geqslant 2$ and the three equations above,

$$\delta \det(A + B) \geqslant 1 + (\mu_1 + \cdots + \mu_n) + \delta \det B \geqslant \delta \det A + \delta \det B$$

  as $\delta \det A = 1$ and every $\mu_i \geqslant 0$; dividing by $\delta > 0$ gives $\det(A + B) \geqslant \det A + \det B$.

- If equality holds, then $1+\delta \det B = \delta \det(A+B) \geqslant 1+(\mu_1+\cdots+\mu_n)+\delta \det B$, so $\mu_1+\cdots+\mu_n \leqslant 0$; as every $\mu_i \geqslant 0$, every $\mu_i = 0$. So $M = 0$, and $B = (E')^{-1}ME^{-1} = 0$ (Theorem 2.13(c)). Conversely, if $B = 0$, then $\det(A + B) = \det A = \det A + \det B$, as $\det 0 = 0$ (Theorem 5.14(b)).